

A Companion to Joachim of Fiore

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A Companion to Joachim of Fiore

Edited by

Matthias Riedl



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Introduction: Joachim of Fiore in the History of Western Culture

Bernard McGinn

Cleanse the eyes of your mind from the dust of the earth; leave behind raging crowds and clashing words! In the Spirit follow the angel into the desert; with him ascend the mountain vast and high so that you can see the deep counsels hidden from days of old and from endless generations.¹



Across more than eight centuries these words of Joachim of Fiore address us with a power and insistence that few who lived so long ago still possess. The mystery of the attraction that the Calabrian abbot has had over the centuries is not easy to unlock or explain, but surely a large part of the “fascination of Joachim” rests in how he sought to give meaning and hope to those caught in what one of the abbot’s 20th-century readers, Mircea Eliade, called “the terror of history.”² Joachim himself would have framed the anguish and hope of human existence in a believer’s terms. Two texts from the Apocalypse of John, the book he studied so carefully, help us understand his version of the “terror of history.” In Chapter 6, the souls of the martyrs John sees beneath the altar cry out in a loud voice: “How long will it be, holy and true master, before you sit in judgment and avenge our blood on the inhabitants of the earth?” (Apoc. 6: 10). The answer is given in Chapter 21 when the seer witnesses the descent of the heavenly Jerusalem to earth “prepared as a Bride for her husband.” The old order has passed away and the one who sits upon the throne announces, “Behold I make all things new ... Write these words down, for they are trustworthy and true ... They are accomplished. I am the Alpha and the Omega. The Beginning and the End” (Apoc. 21: 5–6).

1 E. Randolph Daniel, (ed.), *Abbot Joachim of Fiore: Liber de Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti* 2.1.1, (Transactions of the American Philosophical Society) 73, Part 8 (Philadelphia, 1983), 52.

2 Mircea Eliade, *Cosmos and History: The Myth of the Eternal Return* (New York, 1959), Ch. 4, 141–162, which discusses Joachim on 144–45.

Since the beginning, Christian existence has been lived out in the tension between “how long will it be?”; that is, how long will the present injustice, suffering, and uncertainty last, on the one hand, and, on the other, the conviction that a final victory of justice will come when the returning Savior “will wipe away every tear from their eyes, and there shall be no more death and mourning, wailing or pain” (Apoc. 21: 4). Each generation has wrestled with the paradox of the coexistence of fear and trembling with trust and confidence. Most believers have been content to deal with the problem of evil, the fact of suffering, the threat of meaninglessness, and the hope for final deliverance on a day-to-day basis. A few thinkers of genius have sought to go further, endeavoring to understand the meaning of the course of event—past, present, and to come. This is the realm of the theology of history.

In the history of Christian thought, Joachim of Fiore emerges as one of a handful of great theologians of history, who sought to provide a general account of the whole temporal process on the basis of the biblical message. Joachim’s revised apocalyptic theology of history stands alongside the optimistic political theology of Eusebius of Caesarea and the pessimistic internalized theology of Augustine as one of three contrasting master models for Christian views of history.³

The theologies of Eusebius and Augustine were created during the century from about 315 to 425 AD that saw dramatic shifts in the ancient world, first the conversion of the Roman Empire to Christianity and then the faltering of the Christian Empire in the face of the barbarian invasions and its own internal weaknesses. Eusebius’ reflections on the conversion of Rome produced a view of history based on the conviction that God’s providential care for humanity had been made manifest in the triumph of the Christian Church and in the alliance between the Church and the political power of Rome, the universal state that had been prepared by God precisely for this purpose. Eusebius found confirmation for this view not only in the Old Testament picture of the Kingdom of Israel as God’s special realm on earth, but also in the messianic prophecies interpreted as predictions of the glorious reign of Constantine. He also adapted significant aspects of classical views of the study of history and political theology into his version of Christian providentialism.⁴

Since the late 2nd century, Christians had been using the chronologies created by the Greeks and Romans to create parallels between secular history

3 For more on this subject, see Bernard McGinn, *The Calabrian Abbot: Joachim of Fiore in the History of Western Thought* (New York: 1986), Ch. 1, 51–97.

4 On Eusebius’s theology of history, see Glenn F. Chestnut, *The First Christian Histories: Eusebius, Socrates, Sozomen, Theodoret, and Evagrius* (Macon: 1986), especially Ch. 6, 65–95.

and the events depicted in the Bible, enabling them to locate the history of the ancient Near East, Greece, and Rome within the view of history revealed in scripture. Eusebius' *Chronica*, the most ambitious of these efforts, was translated into Latin by Jerome and set the framework for later Christian universal histories for centuries. Eusebius also adopted the research techniques of Roman historians to tell the story of the development of Christianity in his pioneering *Historia ecclesiastica*. Furthermore, the bishop's identification of the destinies of the Church and Rome can be seen as a Christianized version of the political theology of the ancient city, Greek and Roman, that refused to distinguish between the religious and political domains. The Church and the empire were, as he once put it, "two great powers sprung fully up, as it were, out of one stream."⁵

Eusebius did not give much attention to the text in Matthew where Jesus told his disciples "Render to Caesar the things that are Caesar's and to God the things that are God's" (Mt. 22: 21). Nor have his followers over the centuries. The bishop's understanding of history has been at the root of subsequent Christian theocratic views of history, whether of the imperial or the papal variety. Indeed, vestiges of Eusebian optimistic providentialism are alive and well among Christian fundamentalist preachers and politicians in the United States, in attenuated, if still powerful, ways. In his early writings, Augustine of Hippo echoed a vague form of the optimistic providentialism of Eusebius. But the bishop's profound thinking through of the problem of temporality and human destiny in the *Confessions* set the ground for a new theology of history that he worked out in his massive *City of God*, written in part to counter pagan arguments that Christian providentialism had failed and that the Christian God had not prevented Rome from being sacked by Alaric and his Goths in 410 AD.⁶ Augustine's theology of history is pessimistic, secularized, and internalized: three characteristics that directly contrast his work from that of Eusebius. Augustine's views were pessimistic in the sense that his doctrine of original sin convinced him that hopes for any better situation in the realm of external events were illusory. The history of this world and its kingdoms since the time of Adam was and always will remain a tragedy. Like other Church Fathers, Augustine believed that God's providence was at work in history, but he insisted that providence's operations were hidden. Hence, in the *City of God* he secularized world history, removing its aura of sacrality by seeing the rise and

5 Eusebius, *De laude Constantini* 2, trans. Samuel Lee, D.D. (Cambridge: 1843), 156.

6 Among the many works that have been written on Augustine's theology of history, see especially the classic study of R.A. Markus, *Saeculum: History and Society in the Theology of St. Augustine* (Cambridge: 1970).

fall of empires, even Rome, as ambivalent, even irrelevant, to God's purpose. That purpose was the building up of the invisible City of God composed of the elect of every age—a community whose membership would only become fully evident at the end of time. Even the Church itself was partly secularized for Augustine. His long struggle with the Donatists had shown him that while the Church was the necessary instrument of salvation in the course of the last age inaugurated by Christ, as long as the Church (*ecclesia*) remained on earth it would be a mixed body (*corpus permixtum*), a mixed body of the wheat of the elect and the weeds of those who were not predestined to salvation.

This remarkable new view of the role of history, empire, and Church was based on the way Augustine had internalized the significance of temporal existence through his meditations on time and love in the *Confessions*. Especially important was the bishop's exploration of the nature of love, the inner force that moves both individuals and the whole historical process. In Book 13 Augustine observes that the account of creation in Genesis speaks of the Holy Spirit moving over the waters (Gen. 1: 2), a text he interprets allegorically by invoking Paul's description of the Spirit being poured out, or moving into our hearts (Rom. 5: 5). He interprets this to mean that the nature and value of each individual's extension through time is based upon the love out of which he or she lives, either the charity (*caritas*) that is the Holy Spirit, or the sinful lust (*cupiditas*) of fallen humanity (*Confessions* 13.4–7). Later, in the *City of God*, he extends this insight: "Therefore, two loves made two cities; the earthly city made by the love of self even unto contempt of God; and the heavenly city made by the love of God even unto contempt of self" (*De civitate Dei* 14.28).

Neither Eusebius nor Augustine had much use for the apocalyptic dimension of Christianity, that is, the belief that God had revealed the imminent end of the ongoing struggle between good and evil throughout history, and that this message made it necessary for the Church to live in the light of the end of the age. To be sure, both bishops believed that the standard account of the last events compiled from diverse texts in the Gospels, Paul's Epistles, and John's Apocalypse, as well as some Old Testament passages, would actually take place at the end of time. But neither of them saw these events as proximate, nor did they use a sense of apocalyptic urgency to strengthen current commitments or to encourage particular courses of action. Both Eusebius and Augustine translated biblical apocalyptic symbols into their own discourse about history. Eusebius read the Old Testament messianic prophecies as predictions of the Constantinian empire, while Augustine interpreted John's Apocalypse as a message about the ongoing struggle of good and evil in the Church, which he identified as the millennial kingdom promised in Apocalypse 20. Above all, Augustine combated any attempt to use scripture to interpret current events as signs of the times

pointing to the end, citing scriptural warnings against apocalyptic curiosity: "It is not for you to know the times or seasons that the Father has established by his own authority," as Jesus said to the disciples at his Ascension (Acts 1: 7).

The theologies of history constructed by Eusebius and Augustine, often a mixed body despite their differing premises, dominated the seven centuries before Joachim. The 12th century, however, saw a burst of new interest in the meaning of history, especially the role of the Church in what was held to be the sixth and final age. This renewed investigation was doubtless related to the dramatic changes introduced by the reform of the papacy and the ways in which it challenged traditional understandings of Christian society. Other aspects of the vibrant culture of 12th-century Europe, such as the crusades, the rise of heresy, and the renewal of theology, also contributed to a situation that called out for explanation and understanding. Many thinkers took up the challenge—Rupert of Deutz, Hugh of Saint Victor, Anselm of Havelberg, Hildegard of Bingen, Otto of Freising, and Gerhoh of Reichersberg, to name the most famous. By and large, Joachim of Fiore worked independently from these contemporaries.

To summarize briefly the abbot Joachim's complex and controversial thought is impossible. Let me instead point to three aspects of his theology of history that highlight his originality, help explain his influence on the history of European culture, and suggest his actuality today.

The first aspect is the Trinitarian nature of history. The fundamental insight from which Joachim proceeded was that the course of history forms an image of its creator, and that because the creator is a three-personed God, the meaning of history is Trinitarian through and through for those who have the eyes to see. Early in his *Expositio in Apocalypsim* he outlines the Trinitarian structure of history as follows:

The first of the three *status* of which we speak was in the time of the Law when the people of the Lord served like a little child for a time under the elements of the world. They were not yet able to attain the freedom of the Spirit ... The second *status* was under the Gospel and remains until the present with freedom in comparison to the past but not with freedom in comparison to the future ... The third *status* will come toward the End of the world, no longer under the veil of the letter, but in the full freedom of the Spirit ... The first *status* is ascribed to the Father, the second to the Son, the third to the Holy Spirit ...⁷

7 Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, author's translation, fol. 5r–v.

At times the abbot's enthusiasm for the imminent age of the Spirit uses language that suggests that the second *status* is both inferior and expendable: "The first *status* was of servile bondage; the second of filial bondage; the third of liberty. The first was of punishments; the second of action; the third of contemplation."⁸ It is important to remember, however, that for all the stress on progress in history found in his language of the three *status*, Joachim did not abandon the traditional view that divided sacred history into the two great times of the Old and the New Testament. Another text in the *Expositio* makes this clear:

The Testaments are declared to be two not three. There is the letter of Moses' law and the letter of Christ's gospel from which proceeds the one spiritual understanding as a type, without doubt, of the one Spirit who proceeds from the Father and the Son. Accordingly, we acknowledge two times and two peoples,... the Jewish people and the Gentile people from whom proceeds the one Church of spiritual men.⁹

For Joachim the structure of history was both binary and ternary. The inter-related twofold and threefold nature of history was revealed in the divine self-description as Alpha and Omega (Apoc. 21: 6). Joachim's *Liber de concordia* says: "The first pattern is designated by Alpha, which is a triangular figure. The second is designated by Omega in which figure one rod [i.e., in the middle] proceeds from the joining of two. Both patterns must be grasped, because both are highly relevant to the Catholic faith."¹⁰ The Alpha figure designates the three *status* scheme of Father, Son, and Holy Spirit; the Omega shows how there are only two Testaments, the Old and the New, but there is a shared higher understanding of both. For Joachim, Christ's Gospel cannot be rejected or surpassed; but, like the Old Testament, it too will be better understood through the growth of the spiritual insight given by the Holy Spirit.

Both patterns of Joachim's theology have elements that are traditional and elements that are innovative, even potentially explosive. The Abbot of Fiore himself always expressed total loyalty to the Church of the second *status*, and felt no inherent conflict between what is now and what will soon come to pass. This is why the oft-repeated objection that Joachim's theology abandons Christ's centrality in history is at best only partially correct. For the Calabrian history is both Christocentric and Spirit-centered. The age of the Holy Spirit

⁸ Joachim of Fiore, *Liber de Concordia* 5.84 (Venice: 1519), fol. 112rb.

⁹ *Expositio*, author's translation, fol. 37va.

¹⁰ *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.11, (ed.) Daniel, 80.

does not replace the age of the Son, but completes it from within.¹¹ We must always remember that it was his followers, not Joachim himself, who realized the radical potential implied in his thought. The abbot would have been horrified at Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino's identification of Joachim's own works with the Eternal Gospel borne by the angel in Apocalypse 14: 6, a gospel that Gerardo said had superseded the New Testament.¹²

The intertwined binary and ternary Trinitarian structure of history represents what Joachim in an early work spoke of as the *vivens ordo rationis*, "a living order of reason" that God had implanted in his creation.¹³ This order of reason, however, is not accessible to the human mind on its own, but must be revealed by God. Indeed, it has already been revealed in the Bible. From beginning to end scripture discloses the mystery of the *trinitas in tempore*, the Trinity in time, but not all can discern the message. In order to grasp the Trinitarian meaning of history found in the Bible one needs to possess what Joachim called *intelligentia spiritualis*, that is, "spiritual insight, or understanding."

According to Western Christian theology, in the inner life of the Trinity one person, namely the Holy Spirit, proceeds from two, that is, the Father and the Son. Hence, in the course of history it is the action of the Spirit giving spiritual insight to humans that allows the Trinitarian nature of history to emerge. In a passage in his *Tractatus super quatuor Evangelia*, Joachim says: "The Divine Spirit proves he is the true God with many signs and miracles; nevertheless, the principle sign, to be admired beyond others, is that he shows that what seems to be written in the Two Testaments according to the simplicity of the letter, is really spiritual and mystical."¹⁴ Hence, Joachim's new theology of history is inseparable from a new form of exegesis, which forms the second major aspect of the abbot's contribution.

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- 11 See McGinn, *The Calabrian Abbot*, 137–38; and Marjorie Reeves, "Joachimist Christology and Progressive Revelation," in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III: Atti del 5° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (September 16–21, 1999), (ed.) Roberto Rusconi (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 13 (Rome, 2001), 315–26.
 - 12 Joachim always read the Eternal Gospel as the present Gospel spiritually understood; see McGinn, *The Calabrian Abbot*, 127–28.
 - 13 On the *vivens ordo rationis*, see Joachim de Fiore, *Dialogi de praescientia Dei et praedestinatione electorum*, (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 14 (Rome: 2001), 129; and the discussion in Bernard McGinn, "RATIO and VISIO: Reflections on Joachim's Place in Twelfth Century Theology," in *Gioacchino da Fiore*, (ed.) Rusconi, 27–46.
 - 14 *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia* 1.9, (ed.) Francesco Santi (Fonti per la storia dell'Italia medievale) 17 (Rome, 2002), 210.

This novel way of interpreting the Bible paradoxically combined a new literalism on the basis of which he worked out the concords, or parallels, between persons, events, and times in the Old and the New Testaments, along with an innovative spiritual reading that stressed continuing progress in the understanding of divine truth through time. The age of the Father, that is, the time of the Old Testament, had prepared the way for the age of the Son, the revelation of the New Testament, and the time of the present Church. Christ's resurrection marked the beginning of the growing spiritual understanding that was reaching its boiling point, Joachim believed, in his own time. The abbot saw the last years of the 12th century as the dawning of the Third Age, the era of the *ecclesia contemplantium* (the Church of contemplatives), when the mystical consciousness of God found in spiritual insight would be poured out fully and finally upon both Gentiles and converted Jews.

These linked aspects of Joachim's program, his Trinitarian theology of history and his new form of spiritual interpretation, were not only highly original but also difficult to expound. The abbot himself wrestled with how to present them in his lengthy biblical commentaries, often it must be admitted, with only partial success. Hence, Joachim cannot be fully appreciated apart from a third aspect of his thought: his imaginative genius for creating symbolic images. Joachim forged a new *imaginaire*, a world of imaginative forms that was to influence not just theologians and exegetes, but also philosophers, artists, writers, and poets. In many ways the true secret of the Abbot of Fiore's place in the history of culture is the way in which he created archetypal images that captured the imagination of so many in later history. Joachim the Trinitarian theologian and novel expositor of scripture cannot be separated from Joachim the imaginative genius—the poet (i.e., “maker”) of the symbols of the Third Age.

In contrast with the non-apocalyptic theologies of history created by Eusebius and Augustine, Joachim returned to the New Testament emphasis on the imminence of the end, at least the end of history as we currently experience it. In a letter addressed to “All the Faithful,” the abbot proclaims: “This [that is, the end of our era] will not take place in the days of your grandchildren, or in the old age of your children, but in your own days, few and evil. ‘This generation will not pass away until all these things have been accomplished’ [Matt. 24: 34].”¹⁵ The Calabrian was not only convinced that the end was near, but also that it was in some sense legible in scripture, and therefore predictable. The endless concords between the Old and New Testaments that Joachim labored

15 *Epistula universis fidelibus*, as translated in Bernard McGinn, *Apocalyptic Spirituality* (New York, 1979), 117.

over enabled him to show the providentially-determined meaning of events both past and present, and also to make general projections concerning what was soon to come to pass. Although he acquired a reputation as a prophet even in his own lifetime, the Calabrian abbot always denied that he was such—what he did claim was the grace of spiritual insight that enabled him to see the action of the Trinity in history as revealed in the biblical text.

Joachim's sense of past, present, and future history as legible marks a break with Augustine. But his conviction that the meaning of history is not to be found in external events, but rather within the soul, in the growth of contemplative insight cultivated especially in monasticism, is an equally strong disagreement with Eusebius. His differences from these two earlier theologians are evident in his return to a futuristic view of the millennial kingdom predicted in Apocalypse 20. Eusebius and Augustine had made the millennium a current reality, the one as the triumphant Christian empire, the other as the present Church both in its earthly ministrations and its heavenly reality where the saints enjoy the vision of God. For Joachim, however, the thousand-year rule of Christ and the saints is not the present, imperfect Church, but a superior earthly Church soon to be realized—the contemplative Church of the third *status*, a form of monasticized utopia.

Like most apocalyptic thinkers, Joachim's thought is a mixture of pessimism and optimism: pessimism about the problems and crises of his own time, but an essential optimism about the triumph of righteousness in the coming Third Age. The abbot saw the struggles of the second half of the 12th century as predicted in the Bible. The people of God were being tested in many ways; they were soon to face the most terrible trial of all—the persecution of the last and worst of the Antichrists of the second *status*. The abbot's vision of the three Trinitarian ages, with its intermingling of present storms and imminent sunshine, set him apart from the facile optimism of Eusebius' view of a realized providentialism and also from Augustine's pessimistic view of the downward trend of history until the heavenly triumph of the City of God. Joachim did, however, share Augustine's gloomy view of secular politics. The Christian Roman Empire has no integral role in his account. He treats many Christian rulers as manifestations of the Antichrist, no different from pagan and Muslim persecutors of the Church. For Joachim, the Church of the second *status* was not meant to be a political entity at all, a power collaborating with or contesting the actions of worldly rulers. God intended it to be the suffering servant—a witness to its coming transformation in the age of the Spirit.

Joachim's theology of history is set forth in the thousands of pages of his often obscure Latin writings. The abbot recognized, however, that the depth of his vision of the action of the Trinity in history was better revealed by images,

the illustrations he first put into the margins of his written works and subsequently elaborated into the complex figures (*figurae*) that were eventually collected into the *Book of Figures* (*Liber figurarum*). At least some of these images he claimed to have received directly from God. Referring to the figure of the ten-stringed psaltery that had first appeared to him one Pentecost Sunday at the Abbey of Casamari to remove his doubts about the Trinity, he says: "It is necessary for us ... according to our custom, to fashion a figure, so that by bringing the image of a ten-stringed psaltery before fleshly eyes ... the mind's spiritual eyes may be opened to understanding..."¹⁶ Joachim was a picture-thinker, a symbolist who realized the power of images to move the imagination and mind in ways that mere conceptual descriptions could not.

The power of the Abbot of Fiore's symbolic imagination, however, goes even further than the figures, important as they are. The apocalyptic mentality has always been deeply symbolic, expressing itself through strongly-realized images of good and evil that call out for visualization in the mind, if not on the page. We can see this in John's Apocalypse, which features a host of such riveting symbols, often in opposed duos: the seven-headed Beast versus the Rider on the White Horse; the Woman in Heaven versus the Great Whore of Babylon; the New Jerusalem versus "the great city that is spiritually called Sodom and Egypt" (Apoc. 11: 8).¹⁷ Even without illustrations, apocalyptic texts like Joachim's gain much of their power through their presentation of symbolic figures that in the mind's eye we imagine acting out their roles on the stage of history's final scenes. Joachim's creation of new figures for the apocalyptic scenario, such as the two orders of *virī spirituales*, the spiritual men of the end of the second *status*, and the "new leader [who] will ascend from Babylon, namely a universal pontiff of the New Jerusalem,"¹⁸ are good examples of the originality of his symbolism. The most potent manifestation of his symbolic genius, however, is the master symbol of the Third Age.

Thus far we have considered Joachim's place in Western culture retrospectively, that is by comparing his theology of history with his predecessors Eusebius and Augustine. But what about the abbot's effect on the history and culture of Europe in the eight centuries since his death in the high Sila?

16 Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium decem chordarum* (Venice, 1527; repr. Frankfurt am Main, 1965), fol. 269rb. Joachim often stresses the role of figures as necessary teaching devices; see *Psalterium*, fols. 230vb, 234va, and 237r; *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.35, (ed.) Daniel, 145–46, 160; *Expositio*, author's translation, fol. 38rb.

17 D.H. Lawrence was the first to sense the deeply symbolic appeal of John's text in his 1931 posthumous book *Apocalypse*.

18 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.45, (ed.) Daniel, 402.

Building on the work of scholars such as Herbert Grundmann, Raoul Manselli, and Marjorie Reeves beginning in the 1920s and 1930s,¹⁹ research that in recent decades has been enriched through the conferences and publications sponsored by the Centro Internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti,²⁰ we now have a large body of information about Joachim's impact both in Europe and in the New World. This mass of knowledge, however, still leaves us unsure about how to evaluate the role of the Calabrian visionary. More precisely, it is still difficult to know whether to claim too much or too little for Joachim.²¹

In the 20th century, those who claimed too much for Joachim have tended to see him as a dangerous and disruptive figure. Examples of these maximalist views include the philosopher and political scientist Eric Voegelin, for whom Joachim was responsible for the creation of the "Gnostic spirit" that rules modern politics,²² and the Catholic theologian Henri de Lubac, who saw the abbot as the initiator of all modern tripartite conceptions of history that challenged orthodoxy's view of salvation history as centered on Christ.²³ Other students of Joachim have rightly protested against these sweeping generalizations that neglect Joachim's own subtle presentations and that seem to confuse all three-stage theories of history with Joachim's distinctive Trinitarian views.

Recent research has also clarified some of the reasons why it is so difficult to evaluate the true impact of the Calabrian. Despite Joachim's fame, it appears that the abbot's texts were rarely read in a careful fashion. His thought was often communicated through garbled summaries and reports, or the revisions, adaptations, and misunderstandings found in the many pseudonymous

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- 19 The single most important work on Joachim's influence remains that of Marjorie Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy in the Later Middle Ages: A Study of Joachimism* (Oxford, 1969; reissued with additions Notre Dame, IN, 1993).
 - 20 The most important volumes on the influence of Joachim published by the Centro Internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti are: *Il profetismo gioachimita tra Quattrocento e Cinquecento: Atti del III Congresso Internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti* (September 17–21, 1989), (ed.) Gian-Luca Potestà (Genoa, 1991); *Storia e figure dell'Apocalisse fra '500 e '600: Atti del 4° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (September 14–17, 1994), (ed.) Roberto Rusconi (Roma, 1996); and *Gioacchino da Fiore nella cultura contemporanea. Atti del 6o Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (September 23–25, 2004), (ed.) Gian-Luca Potestà (Rome, 2005).
 - 21 For more on this issue, see Bernard McGinn, "Influence and Importance in Evaluating Joachim of Fiore," in *Il profetismo gioachimita tra Quattrocento e Cinquecento*, (ed.) Potestà, 15–36.
 - 22 Eric Voegelin, *The New Science of Politics* (Chicago, 1952), Chs. 2–3, 52–106. Voegelin's later writings mute this picture of the abbot's influence.
 - 23 Henri de Lubac, *La postérité spirituelle de Joachim de Flore*, 2 vols. (Paris, 1979–81).

writings ascribed to him, such as the widely-read *Commentarium super Hieremiam*. A second issue is the growth of the legend of Joachim. The abbot is one of those figures whose aura of mystery naturally attracted stories and legends, hints of esoteric mysteries, and secrets known only to the initiated. The condemnation of some of Joachim's views at the Fourth Lateran Council and the ongoing debate over, if not the orthodoxy, at least the adequacy, of his theology of history—still a living issue—have made his reputation ambiguous. For some, this hint of danger and suspicion makes him an attractive figure; for others, it means that even when he is being used it may be better not to mention him. Finally, if I am correct in seeing Joachim's power to create symbols as a key to his fascination, this also helps explain how his influence has been hard to pin down. Symbols are more immediate and gripping to the human imagination and more efficacious as motivations to action than conceptual analysis and explanation. But in its concreteness and inclusiveness of multiple possible meanings, the symbol is also more ambiguous and open to various, even opposed, interpretations than is the concept. Joachim sought to explain his symbolic figures with care. But with regard to his greatest symbol, the image of the coming Third Age, attractiveness and ambiguity are fully and we might say fatefully matched. While it is not correct to hold Joachim accountable for all later thinkers who have appealed to a coming Third Age, especially because they have often filled their symbolism with content quite different from his, the fact that it was Joachim who first gave this symbol a central role in Western thought highlights the difficulty of assessing his importance.

In light of these problems in evaluating Joachim's influence, it is hard to weave a fully formed tapestry or picture to summarize the Calabrian's role in Western culture. But even if we cannot sketch a complete picture of the abbot's influence, it may be still possible to examine a few of the threads that would need to be woven into such a presentation. To that end, I would like to take a brief look at a few of the many figures who have been inspired by the Abbot of Fiore, directly and indirectly, sympathetically and antagonistically, up to the present day.

Perhaps the only account we have of someone actually reading Joachim (whether it really happened or is only "ben trovato") deals with an early and hostile reader, Thomas Aquinas.²⁴ In *The Life of the Angelic Doctor* written by William of Tocco, we learn that because the Dominican believed that Joachim

24 Some have doubted the authenticity of the story; see, for example, Luca Bianchi, "Cum linea subducta damnavit: a proposito di Tommaso d'Aquino e Gioacchino da Fiore," *Florentia* 12 (1998), 151–55. Even if it is legendary, the tale expresses what was thought fitting for Aquinas to do.

had been a source of the errors of the heretic Amalric of Bène, “our doctor sought out Joachim’s book in a certain monastery, and when it was presented read the whole thing through. Wherever he found something erroneous or suspect, he condemned it with underlining. He forbade that the book be read or believed and he nullified its teaching with his own hand.”²⁵ (This may be the earliest reference to academic underlining—a habit that has ruined many books.) Though colored by Tocco’s desire to show how Joachim had aided heresy, the story highlights Aquinas’ fairly good knowledge of Joachim, even though the Angelic Doctor sometimes confused Joachim’s views with those of his more radical followers. Thomas was strongly opposed to the abbot’s new way of reading scripture, as well as to his apocalyptic and Trinitarian theology of history.

With regard to theology of history, Aquinas sided with Augustine against Joachim. His opposition to the abbot’s views has influenced 20th-century Catholic theologians such as M.D. Chenu, Yves Congar, and Henri de Lubac, who have reacted negatively to Joachim’s thought. Nevertheless, it has been possible for other theologians, both then and now, to take a more positive view of Joachim’s theology of history. Thomas Aquinas’ contemporary, Bonaventure, shows that Joachim’s revised apocalyptic theology could provide a creative resource for theologians who did not completely share Aquinas’ integral Augustinian eschatology. Bonaventure’s encounter with the Calabrian abbot did not become really evident until the 1270s when his “last will and testament,” the *Collationes in Hexaemeron* he gave to the Franciscan community in Paris in the spring of 1273, were delivered. Modern scholarship has shown that these unfinished sermons are deeply marked by Joachim’s novel scriptural exegesis, as well as by aspects of the abbot’s progressive view of history.²⁶ Bonaventure avoided Joachim’s language of a coming age of the Spirit, but he saw the imminent seventh age of the earthly Church, like Joachim, as an era of full, final, and collective understanding of scripture. *Collation* 16.29 says: “... the understanding of scripture, or revelation, or the key of David, will be given to a person or a multitude, and I rather think to a multitude.”²⁷ Bonaventure did not merely repeat Joachim, especially in the wake of the 1255 condemnation

25 William of Tocco, *Vita S. Thomae Aquinatis, Acta Sanctorum* (Saint Maximin [Var], 1929), Mart. 7: 665.

26 The first work to discern the deep influence of Joachim on Bonaventure was Joseph Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie des heiligen Bonaventura* (Munich and Zurich, 1959). Since then, much has been written on this relationship.

27 Bonaventure, *Collationes in Hexaemeron* 16.29, in *Sancti Bonaventurae Opera Omnia* (ed. Collegium S. Bonaventurae) (Quaracchi, 1891), 5: 408.

of the radical Joachites in his own order who had adopted a reading of the abbot that made him into a prophet of the end of the contemporary Church and its replacement with a new “Franciscanized” Church. The Franciscan doctor reworked Joachim in a way that attempted to mediate between the Calabrian abbot and the Bishop of Hippo, difficult as that might be. How successful this compromise was cannot be judged here. It was certainly influential, and also controversial, as we can see from the case of Bonaventure’s student, Peter Olivi, who read and used both the Calabrian abbot and the Seraphic Doctor to create his own apocalyptic theology that was condemned by Pope John XXII in 1327.²⁸

A paradigmatic case for the difficulty of evaluating Joachim’s influence comes from the 14th century. What role did the abbot’s writings and *figurae* play in Dante’s *Divine Comedy*? Hundreds of pages have been written on the subject—once again illustrating the tension between saying too much and too little. Dante’s praise of “the Calabrian abbot ... endowed with the prophetic spirit” (*il Calabrese abate ... di spirito profetico dotato*) (*Paradiso* 12.139–41) is well known, but it is also clear that Dante did not share Joachim’s central theme of the three ages of history. However, the poet, like the abbot and unlike Augustine, looked forward to an imminent turning point that would initiate a better age on earth, as Beatrice announces at the end of Canto 27 of *Paradiso* (27.145–48). Unlike Joachim, Dante’s optimism was primarily political; namely, his hopes for a coming World Emperor hinted at in the “Veltro” of *Inferno* 1 and the mysterious DVX of *Purgatorio* 33. This important difference from Joachim allows one to remain skeptical about attempts to draw Dante’s political messianism close to Joachim’s hopes for a coming era of spiritual contemplation.²⁹ Nevertheless, Dante seems to have been willing to employ aspects of Joachim’s symbolizations of the Trinity from the *Liber figurarum*, as long as these were confined to heaven. Scholars such as Leone Tondelli, Marjorie Reeves, and Peter Dronke have shown that some of the most striking visions of the *Paradiso*, especially the vision of the circle of spirits in 14.67–78 and the culminating vision of the three circles manifesting the Trinity in 33.115–32, can be illuminated by seeing them in the light of Joachim’s figures.³⁰ Of course, Dante did not merely

28 On the relation between Joachim and Olivi, see David Burr, *Olivi’s Peaceable Kingdom: A Reading of the Apocalypse Commentary* (Philadelphia, 1993).

29 For an attempt to establish a link between Joachim’s sense of a new turning point in history and Dante’s, see Marjorie Reeves, “The Third Age: Dante’s Debt to Gioacchino da Fiore,” in *L’Età dello Spirito e la fine dei tempi in Gioacchino da Fiore e nel Gioachimismo medievale: Atti del 11 Congresso Internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti* (September 6–9, 1984), (ed.) Antonio Crocco (San Giovanni in Fiore, 1986), 125–39.

30 Leone Tondelli, *Il libro delle Figure dell’abate Gioacchino da Fiore* (Turin, 1953), 1: 221–24, 227–30, 260–62; Marjorie Reeves and Beatrice Hirsch-Reich, *The Figurae of Joachim of*

copy Joachim. As with all his sources, he transmuted the abbot's views in the furnace of his own poetic vision

During the course of the 14th century, a number of apocalyptic thinkers mined the writings of Joachim, both authentic and pseudonymous, but it was easy even for close students to miss the abbot's real meaning. For example, the anonymous *Breviloquium super concordia Novi et Veteris Testamenti*, a Spanish treatise of the mid-14th century, shows a mastery of the intricacies of Joachim's exegesis, but completely neglects, or possibly rejects, the Trinitarian view of history bound up with it.³¹ Though Joachim's fame was widespread in the 14th and 15th centuries, one gets the sense of a lessening involvement with the essentials of his thought. Joachim had become a figure and a legend to invoke when needed. A good illustration of Joachim as legend can be found in the role the Calabrian plays in the thought of Christopher Columbus. Columbus was not only a daring navigator and self-serving adventurer, but also a deeply apocalyptic thinker. Both in his letters to his royal patrons and in the *Libro de las profecias* he compiled late in life, the admiral cites Joachim as an authority for his view that the discovery of the New World was only the first stage in a dawning messianic era in which the King of Spain would defeat Christianity's Muslim enemies, recapture Jerusalem, and introduce an era of final peace on earth. All the evidence, however, suggests that the admiral never read a word of the real Joachim. The prophecies he cites are pseudo-Joachite predictions of the 14th century. He and his apocalyptic advisers knew of Joachim's fame through later learned sources, such as Pierre d'Ailly, and also through the popular diffusion of the legend of Joachim.³²

One group of actual readers of Joachim that flourished in the second half of the 15th century and on into the first third of the 16th does deserve mention, not only because of their activity in gathering texts, both authentic and pseudonymous, but also because these students of apocalyptic prophecy produced the first printed editions of the abbot's works—texts that guaranteed

Fiore (Oxford, 1972), 317–29; Peter Dronke, "Tradition and Innovation in Medieval Western Colour Imagery," in *The Realms of Colour*, (eds.) Adolf Portmann and Rudolf Ritsema (Eranos Yearbook 41, 1972; Leiden, 1972), 98–106, and *Ibid*, "Orizzonte che rischiari: Notes towards the Interpretation of *Paradiso* XIV," *Romance Philology* 29 (1975), 1–19. Another clear point of contact is the influence of Joachim's strange *figura* of the Tree-Eagles on *Paradiso* 18.91–114.

31 Harold Lee, Marjorie Reeves, and Giulio Silano, (eds.), *Western Mediterranean Prophecy: The School of Joachim of Fiore and the Fourteenth-Century "Breviloquium"* (Studies and Texts) 88 (Toronto, 1989).

32 On Joachim and Columbus and the literature on their connection, see Roberto Rusconi, "Cristoforo Colombo e Gioacchino da Fiore," *Florensia* 7 (1993), 95–108.

Joachim's diffusion in the early modern era. This circle of readers, centered in Venice, included the nobleman Domenico Morosini, the Benedictine abbot Vitore Trevisan, the Dominican Frate Rusticiano, and the Augustinian Silvestro Meucci. They were scarcely original thinkers or well-known names, but contemporary and modern students of Joachim owe them a debt of gratitude for the editions they produced, which are still, in some cases, what we must rely on for our studying of the abbot.³³

The Venetian editions percolated through Europe during the 16th and 17th centuries as the religious fabric of medieval society was torn apart into the worlds of Protestant and Catholic Christianity. Religious upheaval fueled apocalyptic speculation—some of it colored by contrasting appeals to the Calabrian abbot. Though Joachim was read and used by some Catholic commentators on the Apocalypse, such as the Jesuit Blasius Viegas, it was actually among Protestant interpreters, especially the Italian reformed theologian Jacopo Brocardo, that he was most influential.³⁴ The abbot's belief in the coming of a better age for the Church on earth obviously attracted at least some of those who broke with Rome in hopes that better days would come. Luther knew of Joachim, but his own pessimistic Augustinian outlook did not make him sympathetic to the Calabrian's view of salvation history.³⁵ In the Protestant camp, however, there were apocalypticists who could appeal to the abbot's views without necessarily being directly inspired by him. An example of this type of reader is Thomas Müntzer, the earliest theological spokesman for the radical wing of Reformation theology. In his *Prague Manifesto* of November 1521, Müntzer announced an apocalyptic program for reform involving "a new apostolic church" that he saw arising in the Czech territories that had broken with Rome a century ago. Taken to task by his Lutheran foes for being a follower of the suspect Joachim, Müntzer responded in 1523, praising the abbot and admitting to having read the *Commentarium super Hieremiam*, but adding: "I do not derive my teaching from Joachim, but rather from the living speech of God, as I will prove at the appropriate time on the basis of the whole Bible."³⁶ Like Joachim, Müntzer sought to combine the

33 See Bernard McGinn, "Circoli gioachimiti veneziani (1450–1530)," *Cristianesimo nella storia* 7 (1986), 19–39.

34 For more on the varieties of 16th-century Apocalypse commentary, see Bernard McGinn, "Reading Revelation in the Sixteenth Century," in *Storia e figure dell'Apocalisse fra '500 e '600*, 11–35.

35 See Riccardo Burigana, "Gioacchino da Fiore in Lutero," *Florensia* 6 (1992), 95–102.

36 Helmar Junghans, (ed.), *Thomas-Müntzer-Ausgabe. Kritische Gesamtausgabe*, 3 vols. (Leipzig, 2004–2010), 2: 216–17.

apocalyptic and the mystical dimensions of Christianity that had co-existed in Saint Paul, but that had become separated in the patristic era. Joachim's third status of the Holy Spirit and Müntzer's millennial kingdom shared the view that the imminent final stage of history would feature a fully contemplative Church. Though the abbot and the radical preacher both adhered to what can be called a collective apocalyptic mysticism, Joachim's suspicion of all human efforts, especially the use of violence, to help usher in the Third Age distanced him from Müntzer.³⁷

During the 17th and the 18th centuries Joachim found many readers, not only in the Old World but also in the New. But there were few true followers. It is tempting to dismiss many of Joachim's readers during this period, such as the Puritan commentators on the Apocalypse, or the Jesuit Bollandists who initiated the *Acta Sanctorum*, or 18th-century Pietist biblical scholars, as second-rate figures. But attention to the shifting winds of intellectual fashion should warn us against rejecting too easily those figures whose significance, both for their own time and in subsequent ages, has often undergone changes of fortune. In the 18th century, Gotthold Ephraim Lessing, a thinker who has always occupied a significant place in the history of philosophy, theology, literature, and aesthetics, propounded an influential three-age view of history, though his relation to Joachim is at best indirect. The multitalented Lessing adapted a deliberately ambiguous and perhaps somewhat cynical stance between traditional religion and the simplistic rationalisms of the Enlightenment. His discomfort with contemporary replacements for religion allowed him to find a positive, if temporary, role for revelation conceived of as a divine pedagogy aiding reason's advance to full religious knowledge. In his 1780 treatise *Die Erziehung des Menschengeschlechts*, Lessing distinguished between three periods: the time of the Old Testament with a wrathful deity commanding moral practice; the time of the New Testament with "Christ ... as the first reliable, practical teacher of the immortality of the soul" (par. 58); and the coming time of perfect education when humans will not need future reward or punishment as motives, but "will do right because it is right" (par. 85). Lessing hails this Third Age ecstatically and refers to the Joachite tradition, if not the actual writings of the abbot:

It will assuredly come! The time of the Eternal Gospel, which is promised us in the primers of the New Covenant itself! Perhaps even some of the enthusiasts of the thirteenth and fourteenth centuries had caught a

37 On Müntzer and his relation to Joachim, see Bernard McGinn, "Apocalypticism and Mysticism: Aspects of Their Interaction," *Zeitsprünge. Forschungen zur Frühen Neuzeit* 3 (1999), 292–315.

glimpse of this new eternal gospel, and only erred in that they predicted its arrival as so near to their own time.³⁸

Lessing's Third Age of the Eternal Evangel is far from Joachim's third *status*, especially because it lacks any Trinitarian reference and because Lessing's notion of progress is founded on the immanent working of reason and a fatalistic sense of destiny. But the German thinker did much to popularize a sense of the progress of humanity that led many 19th-century thinkers to appeal to Joachim's three ages, though mostly for their own purposes.

Marjorie Reeves and Warwick Gould have told the story of the 19th-century uses of Joachim in their book *Joachim of Fiore and the Myth of the Eternal Evangel*.³⁹ Many of the key figures of the artistic and intellectual world of that era were fascinated with the Calabrian abbot—J.A.W. Neander and Friedrich Schelling in Germany; Jules Michelet, Ernst Renan, and Georges Sand in France; George Eliot and John Addington Symonds in England; and Giuseppe Mazzini in Italy. This renewed fascination with the abbot also spurred the beginnings of historical study of his life and writings. The 1850s were the crucial decade. In 1852, Ernst Renan, who was both an enthusiast for a progressive view of history and a serious medievalist, began investigating the "Scandal of the Eternal Gospel" of 1254–55 and its relation to Joachim. His paper on this topic was published in 1866. In 1856–57, the Protestant theological faculty of Tübingen offered a prize for an essay determining the difference between the authentic and pseudonymous works ascribed to Joachim. The winner, Karl Friedrich, published an 1859 essay demonstrating the spurious nature of the Jeremiah and Isaiah commentaries.⁴⁰ The 19th century was the last era when the legendary Joachim prevailed over the historical abbot. This was evident in the *fin de siècle* interest in Joachim, especially in William Butler Yeats's fascinating story

38 *Gotthold Ephraim Lessing Werke 1778–1781*, (eds.) Arno Schilson and Axel Schmitt (Frankfurt, 2001), 10: 73–99, par. 86–87. For an English version, see *Lessing's Theological Writings*. Selections with an Introductory Essay by Henry Chadwick (London, 1956), 82–98. On the relation of Lessing to Joachim, see Henri de Lubac, *La postérité spirituelle*, vol. 1: *De Joachim à Schelling*, 264–78; Marjorie Reeves and Warwick Gould, *Joachim of Fiore and the Myth of the Eternal Evangel in the Nineteenth Century* (Oxford, 1987), 60–61. Lessing's vague knowledge of medieval Joachitism may have come from the Church historian J.L. Mosheim.

39 For an updated edition, see Marjorie Reeves and Warwick Gould, *Gioacchino da Fiore e il mito dell'Evangelo eterno nella cultura europea con un saggio di Fulvio De Giorgi* (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 12 (Rome, 2000).

40 On the 19th-century scientific study of Joachim, see Bernard McGinn, "Apocalypticism in the Middle Ages: An Historiographical Sketch," *Medieval Studies* 37 (1975), 252–86.

“The Tables of the Law,” which is among the most elusive but intriguing uses of Joachim in literature.

Major philosophical and theological thinkers of the 20th century found in Joachim resources or targets for their own views on the meaning of history. In Catholic theology, as pointed out above, Joachim was often viewed negatively. Some forms of Protestant neo-apocalyptic theology, such as Jürgen Moltmann’s *Theology of Hope*, have been happy to find an ally, if not an actual source, in the Abbot of Fiore. The German Marxist philosopher Ernst Bloch also welcomed the abbot’s promise of a new era in history. Among the most avid readers of Joachim in the last century we can also count a number of thinkers associated with the emerging discipline of comparative religion, or the history of religions, such as Ernesto Buonaiuti, Ernst Benz, and Mircea Eliade.⁴¹ More than eight hundred years after Joachim’s death and at the beginning of the third millennium after Christ—certainly a new age, if not yet an age of the Holy Spirit—we pause to ponder the significance of a figure who remains a mystery despite the intensive research that has been devoted to him and to his legacy in recent decades. The secret of Joachim continues to elude us. As I was meditating on the actuality of Joachim, by chance I ran across a quotation from a book dear to me that I had not read for many years. It comes from the pen of another great optimist in the history of Christian thought, one who, like Joachim, was convinced that despite the reversals we see all around us, history is moving forward toward a more perfect realization of its ultimate goal. I do not know whether Teilhard de Chardin ever read Joachim (though he was a good friend of Henri de Lubac), but I think the following passage from the Jesuit’s *Le milieu divin* captures an essential aspect of why we continue to be inspired by the Calabrian abbot. Speaking of his notion of the coming *pleroma* as both an end and a consummation, Teilhard says: “Expectation—anxious, collective, and operative expectation of an end of the world, that is to say of an issue for the world—that is perhaps the supreme Christian function and the most distinctive characteristic of our religion.”⁴² In the end, what is most intriguing about Joachim’s expectation of the Third Age is how it has remained potent both for believers, as well as for those who cannot believe but who can still hope.

41 For comments on the use of Joachim by these historians of religion, see Bernard McGinn, “Joachim of Fiore in the History of Religions: Ernesto Buonaiuti and Mircea Eliade on the Calabrian Abbot,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore nella cultura dell’800 e del ’900. Atti del 6° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti*, (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà (Rome, 2005), 111–26.

42 Pierre Teilhard de Chardin, *Le milieu divin* (London, 1960), 148.

The Life and Works of Joachim of Fiore—An Overview

Alfredo Gatto

1.1 Introduction: Early Life and First Writings

Joachim of Fiore may well be called the most influential apocalyptic thinker after the author of the Book of Revelation. Although Joachim “was first and foremost a monk”¹ who remained extraneous to the intellectual revival² conducted by the new scholastic masters, his spiritual posterity has surpassed the Middle Ages and stretches up to the present day.³ Despite the fact that the Fourth Lateran Council convened in 1215 by Pope Innocent III had already condemned a work of Joachim written against Peter Lombard (*De unitate seu essentia Trinitatis*), Dante Alighieri still reserved a place in heaven for the Calabrian abbot, whom he described as “endowed with prophetic spirit.”⁴ Accused by Thomas Aquinas of not fully understanding the sharp reasoning of the Master of Sentences,⁵ and, at the same time, considered by the Spiritual Franciscans as the herald of their movement, Joachim of Fiore is a controversial but crucial figure in the development of medieval theology.⁶

1 Bernard McGinn, *The Calabrian Abbot: Joachim of Fiore in the History of Western Thought* (New York, 1985), 16.

2 See Marie Dominique Chenu, *La théologie au douzième siècle* (Paris, 1976).

3 See Henri de Lubac, *La Postérité spirituelle de Joachim de Flore*, 2 vols. (Paris, 1979–81); Marjorie Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy in the Late Middle Ages: A Study in Joachimism* (1969; repr. Oxford, 2000).

4 Dante Alighieri, *The Divine Comedy: Paradiso*, XII, 141, trans. Robert E. Durling (Oxford, 2011), 251.

5 See *Super secundum decretalem*, 2, in Thomas Aquinas, *Contra Errores Graecorum, De Rationibus Fidei, De Forma Absolutionis, De Substantiis Separatis, Super Decretales*, (ed.) Leonina (Rome, 1969), 40: 41.

6 This paradox, that has always accompanied Joachim's legacy and reception, has been described well by Henry Mottu, *La manifestation de l'Esprit selon Joachim de Fiore* (Neuchâtel, 1977), 23: “Nous approchons de l'énigme, qui nous accompagnera tout au long de ce travail, dont nous pourrions poser les termes de la manière suivante: un abbé cistercien campagnard sera transformé par l'histoire en prophète des ‘nouvelles équipes’ en milieu urbain, tandis

Joachim was born c. 1135⁷ in Celico, a small town in Calabria located in southern Italy. There are two different traditions concerning his origins.⁸ The first, related to a passage in the *Expositio in Apocalypsim* where Joachim refers to himself as a farmer,⁹ does not seem very reliable and appears to be nothing but an allegorical and biblical reference.¹⁰ The second tradition, confirmed by his earliest biographers, holds that the Calabrian abbot was the son of a notary of the Norman court.

Joachim was educated in Cosenza and after his studies was introduced to the court of the Calabrian Giustiziere as a notary, thanks to his father Mauro. He started working for Stefano di Perche at the king's chancellery in Palermo, accompanying two of the most important and influential notaries of the Norman kingdom, Peregrinus and Sanctorus, on their missions. Upon returning to the court, he decided to take leave and travel to the Holy Land, where he arrived around 1168. His visit to Jerusalem, which is attested to in his biographies, is also confirmed by a passage taken from his *Tractatus super quatuor Evangelia*.¹¹ The anonymous *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis* begins with Joachim's return

qu'un exégète se voulant orthodoxe, soumis aux Papes, sera métamorphosé en une sorte de père spirituel des 'rébellions sauvages', dans l'Eglise et hors du milieu ecclésiastique, au cours des siècles subséquents."

- 7 Regarding his date of birth, see Radulphi de Coggeshall, *Chronicon Anglicanum*, in *Rerum Britannicarum Medii Aevi Scriptores*, (ed.) J. Stevenson (1875; repr. Kamenz, 1965), 68. The two most important sources concerning Joachim's life are the following: the anonymous *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis* and Luke of Cosenza, *Virtutum beati Joachimi Synopsis*, both edited in Herbert Grundmann, "Zur Biographie Joachims von Fiore und Rainers von Ponza," *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 16 (1960), 528–539, 539–544, now in *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, 3 vols. (Stuttgart, 1977), 2: 342–352, 352–358. For a wider list of biographical sources and their analyses, see Herbert Grundmann, *Neue Forschungen Joachim von Fiore* (Marburg, 1950) and Grundmann, "Zur Biographie Joachims von Fiore und Rainers von Ponza," 437–546, now in *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, vol. 2, 255–360.
- 8 One can regard as completely unfounded the alleged Jewish origins of Joachim. On this issue, see Beatrice Hirsch-Reich, "Joachim von Fiore und das Judentum," *Miscellanea Mediaevalia* 4 (1966), 228–263, in particular 239–243.
- 9 "Nolo videri quod non sum, fingens aliquid ex presumptione mea. Nolo existimet aliquis exigendum a me, qui sum homo agricola a iuventute mea, quod ab ipsis quoque Prophetis exigi ante sua tempora non licebat," *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, vol. 4, (eds.) F. Bindone and M. Pasini (Venice, 1527; repr. Frankfurt am Main, 1964), fol. 175b.
- 10 Zech. 13:5. See Giuseppe Rotondi, "Gioacchino da Fiore era 'homo agricola'?" *Rendiconti del R. Istituto Lombardo di Scienze ed Arti* 70 (1937), 211–214.
- 11 "Unde forsitan, quia permanentibus adhuc apostolis Ierosolimis recepit Samaria verbum Dei et dubium non est transire quos damillorum ad litteras et ritum Grecorum, in sancta hac muliere ecclesia ipsa designatur, presertim cum vicina sitibi gens Armeniorum

from the Holy Land, “where he visited eminent places and where he performed miracles that deserve to be told more extensively.”¹²

After receiving the revelation of the double law—that is, the idea of establishing a relationship between the events of the two Testaments—Joachim returned to Italy, dwelling for a certain period of time in a cave close to a Greek coenobium near Mount Etna in Sicily. Later he traveled to his native region and, after stopping in a valley near Cosenza, he spent a period of time in the Cistercian monastery of Sambucina, located in the Sila Mountains. After he was ordained as a deacon by the Bishop of Catanzaro in Rende, not far from Cosenza, Joachim started his activity as an itinerant preacher. As the *Vita* shows,¹³ Joachim became acquainted with a monk named Greco over the course of his peregrinations between Rende and Corazzo. Greco’s influence convinced him to return to the Benedictine Abbey of Corazzo, where he assumed the monastic habit. When the Abbot Colombano decided to renounce the government of the Calabrian Abbey, Joachim, already prior, was elected and served as the Abbot of Corazzo from 1171 to 1177.¹⁴

The first work of Joachim that has come down to us, the *Genealogia*, can be traced back to this same period.¹⁵ As attested to by a passage of this work,¹⁶ at least the first part was written in 1176. In this short text, which contains various notes probably conceived at different times, Joachim describes—using the

que supra ceteros, sicut ipsi vidimus Ierosolimis, ‘ieiuniis’ et orationibus insistit et fidei romane pre ceteris illarum partium ecclesiis, que latine non sunt, adhere re cognoscitur,” *Tractatus super quatuor Evangelia*, 1.6, (ed.) Francesco Santi (Fonti per la storia dell’Italia medievale) 17 (Rome, 2002), 105, lines 19–25.

- 12 “De regressu beati Joachimi abbatis a Hyerusalem et terra sancta, ubi visitavit loca insignia, et de miraculis ipsius paulo diffusius enarrandis,” *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 342.
- 13 “Accidit igitur, ut vadens et rediens per monasterium Curacense transiret, ubi ex doctrina sua cognitus a quodam nobili Greco monacho quinam esset adventus est illo verbo, quo adversus servum pigrum super talenti retentione Dominus in Evangelio legitur exteruisse. Cuius sententie recordatus extimuit, et tunc primum de conversione promisit, ad cellam rediit et festinanter depositis omnibus Curatium reversus sub abbate Columbano columbine religionis habitum assumpsit,” *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 345.
- 14 Only after 1177 is Joachim identified as the Abbot of Corazzo. Cf. Grundmann, “Zur Biographie Joachims von Fiore und Rainers von Ponza,” 303.
- 15 *Genealogia sanctorum antiquorum patrum*, in Gian Luca Potestà, “Die Genealogia: Ein frühes Werk Joachims von Fiore und die Anfänge seines Geschichtsbildes,” *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 56 (2000), 91–101.
- 16 “Cum ergo a nativitate Christi complete sint hoc tempore XL generationes, id est MCLXXVI anni, non restant nisi due generationes complende, id est LX: quasi duoterdenarii, in quibus impleri oportet quicquid de Antichristo dicitur et de consummatione seculi,” *Genealogia*, 92, lines 33–35.

figure of a double tree—the genealogy of the holy fathers as incorporated into the broader history of salvation. Although an early work, one can discern two important aspects that would characterize the future reflections of the Calabrian abbot: first, one finds here, albeit in embryonic form, the binary scheme of the concordance (*concordia*) between the two Testaments; second, Joachim refers to the apocalyptic seven seals as symbols of the persecutions suffered by both the Jewish and the Christian people.

1.2 The Three Main Works

It is not always easy to provide a precise dating for Joachim's works. In some cases, they were reviewed and often modified over time, and Joachim often worked on various texts simultaneously. In other cases, his works bring together in a single volume various materials written at different times. Therefore, Joachim's thought reveals constant changes and is deeply intertwined with the historical events of his time.

If it is true that in the case of Joachim, as Henry Mottu has noted, "it is the work that illuminates the life and not the opposite,"¹⁷ it is equally true that biographical events might help one to better understand the abbot's thought. Thus, whenever possible, we must weave together Joachim's biography with the contents of his works, in an effort to provide a broader and deeper view of his reflections.

As the Abbot of Corazzo, Joachim tried to affiliate his abbey with the Cistercian order. After the refusal of the Sambucina Abbey, Joachim approached the Casamari Abbey with the same purpose. Even though Casamari declined as well¹⁸—probably due to the poverty of his abbey, as the anonymous author of the *Vita* tells us¹⁹—Joachim remained at Casamari for almost a year and a half.

17 Mottu, *La manifestation*, 13: "C'est l'œuvre qui éclaire la vie et non l'inverse."

18 According to Gian Luca Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse: Vita di Gioacchino da Fiore* (Rome, 2004), 67–68, Joachim was able to affiliate Corazzo with the abbey of Fossanova around 1184 after the negative response of Casamari, but before he had left the abbey. For a different view, which dates the affiliation to the year 1188, cf. Grundmann, "Zur Biographie Joachims von Fiore und Rainers von Ponza," 276, n. 66.

19 "Factus autem, ut iam dicimus, abbas Curatii, non multo post voluit cum consilio fratrum redder Curatium monasterio Sambucine. Quod Sambucina noluit recipere propter paupertatem, ut dicebat, et inopiam monachorum. Demum per consilium eorum ivit Casamariam et voluit ei reddere predictum monasterium. Et illi similiter responderunt sicut Sambucinenses," *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 346.

According to Luke of Cosenza,²⁰ Joachim reached Casamari during the second year of the pontificate of Pope Lucius III—namely, between 1 September 1182 and 31 August 1183.

Joachim's stay in Casamari was crucial to his life and his works. It was precisely in Casamari—as confirmed by both the *Vita* and Luke of Cosenza²¹—that Joachim was given permission to write (*licentia scribendi*) by Pope Lucius III, who at that time was residing in Veroli. Furthermore, it was also during this period that Joachim started working on his three most important books:²² the *Psalterium decem chordarum*,²³ the *Concordia Novi ac Veteris Testamenti*,²⁴ and the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*.²⁵ These three works were meant to be read as a whole: each of them is dedicated to a person of the Trinity, and together they constitute the beating heart of the abbot's theological reflection.

The *Concordia Novi ac Veteris Testamenti* is composed of five books and is devoted to the person of the Father. It is a work in progress that Joachim developed from the time of his sojourn in Casamari until the mid-1190s.²⁶ In the

20 "Anno secundo pontificatus domini pape Lucii iam monacus primo in Casa-Marii vidi virum tunc abbatem Curatii, filium Sambucinae filiae Casae-Marii," Luke of Cosenza, *Virtutum beati Joachimi Synopsis*, 352–353.

21 "Tunc cum esset in dicto monasterio Casamarie, revelatum est ei misterium Trinitatis et scripsit ibi primum librum Psalterii decem cordarum. Tunc temporis papa Lucius erat Verulis, ad quem iens postulavit ab eo licentiam scribendi, quem admodum viderat per revelationem. Qui cum dare noluisset, eo quod durum sibi videretur hoc concedere, adiunxit Ioachim et ait: 'Ut credatis, quod dico, hoc vobis sit signum: ecce in proximo capietur Hyerusalem a Sarracenis.' Non discesserat autem homo Dei, nam per multos dies steterat ibi cum domino papa Lucio, et ecce nunc iusvenit, qui diceret, quod Hyerusalem capta esset a Sarracenis," *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 346. Cf. Luke of Cosenza, *Virtutum beati Joachimi Synopsis*, 353: "Tunc coram eodem domino papa et consistorio eius coepit primum revelare intelligentiam et utriusque testamenti concordiam; a quo et licentiam scribendi obtinuit et scribere coepit."

22 In this regard, see both the passage quoted in the previous note taken from the *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis* and the following remark of Luke of Cosenza, *Virtutum beati Joachimi Synopsis*, 353: "Mansit autem in Casa-Marii sedulus quasi anno uno et dimidio, dictans et emendans simul librum Apocalypsis et librum Concordiae. Ubi in ipso tempore librum Psalterii decem cordarum incepit."

23 *Psalterium decem chordarum*, (ed.) Kurt-Victor Selge, (MGH QzGM) 20 (Hanover, 2009).

24 E. Randolph Daniel, (ed.), *Abbot Joachim of Fiore: Liber de Concordia Novi ac Veteris Testamenti*, (Transactions of the American Philosophical Society) 73, Part 8 (Philadelphia, 1983), books 1–4.

25 *Expositio in Apocalypsim* (see above, n. 9).

26 Although Joachim had already finished writing the first four books around 1188, the fifth book occupied the abbot until the mid-1190s. As far as the fifth book is concerned, Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 261, holds that at least the central part of the fifth book

Concordia, Joachim exposes his exegetical theory based on the correspondence between the two Testaments. The concordance is, in the words of the Calabrian abbot, “a similitude of equal proportion between the New and the Old Testament, equal, I say, as to number, but not as to dignity.”²⁷

In this work, Joachim discusses the key issues of his historical reflection. In the first short book, the seven conflicts of the children of Israel are briefly mentioned. In the second book, Joachim explains in detail his hermeneutical theory, according to which all the tribulations, figures, people, and periods that took place in the Old Testament prefigure and anticipate similar events in the New Testament. In the third book, the comprehension of the future events (*intelligentia futurorum*) is at work: the abbot establishes a close link between the seven seals and the persecutions suffered by both Jewish and Christian people. Each of the seven tribulations described in the Old Testament is connected to one of the seals of the Apocalypse, and the persecutions that the Christians have already suffered or will have to confront are linked to the opening of those same seals. The fourth book analyzes once again the fullness of the concordance (*plenitudo concordiae*), while the fifth and final book comments on the historical books of the Old Testament.

In addition to the *Concordia Novi ac Veteris Testamenti*, Joachim also wrote two other foundational texts. The *Psalterium decem chordarum* is a treatise consisting of three books devoted to the Holy Spirit. The first book, written while the abbot was still in Casamari, is divided into seven distinct parts and is dedicated to a study of the Trinity. The second and the third books, as Joachim writes in his prologue, were concluded two years later, around 1186–1187.²⁸ While the third part of the *Psalterium* is simply a short list of rules for the recitation of the Psalms, the second is based on the symbolic meanings of the 150 Psalms, as interpreted from the perspective of salvation history. Here Joachim refers to three different orders (monks, clergy, and laity) and to three

was written before the beginning of 1194, in light of an allusion to Tancred, King of Sicily (*Liber de Concordia*, 5, fol. 126ra). However, according to Kurt-Victor Selge, “L’origine delle opere di Gioacchino da Fiore,” in *L’attesa della fine dei tempi nel Medioevo*, (eds.) O. Capitani and J. Miethke (Bologna, 1990), 103, 105, Joachim completed the fifth book and the *praefatio* in 1196.

27 “Concordiam proprie esse dicimus similitudinem eque proportionis novi ac veteris testamenti, eque dico quo ad numerum non quo ad dignitatem,” *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.2, (ed.) Daniel, 62.

28 The prologue was written in the second half of the 1190s, since in his testamentary letter, written in 1200, Joachim refers to the *Psalterium decem chordarum* as an already finished work.

different *status*, thus applying his Trinitarian reflections in a historical and symbolic context.

The *Psalterium*, in particular its first book, was part of the 12th-century debate on the Trinity characterized by the contrast between a monastic theology, as represented by Bernard of Clairvaux, and the rising scholastic theology, which was taught in Paris and found its clearest expression in the *Book of Sentences* by Peter Lombard. As Bernard McGinn rightly suggests, “there is no better example in the 12th century of the separation of the two aspects of human intentionality, the discursive and the symbolic, than the conflict between Joachim and Peter Lombard over the Trinity.”²⁹ Through the image of the psaltery, Joachim intends to introduce an alternative to Lombard’s dialectic approach, which would soon dominate theological discourse.

According to the Calabrian abbot, the shape of this musical instrument represents, by analogy, the heart of the divine mystery; namely, the essence of God who, even if he cannot be properly described in words, might still be represented through the evocative power of the image. The psaltery thus serves as the symbol of the divine, and its geometric structure allows man to see the transcendent nature of God’s essence. As Joachim reports in his prologue, at precisely the moment when his intellect was incapable of comprehending the sacred mystery of the Trinity (*sacrum misterium Trinitatis*), he discovered in the image of the ten-stringed psaltery the key to fully understanding the mystery of the three divine persons.³⁰

The image of the psaltery derives from the so-called Pentecost vision, through which Joachim regained his faith in the holy Trinity after a moment of doubt and hesitation in his own beliefs. According to Robert E. Lerner,³¹ the Pentecost experience took place on 5 May 1184, during the second year of Joachim’s sojourn in Casamari.

The vision described in the prologue of the *Psalterium* does not represent the only ecstatic experience of the abbot’s life. Indeed, not long before that, on the eve of Easter on 1 April 1184,³² Joachim experienced another inner illumination.

29 McGinn, *The Calabrian Abbot*, 116. For a comparison between Joachim and the scholastic mentality of his time, see also Andrea Tagliapietra, *Gioacchino da Fiore e la filosofia* (Padua, 2013), 88–95.

30 See *Psalterium decem chordarum*, (ed.) Selge, fol. 227va, 10, lines 3–5.

31 See Robert E. Lerner, “Joachim of Fiore’s Breakthrough to Chiliasm,” *Cristianesimo nella storia* 6 (1985), 489–512, in particular 493; and Lerner, “Antichrists and Antichrist in Joachim of Fiore,” *Speculum* 60 (1985), 553–570, in particular 558, n. 13. McGinn instead dates the Pentecost vision, together with the Easter experience described in the *Expositio*, to 1183. See *The Calabrian Abbot*, 22. See also Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 21–25.

32 For a different dating hypothesis, cf. Selge, “L’origine delle opere di Gioacchino da Fiore,” 111–112, n. 56. Potestà, *Il tempo dell’Apocalisse*, 15, on the contrary, maintains that

In the silence of the night, when the abbot was struggling to interpret a passage of the *Apocalypse*³³ he had never been able to understand, Joachim suddenly gained intellectual clarity and understood both the fullness of this sacred book and the concordance between the Old and the New Testaments.³⁴

The Easter vision is described in the first part of the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, Joachim's most important work. This masterpiece, devoted to the person of the Son, accompanied the abbot throughout his entire life. Although it is almost impossible to establish precisely when and how it was composed, we know that Joachim started writing this text in Casamari and kept working on it until shortly before his death.

The *Expositio* is divided into eight books and is preceded by the *Liber Introductorius*. The *Introductorius* is a late work (1198–1199), and is meant to be an introductory compendium constituting a revised and expanded version of the older *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*. It also briefly summarizes the general structure of Joachim's exegesis. In this text, we find a complete and extensive re-organization of some of the central aspects that characterized the reflections of the abbot starting from the second half of the 1180s. Therefore, the *Liber Introductorius* addresses the correspondence between the doctrine of three states of the world, the three orders, and the three stages of Revelation. There are also some references to the symbolic and historical issues linked to the seven seals and to the binary concordance between the persecutions described in the two Testaments.

In the eight books that form the *Expositio*, Joachim analyzes the whole Book of Revelation by commenting and interpreting, line for line, all the symbols, figures, and hidden meanings scattered throughout the *Apocalypse*.³⁵ By playing with the symbolism of the number seven, the Calabrian abbot divides

both experiences narrated by Joachim should be interpreted as a literary tale full of symbolic allusions: "Ritengo che i racconti delle due esperienze vadano intesi a partire dall'espressività propria dell'abate calabrese, densa di allusioni simboliche e di riferimenti liturgici. Assumendo le due esperienze come realmente avvenute nelle rispettive festività e nel modo in cui sono narrate – quasi si potesse con l'aiuto di un calendario perpetuo risalire al giorno esatto di esse – si rischia di non afferrarne la cifra teologico-letteraria, mirante ad apporre un sigillo divino alle sue scoperte dottrinali."

33 Rev. 1:10: "I was in the Spirit on the Lord's day" (*Fui in Spiritu in dominica die*).

34 "Cum ergo in supra scripta nocte simile aliquid contigisset, circa medium (ut opinor) noctis silentium et horam qua leo noster de tribu Iuda resurrexisse extimatur a mortuis, subito mihi meditantibus aliquid, quadam mentis oculis intelligentie claritate percepta de plenitudine libri huius et tota veteris ac novi testamenti concordia revelatio facta est," *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, 1, fol. 39rv.

35 For a full presentation of the contents of the *Expositio*, see Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 297–325.

the history of the Church into seven periods (*septem tempora*), which correspond to the seven parts of the Book of Revelation. Then, the first seven books are placed in relation to the seven periods of the Church, while the eighth is connected to the meta-historical glorification of the heavenly Jerusalem. The *Expositio in Apocalypsim* represents one of the greatest attempts to build and outline a historical theology of divine revelation by attributing the value of a dynamic and continuous prophecy to the *Apocalypse*.

1.3 Monastic Endeavors and Other Works of Importance

Earlier, when the abbot began thinking about his Christian theology of history, he had not yet fully understood all the historical and symbolic implications that he would grasp in his future reflections. In fact, while Joachim was still in Casamari, he worked on other texts that do not evince the same exegetical maturity that the abbot would acquire in later years. This applies, for example, to his *De prophetia ignota*.³⁶

This work is presented as a commentary on an anonymous, non-biblical prophecy found among the books of Cardinal Matthew of Anders. At the very beginning of his analysis, Joachim states that he interpreted this text in May 1184 in Veroli, at the same time when Pope Lucius III was present.³⁷ The Abbot of Corazzo uses the contents of this prophecy in order to test his hermeneutical theory based on the double system of the persecutions, which took and will take place in the two Testaments. Thus, the seven tribulations suffered by the Jewish people prefigure the seven special persecutions (*septem speciales persecutiones*) of the Christians. Even if Joachim does not yet relate the two series of tribulations to the seven seals of the Book of Revelation, the *De prophetia ignota* represents a small step forward in the Joachimist understanding of the close relationship between the Apocalypse of John and the history of salvation.

Moreover, in this work we find the historical relation between pride (*superbia*) and humility (*humilitas*), which also characterizes another work of

36 *De prophetia ignota: eine frühe Schrift Joachims Von Fiore*, (ed.) Matthias Kaup, (Monumenta Germaniae Historica Studien und Texte) 19 (Hannover, 1998), 180–224.

37 “Huius tanti viri [beatus Augustinus] exemplis animatur, ego Joachim, dictus abbas monasterii Curatii, quod situm est in Calabria Cusentie finibus, anno dominice incarnationis MCLXXXIIII, cum moraretur dominus papa Lucius apud civitatem Berulanam, mense Madii indictione secunda verba illa, que anno presenti in Romana curia reperta sunt, nullo quovis auctore intitolata vel exposita, enodare credidi et, quod michi in eis divinis concors auctoritatibus inesse videbatur, verbis autenticis aperire,” *De prophetia ignota*, 1.2, 180–182.

Joachim's—the *Dialogi de prescientia Dei et predestinatione electorum*.³⁸ That is why one might reasonably place these texts within the same period, as suggested by Gian Luca Potestà.³⁹ Therefore, it is likely that Joachim also wrote the *Dialogi* while he was still in Casamari.

In these three dialogues, the Calabrian abbot deals with issues linked to divine election and human freedom. In the first two dialogues, one finds an investigation of God's foreknowledge and predestination, while in the third Joachim underlines the virtue of humility as a distinctive sign of divine favor. In this last dialogue, written when the abbot had not yet outlined his progressive and future-oriented scheme of history, the dynamics of the history are given a spiral structure determined by the dialectic between humility and pride.

Before returning to the life of the Calabrian abbot after his sojourn in Casamari, we must consider another work of the Joachimist corpus known as the *Tractatus in expositionem Vite et Regule beati Benedicti*,⁴⁰ written during the period from 1184 to 1188.⁴¹ The book comments on the life of Saint Benedict in light of the episodes described in the *Dialogues* of Gregory the Great. What is especially noteworthy is Joachim's attempt to attribute a moral and eschatological meaning to Benedictine rule. Joachim reflects on the importance and the historical mission of monasticism, with particular reference to the Cistercian movement that he interprets (at least in the first part of the work) as a positive revival of original Benedictine spirituality. From this perspective, Joachim provides an overview of the eschatological future built on the messianic role played by monasticism. Within this context, and particularly

38 *Dialogi de prescientia Dei et predestinatione electorum*, (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà, Istituto Storico Italiano per il Medioevo (Fonti per la storia dell'Italia medievale: antiquitates) 4 (Rome, 1995).

39 Gian Luca Potestà, "Introduzione," in Gioacchino da Fiore, *Dialoghi sulla prescienza divina e la predestinazione degli eletti*, trans. Gian Luca Potestà (Rome, 2001), 19–21. See also Grundmann, *Neue Forschungen Joachim von Fiore*, 26–27.

40 *Tractatus in expositionem Vite et Regule beati Benedicti*, (ed.) Alexander Patschovsky, Istituto Storico Italiano per il Medioevo (Fonti per la storia d'Italia: antiquitates) 29 (Rome, 2008). Valeria De Fraja describes it as a "testo contenitore"; namely, a text that synthesizes heterogeneous materials written during different times. See Valeria De Fraja, "Percorso storico e significato del monachesimo benedettino nell' *Expositio vite et regule beati Benedicti* di Gioacchino da Fiore," *Cristianesimo nella storia* 22 (2001), 381–435. For a different opinion that asserts the unity of the work, cf. Alexander Patschovsky, "Der Benedikt-Traktat als Texteinheit," in *Tractatus in expositionem Vite et Regule beati Benedicti*, 21–33.

41 See Patschovsky, "Die Datierung des Werkes," in *Tractatus in expositionem Vite et Regule beati Benedicti*, 36–43. A different dating, especially with regard to the first section of the *Tractatus*, is provided by Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 68–73, 159–167.

in the third section of the *Tractatus*, the Abbot of Corazzo also deepens—almost simultaneously with the writing of the third book of the *Concordia*—the correspondence between the persecutions of the two Testaments. As will be illustrated below, the scheme of the double tribulations remained an important element of the abbot's reflections.

Between the end of May and the beginning of June 1184, Pope Lucius and his curia left Veroli and reached Verona in July of the same year. They planned an official meeting with Frederick I Barbarossa. The Pope and the Emperor would finally come to an agreement about shared responsibilities in the treatment of heresy, as then outlined in the Pope's decretal *Ad abolendam* against all heretics, issued on 4 November 1184. Among the movements condemned were the Waldensians, “those who falsely and lyingly call themselves Humiliated or Poor of Lyons” (*eos qui se Humiliatos vel Pauperes de Ludguno falso nomine mentiuntur*).

The first direct and critical reference to the Poor of Lyons in Joachim's works is found in the *De articulis fidei ad fratrem Iohannem*.⁴² This short work should be interpreted as a dogmatic note responding to the request of a certain John. Rather than a text confirming Joachim's orthodoxy and loyalty to the Roman curia, the *De articulis fidei* is probably a correct interpretation of some theological issues of the Christian faith, addressing this man named John and perhaps the monastic community around to him. Given the clear reference to the condemnation of the Waldensians, this text was apparently written after the end of 1184. Moreover, since its contents reveal that Joachim's theological reflections had not yet reached full maturation, it is very likely that the abbot wrote this work not long after the promulgation of the decretal.

During this same period, Joachim seems to have written another very brief text, the *Confessio fidei*.⁴³ This is a short summary of Joachim's dogmatic views concerning Trinitarian theology, the incarnation, the sacraments, and the Final Judgment. Kurt-Victor Selge considers the *Confessio* to be a late response by Joachim to the criticism of his Trinitarian speculation, especially as it was explicitly directed against Peter Lombard.⁴⁴ However, the content of the work suggests a close proximity to the first book of the *Psalterium*.

42 *De articulis fidei ad fratrem Iohannem. Confessio fidei*, (ed.) Valeria De Fraja, Istituto Storico Italiano per il Medioevo (Fonti per la storia d'Italia: antiquitates) 37 (Rome, 2012).

43 Ibid.

44 “La confessione è da considerare una prova del fatto che Gioacchino doveva già difendersi dai rimproveri, altrimenti testimoniati solamente tredici anni dopo la sua morte dal Concilio Laterano IV, anche contro la sua comprensione della Trinità rivolta contro il

Let us now return to the life of Joachim. After leaving Casamari and spending a brief period of time in Calabria, Joachim dwelled in Verona at the curia of Pope Urban III. Shortly thereafter, when Jerusalem was captured by Saladin in October 1187, the abbot had probably just returned to his homeland. As the *Vita* confirms,⁴⁵ due to the support and mediation of a certain *dominus Oliveti*, Joachim was able to settle in Pietralata (near Corazzo) and spend time in quiet solitude and study. However, due to pressure from his monks who complained about the absence of their abbot, Joachim was forced to leave his refuge. He then traveled to Rome, where the Pope released him from his duties as an abbot.

According to the *Vita*,⁴⁶ Corazzo was finally affiliated with the Sambucina Abbey, thus allowing Joachim to return to Pietralata. It was probably here where the abbot received a letter from the new Pope Clement III,⁴⁷ urging him to complete and submit the *Expositio* and the *Liber Concordiae*. It is

Lombardo (e non solamente contro la sua interpretazione trinitaria escatologica della storia),” Selge, “L’origine delle opere di Gioacchino da Fiore,” 127–128.

45 See *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 347: “Erat diebus illis in regione potens quidam vir, virtute dives et fortis, sed nullius lepre percussus ictur, utpote cui nec superba humilitas, nec palatine conversationis admissio in ministerio regis, nec pompa cinguli militaris ab imperatore Constantinopolitano sibi pro imitanda regia tunc ad ipsum legatione collati, nec potentatus et dignitas temporalis, nec domesticorum et maxime fratris episcopi quasi pro spe prolis diversa et diuturna tentatio virginitatem carnis ademit; et hic era dominus Oliveti, in cuius ville montibus locus est, qui dicitur Petra Lata, quam Ioachim Petram Olei nominavit; et in eo sibi quietis portum et angulum secessionis elegit.”

46 See *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 348: “Monachi Curacenses summiserunt se monasterio Fosse nove. Tunc exoneratus et expeditus cum plenitudine voti sui ad Petram Olei rediit ex tunc initiaturus concubitus Rachelis amplexus in propagazione seminis, quod accessit ad dexteram.”

47 The letter is published in the *Liber de Concordia*, (ed.) Daniel, 3, ll. 3–17: “Clemens episcopus servus servorum dei dilecto filio Ioachim abbati de Curatio salutem et apostolicam benedictionem. Rationis ordo suadet et debitum exigit caritatis ut in cunctis actibus nostris ad id plurimum intendamus, qualiter secundum veritatis evangelice testimonium opera nostra bona luceant coram hominibus ut ex eis proficiendi materiam capiant et exemplum. Cum igitur, iubente et exortante bone memorie Lucio papa predecessore nostro, Expositionem Apocalipsis et Opus concordie inchoasse et postmodum auctoritate domini pape Urbani successoris ipsius composuisse dicaris, caritatem tuam monemus et exhortamur in domino, per apostolica scripta mandantes, quatinus, laboribus tuis in hac parte optatum et debitum finem imponens, gratia dei prosequente, ad utilitatem proximorum opus illud complere et diligenter studeas emendare veniensque ad nos quamcitus se opportunitas dederit, discussioni apostolice sedis et iudicio te presentes. Si enim veils in abscondito retinere, diligenter cura prospicias, qua possis summi patrisfamilias offensam de talent scientie tibi commissio satisfactione placare.”

possible that Clement III wanted to verify Joachim's orthodoxy, perhaps in light of Godefroy of Auxerre's criticism⁴⁸ directed at the Calabrian abbot.⁴⁹ The controversy with Godefroy appears in the background of Joachim's *Intelligentia super calathis*.⁵⁰ It is a treatise of political theology, which addresses the ecclesiastic politics of the Church. Beginning with the vision of the basket of figs described in Jeremiah,⁵¹ Joachim suggests to the papal curia a political strategy of avoiding open hostility towards the Empire.⁵² The Church should instead be prepared for a new Babylonian captivity by abandoning every intention to resist the current sovereigns of the world (*principibus mundi*) with arms.⁵³

Clement III's letter forced Joachim to devote himself to completing the works that he started in Casamari. During his stay in Pietralata, while he was working on his main texts, Joachim became acquainted with the Cistercian monk Rainier of Ponza.⁵⁴ Very soon, however, Joachim's dwelling was no longer able to accommodate the continuous arrival of ever more devotees.

48 Godefroy's sermon is published in Grundmann, *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, 358–360.

49 See Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 222–228.

50 *Intelligentia super calathis plenis ficibus*, in *Gioacchino da Fiore: aspetti inediti della vita e delle opere*, (ed.) Pietro de Leo (Soveria Manelli, 1988), 135–148. The date is uncertain. Herbert Grundmann, "Kirchenfreiheit und Kaisermacht um 1190 in der Sicht Joachims von Fiore," in *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, 368, suggests dating this work to the early months of 1191. Roughly the same dating (1190–1191) is proposed in Selge, "L'origine delle opere di Gioacchino da Fiore," 124. For a different date (1187), cf. Alexander Patschovsky, "Il diagramma di Gioacchino da Fiore dei due alberi Gerusalemme/Babilonia ed Ecclesia/Roma," *Florensia* 16–17 (2002–2003), 7–23; and Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 204–207.

51 Jer. 24: 1–10.

52 In this regard, see Gian Luca Potestà, "Apocalittica e politica in Gioacchino da Fiore," in *Endzeiten. Eschatologie in den monotheistischen Weltreligionen*, (eds.) Wolfram Brandes and Felicitas Schmieder (Berlin, 2008), 213–248, in particular 235–240.

53 "Quid enim in finem preliari pro terrena substantia? Quin immo non pro substantia, sed pro Babilonie? [...] Dicat ergo et nunc veritas in scripturis ecclesie Petri, quod ait per semetipsam ipsimet apostolo Petro: *Converte gladium tuum in vaginam*," *Intelligentia super calathis plenis ficibus*, (ed.) de Leo, 143–144.

54 Here is the description of Rainier provided by the *Vita*: "Ibique primus accessit ad eum frater Rainerius, modo ut confidimus sanctus vir, ex tunc veritatis zelo succensus, liberalibus eruditus, sermone disertus, qui venit a finibus regni de insula Pontiana audire novi sapientiam Salomonis. Et factus fuit per Ispaniam postea 'legatus' et per omnia sue legationis loca testatus est de magistro discipulus; quia per hunc est in divinarum scripturarum ianuam introductus. Currebant igitur duo simul seniores, tamen eum in omnibus precurrerat et precedebat 'Ioachim' sapientie et scientie plenitudine sicut et sacerdotii dignitate," *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 348.

The Calabrian abbot and Rainier started searching in the Sila Mountains for a more suitable place where they could pursue their eremitic ideal. Finally, Joachim found the right place, “where the Fiore joins the River Arvo (*ubi Flos Albo flumini iungitur*).”⁵⁵ With his own hands, the abbot established the perimeter within which the new accommodations would be built. Then Joachim and Rainier returned to Pietralata, awaiting the construction of their hermitage. On this point the *Vita*⁵⁶ is very precise: when William II of Sicily died on 18 November 1189, twelve months had passed since the building of the lodging, and six months since the relocation of the hermits. Accordingly, Joachim and Rainier must have moved to Fiore in the late spring of 1189.

The death of William II created a more difficult situation for the community in Fiore. Under the reign of Tancred, who was crowned the new King of Sicily in November 1189, the Norman dignitaries threatened the autonomy of the hermitage, refusing to recognize Joachim’s title of land ownership. Thus, Joachim was forced to travel to Sicily during the winter of 1189–1190 to defend his community. The abbot was finally able to convince Tancred, who “was persuaded by the reasoning of the pious request and by the authority of the applicant,” to assign to the hermitage fifty measures of wheat of the fiscal tithes of the Kingdom.⁵⁷

During the same period in which Joachim went to Sicily, King Richard the Lionheart of England and King Philip II of France stayed at the court of Tancred in Messina before embarking on the Third Crusade. Joachim was invited by the rulers to comment on a passage from the Book of Revelation, which speaks about a seven-headed dragon, commonly seen as the Antichrist. Regardless of the specific content of Joachim’s interpretation,⁵⁸ it is important to underline the sequential understanding of both apocalyptic symbols, the dragon and the seven seals. While the heads of the dragon represent seven anti-Christian rulers from Nero to Mohammed to the future Antichrist, the seals represent the history of the persecutions of the people of God.

Indeed, after the early works *Genealogia* and *De prophetia ignota*, the Calabrian abbot continued to meditate on the prophetic and eschatological

55 *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 348.

56 “Cum hoc tale ceptum esset et estate tota magnum Deo phase Israelite novi, viri utique procedentes in Floris solitudinem, celebrarent et ageretur peregrinationis huiusmodi mensis sextus, duodecimus vero facti tugurii, ut tempestas anno, quo vir Dei predixerat, incoaret, rex obiit,” *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 348–349.

57 “Extendit rex ‘manum’ et huiusmodi rescriptum facultate pie petitionis et petitoris auctoritate constrictus indulsit, ut in nulla re molesti baiuli tribuerent annuatim quinquaginta salmas siliginis fischalium decimarum,” *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 350.

58 Cf. *Expositio in Apocalypsim, Liber Introductorius*, fol. 10ra–10va.

nature of the Apocalypse. One of the first results of his reflection was the *Praephatio super Apocalypsim*.⁵⁹ This work, written in the mid-1180s, consists of two sermons that recite, sometimes literally, certain passages from the *Genealogia*.⁶⁰ In the *Praefatio* one finds the first extensive analysis of the relationship between the seven seals described in the Revelation of John and the persecutions suffered by both the Jewish and the Christian people.

This specific issue is further examined in Joachim's *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*.⁶¹ This summary introduction (*introductionis summula*) to the *Apocalypse* represents an earlier version of the *Liber Introductorius*. The *Enchiridion*, written shortly before the mid-1190s, confirms and deepens the results of the previous years. One can interpret this text as an apocalyptic manual presenting and summarizing some of the abbot's most important doctrines. It includes an undeveloped version of the three orders and the three *status* of salvation history, the theme of the concordance between the two Testaments, and, above all, a more detailed analysis of the seven seals.

This is one of the key aspects of the biblical hermeneutics of the Calabrian abbot: by deepening and radicalizing previous interpretations,⁶² Joachim established a perfect correspondence between the seven apocalyptic seals and the double series of the tribulations. As far as the Joachimist corpus is concerned, this central issue finds its most complete and precise expression in the *De septem sigillis*.⁶³

De septem sigillis is a late work,⁶⁴ most likely written in the second half of the 1190s. It is an apocalyptic treatise that briefly summarizes the persecutions of

59 *Praephatio super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Kurt-Victor Selge, in "Eine Einführung Joachims von Fiore in die Johannesapokalypse," *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 46 (1990), 102–131.

60 In this regard, see Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 287–293, in particular 288.

61 *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Edward K. Burger, (Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies: Studies and Texts) 78 (Toronto, 1986).

62 See, for instance, Rupertus Tuitiensis, *Commentaria in Apocalypsim*, Patrologia Latina 169: 925; Alanus de Insulis, *In Distinctionibus Dictionum Theologicalium*, PL 210: 837; Onorius Augustodunensis, *Expositio in Cantica Canticorum*, PL 172: 367; Beda Venerabilis, *Explanatio Apocalypsis*, PL 93: 146; and Anselmus Havelbergensis, PL 188: 1149.

63 *De septem sigillis*, (ed.) Julia E. Wannenmacher, in Id., *Hermeneutik der Heilsgeschichte: De septem sigillis und die sieben Siegel im Werk Joachims von Fiore* (Studies in the History of Christian Traditions) 118 (Leiden, 2005), 336–355; cf. Joachim of Fiore, *I Sette Sigilli*, trans. Alfredo Gatto (Milan, 2013).

64 McGinn, *The Calabrian Abbot*, 34, is convinced that the *De septem sigillis*, referring only to the *concordia* between the Old and the New Testament, should be regarded as one of the first works of the abbot. Julia E. Wannenmacher, however, holds that this small treatise is a very late work (Wannenmacher, *Hermeneutik der Heilsgeschichte*, 248–251). Marjorie

the Old and New Testaments, symbolized by the seven seals of the *Apocalypse* and by their respective openings (*apertiones*). Each seal contains a tribulation related to a specific historical period. By means of the binary concordance between the persecutions of the two Testaments, Joachim outlines the future events that the Christian people will still have to face as part of their historical destiny.

In the *De septem sigillis* the Antichrist is replaced by Gog as the last enemy of the Church, corresponding to Antiochus IV Epiphanes as the last major enemy of Israel. Nevertheless, this treatise is closely related to the *De ultimis tribulationibus*,⁶⁵ a late work connected to the fifth book of the *Concordia*. It provides an exegesis of several chapters of the Book of Daniel, and it addresses the conflicts and the tribulations that characterize the history of salvation. What is especially noteworthy is the reference to the final conversion of the Jews in the third *status*, which connects it to yet another work of Joachim devoted exclusively to this topic: the coeval *Exhortatorium Iudeorum*.⁶⁶ Here the conversion of the Jewish people is integrated into the eschatological vision of the Calabrian abbot. Joachim analyzes several passages from the Old Testament in order to demonstrate the errors of the Jews with respect to their interpretations of the Trinity, the incarnation, and the spiritual reading of the Holy Scriptures.

The *Vita beati Joachimi* provides a further example of prophetic activity in addition to the meeting between Richard I of England and Philip II of France; namely, Joachim's encounter with the German King Henry VI in Naples in the late spring of 1191.

Henry, the son of Barbarossa, came to Italy to receive the imperial crown from the new Pope Celestine III and to take possession of the Norman Kingdom. Since Henry VI, by virtue of his marriage with Constance, claimed the throne of Sicily, he besieged the city of Naples with the intention of heading to Sicily. The unexpected resistance of the city enraged Henry and led him

Reeves does not indicate any precise date, but she states that even if this text is based only on the binary pattern, it provides an analysis of the sixth and the seventh seals perfectly in line with the abbot's later works. See M. Reeves and B. Hirsch-Reich, "The Seven Seals in the Writings of Joachim of Fiore," *Recherches de théologie ancienne et médiévale* 21 (1954), 230–231.

65 *De ultimis tribulationibus*, (ed.) Kurt-Victor Selge, "Ein Traktat Joachims von Fiore über die Drangsale der Endzeit: 'De ultimis tribulationibus,'" *Florentia* 7 (1993), 21–35.

66 *Exhortatorium Iudeorum*, (ed.) Alexander Patschovsky, (Fonti per la storia dell'Italia medievale: antiquitates) 26 (Rome, 2006). As far as the dating is concerned, Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 79–80, argues instead that the work was composed no later than 1187.

to commit countless cruelties.⁶⁷ At that point, perhaps invited by the Roman curia, Joachim went to Naples and strongly criticized the behavior of the Emperor. Based on a prophetic exposition of a passage from Ezekiel, Joachim prompted Henry VI to leave the city. The King was apparently impressed and granted the abbot safe passage to Salerno, while Henry himself was forced to end his siege and abandon Naples in the summer of 1191 due to the spread of an epidemic.

During a period of open hostility between the Roman curia and Henry VI, the General Chapter of the Cistercian orders summoned Joachim and Rainier on 24 June 1193. Joachim and Rainier failed to appear, as they and their monks would have been condemned as fugitives (*fugitivi*). Scholars have not determined the exact reason for this harsh reprimand, but it is plausible that the direct intervention of the Abbot of Cîteaux was in some way connected to the positions adopted by Joachim towards the Empire.⁶⁸ In fact, during the previous year, relations between the papacy and Henry VI had gradually worsened once the Roman curia recognized Tancred, Henry's arch rival, as the legitimate King of Sicily. Thus, it is likely that the abbot's desire to avoid any conflict between the Church and the Empire was not well received by the protagonists involved in Church politics during that period.

However, after the death of Tancred, Henry VI was determined to regain possession of the lands to which he claimed rights. On the way to Sicily, the son of Barbarossa had the opportunity to meet Joachim once again. As the *Vita* recounts,⁶⁹ the Emperor recognized the prophetic qualities of the Calabrian

67 "Ea tempestate Neapolim munitissimam Campanie civitatem imperator Henricus primo imperii sui anno ingressus regnum, quod sibi pro uxoris iure debebatur, obsederat; et obnitente dicti arte principis, cum inexpugnata Neapoli sanum sibi non esset ad ulteriora transire, versus in iram ceperat crudeliter agere, dehonestare personas ecclesiasticas et ecclesias devastare, preter maximas depopulationes et cedes, quas in dicti (?) deductum vulgus et populum per villas et oppida permissus vel potius iussus exercitus extendebat," *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 350.

68 See, for instance, Christoph Reisinger, *Tankred von Lecce: normannischer König von Sizilien 1190–1194* (Cologne, 1992), 249–250.

69 "Ingrediens Calabriam servis, qui morti non excederat, ita ut longius visum agnosceret, ostenderet, nominaret et salutaret accurens, 'hic est,' inquit 'abbas Ioachim, qui dudum cuncta nobis tam adversa, que precesserunt, quam prospera, que cernitis, prophetavit.' Denique tantam invenit gratiam coram eo et principibus eius, ut etiam locum nativitatis sue specialis custos, quam Theotonici stanszaran dicunt, sollicite custodiret. Factaque sunt Florense monasterium et casalis Celicum eius patria quasi due confugii civitates. Iaochim velut alter Hyeremias *tempore iracundie factus est reconciliatio*, maxime pro pauperibus intercedens," *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 352.

abbot, confirming the validity of the words that Joachim had addressed to him during their first encounter in Naples.⁷⁰ At Nicastro on 21 October 1194, Henry granted many privileges and concessions to Joachim and his community. The generosity of the Emperor went even further: after being crowned King of Sicily, Henry VI granted a perpetual income of fifty golden bezants to Joachim's monastery on 6 March 1195 due to "the honesty and the godliness of Joachim, venerable Abbot of San Giovanni in Fiore" (*honestas et religio fratris Ioachim venerabilis abbatis Sancti Ioannis de Flore*).⁷¹

Over the following two years, Joachim traveled widely: he went to Rome and to Sicily, where he heard the confession of Empress Constance. During the abbot's journeys, on 25 August 1196, Celestine III approved the monastic institutions drafted by Joachim. This date is generally considered to mark the birth of the Florentian Order (*Ordo Florentis*). Through the approval of Celestine, the small hermitage founded by Joachim and Rainier finally became a congregation officially recognized by the Pope and directly supported by the Emperor.

1.4 Later Life and Last Works

The sudden death of Henry VI (28 September 1197), along with the death of the aged Pope Celestine III (8 January 1198), profoundly affected the political balance between the Kingdom and the Roma curia. Celestine's successor, Pope Innocent III, was determined to continue the crusade to which Henry VI had devoted himself before his death, and thus he appointed Joachim to promote the imminent crusade throughout Sicily.⁷² Despite the death of Henry and his wife Constance, Joachim's profound influence in Sicily allowed him to obtain new concessions. Thanks to his considerable prestige, the Calabrian abbot

70 According to the *Vita*, Joachim addressed Henry VI in Naples in the following words: "At ne in aliquo feroces barbarorum animi et superbi cunei multitudinis armatorum pro rei magnitudine dubitarent, ad hominem, quem sensum et scientiam vidit intelligere propositionum, conversus adiecit: 'Futurum est etiam ut Tyrum et regem eius rex deiciat Babillonis, ut ipse postquam feceris sic, pro sententia que, ut dixi, merito est supra vos egressa, confusus, revertaris et capias regnum Sicilie sine bello, que facile tibi pòer Ezechielem et aliorum prophetarum verba probantur'; eumque per suas auctoritates scripturarum Dei hominem in his que eum credi deberent putari vix poterant, miraretur," *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, 351.

71 *Regesta Imperii*, 4, 3, n. 408, 166.

72 *Die Register Innozenz' III. 1. Pontifikatsjahr, 1198/99: Texte*, (eds.) Othmar Hageneder and Anton Haidacher, (Publikationen der Abteilung für Historische Studien des Österreichischen Kulturinstituts in Rom) 2/1/1 (Graz-Cologne, 1964), nn. 343–344, 512–514.

received permission to build another church on the territory of Caput Album, located at the source of the river Arvo, in the year 1200.

In 1200, Joachim wrote a testament letter⁷³ in which he refers to some of his works and claims to have written against the Jews (*Contra Iudeus*) and against the enemies of the Catholic faith (*Contra Catholice fidei adversarios*). Additionally, Joachim specifically mentions his three most important works: the *Concordia*, the *Expositio*, and the *Psalterium decem chordarum*. The fact that the Calabrian abbot does not mention the *Tractatus super quatuor Evangelia*⁷⁴ has led many scholars to date this work to the period between 1200 and 1202, the year of Joachim's death.⁷⁵

The *Tractatus*, divided into three treatises, has been considered by Marjorie Reeves as "probably the latest and most radical of Joachim's writings."⁷⁶ The text can be interpreted as a sacred evangelical reading (*sacra lectio evangelica*), both symbolic and historical, of the four canonic Gospels. According to Henri Mottu,⁷⁷ the importance of the *Tractatus* lies in three specific aspects: the relationship between hermeneutics and history, the apocalyptic nature of the Gospels, and the specific radicalism of the Joachimist interpretation.

In the *Tractatus*, the eschatological and apocalyptic theology of Joachim is most fully deployed and developed. The events described in the Gospels are considered in light of the third *status*. Consequently, the central and most meaningful events in history are no longer placed in the past works of Jesus Christ but rather in a future that has not yet been reached. According to this perspective, the incarnation of the Son is no longer the climax of divine self-revelation. The words of Jesus are now expected to be more completely fulfilled, and the Church itself, as the guardian of the salvation message of the Son's revelation, is believed to be perfected by the coming of the Spirit. The heterodox potential of this speculation was actualized in the erroneous transformation of Joachim's ideas as passed down by Gerard of Borgo San Donnino. Indeed, Gerard's *Introductorius ad Evangelium aeternum* was condemned in

73 The letter is published in *Liber de Concordia*, (ed.) Daniel, 4–6.

74 *Tractatus super quatuor Evangelia*, (ed.) Santi.

75 However, it is possible, as suggested by Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 348–349, that this work was composed in two different phases during the pontificates of Celestine III and Innocent III.

76 Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 27. See also Grundmann, *Neue Forschungen Joachim von Fiore*, 17.

77 Mottu, *La manifestation*, 41: "Notre choix comporte également des raisons plus générales et systématiques que nous allons passer maintenant en revue et qui sont : (1) le rapport entre herméneutique et histoire, particulièrement intéressant à examiner au niveau du *Tractatus*; (2) l'importance d'une exégèse de type apocalyptique appliquée aux Évangiles; (3) la radicalité communément admise de ce traité."

1255 by the cardinals gathered by Pope Alexander IV in Anagni. Even though the commission carefully differentiated between Joachim's own writings and Gerard's more radical views, the writings of Joachim of Fiore were condemned at the subsequent Provincial Synod of Arles (1263). However, neither Joachim of Fiore as an individual, nor the full body of his writings has ever been officially condemned by a council of the Roman Catholic Church. On the contrary, when the Fourth Lateran Council in 1215 condemned Joachim's *De unitate seu essentia Trinitatis*, an early work written against the Trinitarian theology of Peter Lombard, it preserved his reputation as a Catholic man (*vir catholicus*).⁷⁸

The *Tractatus super quatuor Evangelia* concludes the theological explorations of the Calabrian abbot. After receiving a small church near Petraftita from Archbishop Andrew of Cosenza—just when his fame and his prestige had reached their peak—Joachim became ill and died in San Martino of Casale on 30 March 1202. His remains are buried in the abbatial Church of San Giovanni in Fiore.

Lastly, one cannot conclude this essay without mentioning the *Liber Figurarum*.⁷⁹ Regardless of the issues related to its composition,⁸⁰ this work literally embodies and illustrates, through images of exquisite beauty, some of the main ideas and intuitions underlying the writings of the Calabrian abbot. These figures (*figurae*) provide unique access to Joachim's symbolic universe. In this regard, one can rightly refer to the Joachimist reflection as a concrete figurative theology;⁸¹ a type of theology, however, that was soon to be radically questioned at the Fourth Lateran Council.

78 For more on the background of the verdict, see Fiona Robb, "The Fourth Lateran Council's Definition of Trinitarian Orthodoxy," *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 48, no. 1 (1997), 22–43.

79 *Liber Figurarum*, (eds.) L. Tondelli, M. Reeves, and B. Hirsch-Reich, in *Il libro delle Figure dell'Abate Gioacchino da Fiore*, 3rd ed., 2 vols. (1953; repr. Turin, 1990). This work was discovered by Leone Tondelli in 1936, and it was edited, in its final version, in 1953 with the decisive collaboration of Marjorie Reeves and Beatrice Hirsch-Reich.

80 As far as the actual composition of the *Liber Figurarum* is concerned, Mottu, *La manifestation*, 39, along with Morton W. Bloomfield, "Joachim of Flora: A Critical Survey of his Canon, Teachings, Sources, Biography, and Influence," *Traditio* 13 (1957), 249–311, in particular 259, holds that it is unlikely that this work was written by Joachim himself, and was instead composed by one of his disciples around 1230 at the latest. However, this does not mean that the *Liber Figurarum* does not display the essentially symbolic and figurative nature of Joachim's thought. On this issue, see Marjorie Reeves and Beatrice Hirsch-Reich, *The Figurae of Joachim of Fiore* (Oxford, 1972).

81 See Marco Rainini, *Disegni dei tempi: il "Liber Figurarum" e la teologia figurative di Gioacchino da Fiore*, (Opera di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 18 (Rome, 2006).

1.5 Conclusion

The legacy of the Calabrian abbot is not only limited to the 12th and 13th centuries. Joachim's thought, in fact, has inspired many authors and theologians up to the present day, and his influence has extended over a broad cultural horizon. It is interesting that an abbot who throughout his entire life sought the recognition of the Roman curia became increasingly viewed as a promoter of radical criticism against the privileges of the Church. Though Joachim had always respected the legitimacy of temporal authority, he inspired, throughout the Middle Ages and beyond, revolts and rebellions against established powers. This can be understood and explained only by considering both the apocalyptic nature of Joachim's thought and his expectation of the imminent and immanent coming of the new Kingdom of the Spirit. Great systems of thought often survive beyond the concrete context of their appearance, and the thought of Joachim of Fiore was, without a doubt, one of the most daring theological endeavors of the Middle Ages.

Joachim the Theologian: Trinitarian Speculation and Doctrinal Debate

Peter Gemeinhardt

2.1 Introduction: Beyond Heresy and Orthodoxy

Joachim of Fiore is more famous for his theology of history than for his doctrine of the Trinity proper. He is, however, one of the few theologians explicitly sentenced by a general council: the Fourth Lateran Council of 1215 denounced Joachim's book on the unity and essence of the Trinity, which criticized Peter Lombard's *Sentences* for its doctrine of the Trinity. The Council, in turn, canonized the latter's Trinitarian teaching. In doing so, it not only took a decision between two different theologies of the Trinity, but also put an end to a debate that had persisted for more than one hundred years—a debate concerning the authority of tradition, especially of Augustine's doctrine. Furthermore, the Council's decision impacted grammar and dialectics on the doctrine of the Trinity. From this point forward, the tradition of Trinitarian thought had to be read according to the Lombard's rationale, and this decision would shape the perception of 12th-century Trinitarian debates until modern times.

Joachim, then, did not follow the road to victory. The Lateran Council condemned his treatise *De unitate seu essentia Trinitatis*, but—as should be emphasised—not Joachim personally. Right before his death in 1202, Joachim had submitted all of his writings to be scrutinized at the papal court,¹ and because of this decision, judgement was passed only on a single treatise, not on the author and, equally important, not on the order he founded. The Council corrected the “error of Joachim” (*error Joachimi*) without naming its author a heretic. In 1220, Pope Honorius III reminded the Calabrians “that we estimate him as a good Catholic and as an adherent of the holy and orthodox faith.”²

1 E. Randolph Daniel, (ed.), *Abbot Joachim of Fiore: Liber de Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti* (Transactions of the American Philosophical Society) 73, Part 8 (Philadelphia, 1983), 4, line 12 to 5, line 25 (fols. 2rb-va).

2 *Letter to Bishop Luke of Cosenza* (*Acta Sanctorum*, Maii VII, dies 29, col. 104D): “quia eum fuisse virum Catholicum reputamus, sanctæ fidei orthodoxæ sectatorem.” Joachim's readiness to

What is even more remarkable is that Innocent III, who presided over the Lateran Council, did not hesitate to borrow from Joachim's Trinitarian writings, even if he did not mention his source, as has been highlighted recently.³ Yet, there can be no doubt that Joachim felt compelled to criticize Peter Lombard on theological grounds; thus, the Council did not generate its accusation out of thin air. Unfortunately, the treatise in question has not been identified.⁴ But throughout his extant writings Joachim deals repeatedly with the Lombard's doctrine, and it is likely that his lost treatise would have resembled his teaching as it is preserved in the *Psalterium decem cordarum* and the *Confessio Trinitatis*.

Over the centuries Joachim has found many capable advocates who have tried to demonstrate that he was anything but a heretic. Some have argued that there is no real difference—or only a conceptual one—between Joachim and Peter Lombard; for example, in the way that Giovanni di Napoli has interpreted

subject his writings to papal censorship should not therefore lead one to the conclusion that Joachim died "in völliger Unterwerfung," as argued by Franz Förschner, "Der Trinitätsbegriff Joachims von Fiore und seine Folgen für die heilsgeschichtliche und natürliche Gotteserkenntnis," *Wissenschaft und Weisheit* 58 (1995), 128. Joachim had enjoyed the favor of the Roman curia for more than two decades, and to claim "se illam fidem tenere, quam Romana tenet Ecclesia" is also a sign of humble submission that shows he viewed himself as perfectly orthodox. See Giuseppe Alberigo and Alberto Melloni, (eds.), *Conciliorum Oecumenicorum Generaliumque Decreta*, vol. 2.1: The General Councils of Latin Christendom: From Constantinople IV to Pavia-Siena (869–1424) (Turnhout, 2013), 166, line 110 (hereafter cited as *COGD*).

- 3 Fiona Robb, "Did Innocent III Personally Condemn Joachim of Fiore?," *Florensia* 7 (1993), 77–91; Christoph Egger, "Joachim von Fiore, Rainer von Ponza und die römische Kurie," in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III. Atti del 5° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (16–21 September 1999), (ed.) Roberto Rusconi (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 13 (Rome, 2001), 129–62.
- 4 Occasionally, the anonymous *Liber contra Lombardum* has been identified as Joachim's treatise, but it is now accepted that it is from the late 13th century; see Fiona Robb, "A Late Thirteenth-Century Attack on the Fourth Lateran Council: The *Liber contra Lombardum* and Contemporary Debates on the Trinity," *Recherches de Théologie Ancienne et Médiévale* 62 (1995), 110–44. Another proposal denies the existence of any treatise entitled *De unitate seu essentia Trinitatis* and hints at the first book of the *Psalterium decem cordarum*, which contains all the subjects addressed in the Council's decree; cf., for example, Giovanni di Napoli, "Gioacchino da Fiore e Pietro Lombardo," *Rivista di Filosofia neo-scolastica* 71 (1979), 635–38, 675–85; Robert E. Lerner, "Joachim and the Scholastics," in *Gioacchino da Fiore*, (ed.) Rusconi, 251–64, 259f., note 8. See also the introduction to the critical edition of Joachim's *Psalterium decem cordarum*, (ed.) Kurt-Victor Selge, (Monumenta Germaniae Historica. Quellen zur Geistesgeschichte des Mittelalters) 20 (Hannover, 2009), XIX–XX, in which the editor identifies the condemned treatise as the first book of the *Psalterium*. This edition is hereafter cited as *Psalterium*; the page numbers of the first printed edition (Venice, 1527; repr. Frankfurt am Main, 1964) are indicated in brackets.

their different understandings of the notion *res*.⁵ Elsewhere, others have pointed out that both Joachim's attacks against the Lombard and the judgement of the Lateran Council regarding Joachim's doctrine were mistaken, an argument made in Axel Mehlmann's study.⁶ But even given the possibility of a mutual and somewhat tragic misunderstanding, one must still ask why Joachim so decidedly criticized what he perceived to be the Lombard's doctrine. Although the Council may indeed have condemned a doctrine that Joachim would not have fully defended himself, it certainly acted under the impression that Peter Lombard needed to be defended against a serious attack. In defeating Joachim, the Council set out to clarify the criteria for any forthcoming debate over the Holy Trinity by establishing a grammar of theology which was essentially linked with the manner of teaching within the theological schools in Paris and elsewhere.⁷ Regarding doctrinal questions as well as questions of theological language and method, the Lateran Council reacted to the observation that traditional accounts of Trinitarian doctrine had rapidly ceased to be up-to-date. Yet before 1215, it was not at all clear that Peter Lombard's *Sentences* would be reckoned the standard reference for Christian theology. Indeed, his christological doctrine of the Trinity had been sharply criticized before the Third Lateran Council of 1179,⁸ though the proceedings did not conclude with a solemn condemnation, and also his Trinitarian theology was far from being

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- 5 Di Napoli, "Gioacchino da Fiore," 651f.; see also Di Napoli, "La teologia trinitaria di Gioacchino da Fiore," *Divinitas* 23 (1979), 297, judging the argument of the *Psalterium*: "E siamo in linea con l'ortodossia dei Concilii e dei Padri." The earlier debate is thoroughly rehearsed in Marjorie Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy in the Later Middle Ages: A Study in Joachimism*, 2nd ed. (Notre Dame, 1993), 127f.
 - 6 See Axel Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis. Forschungen und Dokumente zur Trinitätstheologie Joachims von Fiore im Zusammenhang mit seinem verschollenen Traktat gegen Petrus Lombardus" (Ph.D. diss., Freiburg im Breisgau, 1991), 254f., 576. Unfortunately, Mehlmann's doctoral thesis has never been published, which is regrettable since his study is the most thorough investigation of Joachim's Trinitarian theology currently available.
 - 7 This point has been highlighted in Fiona Robb, "Intellectual Tradition and Misunderstanding: The Development of Academic Theology on the Trinity in the Twelfth and Thirteenth Century" (Ph.D. diss., University of London, 1993). By contrast, Stephan Otto fails to recognize the indeterminacy of the Trinitarian debate during Joachim's lifetime: "In seiner dogmatischen Grundintention ist Joachims Versuch legitim und richtig ... Freilich, die aus diesem richtigen Ansatz von Joachim gezogenen Konsequenzen sind irrig. Sie mussten das kirchliche Lehramt geradezu herausfordern." See Stephan Otto, "Die Denkform des Joachim von Fiore und das Caput 'Damnatus' des 4. Laterankonzils," *Münchener Theologische Zeitschrift* 113 (1962), 145f.
 - 8 This controversy is aptly summarized in Constant J. Mews and Clare Monagle, "Peter Lombard, Joachim of Fiore, and the Fourth Lateran Council," *Medioevo. Rivista di storia della filosofia medievale* 35 (2010), 98–102, and 106–11; see also Clare Monagle, *Orthodoxy and Controversy in Twelfth-Century Religious Discourse: Peter Lombard's "Sentences" and*

universally acknowledged. Thus, it seems appropriate to view both Joachim and the Lombard as participants in a long-standing debate and the Council as the arbiter of competing accounts of the Trinity.⁹

Although there has been considerable scholarship on the “renaissance” of the 12th century, the dynamics of this Trinitarian debate situated within the framework of political, cultural, and ecumenical developments are still awaiting an extensive study of their own.¹⁰ What follows may be taken as a limited but succinct contribution to this enterprise. Drawing on the work of Axel Mehlmann, Fiona Robb, and others, I shall try to approach Joachim as a theologian of the Trinity by placing him amid the landscape of emerging theological thought during the first half of the 12th century (Part 2). This section will be followed by a systematic survey of his Trinitarian doctrine (Part 3), after which I will address the condemnation of Joachim in 1215, including his own critique of Peter Lombard as well as those of Richard of St. Victor and others (Part 4). Finally, I will draw some general conclusions regarding Joachim the Theologian (Part 5).¹¹

2.2 A Brief Survey of 12th-Century Trinitarian Debate

In order to set the scene, we must briefly focus on previous controversies.¹² The 12th century was a time of profound changes concerning theological method

the Development of Theology (Turnhout, 2013), 73–111; Marcia L. Colish, “Christological Nihilism in the Second Half of the Twelfth Century,” *Recherches de Théologie Ancienne et Médiévale* 63 (1996), 146–55; and Pietro B. Rossi, “Contra Lombardum: reazioni alla cristologia di Pietro Lombardo,” in *Pietro Lombardo. Atti del XLIII convegno storico internazionale, Todi, 8–10 ottobre 2006* (Spoleto, 2007), 123–91.

- 9 See Mews and Monagle, “Peter Lombard, Joachim of Fiore, and the Fourth Lateran Council,” 85, and Monagle, *Orthodoxy and Controversy*, 139–65. Philipp W. Rosemann, *Peter Lombard* (Oxford, 2004), is surprisingly silent about the issue with Joachim and mentions the decision of Lateran IV only in passing (p. 119) in order to introduce his section on “Christological Nihilianism,” of which the Lombard was accused around 1179 (see especially 131–33).
- 10 A promising attempt has been made by Robb, *Intellectual Tradition* (unfortunately, her dissertation was never published and thus did not exert as much influence on current scholarship as it could have); see also her paper dealing with the Lateran Council’s decree: “The Fourth Lateran Council’s Definition of Trinitarian Orthodoxy,” *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 48 (1997), 22–43.
- 11 An abridged version of my analysis has been published as: Peter Gemeinhardt, “The Trinitarian Theology of Joachim of Fiore,” *Archa Verbi* 9 (2012), 9–33.
- 12 The following section is based on my paper: “Logic, Tradition, and Ecumenics: Latin Developments of Trinitarian Theology between c.1075 and c.1160,” in *Trinitarian Theology in*

and matter. Since c.1050, a new doctrinal debate around the Trinity had arisen, prompted both by the encounter with the Greeks concerning the *Filioque* and by the rediscovery of the impact of Boethian—that is, Aristotelian—logic on Trinitarian language and speculation. Within these discussions, the normativity of tradition and the towering figure of Augustine himself came under fire—not by plainly denying the authority of his teaching but by questioning long-held opinions in favor of a new reading of the doctrine of the Trinity. Only after 1160, when the *Sentences* of Peter Lombard successively gained their unique position and later even transcended the division between schools,¹³ did the actual debate calm down, but the questions that had arisen in the preceding decades continued to shape the theological landscape in Joachim's time.

2.2.1

Continuing the discussion of logic, the first controversy occurred between Anselm of Canterbury and Roscelin of Compiègne. The latter had raised the question of whether Trinitarian language had to follow the grammatical rules of human language, which would mean speaking not only of three Trinitarian persons but also of three substances, according to the Boethian notion of substance (*substantia*) as an individual rational being. Anselm, apparently without having read anything written by his opponent, complained about some “modern dialecticians” who were keen to question the long-held usage of the Church to speak of three persons but not of three substances.¹⁴ In Anselm's view, Roscelin's argument would lead to a mere unity of collection without any sense of real unity—a charge that would become crucial to the Lateran

the Medieval West, (ed.) Pekka Kärkkäinen (Schriften der Luther-Agricola Gesellschaft) 61 (Helsinki, 2007), 10–68, with full notes and bibliography. See also Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 45–73, and the short but lucid account of Alessandro Ghisalberti, “Monoteismo e Trinità nelle Psalterium decem chordarum,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore*, (ed.) Rusconi, 165–68. The literature concerning this topic is vast and cannot be cited in its entirety in the following footnotes.

- 13 See the *Chronicon Universale Anonymi Laudunensis*, (ed.) Alexander Cartellieri (Leipzig-Paris, 1909), 7 (ad annum 1163): “In Francia claruit Petrus Lumbardus ... Hic compilavit ... sentencias, quas in 4 distinxit libris; que opuscula a cunctis in theologia studentibus habentur in gloria, ita ut, postpositis omnibus glosaturis, hec sola legatur”; see also Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 104.
- 14 Anselm of Canterbury, *Epistola de incarnatione Verbi* 1, (ed.) Franciscus Salesius Schmitt, *Sancti Anselmi Opera Omnia*, 6 vols. (Stuttgart-Bad Cannstatt, 1968), 2:6, lines 8–10, 9, line 21f. For more on this debate, see my paper: “Anselms theologische Methode in seiner *Epistola de incarnatione Verbi*,” in *What is “Theology” in the Middle Ages? Religious Cultures of Europe (11th–15th Centuries) as Reflected in Their Self-Understanding*, (ed.) Mikolaj Olszewski (Archa Verbi, Subsidia) 1 (Münster, 2007), 39–57.

Council's condemnation of Joachim.¹⁵ Once the question had been raised, its importance could not simply be ignored. While arguing against Roscelin, Anselm readily went on to employ logical devices himself; namely, the Aristotelian notion of relation (*relatio*) that was to become paramount for forthcoming scholastic theology. In accordance with this logic, the Trinitarian persons were to be distinguished by their relations, while retaining their common substance.

This argument was further developed in the treatise *De processione Spiritus sancti* that attempted to convince the Greek bishops of Southern Italy to accept the *Filioque*. The Trinity is one in substance and three in relation; accordingly, any notion that does not define the relation of one person to another, that is, the origin of one person from another, has to be applied to the Trinity in common. Since the procession of the Holy Spirit does not pertain to the Father as being Father but as being God, it also has to be attributed to the Son, not with respect to his being Son, but with respect to his being God, too, in which he does not differ from the Father. Son and Spirit are "God from God," as the Nicene Creed had put it for the Son. In this way, Anselm tried to maintain the traditional Trinitarian language and at the same time clarify its implications for present purposes. Hence the concise formula:

The unity should never lose its consequences except when a relational opposition stands in the way, nor should the relations lose what belongs to them except when the indivisible unity stands in the way.¹⁶

The dialectical definition of relations, shaped for theological purposes, emerged as his answer to Roscelin's claims that theological reflection had to follow common grammatical usage.

2.2.2

But the language of reason was not easy to silence. At least this is the impression one has in hearing the complaints of Bernard of Clairvaux about the Trinitarian thought of Peter Abelard. The latter is well known for speaking about the Trinitarian persons as God's power, wisdom, and benignity. For him, the central issue was divine unity and simplicity while the threeness of persons

15 "Ergo singula quaeque res de illis tribus, id est singula quaeque persona, non est deus, sed ex tribus rebus conficitur deus." See Anselm, *Epistola de incarnatione Verbi. Recensio prior*, (ed.) Schmitt, 1:289, lines 4–6.

16 "Quatenus nec unitas amittat aliquando suum consequens, ubi non obviat aliqua relationis oppositio, nec relatio perdat quod suum est, nisi obsistit unitas inseparabilis." See Anselm, *De processione Spiritus sancti* 1, (ed.) Schmitt, 2:181, lines 2–4.

seemed secondary at first glance. Speaking of the Trinitarian persons as Father, Son, and Spirit is nothing other than “predicating the divine substance as powerful, wise, and benign, or to put it more precisely: It is in itself power, in itself wisdom, in itself benignity.”¹⁷ The unique role of the Father as the offspring of the whole Trinity serves as the starting point for the description of the Trinitarian persons by significations that resemble appropriations more closely than properties.¹⁸ That is, the persons are distinguished not primarily by their mutual processions but by divine qualities that are more characteristic for one person than for the others (while every appropriated quality still belongs to the whole Trinity). This led Bernard to complain that “our theologian, like Arius, introduces grades and degrees into the Trinity.”¹⁹ The reason for this alleged aberration from established Trinitarian orthodoxy was seen in the employment of words and names used by the profane sciences, as Otto of Freising reported. While Bernard charged Abelard with introducing subordinations into the Trinity, Otto accused him of Sabellianism; that is, of denying the real threeness of persons, thereby apparently following a charge already brought forth by Roscelin.²⁰ It is precisely against this accusation that Abelard defends himself in his *Theologia “Summi boni,”* in which he sets out to reject the charge of teaching Sabellianism, and in his *Theologia “scholarium,”* in which he is more concerned with distinguishing the three persons by virtue of their attributes. What was at stake in the trials of Abelard at Soissons (1121) and Sens (1141) and throughout

17 “Tale est ergo deum esse tres personas, hoc est patrem et filium et spiritum sanctum, ac si dicamus diuinam substantiam esse potentem, sapientem, benignam, immo etiam esse ipsam potentiam, ipsam sapientiam, ipsam benignitatem.” See Abelard, *Theologia Summi Boni* 1.2, (eds.) Eligius M. Buytaert and Constant J. Mews (Corpus Christianorum. Continuatio Mediaevalis) 13 (Turnhout, 1987), 87, lines 21–24. For more on Abelard’s Trinitarian theology, see the exhaustive study of Ingo Klitzsch, *Die “Theologien” des Petrus Abaelardus. Genetisch-kontextuelle Analyse und theologiegeschichtliche Relektüre* (Arbeiten zur Kirchen- und Theologiegeschichte) 29 (Leipzig, 2010); for the ternary mentioned above, see 58–78.

18 See *Theologia Summi Boni* 3.52, (eds.) Buytaert and Mews, 179, line 619 to 180, line 638; see also *Theologia Scholarium* 2.116, (eds.) Buytaert and Mews, 465, line 1728 to 466, line 1750.

19 “Theologus noster cum Ario gradus et scalas in Trinitate disponit.” See Bernard of Clairvaux, *Epistula* 330, (eds.) Jean Leclercq and Henri Rochais, *Sancti Bernardi Opera Omnia*, 8 vols. (Rome, 1957–1977), 8:268, line 7f.

20 Otto of Freising, *Gesta Frederici seu rectius Cronica* 1.50, (ed.) Franz-Josef Schmale (Akten und Quellen zur Deutschen Geschichte des Mittelalters) 17, 3rd ed. (Darmstadt, 1986), 226, line 22; see also Roscelin of Compiègne, *Epistola ad Abaelardum* 9.13, in *Der Nominalismus in der Frühscholastik. Ein Beitrag zur Geschichte der Universalienfrage im Mittelalter. Nebst einer neuen Textausgabe des Briefes Roscelins an Abälard*, (ed.) Josef Reiners (Münster, 1910), 73, lines 12–17.

the 12th century was the reality and individuality of the Trinitarian persons, or, in technical terms, whether to describe the Trinity by means of appropriations of divine qualities or by means of proprieties (that is, relations of origin).²¹

2.2.3

Bernard and Gilbert of Poitiers also debated this issue at the Synod of Rheims in 1148. Again, Bernard suspected the former chancellor of Chartres of being inclined to trust in reason more than in faith—contrary to Bernard’s own approach to Trinitarian theology:

This mystery is a great one and is to be venerated, not investigated. How is plurality in unity—is it by this unity, or is [this unity] itself in plurality? To investigate this is careless, to believe it is piety, and to know it means to live, that is, to live eternally.²²

Gilbert himself was concerned not with contemplation but with language. Axiomatically, he maintained that a “form”—like divinity (*divinitas*)—is always to be predicated by a “thing” that exists; that is, God (*deus*) or individual persons like Father, Son, and Holy Spirit.²³ Otherwise, one could not distinguish between the essence and the persons of God and could not avoid lapsing into Sabellianism. Thus, the personal proprieties (paternity [*paternitas*], filiation [*filiatio*], and unity [*conexio*]) must not be mixed up with divinity, and because of this, the divine essence must not be predicated as being God, as Otto of Freising renders Gilbert’s argument:

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- 21 Of course, speaking of proprieties and of appropriations is not simply contradictory (see Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 64). But Abelard’s influence on Peter Lombard is especially due to his distinction between essence and persons by means of relations rather than proprieties, and also for his understanding of essence as not generating or being generated, for which he was reproached by his former condisciple Alberic of Rheims. See Abelard’s account in *Theologia “Summi Boni”* 3.62, (eds.) Buytaert and Mews, 183, line 768 to 184, line 783; *Theologia Christiana* 3.109, 4.103, (ed.) Eligius M. Buytaert (Corpus Christianorum. Continuatio Mediaevalis) 12 (Turnhout, 1969), 235, lines 1287–1298, 316, lines 1626–1646; and *Historia Calamitatum* 753–56, (ed.) Jacques Monfrin, 4th ed. (Paris, 1978), 84.
- 22 “Sacramentum hoc magnum est, et quidem venerandum, nec scrutandum quomodo pluralitas in unitate et hac unitate, aut ipsa in pluralitate. Scrutari hoc temeritas est, credere pietas est, nosse vita, et vita aeterna est.” See Bernard of Clairvaux, *De consideratione ad Eugenium Papam* 5.8.18, (eds.) Leclercq and Rochais, 3:482, lines 13–16; quoted by Joachim in *Psalterium* 1.1, (ed.) Selge, 39, lines 18–20 (fol. 232rb).
- 23 See *Commentarius in Boethium* 3.1.27–37, in *The Commentaries on Boethius by Gilbert of Poitiers*, (ed.) Nikolaus M. Häring (Studies and Texts: Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies) 13 (Toronto, 1966), 193–95.

If one confesses without precaution that the divinity be God, that is, the divinity of the persons, he will have to admit everything that is said about one of the persons about the essence, too, and thus arrive at the plain absurdity to confess that, like the person of the Son, the divine essence had also become incarnate and had suffered.²⁴

In contrast to Abelard, Gilbert's teaching left no space for appropriations and focused exclusively on personal properties affixed to the persons sharing the divine essence. Hence, there is no possibility, for example, to locate the unity in one of the persons and then to coordinate it with the other persons by means of generation and procession. Unity and Trinity must be taken for granted, while the single main task of the theologian is to find an adequate way of speaking about them without neglecting the limits of human capacities. Responding to this approach, Bernard articulated the charge of teaching a quaternity, that is, of an addition of the three persons and the one divine essence, against Gilbert.²⁵ The heresiological significance of teaching a quaternity is obvious from the Fourth Lateran Council's decree, but it is worth mentioning that this issue had already been discussed several decades earlier.

Taken together, these controversies show that there was by no means a consensus about Trinitarian language and doctrine during the 12th century. How to use human language to describe the triune God was hotly debated, and there was still no agreement as to which hermeneutics were the most appropriate—the hermeneutics of relations and properties or of appropriations. Instead, many bishops felt that such a weighty question concerning the Creed and thus the foundation of the Church's faith should be settled not by local synods dominated by a Cistercian abbot, but by a universal council directed by the Pope himself, as some participants at Rheims claimed:

If within the Oriental Churches of Alexandria or Antioch such an issue would be disputed in the presence of all the patriarchs, no solid and enduring decision could be drawn without our consent; instead, it would be

24 "Ne videlicet, si indeterminate profiteretur divinitatem esse Deum, id est quamlibet personarum, cogeretur sine determinatione concedere quidquid de qualibet personarum et de essentia, sicque in hanc incideret absurditatem, ut, sicut personam filii, ita divinam essentiam indeterminate incarnatam passam confiteretur." See Otto of Freising, *Gesta Frederici* 1.59, 252, lines 22–28.

25 *De Consideratione* 5.7.15, (eds.) Leclercq and Rochais, 3:479, lines 11–21; only the first two lines are quoted by Joachim in *Psalterium* 1.2, (ed.) Selge, 55, line 4f. (fol. 234va), but it is beyond doubt that he knew Bernard's whole treatise. See Ghisalberty, "Monoteismo e Trinità," 178.

reserved for the Roman See, following the instructions and examples of the ancient Fathers.²⁶

This was exactly what the Lateran Council of 1215 would do. Now we must explore the Trinitarian teaching of Joachim in order to place him within this admittedly sketchy picture of Trinitarian debate during the 12th century.

2.3 Understanding the Trinity: Joachim the Theologian

Joachim's reflection on the Trinity, as he himself later reported, was originally inspired by a revelation. While staying at the monastery of Casamari, he gained experience in a very special way:

In the meantime, when I had entered the church to pray to Almighty God before the holy altar, there came upon me an uncertainty concerning belief in the Trinity as though it were hard to understand or to hold that three Persons were one God and one God three Persons. When that happened I was very frightened and deeply shocked and was moved to call on the Holy Spirit, whose feast day it was to deign to show me the holy mystery of the Trinity. The Lord has promised us that the whole understanding of truth is to be found in the Trinity (John 16:13). I repeated this and began to pray the psalms to complete the number I had intended. At this moment, without delay, the shape of a ten-stringed psaltery appeared in my mind. The mystery of the Holy Trinity shone so brightly and clearly in it that I was at once compelled to cry out: "What God is as great as our God?" (Psalm 77:14[rather 13]).²⁷

26 Otto of Freising, *Gesta Frederici* 1.61, 258, lines 5–10: "Certe, si in oriente, utpote Alexandria vel Antiochia, coram omnibus patriarchis huiusmodi tractaretur negotium, nihil firma stabilitate solidum sine nostra diffiniri valeret auctoritate, quin immo iuxta antiquorum patrum instituta vel exempla Romano servaretur examini terminandum."

27 "Interea cum ingrederer oratorium et adorarem omnipotentem Deum coram sancto altari, accidit in me velut hesitatio quedam de fide Trinitatis, acsi difficile esset intellectu vel fide esse tres personas unum Deum et unum Deum tres personas. Quod cum accideret timui valde, et conterritus vehementer compulsus sum invocare Spiritum sanctum cuius sacra sollempnitas presens erat, ut ipse michi dignaretur ostendere sacrum misterium Trinitatis, in quo nobis promissa est a Domino omnis notitia veritatis. Hec dicens cepi psallere ut ad propositum numerum pervenirem. Nec mora occurrit animo meo forma psalterii decacordi et in ipsa tam lucidum et apertum sacre misterium Trinitatis, ut protinus compellerer exclamare: Quis Deus magnus sicut Deus noster?" See *Psalterium*, pref.,

This passage reveals how Joachim intended his Trinitarian writings to be understood: they resulted not from intellectual effort but from spiritual experience. This was consistent with his self-conception as a man of spiritual understanding, if not a prophet, but certainly not a teacher or a philosopher.²⁸ His statements about the triune God stemmed from spiritual insight and from meditation on the Scriptures, reflections unattainable by applying grammatical and dialectical devices to biblical exegesis. This pretension was crucial to all of his writings, even if it would eventually become clear that his Trinitarian language was highly conventional. For Joachim, thinking about the Holy Trinity was no riddle to be solved; instead, it was a spiritual exercise of the mind: "The rational creature has to be formed in order to be similar to the supreme good!"²⁹

Yet this does not exclude Joachim's theological skill and familiarity with patristic literature and his abundant knowledge of the Scriptures. Even if Joachim himself polemicized against the "scholastics" (see below), he nonetheless employed the principle of "faith searching for understanding" (*fides quaerens intellectum*) for which Anselm of Canterbury has often been credited as the "father of scholastic thought."³⁰ The following pages will focus primarily on

(ed.) Selge, 9, line 10 to 10, line 6 (fols. 227rb-va); trans. Bernard McGinn, *The Calabrian Abbot: Joachim of Fiore in the History of Western Thought* (New York, 1985), 22.

28 Cf. his interview with the Cistercian Adam of Persigny c.1198 in which Joachim explains that he possessed "neither prophecy nor conjecture nor revelation" but only "the spirit of understanding, so that in God's Spirit I very clearly understand all the mysteries of Holy Scripture" ("Deus qui olim dedit prophetis spiritum prophetiae mihi dedit spiritum intelligentiae, ut in Dei spiritu omnia mysteria sacrae Scripturae clarissime intelligam"). Quoted from the *Chronicon Anglicanum* of Radulph de Coggeshall, (ed.) Joseph Stevenson (Rolls Series) 66 (London, 1875), 68; translation from McGinn, *Calabrian Abbot*, 29. See also the *Chronicon's* estimation of Joachim's complete lack of skills gained through schooling on 67: "... accepta divinitus, ut aiunt, sapientia, ut fere esset prius illiteratus." Matthias Riedl has pointed out that Joachim had no sense of inferiority in comparison to the prophets of the Old Testament; in fact, Joachim claimed to have understood wholly what was revealed to them only partially! See Matthias Riedl, *Joachim von Fiore. Denker der vollendeten Menschheit* (Epistemata) 361 (Würzburg, 2004), 171.

29 "Ad cuius summi boni similitudinem formanda erat rationalis creatura." See *Psalterium* 1.3, (ed.) Selge, 58, lines 8–9 (fol. 235ra); see also Ghisalberti, "Monoteismo e Trinità," 169; and Axel Mehlmann, "Confessio trinitatis. Zur trinitätstheologischen Hermeneutik Joachims von Fiore," in *Von der Suche nach Gott. Festschrift für Helmut Riedlinger*, (eds.) Margot Schmidt and Fernando Domínguez Reboiras (Mystik in Geschichte und Gegenwart) 15 (Stuttgart, 1998), 89: "Theologie ist betendes Denken und wird so zur 'confessio trinitatis'."

30 See Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio super Apocalypsim* [hereafter cited as *Expositio*] (Venice, 1527; repr. Frankfurt am Main, 1964), fol. 2vb (*liber introductorius*): "qui non potest credere

the faith (*fides*) without losing sight of the way of understanding (*intelligere*) for which Joachim argues. I shall begin with the *Confessio Trinitatis* published by Mehlmann, for it is within this credal text that Joachim gives a most concise summary of the Trinity, except for its impact on his understanding of history.³¹ To this I shall then add further passages from other writings, mainly from the *Psalterium decem cordarum*.

2.3.1

The *Confessio* begins with an appraisal of One and Three:

I confess the Holy Trinity, that is, Father and Son and Holy Spirit being one and true God, about whom the Scriptures say: "Listen, Israel, your god is one God" (Deuteronomy 6:4). And I confess that the Father is from no one, the Son from the Father alone, and the Holy Spirit from the Father and the Son.³²

intelligere nequit, quia tenebre incredulitatis obcecant oculos mentis eius, et palps in circuitu ostium non sinitur invenire. Eis autem qui spernunt gloriam suam, datur a Domino ut possint credere, datur ut credentes intelligere queant." Thus, the distinction between "monastic" and "scholastic" theologians creates difficulties rather than resolves them; see Lerner, "Joachim and the Scholastics," 251; and also Bernard McGinn, who describes the relationship between monks and masters as one of "complementary diversity" ("*RATIO* and *VISIO*: Reflections on Joachim of Fiore's Place in Twelfth-Century Theology," in *Gioacchino da Fiore*, (ed.) Rusconi, 30).

31 Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 217–29 from Padua, Biblioteca Antoniana, 322, Scaff. XIV, fols. 153va–154ra (written c.1220–1230); the text was partly preserved within the *Protocol of Anagni* in 1255. Di Napoli, "Gioacchino," 634 has denied the authenticity of the creed, an opinion that Mehlmann has convincingly refuted (pp. 207f.). Mehlmann presumes there was an attack by unknown *magistri* that caused Joachim to give an abridged account of his understanding of doctrine (pp. 205f.). In this case, the *Confessio Trinitatis* might stem from the last years of the abbot's life (see below for the critique of Peter the Chanter). In any case, the text is a document that exemplifies Joachim's "orthodox" Trinitarian thought (cf. Riedl, *Denker*, 212: "Er ist aufs peinlichste bedacht, nicht am katholischen Dogma zu rühren"), detached from any speculation on the history of salvation. Gian Luca Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse. Vita di Gioacchino da Fiore* (Rome, 2004), 100–4 compares the *Confessio fidei* with the so-called confession of faith of Valdès (set up by the Cardinal Henry of Albano in 1190) and also regards the former as an anti-heretical text. This view has been rejected in Eugène Honée, "Joachim of Fiore: The Development of his Life and the Genesis of his Works and Doctrines. About the Merits of Gian Luca Potestà's New Biography," *Church History and Religious Culture* 87 (2007), 47–74, esp. 61.

32 "Confiteor sanctam trinitatem, id est patrem et filium et spiritum sanctum esse unum verum deum, de quo dicit scriptura: 'Audi Israel: deus tuus unus est.' Confiteor patrem esse a nullo, filium a patre solo, spiritum sanctum a patre et filio." See Joachim of Fiore, *Confessio Trinitatis*, (ed.) Mehlmann, 217.

Likewise, the *Psalterium* speaks of One and Three in God:

God is one without confusion of the persons, threefold according to the persons without any division of the substance. Always he is what he is, and never can he be anything other than threefold and one ... He is not greater in three persons than in a single one because power, wisdom, and love cannot be greater in the way that the Father is mighty, wise, and loving, than the way that the Son is mighty, wise, and loving, or the way that the Spirit is mighty, wise, and loving. We do not deny the Trinity by confessing one substance, but we refrain from any dismembering of parts, which a carnal understanding might think of. As the very truth we confess piously and faithfully that three persons are one and one is three persons: The Father is from no one, the Son is from the Father, and the Paraclete is from both; only the Son is born from the Father alone, but the Holy Spirit proceeds from both of them.³³

But the following sentences of the *Confessio* bear special significance:

I confess according to Augustine that the Father generated the Son (who is equal to him from eternity) by virtue of substance; the Son is eternally generated by the Father, and the Spirit proceeds eternally from the Father and the Son.³⁴

This appeal to the authority of Augustine was a major issue in Joachim's quarrel with Peter Lombard as well as in 12th-century theological debates in general. Reading the *Confessio*, it gradually becomes clear to the reader why the notion of substance is employed in order to explain the eternal generation of the Son:

33 "Est enim Deus unus sine confusione personarum, trinus in personis sine divisione substantie. Semper est id quod est nec unquam potest esse nisi trinus et unus ... Non maior est in tribus personis quam in singulis, quia nec maior potentia sapientia caritas esse potest, qua potest sapit et amat Pater, nec maior qua potest sapit et amat Filius, nec maior qua potest sapit et amat Spiritus sanctus. Hec substantia, que Deus est, una est et summe una et supra quam dici possit simplex est et una natura. Nec negamus trinitatem in unius confessione substantie, sed partium scissiones, quas carnalis sibi fingit intellectus, horremus. Veracissime enim tres personas hoc unum et hoc unum tres personas pie ac fideliter confitemur, Patrem a nullo, Filium a Patre, ab utroque Paraclitum, nasci solum Filium a solo Patre, Spiritum vero sanctum ab utroque procedere." See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.1, (ed.) Selge, i8, line 12 to 19, line 4 (fol. 229ra).

34 "Confiteor cum Augustino patrem substantialiter genuisse filium sibi per omnia coaeternum, filium aeternaliter genitum esse a patre, spiritum sanctum aeternaliter a patre filioque procedere." See Joachim of Fiore, *Confessio Trinitatis*, (ed.) Mehlmann, 218.

I confess that the Father is true God, true wisdom, true essence, and this is not to be understood as confused in a Sabellian manner, but the Father alone is ungenerated God, ungenerated wisdom and ungenerated essence; the Son alone is generated God, generated wisdom and generated essence, and we understand this in accordance with the Fathers: The Son is “God from God, light from light,” “wisdom from wisdom,” and “essence from essence.” But both are not at the same time God from God, as Augustine points out, but only the Son is from God, i.e. the Father.³⁵

Throughout Joachim’s extant writings, Sabellianism appears as the most serious threat to the Trinitarian faith. Of course, Arianism must be avoided as well, and Joachim repeatedly defends himself against accusations of dividing (*scissio*) the divine persons: “While trinity (*trinitas*) does prevent us from thinking of a single person, unity (*unitas*) is spoken of in order not to divide the one substance,” as the *Psalterium* puts it.³⁶ But the main problem is Sabellianism, as the *Confessio* witnesses:

According to the aforementioned belief, I confess that the Son is from the essence of the Father, that is, from the ungenerated substance, which the Greeks call the hypostasis, the Latins the person of the Father; not—what a horror!—from the substance of the whole Trinity as if from what is common, which would mean to follow, even with other words, Sabellius; but, as mentioned above, from the Father’s substance alone.³⁷

35 “Confiteor patrem esse verum deum, veram sapientiam, veram essentiam, nec confuse id sicut Sabellius, sed patrem solum ingenitum deum, ingenitam sapientiam et ingenitam essentiam, filium solum genitum deum, genitam sapientiam et genitam essentiam secundum quem intellectum accipiendum dico, quod traditum nobis est a patribus sanctis: esse scilicet filium ‘deum de deo, lumen de lumine,’ ‘sapientiam de sapientia’ et ‘essentiam de essentia.’ Neque enim, ut ait Augustinus, ambo simul deus de deo, sed tantum filius de deo, scilicet patre.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Confessio Trinitatis*, (ed.) Mehlmann, 218–20.

36 “Ad aliquid ergo dicta est ‘trinitas,’ ad aliquid ‘unitas’: trinitas ad vitandam singularitatem persone, unitas ad cavendam unius divisionem substantie.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.1, (ed.) Selge, 34, lines 1–3 (fol. 231va).

37 “Et secundum hoc confiteor filium esse de substantia patris, id est de substantia ingenita, quam Graeci dicunt hypostasis, Latini vero personam patris; non—quod absit!—de substantia totius trinitatis quasi de communi, quod est, mutatis licet verbis, sapere cum Sabellio, sed de solius—ut dixi—patris substantia.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Confessio Trinitatis*, (ed.) Mehlmann, 220–21.

Joachim fears any misconception of divine unity in terms of singularity. In the *Confessio* he claims: “They are one by virtue of unity, not singularity.”³⁸ The Christian faith does not adhere to a single God in a numerical sense, nor to a composite God consisting of distinct parts.³⁹ As indicated above, Gilbert of Poitiers was charged with missing the unity of God while maintaining only the threeness of persons, while Abelard was accused of modalism because he spoke of God by virtue of appropriations. It is likely that Joachim knew about those controversies from Bernard’s writings⁴⁰—even if they are not mentioned in his own—thus providing a hint about who “Sabellius” and “Arius” were in the second half of the 12th century, at least for Joachim.

2.3.2

What is at stake here—and in contemporary Trinitarian debate in general—is God’s unity and simplicity. It is not surprising that Joachim refers to Augustine’s authority, but it is with Augustine that the case becomes interesting. The passage quoted above: “The Son is ‘God from God, light from light,’ ‘wisdom from wisdom,’ and ‘essence from essence’” is quite significant for the Trinitarian uncertainties of the time. The first two terms were taken from the Nicene Creed, while the latter was added by Augustine in order to make it even clearer that the Son is like the Father in every respect, and is only distinguished by being Son. Describing their relationship not only as “God from God” but also as “essence from essence” was crucial to the development of late-antique Trinitarian theology as well as for medieval Trinitarian debate.⁴¹ Augustine’s Trinitarian theology followed the Nicene Creed of 325 in speaking about the Son not only in terms of the famous *homousios*, but also, and at this moment even more importantly, as being “from the substance of the Father (*ex substantia Patris*).”⁴² While Greek Nicene theology withdrew from this manner of

38 Joachim of Fiore, *Confessio Trinitatis*, (ed.) Mehlmann, 221: “unum sunt unitate, non singularitate.”

39 “Nam neque singularem deum, nec compositum me fateor adorare, sed eum, qui trinus est et tamen non compositus, simplex et unus, nec tamen singularis.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Confessio Trinitatis*, (ed.) Mehlmann, 223–24.

40 According to Potestà, *Il tempo*, 39, Joachim might have gained access to Bernard’s writings either at Casamari or at the Roman curia (if not already during his stay at the Cistercian monastery of Corazzo).

41 For more on this subject, see Bruce D. Marshall, “*Utrum essentia generet*: Semantics and Metaphysics in Later Medieval Trinitarian Theology,” in *Trinitarian Theology in the Medieval West*, (ed.) Kärkkäinen, 88–123, for Joachim esp. 92–95.

42 See Peter Gemeinhardt, “Lateinischer Neunizänismus bei Augustin,” *Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte* 110 (1999), 149–69. For the Trinitarian controversy in general, see Lewis

speaking and therefore omitted the clause in the Creed of Constantinople of 381, for Latin medieval theology the term “from the substance of the Father” remained relevant for the relation between Father and Son.

Since Nicaea, the problem had been the univocal usage of substance in the sense of essence (*ousia*) and person (*hypostasis*); hence a famous passage in Augustine (later echoed in Boethius) complaining about the difficulty with Trinitarian language.⁴³ Following the everyday grammar of Latin, one could render “hypostasis” as “substance” (*substantia*) and thus speak of one essence and three substances in God. But this would mean deviating from the theological usage of the notion of “substance,” so that Augustine allowed himself to speak of one substance and three persons only while registering his deep dissatisfaction. Joachim himself recalls this debate by remarking that the notions of “person” (*persona*) and “essence” (*essentia*) are capable of meeting the needs of Trinitarian language not because of their meaning itself but because the Fathers defined them appropriately. Accordingly, both “person” and “essence” can be used in relation to divine substance and therefore allow one to speak of a plurality of persons while avoiding any ontological division between them.⁴⁴

Augustine and Anselm of Canterbury, drawing on this part of his predecessor's thoughts, tried to solve this problem by defining the Trinitarian persons by virtue of their mutual relations, stressing the origins of Son and Spirit in the Father and of the Spirit in the Son as well.⁴⁵ Later scholastic theology would employ the Anselmian notion of “relation” as the one and only way to

Ayres, *Nicaea and Its Legacy: An Approach to Fourth-Century Trinitarian Theology* (Oxford, 2004); for more on the topic of “essence from essence,” see Ayres, *Augustine and the Trinity* (Oxford, 2010), 199–229.

43 Augustine, *De Trinitate* 5.8.9–5.9.10, (eds.) W.J. Mountain and F. Glorie, 2 vols. (Corpus Christianorum. Series Latina) 50/50A (Turnhout, 1968), 1:216, line 43 to 217, line 51; Boethius, *Contra Eutychem* 3, in Boethius, *De consolatione philosophiae. Opuscula theologica*, (ed.) Claudio Moreschini (Munich-Leipzig, 2000), 219, lines 258–264.

44 “Quamvis, inquam, persone secundum substantiam dicte sint et quamvis essentia secundum substantiam dicta sit, hoc tamen interest, quod nomen personae pluralem admittit numerum, ita ut tres esse dicantur, essentia una trium modis omnibus execrat scissionem—non quia nomen istud habet hoc in proprietate sui, sed quia ita positum est a patribus, ut esset quo responderemus hereticis querentibus a nobis, que tria vel quid unum.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.1, (ed.) Selge, 40, line 10 to 41, line 1 (fol. 232rb).

45 Certainly, both employed the notion of *persona*, but they did so with the least amount of precaution when the ecclesiastical doctrine had to be defended against Latin Arians or against Roscelin and the Greeks. The difficulties with “person” occur mainly in speculative texts such as the *De Trinitate* and the *Monologion*.

distinguish the three personal entities within the one Godhead: persons are simply nothing but relations.⁴⁶ During the 12th century, however, this line of thought was by no means commonplace. For example, Richard of St. Victor claimed that speaking of relations might lead to certain shortcomings, such as a “monotheistic” preponderance of the Oneness over the Threeness. He therefore tried to establish a new definition of “person” inspired by the Boethian notion of personhood but applicable to divine beings: namely, “the incommunicable existence of a divine nature.”⁴⁷ What distinguishes the persons is their mode of origin: being derived from itself, from one person, and from two persons. Richard’s writings speak of an “ungenerated person” (*persona ingenita*), a “generated person” (*persona genita*), and a third person, “which is from the ungenerated as well as from the generated one” (*quae est tam ab ingenito quam a genito*).⁴⁸ These modes of origin are in turn fundamental for the divine appropriations of, for example, power, wisdom, and benignity, or unity, equality, and connection.⁴⁹

Compared to Joachim’s writings, Richard certainly provides a more subtle approach to questions of Trinitarian language. Yet the equal stress on the distinct reality of the persons, distinguished by their modes of origin or their proprieties, is striking. For Richard as well as for Joachim, appropriations seem to be adequate only if the balance of simplicity and unity within the triune divinity is strictly maintained:

What we received from the catholic and orthodox Fathers concerning the simple nature of God must be carefully scrutinized; that is, how in the Godhead of the Trinity everything that is powerful, exceptional, glorious, and joyful is said, believed, or understood in respect to all three persons, so that the abundance of divine sublimity exists no less within the single persons than within the three of them. And behold, what is said to belong

46 See Thomas Aquinas, *Summa theologiae* 1 q. 29 a. 4 c: “Persona divina significat relationem ut subsistentem.” Cf. the comprehensive survey in Russell L. Friedman, *Intellectual Traditions at the Medieval University: The Use of Philosophical Psychology in Trinitarian Theology among the Franciscans and Dominicans, 1250–1350*, 2 vols. (Studien und Texte zur Geistesgeschichte des Mittelalters) 108/1–2 (Leiden/Boston, 2013).

47 “Persona divina sit divinae naturae incommunicabilis exsistentia.” See Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 4.22, (ed.) Gaston Salet (Sources chrétiennes) 63 (Paris, 1959), 280.

48 Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 6.15, (ed.) Salet, 418.

49 Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 6.15, (ed.) Salet, 420; see also *De tribus personis appropriatis in Trinitate* 1, (eds.) Jean Ribailier, Richard de Saint-Victor: Opusculs théologiques (Textes philosophiques du Moyen Âge) 15 (Paris, 1967), 182.

to the three is not to be divided in parts by the single persons, but belongs totally and unaffectedly to every single person.⁵⁰

Therefore, appropriations need a secure base that is found in the notion of substance.⁵¹ Joachim employs the notion of substance more freely than Augustine, thereby equaling the Greek “hypostasis” and the Latin “person” while refraining from any solution to the problem of the univocal usage of “substance.” In order not to confuse the Trinitarian persons, as Sabellius appears to have done, Joachim insists on the persons being individual substances and, therefore, on the Son being everything that the Father is except being un-created (*ingenitum*): while the Father is God, light, wisdom, and essence in an ungenerated form, the Son is generated as God, light, wisdom, and essence. But according to the passage from Augustine quoted above, being created (*genitum*) also meant being “essence from essence” (*essentia de essentia*), and Joachim understood this as “from the essence” or the “substance of the Father” (*substantia patris*).

50 “Quod de simplici illa natura que Deus est a patribus catholicis et orthodoxis nobis traditum est, subtili est scrutatione pensandum, quomodo scilicet in deitate Trinitatis quicquid est potens quicquid eminens quicquid gloriosum aut felix, totum esse dicatur credatur et intelligatur cuiuscumque persone, ita ut plenitudo ipsa divine sublimitatis non minor sit in singulis quam in tribus, immo ut quod trium esse dicitur, non per singulas personas dividatur in partibus, sed totum sit integre singulorum.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.3, (ed.) Selge, 56, lines 6–13 (fol. 234va). See also *Expositio*, fols. 48va-b: “Verum, quia unus deus sunt Filius et Spiritus sanctus, nec Filius sine Spiritu sancto, nec Spiritus sanctus sine Filio, sicut nec Pater sine eis aliquid operatur. Et tamen, quia tres sunt, aliqua eorum, quae operantur simul, habent potius imaginem Patris, aliqua Filii, aliqua Spiritus sancti. Et nonnulla specialius attribuuntur Patri, sicut potentia, timor et fides; nonnulla Filio, ut humilitas, veritas et sapientia; nonnulla Spiritui sancto, ut caritas, gaudium et libertas.” In particular, the ternary of *potentia*, *sapientia*, and *amor* (or *caritas*) is repeated frequently; cf. *Psalterium* 1.3, (ed.) Selge, 59, line 9 to 62, line 2; 97, line 13 to 98, line 3 (fols. 235rb-va; 240vb-241ra). The guiding principle is established in *Psalterium* 2.3.4, (ed.) Selge, 212, lines 2–5 (fol. 259vb): “Idcirco pro loco et tempore tacet scriptura de duabus personis et loquitur de una, ut opus illud, de quo agitur, ascribatur ei proprietate misterii.”

51 See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.2, (ed.) Selge, 50, lines 4, 15–51; 52, lines 12–15 (fols. 233vb-234ra): “Quicquid ibi dicitur secundum substantiam, id est quicquid ibi dicitur quod substantiam alicuius persone demonstret, totum dicatur esse in alia, hoc est vel in Patre vel in Filio vel in Spiritu sancto ... Est enim substantia genita in ingenta et e converso, et nichilominus procedens substantia in genita et in ingenta et e converso, ita tamen ut propter summam unitatem sic alia persona dicatur et sit substantia ingenta alia substantia genita, alia procedens, ut tamen simul tres persone non sint tres substantie, sed una substantia ... nomine essentie intelligamus simul ingentum et genitum et procedens.”

During the 12th century this understanding of substance was employed quite frequently, and it vanished only after the Lateran Council of 1215 had established other criteria of Trinitarian grammar as universally binding.⁵²

To be sure, when Augustine writes about the Son being “essence from essence,” his aim is to maintain the equality and consubstantiality of Father and Son; in other words, to make sure that they are equal while remaining two, thereby to respond to the “Arian” challenge of the 4th century. In turn, Joachim struggles with current accounts of the Trinity by virtue of relations and attempts to ensure that Father and Son are two while being equal and one God (but not a numerical one), thereby reacting to a contemporary “Sabellian” theology. Therefore, he underscores the generation of the Son not from the substance of the whole Trinity but from the substance of the Father alone—not from what is common to all three persons but from what pertains to the Father in a substantial manner. When he speaks of relations, this should not be understood in the Anselmian sense. Furthermore, he does not draw any distinction between the “inner” and the “economical” Trinity; that is, between eternal processions and salvific missions. He deliberately avoids such a distinction in order to derive information about the history of salvation from the relations within God. This indicates that his overall focus is to present a theology capable of elucidating God’s salvific history, not to take part in debates within the scholastic schools or even in the Trinitarian controversy with the Greeks.⁵³ Indeed, when he turns to the latter issue, his primary concern is not the appropriateness of the *filioque* doctrine itself but the prospect that the Greeks will be reunited with the Latin Church once they have gained insight into the double procession of the Holy Spirit (see below). His account of the five Trinitarian relations (including the temporal mission of the Spirit) must have been as suspect to his contemporaries as his use of the notion of substance, not least because of his non-technical framework.⁵⁴

52 It is thus of greater importance than admitted in Eugène Honée, “Joachim of Fiore: His Early Conception of the Holy Trinity. Three Trinitarian ‘Figurae’ of the Calabrian Abbot Reconsidered,” *Ephemerides Theologicae Lovanienses* 82 (2006), 103–37, 117. Within the *fides catholica* figure in the *Liber figurarum*, the divine processions are conceived as a traditional arrangement, but (in contrast to Honée’s account) the main point is the *essentia* terminology used to explain the *perfidia* figure at the bottom of the page.

53 McGinn, *Calabrian Abbot*, 169, argues that Joachim’s failure to draw such a distinction is “a sign of his basic difference from the scholastics ... but it coheres quite well with his overall project of avoiding any chasm between the inner life of the Father, Son, and Spirit and the history of the world.”

54 See the list of relations in Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 3.3, (ed.) Selge, 202, lines 4–18 (fol. 258r), referring to the Trinitarian figures depicted right before this passage (ibid., 197 [fols.

Notwithstanding those questions of terminology, Joachim's writings illustrate a typical feature of 12th-century theology: coming to terms with tradition and accommodating that tradition to the questions of the era (whose special dynamics arose from the vague, traditional boundaries of Trinitarian thought). In order to counter Sabellianism, Joachim advances a fresh reading of the Athanasian Creed:

Now when we say: "God is Father, God is Son, God is Holy Spirit, and still there are not three Gods but one God," then we maintain at the same time that the person of the Father is substance, the person of the Son is substance, and the person of the Holy Spirit is substance, and yet there are not three substances but one substance.⁵⁵

While the conceptual distinction between substance as common to all three persons and substance as equivalent to person remains indeterminate, the crucial point is that the one divine substance only exists within the community of the three personal substances, which points to the concept of circuminsession or interpenetration ("perichoresis").⁵⁶ The reality of the Trinity is to be found only within the persons, not beyond the threeness of substances (or even in a fourth substance!). Along with the Son's generation from the substance of the Father, no great malice is needed to see Joachim as defending the divine essence generating the Son—indeed, this is exactly what the Lateran Council would accuse him of doing.

2.3.3

While the generation of the Son was mainly discussed within the Western scholastic realm, Joachim touched on a controversial matter in Greek theology when he addressed the procession of the Holy Spirit. For Latin writers, it was obvious that the Holy Spirit proceeded both from the Father and the Son (*ex patre filioque*). Since Augustine had established that the Spirit was

256v-257r]], which differ from the three basic relations known to Anselm and from the four relations later advocated by Thomas Aquinas.

55 "Quomodo dicimus Deum Patrem Deum Filium Deum Spiritum sanctum nec tamen tres Deos sed unum Deum, ita dicamus personam Patris esse substantiam, personam Filii esse substantiam, personam Spiritus sancti esse personam, nec tamen tres substantias sed unam substantiam." See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.1, (ed.) Selge, 35, lines 5–9 (fol. 231vb). See also *Fides Athanasii* 15f. and *Expositio*, fol. 18va: "tres Deos aut Dominos dicere catholica religione prohibemur."

56 Robb, "The Fourth Lateran Council's Definition," 28; see also Otto, "Die Denkform," 149; and Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 566f.

equal to Father and Son (and therefore was God like them) by employing the double procession, the *filioque* issue had become a necessary corollary of Latin Trinitarian theology.⁵⁷ Furthered by advanced communication between East and West during the last hundred years before Joachim's lifetime, it had become known that the *filioque* presented a severe problem for, *sit venia verbo*, "ecumenical" theology. Greek theologians were deeply embarrassed when they learned how their Latin counterparts conceived of the Holy Spirit's eternal procession, and since the time of Patriarch Photius (d. 891), Eastern theology was based on a "monopatristism": an axiom that the Spirit proceeded from the Father *alone* (thereby remarkably narrowing the range of Greek patristic thought). In 1054, the *filioque* had been among the disputed issues between Humbert of Silva Candida and Michael Cerularius, and half a century later Anselm of Canterbury developed his theory of Trinitarian relations in order to persuade the Greeks of Southern Italy at the Council of Bari in 1098 that the *filioque* was not only not heretical, but even necessary for an appropriate understanding of God's unity and Trinity. By contrast, polemics had grown since then, and during the 12th century a "schism" was even spoken of, whose main theological feature was the difference concerning the Holy Spirit (whereas in later centuries the papal primacy proved to be the main stumbling block). It was thus no secondary issue on which Joachim made some important remarks.

His *Confessio Trinitatis* employs the notion of *filioque*, as we have seen, without paying much attention to it. The necessity and adequateness of the *filioque* is stated repeatedly, but only in passing. For the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, the *filioque* together with the Augustinian notion of the Spirit as community (*communio*) or bond (*vinculum*) of Father and Son is nothing less than the hallmark of orthodoxy. After pointing out that the Christian faith consists of the knowledge of the three persons including their proprieties, Joachim adds that no one can be called orthodox who does not believe "that there is one single God, that there are three equal persons from eternity onward, and that the Son is generated from the Father alone, but the Holy Spirit proceeds from the Father and from the Son."⁵⁸ This is perfectly in line with the Augustinian tradition and

57 This story has been told in detail in Peter Gemeinhardt, *Die Filioque-Kontroverse zwischen Ost- und Westkirche im Frühmittelalter* (Arbeiten zur Kirchengeschichte) 82 (Berlin-New York, 2002); cf. Gemeinhardt, "Filioque: Christianity," in *Encyclopedia of the Bible and Its Reception*, vol. 9 (Berlin-Boston, 2014), 24–35.

58 "Non enim sufficit mundo scire patrem solum, nisi sciat filium et spiritum sanctum; nec sufficiat ei scire omnes tres personam, nisi etiam credat aliam earum esse ingentam, aliam genitam, aliam procedentem, nisi credat esse singulam verum deum, nisi credat tres personas esse sibi ipsis coaeternas et coaequales, nisi credat filium esse genitum a

with the Nicene and Athanasian creeds, thereby testifying to Joachim's rather conventional account of the double procession of the Spirit.⁵⁹

Joachim is well aware of the difference with Greek theology: "The Son is from the Father alone, as the Greeks confess together with us, and the Spirit proceeds from the Son, which the Greeks deny," he remarks in the *Liber figurarum*.⁶⁰ Here Joachim recalls the controversy with the Greeks while explaining the Trinity by the letter A. This figure does not itself suggest any relation between Son and Spirit; it only clarifies that the Father is not sent, but Son and Spirit are both sent by the Father. Only the following figure explaining the letter ω leads to a deeper understanding of the *filioque*: the Spirit proceeds from the Father and from the Son; it is sent by them and cooperates with them—in the Old Testament especially with the Father, in the New Testament mainly with the Son. More clearly, the *Expositio in Apocalypsim* combines the two figures:

The first one signifies how two proceed from one, the second clarifies how one proceeds from two; and thus we understand why there are two, not three testaments: From both the letter of the law of Moses and the letter of the Gospel of Christ emerges one spiritual understanding in a typological manner, which is beyond doubt the one Spirit who proceeds from the Father and the Son. And because of this, we know that there are two ages and two peoples: namely, the age of the Father and the age of the Son, the Jewish and the Gentile people, from which the one Church of the spiritual men proceeds.⁶¹

solo patre, spiritum vero sanctum a patre filioque procedere." See Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio*, fols. 34ra-rb.

59 See Henri Mottu, *La manifestation de l'Esprit selon Joachim de Fiore. Herméneutique et théologie de l'histoire d'après le "Traite sur les quatres évangiles"* (Neuchâtel, 1977), 276: "Joachim est orthodoxe de part en part sur la question trinitaire. Son enseignement demeure traditionnel, augustinien; sa terminologie est occidentale; sa défense du *filioque* contre les Grecs est classique, et ses vues ne sont en aucune façon novatrices sur ce plan-là." Problems arise when Joachim applies this teaching to the history of salvation: "C'est dans son usage de la doctrine trinitaire que Joachim fut hétérodoxe, non dans la doctrine elle-même" (p. 277).

60 "In hac diffinitione sacri nominis [sc. prima: A] qua dicimus IE Patrem, EU Filium, UE Spiritum sanctum ostenditur quod tres sunt persone deitatis et quod ipse persone indivisibiles sunt et inaccessibiles a seipsis et quod Filius sit a Patre solo quod Greci confitentur nobiscum et quod Spiritus procedat a Filio, quod Greci negant." See *Il libro delle Figure dell'abbate Gioacchino da Fiore*, (eds.) Leone Tondelli, Marjorie Reeves, and Beatrice Hirsch-Reich, 2 vols., 2nd ed. (Turin, 1953; repr. 1990), tav. XIa. See also McGinn, *Calabrian Abbot*, 196, note 74 for other critical remarks on the Greeks.

61 "... quia in A significatur esse duos qui procedunt ab uno, in ω esse unum qui procedit a duobus. Unde et testamenta non tria sed duo esse dicuntur. Littera vero legis Moysi

Here the importance of the *filioque* for Joachim's theology of history becomes discernible: the Spirit serves not only as a bond between the Trinitarian persons of Father and Son, but also as a connection between the periods of the history of salvation. The *filioque* doctrine is thus a precondition of his theology of history.⁶² The three *status* that are ascribed to Father, Son, and Spirit do not simply follow each other; instead, the third *status* is already present within the other two.⁶³ Again, Joachim's account shows no awareness of a difference between procession and mission, which points to his interest in avoiding any difference between substance and operation within the Trinity, internally as well as externally, in favor of a reading of Trinitarian theology as a roadmap for the history of salvation.

For his contemporaries, as well as for Joachim, the importance of the *filioque* for Trinitarian orthodoxy was also paramount in a rather "technical" sense.

et littera evangelii Christi, ex quibus unus spiritualis egreditur intellectus in typo aut dubium unius spiritus qui et patre filioque procedit. Et secundum hoc duo tempora et duo populi esse noscuntur, tempus scilicet patrum, et tempus filiorum, populus iudaicus et populus gentilis, ex quibus una procedit spiritalium virorum ecclesia." See Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio*, fol. 37va. See also E. Randolph Daniel, "The Double Procession of the Holy Spirit in Joachim of Fiore's Understanding of History," *Speculum* 55 (1980), 469–83, according to whom "the double procession of the Holy Spirit is the central clue needed to comprehend both of Joachim's schemes of history" (p. 471). See Daniel's remarks on the following passage from *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.9, (ed.) Daniel, 75, line 41 to 76, line 44 (fol. 9vb): "Quia vero unus est pater a quo procedunt filius et spiritus sanctus, unus spiritus qui a patre simul procedit et filio, duo qui procedunt ab uno patre, recte primus status ascribitur soli patri, tertius soli spiritui sancto, secundus autem communiter filio et spiritui sancto." The Venice edition, following Vat. lat. 3821 ("... secundus soli Filio, tertius communis Filio et Spiritui sancto") misses Joachim's point, which is recorded by all the other textual witnesses: the *filioque* secures the double initiation of the *ordo monachorum* by Elisha and St. Benedict! See also Reeves, *Influence*, 289.

62 In a sense, the *filioque* is also crucial to Joachim's understanding of divine revelation in history. Riedl, *Denker*, 293 points out that for Joachim, the Spirit as a source of knowledge of the future derives from the Father (who already gifted the prophets) and from the Son who inspires the *virī spirituales* of the second *status* ("Ut enim spiritus dei patris recondi per prophetas voluit quod esset posteris profuturum, ita idem ipse cum sit spiritus filii, amicis ipsius filii dividendo largitur." See *Liber de Concordia* 3a.9, (ed.) Daniel, fol. 29rb, 232, lines 307–309).

63 This is argued by Julia Eva Wannenmacher in *Hermeneutik der Heilsgeschichte. De septem sigillis und die sieben Siegel im Werk Joachims von Fiore* (Studies in the History of Christian Traditions) 118 (Leiden, 2005), 219; she hints at *Expositio*, fol. 12ra. The identity of eschatology and Trinitarian theology is successively withdrawn until *De septem sigillis* (Wannenmacher, 221; see also Förchner, "Trinitätsbegriff," 122). For the intimate connection between the theology of the Trinity and the theology of history in Joachim, see Reeves, *Influence*, 297; McGinn, *Calabrian Abbot*, 181–91; and Potestà, *Il tempo*, 107–10.

In the *Psalterium*, this interpretation of ω —and thus the *filioque*—serves as an explanation for the divine unity that lies right at the heart of Joachim's thought:

Insofar as we understand that the Son is always generated from the Father and the Holy Spirit proceeds incessantly from both, we are moved by necessity to understand their perfect unity because he who does not once but always proceeds from another is not to be separated from that which he does not cease to come from.⁶⁴

Joachim was aware of the Greeks' standard criticism against the double procession of the Holy Spirit: If the *filioque* is to be maintained, how can one avoid two principles (*principia*) within the Trinity and still uphold Christian monotheism? The answer Joachim provides is Augustinian in a specific sense: the Spirit proceeds "primarily from the Father" (*principaliter a Patre*) and only from the Son as far as he himself is caused by the Father.⁶⁵ That the Father is the primary cause or the "source of the Trinity" (*fons trinitatis*) is already indicated in the *Fides catholica* figure in the *Liber figurarum* where inside the open circle or "water basin," from which the persons or "water streams" emerge, the notion of "father" appears for a second time.⁶⁶ In this way, Joachim indicates that the divine essence is not separated from the persons (thus creating a

64 "Eo ipso quo intelligimus Filium semper esse a Patre genitum et Spiritum sanctum ab am-bobus indesinenter procedere, necessarie cogimur illorum perfectam intelligere unitatem, quia qui non semel sed semper ab alio procedit non potest ab eo, a quo exire non desinit, separari." See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 2.3.2, (ed.) Selge, 200, lines 4–8 (fol. 257vb).

65 Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.4, (ed.) Selge, 68, lines 14–15 (fol. 236vb); cf. Augustine, *De Trinitate* 15.17.29 and 15.17.26, (eds.) Mountain and Glorie, 2:503, lines 54–57, 529, lines 113–115.

66 See *Il libro delle figure*, (eds.) Tondelli et al., tav. XXVIa (from the Dresden manuscript). See Honée, "Joachim of Fiore: His Early Conception of the Holy Trinity," 109, referring to the interpretation of this detail by the editors of the *Liber figurarum* (*Il Libro delle figure*, (eds.) Tondelli et al., 1:62). In the margin, Joachim gives his interpretation of the figure: "Singulum istorum aqua et simul tria una aqua ... Tria sunt in vocabulis et tamen unum sunt nature et separationem non admittunt." This interpretation is slightly refined in the explanation of the harp figure (resembling a Greek Δ) with a closed circle in the middle of the soundboard (in the Padovan manuscript, fol. 1va) given in *Psalterium* 1.1, (ed.) Selge, 43, lines 4–12: "Verum quia aliud intelligimus in ipsa simplici natura cum dicimus Deum esse trinum, aliud cum dicimus Trinitatem esse unum Deum, non incongrue infra ipsa tria cornua psalterii figura quedam rotunda fieri consuevit, ut in ipsa videlicet rotunditate intelligamus verissimam unitatem substantie. Igitur figura ipsa rotunda que manet media inter tria cornua non est accipienda quasi substantia, quia nec est—est enim substantia tota vas—sed quasi quedam vox materialis predicans totius vasis, hoc est

“quaternity,” as was his accusation against the Lombard), but is identical with the ungenerated essence (*essentia ingenita*) from which the generated essence (*essentia genita*) and the proceeding essence (*essentia procedens*) are brought forth in their respective manner. Remarkably, while Anselm had been reluctant to employ this origin (*principaliter*) and thus any difference between the primary and secondary principles,⁶⁷ for Joachim it is crucial to the distinction between Father and Son as opposed to the Holy Spirit:

One thing is the prime principle, another the principle that is caused itself, and there is a difference between being a principle for another and two being together one principle for another. Therefore, one might receive from another and at the same time own together with the other what he received from him. Thus, the Son is the principle of the Holy Spirit, although he himself is from the Father and receives from the Father the principle of the Holy Spirit—what he is not without the Father, but with him. Therefore, there are not two principles but one principle.⁶⁸

Already Augustine had struggled with the difficulty of naming the Son as the principle of the Spirit without doubling the Trinitarian principles, and one might doubt whether Joachim’s solution would have convinced any Greek theologians. Yet, it is important to understand how Joachim’s doctrine of the *filioque* fit into 12th-century theological reasoning regarding the awareness of difference as well as the confidence that the Greeks may still be led to a deepened insight into the truth and appropriateness of the *filioque*. Admittedly, this is not a question of theology alone, but also of ecclesiology, as the *Tractatus super quattuor evangelia* puts it:

substantie, unitatem, ne quis cum audit trinum putet esse divisum.” See Honée, “Joachim of Fiore,” 122.

67 Anselm of Canterbury, *Monologion* 54, (ed.) Schmitt, 1:66, lines 21–25; *De processione Spiritus sancti* 9 and 14, (ed.) Schmitt, 2:204, lines 1–10, 213, lines 27–29.

68 “Aliud est esse principale principium, aliud principium de principio, et aliud esse principium unum ad unum, aliud esse duo simul unum principium ad unum, et ita quoque, ut unus habeat hoc ab alio et simul habeat hoc cum illo a quo habet. Licet ergo Filius principium sit et ipse Spiritus sancti, quia tamen et ipse a Patre est et a Patre habet, ut sit principium Spiritus sancti, nec sine ipso Patre sed cum ipso, nec ut sint duo principia sed unum principium.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.5, (ed.) Selge, 75, lines 11–18 (fol. 237vb). Here, Joachim anticipates the teaching of the Second Council of Lyons in 1274 “quod Spiritus sanctus aeternaliter ex patre et filio, non tamquam ex duobus principiis, sed tamquam ab uno principio, non duabus spirationibus, sed unica spiratione, procedat.” *COGD* II.1, (eds.) Alberigo/Melloni, 357, line 808 to 358, line 811.

Until now, the Greeks have refused to accept a spiritual understanding, and they will not be able to receive it unless they ascend to Jerusalem on the festive day; that is, unless they ascend by heart to unity with the Catholic Church in which they may recognize that the Holy Spirit proceeds from the Father and nonetheless proceeds from the Son, and they also may recognize that the successors of Peter are in place of Jesus Christ, shepherd and bishop of their souls.⁶⁹

The Lateran Council of 1215 would establish precisely this connection between dogmatic orthodoxy and obedience to the See of Peter. In order to understand why the Council nonetheless thought it necessary to condemn Joachim's Trinitarian teaching, we will have to look at Joachim's critique of Peter Lombard in more detail and assess why his teachings no longer met the requirements of the theological discourse of the 13th century.

2.4 Adversus Lombardum: A New Controversy

2.4.1

The treatise *De unitate seu essentia Trinitatis*, which was condemned in 1215, appears to be lost forever. Therefore, scholars do not know on which textual basis the accusation against Joachim was issued. The Council rejected Joachim's critique that the Lombard introduced a quaternity instead of a Trinity by naming the Trinity "the one highest thing" (*una quaedam summa res*). Furthermore, it condemned Joachim for teaching that the Trinity is only a collection of persons and not a real unity, and it defended the Lombard against the charge that he inadequately denied that the divine substance generates and is generated and proceeds itself.

Joachim's extant writings are coherent at least in regards to the first charge. Without a doubt, he criticized Peter Lombard for introducing a fourth entity into the Trinity and thereby teaching a quaternity, and Joachim did so because

69 "Non recipiunt [sc. Greci] usque ad praesens spiritalem intellectum, nec recipere eum queunt nisi ascendant Iherosolimam ad diem festum, nisi ascendant animo ad catholice unitatem Ecclesie, ubi cognoscant Spiritum sanctum procedentem a Patre, procedere nichilominus et a Filio, esseque Petri successorem vice Christi Ihesu, pastorem et pontificem animarum suarum?" See Joachim of Fiore, *Tractatus super quattuor evangelia*, (ed.) Ernesto Buonaiuti (Fonti per la storia d'Italia) 67 (Rome, 1930; repr. Turin, 1960), 301, line 26 to 302, line 1. For further passages calling for the Greeks' return to Roman authority, see McGinn, *Calabrian Abbot*, 196, note 75.

he viewed the Lombard's dialectical approach to the mystery of the Trinity as highly dangerous. Both aspects belong together, for nothing but blind human foolishness⁷⁰ could have led to such an unprecedented heresy.⁷¹ Thus, there is a clear precondition for understanding the one and triune God, as Joachim states in his *Treatise on the Life and Rule of Saint Benedict* when describing how the monks should be taught the mystery of the one and triune God:

For doing so, we have to abolish first the impiety of Sabellius who denied the persons, second the wickedness of Arius who divided the unity, and third the blasphemy of Peter who by dividing the unity from the Trinity introduced quaternity.⁷²

70 Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.1, (ed.) Selge, 22, lines 14–15 (fol. 229vb): “o humana temeritas, quam ceca semper!” Mews and Monagle, “Peter Lombard, Joachim of Fiore, and the Fourth Lateran Council,” 115f. rightly stress that Joachim does not attack schoolmen in general, but a certain Trinitarian teaching connected to one of the various methodological approaches to theological questions during the 12th century. A similar critique of the scholastic approach favored in Notre-Dame is found in Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 6.22, (ed.) Salet, 446: “Sed quod per intelligentiam capere non potes, per fidei devotionem credere potes ... Sed forte non vultis hoc credere, eo quod non potestis exemplo probare vel per intelligentiam capere.” Helmut G. Walther describes the development of the school of St. Victor in the second half of the 12th century as increasingly traditionalist, but at the same time increasingly hostile to “modern” scholasticism. See his contribution “St. Victor und die Schulen in Paris vor der Entstehung der Universität,” in Walther, *Von der Veränderbarkeit der Welt. Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, (eds.) Stephan Freund, Klaus Krüger, and Matthias Werner (Frankfurt am Main, 2004), 353–58. For the Parisian context, see Mews and Monagle, “Peter Lombard, Joachim of Fiore, and the Fourth Lateran Council,” 97f., focusing on Peter Lombard's adversary, Robert of Melun; on the latter, see the extensive analysis in Constant J. Mews, “Between the Schools of Abelard and Saint-Victor in the Mid Twelfth Century: The Witness of Robert of Melun,” in *L'école de Saint-Victor de Paris. Influence et rayonnement du Moyen Âge à l'Époque moderne*, (ed.) Dominique Poirel (Bibliotheca Victorina) 22 (Turnhout, 2010), 121–38, esp. 125 and 137f.

71 “Si sic existimasti simplicem divinam substantiam ut seorsum a personis cogitaveris illam, Sabellium sub Arrio palliasti, si seorsum a substantia tres personas, Arrium sub Sabellii palliatione excusas! Non hoc sancta animalia clamant.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.1, (ed.) Selge, 22, lines 16–19 (fol. 229vb).

72 “Abolita primo impietate Sabellii, qui personas negavit, secundo pravitate Arrii, qui unitatem scidit, tertio blasphemia Petri, qui unitatem a Trinitate dividens quaternitatem inducit.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Tractatus in expositionem Vite et Regule Sancti Benedicti* 3.2, (ed.) Alexander Patschovsky, *Joachim Abbas Florentis Opera Omnia*, vol. 4, no. 4 (Fonti per la Storia dell'Italia Medievale. Antiquitates) 29 (Rom, 2008), 208, line 10 to 209, line 2; translation from McGinn, *Calabrian Abbot*, 164. See also Kurt-Victor Selge, “Die Stellung Joachims von Fiore in seiner Zeit. Trinitätsverständnis und Gegenwartsbestimmung,” in

Only here does Joachim name the author of the heretical quaternity, and it is not surprising that in the Padovan manuscript of the *Psalterium* published after the Lateran Council this charge against Peter Lombard was changed into “the blasphemy of those who introduce a quaternity.”⁷³

Ultimately, the charge itself was not withdrawn, but the addressee was no longer subjected to criticism. Obviously, the accusation against the Lombard was taken seriously even more than a decade after Joachim’s death, and the suspicion still prevailed that the *Sententiae* seemed to conceal a severe heresy. The impact of rational and dialectical reflection on theology was still hotly debated during Joachim’s lifetime.⁷⁴ Joachim himself stated plainly that

at the synod of Nicaea many philosophers came together who fought against the Catholic faith by the acumen of the dialectical art ... Our aim is not to listen to their voice, nor to debate with dialectical sentences, but to perceive by contemplating the faith what the voice that is revealed to us really wants to say.⁷⁵

Joachim was not original in naming the opponents of the Nicene faith “dialec-ticians” and to accuse them of employing misleading philosophical methods to debate the Trinity, which should be venerated above all. The connection between heresy and philosophical skills, already apparent since Late Antiquity, was thus ascribed to the schoolmasters. Joachim’s argument might be traced

Ende und Vollendung. Eschatologische Perspektiven im Mittelalter, (eds.) Jan A. Aertsen and Martin Pickavé (*Miscellanea mediaevalia*) 29 (Berlin-New York, 2002), 497 note 53.

73 “Blasphemia illorum, qui ... quaternitatem inducunt” (in the margin: “hoc iuxta Lateranense concilium corrigendum”). Padua, Biblioteca Antoniana, 322, fol. 145ra. Kurt-Victor Selge concludes that with the unnamed defendants “in Joachims Sinn Petrus Abaelard und die ganze von Abaelard wie von Gilbertus Porretanus nach dem Urteil Bernhards von Clairvaux unzureichend korrigierte Schule der ‘modernen Pseudodialektiker’ gemeint sein dürfte.” See Selge, “Trinität, Millennium, Apokalypse im Denken Joachims von Fiore,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore*, (ed.) Rusconi, 68 note 21.

74 Stephen of Tournai complained that in the schools of Paris nothing but heresy was taught: “Individua Trinitas et in triviis secatur et discrepatur, ut tot jam sint errores quot doctores, tot scandala quot auditoria, tot blasphemie quot platee.” *Epistola ad papam* (written 1192–1203), in *Chartularium Universitatis Parisiensis*, (ed.) Heinrich Denifle, 2 vols. (Paris, 1889), 1:48. See Lerner, “Joachim and the Scholastics,” 259, note 4.

75 “Legimus enim in Nicaena synodo plures convenisse philosophos, qui astutia dialecticae artis fidem catholicam impugnarent ... Non est enim nostrum audire vocem eorum, non est nostrum, dialecticis disceptare sermonibus, sed fidei speculatione percipere, quod vox delata nobis contineat.” See Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio*, fol. 115ra.

back to Bernard of Clairvaux, who criticized Abelard as well as Gilbert of Poitiers for assigning too much importance to the *ratio* in Trinitarian theology.

That is precisely what Joachim detected in Peter Lombard's theology, too, resulting in the "blasphemy of Peter" (*blasphemia Petri*), or the introduction of a fourth entity into the Trinity. Unity and Trinity are thus not preserved in their mutual relationship but are in a sense added to each other: One and Three make Four. Besides the three persons of Father, Son, and Spirit, the divine essence or substance appears as something on its own, "while our faith accepts nothing but three persons."⁷⁶ The stumbling block seems to be the notion of *res* ascribed to divine substance:

Oh how perversely in every way did he correct both these errors [sc. Sabellianism and Arianism] who said that one divine substance is a certain supreme reality common to the three persons, and that each individual person is that same substance.⁷⁷

This charge resembles the following passage in the Lombard's first book of *Sentences*: "The divine essence is a one and supreme certain thing."⁷⁸ Moreover, this statement is also connected to another passage from the same book: "In such a manner we speak of three things (*tres res*) that we confess as one supreme thing (*unam quandam summam rem*)."⁷⁹ Joachim was offended by the Lombard's denial that the divine essence generates (see below) and also by the concept of a "certain supreme essence" besides the three persons, which the Lombard

76 "Qui sic accipiunt unum quod trium essentiam personarum ut aliquod unum distinctum et proprium esse dicant, sic inquam aliquod unum singulare quomodo cum credimus: Deus Pater unus est, Deus Filius unus est, Deus Spiritus sanctus unus est, quasi quantum aliquod sit divina substantia, idolum adorant, non Deum, quoniam quidem quantum aliquod non recipit fides nostra, sed tantum tres personas." See Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio*, fol. 34rb; see also fols. 36ra, 38ra, 70vb-71va.

77 "O quam perverse modis omnibus emendavit utrumque, qui dixit unam substantiam esse quandam summam rem communem tribus personis et singulam personam esse illam substantiam." See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 2.6 (*conclusio*), (ed.) Selge, 341, lines 8–10 (fol. 277rb; translation from Robb, "The Fourth Lateran Council's Definition," 27).

78 Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* I d. V c. 1.6, in *Magistri Petri Lombardi Sententiae in IV libris distinctae*, (ed.) Ignatius Brady, 2 vols. (Spicilegium Bonaventurianum) 4/5 (3rd ed. Grottaferrata, 1971/81), 1:56, lines 19f.: "cum enim una et summa quaedam res sit divina essentia."

79 Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* I d. XXV c. 2.5, (ed.) Brady, 1:194, lines 7–10: "Non autem te moueat quod diximus tres res: Non enim hoc dicentes, diuersarum rerum numerum ponimus in trinitate; sed ita tres res dicimus, ut easdem esse unam quandam summam rem confiteamur."

also described as essences. Although Joachim was inclined to agree with the Lombard that the three Trinitarian persons share one and the same essence, as the Lateran Council attests, he feared that restricting the notion of essence to a mere substratum of the persons would lead to something independent from its being within the persons.⁸⁰ Hence yet another reference to “the supreme thing” in the Dresden manuscript of the *Liber figurarum* expressing Joachim’s criticism of the Lombard’s writings: “The essence is a certain supreme thing, which is common to the three persons and is neither ungenerated, nor generated, nor proceeding”⁸¹—a reasoning that might indeed lead one to conceive of the divine essence as some fourth *res* beneath the persons. It is on precisely this point that Joachim criticizes the Lombard in the manuscript by adding “faithlessness” (*perfidia*) on the left side of the figure, thereby continuing the “perfidies” of Sabellius and Arius mentioned just above—hence the marking of the fourth drawing as an “anti-Lombard figure.” In Joachim’s theology, by contrast, the divine substance is only extant within the Trinitarian persons, not in itself; therefore, his writings insist on the threefold substance and on the generation of the Son by virtue of substance. As Fiona Robb has stated,

80 See Honée, “Joachim of Fiore: His Early Conception of the Holy Trinity,” 116; see also Mews and Monagle, “Peter Lombard, Joachim of Fiore, and the Fourth Lateran Council,” 112–15.

81 “Essentia est quaedam summa res communis tribus personis, nec ingenita, nec genita, nec procedens.” See *Il Libro delle figure*, (eds.) Tondelli et al., 1:61; see also McGinn, *Calabrian Abbot*, 164f.; Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 196f.; and Mehlmann, “De unitate trinitatis,” 537–45. Harold Lee argues that the “anti-Lombard figures” within this manuscript represent an earlier stage of Joachim’s Trinitarian thought: while the *perfidia* of quaternity is depicted quite lucidly, the *fides catholica* lacks clarity. He concludes that the *Psalterium*’s three figures of A, ω, and O (fol. 257r) contain a more mature version that no longer presents the whole Trinitarian orthodoxy in one figure, but in its threefoldness successfully combines affirmation and rebuttal. This is especially true for the double circle of O (fols. 229vb–230ra): “In one stroke, it eliminates any suggestion of a quaternity, and at the same time answers both the Sabellian and Arian heresy.” See Lee, “The Anti-Lombard Figures of Joachim of Fiore: A Reinterpretation,” in *Prophecy and Milleniarism: Essays in Honour of Marjorie Reeves*, (ed.) Ann Williams (Burnt Mill, 1980), 136f. This view is contested by Honée, “Joachim of Fiore: His Early Conception of the Holy Trinity,” 132–35, who argues that the difference between the sets of *figurae* does not lie in the growth of conceptual clarity but in the shift from the immanent to the economic Trinity; that is, from inner processions to missions within the history of salvation. In any case, it remains pure speculation that the *Liber figurarum* allows one to gain insight into the method and matter of the lost treatise *De unitate seu essentia Trinitatis*, as is argued in Marjorie Reeves and Beatrice Hirsch-Reich, *The Figurae of Joachim of Fiore* (Oxford, 1972), 217. Indeed, Harold Lee remains doubtful; see Lee, “The Anti-Lombard Figures of Joachim of Fiore,” 139.

“Joachim’s concept of divine unity as the circuminsession or interpenetration of the persons allows no room for the divine essence as an entity (really or conceptually) except through the identity of the Persons ... The Persons owe their divinity only to their relationship with one another and unity is established through this relationship.”⁸²

While Joachim thus draws upon this concept of *perichoresis* and locates the unity of the Trinity within the substance of the individual persons alone, the Lombard follows Anselm and his successors in defining the identity of the Trinitarian persons exclusively by relations of origin. The formulation of God as “the one supreme thing” goes back to Augustine’s *De doctrina christiana*, which Peter Lombard confidently quotes:

The things which are to be enjoyed, the Father, Son, and Holy Spirit, and the same Trinity, are one certain supreme thing common to all who enjoy it.⁸³

Though this notion is not a prominent theme in Augustine’s work,⁸⁴ Peter Lombard attached special importance to this concept in a manner that evoked Joachim’s criticism. Joachim obviously noticed that the Lombard had tacitly modified Augustine’s wording. Augustine, reflecting upon the difference between “signs” (*signa*) and “things” (*res*), had considered the persons of the Trinity as well as the Trinity itself as “things” (*res*) in order to indicate their reality to which verbal signs could refer. Within the framework of the Trinitarian heritage, this was bound to cause problems. In order to avoid such conceptual difficulties, Peter Lombard confined the notion of *res* to the single underlying

82 Robb, “The Fourth Lateran Council’s Definition,” 29; see also di Napoli, “La teologia trinitaria,” 305f. Selge, “Die Stellung,” 62 calls this “modernisierter Augustinismus.”

83 Augustine, *De doctrina christiana* 1.5.5, (ed.) Joseph Martin (Corpus Christianorum. Series Latina) 32 (Turnhout, 1962), 9, lines 1–3: “Res igitur, quibus fruendum est, pater et filius et spiritus sanctus eademque trinitas, una quaedam summa res communisque omnibus fruentibus ea.” This passage is quoted in Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* 1 d. 1 c. 2.4 and 1 d. xxv c. 2.5, (ed.) Brady, 1:56, lines 14–16 and 1:194, lines 12–14; see also the *Summa sententiarum* 1.10, in PL 176:57BC, 60D.

84 To speak of an “Augustinian notion of *summa res*” (see Mehlmann, “De unitate trinitatis,” 233) does not take into account that Augustine mentioned this notion only once and merely in passing. For this precaution, see Michel R. Barnes, “Rereading Augustine’s Theology of the Trinity,” in *The Trinity: An Interdisciplinary Symposium on the Trinity*, (eds.) Stephen T. Davis, Daniel Kendall, S.J., and Gerald O’Collins, S.J. (Oxford, 1999), 145–176, 148f.

divine essence.⁸⁵ Joachim, on the other hand, stressed the three persons and thus their independent being (*essentia*). In doing so, as we have seen above, Joachim remained faithful to the Augustinian tradition by quoting the model of “essence generating essence” (*essentia de essentia*). It is precisely this expression that actually posed a severe problem for the Lombard’s reasoning. While embracing the Nicene formula “light from light, true God from true God,”⁸⁶ he was hesitant to speak of the divine essence generating or being generated. For if the “supreme thing” were involved in generating either another essence or another person, it would have to be understood as generating itself.⁸⁷ But astonishingly, certain Augustinian passages seemed to prove the very opposite:

From these words⁸⁸ it seems to emerge that the divine substance generates the Son, and that the Son is generated from the substance of the Father, and that from God an equally eternal nature exists, and that the Father generates what he is himself. That what he is himself is the divine essence; and from this one may infer that the divine essence generates. Vehemently do those words move us, and how they are to be understood, we would prefer to hear from others than to explain ourselves.⁸⁹

Peter Lombard was reluctant to follow Augustine into this deadlock about a divine substance generating itself. But how to reconcile the Augustinian and Nicene notion of the Father’s substance generating the Son with the general principle that no being generates itself?⁹⁰ In 1141 at Sens, the Lombard

85 See Mews and Monagle, “Peter Lombard, Joachim of Fiore, and the Fourth Lateran Council,” 92.

86 Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* 1 d. IV c. 1.1, (ed.) Brady, 1:78, lines 3–6.

87 Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* 1 d. V c. 1.6, (ed.) Brady, 1:82, lines 19–22.

88 Referring to Augustine, *De Trinitate* 15.19.37, (eds.) Mountain and Glorie, 2:514, lines 162–169; *Contra Maximinum* 2.14.2–4, (ed.) P.-M. Hombert, (Corpus Christianorum. Series Latina) 87A (Turnhout, 2009), 570, line 43 to 577, line 158.

89 “His verbis praemissis innui videtur quod divina substantia Filium genuit, et quod Filius sit genitus de substantia Patris, et quod de Deo est natura coaeterna, et quod Pater id quod ipse est genuit. Id autem quod ipse est, essentia divina est; et ita putari potest divinam essentiam genuisse—Vehementer movent nos haec verba; quae quomodo intelligenda sint, mallet ab aliis audire quam trader.” See Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* 1 d. V c. 1.17, (ed.) Brady, 1:86, lines 24–29.

90 This argument—also found in Augustine, *De Trinitate* 1.1.1, (eds.) Mountain and Glorie, 1:28, lines 33–36—is paramount to the whole debate about essence and persons in respect to divine generation; see Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 89.

had witnessed Bernard's accusations against Abelard, which contained the latter's alleged assertion "that the Holy Spirit does not derive from the Father's substance."⁹¹ Against that, Abelard had (quite accurately from a historical point of view) replied that the generation of the Son from the substance of the Father within the Nicene Creed served as an explanation for "ungenerated" and could therefore not be transferred to the Spirit.⁹² Apparently, Peter Lombard was inclined to follow Abelard in interpreting "from the substance" as "of the same substance," and so he restricted the notion of substance or essence to the divine unity alone.⁹³ In turn, Joachim presented himself as a faithful disciple of Bernard and proceeded to accuse the Lombard of introducing a quaternity.⁹⁴

There is no doubt that Joachim attacked Peter Lombard decidedly and consciously and that he did so based on his understanding of divine unity and essence or substance. However, he was not the only one to do so. Indeed, Peter Lombard had already been accused of heresy by Walter of St. Victor and by the "Gilbertine" *Liber de vera philosophia* for teaching a quaternity instead

91 Bernard, *Epistola* 190.1.3, (eds.) Leclercq and Rochais, 3:19, lines 15–17: "quod Spiritus sanctus non sit de substantia Patris." Abelard, *Confessio fidei* "Universis" 2.1–6, (ed.) C.S.F. Burnett, "Peter Abelard, *Confessio fidei* 'Universis': A Critical Edition of Abelard's Reply to Accusations of Heresy," *Mediaeval Studies* 48 (1986), 111–38, here 134.

92 It was exactly this reasoning—furthered by the critique of the "Neo-Arian" Eunomius of the rather vague notion of substance used at Nicaea—that led Cappadocian theologians to withdraw the generation of the Son from the substance of the Father. Accordingly, the Constantinopolitan Creed of 381 does not mention "substance" or "essence" at all. Within Latin theology, however, the generation from the substance of the Father remained essential to Trinitarian reflection, especially for Augustine and his followers.

93 Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* 1 d. 14 c. 1.1, (ed.) Brady, 1:78, lines 3–6. See also Johannes Schneider, *Die Lehre vom dreieinigen Gott in der Schule des Petrus Lombardus* (Münchener Theologische Studien. Systematische Abteilung) 22 (Munich, 1961), 61f. While the Lombard might have known about the argument of Alberic of Rheims from Abelard's writings, his most likely source would have been the *Summa sententiarum* 1.11, in PL 176: 60CD.

94 See Bernard McGinn, "Alter Moyses: The Role of Bernard of Clairvaux in the Thought of Joachim of Fiore," *Cîteaux* 42 (1991), 429–48 (repr. in McGinn, *Apocalypticism in the Western Tradition* (Aldershot, 1994), no. 11), 431: "Joachim found a valuable ally in Bernard, one who seems to have helped him see 'quaternionism' as the distinctive error of his own perilous time, the end of the second *status* in history. In the complex history of the relations between the monastic and the scholastic modes of theology—a story that contains both alliances and tensions—Bernard and Joachim stand out as major proponents of an attitude of suspicion and condemnation, at least in the matter of Trinitarian theology."

of a Trinity.⁹⁵ As indicated above, Bernard and Gerhoh of Reichersberg had charged Gilbert of Poitiers with teaching a quaternity.⁹⁶

Perhaps the most original critique of the Lombard's Trinitarian teaching stems from the pen of Richard of St. Victor. The center of his Trinitarian thought is divine love, which requires a plurality of persons from the outset. He thus conceives of the Trinity as a "differring unity and unified difference" (*differe[n]s concordia et concors differentia*).⁹⁷ While the Father is defined by giving love to the Son, the Son by receiving this love and giving it to the Spirit, and the latter by receiving love and in turn binding the first two persons together,⁹⁸ there is no fourth person who gives or receives love, thus remaining isolated. As Richard claims, reason excludes such an isolated divine person and thus any quaternity.⁹⁹ While he is concerned about a fourth *person* within the Trinity (which the Lombard, of course, never postulated), book six of *On the Trinity* contains an unusually polemical section directed against those who deny that divine substance begets substance. In this passage, the opponent is not identified, but Richard clearly alludes to the Lombard's teaching:

But many in our time have arisen who do not dare to say this, or rather, what is much more dangerous, they dare to deny the authority of the holy Fathers and so many assertions of patristic tradition, and they try to refute it in every way. They do not concede in any way that substance

95 See details in Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 203–5. A possible influence of the *Liber de vera philosophia* on Joachim is discussed in Robb, 212–14, who concludes that despite the common target, there are no striking similarities between the two texts (especially since Joachim's admiration for Bernard would have prevented him from borrowing from a source of Gilbert's school). Hence Robb's conclusion (p. 214): "Joachim's attack can no longer be merely attributed to the influence of a doomed theological school, but is an independently worked out assessment." See also Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 335–40. By contrast, the classic account of Landgraf classifies Joachim as "Porretaner ... auf theologisch mystischem Gebiet." See Arthur Michael Landgraf, *Einführung in die Geschichte der theologischen Literatur der Frühscholastik unter dem Gesichtspunkte der Schulbildung* (Regensburg, 1948), 91. Schneider, *Die Lehre vom dreieinigen Gott*, 170 still assumes that there was such a "Gilbertine" influence on Joachim, but he mistakenly bases his argument on the *Liber contra Lombardum*.

96 See Potestà, *Il tempo*, 40, who refers to Gerhoh's *Liber de novitatibus huius temporis* (*Letter to Pope Hadrian about the Novelties of the Day*), (ed.) Nikolaus M. Häring (Studies and Texts: Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies) 24 (Toronto, 1974), esp. 107.

97 Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 5.14, (ed.) Salet, 338.

98 Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 5.13, (ed.) Salet, 336.

99 Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 5.15, (ed.) Salet, 342: "Nullum itaque in divinitate locum quarta proprietas habere cognoscitur; unde et quaternitas suspicio omnino secluditur."

begets substance, or wisdom wisdom. They stubbornly deny what all the saints affirm ... Your exposition strives to this, that we believe that substance does not beget substance. The faithful exposition, worthy of full acceptance, asserts that what the holy Fathers equally assert, is false, and contends that what none of the saints asserts is true. But they say: If the substance of the Son is begotten, and that of the Father is unbegotten, how can there be one and the same substance for both? Without a doubt, the substance of the Son is begotten and the substance of the Father unbegotten; and neither is the unbegotten substance begotten nor the begotten unbegotten. By no means does this imply that we are facing two different substances, but two different persons.¹⁰⁰

In Richard's view, the Lombard followed neither reason, which demanded speaking of a "generated substance" (*substantia genita*), nor the liturgical practice: "Why do you not faithfully accept what the universal Church daily confesses about Christ: 'He is God, begotten from the substance of the Father before time'?"¹⁰¹ The reference is to the Athanasian Creed, the hidden canon of the Trinitarian debates during the 12th century. As noted above, the generation of the Son from the substance of the Father can be traced back to patristic times, and it was only the Fourth Lateran Council that decided to follow the Lombard's Trinitarian reasoning and not the line that Richard and Joachim of Fiore represented.¹⁰²

100 Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 6.22, (ed.) Salet, 444–46: "Sed multi temporibus nostris surrexere, qui non audent hoc dicere; quin potius, quod multo periculosius est, contra sanctorum Patrum auctoritatem et tot attestaciones paternarum traditionum, audent negare et modis omnibus conantur refellere. Nullo modo concedunt quod substantia gignat substantiam, vel sapientia sapientiam. Pertinaciter negant quod omnes sancti affirmant ... Vestra expositio ad hoc contendit, ut credamus quod substantia substantiam non gignit. Fidelis expositio et omni acceptione digna, quae hoc quod sancti Patres pariter clamant contendit esse falsum et quod nemo sanctorum asserit contendit esse verum. Absque dubio substantia Filii est genita, substantia Patris ingenita; nec ingenita substantia est genita, nec genita est ingenita. Nec tamen sequitur ut ibi sit alia et alia substantia, sed alia et alia persona." Translation partly from Mews and Monagle, "Peter Lombard, Joachim of Fiore, and the Fourth Lateran Council," 105f.

101 Richard of St. Victor, *De Trinitate* 6.22, (ed.) Salet, 446: "Cur non creditis quod universalem Ecclesiam quotidie de Christo confitentem agnoscitis: Deus est ex substantiam Patris ante saecula genitus?"

102 For different Trinitarian options in the mid-12th century—and for background on Joachim's own reasoning—see Gemeinhardt, "Logic, Tradition, and Ecumenics," 37–57.

The charge of teaching a quaternity thus appeared as a catchword in the Trinitarian debates in the second half of the 12th century. Of course, no theologian ever taught a divine quaternity in a plain sense.¹⁰³ Instead, this charge served to hint at a crucial shortcoming of a rival's reasoning, so that eventually the same accusation against Peter Lombard was upheld in the Victorine as well as in the Gilbertine camp. For Walter of St. Victor and the *Liber de vera philosophia*, the question of unity and quaternity was inextricably interwoven with the generation from the essence that the Lombard unequivocally refused to accept.¹⁰⁴ In particular, Walter combined the charge that the Lombard saw Father, Son, and Spirit as one thing with the complaint that he denied the generation of the Son from the Father's essence.¹⁰⁵ This is significant, for it "reveals the strong association of ideas between the *quaedam summa res* [supreme thing], the generation of the essence and the accusation of quaternity in such a way that any one of these three would naturally bring to mind the other two."¹⁰⁶ Furthermore, the *Liber* states that divine unity should not be seen as one thing, but as a collection of three persons (*collectio trium personarum*) who are one by virtue of majesty (*unum propter maiestatis communionem*) but

103 See Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* 1 d. xix c. 8, (ed.) Brady, 1:166, lines 20–30; and Marcia L. Colish, *Peter Lombard*, 2 vols. (Brill's Studies in Intellectual History) 41/1.2 (Leiden, 1994), 1:246.

104 See the *Liber de vera philosophia* (Grenoble, 1085), fol. 89rb, quoted from Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 213.

105 "Quod vero sequitur: an essentia genuit essentiam, quia ad Spiritum sanctum pertinere omnino nescitur cum non sit genitus, nisi sicut Abeilardus et iste sentit: si Spiritus sanctus de substantia Patris est duos filios habet; si inquam, ita proposuisset non fecisset fucum ut dicit Ambrosius, timens proferre quod sentit nec consequentia sua diabolica quartam divinitatem quam Augustinus et veritas damnant, et ipse sub nomine divine essentie denuo resuscitatam introducere auderet personis tribus communem nulli autem propriam, quasi aliud sit persona, aliud essentialis natura." Walter of St. Victor, *Contra Quatuor Labyrinthos*, (ed.) Palémon Glorieux, *Archiv d'histoire doctrinale et littéraire du Moyen Âge* 27 (1952), 317, lines 16–24; refuted in *Ibid.* (p. 322, lines 5–9): "Que cum ita sint, manifestissimis rationibus et auctoritatibus conuincuntur isti falsum introducere trinitatem per nescio quam divinitatem siue essentiam quartam, tribus quidem communem, nulli autem propriam, que nec gignit nec gignitur." See also the list of errors (p. 333, lines 13–17). These passages are quoted and discussed in Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 204f.; see also Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 273–78; and Ghisalberti, "Monoteismo e trinità," 178f. The accusation of denying the generation by virtue of essence was leveled at Peter Lombard by Walter's predecessor Richard (*De Trinitate* 6.22, (ed.) Salet, 444), but the issue of quaternity is not found in this text.

106 Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 205.

not numerically.¹⁰⁷ Unity and Trinity must be distinguished by their affinity to nature and persons respectively. For “as Trinity is three persons, so duality is two persons and unity one person. From this it follows that if Trinity would be Unity and vice versa, and duality would be unity and vice versa, then three persons are one person,” which seems absurd.¹⁰⁸ Therefore, unity must be conceived as a collection of three divine persons whose divinity is found nowhere else than within their threefold personality—an argument that comes close to Joachim’s. Given the fact that the Lombard’s Christological doctrine was also highly controversial at the time of the Third Lateran Council of 1179, Joachim’s attack against the Lombard’s teaching a few years later “would have seemed neither shocking nor unusual.”¹⁰⁹

2.4.2

The Fourth Lateran Council aimed to defend the Lombard against those charges that he taught a “certain supreme thing” while denying that this thing was involved in generation and procession, so that a quaternity would emerge.¹¹⁰ It did so by plainly stating its faith with explicit reference to the Lombard himself:

We however, with the approval of this sacred and universal Council, believe and confess with Peter that there exists a certain one supreme thing,

107 “Unitas est collectio trium personarum que nichil aliud est quam trinitas.” See *Liber de vera philosophia* (Grenoble, 1085), fol. 68ra, quoted from Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 213, note 18.

108 “Sicut trinitas est tres persone, ita dualitas due persone, et unitas una persona. quare cum trinitas sit unitas et econverso, et dualitas sit unitas et econverso, tres persone sunt una persona et econverso.” See *Liber de vera philosophia* (Grenoble, 1085), fol. 68rb, quoted from Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 213, note 21.

109 Reeves, *Influence*, 31.

110 “Dampnamus ergo et reprobamus libellum sive tractatum, quem abbas Ioachim edidit contra magistrum Petrum Lombardum de unitate seu essentia trinitatis, appellans ipsum hereticum et insanum, pro eo quod in suis dixit sententiis quoniam ‘quedam summa res’ est pater et filius et spiritus sanctus, et illa non est generans neque genita neque procedens. Unde asserit quod ille non tam trinitatem quam quaternitatem astruebat in Deo, videlicet tres personas et illam communem essentiam quasi quartam, manifeste protestans quod nulla res est que sit pater et filius et Spiritus sanctus, nec est essentia nec substantia nec natura, quamvis concedat quod pater et filius et Spiritus sanctus sunt una essentia, una substantia unaque natura.” See *COGD* II.1, (eds.) Alberigo and Melloni, 164, lines 47–57. For the Council’s proceedings and judgement on Joachim, see Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 169–230 and Robb, “The Fourth Lateran Council’s Definition,” *passim*; and Elisabeth Reinhardt, “Joaquín de Fiore y el IV Concilio Lateranense,” *Anuario de historia de la iglesia* 11 (2002), 95–104.

incomprehensible and ineffable, which truly is the Father and the Son and the Holy Spirit, the three persons together and each of them separately. Therefore in God there is only a Trinity, not a quaternity, since each of the three persons is that thing—that is to say substance, essence, or divine nature—which alone is the principle of all things, besides which no other [principle] can be found. And the aforementioned *res* [thing] is neither begetting nor begotten nor proceeding, but is the Father who begets and the Son who is begotten and the Holy Spirit who proceeds, so that the distinctions belong to the Persons, while the unity pertains to the nature.¹¹¹

Moreover, the Council reproached Joachim for adhering to the concept of unity as collection and for defending this way of Trinitarian thinking by virtue of analogies:

But he does not confess in this way a proper and true unity, but one of collectivity and resemblance, in the way that many men are called one people, and many believers one Church, according to: “The multitude of believers had but one heart and one soul” (Acts 4:32), and “He who is joined to the Lord is one spirit with him” (1 Cor. 6:17); also “He that planteth and he that watereth are one” (1 Cor. 3:8), and all of us “are one body in Christ” (Rom 12:5); again in the book of Kings: “My people and your people are one” (1 Kings 22:4). But above all to prove this opinion, he refers to what Christ says in the Gospel concerning the faithful: I wish, Father, “that they may be one” in us, “as we also are one” (Jn. 17:22), “that they may be made perfect in one” (Jn. 17:13). For, as he says, the Christian faithful are not one, that is a single reality which is common to all of them, but they are one in this way, that is one Church on account of the

111 “Nos autem, sacro et universali concilio approbante, credimus et confitemur cum Petro quod ‘una quedam summa res’ est, incomprehensibilis quidem et ineffabilis, que veraciter est pater et filius et Spiritus sanctus, tres simul persone ac sigillatim quaelibet earundem. Et ideo in Deo trinitas est solummodo, non quaternitas, quia quaelibet trium personarum est illa res, videlicet substantia, essentia seu natura divina, que sola est universorum principium, preter quod aliud inveniri non potest, et illa res non est generans neque genita neque procedens, set est pater qui generat et filius qui gignitur et Spiritus sanctus, qui procedit, ut distinctiones sint in personis et unitas in natura.” See *COGD* II.1, (eds.) Alberigo and Melloni, 165, lines 73–82; translation from *Decrees of the Ecumenical Councils*, (ed.) Norman Tanner (London, 1990), 232.

unity of the Catholic faith and finally one kingdom on account of the indissoluble union of charity.¹¹²

The decree herein closely resembles a passage from the *Psalterium decem cordarum*, which contains the same biblical quotations.¹¹³ The significance of the passage is reinforced by the fact that immediately after this section, Joachim refers to Augustine as a witness to the validity of his use of analogies.¹¹⁴ Again it appears that at the beginning of the 13th century the appeal to the authority of

112 "Verum unitatem huiusmodi non veram et propriam, set quasi collectivam et similitudinariam esse fatetur, quemadmodum dicuntur multi homines unus populus et multi fideles una ecclesia, iuxta illud 'Multitudinis credentium erat cor unum et anima una' et 'Qui adheret Deo unus spiritus est.' Item 'qui plantat et qui rigat unum sunt,' et omnes unum corpus sumus in Christo. Rursus in libro regum 'Populus meus et populus tuus unum sunt.' Ad hanc autem sententiam astruendam illud potissimum verbum inducit quod Christus de fidelibus inquit in evangelio : 'Volo, pater, ut sint unum in nobis sicut et nos unus sumus, ut sint consummati in unum.' Non enim, ut ait, fideles Christi sunt unum, idest una quedam res que communis sit omnibus, set modo sunt unum, idest una ecclesia propter catholice fidei unitatem, et tandem unum regnum propter unionem indissolubilis caritatis." See *COGD* II.1, (eds.) Alberigo and Melloni, 164, line 57 to 165, line 68, translation from Robb, "The Fourth Lateran Council's Definition," 36f.

113 "Quocirca, quia ipse in unitate trinus est, quesivit semper et querit quomodo plures homines et diversi populi convenirent in unum, sciens quod nulla possit esse felicitas ubi scissio et diversitas est. 'Omne enim regnum in se ipsum divisum desolabitur' [Luke 11:17]. Inde est quod Filius orat pro electis suis ut sint unum, ad sue et Patris sui similitudinem unitatis dicens sic: 'Pater sancte, serva eos in nomine tuo quos dedisti michi, ut sint unum sicut et nos' [Jn 17:11]. Et hoc quidem de apostolis; deinde post pauca que intulit adiecit et ait: 'Non pro his rogo tantum, sed et pro eis qui credituri sunt per verbum eorum in me, ut omnes unum sint sicut tu Pater in me et ego in te, ut et ipsi in nobis unum sint' [Jn 17:20f.]. Et paulo post: 'Ego claritatem quam dedisti michi dedi eis, ut sint unum sicut et nos unum sumus' [Jn 17:22]. Certe audivimus ex verbo Veritatis, quomodo nos velit Filius esse unum ad imaginem et similitudinem [cf. Gen 1:26] illius unitatis, qua ipse et Pater unum sunt. Est autem unitas ista in Spiritu secundum illud quod scriptum est in Actibus apostolorum: 'Multitudinis autem credentium erat cor unum et anima una' [Acts 4:32]. Secundum hunc modum unitatis accipiendum est et illud quod Apostolus ait: 'Qui adheret Domino, unus spiritus est' [1 Cor 6:17].'" See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.2, (ed.) Selge, 48, line 19 to 49, line 13 (fol. 233va).

114 "Hac similitudine usus est Augustinus in assignatione unitatis inter Patrem et Filium dicens ita: 'Sic dicatur Deus de Deo, ut singulis hoc nomen Deus conveniat.'" See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium* 1.2, (ed.) Selge, 49, lines 13–15 (fols. 233va–vb); the reference is Augustine, *De Trinitate* 6.4.6, (eds.) Mountain and Glorie, 1:234, lines 19f.

Augustine had become a problem in itself.¹¹⁵ This was especially true regarding the use of analogies in reasoning (from which the Council was inclined to refrain) since any analogy was doomed to evoke the suspicion of teaching a unity of collection only.

The issues of quaternity, essence, and collectivity, then, are all present in Joachim's work. But they are by no means equally prominent.¹¹⁶ For Joachim, the Lombard's fundamental error is his effort to distinguish the specific identity of the divine persons from the "one supreme thing" that appeared to threaten the reality of the divine Trinity.¹¹⁷ By contrast, he never discusses the generation from essence or substance as a controversial subject (as did, for example, Walter of St. Victor); rather, it is part of his Trinitarian inheritance, including Augustine as well as Bernard of Clairvaux. Although a doctrine of collectivity might be detected in his writings,¹¹⁸ Joachim does not use it as an

115 See Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 239f.

116 See Otto, "Denkform," 146: "Zwischen der Theologie Joachims einerseits und den Sätzen des *Caput 'Damnamus'* andererseits besteht keine unbedingte Kongruenz."

117 See Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, and Lee, "Anti-Lombard Figures," 134. Potestà fails to distinguish between the subjects addressed by Joachim and by the Council's decree (*Il tempo*, 38).

118 Mehlmann rightly (though apologetically) remarks: "Joachim beharrt hier [in his *Confessio*] nicht darauf, daß die göttliche Natur, Substanz oder Essenz zeugt, gezeugt wird oder hervorgeht." ("De unitate trinitatis," 204, note 53). However, the problem is implied by Augustine's "*essentia de essentia*"; thus, the *Confessio* was at least open to such an interpretation. Mehlmann concedes that Joachim's figurative manner of reasoning might have been the cause of such a fatal misunderstanding (p. 582). See, for example, *De articulis fidei*, in *Gioacchino da Fiore: Scritti minori*, (ed.) Ernesto Buonaiuti (Fonti per la storia d'Italia) 78 (Rome, 1936), 5, lines 3–8: "Unum [sc. deum] tamen dicimus non singularem, non utique, sicut dicimus unum sydus, unum iaspidem, unum smaragdum; sed unum ab unitate utpote cum dicimus unum gregem, unum populum, unam turbam. Unde et bene dicunt grammatici: populus currunt et turba ruunt, ut id quod taliter unum dicitur, pluralis numeri esse intelligatur." Robb hints at "an essential continuity in twelfth- and thirteenth-century trinitarian theology" concerning the questions of unity of collection and of essence: "If one's position on divine unity was determinative of where one placed the divine essence in relation to the Father's generation of the Son, it is not fantastic to suggest that Joachim's condemnation for unity of collection could reasonably also be read as a condemnation of his view that essence begot essence" (*Intellectual Tradition*, 53). It is precisely this point that is argued in Thomas Aquinas, *Summa theologiae* I q. 39 a. 5 c; see Marshall, "*Utrum essentia generet*," 94 and 103–09. The problem is not the notion of collectivity in itself, which is deliberately used by Peter Lombard, as Mehlmann remarks (*ibid.*, 197); see Peter Lombard, *Sententiae* I d. XXII c. 3, (ed.) Brady, 1:179, lines 5–8: "Praeterea est unum nomen quod de nulla persona singillatim dicitur, se de omnibus simul, id est trinitas; quod non dicitur secundum substantiam, sed quasi collectivum pluralitatem

argument against the Lombard, as in the *Liber de vera philosophia*. In light of this observation, we must return to the initial question: Why was Joachim singled out for condemnation?

2.4.3

This question is all the more pressing since it has been revealed that Innocent III borrowed from Joachim's writings on Trinitarian matters.¹¹⁹ Scholars have demonstrated that the Pope's letter to the Archbishop of Lyon, Jean de Bellesmains, from 1203 (paralleled by a sermon delivered at the feast of the Lord's circumcision) quotes from the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*,¹²⁰ and a letter to the crusaders from 1204 again makes ample use of further passages from the *Expositio*.¹²¹ Here Joachim provides a model for enhancing human insight into the mystery of divinity: just as the Greeks once received the knowledge that the Spirit proceeds from the Father from the Jews (who only knew the Father), so too will they have to accept from the Latins the doctrine that the Spirit also proceeds from the Son (already known to the Latin Christians).¹²² But Innocent adds to this quotation an interpretation of divine relations that is not in full agreement with Joachim's rationale by pointing out that "between the three there is a difference of relation (*relativa distinctio*) concerning the

designat personarum." The same is true for Thomas Aquinas, *Summa theologiae* 1 q. 39 a. 5 ad 6: "Deitas, in quantum est una in pluribus suppositis, habet quandam convenientiam cum forma nominis collectivi." See also Mottu, *La manifestation*, 280.

119 Egger, "Joachim," discusses Innocent's knowledge and usage of Joachim's writings at length. The traditional view that Innocent himself was determined to condemn Joachim and thereby establish the authority of the Lombard's *Sentences* is outlined in Reeves, *Influence*, 32, and McGinn, *Calabrian Abbot*, 167.

120 Innocent III, *Epistola* 6.191[193], in *Die Register Innocenz' III.*, (eds.) Otto Hageneder and Anton Haidacher (Vienna, 1964–2001), 6:324, lines 8–13; *Sermo IV de tempore*, in PL 217: 467CD, both quoting *Expositio*, fol. 35va; see Egger, "Joachim," 139.

121 Innocent III, *Epistola* 7.154, (eds.) Hageneder and Haidacher, 7:265, lines 3–24 and 26–36, 267, lines 4–20, 268, lines 8–16, quoting Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio*, fols. 143va–144ra; see Egger, "Joachim," 142–49.

122 "Quod si ita est, quid est quod Greci nondum acceperunt posse credere procedere Spiritum sanctum a Filio, nisi quia humiliter quidem acceperunt doctrinam a populo iudaico, qui gerit misterium Dei patris, sed spernit nunc humiliter accipere a latino, qui habet in hac parte similitudinem Filii, ut quomodo idem spiritus accipere dicitur a Filio, quod annuntiet, ita Grecorum populus qui aliquando doctrinam accepit ab hebreo accipiat eo modo similiter a latino?" See Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio*, fols. 143vb–144ra; quoted in Innocent III, *Epistola* 7.154, (eds.) Hageneder and Haidacher, 7:267, lines 13–20, with minor modifications only.

persons, as well as substantial identity (*substantialis idemplitas*) concerning the nature."¹²³ Innocent does not mention his source, so Joachim himself does not figure as an authority. Rather, Innocent appears to have chosen passages that seemed appropriate for his aim, without presenting himself as a theologian faithful to Joachim. Yet, it is not likely that the Pope would have been the driving force behind the condemnation of a theologian whose writings he knew and appreciated. At the same time, one cannot assume that he would have defended Joachim against the accusations of scholastic critics, hinting at certain "traditionalist" views in the abbot's doctrine.

In fact, that is exactly what happened. Comparing the Lateran Council's decree with Joachim's doctrine, Fiona Robb has stated that although every single charge can be found in the extant works of Joachim (regardless of the question of the lost anti-Lombard *tractatus*), they are presented in an order according to a scholarly consensus that had been emerging for the last fifty years and was inextricably linked with the Lombard's *Sentences*. This basic consensus entailed a certain understanding of divine unity and of the relation between essence and generation. In some sense, it already employed the difference between "sign" (*significatio*) and "supposition" (*suppositio*), between semantics and grammar: the word "God" can in principle signify the one and only God *and* one Trinitarian person being God, but within the term "God from God" it necessarily denotes the person, not the essence. Hence the patristic usage of this term neither allows nor compels one to speak of God's essence as generating, generated, and proceeding. Denying the essence as generating, on the other hand, necessarily implies a certain concept of divine unity—a "certain supreme thing" in the Lombardian sense. Indeed, it was precisely this connection between the ideas of divine unity, essence, and generation that was defined by the Lateran Council's decree, thereby canonizing the aforementioned scholarly consensus and shaping future perceptions of Joachim's attack on Peter Lombard.¹²⁴ What had been one subject of debate among others during Joachim's lifetime now served as a hallmark of orthodoxy, and the attractiveness of this definition for later scholastic debates illustrates that "the Lateran decree seemed to provide the first known case of anyone actually putting forward the view that the essence begot."¹²⁵

¹²³ Innocent III, *Epistola* 7.154, (eds.) Hageneder and Haidacher, 7:268, lines 6f.

¹²⁴ Robb lists 13th-century refutations and appreciations of Joachim's alleged view on the divine essence as begetting and begotten (from William of Auxerre to Peter Olivi and the *Liber contra Lombardum*). See Robb, "A Late Thirteenth-Century Attack," 129–42.

¹²⁵ Robb, *Intellectual Tradition*, 253.

Robb has argued that the consensus on theological matters and method was based on the schools as an institutionalized form of teaching theology, a form that was found in the universities emerging all over Europe. Therefore, it is most likely that Parisian masters loyal to the memory of Peter Lombard enforced the accusation against Joachim. The charge of failing to teach the real unity in God had arisen already during his lifetime, though he did not name his opponent: "Alas, we are not in want of those who are malevolent in their hearts and believe that we tear asunder the unity because we preach the Trinity in its mysteries."¹²⁶ For masters like Robert of Courson (d. 1219), the leading figure at the University of Paris at the time of the Lateran Council, Joachim must have been nothing more than a "misguided outsider" who lacked the skills to cope with the intellectual challenge posed by the *Sentences*—all the more so since Robert was a pupil of Peter the Chanter who had already attacked Joachim for his method of concordance (*concordia*). According to Robert Lerner, this also explains the sharp critique of the scholastics in Joachim's writing from the 1190s.¹²⁷ The *Tractatus super quattuor evangelia* (written c.1200) speaks pointedly of "scholastics" (*scolastici*) and calls their output "scholastic doctrine" (*scolastica doctrina*) or "knowledge" (*scientia*), thereby implying a fundamental contradiction to Joachim's own spiritual teaching grounded in a monastic way of life.¹²⁸ Given that Joachim was well acquainted with leading figures at the

126 "Non enim deesse possunt qui cogitent mala in cordibus suis, arbitantes nos unitatem scindere, quia trinitatem in misteriiis predicamus." See Joachim of Fiore, *Expositio*, fol. 38rb.

127 See Lerner, "Joachim and the Scholastics," 256f., who argues that Peter the Chanter's critique refers to *De prophetia ignota* and thus stems from the 1180s, thereby implying that the offending nature of Joachim's teaching had been recognized quite early in his career. "*Ille Joachim*" is mentioned in Peter's unprinted commentary on the book of Exodus (quoted in Lerner, 262, note 32). Lerner's argument is acknowledged by Reinhardt, "Joaquín," 98f.; see also Potestà, *Il tempo*, 278–80. Potestà assumes that only after this attack from the scholastic corner did Joachim let friends and opponents know of the *Psalterium* and of the critique of the Lombard's reasoning: "Inconsapevole o incurante del mutamento di clima, l'abate decise di affrontare direttamente i maestri parigini con il proprio trattato trinitario, che si decise ad allestire come tale intorno alla metà degli anni '90." (*Il tempo*, 341).

128 See Lerner, "Joachim and the Scholastics," 253f. This passage contains evidence from the *Tractatus de quattuor evangelia* (ed. Buonaiuti, 195, lines 9–22), according to which Jesus transformed the water of "scholastic doctrine" into the wine of "spiritual doctrine" at the marriage at Cana. Ibid. (on 294, lines 24–29) the scholastics are depicted as men of "a phase of history that is bound to be superseded" (Lerner, *ibid.*, 255) while they are suppressing the *virī spirituales* (for this, see also *Liber de Concordia* 5.49, fols. 84va–vb in the Venice edition, 1519).

Roman curia, such a critique was likely to alarm the masters in Paris and elsewhere. Hence, among the critics of Peter Lombard, not Walter of St. Victor, but Joachim, a well-known abbot and former papal adviser but also a controversial theologian, became the target of the Council's decree. Since Innocent III himself was a member of this intellectual community, he did nothing to prevent this judgement, as long as it only affected Joachim's alleged Trinitarian teaching and not his reputation as the founder of the Florentian order.

But there is still another reason why Joachim was chosen for condemnation: among the critics of the Lombard, he appears to have been the only one whose Trinitarian doctrine was based not only on the scriptures and on patristic authorities, but on personal revelation. It has already been indicated above that Joachim's enterprise of writing on Trinitarian theology only began after his Pentecostal vision at Casamari. Robert Lerner has highlighted the outcome of this experience:

Soon thereafter he put aside the writing that was then occupying him and composed the first book of his treatise *The Psalter of Ten Strings*, evidently in a mood of great exaltation. Since it was the same book that initiated the attack on the Lombard it seems clear that Joachim must have felt licensed by revelation to inveigh against the mere logic-chopping of a Parisian school-master.¹²⁹

Gian Luca Potestà has also underlined the importance of Joachim's point of departure in his writings on Trinitarian matters.¹³⁰ However conventional his Trinitarian doctrine may appear, the *Psalterium* nonetheless displays an understanding of the unity and Trinity of God whose foundation did not consist in intellectual endeavors but in spiritual exercise. Thus, it resulted not in a large *Summa* but in a treatise that in its form and argument would resemble its author's insight into the inner structure of the triune God.¹³¹ According to

129 Lerner, "Joachim and the Scholastics," 253.

130 "L'abate proclama che la sua teologia è nata in un contesto liturgico, a partire dalla meditazione della sacra pagina e dalla preghiera, ed esalta lo scritto, presentandolo come il frutto di una vera e propria rivelazione divina, seguita alla propria invocazione dello Spirito santo." See Potestà, *Il tempo*, 342. According to Robert E. Lerner, "Ecstatic Dissent," *Speculum* 67 (1992), 38–42, Joachim comes resembles other "ecstatic dissenters" like Rupert of Deutz and Arnold of Villanova, to which McGinn, "*RATIO* and *VISIO*," 37f. adds Hildegard of Bingen.

131 "Eram aliquando ego ipse anxius ad verba Dei et querebam per exercitium lectionis ad veritatis notitiam pervenire; cumque ad eam per legendi studium properare flagrarem, assumens sibi pennas velut aquile [cf. Proverbs 23:5] longius quam erat recedebat a me.

Potestà, Joachim's narrative of the vision at Casamari serves as a "divine seal for his own Trinitarian theology" in order to defend it against predictable scholastic critiques.¹³² Even his first anonymous biographer plainly states that "the mystery of the Trinity was revealed to him" and simply adds that he immediately started to write the first book of the *Psalterium*, thereby implying that this treatise would contain the outcome of this revelation.¹³³

Accordingly, Joachim described his Trinitarian hermeneutics in terms that recalled the unification with God.¹³⁴ Such a spiritual understanding (*intellectus spiritualis*) was not compatible with current ways of teaching theology and with the impact of grammar and dialectics on debating the doctrine of God. That is not to say that it was irrational in itself—as Bernard McGinn rightly remarks, "*Visio* [vision], however, did not cancel out *ratio* [reason], or make it superfluous"—¹³⁵ but it was a kind of rationality that was not likely to

Cum autem positus in fervore novicio cepi Dei causa diligere psalmodiam, multa michi in scriptura divina psallenti sub silentio reserari ceperunt, que antea legendo vestigare nequiveram." See Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium*, pref., (ed.) Selge, 7, lines 6–12 (fol. 227ra).

132 "Col racconto della visione di pentecoste Gioacchino cerca di offrire un sigillo divino alla propria teologia trinitaria ... Esso rappresenta un elemento importante di una strategia di autolegittimazione: ponendo l'opera nella luce del rivelarsi divino, egli mira ad allontanare preventivamente dallo *Psalterium* possibili critiche." See Potestà, *Il tempo*, 344. Di Napoli argues that Joachim consciously applied the principle of *lex orandi—lex credendi* to Trinitarian theology, thereby clarifying the difference with scholastic theology. See Di Napoli, "La teologia trinitaria," 289, see also 284.

133 "Tunc cum esset in dicto monasterio Casamarie, revelatum est ei misterium Trinitatis et scripsit ibi primum librum Psalterii decem chordarum." See Anonymus, *Vita Joachimi*, in *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, (ed.) Herbert Grundmann, 2 vols. (Monumenta Germaniae Historica. Schriften des Reichsinstituts für Ältere Deutsche Geschichtskunde) 25 (Stuttgart, 1977), 2:346. According to Potestà, *Il tempo*, 105–27, 340–44, this account is accurate insofar as Joachim wrote book one of the *Psalterium* during his stay at Casamari, while book two was written as a separate treatise c.1186–7. Only in the mid-1190s would both treatises be combined and revised due to the criticism of Parisian masters (see above). Honée, "Joachim of Fiore: The Development of his Life," 52f. and 68f. is critical of this reconstruction, referring to Selge who in the introduction to the edition of the *Psalterium*, XIII–XVIII with note 2 on XIII, argues that the text must have been completed already in 1186–7, except for the preface that might have been written before 1200.

134 "Studeamus per timorem Domini conciliari nobis Deum patrem et per humilitatem Filium, et per amorem Spiritum sanctum, et erit Deus Trinitas in nobis, et nos in eo." See Joachim of Fiore, *Dialogi de prescientia Dei et predestinatione electorum*, in *Joachim Abbas Florentis Opera Omnia*, (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà, vol. 4/1 (Fonti per la Storia dell'Italia Medievale. Antiquitates) 4 (Rome, 1995), 140, lines 20–22. See Mehlmann, "Confessio trinitatis," 87; for Abelard as a source of the ternary, see Ghisalberti, "Monoteismo e trinità," 174.

135 McGinn, "*RATIO* and *VISIO*," 38.

secure methodical performance of teaching or firm adherence to ecclesiastical doctrine. Peter Lombard, the author of the unique stock of theological questions and the manual for resolving them, was canonized at the Lateran Council, after which the masters of the schools established as universally binding their own criteria for theology.¹³⁶ Joachim's "traditionalist" form of Trinitarian theology, which proceeded by virtue of analogies, was declared to no longer meet the requirements of his time. One could even say that, paradoxically, revelation was excluded as a source and means of inquiry into the triunity of God.

2.5 Conclusion: From a Historical Point of View: Joachim Beyond Heresy and Orthodoxy

Joachim's critique as well as the Lombard's teaching have to be understood within the wider framework of Trinitarian debate during the 12th century. Both theologians wanted to remain faithful to the Augustinian tradition, and it was left to the Lateran Council to decide between their competing accounts of Augustinianism and Trinitarian doctrine. It is beyond the scope of the present essay to discuss whether the Lateran Council's definition of Trinitarian orthodoxy was the appropriate answer to the questions of the preceding century. Without a doubt, it was highly influential in shaping further scholastic reflections on the Trinity, as evidenced by the lively debates concerning the Council's criticism of Joachim during the following centuries. It therefore set the stage for later perceptions of Joachim, exerting influence over his admirers as well as his critics. If a strict difference between "Latin" and "Greek" approaches to Trinitarian theology has ever been meaningful, it was certainly during the period of debate following the Lateran Council (and, of course, the sack of Constantinople during the so-called Fourth Crusade in 1204).

Looking back to his own time, there is still much to explore in the Trinitarian thought of Joachim, not only concerning his speculation on the history of salvation but also in terms of the history of dogma. As previously emphasized, Joachim participated in a debate that had already lasted nearly a century and was not yet finished when he died.¹³⁷ The question of how his theology of

136 See Colish, *Peter Lombard*, 1:434: "In 1215, the Lombard's *Sentences* were mandated as required reading for doctoral candidates in theology in the statutes legislated by the University of Paris."

137 Joachim's involvement in contemporary debates has been highlighted recently by Julia Eva Wannenmacher, "Alpha und Omega: Joachim von Fiore in der Theologie des 12. Jahrhunderts. Versuch einer Standortbestimmung," in *What is "Theology" in the Middle Ages?*

history was shaped by current Trinitarian debates is still awaiting an extensive treatment of its own. However one judges Joachim's thought and writings concerning the Holy Trinity, his importance within the theological movement of his time should not be neglected.¹³⁸ Despite later confusion and heated debate about his speculation on history—inextricably linked with other ideas in the numerous Joachite writings of the later Middle Ages—one should remember that even after the Lateran Council of 1215, his own order was entitled to celebrate the memory of its founder with a liturgical appraisal:

The blessed Joachim, gifted with prophetic spirit, adorned with intellectual power, *far from heretical errors*—he spoke of the future as already present.¹³⁹

Religious Cultures of Europe (11th–15th Centuries) as Reflected in their Self-Understanding, (ed.) Mikołaj Olszewski (Archa Verbi. Subsidia) 1 (Münster, 2007), 109f.

- 138 See McGinn, "*RATIO* and *VISIO*," 29: "Too much stress on how different Joachim was, too much talk about what some would call originality and others would judge to be eccentricity, may prevent us from seeing just how typical some of the Calabrian abbot's main concerns were to the theological world of the twelfth century, both the scholastic and the monastic." Cf. also Selge, "Trinität," 483: Joachim "ist viel augustinischer, als er gemeinhin gesehen wird, aber es handelt sich bei ihm um einen mittelalterlichen Augustinismus, der bewußtermaßen Züge der 'Modernität' des 12. Jahrhunderts an sich trägt."
- 139 Quoted in *Acta Sanctorum*, col. 90B: "Beatus Joachim, spiritu dotatus prophetico, decoratus intelligentia; errore procul haeretico, dixit futura ut praesentia."

Joachim the Theorist of History and Society

Brett Edward Whalen

At first glance, describing Joachim of Fiore as a historian might seem unusual. After all, the Calabrian abbot achieved his lasting fame by predicting the future, including the coming tribulation of Antichrist followed by the marvelous “Sabbath” age of the Holy Spirit.¹ Yet, Joachim’s speculative ideas about the course of things to come depended upon his close reading of patterns that he saw in the past. Drawing upon the Bible as his guide, the abbot employed his extraordinary exegetical skills to scrutinize not just the events recorded in Scripture, but also the providential ordering of everything that had happened since the time of Christ until the present (and beyond). By doing so, he revealed his peerless creativity and willingness to experiment in Christian historical thinking. In the 5th century, the patristic thinker Augustine of Hippo had firmly insisted that God’s plan for history after the Bible remained inscrutable. Certainly, he argued, one should not attempt to interpret the course of earthly events such as the rise and fall of empires as events with sacral significance. (Augustine, we should recall, faced a world where the longevity of the Christian Roman Empire seemed increasingly in doubt). His views on the matter did not reign absolutely, but they did command a great deal of respect. As we will see, Joachim transcended those generally accepted norms of theological speculation about the meaning of history.²

- 1 The medieval concept of an eschatological Sabbath age did not begin with Joachim of Fiore, but he represented one of its most creative proponents. See Robert Lerner, “The Medieval Return to the Thousand-Year Sabbath,” in *The Apocalypse in the Middle Ages*, (eds.) Richard K. Emmerson and Bernard McGinn (Ithaca, 1992), 51–71. On Joachim and his views of history, Marjorie Reeves, *Joachim of Fiore and the Prophetic Future* (1976; rev. edition Stroud, Eng., 1999); Bernard McGinn, *The Calabrian Abbot: Joachim of Fiore in the History of Western Thought* (New York, 1985); Gian Luca Potestà, *Il tempo dell’apocalisse: vita di Gioacchino da Fiore* (Rome, 2004); and Brett E. Whalen, *Dominion of God: Christendom and Apocalypse in the Middle Ages* (Cambridge, Mass., 2009), 100–24. See also Matthias Riedl, “Joachim of Fiore as Political Thinker,” in *Joachim of Fiore and the Influence of Inspiration: Essays in Memory of Marjorie E. Reeves (1905–2003)*, (ed.) Julia Eva Wannenmacher (Farnham, Eng., 2013), 53–73.
- 2 See Richard Landes, “The Fear of an Apocalyptic Year 1000: Augustinian Historiography, Medieval and Modern,” *Speculum* 75 (2000), 97–145; and my entry on Joachim in Willemien Otten, (ed.), *The Oxford Guide to the Historical Reception of Augustine*, vol. 3 (Oxford, 2013).

If calling Joachim a historian seems unusual, describing him as a sociologist seems entirely anachronistic. Yet Joachim did act as a sociologist of sorts, or at least, he showed a strong fascination with the nature and historical significance of different groups, peoples, and communities, including their roles in the past, present, and future. Perhaps we should call him an “apocalyptic ethnologist.” In particular, the abbot demonstrated a keen interest in the destiny of God’s former “Chosen People,” the Jews, and their relationship to Christians, who had assumed the mantle of divine grace with the coming of Christ and his Church. Among Christians, Joachim distinguished between Greek Christians or members of the Eastern Church, and Latin Christians or members of the Western Church—those who obeyed the popes of Rome. The Greeks had been the first to receive Christian truth, but due to their heresy and rejection of the Roman papacy, they had suffered grave punishments, including the loss of empire and the creative impulses of monastic life. Latin Christians, recipients of imperial power and the monastic spirit, came to form the vanguard of God’s plan for history: the Latin Church represented the “new Judah” and Rome the “new Jerusalem,” the living Temple of God.³

As a theorist of history and society, Joachim also played the role of “futurologist.” Prophecy and eschatology, as scholars commonly observe, form what might be described as the history of the future. Looking around him, the abbot saw the storm clouds of apocalyptic tribulation gathering in his own day. The fabric of Latin Christendom—its institutions and mores, its sovereign powers and forms of worship—stood in present danger. Within the Church, corruption reigned among prelates and princes, while infidels menaced the community of Christians from without. In the weave of the providential design, however, the abbot also discerned future betterment, the coming of “spiritual men,” monks who would reform the Latin Church, recall the Greek Church to union with Rome, and bring the Jews at last to the truth of Christ. Under a new “spiritual leader,” history would unfold into a marvelous age that would be (as Joachim put it) “without war, without scandal, without worry or terror, since God shall bless it and He shall sanctify it, because in it, He shall cease from all

3 Joachim’s attitude towards Jews and Judaism has formed a major trend in recent studies of the abbot. On his treatment of Judaism, Robert Lerner, *The Feast of St. Abraham: Medieval Millenarians and the Jews* (Philadelphia, 2002); Anna S. Abulafia, “The Conquest of Jerusalem: Joachim of Fiore and the Jews,” in *The Experience of Crusading*, (eds.) Marcus Bull and Norman Housley (Cambridge, Eng., 2003), 127–46; and E. Randolph Daniel, “Abbot Joachim of Fiore and the Conversion of the Jews,” in *Friars and Jews in the Middle Ages and Renaissance*, (eds.) Steven J. McMichael and Susan E. Myers (Leiden, 2004), 1–22. See also Brett E. Whalen, “Joachim of Fiore, Apocalyptic Conversion, and the ‘Persecuting Society,’” *History Compass* 8, no. 7 (2010), 682–91.

of His labor that He has accomplished.”⁴ Through their interpretation of the past and projections of the future, both oriented on the pivotal moment of the abbot’s own present, Joachim of Fiore’s apocalyptic theories thereby offer us a chance to re-evaluate medieval attitudes toward history and society, as long as we possess our own hermeneutical skills to unlock the meanings contained in his copious, and sometimes bewildering, writings.

Joachim of Fiore lived in an era that modern scholars have affixed with many labels and loaded with wide-ranging claims of historical significance: the “long twelfth century,” a period of “reform” in the structures of the Roman Church, a “renaissance” in cultural and intellectual life, and also a “reformation,” dramatic changes in the forms of religious living. Joachim certainly did not stand alone in his intensified desire to figure out “what it all meant” in historical terms, joined in this effort by other Latin Christian theologians and exegetes. Few, however, could match his willingness to innovate and speculate about God’s plan for the entire course of history.⁵

As demonstrated in some of his earliest writings, Joachim believed that all of human time could be divided into two periods (*tempora*): that of the Old Testament, sixty-three generations that began with Adam, “flowered” with the biblical patriarchs, and endured until Christ, and that of the New Testament, sixty-three more generations that began with King Ozias of Judah, flowered with Christ, and would last until the end of time.⁶ He called this insight “concordance.” For all of the complexities of the abbot’s exegesis and apocalypticism, this basic concept formed the foundation for his interpretation of historical events and his predictions about the future. In a sense, this belief revealed Joachim at his most conservative, relying upon the core premise of Christian exegesis that the Hebrew Bible formed not just a source of

4 E. Randolph Daniel, (ed.), *Abbot Joachim of Fiore: Liber de Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti* 4.1.45, (Transactions of the American Philosophical Society) 73, Part 8 (Philadelphia, 1983), 403.

5 For a sense of these historiographical themes, see the essays collected in R.L. Benson and G. Constable, (eds.), *Renaissance and Renewal in the Twelfth Century* (Cambridge, MA, 1982).

6 *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.8, (ed.) Daniel, 72. See also the abbot’s earliest known extant work (1176), the “Genealogy,” in Gian Luca Potestà, “Die Genealogia: Ein frühes Werk Joachims von Fiore und die Anfänge seines Geschichtsbildes,” *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 56 (2000), 55–101. For some observations about Joachim’s views of biblical and post-biblical history, E.R. Daniel, “A New Understanding of Joachim: The Concords, the Exile, and the Exodus,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III*, (ed.) Robert Rusconi (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 13 (Rome, 2001), 209–22; and Daniel, “Joachim’s Unnoticed Pattern of History: The Second *Diffinitio*,” in *Joachim of Fiore and the Influence of Inspiration*, (ed.) Wannenmacher, 3–14.

information about the Jewish people and their relationship with God, but also a code to be cracked. Like previous generations of Christian exegetes, the abbot remained convinced that a spiritual meaning lay hidden within the “letter” of the Old Testament. This desire to penetrate the meaning of Scripture was far from an academic exercise for the abbot, who believed that his understanding of Scripture had been revolutionized by a series of divine revelations.⁷

Informed by his principle of concordance, inspired by those revelations, Joachim also realized that history was divided into three stages (*status*) according to the Trinity: the *status* of the Father, from Adam to Christ; the *status* of the Son, from Christ until about the abbot’s own present time; and the *status* of the Holy Spirit, which had a double origin in the *status* of the Father with the Old Testament prophets, and the *status* of the Son in the days of Benedict of Nursia (480–547), creator of the Benedictine Rule. The third *status* was due to flower soon, within two generations of Joachim’s own lifetime, as history fully entered the era of the Holy Spirit.⁸

Among other implications, the coming of Christ marked a make-or-break moment for the Synagogue of the Jews, superseded with the flowering of the New Testament and the transition from the *status* of the Father to that of the Son. Christ’s life, death, and resurrection had inaugurated a new era of Christian grace emerging from the Jewish Law, with the Christian priesthood and sacraments deriving from “carnal” Jewish rites.⁹ This basic premise—that

7 On these revelatory experiences, Robert Lerner, “Joachim of Fiore’s Breakthrough to Chiliasm,” *Cristianesimo nella Storia* 6 (1985), 489–512.

8 E. Randolph Daniel, “The Double Procession of the Holy Spirit in Joachim of Fiore’s Understanding of History,” *Speculum* 55 (1986), 469–83. Among other places, Joachim explored the significance of Saint Benedict and his monastic rule in his *Tractatus in expositionem vitae et regulae beati Benedicti*, (ed.) Alexander Patschovsky (Fonti per la storia dell’Italia medievale) 29 (Rome: Istituto Storico Italiano per il medio evo, 2008).

9 On this transition from the Jews to the Gentiles, see Joachim’s *Exhortatorium Iudeorum* 3.D.1, (ed.) Alexander Patschovsky (Fonti per la storia dell’Italia medievale: antiquitates) 26 (Rome, 2006), 267–77; and *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia* 1.3, (ed.) Francesco Santi (Fonti per la storia dell’Italia medievale) 17 (Rome, 2002), 19–36. In his *Psalterium decem cordarum* 3.4, (ed.) Kurt-Victor Selge (MGH QzGM) 20 (Hanover, 2009), 208–14, Joachim offered the following scheme for history: a time before the Law (*ante legem*), under the Law (*sub lege*), and under biblical kings and prophets (*sub regibus et prophetis*), followed by a fourth time where God the Son and Holy Spirit operated clandestinely in history, and finally, by a fifth time in which the Holy Spirit (sent by the Son) was openly working as an agent in history. Joachim noted that this fifth time had begun in his own day. Here and elsewhere in his works, the abbot drew upon a long-standing patristic scheme that divided all of history into three stages, before the Jewish Law (*ante legem*), under the Law (*sub lege*), and under Christian grace (*sub gratia*), followed by the eternal Sabbath. For more

the Gentiles had received the Lord's favor from the Jews with the coming of Christ—would have been readily recognizable to any Christian with even a rudimentary knowledge of his or her faith. In fact, Joachim's interest in the historical problem of Jewish unbelief placed him squarely in the company of 12th-century contemporaries, who had turned a fresh (and often baleful) gaze onto the continued existence of the Jews as a community that rejected Christ. Monastic and clerical thinkers of his day, who produced an outpouring of anti-Jewish Christian polemics, increasingly found little place for the Jews in a properly ordered Christian society. For some, the Jewish failure to recognize Christianity indicated a failure of their rationality, demonstrating that they were less than fully human. For others, their intensified devotion to the suffering of Jesus brought them to heap scorn on the Jews, who had killed Christ. For still others, the Jews stood alongside Muslims as a common threat to the universal Church.¹⁰

Joachim, as we will see, did not entirely agree with his contemporaries in this regard, showing a far more positive valuation of the Hebrews' place in history and their future prospects in God's plan. Nor did he remain content with vaguely historical allegories to reveal how the Hebrew holy writings foreshadowed Christian truth. Through his innovative principle of concordance, he directly aligned the narrative of events recorded in the time of the Old Testament with the narrative of events in the time of the New Testament. Measured by numbers of generations, the two times periods were equivalent in duration and structure, moving to the same rhythm of the divine plan. As Joachim de-

on this scheme, Auguste Luneau, *Histoire du salut chez les pères de l'église: la doctrine des âges du monde* (Paris, 1964).

- 10 There is a wide-ranging literature on this subject. Important studies include Amos Funkenstein, "Basic Types of Christian Anti-Jewish Polemics in the Later Middle Ages," *Viator* 2 (1971), 373–82; Anna S. Abulafia, "Jewish-Christian Disputations and the Twelfth-Century Renaissance," *Journal of Medieval History* 15 (1989), 105–25; and Jeremy Cohen, "Christian Theology and Anti-Jewish Violence in the Middle Ages: Connections and Disjunctions," in *Religious Violence between Christians and Jews: Medieval Roots, Modern Perspectives*, (ed.) Anna S. Abulafia (Houndmills, 2002), 44–60. See also Anna S. Abulafia, *Christians and Jews in the Twelfth-Century Renaissance* (London, 1995); Gilbert Dahan, *Les intellectuels chrétiens et les juifs au Moyen Age* (Paris, 1990); Robert Chazan, "The Deteriorating Image of the Jews—Twelfth and Thirteenth Centuries," in *Christendom and Its Discontents: Exclusion, Persecution, and Rebellion, 1000–1500*, (eds.) Scott Waugh and Peter Diehl (Cambridge, Eng., 1996), 220–33; Jeremy Cohen, "The Jews as the Killers of Christ in the Latin Tradition, from Augustine to the Friars," *Traditio* 39 (1983), 1–27; and Benjamin Kedar, "De Iudeis et Sarracenis: On the Categorization of Muslims and Jews in Medieval Canon Law," in *Studia in Honorem Eminentissimi Cardinalis Alphonsi M. Stickler*, (ed.) Rosalio Lara (Rome, 1992), 207–13.

fined it: "We consider concordance particularly to be a similitude of equal proportion from the New and Old Testament—equal, I say, with respect to number and not dignity. Clearly, a person and a person, an order and an order, a war and a war seem to have a certain likeness, although with changes between them in their appearance."¹¹ If some 12th-century Christian theologians and exegetes such as Honorius Augustodunensis and Gerhoh of Reichersberg flirted with the notion that the Bible might provide a guidebook to post-biblical events, Joachim confidently embraced it. Viewed through this lens, the patterns of order found in the time of the Old Testament provided a template to discern patterns of order in the time of the New Testament, including the historical experience of various peoples, institutions, and polities.¹²

Drawing upon the Book of Revelation (Rev. 6–8), Joachim also organized all of history into a double set of seven seals.¹³ The first seven seals applied to the Synagogue of the Jews and the following seven to the Church of the Gentiles, each marked by successive trials or persecutions of God's people. In the Old Testament, the Hebrews suffered first at the hands of the Egyptians; second, the Canaanites; third, the Syrians; fourth, the Assyrians; fifth, the Chaldeans or Babylonians; and sixth, a double persecution by foreign invaders recorded in the Books of Judith and Esther. These events inaugurated the seventh seal, a Sabbath age of peace for the Jews, including the rebuilding of the Temple in Jerusalem, until their final tribulation in the time of the Maccabees. In addition to suffering, the sweep of Old Testament history recorded the blessings of the Jewish people, including their Covenant with God, their reception of the written Law through Moses, the establishment of Levitical priesthood, and the rise of the Davidic kingdom. These latter developments formed unmistakable

11 *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.2, (ed.) Daniel, 62.

12 On the abbot's intellectual predecessors and contemporaries, Marjorie Reeves, "The Originality and Influence of Joachim of Fiore," *Traditio* 36 (1980), 296–316; Bernard McGinn, "RATIO and VISIO: Reflections on Joachim of Fiore's Place in Twelfth-Century Theology," in *Gioacchino da Fiore*, (ed.) Rusconi, 27–46; and Whalen, *Dominion of God*, 72–99.

13 On the seven "battles" or "seals," see Joachim's *De prophetia ignota: eine frühe Schrift Joachims Von Fiore* 1.4, (ed.) Matthias Kaup (Monumenta Germaniae Historica Studien und Texte) 19 (Hannover, 1998), 184–91; his tract *De septem sigillis*, in Julia E. Wannenmacher, *Hermeneutik der Heilsgeschichte: De septem sigillis und die sieben Siegel im Werk Joachims von Fiore* (Studies in the History of Christian Traditions) 118 (Leiden, 2005); and the *Liber de Concordia* 1.12, (ed.) Daniel, 45–48. On the development of this scheme, see the analysis of Wannenmacher, *Hermeneutik der Heilsgeschichte*, 37–58; and Wilhelm Kamlah, *Apokalypse und Geschichtstheologie: Die mittelalterliche Auslegung der Apokalypse vor Joachim von Fiore* (Berlin, 1935; repr. Vaduz, 1965).

signs of the Lord's favor: the Jews enjoyed both "priestly authority" and "royal power" in the service of God.

Like the time of the Old Testament, Joachim argued, the time of the New Testament was also divided into a series of seven seals along with battles and persecutions of the faithful. The first seal contained the creation of the Church and the apostolic mission to the Gentiles. The first persecution of the Church occurred when the earliest Christians separated themselves from the unbelieving Jews and struggled against the perfidy of the Synagogue, the new Egypt. The second seal marked the period of pagan persecutions of Christian believers, when Saint Peter traveled to Rome and conferred the dignity of "royal priesthood" upon the city. With the coming of the third seal, the Roman Emperor Constantine (306–37), embracing the Christian faith, ended the pagan onslaught; the Church, however, next suffered persecution from heretics, including the barbarian peoples who invaded the Western Roman Empire such as the Arian Visigoths. At this time, matching the division between Israel and Judah, the Greek Church, centered on the new imperial city of Constantinople, broke away from the authority and teachings of Rome. Under the fourth seal, the Muslims conquered much of the Eastern Roman Empire, punishing the Greeks for their schism and heresy; imperial power was transferred from the emperors of Constantinople to the Franks, who reigned with proper respect for priestly dignity. Under the fifth seal, however, secular powers such as the German Empire oppressed the faithful in the Roman Church. The abbot believed that he lived on the cusp of the sixth seal—the apocalyptic sufferings of the Church during the new Babylonian Captivity—a time of double-tribulations that would be followed by the seventh seal, an era of earthly peace for the elect before Final Judgement.¹⁴

In his *Book of Concordance of the Old and New Testament*, Joachim used his generational coordinates to map those parallel historical experiences of Jews and Christians with remarkable narrative clarity.¹⁵ In the fourth book, for example, he devoted detailed attention to the generations that came after the Patriarch Jacob in the Old Testament, and after Christ in the New Testament (organizing them into subsets or "distinctions" of twelve generations each). During the thirteenth generation after Jacob, King Solomon brought peace for Israel and constructed the Jewish Temple; during the thirteenth generation after Christ, Constantine and his successors, above all after the death of the last pagan emperor Julian the Apostate, brought peace and "imperial power"

14 *De prophetia ignota* 1.4, (ed.) Kaup, 184–91; *De septem sigillis*, (ed.) Wannenmacher, 336–55; and *Liber de Concordia* 3.2.1–3.2.7, (ed.) Daniel, 287–306.

15 *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.12, (ed.) Daniel, 81.

for Christians.¹⁶ During the following generation, in the Old Testament, under King Roboam the ten tribes of Israel split from Judah and began to worship idols; in the New Testament, under Emperor Theodosius at the Council of Constantinople (381), the Greek Church began to reject Roman authority and doctrine. As Joachim described it:

So it was that the tribe of Judah alone was obedient to the instructions of the highest priest, who presided over the Temple of the Lord, while the other tribes, adhering to the priests of Baal, walked for the most part in their errors. So also the Churches of the Greeks, set apart by the bishops of Constantinople (among whom, it is agreed, there were great heresiarchs), walked for the most part in their errors away from the Roman Church, which is the place of prayer and the unshakable Temple of the living God.¹⁷

The abbot closely associated bishops of the Greek Church with the heresy of Arianism and held their commitment to this error as largely responsible for the growing division between the followers of Rome and Constantinople.¹⁸

Throughout his works, the abbot made no secret of the fact that the Greeks had been the first to receive the divine law of the Jews through the Septuagint and that their bishops and spiritual fathers had instructed the Latins, bringing them to the recognition of Christian truth.¹⁹ Just as the Jews had preceded the Gentiles, but had lost their place of priority in God's plan, so too had the Greeks come before the Latins in the faith, but had ceded to them their birthright of spiritual grace. In his *Commentary on the Four Gospels*, Joachim demonstrated this insight through his exegesis of Phares and Zaram, the twin sons of Tamar (Mt. 1:3), who signified "the two people, namely the Greek and Latin, whom Peter along with the other apostles begat through his Gospel."²⁰ Zaram emerged first from his mother's womb, sticking out his hand, which the nurse marked by tying a piece of string around it. This symbolized the Greeks, who had first committed themselves to works of justice through their doctrine

16 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.5-4.1.6, (ed.) Daniel, 334-36. Joachim labeled the twelfth to twenty-fourth generations after Christ the *secunda distinctio*.

17 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.7, (ed.) Daniel, 337-38. The third canon of the council awarded the imperial capital a place in the pentarchy (i.e. the five major sees of the ancient world) second only to Rome.

18 On the development of the schism between the Latin and Greek churches, *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.32, 3.2.3, (ed.) Daniel, 136-37, 292-93.

19 *Quatuor evangelia* 1.9, (ed.) Santi, 187-93.

20 *Quatuor evangelia* 1.2, (ed.) Santi, 13.

and the blood of their martyrs. Zaram, however, withdrew his hand back into the womb, and Phares was born first, revealing that the Greeks, who had withdrawn themselves from “works of piety,” rightly lost the obedience owed to them by the younger Latin Church.²¹

Joachim’s concern with the status of the Greek Church likewise placed him in the company of contemporary clerical and monastic intellectuals. Without exaggerating its importance, the so-called Schism of 1054 had represented a sign of critical changes in the Roman Church, as reformist impulses gave rise to a newly articulated and strident ideology of papal primacy. Rome, as the head of the universal Church, stood not just at the judicial apex of the Christian world, but also represented the arbiter of correct doctrine and religious practice.²² Generations of Latin Christians confronted (in often polemical terms) the Greek refusal to recognize the authority of Rome, along with the problem of divergences between the two churches such as *filioque* and the proper form of the Eucharist sacrifice. Joachim, however, represented the first Christian exegete who employed such biblical typologies to explain the primacy of Latin Christians over Greek Christians.²³ His approach utilized the exact sort of exegetical logic that Christians employed to demonstrate the superiority of their faith over the Jews. Much like the Jews before them, Joachim argued, the Greeks had failed to transcend fully their carnal understandings of the divine law. They had obstinately rejected the decrees and guidance of the Roman Church, refusing to acknowledge the universal, apostolic authority that was granted to the papacy by Peter. They assumed that the Latins despised them, just as much as they despised the Latins.²⁴

21 *Quatuor evangelia* 1.2, (ed.) Santi, 13–14.

22 Brett E. Whalen, “Rethinking the Schism of 1054: Heresy, Authority, and the Latin Rite,” *Traditio* 62 (2007), 1–24.

23 In addition to Whalen, *Dominion of God*, 108–18, Brett E. Whalen, “Joachim of Fiore and the Division of Christendom,” *Viator* 98 (2003), 89–108; and Felicitas Schmieder, “Two Unequal Brothers Split and Reunited—The Greeks in Latin Eschatological Perceptions of Politics and History before and after 1204,” in *Quarta Crociata. Venezia—Bisanzio—Impero Latino*, (eds.) Gherardo Ortalli, Giorgio Ravegnati, and Peter Schreiner (Venice, 2006), 633–51. On the *filioque* dispute (that is, over the Latin doctrine that the Holy Spirit proceeds “from the Father and from the Son”) and its place in Joachim’s theology, see the essay by Peter Gemeinhardt in this volume.

24 This general theme is repeated throughout the *Quatuor evangelia* 1.7, 2.11, 3.16, (ed.) Santi, 149–50, 229–31, 287–89, 291. On the “carnality” of the Greek Church, see also Joachim’s *Enchiridion super Apocalypsin*, (ed.) Edward K. Burger (Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies: Studies and Texts) 78 (Toronto, 1986), 22.

This Greek rejection of Rome and lapse into heresy had dire consequences. In his model of the seven seals, under the third seal of the New Testament, Joachim linked the problem of Greek heresy with the profound sufferings of Rome and the Latin Church during the period when barbarian peoples invaded the Western Roman Empire.²⁵ In terms of the principle of concordance, these barbarian incursions into the Latin Church matched the assaults of Israel against Judah in the time of the Old Testament from the sixteenth to the twenty-first generations after Jacob. The Arian Goths, according to the abbot, had entered the empire of Constantinople like another Jezebel, a bride for the tyrannical Greek rulers, and did their bidding by invading Italy in the time of Emperor Zeno. Joachim reserved particular scorn for the Ostrogothic ruler Theodoric, an “impious and wicked man” who had imprisoned Pope John I (523–26) and executed Boethius. Around this time, the Arian Vandals and the Lombards also punished the followers of Rome in Italy and other places.²⁶

Under the fourth seal of the New Testament, however, the Greeks paid a far heavier price for their deviation into heresy when followers of the “pseudo-prophet” Muhammad arose and conquered most of their lands. In Joachim’s principle of concordance, during the twenty-second generation after Jacob, the Assyrians began to conquer the regions of the ten tribes of Israel; during the same generation after Christ, the followers of the “false prophet” Muhammad seized Jerusalem, Alexandria, and other portions of the Eastern Roman Empire.²⁷ Joachim tied these developments specifically to the Greek rejection of Rome. In the same way that God had allowed the Assyrians to conquer Israel because of their sins and abandonment of the Temple at Jerusalem, the Lord permitted the Saracens to overrun the vast majority of Greek lands because

the Churches of the Greeks, fleeing the fellowship of the Latins ... were forced to seek refuge from earthly princes, choosing to obey exalted secular power, rather than the vicar of Christ, and submitting to their heretical bishops, rather than to catholic ones. Therefore, since they chose the former course rather than the latter, by the just judgement of all-powerful God, they were given over into the hands of the Saracens, by whom they were struck down, just as houses on the sea-shore are demolished by the

25 On the barbarian invasions under the third seal, *De septem sigillis*, (ed.) Wannenmacher, 343; and *De prophetia ignota* 1.4, (ed.) Kaup, 186. See also the *Liber de Concordia* 3.2.3, (ed.) Daniel, 294.

26 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.16, (ed.) Daniel, 347–50.

27 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.23, (ed.) Daniel, 359–60; also, *De prophetia ignota* 1.4, (ed.) Kaup, 186; and *De septem sigillis*, (ed.) Wannenmacher, 345.

flood of a great wave. It was necessary that those houses fall, which were not built on Peter's foundation.²⁸

Elsewhere, in a twist on the standard patristic interpretation of Daniel 2:36-45, Joachim read Nebuchadnezzar's dream of the alloyed statue as representing successively the kingdom of the Persians, the Macedonians, the Romans, and, finally, the Saracens, "by whom many kingdoms have been and are conquered to this very day."²⁹ He also associated the Muslims with the fourth beast in Daniel's dream of the beasts that emerged from the sea to wreak havoc on the kingdoms of the world (Dan. 7:2-7).³⁰ These biblical passages revealed how under the fourth seal the "pride of the Greek people was humbled, overcome by the Saracens, as many of their Churches that enjoyed the honor of being a patriarchate were given over into the hands of foreigners and their oldest sees to the power of their enemies."³¹ Turning to the Book of Revelation, Joachim declared that this devastation of the Greeks—the "court" outside the "temple" of Rome—fulfilled God's instructions to John in Revelation 11:2: "Exclude the court outside of the Temple, and do not measure it, for it has been given over to the Gentiles."³²

According to the abbot, this change in the status of the Greeks became further evident at the opening of the fifth seal when the power of empire was transferred from the Greeks to the Franks under their ruler, Charles Martel, in the days of popes Gregory III and Zachary during the twenty-fifth generation after Christ. In this instance, we see once again how Joachim reconfigured a long-standing and popular concept in the Latin theology of history—the divine "transfer of empire"—and made it his own.³³ Within his principle of

28 *Liber de Concordia* 3.2.4, (ed.) Daniel, 297. Joachim develops the idea that the Muslim invasions were a punishment for Greek religious error in the *Liber de Concordia* 3.2.4, 4.1.23, 4.1.26, (ed.) Daniel, 297, 360, 364; the *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Burger, 36; and in the *Quatuor evangelia* 3.16, (ed.) Santi, 288.

29 *Exhortatorium Iudeorum* 2.B, (ed.) Patschovsky, 194–95. In common Latin patristic exegesis, the fourth empire represented in the dream is the Roman Empire, which would endure until the end of time.

30 *Expositio in Apocalypsim* (Venice, 1527; repr. Frankfurt am Main, 1965), fols. 8ra, 10rb-v11a, 116va, 120rb, 134rb-35va, 163ra-64ra, 190v.

31 *Liber de Concordia* 3.2.4, (ed.) Daniel, 298.

32 *Liber de Concordia* 3.2.4, (ed.) Daniel, 300. This exegesis appears frequently in Joachim's works. See also the *Expositio*, fols. 142v-145r; and *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Burger, 36.

33 *Liber de Concordia* 3.2.4, (ed.) Daniel, 296–99. Joachim labeled the twenty-fifth generation after Christ as the beginning of the *tertia distinctio*.

concordance, the rule of the Carolingians corresponded to rule of Hezekiah, the righteous king of Judah, whom God had protected from his enemies and granted fifteen more years of life (2 Kgs. 20:6).³⁴ This promise of protection was extended broadly to Latin churches, which had suffered from the depredations of the Saracens at the same time as the Greeks, especially in Africa, Spain, and Sicily, but were not overrun by the infidels. Under the protection of the Franks, Rome and its followers enjoyed a time of peace and security, free from heresy and oppression.

With the opening of the fifth seal, Joachim's schemes of history brought him ever closer to the controversies and concerns of the present. The abbot believed that he was living at the tail end of the fifth seal, which, in the time of the Old Testament, had ended with the deportation of Judah and the beginning of the Babylonian Captivity. As Joachim put it in his later tract *On an Understanding of the Fig Baskets*, the generations from Charles, ruler of the Franks, until his own day also represented the "time of Babylon."³⁵ Despite the exalted status of the Latin people, the followers of Rome increasingly confronted hypocrisy and corruption within their own community, while those who wielded secular power, in particular the German emperors of the Salian dynasty, threatened the liberty of the Church.³⁶

As a monastic exegete, historian, and apocalyptic thinker, the abbot could not help but be aware of additional changes that had begun to reshape the Roman Church in the 11th century, changes that modern historians often call the ecclesiastical reform movement or program. The so-called Investiture Conflict between Pope Gregory VII (1073–84) and Emperor Henry IV (1056–1105) represents perhaps the most famous episode in this attempt to purify the Church of secular influence, which was also characterized by a drive to rid the clergy of married priests and those who obtained their office through the sin of simony. Well before Joachim, the impulses of reform and attendant conflict between popes and secular rulers had fueled creative speculation about the place of the Church in history and even newly charged apocalyptic sensibilities. As he so often did, however, the abbot went far beyond his predecessors and contemporaries in his search for meanings and patterns in recent events,

34 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.27, (ed.) Daniel, 366–67.

35 *Intelligentia super calathis*, in *Gioacchino da Fiore: aspetti inediti della vita e delle opera*, (ed.) Pietro de Leo (Soveria Manelli, 1988), 138.

36 *Liber de Concordia* 3.2.5, (ed.) Daniel, 301. On this shift from the imperial patronage of the early Frankish emperors to the later persecution of the Roman Church by the German emperors, *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.27, 4.1.29, (ed.) Daniel, 368–69, 376–77; and the *Intelligentia super calathis*, (ed.) Pietro de Leo, 138–39.

even as he warned his readers of the need for caution as he moved from the surety of the remote past toward the murkier present.³⁷

Looking back at the last few generations, Joachim saw clear signs that the Latin Church had begun to enter the days of lamentation predicted by the Prophet Jeremiah. This trend became clear above all in the struggles that had begun in the age of Pope Leo IX (1049–54). In terms of his principle of concordance, Joachim aligned Pope Leo with King Josiah, a just ruler who purified Judah from idolatry and tore down the idols at Bethel, but who was nevertheless destroyed by the Pharaoh Neco (2 Kgs. 22:1–2).³⁸ Leo was also a praiseworthy man who sought to reform the Roman Church that had been polluted by his predecessors. Like Josiah, however, Leo did not understand how much the Lord's anger had been kindled against his people, something that was evident in the pope's ill-fated expedition against the Normans in southern Italy, which ended in his own defeat and capture at the Battle of Civitate in 1053. Why did this shocking event happen? For Joachim, this expedition was an illicit use of force by a representative of spiritual authority, a violation of proper order that was evident to those who rightly placed "their faith more in spiritual arms than material ones and expect victory to come more from heaven than earth."³⁹ The death of Gregory VII in exile, the seizure of Pope Paschal II (1099–1118) by Emperor Henry V, the papal schism under Alexander III (1159–81): such trials that occurred immediately before and during Joachim's lifetime demonstrated that the opening of the sixth seal lay close at hand.⁴⁰

Joachim also showed mixed feelings about the reform-papacy's most dramatic call to arms in defense of the Church: the First Crusade. In one of his best known images from his *Book of Figures*, the seven-headed dragon from the book of Revelation (12:3–4), Joachim associated the fourth, fifth, and sixth heads of the dragon with Muhammad, a Muslim ruler named Mesemothus, and Saladin, the conqueror of Jerusalem in 1187.⁴¹ Discussing the Saracen

37 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.38, (ed.) Daniel, 388. On the theology of history and the early reform movement, Whalen, *Dominion of God*, 31–41.

38 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.29, (ed.) Daniel, 378–79.

39 *Intelligentia super calathis*, (ed.) Pietro de Leo, 143; *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.29, 4.1.31, (ed.) Daniel, 383. On Joachim's attitude toward the papacy and its struggles with the German Empire, see the insightful observations of Herbert Grundmann, "Kirchenfreiheit und Kaisermacht um 1190 in der Sicht Joachims von Fiore," *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 19 (1963), 353–96.

40 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.32–4.1.37, (ed.) Daniel, 384–87.

41 See *Il libro delle figure dell'abate Gioachino da Fiore*, (ed.) Leone Tondelli (Turin, 1953), table 14. On the *Book of Figures*, Marjorie Reeves and Beatrice Hirsche-Reich, *The Figures of Joachim of Fiore* (Oxford, 1972); and Marco Rainini, *Disegni dei tempi: il "Liber*

threat in his commentary on the life of Saint Benedict, Joachim drew upon the seven-headed beast from the book of Revelation (13:1-3), noting in particular John's description of one head that seemed as if it were dead. This foretold the time when "Jerusalem was snatched from their [the Saracens'] hands, and they were exceedingly humiliated." Joachim, however, perceived a shift from the success of that initial expedition to the more recent setbacks in his own day:

That seventh head refers to the new race of the Saracens that inhabits the eastern shore, which seemed a while ago as if it were dead. For so it was in the days of Pope Urban that there was a great movement of Christians from every part of the Western Church heading across the sea to liberate holy Jerusalem. Now, however, on account of our sins, that head (which seemed to be dead) is reborn, just as if in the eighth place, aroused from among the dead to carry out the deeds that God allows it to accomplish, followed a second time by eternal destruction.⁴²

It is noteworthy that Joachim makes no mention of the First Crusade in his *Book on the Concordance of the Old and New Testament*, skipping by Pope Urban II or mentioning him only briefly.⁴³ In a sense, the successful capture of Jerusalem in 1099 posed a problem for the abbot's principle of concordance—in the waning days of the Kingdom of Judah, just before the Babylonian Captivity, there was no equivalent Old Testament event to match that dramatic victory of the Latin Church in the time of the New Testament. The ultimate defeat or conversion of the Muslims would take place in the future. On a more profound level, it is not surprising that Joachim might have felt a deep ambivalence about the crusades. They were an example of swimming against the tide and taking the "wrong" kinds of historical action, seeking by force of arms to secure the temporal liberties of the Church rather than pursuing the "right" course—namely, penance, martyrdom, and preparing "spiritual arms" for battle with evil.⁴⁴

And what would that future look like? Joachim's model of the seven seals and his principle of concordance inexorably brought him from the history of

Figurarum" e la teologia figurative di Gioacchino da Fiore (Opera di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 18 (Rome, 2006).

42 *Tractatus in expositionem vitae et regulae beati Benedicti*, (ed.) Patschovsky, 233–38.

43 *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.29, 4.1.36, (ed.) Daniel, 379, 384.

44 On Joachim's attitude toward the crusades, E. Randolph Daniel, "Apocalyptic Conversion: The Joachite Alternative to Crusade," *Traditio* 25 (1969), 127–54; and Jean Flori, *L'islam et la fin des temps: l'interprétation prophétique des invasions musulmanes dans la chrétienté médiévale* (Paris, 2007), 307–12, 317–26.

the past to the history of the future. Taking the year 1200 as a turning point, he believed that two generations remained before the opening of the sixth seal and the double-persecution of the faithful, followed by the seventh seal. In some cases, Joachim remained vague about the precise number of years still to come; in others, he determined that each generation would last thirty years: meaning according to his Trinitarian scheme, this same period of remaining generations marked the closing of the *status* of the Son and the full realization of the *status* of the Holy Spirit.

The insights into the importance of the Trinity, moreover, provided key information about the coming Sabbath age of the Holy Spirit (and seventh seal). Each *status* of history, the abbot explained, was characterized by a particular order: the *status* of the Father by the “order of the married,” the *status* of the Son by the celibate “order of the clergy,” and the *status* of the Holy Spirit by the “order of the monks.”⁴⁵ In his writings, the abbot paid special attention to the historical development of the order of the monks, destined to play a crucial role in the coming Sabbath age. Monastic life had a double origin, first emerging in the *status* of the Father among the prophets such as Elijah and Elisha, who had remained among the ten tribes and rebuked the kings of Israel for their heretical errors. In the *status* of the Son, Christian monasticism developed in the Eastern Church, reaching the Western Church during a time when “the perfection of religion, and spiritual life and doctrine, newly flowed from the Greek people to the Latins, as there was still then peace and concord between each Church.”⁴⁶ Even after the Greek Church began to reject Rome, there remained a remnant of the Greeks, “hermits and abbots with many disciples in monastic perfection,” who continued to be faithful to the Roman Church, despite the persecution they suffered from their own Arian bishops.⁴⁷ At this time, the order of the monks had its second origin in the Latin Church starting during the period of Saint Benedict of Nursia, who stood as a “mediator between Greek and Latin monks.”⁴⁸ From this point forward, Joachim declared, the zeal for perfect monastic living was transferred to the followers of the Roman Church, thriving in Italy, Gaul, and Germany.

Like empire, monastic life had moved from the Greeks to the Latins, from the East to the West. Since the days of Benedict of Nursia, monasticism had

45 *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.5, (ed.) Daniel, 68; *Psalterium decem cordarum* 2.7, (ed.) Selge, 154–55.

46 *Quatuor evangelia* 2.11, (ed.) Santi, 228–29.

47 On this remnant of the Greeks, *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.3, (ed.) Daniel, 136–37; *De septem sigillis*, (ed.) Wannenmacher, 343; and the *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Burger, 36–37.

48 On the “double origin” of the monastic order from the *status* of the Father and from the *status* of the Son, *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.9, (ed.) Daniel, 75; and *Quatuor evangelia* 1.9, (ed.) Santi, 192–93.

been blessed by the Holy Spirit, flourishing first among the Cluniac order, and, in more recent times, among the Cistercians.⁴⁹ Joachim devoted particular attention to the career of Bernard of Clairvaux as an exemplar of the monastic vocation (although he eventually came to believe that the Cistercians themselves had come up short in their search for monastic perfection).⁵⁰ This progression of God's plan was demonstrated in another of the abbot's figures: the so-called Tree with Side-Shoots. At the base of the tree one finds the "order of the patriarchs" that yields to the "people of the Gentiles," while the "people of the Jews" form the lowest branch, a stunted growth from the main trunk. Next, the "people of the Gentiles" progress into the "people of the Latins," this time leaving the "people of the Greeks" as a stunted branch (although with more foliage than the Jewish limb beneath it). From the Latin people emerges the "order of monks," superseding the side-branch of the clerical order. Finally, from the monastic order grows the "order of the Cistercians," leaving aside the "order of the Cluniacs."⁵¹

The abbot, living through hotly contested debates among clerics and monks about the rapidly changing forms of religious life and their role in Christian society, had found his answers to that dilemma.⁵² Constantly changing and evolving, monastic life in the past had played a critical role in the history of God's people. With the coming of the seventh seal and third *status*, a new order of "spiritual men" would next emerge as agents for the reform of the Church. The monastic order would be blessed by the Holy Spirit in the Latin Church where it would begin to spread a deeper understanding of the faith to both clergy and laity alike. This era held special promise for the true followers of the Lord, not just among the righteous in the Latin Church but also among those who had strayed from God: first, the Greeks, and then the Jews. Divine grace,

49 On Saint Benedict and the transferral of monastic life to the Latin Church, *Liber de Concordia* 2.2.9, 4.1.16, (ed.) Daniel, 184, 351. In general, Joachim attributed great significance to the development of the Cistercian Order: *Liber de Concordia* 4.2.2, (ed.) Daniel, 413–17.

50 Bernard McGinn, "Alter Moyses: The Role of Bernard of Clairvaux in the Thought of Joachim of Fiore," in *Bernardus Magister: Papers Presented at the Nonacentenary Celebration of the Birth of Saint Bernard of Clairvaux*, (ed.) John Sommerfeldt (Kalamazoo, 1990), 429–48.

51 *Il libro delle figure*, (ed.) Tondelli, table 23. Later in his career, there are signs that Joachim grew equally disillusioned with the main body of the Cistercian order and began to believe that the future arrival of the spiritual men would be accomplished in none other than the monastic order of Saint John in Flower, which the abbot himself had founded in the Sila Mountains. See Stephen Wessley, *Joachim of Fiore and Monastic Reform* (New York, 1990).

52 Giles Constable, *The Reformation of the Twelfth-Century* (Cambridge, U.K., 1996).

which had been transferred in the past from the Jews to the Greeks and then from the Greeks to the Latins, would begin its return journey. As Joachim declared in his *Book of Concordance*:

After the Babylonian transmigration (which is close at hand, as will be shown shortly), there will not be lacking a remnant of the faithful among the Latins, in which the Holy Spirit will carry out its work up until the consummation of the ages. Through them not only the Greeks, who seem near to grace, but also the Jews, who wander farther from it, shall be led back to the unity of the faith.⁵³

Christians had expected the penultimate conversion of the Jews since the days of Saint Paul, a theme elaborated upon by subsequent generations of exegetes. Joachim, however, charted new waters in his far more energetic and “irenical” speculations about the conversion of the Jews that would accompany the coming of the third *status*.⁵⁴ For example, in the figure of Zechariah (Lk. 1:5-7), struck mute due to his disbelief when the angel of the Lord informed him of his aged wife’s pregnancy, the abbot foresaw the eventual turn of the Jews toward Christ: Zechariah’s voice was restored when his son, John the Baptist, was born, revealing that the “people of the Jews” would at last turn to the Lord after the conversion of the remaining Gentiles.⁵⁵ Joachim made a similar point in his exegesis of the sightless Tobit (Tob. 2:7-10), whose blindness was eventually cured by his son, Tobias. Tobias’s journey to the Medes with the angel Raphael represented the journey of the Apostles to the Gentiles—first to the Greeks, and then to the Latins, among whom Tobias and Sara celebrated their “spiritual marriage” that had endured from the time of Saint Peter up until Joachim’s present day. After the nuptials, Tobias returned to his blind father and restored his sight, thus symbolizing that the successors of the Apostles would return to preach among the Jewish people.⁵⁶

Joachim made this point about the conversion of the Jews repeatedly throughout his writings.⁵⁷ There are signs he believed that this development

53 *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.32, (ed.) Daniel, 137.

54 See, however, Jeremy Cohen, “*Synagoga conversa*: Honorius Augustodunensis, the Song of Songs, and Christianity’s ‘Eschatological Jew,’” *Speculum* 79 (2004), 309–40, who argues for an earlier shift evident in Honorius’s writings.

55 *Exhortatorium Iudeorum* 3.D.2, (ed.) Patschovsky, 282–83.

56 *Exhortatorium Iudeorum* 3.D.1, (ed.) Patschovsky, 276–81.

57 For additional passages on the conversion of the Jews, sometimes associated with the apocalyptic return of the prophets Elijah and Enoch, *Liber de Concordia* 2.2.5, (ed.) Daniel, 158–60; and *Quatuor evangelia* 1.3, 1.6, (ed.) Santi, 26, 108, 117.

was drawing quite near to his own lifetime on the cusp of the *status* of the Holy Spirit. Citing his desire to protect unlearned Christians from the arguments of the Jews, the abbot specifically justified writing his *Exhortation to the Jews* because he believed that the time for Israel's conversion, a time for mercy and compassion toward the Jews, seemed to be at hand. Although he admitted that some of the Jews would follow and serve Antichrist, a role traditionally assigned to them in Christian apocalyptic thought, he declared that others would join harmoniously with the Church before and after Antichrist's coming. Unified in Christ, Jews and Gentiles would form "one kingdom" and "one priesthood" in this eschatological union. These events would be followed by the conversion of numerous "infidels," including pagans and Saracens, who would enter together into the new Promised Land—the universal Christian Church.⁵⁸

Equally important was Joachim's unprecedented step of explicitly predicting that the Greek Church would undergo a spiritual conversion before the Jews by recognizing the authority of the Roman Church and its spiritual doctrines. In his commentary on the Gospels, he explained the successive progression of Greek and then Jewish conversion through his exegesis of Christ's passage through Samaria and his conversation with the Samaritan women at the well (Jn. 4:3-26). The Samaritan woman, to whom Christ offers water, represented the Church of Constantinople, to which the spiritual men would offer spiritual doctrine. At first, a portion of the Eastern Church would return to unity with the Latins, eventually followed by the full multitude of believers.⁵⁹ This conversion of the Greeks would be followed by the conversion of the Jews who would finally recognize Christ. The two peoples, Greeks and Jews, were also symbolized by the blind man at Jericho and the tax collector Zacchaeus (Lk. 18:35-43, 19:1-10). On his way into the city, Christ healed the sight of a blind man, representing the restoration of the Greeks to the Roman Church, and afterwards, he blessed Zacchaeus, revealing that the Jews would find faith in the Lord.⁶⁰

Through this powerful ecumenical vision, Joachim anticipated the creation of a universal "sheep fold" before the coming end of history. Who would be the shepherd of that flock? Naturally, Christ stood as the true shepherd. At the same time, the abbot occasionally speculated about the coming of a "new leader," a "universal pontiff of the New Jerusalem," perhaps meaning a spiritualized

58 *Exhortatorium Iudeorum* 3.B, 3.C.3, (ed.) Patschovsky, 122, 247, 270-71; also *Quatuor evangelia* 1.6, 1.7, 3.18, (ed.) Santi, 111-12, 152, 333.

59 *Quatuor evangelia* 3.16, (ed.) Santi, 288-89.

60 *Expositio*, fols. 144v-145r.

Roman pope. Although later generations of Joachites made the claim that the new age of the Holy Spirit would mean an end to the institutions, sacraments, and clerical order of the second *status*, Joachim never declared this himself. Transformation and spiritualization rather than rupture characterized his vision of the coming Sabbath age. The divisions wrought by sin during the passage of time—between Jews and Gentiles, Greeks and Latins, emperors and popes, clergy and laity, and different kinds of monks—would yield to a new unity characterized not by the erasure of difference, but rather spiritual harmony and concord.⁶¹

One can catch a glimpse at this new world in another of the abbot's figures, the so-called *Disposition of the New Order that Pertains to the Third Status*, which offers a striking visual "plan" for an ideal monastic community of the future age. In the Oratory of Abraham and the patriarchs, outside the monastery proper, one finds the laity who are married with children, having sex for procreation rather than lust, and holding their goods in common under the authority of a master appointed by the "spiritual father" of the entire community. In the Oratory of Saint Stephen and the martyrs, one finds brothers strong in "external discipline" but not "spiritual discipline"; in that of Paul and the Doctors, the learned men of God, able and willing to devote themselves to the study of "spiritual doctrine"; in that of John and the Virgins, the proven and perfect brothers following the spiritual life, each with his own cell for prayer and fasting; in that of Peter and the Apostles, the old and weak who can no longer pursue their ascetic life. In the center, the Oratory of Mary and Jerusalem, one finds the spiritual master—the abbot of the community "who rules over all" and "all will obey his decisions and judgements."⁶² What would the Christian society of the third *status* look like outside of such a community? The abbot was not clear. Perhaps all Christians would live in such a monastic manner, or a spiritualized clergy would administer to a spiritualized laity. Regardless, Joachim had made one thing clear: history would bring about the transfiguration of Christian society before the end of days.

There can be no question that Joachim of Fiore inhabited a complex and sometimes mystifying world of exegesis and apocalyptic speculation far removed from the concerns of everyday life in the Middle Ages. At the same

61 On the "new leader," *Liber de Concordia* 4.1.45, (ed.) Daniel, 402. See also Bernard McGinn, "Joachim of Fiore and the Twelfth-Century Papacy," in *Joachim of Fiore and the Influence of Inspiration*, (ed.) Wannenmacher, 15–34. On the later controversies over Joachim's ideas of the Sabbath age, Whalen, *Dominion of God*, 177–203.

62 *Il libro delle figure*, (ed.) Tondelli, table 25.

time, his deep conviction that God had allowed him spiritual insight into the meaning of the Bible, and thereby a means to unlock the mysteries of time, did not remove him from the ebb and flow of historical events and social changes that characterized 12th-century Christian Europe. To the contrary, in his voluminous writings the abbot engaged fully with some of the most pressing issues of his day: the relations between Jews and Christians, the schism between the Latin and Greek churches, the ecclesiastical reform movement and debates over the forms of religious life, and the crusades, to name only a few. In many ways, the present, not the past or future, formed the subject of his main concern. Joachim of Fiore, the theorist of history and society, also represented a person of action who met with popes and secular rulers that sought his apocalyptic consultations, who wrote and delivered sermons to his brethren. He even founded his own monastic order. If nothing else, the Calabrian abbot reminds us that even the most apparently opaque of medieval texts and images can tell us something important and authentic—often many things, depending upon who does the asking—about the politics, culture, and society of the Middle Ages, even when the materials in question deal with obscure biblical kings, seven-headed dragons, and imaginary monasteries.

Of course, even theorizing can bring unforeseen consequences. The abbot, who submitted his works to successive popes for approval, never faced papal censure in his lifetime, although he had clearly deviated from the proscribed bounds of Latin theology through his exegesis and apocalypticism. In 1215, at the Fourth Lateran Council, the assembled churchmen posthumously condemned aspects of his Trinitarian theology, although they remained careful to defend his overall orthodoxy.⁶³ As the generations passed, however, subsequent devotees of the abbot appropriated his schemes for far more radical critiques of the Roman Catholic Church and Christian society, linking the abbot's name with heresy and deviance. In certain hands, the future Sabbath age came to represent a call to arms for the poor and humble to rise up against the rich and mighty. A great leveling would occur with the decadent clergy overthrown and the sacerdotal leadership of Rome rejected. Like the sacraments and priesthood of the Jews, left behind with the transition from the *status* of the Father to that of the Son, the rites and offices of the Roman Catholic Church would vanish with the coming of the third *status*. Beyond the Middle Ages, according to some philosophers, political scientists, and historians, Joachim's ideas about the third *status* contributed in secularized form to modern philosophy

63 Fiona Robb, "The Fourth Lateran Council's Definition of Trinitarian Orthodoxy," *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 48 (1997), 22–43.

of history, whose practitioners included such figures as Hegel and Marx, who envisioned historical progress as part of the human experience in time—for better or for worse, given some of the horrific political actions taken in the name of progress during the modern age.⁶⁴ In this sense, Joachim's legacy as a theorist of history and society is formidable indeed.

64 See, for example, the discussion of Joachim in Karl Löwith, *Meaning in History: The Theological Implications of the Philosophy of History* (Chicago, 1949), 145–59, 208–13; and Jacob Taubes, *Occidental Eschatology*, trans. David Ratmoko (1947; Stanford, 2009), 85–122. See also the analysis of Matthias Riedl, *Joachim von Fiore: Denker der vollendeten Menschheit* (Würzburg, 2004).

Joachim the Abbot: Monastic Reform and the Foundation of the Florentian Order

Valeria De Fraja

4.1 Introduction

In Joachim of Fiore's theological thought, Benedictine monasticism occupied an important place and function. It was in fact the institution—already in its embryonic stage during the course of the first *status* with the prophets Elijah and Elisha—that would be capable of bringing the third *status* of the Holy Spirit to full fruition in what the abbot believed was the very near future. Nevertheless, the perspective from which I shall examine the meaning of monasticism will not be the Joachite theology of history and the position of the order (*ordo*) of monks therein, but rather the perspective of Joachim as the abbot of a monastery in Southern Italy—a Cistercian and a monastic reformer abbot to be more precise. In order to proceed in this direction, one must understand broadly the kind of monasticism in which Joachim found himself as well as his personal experience as an abbot. In particular, the complex situation facing the Cistercian order in the last quarter of the 12th century and the monastic models present during the Norman reign in Southern Italy were of decisive importance for Joachim's reform work. Within this framework, as the most recent studies have clearly demonstrated, Joachim of Fiore proved not to be so much a prophet, a visionary, or an isolated thinker, but a pragmatic abbot and a capable organizer who was profoundly rooted in his time.¹ The foundation of the order, which would take the name *Florentian* from Fiore, and of the monastery in the heart of Calabria constituted more than an idealistic and utopian model projected onto an indeterminate future. Indeed, it was also an attempt to pragmatically solve the problems from which religious institutions and, in more general terms, the ecclesiastical brotherhood of Joachim's time suffered.

1 On this point, see *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III. Atti del 5° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (September 16–21, 1999), (ed.) Roberto Rusconi (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 13 (Rome, 2001); and Gian Luca Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse: vita di Gioacchino da Fiore* (Rome, 2004).

The following pages will therefore address the monastic situation in Southern Italy and the main features of the Cistercian Order at the end of the 12th century before examining the process by which the project of an “integrated” religious order—capable of embracing diverse forms of religious experience in one monastery—developed in the thought of the Calabrian abbot.

4.2 Problems to Resolve

4.2.1 *Monasticism in the Kingdom of Sicily*

The monastic itinerary of Joachim of Fiore is situated within the multiplicity of cenobitic experiences within the territory of the Kingdom of Sicily and slightly beyond its northern confines in the Patrimony of Blessed Peter (*Patrimonium beati Petri*). In order to understand at least the main aspects of this context, one must keep in mind that monasticism in the second half of the 12th century was still very prevalent in the Kingdom of Sicily, and until the middle of the next century it was capable of providing outlets for the religious ferments (both from local and other sources) that were permeating through society.² Its different styles—including Greek monasticism, “old,” and “new” monasticism—were in fact interwoven into the strongest currents of religiosity during that period and were present in other regions on the Italian peninsula as well. Nevertheless, not all expressions of monastic life had enjoyed the same vigor. For example, Greek monasticism (believed to be one of the roots of Joachim’s hermitic vocation)³—still strongly prevalent in dioceses bound to the Byzantine Empire with its celebration remaining true to Greek liturgy—had by now entered a phase of exhaustion. This was not so much due to competition from Latin monasticism or to the centralizing pressure from the Church of Rome, but because the Byzantine ruling class was slowly melding with those of Norman origin.

Moreover, even traditional Benedictine monasticism had mixed fortunes beginning in the second half of the 12th century. On the one hand, a phase of

2 Giovanni Vitolo, “‘Vecchio’ e ‘nuovo’ monachesimo nel regno svevo di Sicilia,” in *Friedrich II. Tagung des Deutschen Historischen Instituts in Rom im Gedenkjahr 1994*, (eds.) Arnold Esch and Norbert Kamp (Tübingen, 1996), 200; for a portrait of the group and further bibliographical references, see Giovanni Vitolo, “Le ricerche in ambito meridionale,” in *Dove va la storiografia monastica in Europa? Temi e metodi di ricerca per lo studio della vita monastica e regolare in età medievale alle soglie del terzo millennio*, (ed.) Giancarlo Andenna (Milan, 2001), 259–82.

3 Cf. Cosimo Damiano Fonseca, “Gioacchino da Fiore tra riforma del monachesimo e attesa della fine,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore*, (ed.) Rusconi, 14.

religious and economic decline began in several monastic centers in the wake of the great flowering of the previous period (for example, at Monte Cassino, San Vincenzo al Volturno, and Santissima Trinità di Venosa). Yet, on the other hand, the Santissima Trinità di Cava dei Tirreni monastery in Campania enjoyed considerable success that continued throughout the 12th century and for a large part of the 13th century.

This latter monastery, commanding a network of dependencies, did in fact succeed in maintaining a high religious life and economic prosperity throughout the 12th century: small, declining cenobites (both Greek and Latin) continued to be associated with it, and many laypersons continued to make valuable donations. The vigorous religious fervor and intense spirituality of the period were manifested not only in papal and regal reports, but also by the fact that all the abbots of the Norman-Suevian period and of the first Angevin age, from the founder Alferius (†1050) to Leon II (†1295), were raised to the honors of the altars.⁴ Cava dei Tirreni was the leader of a Cluniac style, a highly centralized congregation, in which the abbot governed all the dependencies, priories, and cells scattered throughout the entire territory of the Kingdom of Sicily, even in Calabria.⁵ Cava's economic decisions also followed a traditional model: wealth was organized according to a seigniorial pattern, which differed greatly from what was described as "new monasticism" in which, at least normatively, the Cistercian model was the most authoritative. In the Norman Kingdom, Cava's traditional monasticism was still a model to be observed, both from the point of view of the type of religiosity it practiced and as an institutional and economic reference.

Along with the survival of the more traditional Benedictine way of life, it was also possible to find examples of more lively elements of religiosity, as well as more sterile principles in the Norman Kingdom. In particular, these elements were represented by the search for the ideals of solitude, poverty, penitence, and an opening towards the lay world, in accordance with the tenets of the so-called "new monasticism." These ideals did find expression in three small yet significant monastic congregations in Southern Italy: Montevergine (in the diocese of Avellino), Pulsano (in Puglia, not far from Monte

4 Vitolo, "'Vecchio' e 'nuovo' monachesimo," 195.

5 Hubert Houben, "Le istituzioni monastiche del Mezzogiorno all'epoca di Bernardo di Clairvaux," in *I Cistercensi nel Mezzogiorno medievale*, (eds.) Hubert Houben and Benedetto Vetere (Università degli Studi di Lecce, Department of Historic Studies from the Middle Ages to Contemporary Times) 28 (Galatina, 1994), 73–89, republished in Hubert Houben, *Mezzogiorno normanno-svevo. Monasteri e castelli, ebrei e musulmani* (Nuovo Medioevo) 52 (Naples, 1996), 47–63, especially 61–62. Regarding the existence in Southern Italy of a precise "cassinese-cavense" monastic model, see Vitolo, "Le ricerche in ambito meridionale," 266–67.

Sant'Angelo), and Gualdo, all of hermitic origin. Despite changes towards a more traditional "cassinese-cavense" model (confirming the lasting authority of the traditional model), these three monastic groups continued to present themselves publicly as authoritative interpreters of those new religious demands expressed as "active religiosity."⁶ Indeed, they carried out intense religious activity in the lay world, ranging from work in hospitals, to the diffusion of Marian piety, pilgrimages, and the institution of the oblation. Hence, in the Norman Kingdom this multiplicity of "new monastic" experiences constituted a valid alternative to Cistercian monasticism throughout the 12th century. In fact, scholars have hypothesized that the slow growth in numbers of white monks (Cistercians) in the south of the peninsula was precisely due to the fact that the ideals of Cîteaux monasticism were already widely expressed in local experiences and in particular in these three small monastic congregations.⁷

It would indeed seem—even though the sources are partly contradictory—that Cistercian monasticism began to spread throughout the Kingdom of Sicily only after the last quarter of the 12th century, starting with the abbeys of Saint Maria of Sambucina and its first dependencies in Sicily, and finally with offshoots from the Cistercian abbeys of the Patrimony of Blessed Peter (Saint Maria of Corazzo and Saint Stefano of Bosco).⁸

Joachim of Fiore, beginning his monastic life around 1170 following a period of lay religious life, thus found himself confronted with traditional monasticism, which was highly centralized and still quite strong, particularly within the congregation of Cava dei Tirreni; however, the model of "new monasticism" was also widespread in the Norman Kingdom, so Joachim was aware of the "active religiosity" that did not exist in Calabria. Lastly, he would have experienced Cistercian reformed monasticism, which was still quite limited at this point and therefore of little significance.

4.2.2 *Adult Monasticism*

In fact, the Abbot of Corazzo learned about the experience of the white monks only around 1183–1184, not in Calabria, but in the monasteries of the Patrimony of Blessed Peter and especially in the Cistercian Abbey of Casamari in Southern Lazio. The Casamari Abbey was an ancient cenoby reformed at the time of Bernard of Clairvaux and became one of the pillars for contacts between the

6 Italian scholars call it "religiosità delle opere." See Vitolo, "Le ricerche in ambito meridionale," 267.

7 Vitolo, "Le ricerche in ambito meridionale," 267–71.

8 As for the doubts regarding the tradition, which ascribes Santa Maria della Sambucina to the Cistercians since 1160, see Valeria De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux. Gioacchino da Fiore e l'ordine fiorense* (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 19 (Rome, 2006). But now see also

leaders of the order and the Holy See. Thus, the abbey in Lazio was a crossroads for meetings between eminent figures, and it was here that Joachim found a way to compare his own monastic and intellectual experience with that of several Cistercian monk representatives: with the abbot Gerald, who belonged to the family of an abbot of Cîteaux; with another abbot named Gerald who was among Bernard's closest companions; and with Geoffrey of Auxerre, that was a secretary, biographer and faithful friend of Bernard of Clairvaux. Through these men, the Calabrian abbot was able to truly understand the Cistercian world—a world rich in religious values, but at the same time fraught with myriad contradictions and problems, not just of an economic nature (the wealth of the order was criticized by clerics, bishops, and popes), but also in terms of the aims and basic choices of the order itself. For example, one of the points of contention was the “diversity” of the Cistercians, which Joachim defined with a symbolic image as the various colors (*colores varii*) of the order.

What exactly did the Calabrian abbot mean by this definition? In order to understand his thinking concerning Cistercian diversity, we must understand the peculiarities of the order during the period in which he went to Casamari.

One of the peculiarities that distinguished the monasticism born at Cîteaux from traditional monasticism—emblematically represented by the Cluniac model—was the fact that it was a religious choice reserved for adults. One rule of the Cistercian order written in the most ancient collection of records⁹ established that the order could not welcome children (something that, by contrast, was possible according to Benedict's Rule), as the minimum age for admittance was fifteen. This age restriction fully mirrored the actual situation of the order and only reiterated the framework—which was evidently normal for those opting for a Cistercian monastic life—by crystallizing it in the form of a single regulation. At Cîteaux, in fact, a very different kind of monastic community was found in respect to traditional canons: if at Cluny and in the “black” Benedictine monasteries the community could show effective unity—since their monks had mainly grown up from their earliest years inside the monastery and had therefore received an education and formal training inspired by a single religious and cultural model in the place of instruction (*schola*)

Guido Cariboni, “Il Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti di Gioacchino da Fiore. Problemi di datazione”, in *Rivista di Storia della Chiesa in Italia*, 69 (2015), 3–20.

9 “... nullum nisi post quintumdecimum aetatis suae annum in probatione nobis ponere licet.” Chrysogonus Waddell, (ed.), *Narrative and Legislative Texts from Early Cîteaux: Latin Text in Dual Edition with English Translation and Notes* (Studia et Documenta) 9 (Cîteaux, 1999), 80, 361; see also Chrysogonus Waddell, (ed.), *Twelfth-Century Statutes from the Cistercian General Chapter: Latin Text with English Notes and Commentary* (Studia et Documenta) 12 (Cîteaux, 2002), 559.

inside the cenoby—the situation at the Cistercian monasteries was certainly much less controlled. As the most recent studies have demonstrated, many of the monasteries of the order (including the first so-called “daughters” [*filiae*] of Cîteaux) were not created from nothing, but were communities—hermitic or monastic—that had been already active for a certain period of time. For various reasons, these communities opted for the reformed monasticism of Cîteaux.¹⁰ The religious members of these hermitic or monastic communities that had been active previously were naturally adults.

Entering a monastery as an adult entailed a further consequence: aspiring monks came from a wide spectrum of backgrounds, religious or otherwise, and often had very diverse cultural training. Among the Cistercian monks, both religious men (*virī religiosi*) and simple lay members were present: “black” Benedictine monks; regular canons who turned towards the monastic life; clergymen; masters (*magistri*) and scholars (for example Geoffrey of Auxerre); former bishops completing their careers in the order; as well as hermits (such as Ansius, a priest who led a solitary life at the place where the Abbey of Pontigny was built, or Stephen, a priest who founded a small community later transformed into the first sister abbey of Fontenay, or also Pons de Lérans, Stephen of Obazine,¹¹ and Galand de Reigny¹²). Many were also laymen: rich nobles and knights (such as Bernard), or men of high social extraction;¹³ men of letters with notary training such as Joachim; and simple lay hermits. The presence of the latter, a numerous lay group, which upon joining the Cistercians did not want to or could not adapt to the monastic vocation, probably forced the order to institute and organize a different and clearly distinct group within the monastic community. This was the community of the lay brothers—semi-monks who led a monastic life alongside the monks of the choir.

Due to this phenomenon, the Cistercian order was distinguished by a multiplicity of charismas and by the religious characteristics of its adherents. Consequently, it was also distinguished by both the multiplicity of the ideals of

10 Nicole Bouter, (ed.), *Unanimité et diversité cisterciennes. Filiations—Réseaux—Relectures du XII^e au XVII^e siècle: Actes du Quatrième Colloque International du C.E.R.C.O.R. Dijon, September 23–25, 1998* (Saint-Étienne, 2000).

11 Rinaldo Comba, “Cistercensi, certosini, eremiti: intrecci e istituzionalizzazioni di esperienze monastiche nel XII secolo,” in *Certosini e cistercensi in Italia (secoli XII–XV)*, (eds.) Rinaldo Comba and Giovanni Grado Merlo (Cuneo, 2000), 12–19.

12 Alexis Grégoire, “Galand de Reigny et le problème de l’unité institutionnelle et spirituelle de l’ordre aux premiers temps de la branche de Clairvaux,” in *Unanimité et diversité cisterciennes*, 149–59, especially 149.

13 “... in saeculo potentes atque nobiles,” *Exordium parvum* XVII, in *Narrative and Legislative Texts*, (ed.) Waddell, 1.30, 257.

perfection it emulated and the models of holiness that could constitute the special reference for the diverse religious *status* of the Cistercian Order. For a certain period, this combination of diverse backgrounds, education, and training—and consequently, religious models and ideals of perfection—had found a synthesis and a valid paradigm suited to all members in the multifaceted figure of Bernard of Clairvaux. This man, this “chimera”¹⁴—living a monstrous life (*mostruosa vita*) by his own admission—was capable of simultaneously embracing the ideals of a monk removed from the world and enclosed in the Jerusalem of the monastery, the ideals of a preacher, and those of a political figure placed to the service of the Church, in the service of God himself. For some time, the diverse order had possessed a unity that held together due to the character of Bernard. This situation did not last for long, however. In particular, in the last quarter of the 12th century, the dichotomy between those individuals seeking the quiet of the cloister and removal from the secular world (*saeculum*) and those who often had doctrinal training (acquired in cathedral schools or at the university being established in Paris) was highly accentuated. The latter saw the possibility of exploiting their talents of preaching, and serving the Holy See in the order—all the more so since this was explicitly required by the pope. This dichotomy was very clear to Joachim. In his second sermon of collected texts entitled *Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti*, he recognized that it was possible to distinguish between Cistercian abbeys that effectively led a life in the order, detached from the world (which he defined as “similar to hermitages”) and abbeys in which, on the contrary, monks were in close contact with their own secular world because of their involvement in preaching (monks whom he therefore placed closer to regular canons).¹⁵

4.2.3 *The Three Ordines*

Indeed, the contemporaneous presence of multiple religious outlooks and models, which was widely perceived as a situation of disorder, did not only concern the Cistercian Order, but the entire ecclesiastical body. Monks, clergymen, and laymen—along with the corresponding duties (*officia*)—were

14 The definition Bernard gave to his own life is very well known: “*Ego enim quaedam Chimæra mei sæculi, nec clericum gero, nec laicum. Nam monachi iam dudum exui conversationem, non habitum.*” See Bernard of Clairvaux, “Epistola CCL ad Bernardum priorem Portarum,” in *Sancti Bernardi opera omnia*, (eds.) Jean Leclercq and Henri Rochais, 8 vols. (Rome, 1958), 8:145–47.

15 “*Mediatrix facta est inter utrumque, ut et verbo predicationis ... in quibusdam insisteret, et silentio in reliquis supra omnes religiosos studeret ... et in quibusdam ... actioni deservit, et in reliquis pro tempore a curis huius sæculi conquiescit. Non solum autem in his,*

the three traditional orders into which the Church was subdivided during the Middle Ages. In the 12th century however, due to great social mobility and to a myriad of religious aspirations, these orders were, in practice, increasingly “disorderly” and convoluted. One can find a great many examples illustrating this untidy situation: there were lay persons who wished to live by imitating the clergy and who, striving to follow the gospel to the letter, hungered to preach and use the Bible directly. Similarly, there were also laymen and women imitating monks in diverse forms and to different degrees, striving to live the ideals of Christian perfection derived from monasticism—these were the lay-brothers, lay-preachers, and the devoted. Then there were those clergymen who held several aspects of lay life in high regard: these clergymen actually worked with their own hands among laypeople as a sign of humility and penitence (thus representing a kind of worker-priest). There were also clergymen who imitated monks as a way of acquiring more merit in preparation for the final judgment. Finally, there were monks who, like the clergy, assumed several aspects of lay life such as manual work, and there were monks living according to the model of the clergy who dedicated themselves to the care of souls (*cura animarum*), preaching and fighting against heresy.

The problem of drawing a clear division between the three orders was not immediately raised and was not systematically addressed during the entire second half of the 12th century; indeed, even the Holy See, which was increasingly shaping itself as the authority *par excellence* in these kinds of definitions, did not intervene. A stance was taken at Verona only in 1184 with the *Ad abolendam* papal decree concerning a matter that was becoming ever more explosive; namely, the issue of lay preaching (laypeople wishing to assume the life-model of the clergy). Not until the start of the 13th century when Innocent III—also disturbed by the question of diverse *humiliati* groups—expressed his own position did the debate emerge more clearly from the sources and the possible, formal solutions began to take form.

How did Joachim position himself within this disorderly framework? He certainly knew of the situation given his contacts with the papal curia, and thanks to these top-level contacts, which were intellectually alive and up-to-date, he

verum etiam in universis moribus et constitutionibus suis sic ecclesiastici ordinis formam retinet, ut quasi altera esset canonica, et nichilominus heremitice vite parsimoniam et solitudinem emulari nititur, ita ut apud quosdam non cenobium, sed heremus esse videatur.” See Joachim abbas Florentis, *Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti*, (ed.) Alexander Patschovsky (Rome 2008), 190. Concerning this passage, see Valeria De Fraja, “Percorso storico e significato del monachesimo benedettino nell’*Expositio vite et regule beati Benedicti* di Gioacchino da Fiore,” *Cristianesimo nella storia* 22, no. 2 (2001), 429–31.

probably found himself thrown into the most urgent debates convened by the pope at the time. In his works, one in fact finds negative references to the lay groups that pressed the pope to formalize positions during that period or advanced alarming appeals in eschatological terms due to the advance of the Cathar heresy (in which laypeople preached). In *De articulis fidei*, Joachim confronts the main doctrinal subjects in which, exactly according to the *Ad abolendam*, the diverse heretical groups were abandoning the teachings of the Church (this text also includes the question of lay-preachers).¹⁶ The Calabrian abbot believed that the three orders of the faithful should always remain very distinct so that each would have its precise task within society, for welcoming the tasks of others without respecting the prerogative of one's own order would be to challenge God's designs. These designs were expressed by the same Trinity of persons (in effect, one figure of the Trinity corresponded to each order) and by the divisions existing in celestial Jerusalem, which in the interpretation expressed in Book 2 of *Psalterium decem cordarum* is clearly divided into three zones, one for each order of the faithful.¹⁷

4.3 Making Distinctions within Unity

How did Joachim try to reply to these diverse problems, to the variety of charismas that characterized the Cistercian order and the "disorder" of the traditional tripartite structure of the ecclesiastical corpus? It is very important to understand his replies to such questions, as these constitute precisely the central characteristics of the organization of the new order to which he gave life.

4.3.1 *The Positive Vision of a Multiplicity of Charismas*

Firstly, one should clarify immediately that the "human" variety of the Cistercian order encompassing people from a wide range of vocations and training was an entirely positive feature for Joachim. It was in fact one of the points that rendered it superior to the traditional type of Benedictine monasticism. Already in the years around 1175–1180, in a sermon composed on the occasion of his Corazzo monastery's affiliation to the Cistercian order (which occurred when the Fossanova Abbey became its mother abbey), he affirmed that the "various colors" of the Cistercians—meaning the plurality of vocations encompassed within—were a positive value. This feature was not so much disorder for him and the confusion of religious practices, but rather the action of the

16 See Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 93–97.

17 Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse*, 105–07.

Holy Spirit. It was therefore possible to admire the gifts of the Spirit, the fruit of brotherly charity (*charitas*) in the Cistercian order, which were multiple rather than univocal. Joachim therefore rejected the criticism from within the order itself regarding his “various colors”: for him, this was a positive quality, the mirror and result of the Spirit, and not a defect, as many claimed during that period.¹⁸

What then were these positive “various colors” distinguishing the Cistercians according to Joachim, which on the other hand produced only dissonance and disorder in the eyes of their detractors? The close reading of the Calabrian abbot’s texts shows that he shifted from focusing on an initial simple bipolarity of vocations within a single monastic community to recognizing three main charismas, before proceeding to four and finally to seven kinds of religious persons, attached in different forms to a monastery.

4.3.2 *From Two to Seven Charismas*

In one of his oldest works, *De articulis fidei* (written between the end of 1184 and 1185), Joachim dedicated a long section to analyzing correct relationships within a monastic community. In particular, he identified two kinds of monks within the same community: those who followed an active life and those who had received the gift of being able to dedicate themselves to a contemplative life. This traditional division was also shown by the very common evangelical symbolism Joachim adopted: Martha symbolized the active monk, while Mary represented the contemplative monk. Thus, there is nothing particularly new or significant in Joachim’s thought up to this point.¹⁹

Nevertheless, as his reflection continued, Joachim broadened the spectrum of monastic charismas (the *colores*). He in fact added a third to the two basic vocations—reaching what he called a “tripartite variety” (*tripartita varietas*)—always present in a monastic community: there were the “common” monks; the contemplative monks (still within the traditional division of the community); and the *prelati* monks, known as superiors or holy men (*viri sancti*), who

18 “Redarguunt autem nonnulli Cistercienses, quia colores varios non devitant, tamquam si videatur dissonum et in tanta unitate diversum. Sed ista nequaquam dicerent, si attendissent colorem corvi semper et in omnibus uniformem, colorem autem columbe multiplicem: haud dubium, quod abstinencia mali, quam operatur timor, una est, operatio vero boni, quam operatur caritas, multiplex; non enim unum est Spiritus sancti donum, sed multa.” See *Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti*, (ed.) Patschovsky, 145–46. For more on this subject, see De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Chs. 2, 5, 4: “Superiorità istituzionale,” 60–62.

19 De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Chs. 4, 1, 1: “Due carismi,” 117–18.

presided over the other two groups.²⁰ To this first innovation, Joachim brought a corresponding one on the level of typological biblical figures symbolizing the three groups: the contemplative monks were mirrored in the figure of the prophet Elijah, the superior monks by Elisha, and the “common” monks by the sons of the prophets who led a common life at Jericho under the clear guidance of Elisha.²¹ Then the position of the monks defined as “common” (i.e., dedicating themselves to an active life) is clarified in a later passage: the holy men, in other words the prelates or abbots of the community, are placed above all brothers in order to supervise both the contemplative and the active lives, as the stars are placed above; the day illuminated by the sun (contemplative monks) and the night illuminated by the moon (“active”).²²

These passages from the *Concordia* cannot be dated precisely. Nevertheless, their appearance inside Book 5, the last part of this complex text, would suggest a date towards the end of the 12th century. Yet, the very fact that the texts quoted speak of a monastic community composed of three charismas (the tripartite variety) seems to suggest that these are rather passages from the 1180s, a period prior to the point when Joachim further expanded his vision of Benedictine religious life.

Indeed, very soon (around 1187) the abbot of Corazzo distinguished between four different types of monks in monastic life, evidently also on the basis of his own practical experience at the helm of a monastic community. One encounters this distinction for the first time in a passage from the third text included in the *Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti*, dedicated

20 “Una ergo mulier amicta sole cum luna et stellis unum designat ordinem contemplantium, tripartita miro modo variegata distinctum, cuius caput prelati sunt, cuius pedes subiecti, ipsa vero inter utrumque. Igitur contemplatoribus sol, prelati monachorum stelle, ipsis vero monachis ascribitur luna.” See Joachim de Fiore, *Liber de Concordia Veteris ac Novi Testamenti* 5 (Venice, 1519; repr. Frankfurt am Main, 1964), fol. 67ra-b.

21 “Tria quedam genera monachorum, quorum alii in Helya, alii in Helyseo, alii in filiis prophetarum, qui simul degebant in Iericho sub Helyseo propheta, designata sunt.” See *Liber de Concordia* 5, fol. 67ra.

22 “Fecit deus omnipotens stellas et posuit eas in firmamento celi, ut preessent diei ac nocti; quia post illos viros spirituales, qui sequentes vitam Helye noctis consortia nescierunt, dati sunt alii viri sancti imitatores Helysei, qui (et) incedentes inter utramque vitam et iustus prebuerunt sanctitatis regulam et peccatoribus ostenderunt bone actionis exempla. Inde est enim quod spiritus Helye duplex factus est in animo Helysei, quia viri illi sancti, qui secundum Helyseum designantur in stellis, tantam perfectionis gratiam consecuti sunt, ut digne pro meritis preesse possint diei ac nocti, id est ut sic invigilent active vite, ut contemplativam non deserant, sic amoris dei iocundentur dulcedine, ut tamen proximorum non contempnant salute.” See *Liber de Concordia* 5, fol. 68rb.

specifically to the exegesis of the liturgical section of Benedict's Rule.²³ Here, the abbot demonstrated his shift from three different kinds of monastic life (abbots, active monks, and contemplative monks) to four. In this case, the starting point is the famous biblical figure of the tetramorph of Ezekiel (Ezek. 1), later taken up by John in Apocalypse (Apoc. 4). The figure—well known due to its customary role in symbolizing the four Evangelists—is used explicitly in this passage for the first time to indicate the four different kinds of monks. In monasteries in which *true monks* live, four different kinds of the just can be discerned: men, calves, lions, and eagles. The four living kinds are then matched respectively with the moral intellect expressed in the Gospel of Matthew, with the historical intellect expressed in the Gospel of Luke, with the typical intellect in the Gospel of Mark, and with the anagogical intellect in the Gospel of John.²⁴ Referring to the division of tasks in monastic liturgy, each kind of monk had to read responses according to the evangelist representing him: thus, those who value physical exercise celebrate the responses according to the Gospel of Luke; those who embrace the virtue of humility celebrate the responses according to the Gospel of Matthew; those who struggle to learn the strength of the faith and to drive out all laziness of doubt from themselves celebrate the responses according to the Gospel of Mark; and finally, those permitted to penetrate the secrets of God by way of the Holy Spirit celebrate not only the responses according to the Gospel of John, but also the Glory (*Gloria*). The divisions of liturgical duties on the basis of different abilities finally find a meeting point in the same liturgy, such as in the phrase *everything belongs to everybody*.²⁵

23 These are the concluding passages of the *Tractatus de vita et regule beati Benedicti*; nevertheless, as Grundmann has already indicated, they are not part of the fourth section of the collection, but are more correctly inserted in the third part dedicated to the liturgical section of the *Regula*, between Chapters 25 and 26. See Herbert Grundmann, "Aus der Einleitung zu den Opera minora Joachims von Fiore," *Florentia* 10 (1996), 121–34.

24 Regarding the link between the four living beings of the tetramorph and the four main methods of understanding the writing, see Marco Rainini, "La visione di Ez 1 nelle figure di Gioacchino da Fiore," *Florentia* 16–17 (2002–2003), 28, 39–44.

25 "Semper enim quatuor istiusmodi iustorum genera in monasteriis repperiuntur, si tamen in eis veri monachi sunt: homines, vituli, leones, et aquile. Unumquodque autem istorum audit lectionem suam, sive moralitatem in Matheo, sive ystoricum intellectum in Luca, sive tipicum in Marco, sive anagogicum in Iohanne. Qui ergo ista predicant, lectores sunt; qui audiunt et faciunt, responsoria cantant. Qui enim studet corporali exercitio, post Luce evangelium, responsorium cantat. Qui virtutem humilitatis amplectitur et se ipsum intus exercet, post Mathei lectionem responsorium cantat. Qui fidei fortitudinem apprehendere nititur et omnem a se desidiam dubietatis excludere, audito Marci evangelio

The focus on the four charismas in the monastery is still not very clear, however. If in fact the monks capable of penetrating the secrets of God are contemplative, the special characteristics of the other groups do not immediately refer to the other monastic charismas. The references to physical exercise of the body and to humility would seem to allude to manual work and obedience, and those to faith undoubtedly refer to theological study.

In order to better understand this subdivision of the monastery into four *kinds of monks* (*genera monachorum*) in accordance with the four beings of the tetramorph, it is necessary to return to a reflection dating to the close of the century (1198–1199). This reflection is in fact a very famous diagram: Plate XII of the so-called *Liber figurarum*—in other words, the table entitled *Disposition of a New Order Related to the Third Status* (*Dispositio novi ordinis pertinens ad tertium statum*).²⁶ This diagram presents the four monastic charismas, which are then completed by another three charismas of a different kind. The four monastic charismas are matched with each of the four animals of the tetramorph as in the text of *Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti*. Compared with the text of the *In expositionem vite et regule*, here, however, the charismas have much clearer characteristics: the elderly and frail brothers belong to the lion; the worker brothers poorly disposed to spiritual teaching (*spiritualis disciplina*) are symbolized by the bull-calf; the brothers most suited to study are represented by man; and the brothers conducting a life of contemplation and prayer are embodied by the eagle. A saint is also assigned to each of these types, to his own historic order, to a part of the body, and to one of the gifts of the Holy Spirit.

One might wonder what the significance is of multiplying such symbolic references. On the one hand, they are certainly connected to the complicated Joachimite form of exegesis: the references in fact find a ready answer in the

responsorium cantat. Cui datum est secreta Dei penetrare per Spiritum, hic audita Iohannis voce non solum responsorium, sed et Gloriam cantat. Verumtamen versus cantant singuli qui responsoria inchoant, ipsa vero responsoria simul omnes, quia sic singula singulis singularia sunt, ut alio modo omnibus communia sint.” See *Tractatus de vita et regule beati Benedicti*, (ed.) Patschovsky, 253–54.

26 Joachim de Fiore, *Liber Figurarum*, Plate XII. A critical edition and complete version of the textual section can be found in Herbert Grundmann, “Nuove ricerche su Gioacchino da Fiore,” in Herbert Grundmann, *Gioacchino da Fiore. Vita e opere*, (ed.) Gian Luca Postestà (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 8 (Rome, 1997), 95–100 [Original title: Herbert Grundmann, *Neue Forschungen über Joachim von Fiore* (Marburg, 1950)]. For the dating of the table, see Marco Rainini, “Dall’ordinamento degli stati’ al novus ordo: lo sviluppo dei progetti di Joachim da Fiore per una nuova forma di vita religiosa,” *Florentia* 15 (2001), 27–28.

abbot's writings and in other "figurative theology" schemes he arranged.²⁷ From a different point of view, in Plate XII the symbols acquire an important monastic value in keeping with the entire structure of the diagram. The saints and their orders, which replace the evangelists, are not just symbolic figures, but patron saints of the oratories (*oratoria*) in which each kind of monk lives. They also automatically become specific models of perfection and holiness, the ideals to follow: Peter (with the apostles) is the model of holiness for the elderly and weak brothers; Stephen (with the martyrs) is the model for monks dedicating themselves to work; Paul (with the scholars) is the model of perfection for monks fit to study; and John the Evangelist (with the virgins) is the model for the contemplative monks dedicated to prayer. As for the reference to the parts of the body, this does not just refer to a generic subdivision of the human body, but is also understood in relation to Paul's passages drawn from the First Letter to the Corinthians concerning the relationship between the body and the limbs (1 Cor. 4:7-20).²⁸ Lastly, the seven gifts of the Holy Spirit recall the idea that had already partly matured previously: the characteristic of a religious order aimed at perfection, as Joachim thought of the Cistercians being at the time, is that the different gifts of the Spirit are embodied in their own variety. Thus, one can summarize these correspondences in the following diagram:

Animal (Ezek. 1)	Patron Saint	Monastic Charisma	Part of the Body	Gift of the Spirit
Lion	Saint Peter	Elderly monks and monks in poor health	Hand	Spirit of strength (<i>Spiritus fortitudinis</i>)
Bull-calf	Saint Stephen	Worker monks not suitable for spiritual teaching (<i>spiritualis disciplina</i>)	Mouth	Spirit of knowledge (<i>Spiritus scientie</i>)
Man	Saint Paul	Monks suited for study	Ear	Spirit of understanding (<i>Spiritus intellectus</i>)

27 Rainini, "Dall' 'ordinamento degli stati,'" 7-28. I borrow the term "figurative theology," which is a more ample category in comparison to "visual exegesis" by Marco Rainini, *Disegni dei tempi. Il "Liber figurarum" e la teologia figurativa di Gioacchino da Fiore* (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 18 (Rome, 2006).

28 The Pauline passages are in fact shown in the upper part of the table, along with the passages drawn from the Apocalypse (the vision of the four living beings) and from the Letter to the Ephesians (Eph. 4:7-8, 11-13).

Animal (Ezek. 1)	Patron Saint	Monastic Charisma	Part of the Body	Gift of the Spirit
Eagle	Saint John the Evangelist	Contemplative monks dedicated to prayer	Eye	Spirit of wisdom (<i>Spiritus sapientie</i>)

In addition to the numerous references introduced in the diagram, one should emphasize that the four different monastic charismas were well defined at this point, approximately ten years after the *Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti* appeared in 1187. Within a single monastery one can distinguish between four distinct kinds of monks who mirror the gifts of the Holy Spirit and are capable of living harmoniously together: the elderly or the ill; worker monks, who cannot or do not yet desire a more spiritual vocation; those monks more adapted to study; and finally, those monks able to dedicate their lives to contemplation and prayer.²⁹

One last important text remains in reference to Plate XII of the *Dispositio*, with several significant rejections. The following passage is a second important section of Book 5 of the *Concordia* in which Joachim presents his project for an ordered religious house (*ordinata domus religionis*). I provide the full passage below not only because it is a decisive text in the analysis of the monastic ideal perfected by Joachim, but also because it provides evidence of correlations with the surviving fragments of the instructions (*institutiones*) of the Florentian order, which I believe the abbot tried to implement during the last years of his life.

If a perfectly ordered and distinct Christian religion exists based on its special groups of individual talents, these seven kinds of days [of the creation] could and should be found in every single abode. If in fact *there are many mansions in the kingdom of heaven* because of the fact that each human being receives his own gift from God, each in different ways, and like a body which has several parts which work together, in the same way men have different talents, so that we can define a religious house (*domus religionis*) as *orderly*; one which forces everyone to submit to a unique rule of life. And what would become of unity and life if such a monastery, on the other hand, welcomed only those who, out of all who wished to join, accepted one of the types of person exemplifying one member of the body

29 Grundmann, "Nuove ricerche," 95–100.

and excluded all the others? Such an attitude had to be tolerated for a certain time, but now we must consider what the Apostle said: *until we all reach unity in the faith and in the knowledge of the Son of God and become mature, attaining to the whole measure of the fullness of Christ*. At first he spoke of each separate limb and then presented them as a whole; at first he showed what was the task of each member and then added what was useful for all of them so that there would be no division in the body and that every limb would work well with the others, especially because the Lord says: *No one who comes to me will be turned away*. But if the Lord welcomes and you, on the other hand, turn away, how can you say “I hold the role of Christ in the monastery”?

The only obstacle is therefore the need for different places to stay because one single house is not able to welcome different types of brethren. Every religious order today is very different in style from that of the primitive church. This is made clear by the fact that the primitive church included, all together, apostles and evangelists, doctors and virgins, those who were seeking a communal life, the abstinent and married men just as in a single “pomegranate” skin: only the living quarters were separate, but the individual members were united and, therefore, formed a single body. Now, on the contrary, the body is on one side and the limbs on the other and every limb is concerned only with itself and not with others. Christians would gladly go back to the original form if every religious house were composed of different homes *with* a precise number of brothers and a precise number of homes. I believe that the following would correspond to God’s plan: in one house could live those of God’s servants, the elderly and those who were ill or who had special dietary needs though thought to be well in other respects, all treated with care and compassion. A second home would have to take in young men who because of some special need or weakness, could not dedicate themselves to reading (*lectio*) and to meditation, but who could, however, like good ministers be patient in their ministry, strong in their work, fair in accepting the rule of obedience, and ready to obey unto death; The Apostle says of them: *He who administers well gets good results for himself*. A third home should house those who are weak and delicate and unable to carry out manual work, but who passionately love holy readings, who observe abstinence strictly, and who take more pleasure in spiritual nourishment than material nourishment. A fourth home should house those who, like the stars in the sky, risen above the earthly life never cease to raise spiritual hymns, who flee the pleasures of the body as if they were poison, and desire exclusively the pleasures of heaven. A fifth home should house those who feel

fervent brotherly love and are sensitive to the needs of others rather than to their own and who desire to live in brotherly communities and to live according to the norms and to the style of regular canon communities, or according to Saint Benedict's rule, singing psalms praising the Lord, in their hearts saying: *How good and joyful that brothers should live together.*

These two kinds of monks are shown as the fish in the sea and the birds in the sky, even though those groups of monks who live within the walls of a town reveal themselves more as the fish in the sea rather than as the birds in the sky. This is particularly true for those who, being used to the agitation of the world, consider sweet and pleasant all those things that true monks "flying towards the sky" consider burdensome. A sixth home should house in the most useful way possible those who are married, pictured as beasts of burden and as other animals of the earth, who are not excluded from salvation if they really love God, as they are not separated from the limbs of Christ's body. They must, however, be like true Christians, not love the pleasures of the flesh like pagans, who do not know God, but who have wives in order to create honest progeny more than for detestable, lustful reasons.

Men who are superior to the fish in the sea, to the birds in the sky, and to earthly animals relate to those holy men, who surpass admirably in terms of saintliness, wisdom, and doctrine, those who are pictured as the fish in the sea, the birds, and the animals of the earth, and who therefore will be superior to others, shining brightly according to Daniel's words: *like splendor in the firmament and like stars in perpetual eternity.*

Much help has been given to man created in the image of God as the holy mother Church has always made sure and still makes sure that each "superior" has a specific church with faithful disciples so that they should fill the hearts of thirsty people with the words acquired from the mouth of the master.³⁰

Joachim starts his reflection when commenting on the seven days of the creation with criticism aimed at two different aspects of the monasticism of his time. There was a form of monasticism, which, unable to distinguish between the various charismas of each of its members, therefore subjected all indiscriminately to one equal rule. Here, the reference seems to be aimed directly at the Cistercians with a multitude of charismas all cohabiting within their order—a feature that Joachim had recognized as positive. But here they were

30 *Liber de Concordia* 5.23, fols. 71va-72ra. For the Latin text checked in the manuscripts, the translation is included here, see Grundmann, "Nuove ricerche," 90–91, note 9.

not allowed to flourish due to the observance of one rule for all, which failed to duly consider the limitations and qualities of the individual. The opposite error is identified in embracing just one special category of individuals, thereby excluding all others. Joachim observed a partial justification for this duplicity by acknowledging the objective practical difficulties of organizing different *types* of monks into communities, especially given that “mixed” cohabitation was not possible and that one community alone could not therefore encompass the diverse charismas.

Joachim’s proposed solution points to the monastic model of the first community of Jerusalem. Joachim believed that the ideal of perfection was not so much poverty or the sharing of goods in the Jerusalem community, as indicated by age-old tradition, but was a rather singular characteristic never before considered by previous authors: all the diverse Christian charismas being welcomed into the Church of Jerusalem, including the “apostles and evangelists, the learned and virgins and lovers of the common life, the abstinent and also the married.” Joachim believed the pomegranate to be an eloquent image of this model in which many sections, though separate from each other, are all the same and collected together under the same skin. Each religious house should, therefore, be divided into different sites (*mansiones*) with a precise number of brothers and sites, each maintaining its own unity. Joachim then elaborated further, illustrating the details and the various charismas: the first site would be reserved for the elderly (*seniores*) of age and constitution, whereas the second would be for the young and those unable to dedicate themselves to study and meditation due to some need or inability. The third site would be reserved for those frail and delicate (*debiles et delicati*) workers who nevertheless deeply love the study of the sacred. The contemplative monks would live in the fourth site that would contain those who, like the stars in the sky, shun earthly life, always singing the praises of God and strictly avoiding physical pleasures, aspiring only to attain heavenly matters. These four groups of monks can be brought together with those already distinguished in the *Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti* (1187). The four-element community model, presented here without reference to the tetramorph, is thus unambiguous and is perfectly clear. The factor of unity holding the four-element community together—which in the *In expositionem vite* was given by the single liturgy common to all—is fixed here in the symbolism of the birds of the sky (still within the exegetic comment of the creation from Gen. 1): these represent the *true monks* (the *veri monachi*: this is the same definition as we find in the text of the *In expositionem vite*) rather than single particular charisma.

The number of sites does not, however, stop at four. Probably by connecting himself also to the diverse and previously elaborated *Ständeordnung*

schemes contemplating seven divisions—diachronic or synchronic within the single Church—(apostles/pastors, martyrs, the learned, virgins, *conventuales*, clergy/lay brothers, and lay/married subjects), Joachim broadened his monastic model to seven groups.³¹ Two of these categories were entirely new with respect to the previously established schemes of monastic charismas. In fact, the fifth site was meant to receive those who “are ardent in fraternal love and who are mindful of the needs of others more than of their own.” As the abbot specifies, these could be both regular canons and monks living under Benedictine discipline, with monasteries rising within the walls of a city (*infra moenia civitatis*); and monks who—unlike the true monks aspiring to heaven—believed that closeness to the world was positive, and thus because of their love for placing themselves at the service of others, led a common life. The image from *Genesis* 1 used to portray them is that of the fish of the sea, submerged in the waves in the same way they are submerged in the secular world. The sixth site would on the other hand serve as the home for married people, equated with the animals of the earth also destined for salvation, who, in the same way as the other Christian types (*species*), should not live like lecherous slaves, but rather live with their wives, awaiting offsprings.

Finally, Joachim's last distinction, however, was not entirely new. Previously, in the passage of the same Book 5 of the *Concordia*, he had spoken of the *prelati*, or abbots, who as holy men were placed above those conducting an active life and those practicing contemplation. Here, the reader once again encounters the same terminology previously employed by the abbot. Just as in the Creation where man is placed above all creatures (birds of the sky, fish of the sea, and animals of the earth), the holy men as abbots stand above the other categories and exceed all brothers in holiness, wisdom, and doctrine. Just as woman was given to help man, the custom of the Church was for every prelate to have a specific community of disciples to communicate their learning from the master to the people.

4.4 The *Institutiones* of the New Ordo

After tracing the definition of a seven-part order in Joachim's intellectual journey—divided into three very distinct categories (*ordines*) within which the plurality of monastic vocations cohabited—one must now examine the scanty facts available about the instructions (*institutiones*) established by the abbot of

31 Regarding the number of *mansiones*, Joachim only presents six of them. The number should probably be raised to seven. Cf. Rainini, “Dall’ordinamento degli stati,” 17–18.

Fiore for his new order. This is not a simple task since only a few fragments and clues are left to us about the institutions of the order. Yet these fragments and highly persuasive clues reveal secrets of real importance if one wishes to accept the suggestions of what Joachim intended for his new monastic structure.

4.4.1 *Papal Approval and the Fragments of the Institutiones*

The bare elements that scholars have today are hints in the letter sent from Celestine III to Joachim in August 1196, notifying him of the approval of the institutions that would be officially defined as the “order” (*ordo*) three years later.³² The pope referred generically to several points regarding these institutions, merely stating “several institutions for the life of your monks and the monasteries subject to your cenoby, and for the assets which shall be owned in the future by the same brothers and monasteries, and by their number.”³³ These comments are clearly too vague to give any inkling of what Joachim intended to create in the Sila mountains. Nevertheless, the fact that their number (*eorum numero*) is mentioned and understood not in reference to brothers (*fratribus*), but instead to monasteries (*monasteriis*), is significant in my view.

Such an interpretation does indeed find confirmation by the few hints about the original institutions of the order found in several Florentine writings by Abbot Matthew, Joachim’s immediate successor, in the years between 1209 and 1216. In 1209, the Fiore community, along with the communities of Fonte Laurato and Acquaviva, and with the advice of the papal emissary Bishop Luke of Cosenza (ex-Cistercian abbot of Sambucina) and Alexander, the Cistercian Abbot of Santo Spirito of Palermo, laid down several regulations concerning visits between the then-existing Florentine monasteries.

In compiling the document, Matthew made two references: “the instructions of the lord abbot Joachim our father” (*institutiones domini abbatis Iohachim patris nostri*), and furthermore, “our instructions, which ... are dictated by our aforementioned father of good memory” (*institutionibus nostris, que ... a preminato felicis memorie patre nostro dictate sunt*). Then, he mentioned

32 Cinzio, the cardinal priest of San Lorenzo in Lucina and papal delegate for the “Regno di Sicilia,” was the first person to define the religious institution designed by Joachim with the term *ordo* in March 1200. See *Acta Sanctorum*, Maii 7: 125–26; *Documenti florenti. Abbazia di San Giovanni in Fiore*, (ed.) Pietro De Leo (Codice Diplomatico della Calabria, Serie Prima) 2 (Soveria Mannelli, 2001), doc. 5, 16–17; also in De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 225–226, n. 25.

33 “... quasdam institutiones de vita monachorum tuorum et monasteriorum tuo coenobio subiacentium, et de rebus ab ipsis fratribus et monasteriis in posterum possidendis, et eorum numero.” See PL 206: 279: 1183. See also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 209, n. 10.

a specific point: “about the three abbots, about the cells and about the seven priories” (*de tribus abbatibus, de cellis et de prioratibus septem*), adding immediately afterwards that this was nevertheless a measure still not yet implemented: “we are still nevertheless unable to fully observe the institutions of Abbot Joachim, our father, especially those concerning the three abbots, the cells and the seven priories.”³⁴

Shortly thereafter in November 1213, Matthew, referring to the position that the new affiliation of Calabro Maria should have maintained within the order, affirmed that “the monastery ... will be like one of the seven priories described by our institution.”³⁵ Again, three years later, when the priory of Calabro Maria obtained the status of an abbey, Matthew once again referred to the Florentine institutions. Apart from reiterating the fact that they were still unable to fully apply them,³⁶ the Abbot of Fiore revealed new, albeit rather confusing, details: the abbot of Calabro Maria, Matthew affirmed, “is one of the three abbots described by our institutions, in other words the third, which will have its own way and which will maintain its own ministry perfectly, while the other two abbeys, the first and second, will keep their places and will preserve their own orders in a fuller form.” He also added that “the monastery of Calabro Maria will not remain among those monasteries of our order which are situated more than a day’s walk away, but will belong to those in which and by which the order will have to be conserved when God has given guidance on the three cells and seven priories.”³⁷

34 “Tamen institutiones domini abbatis Ioachim patris nostris ad integrum, utpote de tribus abbatibus, de cellis et de prioratibus septem, nondum servare valeamus.” See Valeria De Fraja, “Post combustionis infortunium,” *Nuove considerazioni sulla tradizione delle opere gioachimite*, *Florentia* 8–9 (1994–1995), 158–60, doc. 1; also in De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 4, 245, n. 6.

35 “Erit ipsum monasterium ‘Calabromarie’ quasi unus de septem prioratibus quos institutio nostra describit, excepto quod, donec aliter provideatur per Florentie capitulum, loci prior professionem nullius monaci recipiet vel conversi, sed omnes abbati Floris sicut patri abbati.” See De Fraja, “Post combustionis infortunium,” 160–63, doc. 2; also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 4, 254, n. 9.

36 “Nondum ad omnimodam Florentium institutionum observantiam pervenire potuimus.” See De Fraja, “Post combustionis infortunium,” 166–69, doc. 5; also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 4, 261, n. 13.

37 “Sit ... unus trium abbatum nostris institutionibus descriptorum, videlicet tertius, proprium habiturus modum, et ministerium suum perfectius servaturus, cum alii duo abbates, primus scilicet et secundus, sua tenebunt loca et ordinem suum plenius conservabunt ... Idem ... Calabromarie monasterium non restabit inter illa monasteria nostri ordinis, que ultra unam dietam sunt, sed de illis erit in quibus, et per que, cum Deus dederit scriptus de cellis tribus et septem prioratibus, ordo servari debebit.” See De Fraja, “Post combustionis infortunium,” 166–69, doc. 5; also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 4, 262, n. 13.

Therefore, it appears to be very clear that the institutions created by Joachim were the first to envisage a system of seven monasteries or priories and of cells. His institutions also established that there would be three abbeys with diverse and specific tasks (*proprium modum*), ministries (*ministerium suum*), locations (*sua loca*), and orders (*ordinem suum*). The three abbots appear to distinguish themselves from each other also on the basis of a particular role: there is the first, second, and third abbot. Then, Joachim mentioned the monasteries in which and by means of which a looser order had to be conserved.

Having compiled these meager fragments, the central problem now is to understand if the aforementioned seven priories have any bearing on the seven sites the abbot spoke of in Book 5 of the *Concordia*, and consequently, on the seven-element structure hypothesized in the *Dispositio novi ordinis*. Unfortunately, the gaps in the Florentian documentation do not leave much space for progress, but; nevertheless, several considerations can certainly be advanced. The most significant clues are naturally the references to the seven priories and the three abbeys. The presence and the combination of these two elements do in fact lead forcibly to their interpretation precisely in connection with the passage of the *Concordia* and with Plate XII of the *Liber figurarum*. In the abbot's writing we find, on the one hand, a religious house and a septiform new order (the seven sites and the seven oratories); however, they are essentially tripartite in the monastery of the true monks (birds of the sky), place of the clerics (*locum clericorum*) (canons or monks, likened to fish), and oratory for married lay members who nevertheless wish to lead a religious life (the animals of the earth). On the other hand, concerning the fragments of the instructions, we know with certainty that these established a system of seven priories and three abbots—a first, second, and third abbot—each destined to preserve his own specific order.

This leads us to believe that this is an exact reference to the three orders into which the Church was to be divided: the order of monks, of clergymen, and of laymen. At this point it is difficult to believe that the lexical and numerical closeness is a simple coincidence. And in fact it is not; establishing a direct link between the Florentian seven priories, the seven sites of the *Concordia*, and the seven oratories of Plate XII of *Liber figurarum* allows us to take the textual section of the latter as an authentic disciplinary document (beyond the overlying geometric/theological/exegetic construction) to add to the few surviving fragments. This addition allows us to piece together evidence in favor of Joachim's system.

4.4.2 Monastic Life Rules in Plate XII

Plate XII *Dispositio novi ordinis*, beyond arousing fascination due to its symbolic scheme, is also important from a textual point of view since it reports a

rich normative section for each religious group.³⁸ It does not truly represent an organizational rule; indeed, one must remember that Joachim's basic rule was and remained the Benedictine Rule. This is precisely defined by the clause of regularity, which appears in the papal documentation to the Florentian monasteries. The first documentation is dated June 1202 when the Bishop of Tropea confirmed the donation of the three churches, as a result of which the monastery of Fonte Laurato would have risen to Matthew, the Abbot of Fiore: in fact, the bishop stated that monks should have lived "according to the rule of Saint Benedict and the decrees of his order" (*secundum b(eati) Benedicti regulam et vestri ordinis instituta*).³⁹

The normative section of Plate XII refers rather to Joachim's question in the *Concordia* concerning the religious house: "How can we define ordained a religious house that forces everyone to submit to one and only rule of life?" In fact, the directions for each homogeneous group (precisely for the four different charismas of the monks) are above all concerned about rules regarding manner of dress and fasting: these rules are differentiated by different degrees of rigor, depending on the level of *ascesis* attained by each different group and on the health conditions of each group.

These differences substantially concern the Benedictine Rule, which tries to respect each monk's inclination and capacity regarding fasting and manner of dress. Let us now examine in detail the regulative part for each group, after which we will analyze other specific information about the groups. The regulative passages of Plate XII refer, as previously stated, to the Rule of Benedict. In regards to meals and fasting, this rule divides the cycle of the year into four sections: from Easter to Pentecost when people do not fast and eat two meals per day; from Pentecost to September 12th (the summer period) when people fast on Wednesdays and Fridays until the ninth-hour (*Nona*), while on other days lunch is at six (*Sexta*); from September 13th to the beginning of Lent when lunch is at nine; and finally, from Lent to Easter when lunch is at *Vespers*. Moreover, complete abstention from quadruped meat, except for ill monks who are "really weak," and moderate use of wine are requested.⁴⁰

In Plate XII, the meal scheme is differentiated depending on the monks' respective categories and is divided into only two seasons, summer and winter. Prescriptions concerning the manner of dress are also different and they reveal

38 *Liber Figurarum*, Plate XII; a critical edition of the text can be found in Grundmann, "Nuove ricerche," 95–99.

39 "... secundum b(eati) Benedicti regulam et vestri ordinis institute." See Ferdinando Ughelli, *Italia sacra*, 2nd ed. (Venice, 1721), 9: 455–56; see also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 4, 236, n. 1.

40 *Regula Benedicti*, Chs. 39–41.

the desire to differentiate the categories in accordance with the monks' different activities. It is possible to summarize the divisions in the following scheme:

	Older and delicate brothers	Brothers strong and obedient in external works	Male scholars or students, docile to God	Tested and perfect men who lead a quiet life
Manner of fasting	In Winter: daily; in Summer: Friday.	In Winter: three days; in Summer: Friday.	In Winter: daily; in Summer: three days.	Always, except in case of illness.
Food and beverages	Daily; two cooked meals and wine.	[Nothing is specified.]	Monday: they will abstain from wine; Wednesday: no food; Friday: they will fast with bread and water.	They will not drink and will not eat food seasoned with olive oil, except on Sunday and on specific feast days.
Dress	[Nothing is specified.]	They will not wear hoods, only scapulars and capes.	[Nothing is specified.]	They will not wear scapulars, only hoods, except in case of need.
Work	They will not be forced to go out into the fields to work, but they will work internally because they will be ordered.	They will work for themselves and for those who lead a hermit's life, so that the monks who stand less in prayer and abstinence will be replaced by the monks who live a more spiritual life.	They desire and they are able to devote themselves to reading more than the other monks, and they take care of spiritual doctrine more than the others, so that they can find new and old (<i>nova et vetera</i>).	<i>Non est eorum operari, sed orare et psallere;</i> Manual work is not their task, but they have to pray and chant.

Recommendations concerning fasting and manner of dress are also provided for clerics and laymen, as well as for the group presiding over the whole institution (i.e. monks, clerics, and laymen), which is guided by a spiritual father (*pater spiritalis*) who leads all the monks (*qui preerit omnibus*).

	Priests and clerics who want to live chastely and together	Married people with their sons and daughters who live a common life	Brothers of the house where the spiritual father will live and control all the people
Manner of fasting	In Winter: Wednesday and Friday.	In Winter: Friday, except in case of illness.	In fasting, they will follow the Cistercian rule. ⁴¹
Food and beverages	They do not want to fast from meat and do not have fur.	They will have food and clothes in common. Their food and clothing will be simple.	[Nothing is specified.]
Dress	They will not use blankets, only capes, so that there is a difference between them and lay people.	They only will wear simple blankets. Among them you will not find foreign clothes. They will not use dyeing colors.	[Nothing is specified.]

The *Dispositio novi ordinis* scheme contains other clues concerning the specific duties of each order, each of the four monastic charismas, and of the “managing group” guided by the spiritual father. A first point concerns the monks and the “lower” groups’ passage to a stricter life (*ad arctiorem vitam*): this passage may take place only at the spiritual father’s will and after a careful examination, and not at one’s own will. The text continues, also in its evangelic quotations, a preexisting theme from the *De articulis fidei*: no one can occupy the first place without God’s gift and vocation or he risks ending up in the last place with redness (*cum rubore*).

41 This is the only explicit passage in the entire table that refers to the Cistercians.

Specific dispositions also concern the instructions for entering the oratory dedicated to the *elderly and delicate* monks: the abbot will evaluate the real need to enter without considering the bad will of the envious monks. In fact, instructions concerning the passage of the old and weak monks are referred to only as tested and perfect men: it is written that they can only enter the *oratory of the elderly* if they have a stomach disease that prevents them from fasting. Considerations regarding the activities of the monks who are obedient, but not able to follow spiritual training (*spiritalis disciplina*) are also important. They also apply to those who are not assigned to manual labor, particularly to those leading a hermit's life, whose main activities consist of praying and chanting (*orare et psallere*). It seems that they must also devote themselves to manual labor in the place of the elders, who cannot devote themselves energetically to work (so they work on the inside [*intus*]), and in the place of the erudite monks, who must devote themselves to the study of the Holy Scripture. In this way, the rules of life in Plate XII suggest a religious house in which monastic life implies a division of the functions between the different groups of monks, according to their capacities and possibilities, rather than a strict alternation of prayer, intellectual labor, and manual labor for the community as a whole. Thus, no one is compelled to follow a rule that is not suitable for him.⁴² Therefore, the one who prays also prays for the whole community; the one who studies also studies for the whole community—especially for those who are not able to study; and the one who works also works for the entire cenoby's sake, according to Saint Paul's image of the body and the limbs. As for the tested and perfect monks, they will each have a cell to enter whenever they wish to pray, but they cannot choose their place because it is chosen by the cloister according to the indications of the *spiritual father*.

The indications regarding the clerics' and monks' oratory are a different kind of problem ultimately connected with the relation to the *saeculum*. First of all, Plate XII provides precise indications of the distance between the monastery where the monks live to the clerics' and priests' oratory, and then from the latter to the married laymen's oratory. The distance is at least three miles and at least three furlongs (*stadia*) respectively.⁴³ The precise indication of the distances confirms that the figure of the *Liber figurarum* gives not only

42 Cf. Edith Pásztor, "Architettura monastica, sistemazione urbanistica e lavoro nel 'novus ordo' auspicato da Gioacchino da Fiore," in *I Cistercensi e il Lazio* (Rome, 1978), 149–56, particularly 153.

43 "Inter hoc monasterium et locum clericorum debet interesse spatium quasi miliarum trium and Inter hec duo oratoria debet interesse spacium quasi stadiorum trium," *Liber Figurarum* Plate XII, (ed.) Grundmann, 98.

a symbolic outline of the “disposition of a new order” based on the Celestial Jerusalem’s disposition, but is at the same time a scheme in which the textual part claims to be a real and concrete religious rule.

The priests and clerics who want to live chastely and in common (*continenter et communiter*) will gather in an oratory dedicated to Saint John the Baptist and all the prophets, who are specific models of perfection to all of them. Here the Spirit of Piety will be allowed. It will be necessary to establish a school (a *studium artis grammaticae*) in the house of clerics for all the children and boys so that they might speak and write Latin and learn the literary meaning of the two testaments. A hospice or a hospital will rise outside their court (*curtis*) for both healthy and ill people and this hospice will have its own entrances distinct from those of the clerics’ house. The clerics will have to collect tithes from the laymen. A final indication concerns the rich (*divites*): if a wealthy individual wishes to visit the monks’ oratories for his soul’s sake, he has to leave his horse by the clerics’ oratory and go on plainly, that is walk on foot (*simpliciter*) to the monastery.

The plate does not mention a common place dedicated to laymen, who, in fact, will have their own houses. Therefore, the text specifies that married people will gather with their families “under the name” (*sub nomine*) of this oratory, unlike all the other oratories. The oratory is devoted to Saint Abraham and to all the patriarchs as a model of perfection precisely for laymen. The Spirit of Fear will be given to them. Although they have their private homes, married people of this group will have common meals and will wear a simple, undyed, common dress. There will not be any lazy (*ociosus*) Christians, for they all have to earn their bread by working. The distribution of tasks will allocate different duties for men and women: men will work from their own skills (*de arte sua*), and each skill (*ars*) will have a responsibility. Women will process wool for the monks’ sake, and they will look after the girls. This lay group will have to offer the tithes of their own goods to support the poor (it is not clear if the plate is still referring to monks here), the pilgrims, and students. Those who have the largest amount of goods will have to support the poorest in the community at the spiritual father’s discretion, so that no one is poor among them, according to the first Jerusalem community’s model (Acts 2:42-46).

In conclusion, the text of Plate XII concerning the seventh group presents a group of laic-religious penitents gathered in a single community.⁴⁴ The communal elements in their life are meals and common participation in

44 About the term *laicus-religiosus*, See Daniela Rando “‘Laicus-religiosus’ Tra strutture civili e ecclesiastiche: l’Ospedale di Ognissanti di Treviso (Sec. XIII),” *Studi medievali* 24 (1983), 646–47.

the liturgy; nevertheless, they live in their own home in order to maintain a familiar dimension, and they all have their own work. The religious life model of these groups is extremely similar to that of the *Humiliati* people living in the towns and countryside of Northern Italy, as Grundmann has noted. These people were laymen who did not regret their family life, so they must have been considered married (*coniugati*), but at the same time, they shared some moments of community religious life and they lived from their own work. In fact, it is possible that the *Humiliati* world was not completely unknown to the Calabrian abbot. In 1186, according to Robert of Auxerre's testimony, Joachim went to Verona to meet the pope: some *Humiliati* communities were already present at the beginning of Innocent III's pontificate in the Athesian town, but it is probable that these communities also existed in the preceding years.⁴⁵ Joachim might have personally known these communities of married laymen during his trip to Northern Italy. Moreover, he might have been informed about this new reality, which posed a question to the papal curia precisely in those years. The question was about how to integrate these laical-religious communities with the orders acknowledged by the Church, and also through the channels of the Roman curia and the personal relationships with the popes at the end of the century.⁴⁶

A last question concerns the management of the entire structure and of each individual homogeneous group. The text of the *Dispositio* mentions a spiritual father (sometimes called an abbot, too) who is the leader and to whose decisions everyone must submit. Each group is then guided by a person in charge, called a "prior" whom everyone must obey. The laic-religious group, which is guided by a teacher (*magister*) chosen by the spiritual father, is the only exception. The monks who live in the central oratory together with the spiritual father must set an example for all the brothers. Their model of perfection—in other words, the title (*titulum*) of their oratory—is God's mother Mary and the Holy Jerusalem; the gift of the Spirit is the Spirit of Counsel.⁴⁷

As far as managing duties are concerned, one must underline the fact that there is a remarkable distance between the fragments of the "instructions" of

45 Giuseppina De Sandre Gasparini, "Istituzioni e vita religiosa delle Chiese venete tra XII e XIV secolo," in *Il Veneto nel Medioevo. Dai comuni cittadini al predominio scaligero nella Marca*, (eds.) Andrea Castagnetti and Gian Maria Varanini (Verona, 1991), 443–45.

46 Regarding the *Humiliati*, see *Sulle tracce degli Umiliati*, (eds.) Maria Pia Alberzoni, Annamaria Ambrosioni, and Alfredo Lucioni (Bibliotheca Erudita. Studi e Documenti di Storia e Filologia) 13 (Milan, 1997).

47 For titular saints and for the models of perfection of the four monastic groups, see the scheme in the first table cited above.

Fiore and Plate XII. In the first, one finds a sort of collegial character concerning the guidance of the religious house: three abbots, perhaps one for each religious order within the house, should guide the monastery as a whole. This hypothesis is confirmed by two pieces of documentary evidence: in 1198, when Joachim was absent, a certain Ruggero called *Abbas Floris* guided Fiore (he was not a “prior,” as was usually the case in the abbot’s absence); then, in his 1200 testamentary letter, Joachim addressed his co-abbots and priors (*coabbates* and *priores*). Yet, at that time, there was no house connected to Fiore that was already raised to the status of abbey (Fonte Laurato became an abbey the following year). This could mean that Joachim might have appointed two other superiors in order to guide a community divided into three structures. At the same time, the fact that Plate XII of the *Liber Figurarum* mentions one and only one spiritual father could be a signal of a textual adaptation of the institutional changes that occurred in Joachim’s order starting in 1209 and continued over the next ten years. Therefore, as far as the general government is concerned, the *Dispositio* text mentions some important central changes starting from 1209.

4.5 The Attempt to Carry Out the Plan

After being outlined, a project can simply remain on paper as a mere hypothesis of an ideal model, or it can be handed down to posterity so that later generations can carry it out; or, the same planner can try to realize it by laying its foundations or carrying it through to completion. As for Joachim’s order, the available sources are unfortunately very poor and do not allow one to state with certainty if he tried to execute his religious plan, which entailed subdividing his monks and people connected to the monastery of Fiore according to the scheme of the sites/oratories. Nevertheless, some fragmentary evidence allows us to place the project—as expressed in the *Concordia* and in the rules of Plate XII of the *Liber figurarum*—and the seven priorships cited in the Florentian institutions close to what Joachim realized from 1189 to 1202, the year he died.

4.5.1 *Fiore and Its First Dependencies*

As Abbot of Fiore—the small hermitage in the Sila Mountains that became an abbey in 1194—Joachim founded three other small dependencies from 1195 to 1201: *Bonum Lignum*, Tassitano, and Abate Marco, as attested to in several surviving documents.⁴⁸ In 1200, Joachim planned to erect a fourth one

48 For all, cf. *Constantiae imperatricis et reginae Siciliae diplomata (1195–1198)* (*Codex diplomaticus regni Siciliae*, s. 2, 1/2), (ed.) Theo Kölzer (Cologne and Vienna, 1983), n. 47, 172–77.

(situated in *Albeto* or *Caput Album*) located in the Sila mountains near these buildings, but it was never built.⁴⁹ In the following year, the Archbishop Andrew of Cosenza gave Joachim a ruined church located near Cosenza,⁵⁰ after which Joachim bought a house in the main square of Cosenza and probably rented a second one.⁵¹

In total, including the foundation in Fiore on 30 March 1202 (the day of Joachim's death), one can count seven locations (*loca*), some of them already established, and others in progress. The first five were situated in the Sila Mountains in close proximity to each other: (1) *Bonum Lignum* was built in the holding given by the Emperor Henry not far from *locum Floris* to the east of the monastery; (2) the lands of the Greek foundation of Abate Marco bordered on the holding (*tenimentum*) given by Henry VI, also eastwards; in 1218, Honorius III claimed that it had risen too close to the new monastery of Fiore (it was rebuilt not far from the former site of Fiore after the terrible fire in 1214), so that "it was not possible to order another monastery in the same place without a big scandal";⁵² (3) Tassitano also rose not far from Fiore, but in the opposite direction, westwards, and slightly south of the River Arvo;⁵³ and (4) finally, the *Caput Album* holding was located in the Sila Mountains west of Fiore towards

Regarding the first period in Fiore when Joachim was the abbot, see Valeria De Fraja, "Le prime fondazioni fiorenti," in *Gioacchino da Fiore*, (ed.) Rusconi, 105–28.

49 Walter Koch, (ed.), *Die Urkunden Friedrichs II.*, vol. 1: 1198–1212 (MGH Diplomata. Die Urkunden der deutschen Könige und Kaiser) 14 (Hanover, 2002), doc. 9, 18–20; *Acta Sanctorum*, Maii 7:125–26; see also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 224–26, n. 24 and 25.

50 *Documenti fiorenti*, (ed.) De Leo, doc. 6, 18–19; also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 228–29, n. 29.

51 *Documenti fiorenti*, (ed.) De Leo, doc. 6, 20–21; also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 231–35, n. 31, 32, and 33.

52 "... absque gravi scandalo aliud ibidem non potuit monasterium ordinari." See Ughelli, *Italia Sacra* 9, col. 500; De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 4, 271, n. 17.

53 Regarding these three small dependencies in Fiore, Nicola Venusio wrote the following to the marcheses Tanucci, de Marco e Goyzueta in 1773: "L'abbate Gioacchino pose mano ad edificare altri 'monasteri,' come sono quello di Buonolegno nel luogo già chiamato Calosuber, quello di Tassitano e quello di Abbate Marco, nel luogo già detto Monte Marco, chiamati munisteri nella prefata carta di Costanza, ma è da tenersi, che non fossero che piccioli romitorii, o pure quelle, che gli antichi monaci chiamavano celle, sì perché per la loro picciolezza appena quello di Abbate Marco nell'anno 1683 il tavolario Gallucci ne vide in un poco piano li vestigi e degli altri né allora né presentemente si vede vestigio alcuno, sì ancora perché i mentovati luoghi, che conservano oggi di li stessi nomi sono poche miglia l'uno dall'altro distanti, e non è verosimile che in sì picciola distanza si fossero voluti edificare tanti munisteri." See Pietro De Leo, "I manoscritti di Nicola Venusio e la ricostruzione del cartulario fiorentino," *Florentia* 10 (1996), 52.

Cosenza.⁵⁴ Undoubtedly, the number of the foundations and their closeness may place them near the four sites/monastic priorships for the *real monks* and to the “central house” of the “holy men.” The sixth location was a church, Saint Martin *de Iove* (of the so-called Canale), and it was in ruins.⁵⁵ We have no way of knowing the real destination of this foundation that Joachim received in 1201. He died in that place on 30 March 1202 and remained buried there until 1226 when his mortal remains were transferred to the new monastery of Fiore.⁵⁶ In my opinion, the long interment of Joachim’s remains in Canale supports the hypothesis that in the original plans a real religious community should have lived by Saint Martin’s Church and not a simple grange (*grangia*), as happened starting from the third decade of the century. Indeed, only such a hypothesis could explain why the community of Fiore had accepted that the founder’s body (a founder whom others claimed to be a saint)⁵⁷ had been buried in that place for such a long time (approximately twenty years). He remained there until the community of Fiore realized that the original project of their founder could not be realized, and that the holding of Canale was destined for another purpose. The location of Saint Martin’s Church in the vicinity of Cosenza confirms that Joachim wished to dedicate that place to the monks who were closest to the secular world; therefore, they needed to manage a relationship with the town, a school, and a hospital.

As for the houses in Cosenza that were purchased or rented, the question is whether in the Calabrian monk’s monastic plan they might have been destined for the seventh group, the group for the ordered religious house and for the “new order” (*novus ordo*), which was linked to the monastery of Fiore, albeit in a conjugal laical state. These people were in charge of the commercial aspects of the management of the abbey’s goods (as with the town houses managed by the Cistercian lay brothers), and it is interesting to note that they lived a common life as voluntary penitents following the monastery’s rules. In fact, there is no evidence concerning the presence of laymen linked to the monastery of Fiore, as was the case for other monasteries in Central and Southern Italy.

54 Cf. *Die Urkunden Friedrichs II.*, (ed.) Koch, n. 9, 18–20; De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 224–25, n. 24.

55 “... locus ipse iam ante ... sub tempore predecessorum nostrorum pene destructus fuerat.” See *Documenti fiorensi*, (ed.) De Leo, doc. 6, 18–19; De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 228, n. 29.

56 Regarding the date of the transfer, see Valeria De Fraja, “Una vocazione d’Oltralpe: Iohannes de Baiona, monaco fiorense,” *Florentia* 11 (1997), 41–66, especially 42.

57 For more on the attempt of the Archbishop of Cosenza and the monks of Fiore to canonize Joachim, see De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Introduction: “La *Virtutum synopsis* di Luca di Cosenza,” 23–25.

Nonetheless, in one of his letters addressed to Joachim dated January 1199, Innocent III wrote about some people who “were companions (*familiares*) ... to your monastery, admitted ... to the familiarity.”⁵⁸ During a period of illness they made a vow to observe the monastic state, but once they recovered, they changed their minds and did not keep their vow. Regardless of Joachim’s question to the pope, and even if they were not real oblates, in 1198 they were laymen linked to the abbey in accordance with some procedures that, although still undetermined at the time, were undoubtedly diffused throughout the community.

Therefore, there were five foundations near each other in the Sila Mountains and physically removed from the city, exactly according to the “ordered religious house” scheme and the diagram of the *Liber figurarum*’s Plate XII. Moreover, there was a church in the vicinity of Cosenza and, finally, we have one or two houses situated in the very heart of the administrative center probably meant for the laic-religious people linked to the monastery. In my opinion, the perfect numerical match between the project of the religious house and Joachim’s actions as a monastic founder may support the hypothesis that he wished to follow exactly the project scheme as presented in the *Concordia* and in the *Dispositio novi ordinis* texts and thereby, the Abbot of Fiore tried to bring his own project of an “integrated” religious order to fruition.

4.5.2 *A Traditional Economic Model*

When discussing the monastic reform of Fiore, historiography has often stated that in founding his new order, Joachim aimed to give the Cistercian order the original rigor of the desert and implement severe poverty. Scholars have also maintained that he put into practice the white monks’ strictest rules, which had been abandoned by that time, thus giving his monks the main duty of contemplation. For a certain period of his life this may have been true: Joachim severely reprimanded the Cistercians for abandoning the original imperatives of poverty and parting from the world, and during this period he might have argued for a possible way out or a return to these original ideals. Indeed, this was demonstrated by his very ascent of Mount Sila in 1189 and the foundation of a Cistercian hermitage.⁵⁹ In reality, however, this was a rather short

58 “... familiares monasterii tui ... extitissent, ... ad ... familiaritatem admissi.” See Othmar Hageneder and Anton Haidacher, (eds.), *Die Register Innocenz’ III., 111., 111: Pontifikatsjahr, 1198/1199, Texte* (Publikationen des Österreichischen Kulturinstituts in Rom) 2/1 (Graz and Cologne, 1964), n. 524, 757.

59 For a reinterpretation of Joachim’s monastic journey between 1188 and 1189, see De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Chs. 3, 2: “Il tentativo eremitico,” 84–85.

phase in Joachim's monastic evolution: he soon abandoned the experience of a collective hermit's life, and in 1194, he devoted himself to the abbey system by heading small dependencies, as is clearly shown in the documents. The arrival of several followers and the need to organize them into different buildings offered the Abbot of Fiore the possibility to implement his project of a religious house that he had been contemplating for a long time. At the same time, Joachim refused to revert to the strictest Cistercian rules regarding the economy, and he adopted more traditional economic models for his order.

Rinaldo Comba has already tackled the problem of the first Florentine economic structure, pointing out that the economy of Fiore was initially based on cattle breeding due to its mountainous location, and was then supported by commercial activity aimed at strengthening self-sufficiency through the cropping of vineyards, arable lands, orchards, and chestnut grooves. Furthermore, within the monastery of Fiore's own holding it was possible to graze not only its own flock, but also other animals, so that the community implicitly received grazing and acorn rights.⁶⁰ Moreover, the annual concession of fifty burdens of rye from Tancredi's side became the right of receiving an annual fixed revenue (*redditus*) of fifty golden bezants,⁶¹ as granted by Henry VI on 6 March 1195. The global vision of all the information regarding the patrimonial organization of Fiore shows that the economy of the cenoby was only partially aligned with the strictest existing rules of the order, which the abbot had already abandoned. As a matter of fact, it maintained a set of revenue excluded from the rules of Cîteaux, but it allowed a property layout that was not based on the possession of churches and mills, as was the case in the Cistercian abbeys of that time.⁶²

However, it is possible to focus the question even further. Comba noticed that the possession of the Church of St. Martin of Iove (situated not far from Canale and given to Joachim by Archbishop Andrew of Cosenza with properties and annexes, requested and obtained in 1201) already contradicted the existing monastic plan⁶³ while Joachim was still alive. A recently discovered documentation allows us to conclude that even before 1201, Joachim was moving in a more lenient direction: before January 1198, the Abbot of Fiore had obtained the *ecclesia Montis Marci*—the Monastery of Abate Marco with all its

60 Rinaldo Comba, "Le scelte economiche dei monaci bianchi nel Regno di Sicilia (XII–XIII secolo): un modello cistercense?" in *I Cistercensi nel Mezzogiorno*, 155–59.

61 *Acta Sanctorum*, Maii 7:106; also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 205, n. 3.

62 Comba, *Le scelte economiche*, 155–59.

63 Comba, *Le scelte economiche*, 159.

properties and annexes, among them the Church of St Martin of Neto⁶⁴—from the Bishop of Cerenzia. Although we might think that the Church of Abate Marco was Joachim's wish for the institution of one of the dependencies of Fiore—one of the seven priories—the donation of the Church of Saint Martin of Neto poses a different question. In a subsequent document, we find that the possession of people was one of the church's competencies and that they depended on it. It is a remarkable point of departure from the Cistercian rules that did not permit ownership of properties.

The possession of mills followed a similar logic. Even in 1198, while Joachim was still alive, the Monastery of Fiore was given ownership of the concession of half the mill by the Cardone River in the territory of Pedace.⁶⁵ Of course, it is impossible to know whether the concession of the mill was only intended to support the monastery's needs or if it was meant to be a further source of income, like grazing on the Sila and the salt works along the Neto. Either way, it is interesting to note that between 1189 and 1191, the Abbot of Fiore explicitly referred to the Cistercian statutes (*statute*) refusing such possessions while purchasing just such a mill for one of his dependencies in 1198.

4.6 Conclusion

Analyzing these documentary fragments shows that Joachim did not wish to propose the strict and faithful observance of Cistercian rules. His economic decisions actually resembled the patrimonial state of the seigniories adopted by traditional monasticism: this was a major model during the Norman-Suevian Reign, particularly in the congregation depending on the Cava dei Tirreni monastery. Therefore, the central characteristic of Joachim's order was not a "return" to earlier Cistercian ideals and to a poor economic state based on the idea of a desert, but rather a "new monasticism" capable of ordered integration. This "ordered" religious house welcomed the different religious charismas of those people looking for a community life—a very diffuse practice by the end of the 12th century. These different ways of life surely added richness to

64 For more on this document, now lost, see De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 207–08, n. 7.

65 "Concessio medietatis molendini in territorio Pedacii prope flumen dictum Cardone, anno 1198," in *Documenti fiorentini*, (ed.) De Leo, 27, issue 5, n. 25; see also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, Appendix 3, 217–18, n.18.

the Church, and they were followed and encouraged. Indeed, their right to exist within a religious order approved by the papacy was recognized and these people (especially laymen) had to follow that the Trinitarian and septenary order as God had commanded. In this way, they could safeguard their own specific rule and maintain the triple order of the ecclesial body—monks, clerics, and laymen—within a single monastery mysteriously symbolized by God, being One and Three at the same time.

Thomas Aquinas, Bonaventure, and the Critiques of Joachimist Topics from the Fourth Lateran Council to Dante

Sven Grosse

5.1 Introduction

This chapter is concerned with a certain time period in the history of the impact of Joachim of Fiore and with a specific area of theology on which Joachim had an effect. The time period is marked, at the beginning, by the Fourth Lateran Council in 1215 and, at the end, by the completion of the Twelfth Canto of the *Divine Comedy* of Dante Alighieri (†1321), which was completed in 1316.¹ The area of theology is indicated by the names mentioned in this title: it concerns an argument at the level of the official institutions of the Church—whether it be the councils or the papal teaching office—and at the level of the theology of the schools and of systematic theology. In the Twelfth Canto of the *Paradiso*, Joachim of Fiore appears in a circle of twelve teachers of wisdom led by Bonaventure, which surrounds another circle of biblical and Church teachers led by Thomas Aquinas. Thomas Aquinas (1225–1274) and Bonaventure of Bagnoregio (1221–1274) were also the most prominent theologians of this period, and they are our focus here. Systematic theology and the supreme politics of the Church are in this case, however, especially tied to the developments at the basis of the Church, which means here, in the first place, the development of new orders—in particular the Franciscan order—and the formation of special religious communities.²

1 The epistle dedication to Cangrande della Scala for the *Paradiso* comes from this year; cf. Reto R. Bezzola and Kurt Ringger, “Dante Alighieri I,” in *Lexikon des Mittelalters* (Munich, 1986), 3:547.

2 Here the Almarician sect should be mentioned, to which some of the professors also belonged and which was condemned in 1210 in Paris, five years after the Fourth Lateran Council. According to Grundmann’s thesis, they had received some of their inspiration from Joachim’s theological history; cf. Herbert Grundmann, “Dante und Joachim von Fiore. Zu *Paradiso* x–xii” (lecture at the Annual Conference of the Deutsche Dante-Gesellschaft in Weimar on 26 September 1931), *Deutsches Dante-Jahrbuch* 14 (1932), 226, n. 26. This essay by Grundmann, without the original pagination, is reprinted in: Delno C. West, (ed.), *Joachim of Fiore in Christian Thought: Essays on the Influence of the Calabrian Prophet* (New York, 1975), 2:329–75, with

I have selected the expression “Joachimist themes” because it concerns themes that Joachim of Fiore addressed and because, at that time, he initiated ongoing discussions about these themes. In many of the texts, one cannot tell for certain whether the theologian writing them made reference to a text of Joachim that had been presented to him. Indeed, the name of Joachim is seldom mentioned. In this way, one avoided the assumption that the position with which the argument began was really that of Joachim, and also that it was the intention of the writer to refer precisely to Joachim. Nevertheless, the history of Joachim’s influence is thereby complete in that one appeals to him while at the same time essentially altering his teachings, thus battling against him without necessarily harming him.³

5.2 The Development of the Arguments⁴

5.2.1 *The Trinitarian Debates*

One can distinguish between two kinds of discussions about Joachimist topics that overlap only slightly: that of the doctrine of the Trinity and that of the

additional indication of the original pagination in: Herbert Grundmann, *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, Part 2: Joachim von Fiore (Schriften der Monumenta Germaniae Historica) 25,2 (Stuttgart, 1977), 166–210. I am citing the original pagination. Grundmann points to his own work: *Studien über Joachim von Fiore* (Beiträge zur Kulturgeschichte des Mittelalters und der Renaissance) 32 (Leipzig-Berlin, 1927; reprinted Darmstadt, 1966), 163–70, as well as to his *Religiöse Bewegungen im Mittelalter. Untersuchungen über die geschichtlichen Zusammenhänge zwischen der Ketzerei, den Bettelorden und der religiösen Frauenbewegung im 12. und 13. Jahrhundert und über die geschichtlichen Grundlagen der deutschen Mystik*, 1st ed. (Historische Studien) 267 (Berlin, 1935), 355–72, and especially 364–67. This thesis, however, is not even mentioned in Ludwig Hödl’s article “Almericians,” in *Lexicon des Mittelalters*, 1 (Munich, 1980), 509.

3 Here I am alluding to Bernard McGinn’s distinction between “joachite” and “joachimist”: “*Joachite* in the sense, that they are influenced by the body of ideas claiming Joachim at its source, though they may not be *Joachimist*, that is, truly in harmony with the authentic writings and major ideas of the Abbot of Fiore.” From Bernard McGinn, “The Abbot and the Doctors: Scholastic Reactions to the Radical Eschatology of Joachim of Fiore,” *Church History* 40 (1971), 35, n. 28. This article from McGinn is reprinted (without indicating the original pagination) in: West, (ed.), *Joachim of Fiore in Christian Thought* (New York, 1975), 2:453–71. A revised version is found in Chapter 7 as “The Abbot and the Doctors: Joachim, Aquinas and Bonaventure,” in West, (ed.), *The Calabrian Abbot: Joachim of Fiore in the History of Western Thought* (New York-London, 1985), 207–34. I will, differing from McGinn, occasionally use the English expression “Joachimist” and therefore deliberately avoid answering the question of whether a legitimate reference to Joachim is possible or not.

4 A large part of what I set forth here, not including what is said about Bonaventure and Dante, is reported by José Ignacio Saranyana (with the collaboration of Ignacio Brosa and Francesco

theological interpretation of history. I will focus my attention on the former discussion first. In his last will, Joachim of Fiore asked of his fellow abbots that his complete writings be left to the judgement of the papal seat.⁵ During the Fourth Lateran Council, this presumably led to a discussion of the criticism that Joachim of Fiore—who had died thirteen years earlier—had raised concerning the teaching on the Trinity by Peter Lombard (†1160). At the end of its evaluation, the council itself referred to Joachim's request and his willingness to subordinate himself to the evaluation of the apostolic seat.⁶ Joachim's work

Calogero), in *Joaquín de Fiore y Tomás de Aquino. Historia Doctrinal de una Polemica* (Pamplona, 1979). McGinn (as I noted in footnote 3 above) also has the same focus as the present chapter up to Dante. Overviews are offered by Manselli and Miethke: Raoul Manselli, "Joachim de Fiore dans la théologie du XIII^e siècle," in *Septième Centenaire de la mort de Saint Louis. Actes des Colloques de Royaumont et de Paris* (21–27 May 1970) (Paris, 1976), 291–301, reprinted in Paolo Vian, (ed.), *Da Gioacchino da Fiore a Cristoforo Colombo. Studi sul Francescanesimo spirituale, sull'ecclesiologia e sull'escatologismo basso medievale* (Nuovi studi storici) 36 (Turin, 1997), 385–99; Jürgen Miethke, "Zukunftshoffnung, Zukunftserwartung, Zukunftsbeschreibung im 12. und 13. Jahrhundert. Der Dritte Status des Joachim von Fiore im Kontext," in *Ende und Vollendung. Eschatologische Perspektiven im Mittelalter*, (eds.) Jan A. Aertsen and Martin Pickavé (Miscellanea Mediaevalia) 29 (Berlin-New York, 2002), 504–24. Garfagnini primarily explores the relation between Joachim and Thomas Aquinas. See Gian Carlo Garfagnini, "Gioacchino da Fiore: tempo della teologia e tempo della storia da Agostino a Tommaso d'Aquino," in *Sentimento del tempo e periodizzazione della storia nel medioevo. Atti del XXXVI Convegno storico internazionale* (Todi, 10–12 October 1999) (Atti dei Convegni del Centro italiano di studi sul basso medioevo: Accademia Tudertina e del Centro di studi sulla spiritualità medievale) 13 (Spoleto, 2000), 107–35. The same is true of Peter Meinhold, "Thomas von Aquin und Joachim von Fiore und ihre Deutung der Geschichte," *Saeculum* 27 (1976), 66–76.

- 5 According to Heinrich Denifle, "Das Evangelium aeternum und die Commission zu Anagni," in *Archiv für Literatur- und Kirchengeschichte des Mittelalters* (Berlin, 1885), 1:61, n. 1, this will can be found in several handwritten texts among the works of Joachim as well as in the printings of the *Concordia* and the *Expositio super Apocalypsim*. Thus, in the *Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti* (Venice, 1519), it is found in A 2a–A 2b. In the edition by E. Randolph Daniel, (ed.), *Abbot Joachim of Fiore: Liber de Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti* (Transactions of the American Philosophical Society) 73, Part 8 (Philadelphia, 1983), it is found on 4–6, and in the *Expositio Apocalypsim* (Venice, 1527), it is found in A 1 a–A 1 b.
- 6 Heinrich Denzinger, *Enchiridion symbolorum definitionum et declarationum de rebus fidei et morum* (Strasbourg, 1911), revised, expanded, and translated into German by Helmut Holping, (ed.) Peter Hünermann, *Kompendium der Glaubensbekenntnisse und kirchlichen Lehrentscheidungen*, 37th ed. (Freiburg im Breisgau, 1991), 362, no. 807. Joachim's "Protestatio" is mentioned there. See Charles Du Plessis d'Argentré, "Collectio iudiciorum de novis erroribus qui ab initio XII saeculi ... usque a. 1713," in *Ecclesia proscripti sunt et notati*, 1st ed. (Paris, 1728), 1/1:121 ab. Compare to the aforementioned "testament" of Joachim, mentioned in footnote 5 above.

De unitate seu essentia Trinitatis, which the council possessed, was presumably lost due to the council's judgement against Joachim.⁷ Joachim had disagreed with a teaching in the *Sentences* (Book I, Dist. 5, Ch. 1) of Lombard. In this passage, Peter Lombard addresses the question of whether the person of the Father begets the divine essence, or whether he begets the Son, or whether the divine essence begets itself, or whether it neither begets nor is begotten. In Number 6 of this chapter, he concludes that because the divine essence is one thing, and indeed the highest thing, and because a thing does not beget itself, the divine essence is therefore neither begotten nor does it beget.⁸

According to Axel Mehlmann, a twofold misunderstanding occurs here.⁹ First of all, Joachim says, erroneously, that when the Lombard called the divine essence (*essentia divina*) a "thing" (*res*), he proposed a quaternity rather than a Trinity, consisting namely of the three persons and the common essence as a fourth being. As a result, Joachim accuses him of heresy and madness.¹⁰ Secondly, however, the council also erred in positing that Joachim had said, in disagreement, that the unity of the three persons is "no true and actual

7 The dissertation of Axel Mehlmann deals extensively with the discussion of the extant texts through which one might identify this work: "De unitate trinitatis. Forschungen und Dokumente zur Trinitätstheologie Joachims von Fiore im Zusammenhang mit seinem verschollenen Traktat gegen Petrus Lombardus" (Ph.D. diss., Freiburg im Breisgau, 1991). An essential source for the position of Joachim is his *Confessio trinitatis*, which has been edited by Mehlmann from a Paduan manuscript, 217–29. The work *Joachimi Abbatis Liber contra Lombardum*, however, does not even belong to the "School of Joachim" according to Mehlmann, as was claimed by Ottaviano in Carmelo Ottaviano, (ed.), *Joachimi Abbatis Liber contra Lombardum* (*Scuola di Gioacchino da Fiore*) (Reale Accademia d'Italia: Studi e Documenti) 3 (Rome, 1934). Other attributions were disproven by Mehlmann. The constitution that the Fourth Lateran Council issued on this occasion with the incipit "Damnamus" is edited by Denzinger et al., 359–62, no. 803–808, in the *Constitutiones Concilii Quarti Lateranensis una cum Commentariis glossatorum*, (eds.) Antonius García y García (Monumenta Iuris Canonici) A 2 (Vatican City, 1981), 43–47; and *Conciliorum oecumenicorum decreta*, 3rd ed. (Bologna, 1973), 231–33; and also by Mansi, *Sacrorum Conciliorum nova, et amplissima Collectio ... quae Ioannes Dominicus Mansi ... evulgavit* (Venice, 1767; Paris, 1903; Graz, 1961), 22: 981–86.

8 "Ita dicimus quod essentia divina non genuit essentiam: cum enim una et summa quaedam res sit divina essentia, si divina essentia essentiam genuit, eadem res se ipsam genuit, quod omnino esse non potest." See Magistri Petri Lombardi Sententiae, quoted from *IV Libris Distinctae*, vol. 1/2, 3rd ed., (ed.) P.P. Collegii S. Bonaventurae (Ad Claras Aquas) (Spicilegium Bonaventurianum) 4 (Grottaferrata, 1971), 82; cf. the sketch of the problem on 80, and cf. Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 244–62, especially 252–55.

9 Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 576 ff., and 254.

10 Denzinger, "Damnamus," in *Constitutiones*, 359, n. 803.

unity, but rather a collective, based upon likeness, in the same way that many persons are called one people, and many believers one Church.”¹¹

As proof, Joachim had stated with reference to John 17:22 ff.: “Father, I want that they are one within us, just as we are one; so they are perfectly one” (*Volo, Pater, ut sint unum in nobis, sicut et nos unum sumus, ut sint consummati in unum*). Pope Innocent III (1198–1216) formulated his teaching on the Trinity in his introductory words: “We, however, based on the approval of the Holy Council, believe and profess with Peter Lombard ...” (*Nos autem, sacro approbante Concilio, credimus et confitemur cum Petro Lombardo ...*). Therefore, he made it clear that the Lombard had not proposed a quaternity, but that Joachim—in his understanding of the Lombard—had misjudged the nature of the analogy.

For, when it is said of the Father and the Son in the Trinity that they are one, and if one speaks of the “being one” of the believers, one must consider that “no similarity can be found between the creator and the creature, such that there might not be found an even greater dissimilarity.”¹² Hence, the unity of the Trinitarian persons is not a mere collective one as is the unity among the believers. Therefore, Joachim’s doctrine concerning this point was dismissed as heretical. This dismissal was not directed at Joachim as a person, since he had made it clear from the beginning that he wished to subordinate himself to Rome’s verdict; nor was it directed at the Monastery of Fiore that he had founded and which was appreciated for its regular order and its healthy way of living.¹³ The Order of Flora was thereby accepted and acknowledged

11 “Non veram et propriam, sed quasi collectivam et similitudinariam ... quemadmodum dicuntur multi homines unus populus, et multi fideles una Ecclesia ...” Ibid., 359 ff. Cf. Mehlmann, “De unitate trinitatis,” 569–88.

12 “Inter creatorem et creaturam non potest tanta similitudo notari, quin inter eos maior sit dissimilitudo notanda.” See Denzinger, *Constitutiones*, 361, note 806. Regarding the decision of Innocent III, see Fiona Robb, “Did Innocent III Personally Condemn Joachim of Fiore?” *Florentia* 7 (1993), 77–91; as well as her articles, “A Late Thirteenth-Century Attack on the Fourth Lateran Council: The ‘Liber contra Lombardum’ and Contemporary Debates on the Trinity,” *Recherches de Théologie Ancienne et Médiévale* 62 (1995), 110–44; “The Fourth Lateran Council’s Definition of Trinitarian Orthodoxy,” *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 48 (1997), 22–43; and “Joachimist Exegesis in the Theology of Innocent III and Rainier of Ponza,” *Florentia* 11 (1997), 137–52. See also Christoph Egger, “Papst Innocenz III. als Theologe. Beiträge zur Kenntnis und seines Denkens im Rahmen der Frühscholastik,” *Archivum Historiae Pontificiae* 30 (1992), 55–123; Egger, “Joachim von Fiore, Rainer von Ponza und die römische Kurie,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III. Atti del 5° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (16–21 September 1999), (ed.) Roberto Rusconi (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e instrumenti) 13 (Rome, 2001), 129–62.

13 Denzinger, “Damnamus,” in *Constitutiones*, 362, note 807.

as the guardian of Joachim's legacy and was spared from this doctrinal verdict. Apparently, there was even an attempt between 1215 and 1227 to beatify Joachim,¹⁴ but this did not occur in the end.

Nevertheless, no one could prevent Joachim from being worshipped as a saint; indeed, in Calabria people did not distinguish clearly between someone who was a saint and someone who was blessed. As a basis for worshipping Joachim as blessed, the transfer of his mortal remains by Archbishop Lucas of Cosenza to the Church of San Giovanni in Fiore in 1226 was sufficient.¹⁵ In the evening antiphon on 29 May, the Florentian monks sang accordingly: "Blessed Joachim, endowed with the prophetic spirit, adorned with understanding, far from the error of heresy, spoke of the future as if of the present" (*beatus Joachim, spiritu dotatus prophetico, decoratus intelligentia, errore procul heretic, dixit futura ut praesentia*).¹⁶

On 5 September 1234, Pope Gregory IX (1227–1241) adopted the council's verdict in his decretals.¹⁷ This act led the scholastic theologians to confront this question, and so Thomas Aquinas and Bonaventure had to concern themselves with it as well.¹⁸ In his *Sentences* commentary¹⁹ written between 1250

- 14 A proof thereof is the hagiographic dossier consisting of Joachim's curriculum vitae, as well as Archbishop Lucas of Cosenza's "Virtutum Synopsis" and the report on Joachim's miracles. This dossier was eventually included in the *Acta Sanctorum*, Maii, Tom. 7:89–143: Die vigesima nona Maii. De b. Ioachimo Abbate Ordinis Florentis Fundatore, in Calabria et Regno Neapolitano. Regarding the dossier, see Valeria De Fraja, *Oltre Citeaux. Gioacchino da Fiore e l'ordine fiorentino* (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 19 (Rome, 2006).
- 15 See Valeria De Fraja, "Una vocazione d'Oltralpe: Iohannes de Baiona, Monaco fiorentino," *Florentia* 11 (1997), 41–82.
- 16 *Acta Sanctorum*, Maii, Tom. 7:90 a B. This is correct according to the reference by Guido Bondatti, *Gioachinismo e Francescanesimo nel Duecento* (Santa Maria degli Angeli, 1924), 5, n. 4. Cf. Antonio Maria Adorisio, *La "Legenda" del santo di Fiore: B. Ioachimi abbatis miracula* (Rome, 1989), 7.
- 17 Gregory IX, *Decretales* 1.1.1f, *Corpus Iuris Canonici*, (ed.) Aemilius Friedberg (Leipzig, 1879; Graz, 1959); Part 2: *Decretalium Collectiones*, Sp. 6f, combined with the explanation "Firmiter credimus" of Innocent III during the same council under the title "De summa trinitate et fide catholica." Cf. Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 231, n. 6 and 282, n. 6.
- 18 Pierre Michaud-Quantin offers an overview of the comments on this decretal in "Commentaires sur les deux premières décrétales du recueil de Grégoire IX au XIII^e siècle," in *Metaphysik im Mittelalter. Ihr Ursprung und ihre Bedeutung*, (ed.) Paul Wilpert (Miscellanea mediaevalia) 2 (Berlin, 1963), 103–09. A survey of the commentaries on the *Sentences* discussing the condemnation of 1215 has yet to be written.
- 19 Jacques Guy Bougerol, *Introduction à l'Études de Saint Bonaventure* (Bibliothèque de Théologie) 1.1 (Tournai, 1961), 241.

and 1252, Bonaventure briefly addressed Joachim and wrote fully in line with the Fourth Lateran Council.²⁰ Thomas Aquinas composed his *Sentences* commentary between 1254 and 1256. Without naming Joachim, he examined the questions that were discussed at the council in *Sentences* 1, Dist. 5, q. 1, Art. 1: “Whether essence generates” (*Utrum essentia generet*) and Art. 2: “Whether the act of generation can be also predicated about something, which is an essence only by name” (*Utrum actus generandi praedicetur ab aliquot modo nominum essentialium*).²¹

The same occurred in the *Quaestio de unione verbi incarnati* (written between 1268 and 1272), again without mentioning any names.²² The *Exposito super secundam decretalem ad Archidiaconum Tudertinum*²³—in which Aquinas explained the relevant decretals of Gregory IX—was written between 1259 and 1268. In 1263, in the *Contra Errores Graecorum*, he addressed the decision of the council when discussing the question “how is it to be understood that the essence is begotten by the Son and spirated in the Holy Spirit?” (*Quomodo intelligitur, quod essentia sit genita in filio, et spirata in Spiritu Sancto*).²⁴ He reconsidered the case in the *Summa theologiae* 1 q. 39: “Of persons, insofar as they are related to essence” (*De personis ad essentiam relatis*), and Art. 1: “Whether the names for the essence can also represent the persons in an abstract sense” (*Utrum nomina essentialia in abstracto significata possint supponere pro persona*). This treatise was written sometime between 1266 and 1268.²⁵ In these last three treatises, Thomas Aquinas mentions Joachim explicitly.

Thomas specified in his remarks—especially in his *Contra Errores Graecorum*—the council’s opposition to Joachim’s critique against the Lombard. He grants that the Church fathers, such as Athanasius, Basil, and Cyril, also expressed themselves in this way, namely that the essence of God is

20 In *Sentences* 1, Dist. 5, Dub. 4, *Opera Omnia*, (ed.) Studio et Cura P.P. Collegii S. Bonaventurae (Ad Claras Aquas [Quaracchi], 1882), 1:121: “Ita etiam non est dicendum, quod divina essentia genuit Filium.” Cf. Paul Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils in der Endlichkeit der Geschichte. Bonaventuras Theologie als Antwort auf die franziskanischen Joachimiten* (Franziskanische Forschungen) 41 (Werl, 1999), 109–11.

21 *Divi Thomae Aquinatis Opera Omnia*, (eds.) Stanislaus Eduard Freté and Paul Maré (Paris, 1873), 7:81f, 82f. If not otherwise indicated, these and other references concerning the genesis of Thomas’s works follow the chart in Thomas Aquinatis, *Opuscula Theologica*, vol. 1, (ed.) Raymundus A. Verardo (Turin-Rome, 1954), ix.

22 Art. 1: *Utrum haec unio facta sit in persona, vel in natura*, ad 12, (eds.) P. Bazzi et al., *Quaestiones disputatae*, rev. 8th ed. (Turin-Rome, 1949), 2:425.

23 Thomas Aquinatis, *Opuscula Theologica*, 1:415.

24 Thomas Aquinatis, *Opuscula Theologica*, Part 1, Ch. 4, 317–19.

25 Thomas Aquinatis, *Opuscula Theologica*, ix.

begotten (*generata*) or spirated (*spirata*).²⁶ This way of speaking is nevertheless *calumniosus*—that is, contrived or sophisticated. In accordance with the judgement of the council, one can say the following in the Lombard's favor and against Joachim's way of speaking:

In God there is a common element indistinct and one which is distinguished and not common. Therefore, that which is the ground of distinction in God cannot be attributed to what is common and indistinct, but only to that which is distinguished. There is, however, no other ground of distinction in God but this: that one person begets, another is begotten, and another proceeds. Therefore, to beget or to be begotten or to proceed cannot be attributed to the divine essence, which is common and indistinct in the three persons ... Hence, those terms which signify or can stand for a person receive the appropriate predication of generation or procession. Thus, these terms: Father, Son, and the Holy Spirit, connote specific persons, while this term: person, or hypostasis, connotes them generically. Hence, it is proper to say that the Father begets the Son, and that the Son is begotten of the Father ... and also that a person begets or spirates a person, or is begotten or spirated by a person. The term God, however, because it signifies the divine essence as existing concretely—for it signifies someone who possesses divinity—can, therefore, because of its manner of signifying, stand for a person and so the following ways of speaking are properly permitted: God begets God; God is begotten or proceeds from God. But the terms essence and divinity and any others that connote abstractly cannot by reason of their mode of signifying signify or stand for a person.²⁷

26 *Contra errores Graecorum* in *Opuscula Theologica*, Part 1, Ch. 4, § 1037, 317 ff., with citations from these fathers.

27 *Contra errores Graecorum* in *Opuscula Theologica*, Part 1, Ch. 4, § 1038, 318: "In divinis invenitur aliquid commune indistinctum, et aliquid quod distinguitur et non est commune. Illud ergo quod est distinctionis ratio in divinis, non potest attribui ei quod est commune et indistinctum, sed solum ei quod distinguitur. Nulla autem alia distinctionis ratio in divinis invenitur nisi ex eo quod unus generat et alius nascitur et alius procedit. Nun ergo hoc ipsum quod est generare vel nasci vel procedere potest essentiae divinae attribui, quae est communis et omnino indistincta in personis ... Et ideo illa quae significant, vel supponere possunt personam, recipiunt congruentem praedicationem generationis aut processionis, sicut haec nomina *Pater*, *Filius* et *Spiritus sanctus* significant personas determinatas, et hoc nomen *persona* vel *hypostasis*, in communi. Unde convenienter dicitur quod Pater generat Filium, et quod filius nascitur a Patre ... et similiter quod persona generet vel spiret personam ... Hoc autem nomen *Deus*, quia significat

Therefore, it is not appropriate to speak of a “being that begets,” nor is it acceptable when less abstract expressions are used, as in the Nicene Creed, which states “lumen de lumine.”

Thomas Aquinas’s criticism of Joachim of Fiore, therefore, is a criticism of his use of language. The Father is certainly the nature, as is the Son. One must speak of them, however, in different ways.²⁸ When considering this aspect, Thomas’s criticism is not as harsh as it appears, and he alludes to the fact that Joachim can cite the ways in which the Church fathers speak, but he also adds that their way of speaking demands an explanation and should not merely be restated.²⁹ Conversely, Thomas follows Joachim’s own interpretations through the Fourth Lateran and posits that Joachim followed an error of the Arians, and that Jesus’ declaration concerning his own oneness with the Father (John 17:22) should be considered as a “unity only according to the mutual consent of love” (*unitas tantum secundum consensum amoris*).³⁰

5.3 The Arguments Surrounding the Theology of History

An area of study that clearly differentiates itself from Trinitarian theology is the one that was outlined in Joachim of Fiore’s main works: the interpretation of history.

5.3.1 *The Argument Concerning Joachim in the First Mendicant Dispute*

The discussion was ignited after the publication of many of Joachim’s works by the Franciscan Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino under the title *Evangelium aeternum*, which was annotated with glosses and with a *Liber introductorius* from Gerard’s own hand, in Paris in 1254.³¹ The works of Joachim in question

essentiam communem per modum concreti (significat enim habentem Deitatem), potest supponere ex modo suae significationis pro persona; et ideo etiam huiusmodi locutiones convenienter conceduntur: Deus generat Deum, Deus nascitur vel procedit a Deo. Hoc autem nomen *essentia*, et *Divinitas*, et quaecumque in abstracto significantur, non habent ex modo suae significationis neque quod significant neque quod supponant pro persona.”

28 *Contra errores Graecorum* in *Opuscula Theologica*, Part 1, Ch. 4, § 1040, 318f. Cf. *Summa theologiae*, 1, q. 39, a. 5 c.

29 “Huiusmodi locutiones non sunt extendendae, sed exponendae.” See *Summa theologiae* 1, q. 39, a. 5, ad 1. Cf. Mehlmann, “De unitate trinitatis,” 266 ff., 269–71.

30 *Expositio super secundam decretalem*, in *Opuscula Theologica* 1:429, § 1191.

31 He is also known as Gerardino, Gherardo, and Gerardo. See Dieter Berg, “Gerhard von Borgo San Donnino,” in *Lexikon des Mittelalters* (Munich, 1989), 4:1316. According to Heinrich Denifle and Émile Chatelain, *Chartularium Universitatis Parisiensis* (Paris, 1889),

were the *Concordia novi ac veteris testamenti*, the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, and the *Psalterium decem chordarum*. Gerard's arrangement of these writings illustrates that Joachim's three works represent a new Gospel; that is, the *Evangelium aeternum*, which in turns replaces the Old and the New Testament, from which the spirit of life disappeared c.1200.³² Joachim spoke of an angel in Revelation 14:6, to which an *evangelium aeternum* had been given.³³ According to him, this Gospel consisted of a deeper, spiritual understanding of the writings of the Old and New Testament. Gerard, in contrast to Joachim's self-understanding, conceived of Joachim's three main works as precisely this *evangelium aeternum* and regarded Joachim as the angel of Revelation 14:6.³⁴

Gerard's publication led to a fierce backlash from the diocesan clergymen among the professors of the University of Paris, who rallied around William of Saint-Amour (†1272)³⁵ and fought against granting professorial appointments to the members of the mendicant orders at the university.³⁶ This argument was called the "literary poverty and exemption dispute,"³⁷ considered to be the first phase of the Mendicant Controversy, or the First Mendicant Controversy, which reached its peak in the years between 1252 and 1256.³⁸ This argument was about the judgement of the mendicant orders as such, calling into

1:297, note 1, the *Cod. Burghes*, fol. 190 contains the *Concordia* with glosses from Gerard. Gerard's *Liber introductorius* itself is not extant, cf. Ibid. An excerpt can be found in *Protokoll von Anagni*, in Denifle, "Das Evangelium aeternum," 99–102, and Gerard's glosses on 109, 123, 126 ff., 131, and 133. In order to present Gerard's position, one has to follow the statements of his opponents; namely, the protocol from Anagni and the excerpts from the Parisian professors. I will address both. For transmission of the *Evangelium aeternum*, see Bernhard Toepfer, "Eine Handschrift des *Evangelium aeternum* des Gerardino von Borgo San Donnino," *Zeitschrift für Geschichtswissenschaft* 8 (1960), 156–63. As for the question about the author of the *Introductorius*, see Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 70–74.

32 See the portrayal in *Protokoll von Anagni*, in Denifle, "Das Evangelium aeternum," 99 ff. Among the excerpted *Sentences*, compare nrs. 1–7 in Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:272. Cf. Ernst Benz, "Joachim-Studien II. Die Exzerptsätze der Pariser Professoren aus dem *Evangelium aeternum*," *Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte* 51 (1932), 442 ff.

33 Joachim, *Psalterium decem chordarum* (Venice, 1527), fol. 260 ra.

34 Denifle, "Das Evangelium aeternum," 52–66, esp. 62 ff.

35 Johannes K. Schlageter, "Wilhelm von St. Amour," in *Lexikon des Mittelalters* (Munich, 1998), 9:185 ff.

36 Denifle, "Das Evangelium aeternum," 67 ff.; Benz, "Joachim-Studien II," 447–55.

37 Max Bierbaum, *Bettelorden und Weltgeistlichkeit an der Universität Paris. Texte und Untersuchungen zum literarischen Armuts- und Exemptionsstreit des 13. Jahrhunderts (1255–1272)* (Franziskanische Studien) Supplement 2 (Münster, 1920), v, and 241–72.

38 Alexander Gerken, "Bonaventura," in *Lexikon des Mittelalters* (Munich, 1983), 2:402–03. For the development of the argument, see Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 67–70; James

question their ability to engage in scholarly activities. It also had much to do with the diocesan clerical professors' conception of their own role, and with the corporate self-understanding of the university, which wanted to protect itself from outside attacks. Lastly, it concerned papal political strategy: the popes brought the mendicant orders under their special protection and control in order to exert influence over the university. In the heat of this dispute, Gerard of Borgo San Donnino's publication was the incident that confirmed the worst fears of the diocesan clergymen among the professors and served as welcome ammunition against the mendicants.

In that same year, 1254, the circle around William of Saint-Amour compiled thirty-one theses from the *Liber introductorius* and the *Evangelium aeternum*.³⁹ The first seven theses pertain to the *Introductorius* and theses 8–31 to Joachim's *Concordia novi ac veteris testamenti*. However, these theses are by no means direct quotations from Joachim. They appear, in part, to be quotations, but they reformulate passages from Joachim so that they sound objectionable. This effect is achieved partly through glosses and partly through the summary of one of Joachim's tracts. The glosses are ultimately formulated in such a way as to lend historical authenticity to the passages.⁴⁰

William of Saint-Amour claimed that the scandalous views unearthed by these thirty-one theses were the views of all mendicant orders, and he saw in these orders a prefigurement of the dangers of the final days. He then presented these opinions in his *Liber* or *Tractatus brevis de periculis novissimorum temporum* the following year (1255).⁴¹

This conflict led Reginald, Bishop of Paris, to ask the pope for an investigation of Joachim's three works and the *Liber introductorius*. Innocent IV (1243–1254) died shortly after receiving these works. His successor, Alexander IV, set up a

Weisheipl, *Thomas von Aquin: Sein Leben und seine Theologie* (Graz, 1980) [Original: *Friar Thomas d'Aquino: His Life, Thought and Works* (New York, 1974), 81–91].

39 Editions from Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:272–75. Cf. Denifle, "Das Evangelium aeternum," 70–88; and Benz, "Joachim-Studien II," 414–26, with annotations on 426–38.

40 Benz, "Joachim-Studien II," 441 ff. One can find a table of the passages in Joachim's *Concordia* to which the theses and the comments in the *Protokoll von Anagni* refer in Benz, "Joachim-Studien II," 454.

41 This work was printed in William's *Opera Omnia* (Konstanz, 1632). Excerpts were published by Max Bierbaum from this edition. See Bierbaum, *Bettelorden und Weltgeistlichkeit an der Universität Paris*, 1–36. For Bierbaum's remarks on this edition, see 379–83. Prior to this, William's "Liber de antichristo" was published as a denunciation of Gerard and Joachim and can be found in Edmond Martène and Ursin Durand, *Veterum Scriptorum et Monumentorum Historicorum, Dogmaticorum, Moralium, Amplissima Collectio* (Paris, 1733), 9:1273–1446. Cf. Weisheipl, *Thomas von Aquin*, 85.

commission that met in 1255 in Anagni near Rome, hence the reason why the transcript of these meetings is named the *Protokoll von Anagni*.⁴² The commission consisted of three cardinals: Odo, Bishop of Tusculum, Stephan, Bishop of Palestrina (Praeneste), and Hugo, Bishop-Cardinal of St. Sabina, as well as two observers—Bonevaletus, known as “episcopus Panedensis” (or Panidensis), and the Dominican Peter, lector at Anagni. At a meeting on 8 July 1255, Magister Florentius, the Bishop of Acre, appeared and presented the charges against Gerard of Borgo San Donnino and Joachim of Fiore.⁴³

The judgement on the writings of Joachim and the glosses of Gerard on these writings were listed in an investigative report in six *notanda*, which address the following points: 1. the teaching on the three ages (*status*); 2. the coming *ecclesia spiritualis*; 3. the disappearance of the *ordo clericalis*; 4. the two Antichrists and the two judgements (both the second and the Third Age will conclude with an Antichrist and God’s judgement); 5. the letters of the Gospel, the Lord Jesus Christ, the apostles, and the sacraments; and 6. the Trinitarian opinions. In closing, there were also remarks made about different *curiosa, inutilia et inepta* that were found in Joachim’s writings.

Although the commission detected elements of heresy in the writings of Joachim,⁴⁴ only the *Liber introductorius* was condemned by Alexander IV on 23 October 1255 in Anagni, not the writings of Joachim.⁴⁵ In a letter dated 4 November 1255 to Reginald, Bishop of Paris, following this judgement, Pope Alexander also declared that the execution of this doctrinal verdict should be carried out so that it would not discredit the order of the Franciscans

42 The text of this transcript appears in a critical edition by Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 99–142. For the text of this edition translated into German, see Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 210–315. On this transcript, see Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 88 ff.; Mehlmann, “De unitate trinitatis,” 178–86; and Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 77–97.

43 *Protokoll von Anagni*, in Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 102. For more about the three cardinals, see Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 77, notes 289–91.

44 *Protokoll von Anagni*, note 45, in Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 115, on the second *notandum*. Here, the definition that is used to describe Joachim as a heretic also includes someone who does not deviate from the Church’s position if he understands the scripture differently than in the sense of the Holy Spirit.

45 Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:297, note 257. With the *Introductorius*, other papers—*cedulae*—are supposed to be banned. This could mean theses such as the Parisian theses (see *Ibid.*). Benz, “Joachim Studien II,” 453, is misleading here, however, when he says that the *Evangelium aeternum* had been condemned. Denzinger’s remark is also wrong in “Prologue to No. 803–808,” in *Enchiridion symbolorum*, (ed.) Denzinger. Cf. Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:297, note 4.

as a whole.⁴⁶ The original intention of William of Saint-Amour and his circle therefore failed. On 5 October 1256, the *Tractatus brevis de periculis novissimorum temporum*⁴⁷ was even condemned as a result of the constitution *Romanus Pontifex de summi*. Therefore, the papal throne sided with the mendicants, who for their part had strongly resisted William's attack. The text that Thomas Aquinas had written in 1256, entitled *Contra impugnantes Dei cultum et religionem*, is a polemical commentary on William's tract and is considered part of this resistance.⁴⁸

Comparing the writings of William and Thomas, it becomes clear which role Joachim played in their dispute. Joachim is not mentioned by name in the version of William's tract that still exists, but he is mentioned by name in the reply by Thomas, who apparently had another copy of the *Tractatus brevis* at his disposal.⁴⁹ In the eighth chapter, William mentions eight signs that point to the fact that the dangers of the end of time are at hand. First, he says that in the last fifty-five years—that is, from 1200 up to and including the lifetime of Joachim—certain people had endeavored to change the Gospel of Christ into another Gospel that was more complete, better, and more dignified—in essence an “Evangelium Spiritus sancti” or “Evangelium aeternum.” Such a reversal of the true word of God, however, would be a sign of the Antichrist.⁵⁰

46 Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:298, note 258; cf. Benz, “Joachim Studien 11,” 455.

47 Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:331–33, note 288; Denzinger, “No. 840–844,” in *Enchiridion symbolorum*.

48 *Opuscula Omnia*, (ed.) Pierre Mandonnet (Paris, 1927), 4:1–195; *Opuscula theologica*, (ed.) Fr. Raymundi M. Spiazzi (Turin, 1954), 2:5–110. Concerning the genesis of the work, see *Ibid.*, 1–3. Here the composition of this work of Thomas Aquinas is dated to 1256 (cf. 1). This earlier date is given instead of a later date. What speaks in favor of this earlier 1256 date is the fact that after William's tractate was condemned on 5 October 1256, a text as polemical as this one would have been superfluous. On William's tractate as a source for Thomas's writing, see Pâlemon Glorieux, “Le *Contra Impugnantes* de St. Thomas. Ses Sources. Son Plan,” in *Mélange Mandonnet. Études d'Histoire, Littéraire et Doctrinale du Moyen Age* (Bibliothèque Thomiste) 13 (Paris, 1930), 1:51–81. On the discussion about the time and the circumstances of the writing of *Contra impugnantes*, see also Weisheipl, *Thomas von Aquin*, 88–91. Other treatises written in defense of the mendicant orders were the *De perfectione evangelica* of Bonaventure and the work with the incipit *Manus quae contra omnipotentem* by the Franciscan Thomas of York. See Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 69; and Weisheipl, *Thomas von Aquin*, 88.

49 Glorieux, “Le *Contra Impugnantes* de St. Thomas,” 64–68, shows that Thomas had a different version of William's tract at his disposal than the one scholars have today. William claims that he published five improved editions of his writing. See Bierbaum, *Bettelorden und Weltgeistlichkeit*, 381f.

50 Bierbaum, *Bettelorden und Weltgeistlichkeit*, 20ff.

The public recitation of this teaching of the “*Evangelium aeternum*” in Paris in 1254 represents the second sign. William is evidently speaking of the publication of the above-mentioned writings by Gerard of Borgo San Donnino.⁵¹ The seventh sign will appear when the end of the world is approaching and the people who have the greatest religious zeal and appear to be the most fervent followers of Christ turn their backs on the Gospel of Christ and follow the “*Evangelium aeternum*,” which wholly swallows belief in Christ into itself. Jesus said: “If a man love me, he will keep my words” (John 14:23). Now, however, what Jesus said in his sermon on the end times will be fulfilled: “And because iniquity shall abound”—the *Glossa interlinearis* adds “faithlessness”—“the love of many shall wax cold.”⁵² The eighth sign is the proclamation of this very sign that the end is near, as it is announced in Matthew 24:14: “And this gospel of the kingdom shall be preached in all the world for the witnesses unto all nations; and then shall the end come.”

Commenting on these signs of William of Saint-Amour,⁵³ Thomas Aquinas reports in regard to the first sign his opponent’s position that, when reference is made to this “*Evangelium aeternum*,” “a certain ‘*Introductorium*’ is intended, which has been added to the books of Joachim and has been objected to by the Church; or, if not this, then the teachings of Joachim, which have been used, as has been said, to change the Gospel of Christ.” Thomas does not comment on whether this claim by William is true. He only explains that this specific sign is not sufficient to be a sign for the approach of the Antichrist, for Galatians 1:6 already mentions the preaching of another gospel.⁵⁴ He continues: “But it is not true to say that the doctrine of Joachim, or that which is contained in the ‘*Introductorium*,’ however reprehensible it may be, is the doctrine which will be preached by the Antichrist. For the Antichrist will proclaim himself to be God ...” (2 Thess. 2:4).⁵⁵ Syntactically, one might view the phrase “however reprehensible it may be” as a reference to Joachim’s teaching; nevertheless, since Thomas referred only to the judgement against the *Liber*

51 Bierbaum, *Bettelorden und Weltgeistlichkeit*, 21.

52 Bierbaum, *Bettelorden und Weltgeistlichkeit*, 23.

53 *Contra impugnantes*, Chapter 24 in Mandonnet’s edition of the *Opuscula omnia*, while it is Chapter 5 in the Marietti edition of the *Opuscula theologica*, (ed.) Raymundi M. Spiazzi, which I have quoted here with pages and paragraphs.

54 *Contra impugnantes*, 105, § 533: “Quoddam introductorium in libros Ioachim compositum, quod est ab Ecclesia reprobatum: vel ipsa doctrina Ioachim, per quam, ut dicunt, *Evangelium Christi* mutatur.”

55 Thomas presents this in his commentary on the second sign, 105, § 534: “Sed doctrinam Ioachim, vel illius introductorii, quamvis alia reprobanda contineat, esse doctrinam quam praedicabit Antichristus, falsum est. Ipse enim praedicabit se esse Deum ...”

introductionis—written by the unnamed Gerard of Borgo San Donnino—and not to the judgement against the writings of Joachim on 23 October 1255, one must assume that he in fact only considers the former work objectionable. In regard to the seventh sign, Thomas categorically denies that the mendicants are abandoning the Gospel of Christ or that they believe in another gospel. As for the eighth sign, Thomas insists that what is found in Matthew 24:14 is not a sermon about signs, but a sermon about the Christian faith.⁵⁶

For William of Saint-Amour, the teaching of Joachim is an Antichrist-like reversal of the Gospels. Joachim himself began it, and the publication of his work through Gerard is the preliminary high point of the appearance of this Antichrist. Thomas's defense strategy consists of disputing the basis of William's charges (that the signs are in fact unmistakable signs of the end times and the Antichrist) and rejecting the idea that the charges apply to the mendicants. He refers to the ecclesiastical condemnation of Gerard, but he does not say what he thinks about Joachim himself, or about any other interpretation of Joachim's teachings other than Gerard's interpretation.⁵⁷

5.3.2 *The Council of Arles*

Before exploring the disputations that Thomas carried out with the Joachimist theses in other writings, I will pursue another direction further: namely, what proceeded from the hearings in Anagni in 1255. A few years later we meet one of the former participants, Magister Florentinus, who had been one of the prosecutors of Joachim. In the meantime, he had moved from the bishop's headquarters in Akko (in Palestine) to the bishop's quarters in Arles and had

56 *Contra impugnantes*, 106ff., §§ 540 ff.

57 Ernst Benz claims that Thomas would also take aim at the Joachites when targeting William. See Ernst Benz, "Joachim-Studien III. Thomas von Aquin und Joachim von Fiore. Die katholische Antwort auf die spiritualistische Kirchen- und Geschichtsauffassung," *Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte* 53 (1934), 76 ff. This view, however, is not supported by the text. To be sure, in the most important of Thomas's disputes with the Joachites, in *Summa theologiae* I–II, q. 106, a. 4, ad 4, he is concerned with the meaning of Matt. 24:14, but the interpretation that Thomas overturns there is not the same as William's interpretation. William is concerned with the signs of the last days, and he understands the sermon of the Gospel as a sermon about the signs of the last days. The Joachites, however, are concerned with the beginning of the Third Age, and the "Evangelium regni," which will then be preached, will be understood by them as something clearly different—according to Thomas—than the "Evangelium Christi." This article by Benz is reprinted in Delno C. West, (ed.), *Joachim of Fiore in Christian Thought: Essays on the Influence of the Calabrian Prophet* (New York, 1975), 2:388–451, without the original pagination indicated.

called a diocesan synod there. This did not occur before the year 1263.⁵⁸ The *Praefatio* of the text that this council adopted contained harsh criticism of Joachim's theology of history, and in Canon I the "Joachitica doctrina" were condemned.⁵⁹

The main point of attack was the idea that the Holy Spirit would replace the activity of God the Son, just as the Son had replaced the activity of the Father. This was supposed to happen in 1260. This teaching would supposedly render null and void the salvation brought through Jesus Christ and bring the end of the sacraments of the Church. Florentinus explained that the poisoned teaching that sprung from this idea—and which, as the teaching of the Gospel of the Holy Spirit, was spreading—had recently been condemned by the Holy See, and he, Florentinus, had helped to bring this about. He then based his case on the condemnation of 23 October 1255 and on the trial in Anagni. Nevertheless, the real root of this plague—the "books of the concordances and other Joachite books" (*libri Concordantiarum, et alii libri Joachitici*)—had not yet been crushed and damned.⁶⁰ These texts would continue to have a negative effect on the various orders of monks in secret, so condemnation was needed to prevent this cancer from spreading among the educated.

5.4 The Disputes of Thomas Aquinas with the Joachimist Theology of History

Thomas's first biographer, Guglielmo Tocco, lists four heresies that Thomas refuted. The first heresy is from Averroës. The second heresy is from William of Saint-Amour, Siger of Brabant, and their followers, and it consists of an unfounded criticism of the mendicant orders and their scholarly activities. The third heresy is "the error of the new spirit of freedom and of the Third Age of the world" (*error noui spiritus liberatis et tertii status mundi*). Lastly, he

58 Denifle, "Das Evangelium aeternum," 90, justifies this (contrary to the reference in the following footnote to Mansi) by saying that the council took place in 1260. Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 186ff., note 18, gives the date of the Council as 1263.

59 Ioannes Dominicus Mansi, *Sacrorum Conciliorum nova, et amplissima Collectio ... quae Ioannes Dominicus Mansi ... evulgavit* (Venice, 1778; Paris, 1903; Graz, 1961), 23: cols. 1001–1004. There is more literature about the council in Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 186 ff., note 18. Cf. also Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 104–06.

60 Mansi, *Sacrorum Conciliorum nova, et amplissima Collectio*, 23: col. 1003 E. Although Joachim is not mentioned, one must contradict Mehlmann, "De unitate trinitatis," 188, who thinks that *not* all of Joachim's writings were condemned. Whether this condemnation had an effect on Joachim—Mehlmann thinks it did not—must be decided elsewhere.

names the errors of the schismatic Greeks as the fourth heresy.⁶¹ The followers and, at the same time, creators of the third heresy—in which a new entity emerges from an old one—called themselves, according to Tocco, the “little brothers of the poor life.”⁶² They preached that there were two churches: the Church of those who were carnal (of the flesh) under the Roman Pope and the prelates, who ought to be rejected, and the Church of the spiritual ones. The carnal Church must convert itself into this spiritual Church through the dawn of a new Third Age (*status*), to which a testament of the Spirit (*testamentum spiritus*) belongs, which no longer has Christ as its witness. Thomas fought this heresy in many places in his writings and showed that no Third Age of the world would follow after the Gospel of Christ, which allows every person of faith to enter the heavenly kingdom. The present age, the age of grace, would remain until the end of the world as preparation for the glory to come. Because these heresies originated in Joachim of Fiore’s words, which acted as tinder (*formentum*)⁶³ for this teaching, Thomas willingly accepted this book by the abbot and read the entire work from beginning to end. He found the ideas therein confusing and suspicious, and he marked these passages and condemned them: “He prohibited to read and believe everything that he had crossed out with his own learned hand” (*totum legi et credi prohibuit quod ipse sua manu docta cassauit*).

In hindsight, this report shows which of the teaching conflicts in which Thomas Aquinas took part proved to be substantial. It also illustrates the continuity from the “little brothers of the poor life” to the Spirituals of the 14th century. Joachim of Fiore was not seen as the author of this heresy, but rather as the one who had provided the “kindling” for it. His work and his teachings as a whole were not condemnable, as Florentius explained, but certain passages from it were and must be specifically highlighted. In the first mendicant dispute, Thomas had remained largely silent regarding his own judgement about Joachim—he had merely distinguished between the teachings of Joachim and the common concerns of the mendicant orders, and between the teachings of Joachim and those of the Antichrist. But if this report is properly considered,

61 “La ‘Hystoria beati Thomae de Aquino’ di Guglielmo di Tocco,” in *S. Thomae Aquinatis Vitae Fontes Praecipuae*, (ed.) Angelico Ferrua (Alba, 1968), ch. 21, 62. See *Ystoria sancti thome de Aquino de Guillaume de Tocco* (1323), critical edition with introduction and notes by Claire Le Brun-Gouanvic (Pontifical Institute of Medieval Studies: Studies and Texts) 127 (Toronto, 1996), 140–42. I am quoting from this edition. Weisheipl, *Thomas von Aquin*, 13, calls Guglielmo of Tocco’s biography one of the most reliable sources.

62 “Fraterculus de uita pauper.” See *Ystoria sancti thome de Aquino*, (ed.) Le Brun-Gouanvic, 141, lines 5 ff.

63 *Ystoria sancti thome de Aquino*, (ed.) Le Brun-Gouanvic, 142, line 39.

one can see that he had directly disputed with Joachim—even though it may remain unclear what “the book of the abbot” (*librum ... abbatis*) means—and partially criticized Joachim directly. Here it should be noted that this conflict dealt primarily with Joachim’s theology of history.⁶⁴

In his *Commentary on the Sentences* written between 1254 and 1256, precisely during the time of the first mendicant dispute, Thomas takes up the method of the prophecy of future events in salvation history. He disputes concerning the time of the general resurrection of the dead and formulates this thesis (to be examined): “It seems that this time is not concealed” (*Videtur quod tempus illud non sit occultus*).⁶⁵ The third argument in the affirmative—namely, that the time of the general resurrection is knowable—reads: “The status of the New Testament was prefigured in the Old Testament” (*status novi testamenti praefiguratus fuit in veteri testament*). The time during which the Old Covenant took place is definitively known, and thus we also know the full time of the New Covenant. The New Covenant will last until the end of the world; hence, one can know the end of the world and the time of the resurrection.⁶⁶

In his response, Thomas confirms the premises of this conclusion, but at the same time limits the extent of its application: it is not necessarily the case that each particular event in the New Covenant corresponds to a particular event in the Old Covenant. The main correspondence comes about as long as all of the figures of the Old Covenant are fulfilled in Christ.⁶⁷ As an example of a similar debate, Thomas refers to Augustine, who argued that one cannot assume,

64 Franz Hippler, in *Die christliche Geschichts-Auffassung* (Cologne, 1884), 52 ff., claims, albeit without proof, that Thomas had become acquainted with the work of Joachim in Italy already in 1250. This thesis was adopted by Joseph Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie des heiligen Bonaventura* (Munich-Zurich, 1959), 118, note 34; and Max Seckler, *Das Heil in der Geschichte. Geschichtstheologisches Denken bei Thomas von Aquin* (Munich, 1964), 192, note 28. Guglielmo Tocco provides us with no indication of the time at which Aquinas became acquainted with Joachim’s writings. According to the timeline in *Opuscula Theologica*, vol.1, no. 9, Thomas was in Cologne from 1248–1252.

65 In the edition S. Thomae Aquinatis, *Opera Omnia*, (ed.) Robert Busa (Stuttgart-Bad Cannstatt, 1980), 1:631, we are dealing with, according to the numbering, 004 4SN dist. 43 quaest. 1 art. 3b. In the edition *Divi Thomae Aquinatis Opera Omnia*, (eds.) Fretté and Maré (Paris, 1874), 11:280, it is in IV *Sentences*, dist. 43, q. 1, a. 3, quaestiuicula 11.

66 *Opera Omnia*, (ed.) Busa, 1:631, art. 3; (eds.) Fretté and Maré, 11:281, quaestiuicula 11, 3.

67 Contrary to what Bernard McGinn argues (“The Abbot and the Doctors,” 40, note 60), the question whether there are four senses of Scripture—that is, an allegorical sense in addition to the historical sense—does not touch upon the figurative exegesis of Joachim, which Thomas disputes here, cf. *Quaestiones quodlibetales* VII, q. 6, a. 1 (in the old enumeration a. 15), ad 1, in the edition (ed.) Raymundi M. Spiazzi, 8th ed. (Turin-Rome, 1949), 147.

given the number of the Egyptian plagues, that there will be an equal number of persecutions of the Church. Moreover, Augustine added, such a prediction would be based not in a prophetic spirit, but rather in human assumptions (“coniectura mentis humanae”). Thomas explains that it also seems to be the case with the aphorisms of the Abbot Joachim, who predicted a few true things through those assumptions, but who was also wrong in other cases.⁶⁸

The following aspects of this answer can tell us something about Thomas's position in regards to Joachim: 1. He does not talk about a third *status* (or age) to come, or the fact that one might deduce events in a third *status* from the time of events of a second *status*. 2. Referring to Augustine, Thomas denies that Joachim made his temporal predictions in a prophetic spirit. That is an affront against the Florentian order's liturgical praise of Joachim as “the blessed Joachim, endowed with the prophetic spirit” (*beatus Joachim, spiritu dotatus propheticus*).⁶⁹ 3. Joachim was partly correct and partly incorrect. Here, Thomas does not comment on the fierce debate surrounding the Third Age. His position is first and foremost a sober one. Joachim is neither a prophet who has emerged from the Holy Spirit, nor is he a prophet of the Antichrist.⁷⁰

Aside from the evidentiary value of foretelling the future through prefiguration, Thomas dismissed the idea that one could know when the world would end. He explains this in the *Quaestiones disputatae de veritate*, q. 5, a. 6, which appeared between 1265 and 1267. This is not specifically an anti-Joachimist position since William of Saint-Amour also claimed to know when the world would end. Thomas, however, does not want to take the position that the end of the world is unimportant. Instead, he adopts a modern expression and an existential position: one should act if the world is, in principle, already ending. Vigilance is always necessary. When one person claims to know that Christ will return at a time far in the future, but another claims that it will be soon, then the latter is more dangerous because he can raise doubts in people if this does

68 “... Et similiter videtur esse de dictis Abbatis Joachim, qui per tales conjecturas de futuris aliqua vera praedixit, et in aliquibus deceptus fuit.” See edition (ed.) Busa, 632, resp. ad 3, edition (eds.) Fretté and Maré, 11:283 ff., in IV *Sentences*, dist. 43, q. 1, a. 3, solutio II, ad 3. The passage in Augustine is *De Civitate Dei* XVIII, cap. 52.

69 See footnote 16 above. For the evaluation of the notion of prophecy in scholasticism, see Marianne Schlosser, *Lucerna in caliginoso loco. Aspekte des Prophetie-Begriffes in der scholastischen Theologie* (Veröffentlichungen des Grabmann-Institutes) n.F. 43 (Paderborn, 2000).

70 Thomas also does not mention where Joachim was mistaken (e.g., on the question about the third *status*) and where he was not. McGinn believes that Thomas definitely did not object to anything and that Joachim foresaw the Dominican order. See McGinn, “The Abbot and the Doctors,” 28, note 47 ff., cross-referenced at 35, note 30.

not come to pass. In one section, but without saying it directly, Thomas finds common ground with Joachim (*ad nonum*): the declarations in 1 Corinthians 7:29, for example, should not be applied to the duration of time so as to divide the world into eras. After the new era of the Gospel's law, there is no other era leading to perfection as, for example, is the case in the way that the New Covenant followed the law of the Old Covenant, or as the Old Covenant perfected the law of nature.⁷¹

Shortly thereafter, this thesis was developed more extensively in the *Prima secundae* of the *Summa Theologica*, q. 106, a. 4, which is Thomas's most important examination of Joachimism.⁷² It is important to keep in mind that Thomas never mentions the name "Joachim" here, nor does he use "Joachite" as an expression. He therefore leaves it unclear whether his position here is directed against Joachim, and he does not specify to which texts he is referring.⁷³ The opposing view against which Thomas argues will thus be referred to as the "Joachimist" position.

Questions 106–109 in this part of the *Summa* address the "new law," which are followed by questions about grace. Question 106 examines the "evangelical law" (*lex evangelica*), as the "new law" is also named. Article 1 inquires whether

71 In the edition *Quaestiones disputatae*, vol. 2, (eds.) P. Bazzi et al., *De potentia*, (ed.) Paul Pession (Turin-Rome, 1965), 145–47: "... non tam sunt ad quantitatem temporis referenda quam ad status mundi dispositionem. Non enim legi evangelicae alius status succedit, quae ad perfectum adduxit; sicut ipsa successit legi veteri, et lex vetus legi naturae."

72 According to the table in Thomae Aquinatis, *Opuscula Theologica*, i:ix.

73 Passages in the excerpts from the professors in Paris and in the "Protocol from Anagni," which agree with the four arguments of Aquinas about a Third Age, and passages from Joachim and in the "Liber introductorius" are listed in Benz, "Joachim-Studien III," 59–74, 92–94, 101–04, 109, and in the edition of the *Summa theologica* I and I–II, (ed.) Petrus Caramello (Turin-Rome, 1953), 515, notes 1–4. In the following footnotes, the passages will be listed in which these details can be identified. Benz, "Joachim-Studien III," 56 ff., maintains that Thomas referred back to earlier doctrinal decisions, and lists the excerpts from Paris (which are not doctrinal decisions) and the protocol from Anagni, which was a precursor to a doctrinal decision (the judgement of 23 October 1255), which was only directed against the "Introductorius" but not against the writings of Joachim. Thomas perhaps used these documents, but he refers to none of them. He does not even refer back to his own article, "Contra impugnantes," as Benz claims (pp. 57 ff.). There, he only disputes the structurally different position of William of Saint-Amour. Any future work on the subject of "Thomas and Joachim" must research the extent to which the four Joachimist arguments that Thomas presents are representative of Joachim's thought. Additionally, one should also examine the extent to which they are representative of the Joachim selections, which were used in the Protocol of Anagni and the Parisian excerpts, as well as the extent to which these are representative of Joachim's thought.

it is a written law, Article 2 whether it justifies the person, Article 3 whether it is a law that has always existed since the beginning of the world, and Article 4, in parallel with Article 3, reflects on whether this law will persist until the end of the world.⁷⁴

As a counterargument, Thomas notes the following:

1 Corinthians 13:9 refers to the new law. It is a patchwork, and will fade when all is made perfect.⁷⁵

The realization of the prophecy of John 16:13—the cognition of “all truth”—has not been achieved yet. Thus, a *status* other than the new *status* is expected for it to fulfill itself.⁷⁶

Each person of the Trinity represents a specific age of mankind. The Father is associated with the *status* of the old law, according to which man was keen on multiplying (“intendebant generationi”); the Son is associated with the *status* of the new law in which the clerics rule, and their focus is on wisdom that is passed on to the Son; hence, there is a third *status*, the *status* of the Holy Ghost, in which spiritual men (*spirituales viri*) will rule.⁷⁷

74 The structure of an article in the *Summa theologica* is explained after the “Introduction” to the German edition of Thomas Aquinas, in vol. 14 (Heidelberg-Graz, 1955), 14. The thesis disputed here can be found in the Paris excerpts, no. 3, see: Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:272: “... quod novum Testamentum est evacuandum, sicut vetus est evacuatum.” Cf. excerpt *Sentences* nos. 4, 6, 11, 17, 30.

75 Cf. passages in Joachim's writings dealing with 1 Cor. 13:9. See *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*, (ed.) Ernesto Bonaiuti (Fonti per la Storia d'Italia) 67 (Rome, 1930), tract. 1, 71, 12–17; tract. 2, 292, 5–8. In the protocol from Anagni, in Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 108 ff., cited from *Concordia* v, dist. 1, pars 5, cap. 6; in Gerardo's lost “Liber introductorius,” cap. 10, in the report on the protocol from Anagni, in Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 100 ff.

76 Compare the reference to John 16:13 by Joachim, *Psalterium decem cordarum* 11, cap. 19, cited in the protocol from Anagni, in Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 127, as well as in relation to 1 Cor. 13:9, *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*, (ed.) Bonaiuti, tract. 2, 292, 5–8.

77 This thought is found in Joachim's *Concordia* 11, cap. 5 (cited in the protocol from Anagni, in Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 103); v, dist. 1, pars. 3, cap. 2b (Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 104), as well as v, dist. 1, pars. 1, cap. 6 (Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 108); 11, cap. 8, (Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 127), as well as the Parisian excerpt *Sentences*, no. 22 in Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:274, with a reference to *Concordia* IV, tract 2, and no. 26, with a reference to *Concordia* v, the tract: “De septem diebus,” and finally *Liber figurarum*, in Leone Tondelli, (ed.), *Il libro delle figure*, vol. 2: Testo e XXIII Tavole (Turin, 1953), tavola XIX, cf. vol. 1: Introduzione e commento

In Matthew 24:14, Jesus says that the fulfillment—and thus his return—will come when the Gospel of the kingdom (*Evangelium regni*) is preached all across the world. But even though the Gospel of Christ is preached all across the world, he has still not returned; therefore, the Gospel of the kingdom is yet to come. Thus, the latter is not identical with the Gospel of Christ; it is the Gospel of the Holy Spirit (*Evangelium Spiritu Sancti*), and thus also a different law than the new law (*nova lex*).⁷⁸

For the “Sed Contra,” Thomas refers to the same end-of-time speech of Jesus (Matt. 24:34). The “generation” (*generatio*) that will not pass away before everything is fulfilled, as Jesus says in this sermon, is the generation of those who believe in Christ, according to John Chrysostom.⁷⁹

In *corpus articuli*, Thomas decides the question with a written argument. Hebrews 10:19, 10:20a, and 10:22a speak of the confidence (*fiducia*) that Christians have about entering heaven and that summons them to seek Christ. This confidence is linked to the blood of Christ, which opened a new path for us.⁸⁰ Thomas concludes that the new law, which corresponds to this new path, leads one closer to the goal than anything else. As a result, a *status* of the current life cannot be more complete than that of the new law. Thomas distinguishes between a human status (*status hominum*), a status of present life (*status praesentis vitae*), and a status of the world (*status mundi*). The former refers to the way that humans adhere to one and the same law. When one contemplates the status of the new law (*status novae legis*) under the aspect of this human status, then many changes will befall him concerning times, places, and persons, according to how much more perfectly one has grace from the Holy Spirit as compared to others. However, one cannot expect a future *status mundi* because one can receive the grace of the Holy Spirit more completely than one

(Turin, 1940), 153–62. Also *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*, tract. 1, in *Codex Patavinensis* 322, fol. 96 A 2 (edition (ed.) Bonaiuti, 84 ff.).

78 The distinction between “Evangelium Christi” and “Evangelium regni” can be found in the Parisian excerpt *Sentences* no. 2, see Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:272, as well as in the protocol from Anagni, in Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 111, with a quotation from Joachim, *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*, (ed.) Bonaiuti, tract. 1, 86 ff.

79 Johannes Chrysostomus, “Homilia in Matthaeum 24:32” 77 (according to an alternate numbering, it is 78.1), PG 58, 702 B. For this reference, see Thomas-Albert Deman, *Der Neue Bund und die Gnade (Summa theologica I–II, 106–114)* (Die Deutsche Thomas-Ausgabe) 14 (Heidelberg-Graz, 1955), 247, note 9.

80 Thomas quotes with omissions and slight paraphrasing at the end: “Habentes itaque, fratres, fiduciam in introitu sanctorum in sanguine Christi, quam iniciavit nobis viam novam ... accedamus ad eum.” See *Summa theologica* I–II, q. 106, a. 4, c.

has received it up to that point, especially the apostle who has received the first fruits of the Holy Spirit (Rom. 8:23).⁸¹ According to the gloss (the “glossa interlinearis” and the Lombardian gloss⁸²), the apostles possessed the Holy Spirit earlier and more completely than the others.

During the era of the apostles, the Holy Spirit was dispensed widely. One can infer from Thomas’s writings that this abundance could be attained again in the future. Using Thomas’s line of reasoning, this would happen after humans distanced themselves from this abundance. Then, a *reformatio* would begin in which the Church would return to the principles of the early Church.

This would only be a *reformatio* in the proper sense, meaning recapturing what was there earlier, not exceeding what was already there—especially not exceeding it qualitatively, so that one would have to speak of a new *status* of the world.⁸³ The human *status* (*status hominum*) is precisely the relationship that people are able to assume towards the given status of the world (*status mundi*), and this relationship is, meanwhile, that of the new law.

In his replies, Thomas responds to the first argument that “that which is perfect” in 1 Corinthians 13:10 resides in the “patria,” which one enters only after this life. According to Dionysius Areopagita,⁸⁴ there are three *status* altogether. The third, however, is the patria, so in the present life there are only two *status*; namely, that of the old law (*status veteris legis*) and the new law (*status novae legis*).

Thomas replies to the second argument—that the promise of John 16:13 had not yet been fulfilled—with the proclamation of John 7:39, which states that the Holy Spirit will be given as soon as the glorification of Christ through the resurrection and the ascension is achieved. He maintains that this pouring out

81 “Non est tamen expectandum quod sit aliquis status futurus in quo perfectius gratia Spiritus Sancti habeatur quam hactenus habita fuerit, maxime ab Apostolis, qui ‘primicias Spiritus’ acceperunt, id est, et ‘tempore prius et ceteris abundantius’ ...” See *Summa theologiae* 1–11, q. 106, a. 4, c. With this quote, Thomas rejects the opposing argument in the Paris *Sentences*, no. 21, from Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:274. Cf. *Sentences*, no. 28 (*Chartularium*, 275).

82 PL 191, 1444 D.

83 With this, Thomas places himself in a direct line with medieval thought, which regarded the *ecclesia apostolica* as the point of orientation and return. In this regard, see Arnold Angenendt, *Geschichte der Religiosität im Mittelalter* (Darmstadt, 1997), 223–26, here 213–26.

84 Dionysius Areopagita, *De ecclesiastica hierarchia*, cap. 5.2, PG 3, 501; *Corpus Dionysiacum*, (eds.) Günther Heil and Adolf Martin Ritter (Patristische Texte und Studien) 36 (Berlin-New York, 1991), 2:105 ff. Regarding this citation by Aquinas, see Deman, *Der Neue Bund und die Gnade*, 247 ff., note 10.

of the Holy Spirit took place on Pentecost, as is reported in the Acts of the Apostles. Thomas declares that the expectation of an age of the Holy Spirit is in vain and compares it to the heresies criticized by Augustine—those of Montanus, Priscilla, and Mani—whose adherents claimed that the pouring out of the Spirit had been accomplished only with the help of the propagators of these heresies.⁸⁵ Thomas also specifies what one should understand by the knowledge of the truth to which the Holy Spirit leads. What is meant by this knowledge of the truth is all truths necessary for salvation, what is to be believed, and what is to be done, and not all future events. This delimitation is shown through Acts 1:7 where it is written “It is not for you to know the times or the seasons, which the Father hath put in his own power” (*Non est vestrum nosse tempora vel momenta, quae Pater posuit in sua potestate*).

In his refutation of the third argument, Thomas unfolds the relation between the law and *status*, respectively, and the persons of the Trinity. The old law was the law of the Son, not only the law of the Father because Christ was prefigured in the old law (John 5:46). Similarly, the new law is not only the law of Christ, but also the law of the Holy Spirit (Rom. 8:2).⁸⁶

85 Augustinus, *Contra Faustum* 32, cap. 17 ff., PL 42, 507 ff. / CSEL 25/I, 777–80; *De Haeresibus*, cap. 26, PL 42, 30B; cap. 46, PL 42, 38 A.

86 There seems to be a connection between the Trinitarian and the historical-theological circle of thought. Since Joachim had rejected a real unity of the three persons of the Trinity, according to the Fourth Lateran Council, he could only assign each age to an individual person. It is thus very logical that the presence of a third person within the Trinity would require a Third Age. Paul Zahner argues along these lines in *Die Fülle des Heils*, 93 ff.; cf. McGinn, “The Abbot and the Doctors,” 32, note 11; Winfried H.J. Schachten, *Ordo Salutis. Das Gesetz als Weise der Heilungsvermittlung. Zur Kritik des hl. Joachim von Fiore* (Beiträge zur Geschichte der Philosophie und Theologie des Mittelalters) 20 (Münster, 1980), 163–66. This ignores, however, what Zahner himself refers to in *Die Fülle des Heils*, 80, note 306: Joachim himself is of the opinion that each person within the Trinity works with the others. In this sense, the three ages are *merely* assigned to each person within the Trinity. This opinion is also maintained based on Joachim’s perspective on Trinitarian theology. See the references in the protocol from Anagni, in Denifle, “Das Evangelicum aeternum,” 104 ff., to Joachim, *Concordia* 11, cap. 7, and also *Enchiridion sive Introductorium super Apocalypsim*. Furthermore, the figure in Joachim’s *Liber figurarum* must be considered. It shows three rings that are lined up one behind the other, but each one overlaps with the other two. They represent the Father, the Son, and the Holy Spirit. At the same time, the left half of the figure is assigned to the “vetus testamentum,” while the right half is assigned to the “novum testamentum.” Consequently, there is no “testamentum” that would replace the “novum testamentum,” and through it runs the ring of the Father as well as the ring of the Holy Spirit. See *Liber figurarum*, vol. 2, tavola XI. On this point, see Jürgen Moltmann, “Christliche Hoffnung: Messianisch oder transzendent? Ein theologisches Gespräch mit Joachim von Fiore und Thomas von Aquin,” in *In der Geschichte des dreieinigen Gottes*.

Concerning the fourth argument and the interpretation of Matthew 24:14, Thomas argues that when Christ declares at the beginning of his preaching of the Gospel that “the kingdom of heaven is at hand,” (Matt. 4:7), it would be very foolish to conclude that the Gospel of Christ is not the *Evangelium regni*. Nevertheless, there are two interpretations for the “preaching of the Gospel.” First, it can be understood as the spreading of the knowledge of Christ. In this case, according to Chrysostom, the preaching of the Gospel originally took place across the whole world at the time of the Apostles. Thus, the “consummation” is the destruction of Jerusalem. On the other hand, the preaching of the Gospel might refer to its successful completion, which would manifest itself in the foundation of a church among every people. If this is the case, then (as Augustine points out) the worldwide preaching of the Gospel has not yet been accomplished. But if it does occur, the “consummation” will be achieved, heralding the end of the world.⁸⁷

One must not, therefore, confuse the two possible meanings of “*praedicatio Evangelii*,” which is how Thomas should be interpreted. The Joachimites take the first meaning and find a time period between the spread of the Gospel and the end of the world, which must be filled by the Third Age with its own gospel. When one keeps both meanings separate, the “spread of the gospel” throughout the whole world is followed by the “consummation.” There remains no interval for a third *status*. The full effect of the Gospel has not yet been realized, but its advent will not happen in a new era that is characterized by a new gospel. Instead, it will be characterized by the completion of the current Gospel.⁸⁸

Ernst Benz refers to *Summa Theologica* I–II, q. 106, a. 4 as a “classical dogmatic account” of “Joachitism” from an ecclesiastical, Roman Catholic point of view.⁸⁹ He connects the question of salvation history with the question of the Church

Beiträge zur trinitarischen Theologie (Munich, 1991), 131–55, esp. 146 ff. and 150. This essay was first published in *Münchener theologische Zeitschrift* 3 (1982), 241–60. See also Marjorie Reeves, “Joachimist Christology and Progressive Revelation,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III. Atti del 5° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (16–21 September 1999), (ed.) Roberto Rusconi (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 13 (Rome, 2001), 315–26.

87 Johannes Chrysostomus, “Homilia 75,” in *Matthaeum* 2, PG 58, 688ff.; Augustinus, *Epistola ad Hesychium*, Epistola 199, 12, PL 33, 922–924 / CSEL 57, 287. For this reference, see Deman, *Der Neue Bund und die Gnade*, 248, note 11.

88 Thomas gives a more detailed account of Matthew 24:14 in his commentary on Matthew, “In Matthaeum Evangelistam Expositio,” which he wrote between 1256 and 1259. *Opera*, (eds.) Freté and Maré (Paris, 1876), 19: 572 ff. Cf. 582 ff., commenting on Matthew 24:34–36.

89 Benz, “Joachim-Studien III,” 52.

... because the Church is, at the same time, the bearer and agent of the new law, inasmuch as the new law is its divine and legal foundation and organizing principle ... The question of the character of the new law, then, is the question of the nature of the task of the Church within salvation history, and the question of justification by the law becomes the question of the historical meaning and power of the Church in creating the kingdom of heaven. The question of how long the law will be in effect becomes the question of the historical authority of the Church ...⁹⁰

Benz then concludes that

... the indefeasible teachings of the Church for the mode of life removes any chance for the reformation of or the threat to the law by a new onslaught of the Spirit. The spiritual is irrevocably determined, that is, it has complete dominion ... This law ... mocks the highly charged expectation of divine fulfillment and the end of the world because it is itself the meaning of divine fulfillment and the end of the world for the current time ... By focusing on its beginning, in which all of its norms are viewed with divine authority, the Church forgets to look to the end and becomes accustomed to completing its tasks using the past as an example instead of gauging its concrete historical tasks using the auspicious image of its ultimate ending ... A Church that allows the pneuma to be completely contained within the law must classify all spiritual impulses that do not comply with the law as heresy ... And it must expel all who, in the expectation of the end of the world, take it upon themselves to make the proclamation of the Gospel and the spread of Christianity more intense, without compromise and more spiritual ...⁹¹

Taking into account this passionate philippic, the conclusion Benz draws must also be examined. Does this article in the *Summa*, in which the duration of the new law is disputed, at its core only address the duration of the authority of the Church the way Benz characterizes it? Indeed, there is a connection between the disparate statements Thomas makes in his work. In the third section of the *Summa*, he speaks of the sacraments and assigns them to the new law as necessary for salvation and as the main agents leading to Christ's mercy.⁹² Thomas is also responsible for the statement that it is "necessary for salvation to submit to the Roman bishop" (*quod subesse romano pontifici sit*

90 Benz, "Joachim-Studien III," 55.

91 Benz, "Joachim-Studien III," 115f.

92 *Summa theologiae* III, q. 62, a. 1 c, in the context of q. 61, a. 1 and a. 4.

de necessitate salutis).⁹³ If one contemplates Thomas's accomplishments concerning the length of the *nova lex* from a political point of view, then one must also consider the possibility that Thomas had the sacraments' validity and the claim to power of the papacy in his sights. Conversely, they can also be recognized in their immediate context as theological reflections. Taking this viewpoint, one can see that Thomas was first and foremost addressing the relationship between the "new law" and the Holy Ghost.

Finally, turning to the first article from the *Quaestio*, Thomas explains: "Now that which is preponderant in the law of the New Testament, and on which all its efficacy is based, is the grace of the Holy Ghost, which is given through faith in Christ."⁹⁴ The Holy Ghost's mercy, which comes from within, is also made righteous by the new law.⁹⁵ In q. 107, the new law is further characterized through a comparison with the old law. The difference lies in the fact that the new law comes closer to the *patria* of eschatological perfection than the old law.⁹⁶ It is in essence a law of faith differentiated from acts. There is indeed an action involved, but this concerns morality and the sacraments and is not as important as the question of faith.⁹⁷

If one follows these guidelines, the definition of *lex*, which Thomas outlines in a different section, is for all intents and purposes surpassed. That is, the law is "a rule and measure of acts, whereby man is induced to act or is restrained from acting."⁹⁸ As a result, q. 106, a. 4 should be considered even less as the character of "law" which Benz had in mind.

93 *Contra errores graecorum*, Pars Altera, cap. 36, in *Opuscula Theologica*, 1:344, § 1125. This was taken as the concluding statement of Boniface VIII's bull, which was presumably composed by Cardinal Matthew of Acquasparta, O.F.M., "Unam sanctam," in 1302. See Denzinger, *Enchiridion symbolorum definitionum et declarationum de rebus fidei et morum*, 387, no. 875. Cf. the introduction, 384f., where Thomas's place in the Marietti edition is listed incorrectly. In this passage, Thomas also develops his teaching on the papacy from the analogy to the teaching that the Holy Spirit also comes from the Son, "filioque." See 340 ff., § 1118.

94 "Id autem quod potissimum in lege novi testamenti, et in quo tota virtus ejus consistit, est gratia Spiritus Sancti, quae datur per fidem Christi." See *Summa theologiae* 1–11, q. 106, a. 1 c. Translation from <http://www.logicmuseum.com/authors/aquinas/summa/Summa-IIa-106-108.htm>. Accessed 13 November 2014.

95 *Summa theologiae* 1–11, q. 106, a. 2 c.

96 *Summa theologiae* 1–11, q. 107, a. 1 c.

97 *Summa theologiae* 1–11, q. 106, a. 2, ad 3.

98 "Lex quaedam regula est et mensura actuum, secundum quam inducitur aliquis ad agendum ..." See *Summa theologiae* 1–11, q. 90, a. 1 c. Translation from <http://www.newadvent.org/summa/2090.htm>. Accessed 26 June 2015. Cf. Deman, "Introduction," in *Der Neue Bund und die Gnade*, 10f. For further information, see Deman, *Der Neue Bund und die*

The memory of the time at the beginning does not have to be a shackle, but instead can lead to something new—namely, a *reformatio* that would seek to achieve the spirit of the apostolic age. In Aquinian terms, it is the “the task of announcing the gospel and spreading Christianity more spiritually, earnestly, and passionately and without compromise,” if one takes the comparison seriously. One remains in the same category, within which one attempts enhancement. One can assume that this is exactly what concerned Thomas as a follower of the mendicant order, which he also defended against the proponents of the old structure in *Contra impugnantes*. This category is given in the New Testament and is not replaced by a new category. If this concern was for the most part the same concern as in Joachimism, then it can be said that Thomas Aquinas wished to integrate Joachimism into the existing Church and thus modify it. The place where he stops short is in the section about a new, written gospel according to Gerard of Borgo San Donnino,⁹⁹ a passage in which he clearly rejects a new *status* characterized by the dissolution of the current offices and sacraments.

Another aspect of the difference between the two laws, albeit with less emphasis, is when the strict classification of the salvific history is overcome. Thomas explains that many people in the old *status* had the love and mercy of the Holy Ghost and thus already belonged to the new law. Conversely, people of the New Testament who have not received the mercy of the Holy Ghost do not belong to the new law.¹⁰⁰ The date of the incarnation also does not determine when mankind will be saved because salvation through faith exists in the past, present, and future.¹⁰¹ The time of the incarnation is part

Gnade, 287–441; Ulrich Kühn, *Via caritatis. Theologie des Gesetzes bei Thomas von Aquin* (Kirche und Konfession) 9 (Göttingen, 1965); Herbert Grundmann, “Lex und Sacramentum bei Joachim von Fiore,” in *Lex und sacramentum im Mittelalter*, (ed.) Paul Wilpert (Miscellanea Medaevalea) 6 (Berlin, 1969), 31–48, published in Grundmann, *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, 2:403–20; Otto Hermann Pesch, *Das Gesetz (Summa theologica I–II, 90–105)* (Die Deutsche Thomas-Ausgabe) 13 (Heidelberg-Graz, 1977), 531–743; and Schachten, *Ordo Salutis*. Schachten, using the guideline in the subtitle “Das Gesetz als Weise der Heilsvermittlung,” is providing a comprehensive comparison between Thomas Aquinas and Joachim of Fiore. It shows that Thomas not so much criticizes Joachim’s concept of law, but rather brings it to completion, 7. Eventually, Bonaventure is also included in this comparison, 193–217.

99 Thomas characterizes this as what is advantageous about the new law—that it is not written but is instead inherent. It is only something that is written in a secondary sense. See *Summa theologica* I–II, q. 106, a. 1 c.

100 *Summa theologica* I–II, q. 107, a. 1, ad 2.

101 *Summa theologica* III, q. 1, a. 6 c, Tertio.

of the sixth era according to the traditional classification, which means it will take place at the end of humanity. At the same time, however, one who contemplates the constitution of the incarnation can compare it to the early days of humanity because of the power and fervor of faith that is at work in love.¹⁰² The strict assignment of a salvific historical era to a person of the Trinity is vanquished because the new law is the law of both the Holy Ghost and Christ.¹⁰³ Determining the exact time of the end of the second era is mostly irrelevant because one should live his life as if Christ could return at any moment.¹⁰⁴ The Holy Spirit instills this attitude of constant vigilance in people. Thomas's opposition to Joachimism is not only connected to his belief that Christ cannot be replaced by anything or anyone—yet one must also question whether this is really a Joachimite position, no matter in what form.¹⁰⁵ Rather, it is more tied to his conviction that the Holy Spirit, through faith, love, and hope, is effective throughout the entire history of salvation. The Spirit belongs to the *status novae legis*, to which people during the Old Testament also belonged, and this *status* is so full of the Holy Spirit that it does not require a third *status* that would provide even more Spirit.

The discrepancy between Thomas's theology and Joachimism boils down to two different concepts of the salvation history, but this does not mean that Thomas, as an ahistorical scholastic and Aristotelian, would oppose a Joachimism deeply interested in salvation history.¹⁰⁶ Thomas's argumentation does not invoke specific Aristotelian assumptions; it merely evaluates biblical assertions concerning the question of whether the "new law" of the Gospel will last until the end of the world.

With this in mind, it is important to recognize that Joachimism does not advocate for a particular outline of eschatology. Strictly speaking, Joachim did not support a "radical eschatology." The teachings of Joachimism, which were specific to Joachim and against which Thomas objected, did not pertain to the Eschaton; in other words, to the entrance into the *patria*. Instead, they pertained to an alleged event *before* this goal; namely, to the beginning of a third

102 *Summa theologiae* III, q. 1, a. 6, ad 1, following Augustine, *Retractationes* I, cap.26, PL 32, 626 / CSEL 36, 121.

103 *Summa theologiae* I–II, q. 106, a. 4, ad 3.

104 *Quaestiones disputatae de veritate*, q. 5, a. 6.

105 This is highlighted by McGinn, "The Abbot and the Doctors," 40, note 61.

106 McGinn, "The Abbot and the Doctors," 40, notes 62–64, references this discussion. According to him, this position is not only held by Benz, but also by Alois Dempf, Ernesto Bonaiuti, and Tullio Gregory. McGinn also favors it. Conversely, Yves Congar, Marie-Dominique Chenu, and Max Seckler claim that Thomas retained the true sense of the salvation history as compared to Joachim.

era with specific characteristics. This event would, however, have radical consequences for the society of the time because, as McGinn paraphrases, what one would expect to happen when entering the Eschaton would have occurred already.¹⁰⁷

How important was his disagreement with Joachimism to Thomas? If one ponders the number of lines he devoted to Joachimism, it would appear to be of very little importance. However, if one considers the structure of the *Summa* to be theological, it is of considerable importance because it describes the conditions under which the return to God (*reditus in Deum*) occurs. The decisive condition for this is how the *nova lex*, which does not only contain the incarnation and crucifixion of Christ, but also the justifying and healing acts of the Holy Ghost, gains its effectiveness. If one answers the question while keeping in mind the historical reality in which Thomas found himself, then one would subscribe (but without giving weight to the sequence) to his first biographer, Wilhelm von Tocco's, portrayal of Thomas's conflict with "the little brothers of the poor" as the third of Thomas's four most important conflicts.

5.5 Bonaventure's Argument with Joachimist Historical Theology

A considerable difference between Bonaventure's and Thomas Aquinas's relationship with Joachim existed from the outset since Bonaventure was a Franciscan and there was a split among the Franciscans for a generation after the death of the founder of their order. On the one side were the Conventuals and on the other the Spirituals, who put great stock in the Franciscan "Testament" and in a return to what Francis held to be necessary.¹⁰⁸ Within these two groups the writings of Joachim resonated greatly.¹⁰⁹ Gerard of Borgo San Donnino's attack after the publication of the *Eternal Gospel* is just one example. The radical Franciscans found a supporter in the head of their order, John of Parma. The tension between them and the Roman see led to the dismissal of John of Parma in 1257, with Bonventura of Bagnoregio named as his successor,

107 McGinn, "The Abbot and the Doctors," 34f., defines "radical" as part of the concept of "radical eschatology" in the following way: "The term 'radical' then taken to signify a type of relation between thought and its institutional and social context in which the implementation of the thought would affect drastic changes in the mode of institutional operation and the theoretical justifications used for such operations."

108 Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 97f.

109 Grundmann, "Dante und Joachim von Fiore," 227–33; Ernst Benz, *Ecclesia spiritualis. Kirchenidee und Geschichtstheologie der franziskanischen Reformation* (Stuttgart, 1934), 175–81.

and to the trial that Bonaventure led against John in 1262. In the trial, John's orientation to Joachim also played an important role.¹¹⁰

As Minister General of the Franciscan order, Bonaventure had to deal with those who advocated Joachimist ideas, and this challenge was reflected in his various writings.¹¹¹ In his conflict with Joachimist theology of history, the most important work is his very last: the *Collationes in Hexaemeron*, a collection of unfinished lectures about the work of the six days described in Genesis 1:1–2:4a, which Bonaventure had given one year before his death in 1273 to members of his order in Paris.¹¹²

One cannot classify this work as part of the professional, scholastic literature of Bonaventure. After leaving the university to become the head of his order (1257), Bonaventure had abandoned the structures of the scholastic literary style.¹¹³ The *Collationes* are an allegorical explication—in a broader sense—of the creation, which Bonaventure also shapes into (among other things) a description of, a classification of, and a commentary on salvation history.¹¹⁴ Similarly, Joachim had also given an explanation of the creation of the world in the fifth book of his *Concordia*.¹¹⁵ Consequently, it seems likely that Bonaventure would outline his own position with regard to the Joachites in his own work. The name “Joachim” and concepts derived from him, however, do not appear in the text, nor in Thomas Aquinas's *Summa theologiae* I–II, q. 106, a. 4. Therefore, one should be cautious to argue that what is addressed here is a conflict with Joachim himself. That Joachimist themes in a broader sense are disputed here is, however, undeniable. Yet, Bonaventure's text is distinct from scholastic *quaestio disputata* in that it contains no description of the position from which it will diverge. There is no continuous argumentation given, only

110 Edith Pásztor, “Johannes (154.) von Parma,” in *Lexikon des Mittelalters* (Munich, 1991), 5:592 f. Gerken, “Bonaventura,” in *Lexikon des Mittelalters* (Munich, 1983), 2:403, explains that Bonaventura was forced to prosecute Johannes. Cf. Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 101–04.

111 Besides the passage in the *Sentences* commentary regarding the teaching on the Trinity already mentioned here, Zahner discusses the texts “De mysterio trinitatis,” the “Breviloquium,” the “Legena maior” (which I will also discuss), and the “Apologia pauperum.” See Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 109–38.

112 Bougerol, *Introduction à l'Études de Saint Bonaventure*, 245; Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 139.

113 Gerken, “Bonaventura,” in *Lexikon des Mittelalters*, 2:404.

114 Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 140, indicates that the *Collationes* does not only contain a theology of history and engage in debate with Joachimism on this subject, but also in the following areas: the creation as the image of God; the conception of the Bible; and the teaching on the Trinity. See Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 140–57.

115 This point is made by Grundmann, “Dante und Joachim von Fiore,” 233, note 36. The text under consideration here is *Concordia* v, cap. 2–30, fols. 61v a–73v a.

theses; however, there are many layers of testimony that overlap and comment on one another. The author's actual position can only be discerned by very intricate means.¹¹⁶

In the following pages, I will explain where Bonaventure agrees with Aquinas in his judgements about the Joachimist position, where he disagrees, and where he deals with questions Aquinas has not addressed. His agreement with Aquinas is, above all else, the central question in dispute. "After the New Testament, there will not be another," Bonaventure explains. "Moreover, no sacrament of the New Testament will be removed, for this testament is eternal."¹¹⁷ With the term "eternal testament," he refers unmistakably to the "eternal gospel" and also alludes to a verse in the Letter to the Hebrews (13:20). Like Aquinas, who bases his argument on Hebrews 10:19–22 (in *Summa theologiae* 1–11, q. 106, a. 4, c.), Bonaventure bases the perpetuity of the New Testament on the continual effectiveness of Jesus' death on the cross, as emphasized in the Letter to the Hebrews. He elaborates on this position with reference to the sacraments themselves, which Aquinas does not mention.¹¹⁸ Within this position, in which he generally agrees with Aquinas, Bonaventure arrives at other ideas that are no longer in agreement with Aquinas. He uses the same sort of predictions of historical events based on figures in the Bible, which Aquinas had described as a merely human and fallible method of conjecture (in IV *Sentences*, dist. 43, q. 1, a. 3). Moreover, he speaks of a time that is still to come—one which will be fulfilled in an especially spiritual way and will be clearly definable through a chart of times—that will take place before the Eschaton.

In the first place, Bonaventure says that, "in all the mysteries of Scripture, Christ, with his body, will be unfolded ... for all the saints have prefigured Christ."¹¹⁹ Thus, he agrees with Aquinas that the fulfillment of all the figures of the Old Testament is in Christ. But here only one kind of statement is addressed: the interpretation of the Scriptures according to the sacramental figures (*figurae sacramentales*). In his explication of Genesis 1:9–13 (the work

116 To better understand Bonaventure's *Collationes*, see the habilitation dissertation of Joseph Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, which offers a superb introduction.

117 "Post novum testamentum non erit aliud, nec aliquod sacramentum novae legis subtrahi potest, quia illud testamentum aeternum est." See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XVI, 2. I am citing according to the edition of the *Collationes* found in the *Opera Omnia*, 5:403 b.

118 No. 30 in the Paris excerpts from the *Sentences* states: "... quod sacramenta nove legis evacuabuntur in tertio statu mundi, et per evacuationem sacramenti altris inferit evacuationem aliorum sacramentorum." See Denifle and Chatelain, *Chartularium*, 1:275.

119 "In omnibus Scripturae mysteriis explicatur Christus cum corpore suo ... Omnes enim Sancti praefiguraverunt Christum ..." See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XIV, 17, in *Opera*, 5:396 a. Bonaventure is explicitly following Augustine's "De civitate dei" here.

of the third day), Bonaventure distinguishes between several levels of interpretation beyond the literal understanding of the text: the level of the spiritual insights of the senses (*spirituales intelligentiae sensuum*), corresponding to the gathering of the water; then the sacramental figures (*figurae sacramentales*) and the multiform theories (*multiformae theoriae*), which are developed out of the former and are contained in the sacramental figures, just as seeds are contained in the plants created by God.¹²⁰

These theories are infinite, just as a picture mirrored between two mirrors thus multiplies itself infinitely.¹²¹ Bonaventure continues:

This germination of the seed allows us to understand diverse theories according to the diverse comparisons of different times, and he who does not know the times is not able to know these (theories). For he who does not understand the past cannot know the future. If I do not know from which tree this seed comes, I cannot know which tree it will grow into. So too does the knowledge of the future depend on the knowledge of the past. Just so, Moses—prophesying about future things—told about the past through revelation.¹²²

This is the way to predict future events from the interpretation of the scriptures, as Joachim practiced it, and which Bonaventure, in opposition to Aquinas, justifies as prophetic.

How does this prediction of historical events occur? The Old and New Testaments are compared according to schemata, both those that have only one part and those that have multiple parts. Such a schema can have two parts so that, for example, the Old Testament contains both the time before the Law and the time of the Law. These two times correspond in the New Testament to the time of the mission to the Gentiles and to the time of the mission to the Jews. While this former time has been fulfilled, the fulfillment of the latter has yet to occur, but is expected with certitude.¹²³ It would be similar with a three-part schema. In the time of the Synagogue, for example, there is a beginning,

120 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XIII, 1f. See Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 10–12.

121 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XV, 10f.

122 “Haec autem germinatio seminum dat intelligere secundum diversas temporum coaptationes diversas theorias; et qui tempora ignorat istas scire non potest. Nam scire non potest futura qui praeterita ignorat. Si enim non cognosco, cuius arboris semen est; non possum cognoscere, quae arbor debet inde esse. Unde cognitio futurorum dependet ex cognitione praetoriorum. Moyses enim, prophetans de futuris, narravit praeterita per revelationem.” See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XV, 11, in *Opera*, 5: 400 a.

123 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XV, 24.

a time of progress, and then also a time of diminishment, and so in the New Testament, there will be a Church of the time of the beginning, a period of expansion, and a Church of the end times. Thus, one knows that for the Church there is a time of completion that can be expected and which will be infused with contemplation.¹²⁴

This prediction of historical events is especially illuminating because of the fulfillment of the corresponding part that has not yet occurred according to the seven-part schema. The original times are the first seven days of the world.¹²⁵ What follows are then seven figurative times and (viewed from a third perspective) seven times or ages within the New Testament, in which the time of peace and rest will be the last, shortly before the time of the genuine teaching.¹²⁶ Bonaventure revealed that he saw himself as standing within the not-yet-complete sixth age of this third schema.¹²⁷

Therefore, within the New Testament there will be an age—whether the sixth or the seventh depends on the schema employed to analyze it—in which

124 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* xv, 26. This “ecclesia consummate” or “ecclesia finalis” is related to the two sons of Rachel, who gave birth to the last two sons of Jacob, symbols of the *vita contemplativa*. See Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 15 f., which refers to similar passages in Joachim, and 58, note 6.

125 This interpretation begins in *Collationes in Hexaemeron* xvi, 8.

126 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* xvi, 11–13. Ratzinger contrasts this double, seven-fold schema—he leaves the first seven-fold series with the first seven days of the world out of consideration in this case—with a more traditional seven-fold schema derived from Augustine. In this Augustinian schema, the seventh age occurs in parallel to the sixth; it is the slumber of the souls before the general resurrection of the dead. See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* xv, 18. Bonaventure presents his classification at the level of the “*figurae sacramentales*.” Ratzinger notes that the actual interpretation of history takes place at the level of “*theoriae*” (p. 13), and this schema will be replaced by a double, seven-fold schema (p. 20). For this schema, the formula “*septima aetas currit cum sexta*” does not apply (p. 19). Accordingly, the possibility of assuming an extraordinary time arises; namely, the seventh age, considered an “intrahistorical age of salvation, a still pending state of total redemption within history.” On this point, Bonaventure is influenced by Joachim (p. 107, cf. 13). In contrast, I would contend that not only according to the seven-fold schema, but also with the other schemata, one comes to the conclusion that at least one final part or age in the last series remains. It is not a matter, therefore, of any direct comparison between the one and the other seven-fold schema. Moreover, the level of “*theoriae*” does not dominate that of the “*figurae sacramentales*.” It would especially contradict Bonaventure if one were to speak of “consummate salvation.”

127 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* xvi, 29. A comment in one transcript of the *Collationes* notes that when Bonaventure spoke of a ruler, a zealot for the Church, who either already was, or would be, he added: “I only wish that he did not already come!” (“*Utinam iam non fuerit*”), *Opera*, 5:408 b.

those things will be fulfilled that are not yet fulfilled. Thus, there is an agreement here with Joachim; at the same time, one can also see that it is not important to Bonaventure whether this age in history is the Third Age. Thus, he separates this next age from any special connection with the third person of the Trinity. As a result, the third Joachimist argument (in the numbering of Aquinas in his *Summa theologiae* I–II, q. 106, a. 4) is no longer applicable.¹²⁸

What then characterizes this age according to Bonaventure? His description given in *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XVI, 30 is very reserved—the restoration of the divine cult, a reconstruction of the city, and peace are its main elements. In another place—where he discusses spiritual insights (*intelligentiae spirituales*)—he states that at the time of the New Testament, the Scriptures will become manifest, “most of all at the end, when those scriptures will be understood which were not yet understood.”¹²⁹ He addresses these thoughts again later. At the time of the church militant (*ecclesia militans*), the vision (*contemplatio*) of the Church can only take place under moonlight, not directly under the light of the sun. He then continues:¹³⁰

Therefore, we can see the moon, but not the sun because the beams of the sun are made milder for us through the moon. So too the light of eternity in itself cannot be seen, but when we see it, as it appears in the Church, it is encased in sacraments and in figures. We can see it, which shows us what has happened, what must happen, and what exists in eternity ... We come to know in a certain way what it is that the figures teach, which the Old Testament and the New Testament are full of ... and the figures therefrom are not yet revealed, but when the full moon comes, then the disclosure of the scriptures takes place; then, the book will be opened and the seven seals will be broken, which have not yet been broken. Believe me, then we will see, as if in the light of the full moon, when our Lion of Judah leaps up and opens the book, when the sufferings of Christ, which the Body of Christ still suffers, have come to an end. Then Herod, under whom Christ was mocked, must rise up, and Peter will be thrown into the dungeon.¹³¹

128 Cf. Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 107.

129 “Tempus novi testamenti, quando Scriptura manifestata est, et maxime in fine, quando Scripturae intelligentur, quae modo non intelliguntur.” See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XIII, 7, in *Opera*, 5:389 a.

130 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XX, 13.

131 “Unde lunam videre possumus, non solem, quia radius solis contemperatur nobis per lunam. Sic radius aeternitatis non potest aspici in se, sed si aspicimus illum radium, ut est in Ecclesia, velatum per Sacramenta et figuras; possumus aspicere ipsum, qui nobis

Bonaventure thus expected a period in history during the time of the full moon in which the truth would be revealed, and during which the maximum knowledge of historical truth would be achieved. However, he did not imagine that there would be a new objective revelation or even new revelatory writing, as his fellow Franciscan Gerard of Borgo San Donnino imagined vis-à-vis the writings of Joachim of Fiore. Rather, he expected that the holy Scriptures, the Old and New Testaments, would be understood with greater breadth and a depth. What he anticipated, therefore, was a sort of maximum of subjective Being-revealed.¹³²

What, then, about the question of the preeminence of the Spirituals, those wholly devoted to contemplation, over the clerics in this last age? Bonaventure addressed the relationship, entirely independent of any particular age, that exists between the station of those individuals devoted to contemplation and those who direct and lead the Church in daily life. In doing so, he distinguished between the various possibilities for the classification (*ordination*) of these stations in life. If one considers the classifications on the basis of what they do (their *exercitia*), then the active life is lower than the contemplative life. There is also an intermediate station, which is a sort of mixed life composed of both forms, and a state of life where the leaders of the Church exist, known as the order of the prelates (*ordo praelatorum*). These three stations are related (from bottom to top) to God the Father, the Son, and the Holy Spirit. Bonaventure continues:

While it is permitted that the station of the order of the prelates be set in the first place according to the order of ascension, so according to the order of procession they are set in the middle place because they are a mixed state. Therefore, the station of the contemplatives is set in the highest place.¹³³

ostendit, quae sunt facta, quae facienda, quae sunt in aeternitate ... Intelligimus enim aliquo modo figurarum doctrinam, quibus testamentum vetus et etiam novum plenum est ... Et ideo figurae nondum explanatae sunt; sed quando luna erit plena, tunc erit apertio Scripturarum, et liber aperietur, et septem sigilla solventur, quae adhuc non sunt aperta.—Credite mihi, tunc videbimus quasi per plenilunium, quando leo noster de tribu Iuda surget et aperiet librum, quando consummabuntur passiones Christi, quas modo corpus Christi patitur. Oportet enim surgere Herodem, sub quo illudatur Christus, et Petrus incarceretur.” See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XX, 15, in *Opera*, 5:428 a.

132 Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 63–78, esp. 69 ff.

133 “Et licet ordo praelatorum secundum ordinem ascensuum ponatur in summo, tamen secundum istum processum ponitur in medio, ex quo permixtum est. Est ergo ... ordo contemplativum in summo.” See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XXII, 16, in *Opera*, 5:440 a.

However, this order results if only one aspect is considered. If one were to choose another perspective—that of the ascending order (*ordo ascensuum*)—then the heads of the Church stand in the highest place.¹³⁴ Thus, one can conclude that there will be no dissolving of the order of the prelates or of the order of the clerics in the final age of history. For this order and position arises only from a certain viewpoint. Only with the full emergence of the contemplative element does the perspective in which the contemplatives stand in the highest place come to the fore.

Bonaventure's view that in the last age of history the highest station will be reached is a necessary outcome of his organic view of history. If history develops analogically to the sprouting and growth of plants in Genesis 1:9–13, then the final stage can only be the highest one.¹³⁵ Bonaventure is fully aware, however, that there is a rupture in the relationship between God and men, a descent from the original level.¹³⁶ Thus, one finds in Bonaventure the concept of *reformatio*: the level of the beginning must be reached again, and the maximum of the final age is a rediscovered maximum.¹³⁷ Nevertheless, here Bonaventure means the original level of the first condition of things, not that of the apostolic age (as Aquinas thinks). Naturally, he believes that the Holy Spirit had already sent forth gifts in the original time.¹³⁸ But as for the view of history found in the *Collationes*, this has no constructive meaning.¹³⁹

134 Cf. Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 50 ff.

135 One should note that when the Bible represents salvation history in a likeness explicitly taken from the plant-world—namely, in Romans 11:17–24—the discussion is of the pruning of branches that grew naturally and the artificial grafting of other wild branches.

136 “Certum est, quod homo stans habebat cognitionem rerarum creaturarum et per illam repraesentationem ferebatur in Deum ad ipsum laudandum, venerandum, amandum; et ad hoc sunt creaturae et sic reducuntur in Deum. Cadente autem homine, cum amisisset cognitionem, non erat qui reduceret eas in Deum. Unde iste liber, scilicet mundus, quasi emortuus et deletus erat; necessarius autem fuit alius liber, per quem iste illuminaretur, ut acciperet metaphoras rerum. Hic autem liber est Scripturae ...” See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XIII, 12, in *Opera*, 5:390 a.

137 “Intendit enim Scriptura reducere ad originale principium per reformationem.” See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XIII, 17, in *Opera*, 5:390 b.

138 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XIV, 15; XV, 28.

139 The passages that Ratzinger cites from the *Collationes* (see Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 46, note 74) in order to prove that this is the case are not convincing in my view. By contrast, one can cite this passage from the *De perfectione evangelica*, q. 2, a. 2, ad 20, *Opera*, 5:148 a: poverty as a fundamental condition of the “evangelical perfection” was recognized since the very beginning of the Church, and now, again, in the final stages, it is discerned in the mendicant orders.

Bonaventure's method—to agree with as many Joachimist ideas as possible, but in doing so, to avoid the points of disagreement—is also applied to his treatment of specifically Franciscan questions. He takes his starting points from those ideas and interpretations that were already in circulation among the Joachimist Franciscans at that time.¹⁴⁰

In Revelation 7:2 ff., after the events that follow the opening of the sixth seal, it is reported:

And I saw another angel ascending from the east, having the seal of the living God: and he cried with a loud voice to the four angels, to whom it was given to hurt the earth and the sea, Saying, Hurt not the earth, neither the sea, nor the trees, till we have sealed the servants of our God in their foreheads.

Hereafter, 144,000 people from the “twelve tribes of Israel” are sealed and thus protected from the pending disaster. Joachim commented on this passage and predicted that it would be fulfilled within a certain period of time.¹⁴¹ The radical Franciscans maintained that this angel, who would come with the rising of the sun, was Francis, who often signed himself with the letter “T” *tau*, and who received the stigmata. The stigmata was “the sign of the living God” while the *tau* was the sign with which he sealed all those who were to be saved from the coming disaster. Joachim had announced the coming of a new order,¹⁴² but he also spoke of two orders that would belong to the transition from the sixth to the seventh age, which was to be especially blessed.¹⁴³ The Joachites identified

140 Benz, *Ecclesia spiritualis*, 84 ff., 97–111; Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 36–38; Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 123. From these excerpts from the relevant literature, it is not sufficiently clear to what extent these teachings were already being given (and by whom) before Bonaventure. Nevertheless, in the *Protokoll of Anagni*, there is a gloss by Gerard of Borgo San Donnino regarding the angels of Revelations 14:14 and 7:2, stating that they arrived shortly after the year 1200; see Denifle, “Das Evangelium aeternum,” 131. Scholars have speculated (e.g., Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 287, note 51) that Gerard meant Francis and Dominic.

141 *Concordia* IV, cap. 31, fol. 56 r.

142 *Concordia* v, cap. 15, fol. 67 v; cap. 18, fol. 69 v; cap. 65, fol. 95 r; cap. 66, fol. 96 r. See Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 40, note 44 ff., and the other literature referred to therein. Cf. *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*, (ed.) Bonaiuti, tract. 1, 86f. This order is the community of the *viri spirituales*, see footnote 62 above.

143 *Concordia* v, cap. 38, fol. 76 v; cap. 15, fol. 67 v. For more details, see Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 43 ff.

this order, identical with the 144,000 who were sealed, with that of Francis, or with the two orders of the Franciscans and the Dominicans.¹⁴⁴

Bonaventure announces the advent of the Seraphic order (*ordo seraphicus*) that will supersede all that have come before it, explaining that “Francis appears to have been a member of this order.” Speaking of the extraordinary spiritual experiences of Francis, he says through these “the Church will be perfected. Which order this will be, and whether it is already here, this is not easy to know.”¹⁴⁵ Accordingly, the order to which Francis really belongs is not the Franciscan order that he founded.

The Franciscan order, however, is located in the second rank, along with the Dominicans—that of the Cherubim. Bonaventure’s ranking of the orders is done according to the fullness of contemplation.¹⁴⁶ According to this criterion, he maintains that the Franciscans and the Dominicans exceed the other orders, which he lists by name: the Cistercians, the Premonstratensians, the Carthusians, the Grandimontines, and the order of Canons Regular.¹⁴⁷ Bonaventure agrees with Joachim’s prediction that two orders will be present in the transition to the last and highest level, and he sees this prediction as fulfilled in the two great mendicant orders of the 13th century. In Francis himself, the prophecy of Revelation 7:2 is fulfilled as proven through his stigmata, Bonaventure writes openly in his *Legenda maior*, the official biography of Francis.¹⁴⁸ Bonaventure thus assigns Francis to the Seraphic order because the Crucified One, as he appeared to Francis and gave him his scars, was hidden under the

144 On the rivalry between the Franciscans and the Dominicans, and the attempts to mediate between them, see Benz, *Ecclesia spiritualis*, 181–205; and Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils*, 98 ff.

145 “De isto videtur fuisse Franciscus ... Et in his consummabitur Ecclesia. Quis autem ordo iste futurus sit, vel iam sit, non est facile scire.” See *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XXII, 22, in *Opera*, 5:440 b–441 a.

146 Bonaventura speaks in *Hexaemeron* XXII, 20–23 of an order of contemplatives, of persons open to God: *ordo contemplantium / vacantium Deo*. Within this order, the lowermost level consists of those who dedicate themselves to praying for others and praising God, and who also own property. The middle level is determined by *speculatio* and *unctio*, and the highest level through the *modus ecstaticus*.

147 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XXII, 20 ff.

148 Bonaventura, *Legenda Sancti Francisci (Legenda maior)*, in Prologus, *Opera omnia*, Ad Claras Aquas, 1898, 8: 504 b. It was written in 1261. See Bougerol, *Introduction à l’Études de Saint Bonaventure*, 242. One can see, starting with the *Legenda maior*, that the passages in the *Collationes in Hexaemeron* where Bonaventure speaks of the angel in Rev. 7:2 refer back to Francis, even when he does not mention Francis by name: XVI, 29; XVI, 16; XXIII, 3. Cf. Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 33 ff.

wings of a seraph. The granting of the stigmata to Francis is the sign of the Living God, which is stated in Revelation 7:2.¹⁴⁹ Bonaventure was thus convinced that Francis, through this vision of Christ, had reached a high point in his contemplation of the vision of God that had not been granted to anyone before him, although the Apostle Paul, in his rapture, and the Apostle John were predecessors.¹⁵⁰ Francis, then, as the angel from Revelation 7:2, carries out the sealing of the 144,000. The contemplative soul (*anima contemplativa*) of these people is sealed by God through him.¹⁵¹ The Franciscan order had experienced the emanation of the experience of contemplation, but it had not yet reached this last and highest level.¹⁵²

One can also glimpse the extraordinary character of the Franciscan order—and of the mendicant orders that arose in the 13th century—in their subsistence through begging, through which the life of poverty achieved greater significance than before. This extraordinary character is also evidenced through the way in which these orders forfeited the *stabilitas loci*, their way of public preaching, and in their devotion to university studies.¹⁵³

That Bonaventure chooses the level of contemplation in his *Collationes in Hexaemeron* as a criterion for judging the orders can be traced back to the fact that he was orienting himself toward Joachim of Fiore in his interpretation of history. The advancement in history is an advancement into higher levels of contemplation. Bonaventure develops an interpretation that differs from Joachim's: he does not develop the thought of Joachim further and does not identify the time of the highest order with his own time, and this order itself with the order of which he was the Minister General. Therefore, he avoids claiming superiority for his own order, which would surely have led to sharper conflicts with the leaders of older power structures within the Church, as well as with the Dominican Order.

One should not trace such positions—nor the positions Bonaventure adopted in other Joachimist controversies—back to his political views as Minister General of the Franciscan order, arguing that he merely wished to hold his order

149 *Legenda maior* 13, 3. 10; *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XXII, 23.

150 Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 44–48.

151 *Collationes in Hexaemeron* XXIII, 14. Cf. Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 37–40.

152 Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 48–56.

153 Kaspar Elm, "Bettelorden," in *Lexikon des Mittelalters* (Munich, 1980), 1:2088–2093. Cf. Weisheipl, *Thomas von Aquin*, 90, regarding the controversy between William of Saint-Amour and Thomas Aquinas. That Bonaventure was also aware of the significance of poverty as a characteristic of his new order can be seen in the passage already mentioned (footnote 125) from *De perfectione evangelica*.

together and to avoid such conflicts.¹⁵⁴ Rather, one should assume that in all places he wrote only about those things of which he was convinced. Like Aquinas, he was convinced that the order of salvation history, established through the death of Jesus Christ on the cross, was never going to be superseded by any other order. But whereas Aquinas merely states that the order of the Son is also an order fulfilled by the Holy Spirit, Bonaventure offers a more detailed account of this same position. His account explains the methods of historical prediction and the expectation of a grace- (and knowledge-) filled time at the end of the age of the new covenant, and gives an account of the development of the newer orders in the context of the fulfillment of this expectation.¹⁵⁵

II.5 Dante¹⁵⁶

This evaluation of Bonaventure's position vis-à-vis Joachimism would be confirmed through Dante's view of Joachim at the beginning of the 14th century. At more or less the same time that William of Tocco was writing his biography

154 As Grundmann attempts to do in "Dante und Joachim von Fiore," 233: "Mit großem Geschick hat er [Bonaventura] dabei gewisse Züge der spiritualistischen Franziskus-Deutung übernommen ..." There is the opposing position of Ratzinger in *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 52 ff., in which one can discern the concerns of the later Pope Benedict XVI: "Bonaventura erkannte, daß die endzeitliche Lebensform Franzens in dieser Welt nicht als Institution, sondern nur als Durchbruch der Gnade im Einzelnen existieren kann, bis einmal die allein von Gott zu wirkende Stunde kommen wird ... seine [Bonaventuras] erste Sorge war, von der eschatologischen Radikalität [des Franziskus] zu retten, was immer zu retten war."

155 For further discussion, see Stephan Otto, "Bonaventuras christologischer Einwand gegen die Geschichtslehre des Joachim von Fiore," in *Die Mächte des Guten und Bösen. Vorstellungen im XII. und XIII. Jahrhundert über ihr Wirken in der Heilsgeschichte*, (ed.) Albert Zimmermann (Miscellanea mediaevalia) 11 (Berlin-New York, 1977), 113–30; Paolo Vian, "Bonaventura da Bagnoregio di fronte a Gioacchino da Fiore e al gioacchinismo," *Antoniano* 65 (1990), 133–60; and Ilia Delio, "From Prophecy to Mysticism: Bonaventure's Eschatology in Light of Joachim of Fiore," *Traditio* 52 (1997), 153–77 (this contains a list of further new literature).

156 The starting point for my reflections here is the article by Grundmann, "Dante und Joachim von Fiore." I am interested here only in Dante's interpretation of the relationship between Bonaventure and Joachim in *Paradiso*, Canto XII. Other aspects of Dante's evaluation of Joachim are addressed by Leone Tondelli, *Da Gioacchino a Dante. Nuovi Studi—Consensi e Contrasti* (Turin, 1944); and Marjorie Reeves, "The Third Age: Dante's Debt to Gioacchino da Fiore," in *L'Età dello Spirito e la fine dei tempi in Gioacchino da Fiore e nel Gioacchimismo medievale. Atti del 11 ° Congresso Internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti* (6–9 September 1984), (ed.) Antonio Crocco (San Giovanni in Fiore, 1986), 125–39.

of Thomas Aquinas, Dante wrote the third part of his *Divina Commedia*, the *Paradiso*, which portrays, in Cantos x–xii, some of the most illustrious figures of ecclesiastical and theological history in the 13th century. In the fourth circle of Paradise, in the heaven of the Sun, Dante encounters a dancing circle of twelve saints (Canto x). One of them is Thomas Aquinas, with whom he speaks. Thomas identifies the others in the circle, beginning at his right and ending with the saint standing to his left, Siger of Brabant.¹⁵⁷

In Canto xi, Aquinas praises the life of Francis of Assisi and laments the current state into which his own order has fallen. In Canto xii, Dante encounters a second circle of twelve saints, which encircles the first group. The spokesman for this second circle is Bonaventure. He praises the life of Dominic and bemoans the present condition of his own Franciscan order. At the end, he introduces the others dancing with him, among which the last, standing to his left, is Joachim of Fiore: “The Calabrian Abbot Joachim / endowed with prophetic spirit” (*il calavrese abate Giovacchino / di spirito profetico dotato*).¹⁵⁸

Dante’s opinion of Joachim is represented especially by this arrangement of figures, which has raised some questions and attempts at interpretation. First, we should note that Joachim stands in relation to Bonaventure in the same manner as Siger stands in relation to Aquinas. Herbert Grundmann maintains that this relationship is an antagonistic one. Dante placed the two greatest theologians of the 13th century in paradise together with those who, during their lifetimes, either directly (in the case of Siger) or indirectly (Joachim, through the Joachimists in the Franciscan order), were their greatest opponents.¹⁵⁹ Grundmann’s solution for this problem is the following: here, Dante draws this conclusion from the idea that the human mind desires to be illuminated by a truth that is so comprehensive that it finds outside of itself no other truth.¹⁶⁰ “This idea of a universal truth,” Grundmann continues, “was seen by [Dante] to be embodied in no individual thinker, and in no specific system; but

157 *Divina Commedia, Paradiso*, Canto X, 97–138. The others in the circle are Albertus Magnus, Gratian, Peter Lombard, Salomo, Dionysius Areopagita, probably Paulus Orosius, Boethius, Isidor of Seville, Bede, and Richard of St. Victor.

158 Dante Alighieri, *Divina Commedia*, (eds.) Giovanni Fallani, Nicola Maggi, and Silvio Zennaro (Rome, 1993), *Paradiso*, Canto xii, 140 ff. Here we are dealing with a citation (translated into Italian) from the praise of Joachim in the liturgy of the Florentian order; see above, footnote 16. The others in the circle are the Franciscan Illuminatus, Augustine, Hugh of St. Victor, Peter Comestor, Petrus Hispanus, Nathan, John Chrysostom, Anselm of Canterbury, Donatus, and Rhabanus Maurus; see *Paradiso*, Canto xii, 130–39.

159 Grundmann, “Dante und Joachim of Fiore,” 215–19, 234–37.

160 “Non si sazia / nostro intelletto, se ‘l ver non lo illustra / di fuor dal qual nessun vero si spazia.” See *Divina Commedia, Paradiso*, Canto iv, 124–26.

he mirrored it, and let it unfold in the harmony of the spirits of the great masters in the heaven of the sun."¹⁶¹ Grundmann does not care to show, however, how a resolution of the tension that existed between Bonaventure and Joachim and between Thomas Aquinas and Siger of Brabant could be achieved.

Upon closer inspection, there is no definitive contradiction between these two pairs. In his works, Bonaventure had already worked as a theologian and as a Franciscan to integrate the ideas of Joachim and the Joachimists into the fabric of Catholic teaching. His opposition is directed only against those points in this teaching where integration was no longer possible. Similarly, Aquinas integrated Aristotelianism into Christian theology. His controversy with Siger was on precisely this point: that Siger proposed to carry out the Aristotelian project in such a way that this integration would inevitably fail.¹⁶² One must also alter Grundmann's thesis. In Paradise, what Thomas and Bonaventure sought to realize on earth is brought to perfection: the synthesis of Aristotelian philosophy with the belief in the revelation of God in Jesus Christ, and the synthesis of the Joachimist interpretation of history with the fundamental conviction that through the crucifixion of Jesus Christ a station in salvation history would be reached and not superseded by anything until mankind's entry into eternity. Siger and Joachim represent the powers that had opposed this integration. In Paradise, however, their opposition is finally overcome. While it is true that Siger and Joachim stand to the left of Aquinas and Bonaventure, they nevertheless join together with them in one circle.¹⁶³

This interpretation is also supported insofar as the Dominican order—the state of which Aquinas laments in *Paradise*—was, at the time of Dante, concerned primarily, as Grundmann (citing Mandonnet) notes, “with its integration into the worldly sciences and philosophical erudition.”¹⁶⁴ There were theologians at the end of the 13th century who criticized Aquinas on precisely this point.¹⁶⁵ Nevertheless, this critique comes from the other extreme. For

161 Grundmann, “Dante und Joachim of Fiore,” 241. This approach was supposedly prepared in the teaching on the universal monarchy, outside of which there is no other power. See Grundmann, “Dante und Joachim of Fiore,” 240.

162 On Siger, see Ludwig Hödl, “Siger v. Brabant,” in *Lexikon für Theologie und Kirche*, 2nd ed. (Freiburg, 1964), 9: 746 ff.

163 Ratzinger leans toward this interpretation; cf. Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie*, 35, note 37.

164 Grundmann, “Dante und Joachim of Fiore,” 237, note 44 (citation from 238). Here Grundmann invokes Pierre Mandonnet, *Siger de Brabant et l'Averroïsme latin au XIII^{me} siècle*, Part 1: Étude critique, 2nd ed. (Les Philosophes Belges) 6 (Leuven, 1911), 287–309.

165 According to Mandonnet, *Siger de Brabant*, 298–300, the theologians implied here are the Franciscans Petrus Johannis Olivi/Peter John Olivi (†1296) and John Peckham (†1292).

Dante, Aquinas is more of an example of how one can engage in philosophy so that the Dominican order would not lose sight of its original spiritual mission. One could say the same of Bonaventure. In Paradise, he says to Dante that on the one hand, under the Minister General (Matthew of Aquasparta), the rule of the order is lost, while on the other hand, under Ubertino of Casale (the leader of the Spirituals), the rule is too strict.¹⁶⁶ Bonaventure is therefore a model for how one might integrate the legitimate concerns of the Spirituals while remaining true to the rule of the order and avoiding extremes. If one fails to achieve this balance, then a split will arise in the order in which one party will cling to one extreme and the other party to the other.¹⁶⁷

5.6 Conclusion

I will now provide a brief overview of the course that the ideas originating with Joachim of Fiore (or inspired by him in the 13th and 14th centuries) have taken. First, there was a discussion of a specific point of doctrine as it pertained to the Trinity—the sharp critique that Joachim leveled at Peter Lombard—on the basis of which he received a condemnation from the Roman teaching office. For his views, this judgement was a negative one, and it determined the way this question was handled in theological textbooks and the commentaries on the *Sentences* of the Lombard. However, since he professed that he was willing to submit to this judgement—and since his sudden death meant that his readiness to submit was never tested—his memory and the reputation of the Florentian order he founded were not tarnished.

Far more lively, comprehensive, and critical was the discussion regarding Joachim's theology of history. This discussion was fueled by the fact that shortly

Bishop Stephan Tempier supported them not only against Aquinas, but also against the Averroists. See Roland Hissette, "Johannes Peckham," in *Lexikon für Theologie und Kirche*, 3rd ed. (Freiburg, 1996), 5:956 ff. Incidentally, Mandonnet—contrary to the way that Grundmann portrays him—does not believe that this critique of Aquinas is justified.

166 *Divina Commedia, Paradiso*, Canto XII, 124–26.

167 Grundmann, "Dante und Joachim of Fiore," 239 ff., disputes that Dante is propagandizing for the *aurea mediocritas* here. However, Dante would not have aligned himself with either party, wishing instead to strike a middle path between them. In the passage cited above, Dante is speaking of a middle way, and he seems to indicate that when one takes this middle way there will be no split between the two parties. Bonaventure himself was very much in the middle of the controversy between the two parties; indeed, according to Dante, Bonaventure had always taken the position that avoided the errors of the two extremes, and this excellence is manifest in Paradise.

after his death, something new arose in Church history: the mendicant orders of the Franciscans and the Dominicans. As a crisis gradually arose within the Franciscan order regarding its future direction, the radicals within the order took up the ideas of Joachim. In the meantime, the mendicant orders had been admitted to universities, thus turning the reception of Joachim's theology of history into a controversial academic subject, as evidenced by the first mendicant controversy. This reception also became a case for the teaching office of the Church, insofar as the leaders of the Church saw themselves as responsible for the development of the orders and the universities. With the expansion of teaching activities within the mendicant orders, the controversy regarding Joachimist themes became not only a question in academic disputational writings, but also in higher theological treatises such as the scholastic *Summa theologiae* of Thomas Aquinas and the *Collationes in Hexaemeron* of Bonaventure.

In examining the spectrum of opinion at this level of theology, one finds William of Saint-Amour and Bishop Florentius at one end. For them, Joachim was the source of the errant teachings of the mendicant monks and a sign of the coming Antichrist. On the other end of the spectrum, one finds Gerard of Borgo San Donnino, who gave the major writings of Joachim a canonicity that Joachim himself did not attribute to them.

The relationship of Aquinas to Joachim and to Joachimism is not one of approval or disapproval, but is characterized by the absence of a relationship altogether. Aquinas denies the truth of Joachimism, insofar as the Joachites wanted to dispense with the *status* of salvation history as established by Jesus Christ through some third *status*. Yet he takes up the concerns of the Joachites. The *status* of the new law (*lex nova*) is no less the *status* of the Holy Spirit, and within this *status* new directions such as the founding and development of the mendicant orders have their place. Vis-à-vis Joachimism and anti-Joachimism, however, Aquinas stands at a distance. He is not concerned with a detailed division of salvation history into distinct ages, nor is he interested in predicting history through correspondences between these ages. The notion that the Joachimist idea should be dramatized, so that it may be emphatically denied or affirmed, left him unimpressed.

In the end, Bonaventure fully agrees with Aquinas regarding the question of the *tertius status*, but he is far more interested in the division of salvation history into distinct ages, in the method of prediction, and in the expectation of a special period of grace before the Eschaton. Bonaventure aims to integrate the Joachimist ideas within the framework of the second *status*—already implicit in Aquinas's ideas—to the last detail. Joachim's power to shape later thought in this regard is so great that he shapes the character of his own order according to the intensity of contemplation and foresees this as a characteristic of the new orders as well.

In Church history, the 13th century was not only marked by the politics of popes well-versed in canon law or through the adherence to a predetermined order.¹⁶⁸ It is also marked, for example, by new departures such as the rise of the mendicant orders, as well as the development of the sciences in universities. These new departures created serious problems for the institutions leading the Church. Unlike the new direction of the Reformation in the 16th century, however, it was possible to integrate these new developments. The integration of Joachimism was achieved to a great extent through Bonaventure's work. In placing Bonaventure and Joachim together, Dante thus managed to preserve this achievement in historical memory.

168 In this point, I distinguish myself from McGinn, "The Abbot and the Doctors," 30, 46 ff. Thomas's and Bonaventure's innovation is undeniable. They were both radical in their own ways, and the character of their century fundamentally defined them.

The Influence of Joachim in the 13th Century

Frances Andrews

6.1 Introduction

The end of the 12th century was a period, like many others, of great eschatological potential in the Latin West. In October 1187, Jerusalem was lost to Saladin, a Kurdish sultan, and the Crusade campaigns that followed were catastrophic. Tensions between the English and French crowns were at their peak, and in June 1190, the Western Emperor, Frederick I Barbarossa, drowned in the river Göksu (Saleph) on his way to the Holy Land. The situation was no better on the Iberian Peninsula: in July 1195, the Almohad Muslim prince Ya ‘qub I al-Mansur (The Victorious) defeated the Christian King Alfonso VIII of Castille at the Battle of Alarcos. It was against this unstable background that Joachim, in the preface to his *Liber de Concordia*, wrote of his self-chosen role in preparing the Church to face the enemy:¹

Our [task] is to foresee wars, yours is to hasten to arms. It is for us to go up to the watchtower on the mountain and, having seen the enemy, to give warning; yours, having heard the signal, is to take refuge in safer places. We, although unworthy scouts, witnessed long ago that the said wars would come. Would that you were worthy soldiers of Christ! “Let us throw off the deeds of darkness and take up the arms of light” [Romans 13:12].²

- 1 For a chronology of his works as then known, see Kurt-Victor Selge, “L’origine delle opere di Gioacchino da Fiore,” in *L’attesa della fine dei tempi nel medioevo*, (eds.) Ovidio Capitani and Jürgen Miethke (Annali dell’Istituto storico italo-germanico Quaderno) 28 (Bologna, 1990), 87–131. Since Selge wrote this article, the dating he proposes for the “De vita Benedicti” has been queried by Felice Accrocca, “Intorno ad alcuni recenti studi gioachimiti,” *Rivista di Storia della Chiesa in Italia* 51 (1997), 149–74. Robert E. Lerner, “Ecstatic Dissent,” *Speculum* 67 (1992), 33–57; 39, note 27 also provides a revised date. Most recently, Alexander Patschovsky argues that Part 1 was written between 1184 and 1187/88, Parts 2 and 3 between Easter 1187 and Easter 1188, and Part 4 slightly after Easter 1188. See *Tractatus in expositionem vite et regule beati Benedicti*, in *Joachim abbas Florentis Opera Omnia 4: Opera Minora 4*, (ed.) Alexander Patschovsky (Fonti per la storia dell’Italia medievale: Antiquitates) 29 (Rome, 2008).
- 2 Abbot Joachim of Fiore, *Liber de Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti* 1–4, (ed.) E. Randolph Daniel (Transactions of the American Philosophical Society) 73, Part 8 (Philadelphia, 1983), i–455, 10–11.

In this, as in many of his other works, Joachim voiced a widely shared dissatisfaction with the current state of the world and of the Church in particular, but his words resonated more deeply than any contemporary reform treatise. Marjorie Reeves, who spent many long years studying Joachim's influence, summed it up with convenient economy. He was to be renowned as

the prophet of the Antichrist, the interpreter of the seven-headed dragon, the oracle on the fate of Jerusalem, the recipient of a miraculous gift of spiritual understanding, the prophet of the two great mendicant orders, and the proclaimer of 1260 as the year of crisis.³

Of these, the last, at least, would have surprised him: Joachim himself was careful never to specify a date.

The purpose of what follows is to outline the main features of the perceptions of Joachim in the 13th century and the mechanisms and extent of the reception of his ideas. This chapter will also outline the way that historians in the 20th and 21st centuries have portrayed him. But tracking the influence of a medieval thinker is never straightforward, particularly when so much may be explained by reference to a common biblical hinterland.⁴ Nor does the nature of prophecy simplify matters. Augustine had opposed speculation about the end of time, and Augustinian theologians taught that the gift of prophecy, communicating direct divine revelation about the course of salvation, had become unnecessary after the time of the primitive Church. The Dominican theologian Albertus Magnus (d. 1280) argued that prophecy required "people with an acute intellect and a well-ordered imagination, so that the intellect can work with clear intelligible species." Real prophecy, as opposed to divination in dreams and visions, was restricted to those "who shun bodily and worldly passions and devote themselves to a life of contemplation and study," thereby acquiring the ability to receive the divine gift of prophetic insight.⁵ Claiming the status of prophet was thus a hubristic activity. What is more, medieval

3 Marjorie Reeves, "The Originality and Influence of Joachim of Fiore," *Traditio* 35 (1980), 298. These themes serve as guides to some of the sections below.

4 Bernard McGinn, *Visions of the End: Apocalyptic Traditions in the Middle Ages* (1979; repr. with a new preface and expanded bibliography, New York, 1998), 323, note 14. This volume includes convenient English translations of select passages from key Joachite texts, esp. 161–67, 172–79.

5 Albertus Magnus, "De somno et vigilia," (ed.) A Borguet, in *Alberti Magni Opera Omnia*, vol. 9 (Paris, 1890), 121–212. Discussed in Bert Roest, "Divination, Visions and Prophecy according to Albert the Great," in *Media Latinitas: A Collection of Essays to Mark the Occasion of the Retirement of L.J. Engels*, (eds.) R.I.A. Nip, H. van Dijk, E.M.C. van Houts, C.H.J.M. Kneepkens, and G.A.A. Kortekaas (Turnhout, 1996), 323–28.

prophecies had to be obscure to match the obscurity of the biblical prophets, Daniel and John, or the Sibyls. It was a combination that encouraged anonymity, convolution, and (for some authors, though not Joachim) ventriloquism. In the specific case of Joachim, it has been suggested that his importance lay in the very complexity of his thinking: “the multitude of possibilities he introduced for the structuring and comprehension of historical reality.”⁶ Such qualities also encouraged the writing of explanatory commentaries, which, in turn, served as convenient tools for the analysis of current affairs according to the views of the writer, and often involved the “post eventum” modification of a prophetic text to bring it up to date.

Aspects of Joachim’s thinking had great creative potential, prompting the rapid development of pseudonymous texts full of ideas that were (or could be) identified with Joachim, but which are not found in his works. Yet there was no fixed “text,” and indeed, Joachim’s own approach to his writings itself exemplifies the fluidity. Using a comparison, or concordance, between the two biblical Testaments, he explained the course of world history in seven ages (*etates*), with seven times (*tempora*) of the Church and three stages (*status*) of spiritual growth, culminating in that of the Holy Spirit.⁷ An essential element of *Joachism* was thus the expectation of a historical period of radical change in the life of the Church and of the world brought about by the Holy Spirit.⁸ The period *after* the defeat of the Antichrist and before the end of the world would be the earthly Sabbath, a time of peace—that is, the third *status*, an idea that was perhaps most responsible for his lasting influence on the history of ideas.⁹ However, Joachim himself only gradually refined his thinking on these millenarian issues, silently changing his mind about some of the details,

6 Bernard McGinn, “Influence and Importance in Evaluating Joachim of Fiore,” in *Il profetismo gioachimita tra Quattrocento e Cinquecento. Atti del 111 Congresso internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti* (17–21 September 1989), (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: Strumenti) 3 (Genoa, 1991), 18.

7 David Burr notes that *status* is both a reference to time, so that “age” and “period” are acceptable translations, and to a qualitative position better translated as “a state of being.” David Burr, “Olivi’s Apocalyptic Timetable,” *The Journal of Medieval and Renaissance Studies* 11 (1981), 237, note 3.

8 See Gian Luca Potestà, *Angelo Clareno dai poveri eremiti ai fraticelli* (Nuovi studi storici 8) (Rome, 1990), 13, with reference to the earlier scholarship of Grundmann, Töpfer, McGinn, and Lerner, for whose works, see notes below. For a full account of Joachim’s life and works, see the chapter by Ludovico Gatto in the present volume.

9 See Julia Eva Wannenmacher, “Apocalypse, Antichrists and the Third Age: Joachim’s Peaceful Revolution,” in *Ancient Christian Interpretations of “Violent Texts” in the Apocalypse*, (eds.) Joseph Verheyden, Tobias Nicklas, and Andreas Merkt (Göttingen, 2011), 268.

sometimes in the course of a single work, and not always achieving certainty.¹⁰ He moved the location of the Antichrist, for example, from Babylon/Jerusalem to a false Christian born in Rome and destined to take the papal throne. Had Jerusalem remained the center of the story, there is little doubt that its loss—putting it outside Christian lands—would have reduced any sense of urgency in the message for his contemporaries.¹¹ Instead, the change, whether deliberately or not, precluded contradiction or indifference. Thus, it is no surprise that later writers made similar changes. Nor is it surprising that the first task undertaken by many post-Enlightenment scholars seeking to establish the extent of Joachim's influence has been to untangle the possible reception of his own ideas, either from those that predated him, or from those later ascribed to him simply to lend authority to an interpretation of events or an identification of political enemies.¹² It remains, however, a contentious business.

10 See, for example, the brief discussion of the *Liber de Concordia* by Julia Eva Wannemacher, "Die Macht des Bösen. Zur Rolle und Bedeutung des Antichristen in der Eschatologie Joachims von Fiore," *Florensia*, 13–14 (1999–2000), 371, or the differences between it and the *De Septem Sigillis*, 377. See also Wannemacher, "Apocalypse, Antichrists and the Third Age," 274.

11 Gian Luca Potestà, "Apocalittica e politica in Gioacchino da Fiore," in *Endzeiten. Eschatologie in den monotheistischen Weltreligionen*, (eds.) Wolfram Brandes and Felicitas Schmieder (Millennium-Studien zu Kultur und Geschichte des ersten Jahrtausends nach Christus) 16 (Berlin-New York, 2008), 233, 243; Potestà, "Gli spazi dell'Anticristo," in *Il secolo xii: la "renovatio" dell'Europa cristiana*, (eds.) Giles Constable, Giorgio Cracco, Hagen Keller, and Diego Quagliani (Bologna, 2003), 393–421.

12 In what follows, the distinction between Joachite and Joachimist will generally follow McGinn's explanation: "*Joachite* in the sense that they are influenced by the body of ideas claiming Joachim as its source," and "*Joachimist*, that is, truly in harmony with the authentic writings and major ideas of the Abbot of Fiore." See Bernard McGinn, "The Abbot and the Doctors: Scholastic Reactions to the Radical Eschatology of Joachim of Fiore," *Church History* 40 (1971), 35. This is close to the German distinction between *joachitisch* and *joachimisch*, but contrasts with the terminology adopted by Troncarelli who (in part a product of the structure of Italian as opposed to English) distinguishes between *gioachimiti*—Joachim's followers in the strict sense, in the spirit and often the letter, who scrupulously copied the teachings of their master, revising them slightly but otherwise leaving them untouched—and *gioachimisti*, or the followers faithful only to certain general convictions but who were prepared creatively to rework his message, with the concomitant risk that they misunderstood or substantially modified his ideas. See Fabio Troncarelli, "Il *Liber Figurarum* tra 'gioachimiti' e 'gioachimisti,'" in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III. Atti del 5° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (16–21 September 1999), (ed.) Roberto Rusconi (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 13 (Rome, 2001), 268. More recently, Gian Luca Potestà has rightly observed that these terms understate the complexity of the issue ("risolvono un po'

6.2 Preliminaries

The fundamental work on the sources for Joachim's life was undertaken starting in the 1920s by a young German medievalist, Herbert Grundmann (1902–1970), whose findings have remained perennially important, persisting in the footnotes of most recent research, including the essays in this volume.¹³ This is also true for a few other scholars whose work on the sources is still cited, but most mid-20th-century conceptions of Joachim's influence by writers inclined to underline his impact in broad terms, whether positive or negative, have since been set aside. These include the views of the Italian anti-fascist theologian, Ernesto Buonaiuti (1881–1946), an excommunicated priest and one of the first to explore Joachimism, and the French nobleman and Jesuit theologian, Henri de Lubac (1896–1991), who, like the Austrian political philosopher, Eric Voegelin (1901–1985) (an escapee during the Nazi era), saw Joachim as a destructive force, an anticlerical revolutionary, or even the dark prophet of the Third Reich.¹⁴ The exception to this rule is perhaps the work of Marjorie Reeves (1905–2003), who began by looking at Joachim's reputation and influence in the 15th and 16th centuries and gradually moved to earlier periods in her research, becoming the foremost advocate of Joachim's originality and impact. In 1969, she concluded that his work marked a “turning point in medieval thought about Last Things.” His Trinitarian framework gave new force “to concepts of the Millennium and the Sabbath Age.”¹⁵ In the 1970s and 1980s, these

troppo gordianamente un nodo ermeneutico in verità molto intricato”). See Potestà, “Il Super Hieremiam e il gioachimismo della dirigenza minoritica della metà del duecento,” in *Mediterraneo, Mezzogiorno, Europa, studi in onore di Cosimo Damiano Fonseca*, (eds.) Giancarlo Andenna and Hubert Houben, 2 vols. (Bari, 2004), 2:879–80. The boundaries between what is and what is not “Joachite” are often fluid, but the distinction remains useful for the purposes of this chapter.

- 13 An Italian translation of Grundmann's key works was published as recently as the late 1990s: Herbert Grundmann, *Gioacchino da Fiore. Vita e opere*, (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore. Testi e Strumenti) 8 (Rome, 1997). The main German essays were collected in Herbert Grundmann, *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, Part 2: *Joachim von Fiore* (MGH Schriften) 25.2 (Stuttgart, 1977).
- 14 Henri de Lubac, *La Postérité spirituelle de Joachim de Flore*, 2 vols. (Paris, 1979–81). Bernard McGinn also provides an excellent brief account of their views in “Influence and Importance in Evaluating Joachim of Fiore,” 15–18. See also Matthias Riedl, *Joachim von Fiore. Denker der vollendeten Menschheit* (Epistemata: Würzburger wissenschaftliche Schriften: Reihe Philosophie) 361 (Würzburg, 2004).
- 15 Marjorie Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy in the Later Middle Ages: A Study in Joachimism* (Oxford, 1969), 303. On the roots of Reeves' approach, see R.W. Southern, “Marjorie Reeves as a Historian,” in *Prophecy and Millenarianism: Essays in Honour of Marjorie Reeves*, (ed.) Ann Williams (Harlow, 1980), 1–9, reprinted in *History and Historians: Selected Papers of*

conclusions were contested by a number of scholars, including Raoul Manselli and Robert Lerner, who re-examined the roots of Joachim's thinking. Manselli, a historian of popular religion, unsurprisingly deemed Reeves' approach to be too focused on intellectual ideas and detached from the religious needs of the people who produced them.¹⁶ Lerner instead argued that although Joachim went "far beyond his sources," his originality on some issues had been exaggerated.¹⁷ He noted, for example, the contrast between traditional Augustinian pessimism about worldly life and the optimism of Joachim's time of earthly happiness, but argued that the latter stemmed from non-Western Sibylline and Tiburtine texts and from 12th-century reworkings of the ideas of Jerome and Bede. In particular, he identified Jerome as the inadvertent originator of the notion of a continuation of earthly history before the coming of the Antichrist, an idea transformed in the 12th century and perpetuated through widely disseminated texts such as the *Glossa ordinaria*.¹⁸

Numerous, more recent historians have echoed Lerner's approach and have tended to downplay Joachim's posthumous influence. Luigi Canetti is typical when, in a discussion of the work of the Dominican Petrus Ferrandi (d. before 1258), he argues that the eschatology of Ferrandi's text cannot be ascribed to anything more than a generic revitalizing, already from the early 1200s, of a broader current of eschatology in the traditional Augustinian-Gregorian matrix.¹⁹ For Canetti, this trend helps to explain the rapid fortune of Joachite writings and motifs and their easy acceptability at various levels of theological learning.²⁰ Other recent writers have sought to sidestep the difficulties inherent in tracing the reception of specific ideas and influence by detaching origin

R.W. Southern, (ed.) R.J. Bartlett (Oxford, 2004), 218–24. Other important and influential historians in the field include Bernhard Töpfer, whose *Das kommende Reich des Friedens. Zur Entwicklung chiliastischer Zukunftshoffnungen im Hochmittelalter* (Berlin, 1964), was reprinted nearly thirty years later and translated into Italian by Sergio Sorrentino (with a useful preface by Töpfer updating the historiography) as *Il regno futuro della libertà. Lo sviluppo delle speranze millenaristiche nel medioevo centrale* (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: strumenti) 4 (Genoa, 1992).

- 16 Raoul Manselli, "Premise to 'Ricerche sull'influenza della profezia nel Medioevo,'" *Bullettino dell'Istituto storico Italiano per il Medio Evo* 82 (1970), 1–12.
- 17 Robert E. Lerner, "Refreshment of the Saints: The Time after Antichrist as a Station for Earthly Progress in Medieval Thought," *Traditio* 32 (1976), 101, 117.
- 18 Ibid., 101–15. For a recent introduction to the early texts on the Antichrist, see Gian Luca Potestà and Marco Rizzi, (eds.), *L'anticristo*, vol. 1: *Il nemico dei tempi finali. Testi dal 11 al 14 secolo* (Milan, 2005).
- 19 Luigi Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria. Il culto e l'immagine di Domenico nella storia dei primi frati Predicatori* (Spoleto, 1996), 346. For Ferrandi's dates, see Simon Tugwell, "Petrus Ferrandi and His Legenda of St. Dominic," *Archivum Fratrum Praedicatorum* 77 (2007), 60.
- 20 Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 346.

from impact. Thus for Raniero Orioli, Joachim was the spokesperson of a profound religious need and his prophetic hope persisted—albeit in a reelaborated and reinterpreted form—“in all the spiritual and religious tensions which came later.” Joachimism is, however, to be understood in the broadest sense as simply characterizing the climate of religious expectation: “The joachism of the mid-thirteenth century was the joachism of joachites, not that of Joachim.”²¹ There is, to follow this line of thought, no need to explore the reception of Joachim’s specific thinking: it is enough to acknowledge that ideas evolved and that both Joachim and other writers were participating in a new phase of creativity in eschatological thinking less determined by the Augustinian-Gregorian matrix.²²

There is, however, more to be said about Joachim’s originality. Since the 1970s, Lerner has revised his thinking, underlining revolutionary aspects of Joachim’s approach, for example, in his changes to the Antichrist theology of the 10th-century *De ortu et tempore Antichristi* (traditionally identified as a work of by Adso of Montier-en-Der, Adso Dervensis), his unprecedented interpretation of the Book of Revelation as a sustained work of prophecy, or his audacity and doctrinal independence in ignoring Augustine’s opinion that an earthly paradise amounted to “ridiculous tales.”²³ Paul J. Alexander has also brought his expertise on Byzantine apocalyptic sources to bear on the debate about Joachim’s influence by examining potential links.²⁴ He concludes that

21 Raniero Orioli, *Venit perfidus heresiarcha. Il movimento apostolico-dolciniano dal 1260 al 1307* (Studi Storici) 193–96 (Rome, 1988), 45 (and citing Manselli, *Premise to “Ricerche,”* 9).

22 For the idea of an earlier “take-off” in apocalyptically-tinged eschatology in the 10th and 11th centuries, see Johannes Fried, “Endzeiterwartung um die Jahrtausendwende,” *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 45 (1989), 381–473, also published in Italian as, “L’attesa della fine dei tempi alla svolta del millennio,” in *L’attesa della fine dei tempi nel medioevo*, (eds.) Ovidio Capitani and Jürgen Miethke (Annali dell’Istituto storico italo-germanico Quaderno) 28 (Bologna, 1990), 37–86.

23 See Robert E. Lerner, “Antichrists and Antichrist in Joachim of Fiore,” *Speculum* 60 (1985), 553–70 and Lerner, “Ecstatic Dissent,” *Speculum* 67 (1992), 40. For his earlier, more restricted view of Joachim’s influence, see Lerner, “Refreshment of the Saints,” 120–23. A summary of Lerner’s change of approach is in Felice Accrocca, “Intorno ad alcuni recenti studi gioachimiti,” *Rivista di Storia della Chiesa in Italia* 51 (1997), 164. For a new and convincing hypothesis on the origins and purpose of *De ortu et tempore Antichristi* and the identity of its author, who is named in early sources only as Adso, see Simon Maclean, “Reform, Queenship and the End of the World in Tenth-Century France: Adso’s ‘Letter on the Origin and Time of the Antichrist’ Reconsidered,” *Revue belge de philologie et d’histoire / Belgisch tijdschrift voor filologie en geschiedenis* 86 (2008), 645–75.

24 Paul J. Alexander, “The Diffusion of Byzantine Apocalypses in the Medieval West and the Beginnings of Joachimism,” in *Prophecy and Millenarianism*, (ed.) Williams, 53–106. See also Alexander, “Byzantium and the Migration of Literary Works and Motifs: The Legend of the

Byzantine sources must have been known to, but deliberately ignored by, Joachim, who was hostile both to Greek Christianity and to an apocalyptic tradition that developed independently from the canonical Revelation of John.²⁵ At the end of the 1990s, Julia Eva Wannenmacher further detailed the way in which Joachim broke with tradition by arguing, for example, that the Eschaton had already begun with the history of salvation.²⁶ She also reminded scholars that there is no clear line separating the three *status* in his thought, so that “events in the seventh part of the Apocalypse, such as the work of Gog and the Last Judgement, belong in part to the second, in part to the third *status*.”²⁷ For Joachim the Antichrist is not the beginning of the end, but a milestone in salvation history.²⁸ In the process, Wannenmacher corrected an earlier oversimplification proposed by Manselli, who had argued that Joachim allowed for a double Antichrist: a first in the period of transition from the second to the third *status*, which behaved as a “*universalis pontifex*,” and a second that would appear at the close of the third *status* just before the Last Judgement at the end of days and was to be identified with Gog or with the tail of the dragon in the Apocalypse.²⁹

Even more recently and following a similar line of analysis, Gian Luca Potestà has revisited versions of the Antichrist in texts that were “bestsellers” of the late 11th and early 12th centuries. Renewed comparison with the 4th-century Tiburtine Sibyl produced in the Eastern Mediterranean, the 7th-century Mesopotamian *Revelationes* of pseudo-Methodius, and Adso’s *De ortu et tempore Antichristi* allow him to argue that Joachim contributed to a redefinition by

Last Roman Emperor,” *Medievalia et Humanistica*, n.s. 2 (1971), 47–68; reprinted in *Religious and Political History and Thought in the Byzantine Empire: Collected Essays of Paul J. Alexander* (Variorum Collected Studies Series) 71 (London, 1978), Essay 12; Alexander, “Medieval Apocalypses as Historical Sources,” *American Historical Review* 73, (1968), 997–1018, reprinted in *Religious and Political History and Thought*, Essay XIII; and Alexander, *The Oracle of Baalbek: The Tiburtine Sibyl in Greek Dress* (Dumbarton Oaks Center for Byzantine Studies) 10 (Washington, D.C., 1967).

25 Alexander, “The Diffusion of Byzantine Apocalypses,” 84–86.

26 See Wannenmacher, “Die Macht des Bösen,” 376.

27 Ibid. Wannenmacher underlines the *almost* revolutionary nature of Joachim’s interpretation of the Antichrist opening the Seventh *aetas* and its implications for the thousand years to follow in Wannenmacher, “Apocalypse, Antichrists and the Third Age,” 276–78.

28 Ibid., 378.

29 Ibid., 372, with reference to Raoul Manselli, “Il problema del doppio anticristo in Gioacchino da Fiore,” in *Geschichtschreibung und geistiges Leben im Mittelalter. Festschrift für Heinz Löwe zum 65. Geburtstag* (eds.) Karl Hauck und Hubert Mordek (Cologne, 1978), 434; reprinted in Manselli, *Da Gioacchino da Fiore a Cristoforo Colombo. Studi sul francescanesimo spirituale, sull’ecclesiologia e sull’escatologismo bassomedievali*, (ed.) Paolo Vian (Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo: Nuovi studi storici) 36 (Rome 1997), 519.

maintaining the notion of the Antichrist as a single being (as opposed to Augustine's idea—for example—of a collective entity) and, like Hildegard of Bingen, ignoring the other tradition, that of the last emperor. Potestà thus concludes—rather like Reeves—that it would not be possible to explain the interest that Joachim's message later aroused without acknowledging his role in the conceptual and lexical modernization of eschatology and prophecy.³⁰

As recent historians have demonstrated, Joachim's work was part of a continuum of ideas concerning the Apocalypse and biblical exegesis that were endlessly subject to reappropriation and rewriting. Although innovative, he had no monopoly on apocalyptic thought and, like his contemporaries and successors, was surely reacting above all to events in his lifetime of the sort with which this chapter began.³¹ Yet—as will become clear in the following exploration of the mechanisms for the transmission of his thought and the ways in which it was exploited—it was Joachim's name that acquired great resonance. It remains legitimate to ask what triggered that process. A premise of this chapter is that the answer must be sought in the particular contribution of, and responses to, Abbot Joachim as a personality, and above all as a creative thinker.

6.3 Tracing Early Influence

Joachim's personal reputation as a living (and controversial) religious authority and an expert on the Antichrist was very high. In the final decades of his life, he was to be found in the company of popes and the curia. He visited Pope Lucius III in Veroli in 1184 and his successor Pope Urban III in Verona in 1186–7. In 1188, he met Pope Clement III in Rome, and Joachim's work was known to Pope Innocent III (1198–1216).³² These contacts have been used to suggest

30 Potestà, "Gli spazi dell'Anticristo," 420.

31 An example of an eschatological work that "proves that 'post-Antichrist' chiliasm could exist in the thirteenth century apart from Joachim of Fiore," is the *Aser pinguis*, written in the circle of the Dominican Hugh of Saint Cher c.1236. The author knew Joachim's writings, but chose instead to use Richard of Saint Victor's Revelation commentary based on Bede. See Robert E. Lerner, "Poverty, Preaching, and Eschatology in the Revelation Commentaries of 'Hugh of St. Cher,'" in *The Bible in the Medieval World: Essays in Memory of Beryl Smalley*, (eds.) Katherine Walsh and Diana Wood (Oxford, 1985), 157–89, esp. 179–80. See also David Burr, "The Antichrist and the Jews in Four Thirteenth-Century Apocalypse Commentaries," in *The Friars and the Jews in the Middle Ages and the Renaissance*, (eds.) Steven J. Michael and Susan E. Myers (The Medieval Franciscans) 2 (Leiden, 2004), 23–38.

32 The encounters are documented both in contemporary chronicles (see below) and in a letter of Clement III from 1188. See Herbert Grundmann, "Joachim von Floris und Rainer

various possible lines of influence. His views on religious life—to take just one example—have been proposed as Innocent's source for the inclusion of married men and women in the tripartite division of the new order of the Humiliati approved in 1201, a year before Joachim died.³³ In addition to his Trinitarian division of the history of the Church, Joachim had argued that there were three levels of monastic practice: those most like "animals" (carnal) would perform manual labor, those in the middle would study doctrine, and those who were spiritual would pursue the peace of contemplation.³⁴ The superficial parallels with the lay, monastic, and canonical elements of the Humiliati order are intriguing, but there is little evidence for the study of doctrine among the Humiliati at this date, and pragmatic considerations must have played a large part in settling on their new structure, responsibility for which lay as much with the Northern Italian Humiliati themselves as with the prelates entrusted by Innocent with bringing them back into the Church.³⁵ In his biography of Joachim, moreover, Potestà has observed that the early actions of Innocent III on issues such as heretics, Jews, and the Eastern Church do not indicate that his policies were much influenced by the views of the Calabrian abbot.³⁶ Nonetheless, Innocent did borrow from Joachim in his own writings; for example, in his use of number symbolism.³⁷ The connection was almost certainly indirect,

von Ponza," *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 16 (1960), 492–93. Joachim's so-called letter-testament also refers to letters from Popes Lucius III, Urban III, and Clement III asking him to complete his writings and submit them for approval. For the debate about the authenticity of this text, see Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 28–29, note 3. It is accepted by Kurt-Victor Selge, "L'origine delle opere di Gioacchino da Fiore," in *L'attesa della fine dei tempi nel medioevo*, (eds.) Capitani and Miethke, 93. A list of those whom Joachim met is in Bernard McGinn, "Joachim and the Sibyl," *Cîteaux* 24 (1973), 97, note 3; and repeated in Robert Moynihan, "Joachim of Fiore and the Early Franciscans: A Study of the Commentary 'Super Hieremiam,'" 2 vols. (Ph.D. diss., Yale, 1988), 1:25–26.

- 33 See Fiona Robb, "Who Hath Chosen the Better Part?" (Luke 10:42): Pope Innocent III and Joachim of Fiore on the Diverse Forms of Religious Life," *Monastic Studies* 2 (1991), 158.
- 34 "Illis enim qui animales sunt in monasteriis imponendum est opus manuum, illis qui medii studium doctrine, illis qui spiritualibus requies contemplationis." See Joachim of Fiore, *Liber de Concordia Novi ac Veteri Testamenti* 5, cited in Lerner, "Joachim and the Scholastics," 261.
- 35 On the reconciliation of the Humiliati, see Frances Andrews, *The Early Humiliati* (Cambridge, 1999), 64–98.
- 36 Gian Luca Potestà, *Il tempo dell'Apocalisse. Vita di Gioacchino da Fiore* (Rome, 2004). See also Gian Luca Potestà, "Joachim de Fiore dans la recherche actuelle," *Oliviana*, uploaded online 27 June 2006. URL: <http://oliviana.revues.org/document39.html>, consulted 9 February 2009.
- 37 Fiona Robb, "Joachimist Exegesis in the Theology of Innocent III and Rainer of Ponza," *Florentia* 11 (1997), 152. See also Christoph Egger, "Papst Innocenz III. als Theologe.

through Joachim's former companion Raniero da Ponza, who was to become a prominent figure in Innocent's curia. It was a model of transmission that was often to be repeated.

Joachim was reputed to have enjoyed similar fame at royal courts, but once again, it is not easy to ascribe any direct impact. The English chronicler Roger of Howden (d. 1201/2) reports that while at Messina in 1190, King Richard of England sent for Joachim. He was keen to hear his prophecies, having heard much about his reputation.³⁸ The abbot was also said to have encountered Philip Augustus of France, and in a more practical setting in 1190–91, he petitioned King Tancred of Sicily, from whom he requested protection and fiscal exemptions for his monks.³⁹ According to an anonymous *vita* written by a close companion in the first decade of the 13th century, Joachim counseled the Emperor Henry VI, proposing that he break off a particularly violent siege of Naples and return at a later date when he would win Sicily without a fight (*sine bello*), as he eventually did.⁴⁰ Finally, after Henry's death, Joachim may have attended

Beiträge zur Kenntnis seines Denkens im Rahmen der Frühscholastik," *Archivum Historiae Pontificiae* 30 (1992), 106–09, on Innocent's use of the same IEUE Tetragram as Joachim; Egger, "A Theologian at Work: Some Remarks on Methods and Sources in Innocent III's Writings," in *Pope Innocent III and His World*, (ed.) John C. Moore (Aldershot, 1999), 25–33; Egger, "Joachim von Fiore, Rainer von Ponza und die römische Kurie," in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III*, 129–62; Fiona Robb, "Did Innocent III Personally Condemn Joachim of Fiore?" *Florensia* 7 (1993), 71–91; and Egger, "Joachim von Fiore, Rainer von Ponza und die römische Kurie," in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III*, 129–62.

38 Roger of Hoveden/Howden, *Chronica*, (ed.) William Stubbs (*Rerum Britannicarum Medii Aevi Scriptores*, 51) (London, 1868–71), 3:75–79; and *Gesta Regis Ricardi*, (ed.) William Stubbs (*Rerum Britannicarum Medii Aevi Scriptores*) 49 (London, 1867), 2:151–55. See also Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 7.

39 On Tancred, see the *Vita beati Joachimi abbatis*, (ed.) Herbert Grundmann, "Zur Biographie Joachims von Fiore und Rainers von Ponza," *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 16 (1960), 437–546; reprinted in Grundmann, *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, 2:349. The royal diploma is now printed in Valeria De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux. Gioacchino da Fiore e l'Ordine fiorense* (Rome, 2006), 202.

40 The account of Joachim's encounter with Henry is in the *Vita b. Joachimi abbatis*, (ed.) Grundmann, 350–51. Pietro da Eboli, a loyal member of Henry VI's court who wrote a poem celebrating his conquest of Sicily, was, according to the modern editor of his poems, open to Joachite ideas already during the abbot's lifetime. If so, they were reflected only in a very allusive manner in his writing. See Petri Ansolini de Ebulo, "De rebus Siculis carmen," (ed.) E. Rota, *Rerum Italicarum Scriptores*, second series, 31/i (Città di Castello, 1904), particula xlii, 177–78 and particula xlvii, 193. See also Enrico Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali* (Messina, 1988), 50. On Henry VI's contact with Joachim and his interest in prophecies of the end of time, see also Thomas Foerster, "Der Prophet und der

the court in Palermo of his widow, Constance, and later of their young son, Frederick (II). Reports in contemporary chronicles of these encounters are an important vehicle for understanding the nature and geographical extent of the abbot's reputation. But even taking into account the agendas of the writers, a lack of corroborating sources means that the immediate political or spiritual impact, if any, of such personal contacts is beyond retrieval.⁴¹

In the world of the schools, we seem at the outset to be on firmer ground. As Philippe Buc first noticed, in his *Commentary on Exodus*, the Paris Master, Peter the Chanter (d. 1197), criticized Joachim's method of comparing the Church in the Old and New Testaments:

Accordingly, that Joachim, comparing the *status* of the Church before the coming of Christ, whereby, after the coming of Christ, the *status* and experience [of the Church] are completed, proclaims that the coming of the Antichrist is now imminent, when the good will be completed and destroyed. But this comparison is unprofitable and inconsistent.⁴²

It is an indisputably negative reaction, but the Chanter's words demonstrate all the same that Joachim's thinking had already reached one of the leading masters in Paris, whether by word of mouth, in writing, or through images. Indeed, it seems likely that Joachim's more complex ideas arrived in Paris and elsewhere on manuscript folia and, though not yet collected into a single

Kaiser: Staufische Herrschaftsvorstellungen am Ende des 12. Jahrhunderts," in *Staufisches Kaisertum im 12. Jahrhundert: Konzepte—Netzwerke—Politische Praxis*, (eds.) Stefan Burkhart, Thomas Metz, Bernd Schneidmüller, and Stefan Weinfurter (Regensburg, 2010), 253–76.

41 Hubert Houben cautiously notes that the encounters with Richard, Henry VI, and Constance are recorded by single contemporary chroniclers or in hagiographical texts that are "notoriamente ... pieni di topoi letterari e di ambigua valenza ..." in "Monarchia normanno-sveva e Ordini riformati (con alcune considerazioni sulla religiosità di Federico II)," in *Gioachimismo e profetismo in Sicilia (secoli xiii–xvi). Atti del III Convegno internazionale di studio* (14–16 October 2005), (ed.) Cosimo Damiano Fonseca (Rome, 2007), 18.

42 Peter the Chanter, *Commentary on Exodus*, cited in Philippe Buc, *L'ambiguïté du livre. Prince, pouvoir, et peuple dans les commentaires de la bible au moyen âge* (Théologie historique) 95 (Paris, 1994), 164, note 96: "Sic et ille Ioachim comparans status ecclesie ante adventum Christi, in quo consummato [fuit] statibus et eventibus eius [ecclesie] post adventum Christi predicat iam imminere adventum antichristi in qua consummatio et destructio boni [bonorum]. Sed predicta comparatio inutilis videtur et incongrua." Discussed in Robert E. Lerner, "Joachim and the Scholastics," 256.

volume, that this may have included images (*figurae*) through which, as Reeves argued, “Joachim’s ideas were mostly widely disseminated.”⁴³ Once again, however, tracing their impact in the political or religious world beyond the Chanter’s circle is not easy.⁴⁴ As Lerner argues, the evidence for Peter’s knowledge of Joachim’s approach suggests that his thinking may also have been known to Amalric of Bène, another Paris Master (d. 1206), as well as to Cardinal Robert of Courson (d. 1219), who was involved in the later condemnation of Amalric and his forced recantation, which appears to have provoked the latter’s death out of “weariness ... and indignation” (*tedio ... et indignatione affectus*).⁴⁵ Courson had been a member of the Chanter’s circle, so he may have been warned against Joachim early on.⁴⁶ Contemplating stories of the supposed encounter between Joachim and Philip Augustus in Messina, Gary Dickson also suggests that it “can be taken for granted that Capetian court circles [where Amalric was a tutor to the future king] would not have been unacquainted with the outlines of Joachimism.”⁴⁷ Yet the uncertainties should give one pause. There is indeed some evidence for the French royal court knowing about Joachimism: a poem composed “quasi prophetic” on the king before his crusade brings to

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- 43 Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 27, 38. Some of Joachim’s works later circulated together with those of the Chanter. See, for example, Gioacchino da Fiore, *Introduzione all’Apocalisse*, (ed.) Kurt-Victor Selge (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 6 (Rome, 1995) with reference to Paris, Bibliothèque nationale de France [hereafter BnF], lat. 682 from the early 13th century, and Rein, Austria, Zisterzienserstiftsbibliothek, MS 61 from the late 13th century. Albertus Magnus was to stress the role of images in conveying dreams, visions, and prophecies, which were “imprinted on the sensitive soul,” in his “De Somno et vigilia,” (ed.) Borguet. See Roest, “Divination, Visions and Prophecy according to Albert the Great,” 327–28.
- 44 For this terminology, see John W. Baldwin, *Masters, Princes, and Merchants: The Social Views of Peter the Chanter and His Circle* (Princeton, 1970).
- 45 Guillaume le Breton, “Gesta Philippi Augusti (continuation),” in *Oeuvres de Rigord et de Guillaume le Breton, Historiens de Philippe-Auguste*, (ed.) Henri F. Delaborde, 2 vols. (Paris, 1882), 1:231; see also J.M.M.H. Thijssen, “Master Amalric and the Amalricians: Inquisitorial Procedure and the Suppression of Heresy at the University of Paris,” *Speculum* 71 (1996), 48.
- 46 Lerner, “Joachim and the Scholastics,” 251–64; Thijssen, “Master Amalric and the Amalricians,” 43–65.
- 47 Gary Dickson, “The Burning of the Amalricians,” *The Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 40 (1989), 363; repr. in Dickinson, *Religious Enthusiasm in the Medieval West*, Variorum Collected Studies Series (Aldershot, 2000), Essay III/3.

mind Joachim's preaching.⁴⁸ Dickson rightly concludes, however, that "in reality, none of [the] arguments for Amalric's putative knowledge of Joachism can bear much scrutiny. No proof exists that Amalric was informed about Joachite exegesis or prophecy, even if his adherents were." He also points out how unlikely it is that Amalric would have attempted to combine Joachim's dynamic version of biblical-historical prophecy with his own "static, metaphysical world view of neoplatonic Christian pantheism."⁴⁹ The link becomes no less speculative if we turn to the beliefs of Amalric's clerical adherents, who were to be condemned and burned alive in 1210 when their master's body was disinterred and excommunicated. According to the *Contra Amaurianos* (c.1208–10), a hostile account of their beliefs attributed to Guarnerius of Rochefort (d. c. 1225), they considered themselves to have a special role as spiritual figures who did not need grace or penance to be saved, arguing, for example, that within five years all men would be "spiritual men" (*spirituales*).⁵⁰ To judge by his extant writings, such ideas would have amazed Joachim. Yet the Amalricians also believed that the Third Age of spiritual progress had arrived. Moreover, according to the Cistercian Caesarius of Heisterbach (d. 1240), one of their members, William Aurifaber, prophesied concerning the Antichrist.⁵¹ Were he and his companions aware of Joachim's division of history into three stages or his predictions concerning the Antichrist and spiritual men? Perhaps. Once again, the difficulty is that Joachim was not writing in a vacuum. In addition to those already mentioned, numerous other writers had similar notions about structuring time, or the chronology and effect of the coming of an Antichrist. Rupert of Deutz (d. 1129), to take an influential case, had used typologies in his exegesis of the Bible to associate the three persons of the Trinity with periods of history, relating God the Father to the Creation, Christ to Redemption (culminating in the incarnation), and the Holy Spirit to the history of the

48 As observed by E.A.R. Brown, "La notion de la légitimité et la prophétie à la cour de Philippe Auguste," in *La France de Philippe Auguste*, (ed.) R.-H. Bautier (Paris, 1982), 85. The poem is now in Rigord, *Histoire de Philippe Auguste*, (eds.), trans., and notes by É. Carpentier, G. Pons, and Y. Chauvin (*Sources d'Histoire Médiévales*) 33 (Paris, 2006), 265–67. The editors note that the poem also draws on Hebrew prophecies, 86.

49 Dickson, "The Burning of the Amalricians," 363.

50 See *Contra amaurianos: ein anonym, wahrscheinlich dem Garnerius von Rochefort zugehöriger Traktat gegen die Amalrikaner aus dem Anfang des XIII. Jahrhunderts*, (ed.) Clemens Baumbker (Münster, 1926). The likely date is discussed on xvii–xxv.

51 Caesarius of Heisterbach, "De hereticis Parisiis exustis," in *Dialogus Miraculorum* 5.22, (ed.) J. Strange, 2 vols. (Cologne, 1851), 1:305.

Church.⁵² Another theologian and keen monastic reformer, Gerhoh, Provost of Reichersberg (d. 1169), had deployed a similar typological exegesis to write about “spiritual men.”⁵³

Summarizing the contours of Joachim’s posthumous impact and reputation is further complicated by the difficult legacy of the events of the Fourth Lateran Council in 1215, which saw the condemnation of his ideas regarding the Trinity. Joachim was hostile to scholasticism, which he considered to be an inferior means of discerning spiritual truth, and had attacked the views expressed in the *Sentences* by the scholastic theologian and Bishop of Paris, Peter Lombard (d. 1160). Joachim insisted on the unity of the Trinity, rejecting Peter’s argument for a “divine essence” as creating a fourth element and an evidently absurd “Quaternity.” He even accused Peter of blasphemy. In a subtle passage, however, the constitutions issued by the Council adopted the views of the Lombard, rejecting Joachim’s conservative criticisms.⁵⁴

Unlike the same text’s denunciation of the “wicked teaching of the impious Amalric” (*perversissimum dogma impii Amalrici*), there was no condemnation of Joachim himself. The constitution also explicitly affirmed that there was no wish to undermine the Monastery of Fiore founded by Joachim, since it was a “wholesome observance” and (potentially more embarrassing) since Joachim had had all his writings sent to the pope for approval or

52 Rupert Tuitiensis [Rupert of Deutz], *De Sancta Trinitate et operibus eius*, (ed.) Rhabanus M. Haacke, 4 vols. (Corpus Christianorum: series latina continuatio mediaevalis) 21–24 (Turnhout, 1971–1972), esp. vol. 1, introduction. See also Peter Classen, “Res Gestae, Universal History, Apocalypse: Visions of Past and Future,” in *Renaissance and Renewal in the Twelfth Century*, (eds.) Robert L. Benson and Giles Constable with Carol D. Lanham (Cambridge, MA, 1982; repr. Toronto, 1991), 405.

53 Peter Classen argued against seeing these as eschatologically significant, in contrast to the work on representations of the Antichrist by Horst Dieter Rauh. See Peter Classen, “Eschatologische Ideen und Armutsbewegungen im 11. und 12. Jahrhundert,” in *Povert  e ricchezza nella spiritualit  dei secoli XI e XII* (Convegno del Centro di Studi sulla Spiritualit  Medievale) 8 (Todi, 1969), 127–62, reprinted in *Ausgew hlte Aufs tze von Peter Classen*, (ed.) J. Fleckenstein, assisted by Carl Joachim Classen and Johannes Fried (Vortr ge und Forschungen) 28 (Sigmaringen, 1983), 324; and H.D. Rauh, *Das Bild des Antichrist im Mittelalter. Von Tyconius zum deutschen Symbolismus* (M nster, 1973), 506. For a brief account of his views, see also Classen, “Res Gestae, Universal History, Apocalypse: Visions of Past and Future,” 387–417.

54 Lerner, “Joachim and the Scholastics,” 255–58, posits a link between the Lateran decree and Parisian scholastics; see also Alain Boureau, “Le concept de relation chez Pierre de Jean Olivi,” in *Pierre de Jean Olivi (1248–1298). Pens e scolastique, dissidence spirituelle et soci t *, Actes du colloque de Narbonne (March 1998), (eds.) Alain Boureau and Sylvain Piron (Paris, 1999), 46.

correction.⁵⁵ There seem to have been no open enemies of Joachim at the Council and Honorius III (1216–1227), who had attended it as a cardinal, issued letters explicitly defending the abbot's reputation.⁵⁶ In 1216, for example, the Bishop of Lucca, who had previously accused Joachim and the Florentians of heresy, was warned to desist. In 1220, the pope instructed the Archbishop of Cosenza (Luca di Casimari, Joachim's former companion) and the Bishop of Bisignano to defend the memory of Joachim from accusations of heresy based on the Lateran condemnation of the *libellus* (booklet) that Joachim had written against Peter Lombard.⁵⁷ The offending text itself has not survived. Indeed, it may simply have been an excerpt from his *Psalterium decem chordarum* and never have existed as a separate work, but the fact of the condemnation was broadcast both in its original form as part of the constitutions of 1215 and by its inclusion soon after in decretal collections, where it was subject to commentaries and glosses by later canon lawyers. These texts often pointed out the heresy, but also that the Florentians were not condemned, or they reiterated that Joachim had himself submitted his work to the curia.⁵⁸ As Reeves pointed out, there was thus to be a degree of separation in the second generation after Joachim between those who focused their memories on the attack on Peter Lombard and the condemnation of 1215, and those who were most interested in his reputation as a biblical exegete.⁵⁹

A final obstacle to clarity about the mechanisms and chronology of the spread of Joachim's influence in the 1200s is simply the piecemeal nature of the evidence. This remains the case despite the work that has been done since

55 See also the evidence of the letter-testament in note 32 above.

56 Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 32. Honorius III's attendance at the Fourth Lateran Council as Cencius, Cardinal-Bishop of ss Giovanni e Paolo, is recorded in Achille Luchaire, "Un document retrouvé," *Le Journal des Savants*, n.s. 3 (1905), 561.

57 The bulls are now printed in De Fraja, *Oltre Côteaux*, 265–66 and 272–73.

58 See, for example, the commentary on constitution 2 in the *Casus Fuldensis*, edited in Antonio García y García, *Constitutiones Concilii quarti Lateranensis una cum Commentariis glossatorum* (Monumenta Iuris Canonici, Series A: Corpus Glossatorum) 2 (Vatican City, 1981), 483: "In secunda parte dicitur quod quicumque voluerit defendere vel approbare sententiam Joachim, ab omnibus tanquam hereticus evitetur, set tamen propter hoc non derogetur monasterio suo ..." See also Pierre Michaud-Quantin, "Commentaires sur les deux premières décrétales du recueil de Grégoire IX au XIII^{ème} siècle," in *Die Metaphysik im Mittelalter. Ihr Ursprung und ihre Bedeutung*, (ed.) Paul Wilpert (Miscellanea mediaevalia) 2 (Berlin, 1963), 105. The transmission of the Lateran decrees to Germany via synods and episcopal acts is outlined in Paul B. Pixton, *The German Episcopacy and the Implementation of the Decrees of the Fourth Lateran Council, 1216–1245: Watchmen on the Tower* (Leiden, 1995).

59 Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 45–46.

1954, when Morton Bloomfield and Marjorie Reeves observed that the impact of Joachim in the first half of the century remained “somewhat obscure.”⁶⁰ Then, as now, the majority of known manuscripts of Joachim and pseudo-Joachim came from Italy and France.⁶¹ This is probably a fair indication of the original foci of his impact, but there must have been other manuscripts, and in other places. An early copy of the *Psalterium decem chordarum* and the *Liber introductorius* has recently been redated to the late 12th century and found to include the hands of Spanish scribes. If this is correct, it is not impossible that it was prepared for distribution at the instruction of Joachim’s friend and colleague, Raniero da Ponza, when he served as Innocent III’s legate to Navarre in 1198–99.⁶² Similarly, a chapter of the *Prephatio super Apocalypsim* was copied in a manuscript belonging to the Monastery of Saint-Amand en Pévèle near Valenciennes and dated 1198.⁶³ These seem, however, to be rare early survivals. A disastrous fire at Joachim’s Monastery of San Giovanni in Fiore in 1214, which destroyed administrative documents and led the monks to move to a new site, may well have devastated much of the library, but the very existence of a *scriptorium* at the monastery is disputed.⁶⁴ The *Liber de Concordia*, *Psalterium decem chordarum*, *Tractatus super quatuor Evangelia*, a few shorter works and the *Commentary on the Apocalypse* were all copied between the second and third decades of the 13th century in the *scriptoria* of the Cistercian houses of Corazzo (where Joachim had served as abbot) and Santa Maria della Sambucina in Calabria.⁶⁵ But when E. Randolph Daniel listed twenty complete and

60 Morton W. Bloomfield and Marjorie E. Reeves, “The Penetration of Joachimism into Northern Europe,” *Speculum* 29 (1954), 772.

61 Sabine Schmolinsky, *Der Apokalypsenkommentar des Alexander Minorita: zur frühen Rezeption Joachims von Fiore in Deutschland* (Hanover, 1991), 9.

62 Paris, BnF, MS 427. The association is proposed by Fabio Troncarelli, “Un autografo di Ranerio da Ponza,” in *Il Ricordo del Futuro. Gioacchino da Fiore e il Gioachimismo attraverso la storia*, (ed.) Fabio Troncarelli (Bari, 2006), 47–53.

63 Valenciennes, Bibliothèque municipale, MS 516. See Gioacchino da Fiore, *Introduzione all'Apocalisse*, (ed.) Selge, 20–21. Selge hypothesizes that the text reached Valenciennes either within the Cistercian order or via copyists from Southern Italy. He also notes that it is possible that the manuscript, which also contains works by Ailred of Rievaulx, Bernard of Clairvaux, and various saints’ lives and *passiones*, was produced in Southern Italy and only reached Valenciennes in the 13th century. Selge, 21.

64 See Valeria De Fraja, “‘Post combustionis infortunium.’ Nuove considerazioni sulla tradizione delle opere gioachimite,” *Florentia* 8–9 (1994–5), 131–37, 139.

65 A.M. Adorasio, *Codici latini calabresi. Produzione libraria in Val di Crati e in Sila tra xii e xiii secolo* (Rome, 1986), 26–28, 48–50. See below 217 on Oxford, Corpus Christi College, MS 255A, which contains the *Liber de Concordia* and was produced at or for San Giovanni in Fiore. Padua, Biblioteca Antoniana, MS 322, which Adorasio dates to the second or third

four partial manuscript copies of the *Liber de Concordia* in his modern edition of the text, none of the eleven that he dated to the 13th century could be assigned to the first half.⁶⁶ According to Daniel, one originally belonged to San Giovanni in Fiore, but it was probably produced only in the middle of the century.⁶⁷ Another copy, written in a Northern Italian script, belonged to “Fr. R. Gaufridi” whom Daniel identified as probably Raymond Geoffroi (d. 1310), minister general of the Friars Minor (1289–1295), a particularly interesting connection given Raymond’s advocacy of and identification with the Spiritual Franciscans.⁶⁸ As for the other late-13th-century manuscripts for which Daniel explains their provenance, two appear to be German, two Southern Italian, and two are linked to Paris at the end of the century. One of these copies belonged to the poor Masters of the Sorbonne, to whom it was bequeathed by a Master Gerald of Utrecht. These were undoubtedly key sites for the reception of Joachim in the 13th century, but it is a problematically late and incomplete picture.

Contemporary records of manuscript collections and copying add to this initial, fragmentary account of the means by which Joachim’s ideas spread, providing occasional hints about where other copies may have been. The Franciscan chronicler, Salimbene de Adam, writing in the 1280s and (despite his remarkable garrulity and clear prejudices) one of the best sources on the fortunes of Joachimism in the 13th century, informs us that manuscripts of the abbot’s works were brought to the Franciscan convent of Pisa in the 1240s, with dramatic consequences for its members.⁶⁹ He also refers to what appear to be copies of the *Liber Figurarum* and records that in 1248, when he was in

decade of the 13th century and links to Sambucina, contains the *Psalterium decem choridarum*, *Tractatus super quatuor Evangelia*, *De articulis fidei*, *Adversus Iudeos*, and other minor works.

66 Abbot Joachim of Fiore, *Liber de Concordia*, (ed.) Daniel, xliii–lv.

67 Rome, Biblioteca Corsiniana, MS 41F2. Joachim of Fiore, *Liber de Concordia*, (ed.) Daniel, xliv.

68 Vatican City, Biblioteca Apostolica Vaticana [hereafter BAV], MS Vat. lat. 4861. Joachim of Fiore, *Liber de Concordia*, ed. Daniel, xliii. According to Angelo Clareno, as Minister General in 1290, Raymond freed the Spirituals of the March who had been imprisoned. *Angeli Clareni Opera* 11 *Historia Septem Tribulationum ordinis minore*, (ed.) Orietta Rossini, introduction and commentary by Hanno Helbling (Rerum Italicarum Scriptores, Fonti per la storia dell’Italia medievale) 2 (Rome, 1999), Book 6, 223–26. On Raymond, see Pierre Péano, “Raymond Geoffroi Ministre général et défenseur des Spirituels,” *Picenum Seraphicum. Rivista di studi storici locali* 11 (1974), 190–203.

69 Salimbene de Adam, *Cronica*, (ed.) Giuseppe Scalia, 2 vols. (Corpus Christianorum: continuatio mediaevalis) 125–125A (Turnhout, 1998–9), 1:356.

the Franciscan house in Aix, he and his companion (*socius*) copied Joachim's *Expositio super IIII evangelistas* for John of Parma, the Franciscan Minister General (1247–57), while another Franciscan, Hugh of Digne (d. c.1285), had manuscript copies of all his works in large script (*de grossa littera*).⁷⁰ A surviving, undated letter from yet another Franciscan, the Englishman Adam Marsh (d. 1259), to Bishop Robert Grosseteste of Lincoln (d. 1253) records his loan to Grosseteste of a fascicle (*libellus*) of Joachim's writings for copying.⁷¹ Occasional other cases will be mentioned below, but, like these, most tend to be late.⁷² Given the number of manuscripts surviving from the second half of the century, such activities can only have been the tip of the iceberg. Moreover, the absence of extant copies of a work, and contemporary references to copies in a particular place, does not mean that the work itself was unknown there, as Peter the Chanter's remark in his *Commentary on Exodus* demonstrates. The Chanter chose to name his target; others need not. Any attempt to trace such indirect evidence must therefore rely on critical editions of texts by both Joachim and those who may have known his writings, work which is still very much underway.⁷³ While the scope of Joachim's fame may

70 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:356, 451.

71 *The Letters of Adam Marsh*, (ed.) and trans. C.H. Lawrence, 2 vols. (Oxford, 2006–2010), 1:119–20.

72 See De Fraja, "Post combustionis infortunium," 129–71; and De Fraja, "Una vocazione d'oltralpe: Iohannes de Baiona, monaco fiorense," *Florentia* 11 (1997), 41–66.

73 Since the 1980s, a team of German and Italian scholars has been working on modern critical editions of the complete works of Joachim: Valeria De Fraja, Matthias Kaup, Alexander Patschovsky, Gian Luca Potestà, Francesco Santi, Kurt-Victor Selge, Julia Wannenmacher, and, more recently, Brigitte Hotz, with advice from Roberto Rusconi and Robert E. Lerner. See the account by Kurt-Victor Selge, "Presentazione," in *Joachim of Fiore, Dialogi de prescientia Dei et predestinatione electorum*, (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà (Fonti per la storia dell'Italia medievale: Antiquitates) 4 (Rome, 1995), xi–xii. Selge is also the editor of the most recent volume to appear: Joachim of Fiore, *Psalterium decem cordarum* (MGH Quellen zur Geistesgeschichte des Mittelalters) 20 (Hanover, 2009). (MGH editions are now also available on www.dmgk.de with a three-year time lag after the print version). Work has also been undertaken on Joachite texts by Matthias Kaup (see below), and more is needed. The *De semine scripturarum*, for instance, which circulated in the 13th century as the work of Joachim (see below, 258), was a prophecy that used each of the twenty-three letters of the alphabet to represent a century since the founding of Rome, so the world was to end in 1565. It placed the author's own time at the letter v and explained that it was written c.1204–5. It has been argued that it was perhaps written in Bamberg, and numerous manuscript versions survive, but a new edition is necessary before the early date can be accepted. See Sabine Schmolinsky, *Der Apokalypsenkommentar des Alexander Minorita. Zur frühen Rezeption Joachims von Fiore in Deutschland* (MGH Studien und

now be retrievable, a comparable picture of the reception of his thinking is still some way off.

6.4 *Fama: The Early Chroniclers and the Gift of Spiritual Understanding*⁷⁴

Some of the most convincing and detailed evidence for Joachim's remarkable early reputation comes from three English chroniclers whose interest was sparked by stories of Joachim's encounter with King Richard I, including Roger of Howden, cited above, who also wrote the *Gesta regis Henrici secundi*.⁷⁵ Roger was a member of the royal court and perhaps an eyewitness to the meeting in Messina. The other two writers were Ralph Niger (who died in or before 1199) and the Cistercian, Ralph of Coggeshall (d. 1227–8), who wrote the *Chronicon Anglicanum*.⁷⁶ Howden's *Gesta*, which is the earliest text, describes the encounter with Richard in Messina and Joachim's explanation of the biblical vision of John, identifying the seven-headed dragon of the Apocalypse as

Texte) 3 (Hanover, 1991), 13–14 (and earlier bibliography), where Schmolinsky also notes that already in 1313, Henry of Harclay (Chancellor of the University of Oxford and a key opponent of the Spirituals) recognized that it was not by Joachim.

74 This section starts from and revises the useful outline provided in Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 17–40.

75 The *Gesta* was long attributed to "Benedict of Peterborough," but is now universally accepted as the work of Howden, following David Corner, "The Gesta Regis Henrici Secundi and Chronica of Roger, Parson of Howden," *Bulletin of the Institute of Historical Research* 56 (1983), 126–44.

76 These authors were widely considered hostile to Joachim, who was himself a trenchant critic of the order he had abandoned, following the work of the modernist theologian, Ernesto Buonaiuti, *Gioacchino da Fiore: i tempi, la vita, il messaggio* (Rome, 1931; reprinted with an introduction by Antonio Crocco, Cosenza, 1984), 146. Crocco points to Buonaiuti's judgement of the English chroniclers' account of the 1190 meeting with Richard as "artificioso, posticcio e leggendario," Crocco, xvii (citing Buonaiuti, 145). Buonaiuti believed they misrepresented Joachim's teachings, but this was because he did not know of the *Liber Figurarum* that was only rediscovered later in the 1930s. Buonaiuti's assessment has since been identified as an overstatement, stemming from Coggeshall's irritated observation that Joachim—who had left the Cistercians to found his own order—was "of the Cistercian order, but not in the least obedient to them." See Radulfi de Coggeshall, *Chronicon Anglicanum*, (ed.) Josephus Stevenson (Rerum Britannicarum Medii Aevi scriptores) 66 (London, 1875), 67: "... ordinis Cisterciensis, sed Cisterciensibus minime subjectus." (A new edition and translation of Ralph's *Chronicon Anglicanum* is under preparation by Harriet Webster). See also Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 28.

seven kings, five of whom had passed, one of whom was contemporary (Saladin), and one who had yet to appear. This last king was the Antichrist, a Roman-born pope, already fifteen, but who had not yet come to power. According to the undoubtedly anti-curial Howden, the prelates in attendance challenged Joachim's interpretation, but the king himself immediately identified the Antichrist as the then current pope, "because he hated pope Clement [III]." Howden cited the writings of a venerable man (*antiquus*) as one of two further authorities to counter Joachim (in practice, the *antiquus* was Adso of Montier en Der), but he left the credibility of the prophecy hanging in the air, writing that: "the case, however, is still before the court" (*tamen adhuc sub iudice lis est*).⁷⁷ As was frequently to occur, Joachim's reputation was being turned to political ends. Howden was using Joachim—himself critical of the contemporary Church—as a mechanism to condemn the curia and praise Richard, to whom the abbot was also reported as saying that God would give victory over his enemies, and that he would be glorified for eternity as long as he persevered in the work he had started.⁷⁸

Howden's *Gesta* text illustrates both the polemical potential of Joachim's ideas and the fact that he was already acknowledged as an exegete and a prophet, "having the prophetic spirit" (*spiritum habens propheticum*, a reference to the *spiritus prophetiae* of Revelation 19:10).⁷⁹ By contrast, Ralph Niger, whose *Chronica* survive in two different versions, limited his account of Joachim's writing on the Antichrist to a few terse words: "a certain Cistercian monk [who], from almost illiterate, suddenly made intelligent, wrote on the Apocalypse...."⁸⁰ The passage was introduced apparently so that Niger could

77 Roger of Howden/Hoveden, *Chronica*, (ed.) William Stubbs (*Rerum Britannicarum Medii Aevi Scriptores*) 51 (London, 1870), 79. The two other authorities are given on 79–85 and 85–86.

78 As argued by Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 20–23. See Piero Zerbi, *Papato, Impero e "respublica christiana" dal 1187 al 1198*, 2nd ed. (Milan, 1955; 1980), 144–46, who notes the "deciso spirito autonomistico" of the English Crown (like the Sicilian) during the pontificate of Celestine. See also John Doran, "A Lifetime of Service in the Roman Church," in *Pope Celestine III (1191–1198): Diplomat and Pastor*, (eds.) John Doran and Damian J. Smith (Farnham, 2008), 54.

79 This second point was particularly underlined by Bloomfield and Reeves, "The Penetration of Joachimism into Northern Europe," 776–77.

80 Ralph Niger (Radulfi Nigri), *Chronica: The Chronicles of Ralph Niger*, (ed.) Robert Anstruther (Publications of the Caxton Society) 5 (London, 1851), 96–97, with minor corrections in Radulfus Niger, *Cronica. Eine englische Weltchronik des 12. Jahrhunderts*, (ed.) Hanna Krause (Europäische Hochschulschriften) III/265 (Frankfurt am Main-Bern, 1985), 286: "*quidam monachus Cisterciensis, a fere illiterato subito factus intelligens, scripsit super*

declare his preference for the more traditional commentary on the Apocalypse of Godefroy of Auxerre, the former Abbot of Clairvaux (d. after 1188) with whom Joachim had broken off relations in what became an acrimonious dispute when he left the Abbey of Corazzo to live the life of a hermit with Raniero da Ponza.⁸¹

Both Howden's later *Chronicle*, written after the failure of Richard's Crusade (in which Richard instead identified the Antichrist as to be born in Antioch or Babylon), and the *Chronicon* of Ralph Coggeshall, written during the reign of King John, relied heavily on the *Gesta*. They adopted broadly similar techniques, using Joachim's reputation to embellish their accounts of the king and contemporary political affairs.⁸² But Coggeshall—a monk—expanded his narrative to include a detailed and well-informed description of Joachim's interpretation of the Apocalypse and the concordances of the Old and New Testaments. His account places the death of the Antichrist at the end of the *status* of the sixth seal, to be followed immediately by the resurrection of the dead and the seventh age, the eternal glory of the saints, outside human history.⁸³ An insistence on the first two ages—of the Father and of the Son—was characteristic of these chronicles. They ignored Joachim's *status* of the Holy Spirit,

Apocalypsim ..." Krause observes (p. 242), following Grundmann, that the reference to the sudden acquisition of learning may reflect Joachim's own self-description as "homo Agricola." On Niger, see G.B. Flahiff, "Ralph Niger: An Introduction to His Life and Works," *Mediaeval Studies* 2 (1940), 104–26; and A.J. Duggan, "Niger, Ralph (b. c.1140, d. in or before 1199)," *Oxford Dictionary of National Biography* (Oxford, 2004) [http://www.oxforddnb.com/view/article/20192, accessed 9 Nov 2010] with earlier bibliography.

- 81 As a response to Godefroid, Joachim wrote his *Intelligentia Super Calathis*, arguing against using force to counter force, an argument addressed both to himself and to the Church in general, as noted by Valeria De Fraja, "Usi politici della profezia gioachimita," *Annali dell'Istituto storico italo-germanico di Trento* 25 (1999), 377. On his break with the Cistercians, and especially with Godefroid of Auxerre, see also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, 99–103. On Godefroid's charge that Joachim concealed the fact that he was born a Jew, see E. Randolph Daniel, "Abbot Joachim of Fiore and the Conversion of the Jews," in *Friars and Jews in the Middle Ages and Renaissance*, (eds.) Steven J. McMichael and Susan E. Myers (Leiden, 2004), 1–21.
- 82 Buonaiuti, *Gioacchino da Fiore: i tempi, la vita, il messaggio*, 146. Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 24.
- 83 See also Radulfus Niger, *Cronica. Eine englische Weltchronik*, (ed.) Krause. The most complete work on Coggeshall and his sources, Guy N. Hartcher, "Ralph of Coggeshall's *Chronicon Anglicanum*: An Investigative Analysis" (Ph.D. diss., The Catholic University of America, Washington, D.C., 1979), does not discuss his account of Joachim (I am grateful to Michael Staunton for drawing my attention to this dissertation; See now also Staunton, *The Historians of Angevin England* (Cambridge 2017)).

destined to produce a great spiritual regeneration on earth.⁸⁴ Perhaps this was a reflection of their disquiet and pessimism, centered as it was on the imminence of the end of time.⁸⁵

Coggeshall also describes an interview in Rome between Joachim and Adam, Cistercian Abbot of Perseigne (in the Saonsnois), during which Joachim denied that he was a prophet, claiming instead that God had given him spiritual understanding to interpret Scripture. Despite the sensational tone of passages such as the prologue to the *Liber de Concordia* with which this chapter began, modern writers have generally identified this as an accurate reflection of Joachim's self-perception, avoiding the uncomfortable claims of prophecy.⁸⁶ Coggeshall's Joachim then asserted—as in the *Gesta* account—that the Antichrist was already an adolescent in Rome, which he equated with Babylon. Unlike Howden, Coggeshall seems inclined to accept the validity of Joachim's account:

Our successors will be better able to judge what should be concluded about this man's claim, or rather opinion. But we are already witnessing that the rule of Babylon (*typicum Babylonis*) is acquiring the most domination over the world, occupying the lands of Christians from day to day and spreading the disaster of error...⁸⁷

Coggeshall and Howden's writings were adopted and adapted by any number of later writers, including, importantly, the premonstratensian Robert of Auxerre (d. 1212), whose universal chronicle added an account of a visit to Pope Urban III in Verona and, in turn, became a fundamental source for later writers.

84 As noted by Stanislao da Campagnola, *L'angelo del sesto sigillo e l'alter Christus. Genesi e sviluppo di due temi francescani nei secoli XIII–XIV* (Rome, 1971), 21. Joachim's *De Septem sigillis* was the object of a detailed study in Julia Eva Wannenmacher, *Hermeneutik der Heilsgeschichte. "De septem sigillis" und die sieben Siegel im Werk Joachims von Fiore* (Leiden, 2005).

85 As suggested by Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 30. Bloomfield and Reeves, "The Penetration of Joachimism into Northern Europe," 776, note Joachim's model of twos, based on the Old and New Testament, which lies at the root of the interpretation.

86 See, for example, the discussion in Robert Moynihan, "The Development of the 'Pseudo-Joachim' Commentary 'Super Hieremiam': New Manuscript Evidence," *Mélanges de l'École française de Rome. Moyen Âge-Temps Modernes* 98 (1986), 115.

87 Coggeshall, *Chronicon Anglicanum*, (ed.) Stevenson, 69–70. I am very grateful to Christoph Egger for drawing my attention to the originality of Coggeshall's approach. See also Christoph Egger, "A Pope Without Successor: Ralph of Coggeshall, Ralph Niger, Robert of Auxerre, and the Early Reception of Joachim of Fiore's Ideas in England," in *Joachim of Fiore and the Influence of Inspiration: Essays in Memory of Marjorie E. Reeves (1905–2003)*, (ed.) Julia E. Wannenmacher (Farnham, 2013), 145–81.

Following his predecessors, Robert described Joachim's approach to the first two states, placing the third outside history. He drew attention to Joachim's idea that the world would end within two generations, which "according to him makes 60 years," when the Antichrist would come. Unlike Coggeshall, he also noted the suspicion that Joachim's ideas had aroused, judging it "safer not to discuss what we do not know and to leave judgement of things which are uncertain to us to posterity."⁸⁸ Nonetheless, a few pages later, following Howden, he included Joachim's purported response to Philip and Richard's questioning at Messina in 1190, prophesying the disappointing outcome of their Crusade.⁸⁹

Another early writer, who, like Coggeshall, points out how his predictions were already coming true, is Sicard, Bishop of Cremona in Northern Italy (d. 1215). In his *Chronicon*, which shows a particular interest in the fate of the empire, Sicard writes that Joachim

had the spirit of prophesying and prophesied the death of Emperor Henry and the future desolation of the Kingdom of Sicily and the failure of the Roman Empire, which is [now] most palpably declared, for the Kingdom of Sicily is thoroughly disrupted and the empire is divided by schism.⁹⁰

Sicard's work was picked up decades later by Salimbene de Adam, and the use of Joachim to interpret or undermine the imperial destiny was to enjoy a great future.⁹¹

The prophetic version of Joachim and his view of the crisis of history were noteworthy, but chroniclers after 1215 also allow us to trace something of the reaction to the condemnation of his ideas on the Trinity in the constitutions of Lateran IV.⁹² It was only briefly mentioned in the few accounts of the Council itself, such as the fragmentary but more or less contemporary *Annales Gotwicensis* (Göttweig in the diocese of Passau), or the anonymous eyewitness

88 Robert of Auxerre (Roberti Canonici S. Mariani Autissiodorensis), *Chronicon*, (ed.) O. Holder-Egger, MGH SS 26 (Hanover, 1882), 248–49.

89 Ibid., 255. Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 36–40.

90 Sicard of Cremona (Sicardi Episcopi Cremonensis), *Chronica*, (ed.) O. Holder-Egger, MGH SS 31 (Hanover, 1903), 175. I am grateful to Edward Coleman for drawing my attention to Sicard's imperial concern as a "connecting thread" in his work. There are also some parallels here with the anonymous *Vita* of Joachim. On the chronicle, see Ettore Brocchieri, "Sicardo di Cremona e la sua opera letteraria," *Annali della Biblioteca Governativa e Libreria Civica di Cremona* 11 (1958), Fascicle 1, and esp. 91–92 on its use by Salimbene.

91 This particular passage from Sicard was taken up by Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:28. See also Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 87.

92 Bloomfield and Reeves, "The Penetration of Joachimism into Northern Europe," 776, identify this emphasis on Joachim's understanding of scripture and the "crisis of history" as characteristic of the first phase of Joachim's reception outside Calabria.

account discovered in the 1960s, which does not seem to have circulated but provides lively detail on the mode of condemnation.⁹³ After enthusiastically accepting the articles of faith and the condemnation of all heretics, the assembled bishops were asked whether they also condemned the sentences of Joachim and Amalric: "Against which they shouted out more strongly, 'we condemn.'" ⁹⁴

Roger of Wendover, an English Benedictine monk (d. 1236), showed more detailed interest in the condemnation, referring to the unresolved nature of the debate about the Trinity (*indeterminata altercatio*) between the time of Alexander III (1159–1179) when Joachim wrote against the Lombard in his *Libellus* and the decision of 1215, which "condemned ... the booklet" (*libellum ... dampnavit*).⁹⁵ Several authors also combined their reference to the condemnation with information that served to underscore Joachim's desire for orthodoxy, or his prophetic ability. João de Deo, a Portuguese canon lawyer who taught in Bologna from 1229, wrote additions to Sicard's chronicle and made the first real attempt to attenuate the condemnation of 1215, noting with a lawyer's precision that neither Joachim himself nor his monastery had been condemned.⁹⁶ Other writers adopted a similarly conciliatory approach. The Cistercian Alberic of Trois Fontaines (d. c.1252), whose chronicle ends in 1241, blamed Joachim's condemnation on his "presumption," but distinguished his exegesis from that of his simpler contemporaries and immediately pointed to the pope's approval for his monasteries.⁹⁷ The Dominican Vincent of Beauvais

93 "Annales Gotwicenses," (ed.) W. Wattenbach, MGH SS 9 (Hanover, 1851), 602. Stephan Kuttner and Antonio García y García, "A New Eyewitness Account of the Fourth Lateran Council," *Traditio* 20 (1964), 127–28. Pixton, *The German Episcopacy and the Implementation of the Decrees of the Fourth Lateran Council*, 269–70, argues that the Götting text is probably more or less contemporary and suggests that references to Joachim's condemnation are found in no other German sources of this date. Kuttner and García y García, however, have argued convincingly that the eyewitness was also German.

94 Kuttner and García y García, "New Eyewitness Account," 128: "Postmodum dampnati sunt omnes heretici et reprobate quorundam sententie, Ioachim videlicet et Emelrici Parisiensis. Quibus recitatis iterum quesitum est: 'An reprobatis sententias Ioachim et Emelrici?' At illi magis inualescebant clamando: 'Reprobamus.'"

95 Roger of Wendover, *Liber qui dicitur Flores Historiarum* (*the Flower of History*), (ed.) Henry G. Hewlett (*Rerum Britannicarum Medii Aevi Scriptores*) 84 (London, 1886), 121–23.

96 João de Deo (Iohannes de Deo), *Chronica*, (ed.) O. Holder-Egger, MGH SS 31 (Hanover, 1903), 323.

97 *Chronica albrici monachi trium fontium, a monacho novi monasterii Hoiensis interpolata*, (ed.) P. Scheffert-Boichorst, MGH SS 23 (Hanover, 1874), 879: "Ioachim scriptor novus ... qui multo aliter sentire videtur de adventu Antichristi, quam quidam nostri temporis, qui de die in diem simplicium corda sollicitare temere satis presumpserunt ... scripsit idem Ioachim libellum quendam de Trinitate, in quo magistrum Petrum Lombardum

(d. 1264), who otherwise used the work of Robert of Auxerre for his account of Joachim's life, recorded the condemnation in his encyclopedic *Speculum historiale* (written in the late 1240s), but also reminded the reader that Joachim had sent his books to the pope for correction.⁹⁸

As is manifest in the work of Howden, Coggeshall, and Sicard, chronicle accounts reflect the political position of the author vis-à-vis secular and ecclesiastical authority, though of course their attitude need not be self-evident. In his extensive *Chronica*, Riccardo di San Germano (d. c.1243), a notary in the court of Frederick II from 1220 onward, simply reports more or less verbatim the words of the Lateran constitution on the condemnation of the "book or treatise of Joachim against Peter Lombard, which he wrote on the unity or essence of the Trinity."⁹⁹ Riccardo had been at the Lateran Council in the company of his abbot, and his cursory comment has been interpreted as an attempt to devalue the word and importance of Joachim, whose ideas were used in papal circles to oppose imperial activity.¹⁰⁰ The passage seems, however, to have been written some time before the popes started using Joachim in their propaganda or Riccardo entered royal service, so it is not impossible that he was simply uninterested in the details of Joachim's life and works.

Other writers, like Howden, used Joachite works to make more direct criticisms, even if not always in openly or politically predictable directions. In his *Annales Stadenses*, which run to 1256, Albert of Stade, a German Benedictine who joined the generally pro-papal Franciscans in 1240, included a prophecy

in sententiis redarguere presumpsit, pro qua presumptione papa Innocentius in magno concilio postmodum Rome celebrato eundem libellum dampnavit, et sententiam magistri Petri, qui obscura videbatur, explanavit. Tamen cetera loachim opuscula et vitam eius religiosam et morum institutionem et eruditionem, quam in Florentino monasterio reliquerat idem loachim, papa Innocentius III. non improbavit, sed approbando commendavit."

98 Vincent of Beauvais, *Speculum historiale*, (ed.) A. Koberger (Nuremberg, 1483), book 30, Chapter 40, no pagination. See also Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 42–43; and the early 13th-century Chronicle of Saint Martin of Tours, *Chronicon S. Martini Turonensi*, (ed.) O. Holder-Egger, MGH SS 26 (Hanover, 1882), 467, typical of the "uncertainty which characterises the assessment of chroniclers between the condemnation by Innocent and the mid-thirteenth century." (Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 45). The idea is also found in Matthew Paris, *Matthaei Parisiensis, monachi Sancti Albani, Chronica majora*, (ed.) Henry Richards Luard, 7 vols. (*Rerum Britannicarum Medii Aevi Scriptores*) 57 (London, 1872–1884), 2: 313.

99 "Chronica Ryccardi de Sancto Germano notarii," (ed.) Carlo Alberto Garufi, *Rerum italicarum scriptores, second series* 7/ii (Bologna, 1938), 62, 73; Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 49–50.

100 Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 50.

from the pseudo-Joachim *Expositio Super Hieremiam* (see below) in his account of King Louis IX's capture and ransom while on Crusade in the East, implying that France, as an ally of the papacy, would be defeated. But Albert combined this with a passage on the same prophecy from a *Commentary on the Apocalypse* by an otherwise unidentified brother Alexander, presumably Alexander Minorita (see below for more details), stating "that the Church prays that what is said in revenge, shall pass in salvation."¹⁰¹ Other writers, including the author of the Ghibelline *Annales Placentini* (which run to 1284 and were compiled in 1295) and the English monk Bartholomew Cotton (d. 1298), author of a *Historia Anglicana*, made the French defeat more explicit.¹⁰² Albert, who died c.1264, also claimed that Joachim had prophesied that the Antichrist would be born in 1260, a position echoing that of Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino, a friar destined to play a critical role in shaping Joachim's reputation in mid-century.¹⁰³

6.5 The Cistercians, the Florentians, and the Development of Joachite Texts

While chroniclers convey an approximate idea of Joachim's fame, it is the reproduction of his writings that most effectively reveals responses to his thinking. In the very early days, the propagators of Joachim's work were members of his close circle: Raniero da Ponza, his scribe Luca di Casamari (later Archbishop of Cosenza), and Giovanni, Abbot of Corazzo, along with his immediate monastic heirs, the Florentian monks, led by Abbot Matteo from 1202 to 1234. As we have seen, Raniero may, for example, have been responsible for the transmission of works to Navarre while Joachim was still alive, and he certainly

101 *Annales Stadenses*, (ed.) I.M. Lappenberg, MGH SS 16 (Hanover, 1859), 372: "Hiis auditis rumoribus, prophetiam abbatis Ioachim quidam reduxerunt ad memoriam, qui dixit, 'superabitur Francus, capietur pontifex summus, praeualebit imperans Alemannis.' Sed frater Alexander in expositione apokalypsis eandem prophetiam tangens, subicit sic: 'Sed ecclesia orat, ut quod dictum est in ultionem, transeat in salute.'" The MGH editor was unable to identify Brother Alexander, but see page 230 below.

102 *Annales Placentini Gibellini*, (ed.) G.H. Pertz, MGH SS 18 (Hanover, 1863), 516 s.a. 1266, citing the *Super Hieremiam*. Bartholomaei de Cotton, monachi Norwicensis, "Historia Anglicana," (ed.) H.R. Luard (*Rerum Britannicarum Medii Aevi scriptores*) 16 (London, 1859), 239–40.

103 *Annales Stadenses*, (ed.) Lappenberg, 351; Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i cronisti medievali*, 53.

used Joachim's ideas in his own writings. Later, Luca also recorded his memories of the abbot.¹⁰⁴

In the years following Joachim's death, the Florentians were important editors and copiers of his work. They produced the early account of his life and a collection of miracles (c.1220) that underlined his orthodoxy and circulated well beyond Calabria.¹⁰⁵ They were keen to emphasize Joachim's role as an ascetic monk and the founder of their order, describing his prophecies as local and generally behind them by the early 13th century, though they also called him a new Jeremiah.¹⁰⁶ They were probably responsible for compiling the *Liber Figurarum*, a collection of his images (*figurae*) in one volume, creating what Reeves identified as a summary of the principal concepts of Joachim's thinking.¹⁰⁷ The earliest extant manuscript (Oxford, Corpus Christi College, MS. 255A, fos. 4v-17v) was produced in the first decades of the 13th century at, or for, San Giovanni in Fiore.¹⁰⁸ But the Florentians were not alone in undertaking this work. Joachim began his monastic career as a Cistercian, and the connection stimulated interest in his writings in the order. Joachim himself recorded discussions of his thinking by the white monks, and manuscripts of his works were, as we have seen, copied in Cistercian houses, including Corazzo and Sambucina.¹⁰⁹ The mother-house at Fossanova may have been involved in this activity as well.

104 *Acta Sanctorum*, Maius VII, Day 29: 93–94.

105 Grundmann, "Zur Biographie Joachims von Fiore und Rainers von Ponza," 255–360; A.M. Adorisio, *La "legenda" del santo di Fiore. Beati Ioachimi abbatis miracula* (Rome, 1989). Salimbene de Adam demonstrates knowledge of it in his *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:363–64.

106 See De Fraja, "Usi politici," 380–81.

107 Marjorie Reeves and Beatrice Hirsch Reich, *The Figurae of Joachim of Fiore* (Oxford, 1972), 247, argued, for example, that the *Figura* showing the *Dispositio novi ordinis*, "seems to represent the nearest Joachim got to visualising the structure of society in the age of the Holy Ghost." Others have doubted that he would have provided details. See Töpfer, *Il regno future della libertà*, 12 (preface to the Italian translation). The dating of the *Liber* is controversial: Selge argues that the *figurae* are genuine and the first sketches were done by Joachim in 1183, but they were compiled by his successor, Abbot Matteo. See Kurt-Victor Selge, "L'origine delle opere di Gioacchino da Fiore in *L'attesa della fine dei tempi nel medioevo*," (eds.) Capitani and Miethke, 128. The most recent volume on the *Liber* is Marco Rainini, *Disegni dei tempi. Il "Liber Figurarum" e la teologia figurativa di Gioacchino da Fiore* (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 18 (Rome, 2006).

108 Valeria De Fraja, "Post combustionis infortunium," 150–51, posits a copyist working at a neighboring Cistercian house, perhaps Sambucina. The manuscript is visible online at: <http://image.ox.ac.uk/show?collection=corpus&manuscript=255a> (accessed 13 Nov 2016).

109 Edith Pasztor, "Gioacchino da Fiore, San Bernardo e il monachesimo cistercense," *Clio* 20 (1984), 547–61; Sandra Zmidars-Swartz, "Joachim of Fiore and the Cistercian Order:

Rewriting and revising was the norm, but a distinction is often drawn in this context between “Joachimists”—who sought, as close followers of Joachim, to modify his teachings as little as possible, updating them only as necessary—and Joachites, who accepted only the general principles of his teachings and modified them imaginatively, but with the risk of distorting his original message.¹¹⁰ In the first category, there is a famous copy of the so-called *Letter-Testament* of Joachim and the *Liber de Concordia*, now in the Corsiniana library in Rome, which includes minor changes perhaps made by the monks of Fiore to remove criticisms of the laity, on whom their community increasingly relied.¹¹¹

The most substantial means of the dissemination of Joachim’s reputation and influence, however, is found in Joachite literature imitating Joachim by using prophetic commentaries to provide an understanding of contemporary history and a critique of the contemporary Church in the guise of authentic ancient prophecies. Like Joachim, these texts used the Old Testament books of Isaiah and Jeremiah and the New Testament Revelation of John. But while Joachim warned against the use of non-biblical prophecies (regardless of whether he was himself influenced by them), later writers heavily exploited them, interpolating prophecies in the *Prophetia ignota* or *Sibilla Samia*, the

A Study of ‘De Vita Sancti Benedicti,’” in *Simplicity and Ordinarity*, (ed.) John R. Sommerfeldt (Studies in Medieval Cistercian History) 4 (Kalamazoo, 1980), 293–309.

110 See note 12 above.

111 Rome, Biblioteca Corsiniana, MS 797. As argued by Fabio Troncarelli and E.B. Gioia, “Scrittura, Testo, Immagine in un manoscritto gioachimita,” *Scrittura e Civiltà* 5 (1981), 149–86, 170. Troncarelli links this to two other manuscripts (BAV Barberini lat. 627; and Oxford, Corpus Christi College, 255A, the *Liber Figurarum*) on the basis of the same hand appearing in all three. He renews this point in Troncarelli, “Nuove Reliquie dello ‘scriptorium’ di Fiore,” in *Atti del II Congresso Internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti* (6–9 September 1984) (San Giovanni in Fiore, 1986), 321–29. In this source, he adds another: BAV, Chigi A VIII 231,—the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*. The Corsiniana manuscript may not, however, have been produced at San Giovanni in Fiore. On the basis of analogous evidence for the production of Joachite texts, Antonio Maria Adorasio argues that it, together with BAV, Chigi A VIII. 231 and Oxford, Corpus Christi College, 255A, was produced at a *scriptorium* affiliated with the Cathedral of Cosenza during the archiepiscopate of Joachim’s former scribe Luca (1203–1224). See Adorasio, *Codici Latini calabresi*, 43–56; and Adorasio, “Momenti e aspetti della produzione libraria latina nella Calabria medievale,” in *Mestieri, Lavoro e Professioni nella Calabria Medievale: tecniche, organizzazioni, linguaggi. Atti dell’VIII Congresso storico Calabrese, Palmi (RC) (19–22 November 1987)* (Deputazione di Storia Patria per la Calabria) (Messina, 1993), 392–98. Valeria De Fraja argues instead that Abbot Matteo may have commissioned these works (see De Fraja, “Post infortunium,” 150).

Sibilla Erithea, and *Verba Merlini*, among others.¹¹² The largest and most widely circulated of these pseudo-Joachim commentaries are the *Super Hieremiam* and *Super Isaiam*, which interpret the biblical books chapter by chapter, but also draw on extra-biblical prophecies.¹¹³ Shorter texts include the *Expositio super Sibillis et Merlino*, which purports to be a commentary on the non-biblical Sibylline prophecies. It has been attributed to a Cistercian-Florentian context, was composed in the 1240s, and survives in two versions (in a total of nine manuscripts). Other texts attributed to Joachim include the *Super decem plagas*, a brief treatise on the plagues of Egypt interpreted by reference to the tribulations of the Church, of which five manuscripts are known; a prophecy relating to the cities of the Veneto, the emperors, and the papacy, known by its incipit, *In die illa elevabitur draco*, which also survives in five manuscripts; and *De regno siculo*, on the destiny of Frederick II and his successors, now extant in just two manuscripts.¹¹⁴ Still other pseudo-Joachim texts are more explicitly biblical, including the *Super numerum hominis 666* on the apocalyptic number of the beast, and the *De Oneribus Prophetarum*, a commentary on extracts from the Old Testament that takes the biblical prophecies concerning the Near East and transposes them to the contemporary West (see below). Like many of these works, it is preceded by a letter allegedly from Joachim to the Emperor

112 Matthias Kaup, "Pseudo-Joachim Reads a Heavenly Letter: Extrabiblical Prophecy in the Early Joachimite Literature," in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III*, 288. On the *Sibilla Erithea*, see Christian Jostmann, *Sibilla Erithea Babilonica. Papsttum und Prophetie im 13. Jahrhundert*, MGH SS 54 (Hanover, 2006); and also Alexander, "Diffusion of Byzantine Apocalypses," 84 (on Joachim's reasons for ignoring Byzantine sources such as this).

113 For more on the *Super Hieremiam*, see below. There is still no modern edition of the *Super Isaiam prophetam* besides the one printed in Venice by Lazzaro de Soardis in 1517, but De Fraja, "Usi politici," 384–85, proposes that an early version may have been known to the Franciscans in the 1240s and be the text referred to in the circle of Hugh of Digne by Salimbene, and not the *Super Hieremiam* as previously thought. Salimbene reports that a Neapolitan Dominican named Pietro had asked Hugh how long Frederick II would live, leading to a discussion in which, according to the chronicler, both men quoted Joachim on Isaiah and referred to Frederick's life expectancy as seventy years, the figure found in the *Super Isaiam*, not the *Super Hieremiam* (where it is sixty years). See Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:361–62.

114 On the *Super decem plagas*, see Matthias Kaup, who corrects previous attributions to Rainer of Ponza in, *Gioacchino da Fiore, Commento a una prophetia ignota* (Rome, 1999), 96, and notes. For the *De regno siculo*, see Ibid., 125n. For *In die illa elevabitur draco*, see Leone Tondelli, "Profezia gioachimita del secolo XIII delle regioni venete," *Studi e documenti della Regia Deputazione di Storia patria. Sezione di Modena* 4 (1940), 1–9 and below 219.

Henry VI, a conceit designed to lend authority to its claims and an indication of Joachim's reputation.¹¹⁵

Of course, not all writings circulating in Joachite collections were Joachite. *Ad memoriam eternorum*, for example, a "heavenly letter" written c.1241-3, predicted the birth of a monster child, a small lion with the skin of a lynx (*pardina*), interpreted as a reference to Frederick II.¹¹⁶ As its modern editor, Matthias Kaup, makes clear, it is portrayed as a prophecy from God himself found by a Cistercian monk written out on a linen altar corporal (the cloth for celebrating mass). Like Joachim, the author warns of the imminence of the End of Time, complains of the immorality of the clergy, and calls on them to reform. Kaup is nonetheless convinced that it is not a Joachite prophecy, nor was it produced in Joachite circles: instead, like numerous other such texts, it was simply incorporated into manuscript collections that transmitted Joachite works.¹¹⁷

Beyond preparing careful copies and pseudonymous versions of Joachim's writings, there is some evidence for oral transmission by the Florentians through direct contact with other writers. The Cistercian Gebenon of Eberbach, on the River Neckar east of Heidelberg, records a meeting in 1217 with an unnamed Calabrian abbot who came to visit for two weeks and warned him that the Antichrist was about to be born (*iam nasciturus*). The ensuing discussion apparently prompted Gebenon to re-examine the works of a neighboring prophet, Hildegard of Bingen (d. 1179), and to produce an anthology of her writings on the Antichrist, in which he referred by name to Joachim, "who is also said to have had the spirit of prophecy" (*qui etiam spiritum prophetiae habuisse dicitur*), and which later incidentally contributed to anti-mendicant narratives of the friars as pseudo-prophets.¹¹⁸ That the monks of the Florentian

115 See, for example, Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 57; and Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 342.

116 Matthias Kaup, "Pseudo-Joachim Reads a Heavenly Letter," in *Gioacchino da Fiore tra Bernardo di Clairvaux e Innocenzo III*, 287-314.

117 Matthias Kaup, "Prophetie als Propagandamedium. Zu Funktion und Methode der Produktion und Exegese prophetischer Texte am Beispiel der Joachiten," in *Propaganda, Kommunikation und Öffentlichkeit (11.-16. Jahrhundert)*, (ed.) Karel Hruza (Vienna, 2003), 81-87.

118 *La obra de Gebenón de Eberbach* (Millennio medievale 46, Testi 12, La tradizione profetica) 2 (ed.) José Carlos Santos Paz (Florence, 2004), 97. Also discussed in Bloomfield and Reeves, "The Penetration of Joachimism into Northern Europe," 789. See also Katherine Kerby-Fulton, "Hildegard of Bingen and Anti-Mendicant Propaganda," *Traditio* 43 (1987), 386-99. For the Calabrian visitor to Eberbach, see De Fraja, "Una vocazione d'oltralpe,"; and Volkhard Huth, "Visionäre in Eberbach. Prophetische Verbindungslinien zwischen Süditalien und Mittelrhein," *Nassauische Annalen* 114 (2003), 37-46.

order were directly involved in the dissemination of Joachim's work is also attested by Salimbene de Adam's account of the arrival of manuscripts at the Franciscan convent of Pisa c.1240 (the moment that he also identifies as his own first encounter with Joachim's work). He tells us that a Florentian abbot, fearful that Frederick II would destroy his own rural monastery (Camaione), brought them to Pisa for safekeeping. The presence of the books in the convent led the elector, Ralph of Saxony (Rodulfus de Saxonia), to become a convinced Joachite (*maximus Ioachita*).¹¹⁹

Salimbene's version of the events at Pisa (written in the 1280s) also symbolizes another transition: from the 1240s, the Florentians were increasingly replaced by the mendicant friars as transmitters of Joachim's ideas and Joachi[mi]sm. Engagement with his work would have profound implications for the history of these orders, who also benefited from close ties to the papacy.

Outside the monastic-mendicant context, it was perhaps above all the papal curia that served as a hub for the dissemination of Joachim's ideas in the 13th century.¹²⁰ As we have seen, Joachim himself encountered some of the popes during his lifetime, and his work was certainly known to Innocent III. Cardinal Hugolino, later Pope Gregory IX (1227–41), wrote a remarkable lament on the death of Joachim's friend Raniero, and he founded several Florentine houses, including one on family lands at Anagni, which flourished during his pontificate.¹²¹ Moreover, Valeria De Fraja has drawn attention to the career of a Florentine monk and lector, Giuseppe di Fiore, first documented in 1211, who would become a papal notary in 1233.¹²² In 1220, Giuseppe was entrusted, along with other monastics, with a preaching mission in Northern Italy led by Dominic of Calaruega, the founder of the Order of Preachers. He also may have encountered Hugolino during the Cardinal's legateship in the same region in

119 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:356. Lerner suggests that this may have taken place in 1247 when Frederick II passed through Tuscany en route to the Alps and the papal court at Lyons. See Robert E. Lerner, "Frederick II Alive, Aloft, and Allayed in Franciscan Joachite Eschatology," in *The Use and Abuse of Eschatology in the Middle Ages*, (eds.) Werner Verbeke, Daniel Verhelst, and Andries Welkenhuysen (Leuven, 1988), 359. For the identification of the Florentine abbot and house as Benedict of San Pietro di Camaione, located 25 kilometers from Pisa, see A. Callebaut, "Le Joachimite Benoît, abbé de Camaione et Fra Salimbene," *Archivum Franciscanum Historicum* 20 (1927), 219–22.

120 For an analogous situation, see Jostmann, *Sibilla Erithea*. I am grateful to Anke von Hold-enried for drawing my attention to this parallel.

121 F. Caraffa, "I monasteri fiorentini del Lazio meridionale," in *Storia e messaggio in Gioacchino da Fiore. Atti del I Convegno internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti* (San Giovanni in Fiore, 1980), 460–71. See also De Fraja, *Oltre Cîteaux*, 174, 186.

122 De Fraja, "Usi politici," 391. He is documented in the chancery from 1233–35.

the following year. Regardless of whether Giuseppe met the Cardinal-legate, his collaboration with Dominic currently amounts to the first documented encounter between the world of the Florentians and the mendicants, perhaps the point when the friars first learned of Joachim's prophecy concerning two new orders. This may also have been the occasion of an encounter between Giuseppe di Fiore and Frederick II, who stopped near Bologna in October 1220 en route to Rome for his coronation and issued two important privileges for the monastery at Fiore.¹²³

Giuseppe di Fiore's role as a papal notary is particularly significant because it coincides with what De Fraja has defined as a period that "theoriz[ed] the presence of the friars minor and preacher in the Church" along lines that coincide, at least in general terms, with the prophecies of Joachim. 1233 was the year of the Alleluia, or "Great Devotion," an exuberant campaign of preaching and peacemaking in Northern Italy led by a number of prominent preachers, including mendicant friars. It was celebrated by Gregory IX in two bulls issued in December of that year that describe the role of the friars in the story of salvation: they were the workers in the vineyard of the eleventh hour, immediately preceding the return of the owner of the vineyard and the payment of the workers (Matthew 20:6), in other words, the Last Judgement. They had also preached against heretics who were identified as preparing the way for the Antichrist (*iter preparant Antichristo*).¹²⁴ In July of the following year, Dominic's bull of canonization, *Fons Sapientiae*, developed this narrative in a distinctively monastic (as opposed to a clerical or episcopal) vein. The vision of four chariots emerging from two high mountains seen by the Old Testament prophet Zachariah (Zach. 6:1–8) was used to frame the history of the Church as a providential sequence of monastic movements or armies of the Lord. First came the chariot pulled by the red horses of the martyrs of the Early Church, followed by the black horses of the Benedictines who went to the "desert of the cloister" (*claustrale desertum*) and conquered the common life (*communis vitae bonum*) that had previously been lost. The third chariot, pulled by the white horses of the Cistercian and Florentian orders, gained the valleys full of wheat, singing hymns of praise. These had now been followed at the eleventh hour by a fourth chariot pulled by varied and strong horses, the armies of the friars preacher and friars minor, who arrived as dusk was falling to act against the hostile multitude when the vineyard was being destroyed by

123 Ibid., 393; Vicaire, *Histoire de saint Dominique*, 247–48.

124 See De Fraja, "Usi politici," 396; and Grado G. Merlo, "Militare per Cristo' contro gli eretici," in *Militia Christi' e crociati nei secoli xi–xiii* (Milan, 1992), 366–70; reprinted in Merlo, *Contro gli Eretici. La coercizione all'ortodossia prima dell'Inquisizione* (Bologna, 1996), 43–44.

brambles, thorns, and little foxes.¹²⁵ In addition to the evident connection of Dominic's cult to the fight against heresy, it is possible that this was an allusion to Joachim's famous prophecy of two new orders.¹²⁶ For De Fraja, a clue to the authorship of the passage is the inclusion alongside the vast international order of the Cistercians of the tiny order of Florentians, numbering just ten houses in Southern Italy at this date. But if Giuseppe was indeed involved in drafting the bull, it is significant that, as she points out, he put his own order's role in the past alongside that of the Cistercians rather than with the mendicants, the new "avant-garde" in the history of salvation.¹²⁷

6.6 "Prophet of the Two Great Mendicant Orders"

Joachim wrote of the appearance at the beginning of the Third Age of a double monastic order of contemplatives and preachers who would be summoned to preach against the apocalyptic beast at the end of the sixth age, followed by the "spiritual men" (*virī spirituales*) of the seventh. He may or may not have identified this function with his own order of Florentians: the point is an obscure one in his writings.¹²⁸ Whether or not he did so, by the middle of the 13th century, the mendicant orders of Franciscans and Dominicans had claimed this role, despite the loss of any distinction between contemplative and active orders that this entailed. The role assigned to them by Joachim served to reinforce the mendicants' conviction that they were destined to exercise a great role in salvation history. It may also have gained popularity among the friars as the secular clergy's criticism of their activities grew.¹²⁹

125 *Fons Sapientie*, 3 July 1234: *Bullarium ordinis fratrum praedicatorum*, (eds.) T. Ripoll and A. Bremond, 8 vols. (Rome, 1729–40), 1:67; *Bullarum privilegiorum ac diplomatum Romanorum Pontificum amplissima collectio*, (ed.) Caroli Cocquelines, 6 vols. (Rome, 1739–1762) (Rome, 1740), 3:282–83. A new edition is now available: *Humberti de Romanis Legendae Sancti Dominici, necnon materia praedicabilis pro festis Sancti Dominici et testimonia minora de eodem, adiectis miraculis rotomagensibus Sancti Dominici et Gregorii IX bulla canonizationis eiusdem*, (ed.) Simon Tugwell (*Corpus hagiographicum Sancti Dominici; Monumenta Ordinis fratrum praedicatorum historica*) 30 (Rome, 2008), 563–75.

126 Others have implied that it might not be the case. See the discussion in Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 337–40.

127 De Fraja, "Usi politici," 398, note 72. She also suggests parallels with Joachim's *Intelligentia super Calathis* in the description of the Church losing its way under Constantine, but corrected by the arrival of the Benedictines, 397.

128 De Fraja, "Usi politici," 379, argues that he did not. Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 342, suggests that he probably did.

129 See De Fraja, "Usi politici," 388.

There are various possible routes by which mendicant awareness of Joachim's thinking may have expanded, allowing this identification to emerge. Marco Rainini has drawn attention to the biblical allusion in *Quoniam abundavit*, a papal letter of 1217 identifying the Dominicans as preachers in a long-established tradition, rising up against the iniquity of pseudoprophets, as described in Matthew 24:11–14.¹³⁰ *Mira circa nos*, announcing the canonization of St. Francis of Assisi in 1228, also refers to the new saint as one of the workers sent at the eleventh hour.¹³¹ As discussed above, some writers have suggested that the "Alleluia," or great Devotion of 1233, which included mendicants, was even more explicitly Joachite.¹³² The most recent English-language writer on the Alleluia as a whole, Augustine Thompson, found no proof of a link with the anniversary of Christ's passion in 1233.¹³³ He also dismissed the evidence of the phrase Salimbene later used to describe the way the Alleluia was remembered—"a time of tranquillity and peace"—although it undoubtedly "parallel[s] Joachim's on the seventh age of the Church," arguing that it simply reflects Salimbene's own Joachite past.¹³⁴ Any link is indeed no more than

130 Marco Rainini, "I predicatori dei tempi ultimi. La rielaborazione di un tema escatologico nel costituirsi dell'identità profetica dell'Ordine domenicano," *Cristianesimo nella storia* 23 (2002), 313–19. The biblical passage to which the bull refers is the following: "And many false prophets shall rise, and shall deceive many. And because iniquity shall abound, the love of many shall wax cold. But he that shall endure unto the end, the same shall be saved. And this gospel of the kingdom shall be preached in all the world for a witness unto all nations; and then shall the end come."

131 *Bullarium Franciscanum Pontificum Romanorum*, (ed.) G.C. Sbaraglia, 4 vols. (Rome, 1759–68; reprinted Assisi, 1983–4), 1:98–99.

132 See, for example, Leone Tondelli, "Introduzione e commento," in *Il libro delle figure dell'Abate Gioachino da Fiore*, (eds.) Leone Tondelli, Marjorie Reeves, and Beatrice Hirsch-Reich, 2 vols. (Turin, 1953), 1:194.

133 Augustine Thompson, *Revival Preachers and Politics in Thirteenth-Century Italy: The Great Devotion of 1233* (Oxford, 1992), 23, note 62. On the Alleluia, see also Daniel A. Brown, "The Alleluia, A Thirteenth-Century Peace Movement," *Archivum Fratrum Praedicatorum* 81 (1988), 3–16; André Vauchez, "Une campagne de pacification en Lombardie autour de 1233. L'action politique des Ordres Mendicants d'après la réforme des statuts communaux et les accords de paix," *Mélanges de l'École Française de Rome. Moyen Âge-Temps Modernes* 78 (1966), 519–49; Vito Fumagalli, "In margine all'Alleluia del 1233," *Bullettino dell'Istituto Storico Italiano per il Medio Evo* 80 (1968), 257–72; and Marina Gazzini, "In margine all'Alleluia del 1233: la Milizia di Gesù Cristo di Parma (1233–1261)," in *Uno storico e un territorio. Vito Fumagalli e l'Emilia occidentale nel Medioevo. Atti del Convegno, Parma 11–12 ottobre 2002* (Bologna, 2005), 235–59.

134 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:102: "Fuit autem Alleluia quoddam tempus quod sic in posterum dictum fuit, scilicet tempus quietis et pacis, quoad arma bellica omnino remota,

conjecture, but one need not conclude that it is entirely unlikely, since Thompson's argument ultimately stems from the conviction that Joachim's works did not reach Northern Italy until the 1240s, a view that can now be revised.¹³⁵ Regardless of whether Salimbene was rewriting his own past, Joachim was (probably) in Verona to meet the pope in the 1180s, and, as previously mentioned, his ideas had already reached beyond Northern Italy to Paris by the 1190s, as well as to Sicard of Cremona before 1215. By 1216, the bishop of Lucca in Tuscany was being warned not to attack him, and four years later, Giuseppe di Fiore was preaching with Dominic in Northern Italy. The papal bulls Giuseppe later drafted may have included those describing the events of 1233. Whether or not the friars participating in the preaching and peacemaking of that year considered themselves members of the new orders prophesied by Joachim, it is not possible to omit Northern Italy quite so categorically from the sphere of Joachite influence at this date.

There are other fragments that point to mendicant interest in apocalypticism in the 1230s. Like the papal bull of 1234, which asserted the eschatological role of the friars as the workers of the last hour, the Dominican Master General Jordan of Saxony's *Libellus de principiis Ordinis Praedicatorum* (written either in 1218–19 and revised in 1233, or compiled from earlier materials after the translation of Dominic's body in 1233) also portrays the Dominicans as appearing by divine plan "in the perils of these last days."¹³⁶ As Rainini has observed, it may be significant that one of the few extant works by Jordan is a Commentary on the Apocalypse.¹³⁷ The *Legenda* of Dominic written by Petrus Ferrandi after the canonization and approved in a revised version, probably by the General Chapter of 1238, again portrays the Dominicans as appearing at the eleventh hour, but no longer in the traditional vein as simply among those who preach. Rather, more specifically, they are now *the* preaching specialists.¹³⁸ Ferrandi's *Legenda* also makes Dominic the precursor of the Second Coming, the star of the evening, the hour of dusk—equivalent to John the Baptist, star of the morning.¹³⁹ Canetti, as we have seen, argues that this is simply part of a

iocunditatis et letitiae, gaudii et exultationis, laudis et iubilationis." See also Thompson, *Revival Preachers and Politics*, 136, and note 1.

135 Thompson, *Revival Preachers and Politics*, 23, note 62.

136 Rainini, "I predicatori dei tempi ultimi," 326; Simon Tugwell, "Notes on the Life of St. Dominic," *Archivum Fratrum Praedicatorum* 68 (1998), 5–33, dates Jordan's *libellus* to 1218–19, with revisions in 1233. Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 158–73, prefers the 1233 date.

137 Rainini, "I predicatori dei tempi ultimi," 326.

138 Ibid.

139 Petrus Ferrandi, "Legenda S. Dominici," (ed.) Marie-Hyacinthe Laurent, in *Libellus de principiis Ordinis Praedicatorum. Acta canonizationis. Legendae Petri Ferrandi, Constantini*

broader current of eschatological thinking, but it suggests at the very least that the friars were open to the sort of ideas espoused in the works of Joachim.¹⁴⁰

The corpus of exegetical texts compiled c.1235-6 in the Dominican house of Saint Jacques in Paris under the supervision of Master Hugh of Saint-Cher (later the first Dominican Cardinal, d. 1263) illustrates a growing sense of an eschatological calling and, eventually, explicit Joachite knowledge among at least one group of Dominican friars. It includes a postil (commentary) on the Apocalypse (known as the *Aser pinguis* from its *incipit*), which takes up the idea from Hugh of Saint Victor that the seven trumpets of Revelation 8–11 are seven orders of preachers, making of the Dominicans the seventh trumpet. They would preach after the death of the Antichrist to announce a period of peace and consolation.¹⁴¹ Lerner argues that this makes the anonymous Dominican compiler “the most chiliastic commentator on Revelation in the West since the patristic era,” except for Joachim himself. Joachim is indeed quoted by name elsewhere in the text, though without adopting his exegetical method or allowing that anyone could have known when the End of Times would come.¹⁴² Similar, albeit more attenuated, ideas were taken up in a later postil, *Vidit Iacob*, produced in the same Dominican circle in the early 1240s, this time with extensive passages taken from Joachim.¹⁴³

The Franciscans in Naples have also been shown to have expressed interest in Joachim’s thinking before the “translation” of his works to Pisa described by Salimbene. Indeed, it may have been in Naples that Friar John of Parma

Urbevetani, Humberti de Romanis (Monumenta Ordinis Prædicatorum Historica) 16 (Rome, 1935), fascicle 2, 209–60; also available (ed.) Franciscus van Ortroy, “Pierre Ferrand O.P. et les premières biographies de S. Dominique fondateur de l’Ordre des Frères Prêcheurs,” *Analecta Bollandiana* 30 (1911), 27–87; or (eds.) Lorenzo Galmés and Vito T. Gómez, *Santo Domingo de Guzmán. Fuentes para su conocimiento* (Madrid 1987).

140 Canetti, *L’invenzione della memoria*, 346.

141 On the *Aser pinguis*, see also note 31 above. Robert Moynihan, “Joachim of Fiore and the Early Franciscans,” 108, 111, 112. Moynihan, quoting David M. Solomon, “The Sentence Commentary of Richard Fishacre and the Apocalypse Commentary of Hugh of St. Cher,” *Archivum fratrum prædicatorum* 46 (1976), 372, uses the evidence that Fishacre, who was in Oxford in the 1240s, knew Hugh’s work to posit that there was “knowledge of Joachim in the Dominican order in England by the 1240s.” Since Fishacre does not quote him, this is, unfortunately, unprovable. Some works attributed to Hugh have been viewed as a team effort in which Hugh had little involvement, see Lerner, “Poverty, Preaching, and Eschatology,” 182, 187. On Hugh more generally, see *Hugues de Saint-Cher* (†1263). *Bibliste et théologien*, (eds.) Louis-Jacques Bataillon, Gilbert Dahan, and Pierre-Marie Gy (Bibliothèque d’histoire culturelle du Moyen Âge) 1 (Turnhout, 2004).

142 Lerner, “Poverty, Preaching, and Eschatology,” 176.

143 *Ibid.*, 158–81.

(d. 1289) first encountered Joachimism.¹⁴⁴ But it was only in the 1240s that the Dominicans and Franciscans both explicitly chose to identify *themselves* as the “spiritual men” who would herald the new age. The highly controversial pseudo-Joachim *Super Hieremiam*, one of the most influential prophecies of the late Middle Ages, illustrates the nature of this mendicant engagement with Joachim’s thinking, by no means limited to the prophecy of the “spiritual men.”¹⁴⁵ The author or authors remain anonymous, and the text has been dated variously to 1241–3, 1248, or two phases (post-1241, but updated 1246–7).¹⁴⁶ It is a commentary on the Old Testament book of the Prophet Jeremiah, preceded, as customary, by a dedicatory letter purportedly addressed to emperor Henry VI. It is laden with criticism of the corruption of the Roman Church and in particular of the cardinals. It emphasizes the importance of the two orders of hermits and preachers and their role in liberating Christians from worldly wealth and defending the Church in the time of the three final tribulations: those inflicted by the empire, the saracens, and heretics. Until the mid-19th century it was believed to be by Joachim himself, substantially shaping his reputation. In the 1960s and 1970s, it was instead debated as either Franciscan or Cistercian-Florentian in origins. Most writers now agree with Stephen Wessley that a first short version with some Franciscan references (a version that survives in six or eight manuscripts) was drafted in Cistercian-Florentian circles in Italy and that this was followed by longer, ever more Franciscan redactions, modified by marginal annotations incorporated into the text in later versions (seventeen manuscripts).¹⁴⁷ The importance of the *Super Hieremiam* lies in its updating

144 E. Randolph Daniel, “A Re-Examination of the Origins of Franciscan Joachimism,” *Speculum* 43 (1968), 674. See also Töpfer, *Das kommende Reich*, 110.

145 Fiorella Simoni, “Il ‘Super Hieremiam’ e il gioachimismo francescano,” *Bullettino dell’Istituto italiano per il Medio Evo e Archivio Muratoriano* 82 (1970), 13–46. See also Simoni, “Gli spirituali tra gioachimismo e responsabilità escatologica,” in *Chi erano gli spirituali. Atti del 111 Convegno internazionale (Assisi, 1975)* (Società internazionale di Studi francescani) (Assisi, 1976), 145–79. Examples of the reception of the *Super hieremiam* are found in Vincent de Beauvais (see 231 below) and the *Annales Placentini Gibellini*, (ed.) Pertz, 516, which uses a single passage from the pseudo-Joachite *Super Hieremiam* to present Joachim as a visionary who prophesied the fate of the Germans in Southern Italy.

146 Töpfer argued for 1241–3 (*Das Kommende Reich*, 109); Simoni linked it to the first explicit reference in 1248 (Simoni, “Il ‘Super Hieremiam’ e il gioachimismo francescano,” 21), and Potestà argued for two phases: post-1241, but updated 1246–7 (“Il Super Hieremiam e il gioachimismo della dirigenza minoritica,” 888–89).

147 S.E. Wessley, *Joachim of Fiore and Monastic Reform* (New York, 1990). Robert Moynihan argued that a core can be traced back to Joachim, but this has not been widely accepted: Moynihan, “Joachim of Fiore and the Early Franciscans”; and Wessley, “The Development of the Pseudo-Joachim Commentary *Super Hieremiam*: New Ms. Evidence,” *Mélanges*

of Joachim's relatively specific message, relating it to contemporary events.¹⁴⁸ But whereas Töpfer viewed it as the work of "Franciscan extremists," Potestà argues that it may instead have reflected the views of prominent Franciscans and that it was prompted by the crisis surrounding the attack and capture in 1241 by imperial forces, of prelates heading to a papally-convened council in Rome.¹⁴⁹ After this traumatic episode, the *Super Hieremiam* was designed to provide an explanation for the failure of divine support for the leaders of the Church. In punishing the cardinals, Frederick was carrying out the divine will. But the text was not anti-papal: unlike Joachim's original prophecies, according to the *Super Hieremiam*, in the third *status* the pope would continue as the single vicar of Christ.¹⁵⁰ Thus, the insistence on the role of the new orders and the Franciscans in particular may perhaps be linked to the election of John of Parma as Minister General of the Franciscans in August 1247 and the sermon delivered to the assembled cardinals by a prominent Franciscan, Hugh of Digne, no later than early 1248.

As a Franciscan and an eyewitness, Salimbene's semi-autobiographical chronicle provides a privileged perspective from which to observe the role of such Joachite thinking in his order and identifies further channels for the spread and influence of Joachim's ideas. He describes his own early, undifferentiated enthusiasm for Joachism and underscores the role of Brother Hugh of Digne, reporting that Hugh himself had told him that he had received an invitation to preach to the curia from the pope, who had heard of his reputation

de l'École française de Rome. Moyen Âge-Temps Modernes 90 (1986), 109–42. A list of manuscripts is available at www.centrostudiogioachimiti.it, [consulted 9 October 2009] but no modern critical edition that might give scholars greater confidence about the sequence of composition has yet been published. See also Potestà, "Il Super Hieremiam e il gioachimismo della dirigenza minoritica," 883; and Stephen Wessley, "The Role of the Cistercians in the Writings of the Early Disciples of Joachim of Fiore," in *Naissance et fonctionnement des réseaux monastiques et canoniaux: actes du Premier Colloque International du C.E.R.C.O.M. Saint-Etienne (16–18 September 1985)* (Centre Européen de Recherches sur les Congrégations et Ordres Religieux) (Saint-Etienne, 1991), 81–102.

148 Töpfer, *Das Kommende Reich*, 108–24.

149 See the colorful account by G.C. Macaulay, "The Capture of a General Council, 1241," *The English Historical Review* 21 (1891), 1–17.

150 Potestà, "Il Super Hieremiam e il gioachimismo della dirigenza minoritica," 889–90. The author of the *Super Hieremiam* was strongly opposed to the Crusade, preferring instead the idea of apocalyptic conversion. See E. Randolph Daniel, "Apocalyptic Conversion: The Joachite Alternative to the Crusades," *Traditio* 25 (1969), 128–54, reprinted in *Joachim of Fiore in Christian Thought: Essays on the Influence of the Calabrian Abbot*, (ed.) Delno C. West, 2 vols. (New York, 1975), 2:315.

as a great Joachite.¹⁵¹ He reports that Hugh was a close friend of John of Parma, the Franciscan Minister General (describing them both as “great clerics and spiritual men and the greatest Joachites” [*magni clerici et spirituales viri et maximi Ioachite*]), as also of Bishop Robert Grosseteste of Lincoln (d. 1253) and the English Franciscan Master, Adam Marsh (d. 1259).¹⁵² According to Salimbene, Hugh’s cell in Hyères was frequented by notaries, judges, doctors, and other men of letters who came on feast days to hear him discuss the doctrines of Joachim, the mysteries of Scripture, and foretell the future.¹⁵³ Salimbene thus implies that laymen of learning were as interested in Joachim’s interpretations as were men of the Church, they were actively and eagerly discussed and debated.

It has been proposed that it was Hugh of Digne who sent a small book with a selection of Joachimite texts “from beyond the Alps” to Adam Marsh. Regardless of whether it came from Hugh, this was the booklet that Marsh then forwarded to Bishop Robert Grosseteste, accompanied by a letter in which he demonstrated his belief in Joachim’s prophetic powers:

[he] is thought, not without cause, to have been divinely inspired to understand the mysteries of prophecy, whether the dread days of immutable providence are at hand—the days of retribution so fearfully foretold by the prophets and even by the author of the prophets, against prelates and clergy, princes and peoples, on account of the monstrous swamp of their execrable and shameful misdeeds in these, alas, most wicked days; and that the time of God’s stern judgement is beginning, in which good is examined, evil reproved, and all things [are] ordered, following the

151 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:341–51. Salimbene must have invented much of the dialogue between Hugh and the pope and cardinals, if not the ensuing sermon. Potestà, “Il Super Hieremiam e il gioachimismo della dirigenza minoritica,” 886–87, notes the close ties between the latter and the *Super Hieremiam*, concluding that Salimbene’s version should be taken at face value as Hugh’s. Hugh of Digne’s Joachism is not uncontroversial. See Fiorella Simoni, “Gli spirituali tra Gioachimismo e responsabilità escatologica,” in *Chi erano gli spirituali. Atti del III Convegno internazionale. Società Internazionale di studi francescani* (Assisi, 1976), 151–55.

152 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:351–53. The modern editor of Adam Marsh’s letters suggests that he probably met Hugh during his stay at Lyons in 1245. See *Letters of Adam Marsh*, (ed.) Lawrence, 1:xxx. On Salimbene’s use of “magni clerici” to indicate his religious ideal, see Mariano d’Alatri, “Clerici’ e ‘magni clerici,’” in *La Cronaca di Salimbene. Personaggi e tematiche* (Rome, 1988), 59–71, esp. 67–69.

153 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:356.

divine command to “look up and lift up your heads, for your redemption is close at hand” [Luke 21:28].¹⁵⁴

This evocation of the resonance of Joachim’s prophecies for at least one reform-minded cleric was followed by Adam’s request that Grosseteste have the booklet read in his room (*cubiculum*) with his secretaries present, and then copied and returned. Lending manuscripts to friends and patrons so that they could read and reproduce them was entirely normal, though the suggestion that this should be done “in cubiculo” perhaps reflects a certain anxiety about Joachim’s writings.

A Franciscan from Northern Germany known as Alexander Minorita (or Alexander of Bremen, d. 1271) recorded a visionary incident not unlike the one Joachim experienced and which enabled him to understand the Apocalypse. He seems to have been writing a commentary on the text in the mid-1230s while still a layman, and probably before he knew Joachim’s work.¹⁵⁵ The most recent student of his *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, Sabine Schmolinsky, suggests that he then became aware of Joachite thinking c.1242 and revised his text, producing a second redaction using Joachim perhaps as early as that same year.¹⁵⁶ His work, which survives in three different versions, is a collection of existing prophecies that suited his view of the future course of history. Thus, he explicitly linked the New Jerusalem with the Dominicans and Franciscans:

We indeed, according to what has been revealed to us, say that the Order of Friars Minor and Friars Preacher are in the beloved city. In this city one brother helps another so that it will be secure... This city has the names of the twelve Apostles written into its foundations because the said friars characteristically imitate the life and teachings of the Apostles more than the works and words of other men.¹⁵⁷

¹⁵⁴ Adapted from the *Letters of Adam Marsh*, (ed.) Lawrence, 1: letter 43, 119–20.

¹⁵⁵ Alexander Minorita, *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Alois Wachtel (MGH Quellen zur Geistesgeschichte des Mittelalters) 1 (Weimar, 1955). Schmolinsky, *Der Apokalypsenkommentar des Alexander Minorita*, 121–23, points out that Albert of Stade cites a Frater Alexander, and Alexander himself makes extensive use of Albert’s chronicle and mentions the Saxon *Weltchronik*, so he was clearly a Franciscan from Northern Germany. See also Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 177–78.

¹⁵⁶ On the dating, see also Potestà, “Il Super Hieremiam,” 888, note 24.

¹⁵⁷ Alexander Minorita, *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Wachtel, 454; Schmolinsky, *Der Apokalypsenkommentar des Alexander Minorita*, 36.

Besides the prominence given to the major orders of mendicants, Alexander's work is typical of the various and elusive ways by which such texts can be related to Joachim. Schmolinsky notes, for example, that one group of manuscripts ascribes it to the abbot, while the commentary includes citations from Joachim's corpus of works, sometimes with his name.¹⁵⁸ Alexander undoubtedly borrowed certain prophecies—on the nature of the beast, for example—but Schmolinsky nonetheless concludes that the extent of his knowledge of Joachim's work was very limited (*eng begrenzt*).¹⁵⁹ As perhaps with most of his contemporaries, Alexander acquired his knowledge mainly through the *Super Hieremiam*, which he of course believed to be Joachim's own work. Indeed, he seems to have been the first to cite it, whether c.1242 or in 1248–49.

Modern historians have tended to concentrate on Franciscan responses to Joachim because of the importance of developments among the Spirituals, and the more hostile views of prominent Dominicans such as Thomas Aquinas (d. 1274) or Cardinal Hugh of Saint-Cher, who was appointed to a commission in the 1250s that condemned Friar Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino, a keen Joachite.¹⁶⁰ Yet, as we have seen, the Order of Preachers had, like the Franciscans, begun to identify its calling in an eschatological sense, and knowledge of other aspects of Joachism is again suggested by the works of later Dominicans. The *Speculum Historiale* of Friar Vincent of Beauvais mentioned above repeats the *Super Hieremiam*'s account of an apocalyptic order, though any link with his own order of preachers is not made explicit.¹⁶¹ A Sienese friar, Ambrogio Sansedoni (1220–1286), a student of Albertus Magnus and a classmate of Thomas Aquinas, wrote of the ages of the Church in his *Sermones de Tempore*, probably also composed in the mid-13th century. In a vision of three ages he identified his own age as that of the last days when God had sent either Dominic, his servant (*servus suus*), or, in another passage, the order of minors and preachers (*ordines minorum et predicatorum*) to proclaim the

158 Schmolinsky, *Der Apokalypsenkommentar des Alexander Minorita*, 15, 66.

159 Ibid., 86, 123.

160 A "questio," *De prophetia*, attributed to Hugh portrays prophecy as a divine gift. See Jean-Pierre Torrell, *Théorie de la prophétie et philosophie de la connaissance aux environs de 1230: la contribution d'Hugues de Saint-Cher: édition critique* [of *De Prophetia*] *avec introduction et commentaire* (Spicilegium Sacrum Lovaniense: Études et Documents) 40 (Leuven, 1977).

161 Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 161–62. The passage is given in Rainini, "I predicatori dei tempi ultimi," 335–36, note 99. Vincent of Beauvais, *Speculum historiale*, (ed.) A. Koberger (Nuremberg, 1483), Book 32, Chapter 107.

Gospel, replacing the earlier action of the Prophets, Apostles, and Bishops.¹⁶² Still more direct is the work of Friar Gerard de Frachet, author of the *Vitae fratrum*, a history of the Dominican brethren that was perhaps begun before 1250, but later compiled at the behest of Humbert of Romans, the Dominican Master General (1254–63) who may also have edited it.¹⁶³ Frachet seems to be the first Dominican to mention the identification of his order with the new order of preachers prophesied by Joachim.¹⁶⁴ His text, approved at the General Chapter of 1260, records, in a list of earlier authorities on preaching such as Augustine and Gregory the Great, and of prophets who had purportedly foreseen the coming of the order, including Hildegard of Bingen and the Sibyl:

Joachim too, abbot and founder of the Florentian order, [who] wrote of this order of preachers in many books and [other] places and, describing the order and habit, advised his brothers that when this order arose after his own death they should receive it devoutly. This they did, welcoming the brothers when first they came to them with the Cross and a procession.¹⁶⁵

Humbert's own revised version of Dominic's *Legenda*, intended for the brothers' exclusive use and to replace Frachet's version, reiterates the eschatological

162 Ambrogio Sansedoni, *Sermones de Tempore*, Siena, Biblioteca Comunale, ms T. iv 7 fol. 80r-v: "Postea in novo testamento per apostolos et postea per episcopos, sed modo quia iam est hora cene, misit servum suum, id est beatum Dominicum." Cited in Thompson, *Revival Preachers and Politics*, 11, who notes that on fol. 82r Sansedoni replaces Dominic with "ordinem minorum et predicatorum."

163 Simon Tugwell suggests that Frachet may have begun writing before 1250. See Tugwell, "L'évolution des *vitae fratrum*. Résumé des conclusions provisoires," *L'Ordre des Prêcheurs et son histoire en France méridionale (Cahiers de Fanjeaux)* 36 (Toulouse 2001), 415.

164 Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 342; see also Schmolinsky, *Der Apokalypsenkommentar des Alexander Minorita*, 6. Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 344, denies that Humbert accepted anything more than a generic providentialist view of the prophecies of Joachim, citing the nonspecific nature of this account of which he approved. Rainini, "I predicatori dei tempi ultimi," 337, draws attention to Humbert's use of a concordance "di sapore tipicamente gioachimita" in his *Opusculum tripartitum*, comparing the seven persecutions of the Church with those of the people of Israel and the seven heads of the beast in Apocalypse 17.

165 Gerard of Frachet, *Vitae fratrum Ordinis Praedicatorum necnon Cronica Ordinis ab anno MCCIII usque ad MCCLIV*, (eds.) B.M. Reichert and J.J. Berthier (*Monumenta Ordinis Fratrum Praedicatorum Historica*) 1 (Leuven, 1896), I, ii, v, 13.

theme, though it makes no explicit reference to Joachim.¹⁶⁶ But the story was again taken up in the German world by the Erfurt Dominican hagiographer Dietrich of Apolda (d. 1302), writing at the end of the century (1297).¹⁶⁷ It was also adopted in the Franciscan Erfurt Chronicle, in which a legend emerged that Joachim drew or commissioned pictures of the coming of the friars:

This same abbot Joachim, before the creation of the Orders of Friars Minor and Friars Preacher, discussed these same orders in his treatise *Super Hieremiam*. He also named the orders and picked out the habit and showed them in wall paintings by the hand of a painter.¹⁶⁸

This theme had also been elaborated in the *Flores Temporum* of an anonymous Swabian Franciscan writing in the early 1290s: "again, on the walls of his room he painted an image of the friars Minor, saying, these will soon come, girded by a rope, wearing sandals, most holy and powerful, enduring many things from the world, but lasting until the end of time."¹⁶⁹

The enthusiasm of these writers for a prophetic role that gave luster to their origins and purpose is undeniable. Mendicant responses to eschatological thinking were not all, however, so eager. In a widely disseminated work of instruction on monastic and mystical life written sometime after c.1240, another Franciscan, David of Augsburg (d. 1272), companion of the great preacher Berthold of Regensburg (whom Salimbene described at length, d. 1272), complained that he was sick of revelations about the future or about secrets, which supposedly came from the Holy Spirit but really came from the spirit of error.¹⁷⁰ David's lack of enthusiasm may not have been directed against

166 Humbert of Roman, "Legenda sancti Dominici," (ed.) A. Walz in *Libellus de principiis Ordinis Praedicatorum. Acta canonizationis. Legendae Petri Ferrandi, Constantini Urbevetani, Humberti de Romanis* (Monumenta Ordinis Fratrum Praedicatorum Historica) 16, fascicle 2 (Rome, 1935), 369.

167 Discussed in Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 162.

168 "Cronica minor Minoritae Erphordensis, continuatio 1," in *Monumenta Erphesfurtensia* saec. xii, xiii, xiv, MGH SS rer. Germ. 42, (ed.) Oswald Holder-Egger (Hanover, 1899), 679–80.

169 "Flores temporum auctore fratre ordinis minorum," (ed.) Oswald Holder Egger, MGH SS 24 (Hanover, 1879), 239. See also Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 72–73.

170 David of Augsburg, *De exterioris et interioris hominis compositione secundum triplicem statum incipientium, proficientium et perfectorum libri tres*, (ed.) Collegii S. Bonaventurae (Ad Claras Aquas [Quaracchi]: Ex Typographia Eiusdem Collegii, 1899), Book 3: *De septem processibus religiosorum*, 360. See Sabine Schmolinsky, "... iam multifariis vaticiniis

Joachism in particular. Schmolinsky, for example, points out that neither the majority of the prophecies in his account, nor the sermons on the Last Judgement and the Antichrist delivered by his companion Berthold, can be definitively identified as Joachite. As we have seen, the reference to the coming of the Antichrist at the end of history was a standard part of Christian eschatology at this date, so their material may well have come from other sources.¹⁷¹ Nonetheless, David's frustration probably reflects a wider trend, one which also encompassed Joachism and grew in scale after the uncertainties of the middle of the century.

6.7 Crisis

The late 1250s and early 1260s mark what Gary Dickson has called "an unprecedented period of Joachist agitation."¹⁷² At the end of the 1240s, a young Franciscan, Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino and another friar, Bartolomeo Guisculus, sought to persuade Louis IX not to go on Crusade, predicting that it would end in failure—as proved to be the case. They told Salimbene that Joachim had foreseen this in his (pseudo) *Super Hieremiam*. In 1254, Gerardo, who had been appointed as a lector in Paris, circulated an *Introductorius in Evangelium aeternum* in which he claimed that the Gospel had now lost its purpose and had been replaced by a new Eternal Gospel, which he identified as the corpus of the three major works of Joachim: the *Liber de Concordia*, the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, and the *Psalterium decem chordarum*, to which he provided an introduction and commentary.¹⁷³ He identified the beginning of

iam usque ad fastidium repleti sumus...?' Deutsche Franziskaner des 13. Jahrhunderts im Umgang mit joachitischen Ideen," *Wissenschaft und Weisheit. Zeitschrift für Augustinisch-Franziskanische Theologie und Philosophie in der Gegenwart* 50 (1987), 164–75; and Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 2:840–45.

171 Schmolinsky, *Der Apokalypsenkommentar des Alexander Minorita*, 5–6.

172 Gary Dickson, "The Flagellants of 1260 and the Crusades," *Journal of Medieval History* 15 (1989), 252.

173 On Gerardo, see Dieter Berg, *Armut und Wissenschaft. Beiträge zur Geschichte des Studienwesens der Bettelorden im 13. Jahrhundert* (Dusseldorf, 1977); Jürgen Miethke, "Papst, Ortsbischof und Universität in den Pariser Theologenprozessen des 13. Jahrhunderts," in *Die Auseinandersetzungen an der Pariser Universität im 13. Jahrhundert*, (ed.) A. Zimmerman (Miscellanea Mediaevalia) 10 (Berlin, 1976); Edouard-Henri Wéber, "L'affaire de l'Évangile éternel et ses fructueux échos chez saint Bonaventure," in *Lectionum varietates: Hommage à Paul Vignaux (1904–1987)*, (eds.) J. Jolivet, Z. Kaluza, and A. de Libera (Études de Philosophie medieval) 65 (Paris, 1991), 67–83; and Roberto Lambertini, "Ende oder Vollendung. Interpretazioni eschatologiche del conflitto tra Scolari e Mendicanti alla metà del XIII

the Age of the Spirit as 1260 and claimed that the Franciscans would be the pure men of the new Church. This was probably intended as a contribution to the growing controversy within the Franciscan order about the proper way to observe the Gospel and the absolute poverty envisaged by Francis of Assisi.¹⁷⁴ Undoubtedly, it was a conscious rebellion against the authority of the Church and a tendentious interpretation of Joachim, who had not indicated a new text by his use of the term "Eternal Gospel."

Gerardo's work fell on fertile ground, though surely not as he had anticipated. The mendicant masters had been gaining increasing prominence in the University of Paris since the late 1220s, but they periodically refused to participate in the corporate activities of their secular colleagues. When the latter went on strike following a violent attack on four secular students and their servant in the spring of 1253, the Dominican masters said they would join only if their participation did not affect their claim on one of their two chairs in Theology.¹⁷⁵ The ensuing row led to attempts to throw the friars out of the university. Leading secular masters were keen to challenge their privileged status, and Gerardo's work provided a perfect opportunity. They drew up a list of excerpts from the text to demonstrate its errors.¹⁷⁶ Gerardo's original *Introductorius* has not survived, so it is not possible to establish the accuracy of the list, but

secolo," in *Ende und Vollendung: Eschatologische Perspektiven im Mittelalter*, (eds.) Jan A. Aertsen and Martin Pickavé (Miscellanea Mediaevalia) 29 (Berlin, 2002), 250–61.

- 174 There is a vast literature on Franciscan poverty. As a starting point, see Malcolm Lambert, *Franciscan Poverty: The Doctrine of the Absolute Poverty of Christ and the Apostles in the Franciscan Order, 1210–1323* (London, 1961); *La povertà del secolo XII e Francesco d'Assisi. Atti del 11 Convegno di studi della Società internazionale di Studi Francescani* (Assisi, 1975); and more recently, David Burr, *Olivi and Franciscan Poverty: The Origins of the Usus Pauper Controversy* (Philadelphia, 1989); Burr, *The Spiritual Franciscans: From Protest to Persecution in the Century after Saint Francis* (Pennsylvania, 2001) and Neslihan Şenocak, *The Poor and the Perfect: the rise of learning in the Franciscan order, 1209–1310* (Ithaca, NY., 2012).
- 175 *Chartularium Universitatis Parisiensis*, (ed.) H. Denifle, 4 vols. (Paris, 1887–1897), 1, no. 219, 242–44, and notes.
- 176 Wilhelm Preger, "Das Evangelium aeternum und Joachim von Floris," in *Abhandlungen der historischen Klasse der Königlich-Bayerischen Akademie der Wissenschaften*, 12, no. 3 (1874), 1–39, edition at 33–36. The fundamental article on the manuscript copies of this is H. Denifle, "Das 'Evangelium aeternum' und die Commission zu Anagni," in *Archiv für Literatur- und Kirchengeschichte des Mittelalters*, (eds.) Heinrich Denifle and Franz Ehrle, 1 (Berlin, 1885; repr. Graz, 1955), 99–142. The references are from E. Benz, "Joachim-Studien II: Die Exzerptsätze der Pariser Professoren aus dem Evangelium Aeternum," *Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte* 51 (1932), 415–55, *Chartularium Universitatis Parisiensis*, 1, no. 243, 272–76, and Christoph Anz, "Ein Rebell wider Willen? Joachim von Fiore und das Fortwirken seiner Geschichtstheologie bis zur Mitte des 13. Jahrhunderts," in *Ordnung*

amongst other errors, the masters recorded the radical idea that not only was another gospel to follow the Gospel of Christ, but Christ's priesthood would also be superseded.¹⁷⁷ They recognized that this was not Joachim's work since it referred to Frederick II's persecution of the Church, but they underlined the particular danger of its heresies.¹⁷⁸ The list was unquestionably an attack aimed at the mendicants in general. It was translated into French and the secular masters, led by Master William of Saint-Amour (d. 1272), promoted its message by means of sermons rallying the people of Paris against the friars.¹⁷⁹ At first, Pope Innocent IV (1243–54) sought to resolve this and other problems by removing mendicant privileges with the bull *Etsi animarum* (21 November 1254). But Innocent died just sixteen days later and on 22 December his successor, Alexander IV (1254–61), a close ally of the mendicants, reversed his decision in the bull *Nec insolitum*, proceeding to reinforce mendicant privileges in the following spring with the *Quasi lignum vitae* (14 April 1255). Meanwhile, in September 1254, Louis IX had returned to Paris from his failed crusade. He renewed his substantial support for the mendicant orders and eventually took the pope's line on the dispute.

Alexander IV acquired a copy of the *Introductorius* and the Paris list of errors and appointed a commission of three cardinals, including Hugh of Saint-Cher, to investigate both. They met in July 1255 in Anagni, south of Rome (where

und *Aufbruch im Mittelalter. Historische und juristische Studien zur Rebellion*, (ed.) Marie Theres Fögen (Frankfurt am Main, 1995), 163–83.

177 “Quod evangelio Christi aliud evangelium succedet et ita per contrarium sacerdotio Christi aliud sacerdotium succedet.” See *Chartularium Universitatis Parisiensis*, 1, no. 243, 272, and note 9. Bernhard Töpfer identified Dresden, Sächsischen Landesbibliothek, A 121, as Gerardo's work on the basis of the glosses on the three books of Joachim, which match those recorded by the protocol of the Commission of Anagni. It does not include Gerardo's *Liber introductorius*. See Töpfer, “Eine Handschrift des ‘Evangelium aeternum’ des Gerardino von Borgo San Donnino,” *Zeitschrift für Geschichtswissenschaft* 7 (1960), 156–63.

178 Benz, “Joachim-Studien II: Die Exzerptsätze der Pariser Professoren,” 425.

179 For William's sermons, see *The Opuscula of William of Saint-Amour: The Minor Works of 1255–56*, (ed.) Andrew Traver (Beiträge zur Geschichte der Philosophie und Theologie des Mittelalters, Neue folge) 63 (Münster, 2003), 53–81. See also William of Saint-Amour, *De periculis novissimorum temporum*, (ed.) and trans. Guy Geltner (Dallas Medieval Texts and Translations) 8 (Paris, 2008). Following Lerner, Andrew Traver, “The *Liber de Antichristo* and the Failure of Joachimite Expectations,” *Florensia* 14 (2001), 87–98, argues convincingly that the *Liber de Antichristo* was written by William in the 1260s, celebrating the fact that the year 1260 had passed without effect (thus proving that Joachim was a “pseudo-prophet”) and warning that the last days and the Antichrist were approaching, of which the hypocritical mendicant orders were the heralds. See also the chapter by Sven Grosse in the present volume.

the curia was in residence), having the original works of Joachim sent to them from Fiore as a point of reference. The protocol they issued first summarized the “errors and idiocies” (*errores et fatuitates*) of Gerardo and then discussed Joachim’s core teachings (thereby incidentally producing a summary of their reception in mid-century), noting Gerardo’s additions and corrections to his work. In particular, they clarified Gerardo’s notion that the Eternal Gospel was entrusted specifically to a new barefoot order (the Franciscans) made up equally of the laity and the clergy.¹⁸⁰ The Franciscan thus gave his own order a unique role in the new *status*, going far beyond any earlier author’s identification of the “spiritual men” with the mendicants. The commission did not condemn Joachim himself, but it did identify errors in his authentic works, including, as Potestà has observed, his ideas about replacing the law of grace, the three *status* doctrine, and the excessive praise of certain monks at the expense of the priestly order (*ordo clericalis*).¹⁸¹ In the end, on 23 October 1255 Alexander IV wrote to the Bishop of Paris condemning both the *Introductorius* and the list of errors produced by the Paris masters.

Meanwhile, Joachite ideas were being exploited in other ways in the conflict between seculars and mendicants. Louis IX had tried to resolve the Parisian disputes first by summoning both sides to a gathering of several thousand clergy and then, on 1 March 1256, bringing together a smaller group to find a solution. Sometime later that spring, William of Saint-Amour, who had already been rashly preaching against Louis’s adoption of mendicant-style dress and the presence of mendicants in the royal court, produced a pamphlet: *De periculis novissimorum temporum*. It was an apocalyptic text in which he identified all mendicants as the precursors of the Antichrist.¹⁸² It can therefore have been no surprise to many Parisians when, on 27 June 1256, Louis had William imprisoned and expelled his associates from the university.

180 Denifle, “Das ‘Evangelium aeternum’ und die Commission zu Anagni,” 102.

181 Ibid., 115: “incredibilem exaltationem cuiusdam ordinis monachorum.” Gian Luca Potestà, *Angelo Clareno dai poveri eremiti ai fraticelli* (Istituto storico Italiano per il Medio Evo: Nuovi studi storici) 8 (Rome, 1990), 100.

182 Robert Lerner suggests that the apocalypticism and citation of Joachim is either “to match quotation for quotation” or a parody of Gerardo, which William abandoned in his later writing, such as the *Liber de Antichristo*. See Robert Lerner, “Refreshment of the Saints,” 125. The idea of *De periculis* as a parody was proposed earlier by Brian Tierney, *The Origins of Papal Infallibility, 1150–1350: A Study on the Concepts of Infallibility, Sovereignty and Tradition in the Middle Ages* (Leiden, 1972), and is also pursued by Wendy Scase, *Piers Plowman and the New Anticlericalism* (Cambridge, 1989). More recently, Guy Geltner has argued that this is “overly dismissive” since eschatological apocalypticism “dominates William’s other writings.” See *De periculis*, (ed.) Geltner, 14.

Gerardo too had been condemned, sentenced to life imprisonment and punished by having his work publicly destroyed, though it seems not all copies were immediately eliminated. Salimbene reports that years later he was given a copy to inspect by the guardian of the Franciscan convent in Imola. A notary, he said, had copied it while in Rome with Brancalone (degli Andalò, the Bolognese senator of the city in the 1250s). The notary had prized the book, but Salimbene claims that he judged it laughable and recommended that it be burned, which it duly was.¹⁸³

The storm unleashed by the events in Paris rumbled for decades, contributing significantly to anti-fraternal (anti-mendicant) satire and criticism. The potential damage to Joachim's own reputation as a prophet and exegete was also substantial. In the early 1260s the list of errors produced by the Paris masters, which equated Joachim and Gerardo's work, along with the 1255 judgement, were included, for example, by a Dominican known as the Anonymous of Passau in an anthology compiling writings on Jews, the Antichrist, and heretics.¹⁸⁴ Joachim's teachings on the three *status* were further condemned at a provincial synod in Arles in 1263. Although this was never taken up by the whole Church, Joachim's ideas were now circulating in explicitly heretical contexts that were potentially far more damaging than the doctrinally restricted condemnation of 1215. Indeed, the echo of these events can again be found in contemporary chronicles such as those of the notary Alberto Milioli of Reggio (d. before 1265), the Saint Alban's Benedictine Matthew Paris (d. 1259), and the Prague Dominican Martinus Polonus (d. 1278). Alberto baldly reported the condemnation.¹⁸⁵ Martinus was careful to convey the meaning of the papal judgement and to confute Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino's work.¹⁸⁶ By contrast, Matthew detailed the list of errors in his chronicle, attributing them to Joachim, whom he condemned, no doubt driven partly by his support

183 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 2:691.

184 Alexander Patschovsky, *Der Passauer Anonymus: ein Sammelwerk über Ketzer, Juden, Antichrist aus der Mitte des 13. Jahrhunderts* (MGH Schriften) 22 (Stuttgart, 1968). For the author's Dominican identity, see Patschovsky "Passauer Anonymus," *Verfasserlexikon* 7 (Berlin, 1989), cols. 320–324.

185 Alberto Milioli, "Liber de temporibus et aetatibus et cronica imperatorum," (ed.) O. Holder-Egger, MGH SS 31 (Hanover, 1903), cap. 261, 366. The use of Milioli by Salimbene or vice versa is still disputed.

186 Martinus Oppaviensis, *Chronicon pontificum et imperatorum*, (ed.) L. Weiland, MGH SS 22 (Hanover, 1872), 438, 440.

for the secular masters and William of Saint-Amour.¹⁸⁷ All three approaches were echoed by later writers.¹⁸⁸

John of Parma, the Franciscan Minister General, was also profoundly affected by the scandal. In 1255, together with the Dominican Master General Humbert of Romans, he had sent a letter to the members of their orders which underlined that God, "the saviour of the world, had in these most recent days at the end of the world, stirred up [their] two orders." These were "two witnesses of Christ who, dressed in sackcloth, were now preaching and giving witness to the truth. These were those two bright stars which, according to the prophecy of the Sybil ... in the very last days cry out the name of the lamb for humility and voluntary poverty."¹⁸⁹ This is an explicitly sibylline text with no overt citation of Joachim, though it may derive from the *Super Hieremiam*.¹⁹⁰ The identification of the two orders and the association with Sibylline prophecy demonstrate at the very least the acceptability to both men of prophetic messages tied to an eschatological theme.¹⁹¹

Regardless of whether John was truly a Joachite, after just two years he resigned his post at the General Chapter held in Rome in February 1257 and was replaced by Bonaventure of Bagnoreggio. Five years later he was put on trial, and his allegedly Joachite beliefs played an important role in his cross-examination. The trial is identified as the fourth of the tribulations of the order in the *Historia septem tribulationum ordinis minorum* of the Spiritual Franciscan, Angelo Clareno (d. 1337), an eschatological interpretation of the history of the Franciscan order, which would end with the dawning of a new era.¹⁹²

187 Paris, *Chronica majora*, (ed.) Luard, 6:335–39.

188 On whom, see either Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 71–95, or Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 62–71.

189 *Litterae encyclicae magistrorum generalium Ordinis Praedicatorum ab anno 1233 usque ad annum 1376*, (ed.) B-M. Reichert (Monumenta Ordinis Praedicatorum Historica) 5, (Rome, 1900), no. 8, 25–31.

190 Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 343, and also 447, argues that attempts to identify explicitly Joachite themes in the letter are the product of overinterpretation (*qualche forzatura*). Potestà, "Il Super Hieremiam e il gioachimismo della dirigenza minoritica," 892, argues that the letter "reveals a clear debt to the *Super Hieremiam*."

191 On the Latin *Sibylla Tiburtina* see Anke Holdenried, *The Sibyl and Her Scribes: Manuscripts and Interpretation of the Latin Sibylla Tiburtina c.1050–1500* (Aldershot, 2006).

192 *Angeli Clareni Opera* 11, (ed.) Rossini, Book 5, 167–92. An English translation is now also available: Angelo Clareno, *A Chronicle or History of the Seven Tribulations of the Order of Brothers Minor*, trans. David Burr and E. Randolph Daniel (St. Bonaventure, NY, 2005). The other main sources for the trial are "Chronica XXIV Generalium Ministrorum Ordinis

Among the reasons for the persecution of John, Angelo points to John's criticism of the observance of the rule in the order and his Joachism, but it was a very unusual form of Joachism. Angelo states that John and his followers believed that Joachim had a Catholic and holy opinion of the Trinity of God, and that Innocent III and the 1215 decretal had not condemned him or his doctrine but only the booklet against Master Peter [Lombard], which was condemned because it was defamatory. Clareno went on to affirm Joachim's opinion of the sanctity of Peter's work, leading a recent commentator, Hanno Helbling, to observe that Angelo seems to have relied on another text, the *Liber contra Lombardum*, erroneously attributed to Joachim.¹⁹³ In reality, there is no doubt that the Lateran Council and subsequent decretal condemned Joachim's view of the Trinity, not just his defamation of Peter, so Clareno's account, like his source, is somewhat optimistic. His claim that the Joachite connection was used as an excuse for the investigation of John is equally obfuscated by the manner in which he presents it:

The brothers clearly moved from this second cause and reason and provoked brother Bonaventure to examine brother John and his companions in the faith, and excited the son against the father [Luke 12:53] and the beloved former disciple and subject against the careful master and pastor.¹⁹⁴

Here, Clareno implies that there was a conflict between generations, and indeed, John had been Bonaventure's superior as Minister General for ten years until 1257, but they had been coetaneous students in Paris, not master and disciple.

Clareno also reports that before John was tried, two of his companions, Gerardo and Leonardo, were first investigated and

because they could not find anything by which to convict them of any heretical error, they called them to respond concerning the question of

Fratrum Minorum" (which describes John as "per doctrinam Abbatis Ioachim in designatione finalium temporum deceptus") and the much briefer "Catalogus Generalium Ministrorum Ordinis Fratrum Minorum," in *Analecta Franciscana* 3 (Quaracchi, 1897), 350 and 698–99. The "Catalogus," (ed.) Oswald Holder-Egger is also in MGH SS 32 (Hanover, 1905–1913), 653–77.

193 *Angeli Clareni Opera* II, (ed.) Rossini, 175 note.

194 "Ex hac secunda causa et ratione apparenter moti sunt fratres et provocarunt fratrem Bonaventuram ad examinandum fratrem Iohannem et socios suos de fide, et commoverunt filium contra patrem [cf. Luke 12:53] et dilectum olim discipulum et subditum contra diligentem magistrum et pastorem." See *Angeli Clareni Opera* II, (ed.) Rossini, 176.

the divine essence, on account of which the booklet of Abbot Joachim is censured (*propter quam libellus ille abbatis Ioachim reprobatus est*).¹⁹⁵

As formulated by Clareno, their reply recalls the evasive and cautious emphasis on orthodoxy attributed by contemporaries to those facing inquisition. He has them assert

that on that question they held to what the doctors of the Church and the holy councils determine and that Joachim did not hold or teach anything different from the teachings of the saints and the Church.¹⁹⁶

The other Joachite link with John was supposedly the two sermons written by his companions, the first of which praised the doctrine and person of Joachim without due measure (*sine sale*), presumably a reference to the work of Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino. The second cited the principle passages of the Bible in praise of the rule and of Francis, its distortion, and the need for renewal, perhaps a reference to a work by Hugh of Digne (or John's companion, Brother Leonardo).¹⁹⁷ In his account of the interrogation of John—before both Bonaventure and the cardinal protector of the order, Giovanni Gaetano Orsini (later Pope Nicholas III, 1277–1280)—Clareno again sets out to undermine the legitimacy of the court, describing the shock and surprise the examination provoked and the anger and irreverence of the investigators, indignant when John raised his voice and declared “I believe in one God, Father Almighty” (*Credo in unum Deum Patrem omnipotentem*).¹⁹⁸ The sentence John received, like his companions, was one of perpetual imprisonment, modified after the intervention of Cardinal Ottobono Fieschi (later Pope Hadrian V, 1276). John was allowed to choose his place of retirement, settling on Greccio (near Rieti), where another Spiritual Franciscan, Ubertino da Casale, would later encounter him.

6.8 Proclaimer of 1260 as the Year of Crisis

Joachim himself never assigned a specific year to the time when the Age of the Son would give way to the Age of the Spirit. As we have seen, chroniclers such as Albert of Stade and the evangelizing Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino had supplied the gap, identifying 1260 as the critical moment and associating

¹⁹⁵ Ibid., 187.

¹⁹⁶ Ibid.

¹⁹⁷ Ibid., 177.

¹⁹⁸ Ibid., 188–90 (the trial of John himself).

Joachim with the date. It was undoubtedly a year marked by noteworthy events. In early September, Florence was defeated by an unlikely Siennese coalition at the Battle of Montaperti. The order of apostles (*ordo apostolorum*) led by Gerardo Segarelli of Parma, a lay movement focused on poverty and the preaching of the Gospel, began that year and achieved remarkable success.¹⁹⁹ That Segarelli's Apostles in particular may have been understood in a Joachite context is suggested by Salimbene's strenuous denial, eager as he was to protect the status of his own Franciscans (and to claim expertise on Joachim's writings):

But it is remarkable that abbot Joachim seems to make no mention of these Apostles in his writings, as he did for the order of friars minor and friars preacher ... Which renders the fact of these Apostles very suspect to me and thoroughly to be condemned because, if they were from God, abbot Joachim would never have passed them by in silence.²⁰⁰

The autumn of 1260 also saw the appearance of the flagellants, or *disciplinati*, who undertook dramatic acts of physical penance in cities such as Modena, Reggio, and Parma. Again, the best source is Salimbene, who describes men of all social levels stripping naked and whipping themselves in public processions. Singing divine praise, they "walked ... in salvation" (*ambulabant ... in salvatione*).²⁰¹ Salimbene himself was caught up in this "blessing and devotion" and claims that anyone who did not whip themselves "was considered worse than the devil ... and soon encountered some misfortune, either dying or falling gravely ill." He reports that Uberto Pelavicino (d. 1269), Lord of Cremona, was so alarmed that he had gibbets put along the banks of the river Po, threatening to hang any flagellant who crossed into his lands, and thus failing

199 These apostolic brethren never obtained full recognition from Church authority. Segarelli himself was burned in 1300; the second generation of the movement, led by Fra Dolcino of Novara and his wife Margherita, took up arms in 1304–5 but held out only until 1307 when both were captured and burned and more than 400 of their followers died. See Raniero Orioli, *Venit perfidus heresiarcha. Il movimento apostolico-dolciniano dal 1260 al 1307* (Istituto storico italiano per il medio evo: Studi Storici) 193–96 (Rome, 1988); and *Fra Dolcino. Nascita, vita e morte di un'eresia medievale*, (ed.) Raniero Orioli, (rev. ed. Milan, 2004).

200 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:449–50: "Mirum est autem quod abbas Ioachim de istis Apostolis in scriptis suis nullam videtur facere mentionem, sicut facit de ordine fratrum minorum et fratrum predicatorum... Per quod factum istorum Apostolorum omnino redditur michi suspectum et penitus contemnendum, quia, si ex Deo fuissent, abbas Ioachim nequaquam eos sub silentio preterisset."

201 *Ibid.*, 703.

to recognize their virtue, to which Salimbene later attributed his fall.²⁰² Salimbene also records that Joachim's teaching, "which divided the history of the world into three, should have begun [*debebat inchoari*] that year" and that the third status of the Holy Spirit "was said to have begun in that flagellation, which happened in 1260 ... when those who beat themselves called out 'with the voices of God, not man'" (*dei voces et non hominis*).²⁰³

The relationship between Joachimism and the *disciplinati* remains unclear. Raoul Manselli maintained that Salimbene merely implied that the Joachites saw their own beliefs and prophecies confirmed in the revival. He does not say that the flagellants were Joachite or that Joachim's thinking gave birth to their movement.²⁰⁴ More recently, Gary Dickson has sought to nuance Manselli's views by pointing out the links Albert of Stade made with 1260 and that other writers referred to this prophecy, including Alexander Minorita.²⁰⁵ Thus, Dickson concludes that "the pilgrimage and mission of the *disciplinati* evidence the transmutation of Joachite speculation into popular apocalyptic anxiety centered upon the tribulations of the year 1260."²⁰⁶ It is worth remembering, nonetheless, that the first request for holidays (*ferias*) granted in Perugia in May 1260 was "because of the utility of the devotion which is done together in the said city and contado" (*propter utilitatem divotionis que fit comuniter in predicta civitate et comitatu*).²⁰⁷ Devotion (whether this was flagellation or linked to Joachimism) was acknowledged as a useful communal activity, a solution perhaps to social, political and economic difficulties. Furthermore, as Manselli argued, the explosion of the cult of the passion of Christ and the desire to relive his suffering may well have been more significant triggers.²⁰⁸

202 Ibid., 704, 717–18.

203 Ibid., 705, 749.

204 See Raoul Manselli, "L'anno 1260 fu anno gioachimitico?" in *Il movimento dei disciplinati nel settimo centenario dal suo inizio. Atti del Convegno internazionale (25–28 September 1960)* (Perugia, 1962), 91–108; reprinted in Manselli, *Da Gioacchino da Fiore a Cristoforo Colombo*, 27–36. See also Arsenio Frugoni, who adopts the same viewpoint as Manselli in "Sui flagellanti del 1260," *Bullettino dell'Istituto storico italiano per il Medio Evo e Archivio Muratoriano* 75 (1963), 211–37. This countered the earlier work of Antonino De Stefano, *Federico II e le correnti spirituali del suo tempo* (Rome, 1922; reprinted Parma, 1981), 103–04; and Tondelli, "Introduzione e commento," 205–06.

205 Dickson, "The Flagellants of 1260 and the Crusades," 253.

206 Ibid., 258.

207 Frugoni, "Sui flagellanti del 1260," 212.

208 On the link with the Passion, see Manselli, "L'anno 1260 fu gioachimitico?" 107–08, reprinted in *Da Gioacchino da Fiore a Cristoforo Colombo*, 35–36.

Salimbene states that the failure of 1260 to mark a great change was one of the factors that led to his own rejection of Joachimism (accumulated to the shock of the early death of Frederick II ten years earlier). Asked whether he had been a Joachite, he writes that he replied that it was true, but that “after Frederick died ... and the year 1260 had passed, I dropped that doctrine completely and decided only to believe in what I saw.”²⁰⁹ Despite this emphatic statement, Salimbene had witnessed the way that the rise of the mendicants and Frederick II’s behavior matched what he knew about Joachim’s prophecies.²¹⁰ He abandoned any belief in a Joachite, dated Apocalypse, but continued to use Joachim as an authority (for example, on Segarelli’s Apostles) and cite his other prophecies approvingly: for example, on the infant Frederick II, a prophecy supposedly addressed to Frederick’s father Henry, which Salimbene specifies that he recorded as late as 1283.²¹¹ The chronicler thus seems to have maintained a careful distinction between those such as Hugh of Digne and his followers, who understood Joachim’s spiritual message—the view he shared—and extremists such as Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino and his adherents who, in his view, had misread it.²¹²

Salimbene’s changes of tone and understanding after 1260 are important because he is undoubtedly our best source for understanding Joachimism in the 13th century. In more general terms, however, Reeves was surely right to argue that 1260 was not a difficult crisis for Joachimism to weather. Indeed, a revised calculation method identified the Passion rather than Christ’s birth as the starting point, thus putting off the problem to 1290.²¹³ Further evidence of Joachite thinking, moreover, is certainly not difficult to trace in the remaining forty years of the century.

209 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:463.

210 Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 96–97.

211 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:45–46; Pispisa, *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 88. See also Delno C. West, “The Education of Salimbene of Parma: The Joachite Influence,” in *Prophecy and Millenarianism*, (ed.) Williams, 205.

212 Pispisa argues this in *Gioacchino da Fiore e i Cronisti Medievali*, 97.

213 Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 59; De Fraja, “Usi politici,” 387, notes that the *Super Isaiam* shows signs of revision to reflect this shift, including both the 1260 and 1290 dates at different points in the text. For similar millenarian rethinking after the failure of the Apocalypse to materialize in 1000, see the two-part study by Richard Landes, “Millenarismus absconditus. L’historiographie augustinienne et le millénarisme du haut Moyen Age, jusqu’à l’An Mil,” *Le Moyen Age. Revue d’histoire et de philologie* 98 (1992), 355–77, and “Sur les traces du Millenium: la *Via Negativa*,” *Le Moyen Age. Revue d’histoire et de philologie* 99 (1993), 21–23.

6.9 Prophet of the Antichrist and Interpreter of the Seven-headed Dragon

The Antichrist that was to appear before the coming of Christ at the End of Time was not described with any precision in the Bible. Indeed, the term "Antichrist" does not appear in the Book of Revelation and its symbolism left writers (and painters) free to imagine it as they saw fit.²¹⁴ Joachim's ideas on this issue were summarized in an image (*figura*) of the dragon described in Revelation 12:3: "And behold a great red dragon, having seven heads and ten horns and on his heads seven diadems." To Joachim this was Satan, the personification of evil. The seven heads corresponded to the seven persecutions of the Church and seven Antichrists. The first six were: Herod (representing the Jews), Nero (pagans), Constantine the Arian (heretics), Mahommed (Muslims), Mesemotus (sons of Babylon), and finally Saladin, another Muslim, who had taken Jerusalem in 1187. The image of the dragon in the *Liber Figurarum* presents a wide space between the seventh head and a tail pointing upwards, which for Joachim corresponded to Gog, the final Antichrist. The tail alludes to the Gog who appears with Magog in the Apocalypse to launch the final offensive against the elect before the Last Judgement (Revelation 20:7). This final persecution of the Church was imminent and would be brought about by the last of the Antichrists, through whom the third *status* of the Spirit would begin. Joachim thus used his interpretation of the Bible to explain contemporary politics: in particular, he drew parallels between the relationship of the Church and empire with that of Judea and Egypt, and saw the submission of Israel to the Babylonians paralleled in the submission of the Church to the empire.²¹⁵ He criticized churchmen as worldly, proud, and in need of humility, arguing that they should not spend so much energy defending the freedom of the Church against the empire. The empire itself was compared to the people of Babylon, but as a providential tool that would remove pride from the Church and allow it to find renewal and conversion, leading to true salvation. It was thus the apocalyptic beast, a necessity that would be sent by God to bring a proud and corrupt people back to the true way.

214 Wannenmacher, "Die Macht des Bösen." On artistic representations, see Rosemary M. Wright, *Art and Antichrist in Medieval Europe* (Manchester, 1995). It is important to bear in mind that in the New Testament the term "Antichrist" is also used in a generic sense to denote any power or person working against Christ. See, for example, 1 John 2:18: "Little children, it is the last time: and as ye have heard that antichrist shall come, even now are there many antichrists; whereby we know that it is the last time."

215 De Fraja, "Usi politici," 377.

Joachim himself left the identity of the final Antichrist unspecified, but as we have already seen, it was a popular figure readily adapted to suit contemporary contexts, whether or not they were always clearly Joachite. Most famously, the identification of the enemy as the Antichrist was taken up by writers observing or engaged in the controversy between the papacy and the Staufen Emperor Frederick II (d. 1250), a conflict that first exploded in the late 1220s.²¹⁶ According to the anonymous biographer of Gregory IX, in 1227, at the time of the first excommunication of the emperor, the pope preached a sermon on Saint Michael's Day comparing Frederick to the dragon defeated by the saint.²¹⁷ Even more spectacularly, upon excommunicating the emperor for a second time in 1239, Gregory issued an encyclical, *Ascendit de mari bestia*, which identified "this beast Frederick, called emperor" with the beast of the Apocalypse rising from the sea to destroy the world and the Catholic faith, and accused him of delighting in being called the prelude to the Antichrist (*iste, qui gaudet se nominari preambulum Antichristi*).²¹⁸ It was the first of a series of encyclicals issued over the years 1239 to 1245 on the initiative of Raniero Capocci of Viterbo, Cardinal-Deacon of San Giorgio in Velabro (1244–1259), identifying Frederick II as either the precursor of the Antichrist or the Antichrist himself.²¹⁹ The emperor and his court responded by defending his orthodoxy, stressing that his hostility was to the person of the pope, not the Church, demanding

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- 216 Andrea Sommerlechner, *Stupor mundi? Kaiser Friedrich II. und die mittelalterliche Geschichtsschreibung* (Publikationen des Historischen Instituts beim Österreichischen Kulturinstitut in Rom) I/xi (Vienna, 1999), 220–30, discusses the transformation of Frederick into an "Exempelfigur."
- 217 Giulia Barone, "La propaganda antiimperiale nell'Italia federiciana: l'azione degli Ordini Mendicanti," in *Federico II e le città italiane*, (eds.) P. Toubert and A. Paravicini Bagliani (Palermo, 1994), 287, citing "Vita Gregorii papae IX," (ed.) Ludovico Muratori in *Rerum Italicarum Scriptores*, 3/1 (Milan, 1723), 583. See also P. Fabre and L. Duchesne, (eds.), *Le Liber Censuum de l'Église Romaine*, 3 vols. (Paris, 1910–1952), 2:18–36.
- 218 *Epistolae saec XIII e regestis pontificum romanorum selectae per G.H. Pertz*, (ed.) C. Rodenberg, MGH Epp. Saec. XIII, 1, (Berlin, 1883), no. 750, 653, line 26; also in *Historia diplomatica Frederici Secundi*, 6 vols. in 11, (ed.) J.L.A. Huillard-Breholles (Paris; reprinted Turin, 1963), 5/1 (1237–41): (the version sent to the Archbishop of Canterbury and his suffragans), 339.
- 219 McGinn, *Visions of the End*, 168–79, provides a brief outline of events with illustrative texts. Hans Martin Schaller, "Das letzte Rundschreiben Gregors IX. gegen Friedrich II," in *Festschrift Percy Ernst Schramm*, (eds.) Peter Classen and Peter Scheibert, 2 vols. (Weisbaden, 1964), 1:309–21, includes the text of Gregory's letter *Vox in Rama* from 1241, describing Frederick's cruelties and asking for advice on certain "capitula." See also Peter Herde, "Ein Pamphlet der päpstlichen Kurie gegen Kaiser Friedrich II. von 1245/46 ('Eger cui lenia')," *Deutsches Archiv für Erforschung des Mittelalters* 23 (1967), 468–538.

that a council of churchmen gather so that the pope could be replaced, and, of course, identifying the pope as the true Antichrist.²²⁰ A pro-imperial treatise identified Gregory's successor, Innocent IV, with the frightening, apocalyptic number of the beast (666) and explained:

It should be known and firmly held by all Christ's faithful that since the Antichrist is said to be contrary to Christ, he will come in that state of life in which he will be most directly opposed to Christ and from which his fall will be the greatest... Hence it is necessary that the Antichrist appear in the place of the Supreme Pontiff.²²¹

The emperor himself also took measures to counter the activities of mendicants, some of whom were promulgating the papal message, by ordering their removal from his lands already after the first condemnation of 1227–28.²²²

220 See, for example, *Levate in circuitu*, 20 April 1239, (ed.) L. Weiland (MGH Constitutiones et Acta publica imperatorum et regum) 2 (Hanover, 1896), no. 215, 297. Hans Martin Schaller, "Endzeit-Erwartung und Antichrist-Vorstellungen in der Politik des 13. Jahrhunderts," originally in *Festschrift für Hermann Heimpel* 3 vols. (Max-Planck-Institut für Geschichte. Veröffentlichungen 36) (Göttingen, 1971–1972), 2, reprinted in *Ideologie und Herrschaft im Mittelalter*, (ed.) Max Kerner (Wege der Forschung), 530 (Darmstadt, 1982), 303–31; updated and reprinted again in Hans Martin Schaller, *Stauferzeit. Ausgewählte Aufsätze* (MGH Schriften) 38 (Hanover, 1993), 25–52. Also discussed in Sommerlechner, *Stupor Mundi?*, *passim*, with substantial bibliographical information; Friedrich Graefe, *Die Publizistik in der letzten Epoche Kaiser Friedrichs II. Ein Beitrag zur Geschichte der Jahre 1239–1250* (Heidelberger Abhandlungen zur mittleren und neueren Geschichte) 24 (Heidelberg, 1909) provides German translations of numerous tracts.

221 Anonymous, "Libellus de Innocentio IV P.M. antichristo," in Fratr. Arnoldi, *De Correctione Ecclesie Epistola et De Innocentio IV P.M. Antichristo Libellus*, (ed.) Eduardus Winkelmann (Berlin, 1865), 20. See also Bernard McGinn, "Angel Pope and Papal Antichrist," *Church History* 47 (1978), 160 (where he provides a translation of the relevant passage).

222 See Anna Maria Voci, "Federico II imperatore e i Mendicanti: privilegi papali e propaganda antiimperiale," *Critica storica* 22 (1985), 3–28, who contextualizes the close relationship between the papacy and the mendicants and the latter's activities against the emperors. Voci has been criticized for overemphasizing the hostility of the mendicants to the empire by Giulia Barone, who argues for a much more fluid situation in "La propaganda," 278. See also Barone, "Federico II di Svevia e gli ordini mendicanti," *Mélanges de l'École française de Rome. Moyen Âge-Temps Modernes* 90 (1978), 607–26. Cosimo Damiano Fonseca identifies different phases in the relations between the emperor and mendicants, which were very poor from 1227–29, improved after the treaty of San Germano and Peace of Ceprano in 1229–30, but worsened again after 1239—the year when Brother Elias was deposed as Minister General and moved to the imperial court. See Cosimo Damiano Fonseca, "Federico II e gli Ordini Mendicanti," in *Friedrich II. Tagung des Deutschen Historischen*

Although both pope and emperor were working within long-established rhetorical traditions—Pope Gregory VII had used comparable accusations in the 11th century—it is no accident that the 1240s was the period when Joachite texts were produced that identified the mendicants as the two new orders charged with fighting the terrible enemy of the Church.²²³ Early, short versions of the *Sibilla Erithea Babylonica*, a popular and widely circulated prophecy in the late Middle Ages, were also produced, most likely in the papal curia, in these years (1241 and 1249).²²⁴ The author began by using the framework of the Trojan wars, with the sibyl purportedly prophesying to the Greek troops, so as to arrange the religious, political, and military conflicts of his time into a historical whole and then formulate prophecies concerning their outcomes. The main theme of this first part was the conflict between Greeks and Latins, taking in the problems of the failing Crusade and the Latin Empire of Constantinople, issues of particular concern to the papal curia. In part two, the history of ancient imperial Rome to the conversion of Constantine was used to explore the fate of the “eagle” Frederick II, whose success, which would include retaking Constantinople (a genuine prophecy), would turn into defeat for his followers. The extent to which this was Joachite is open to debate: for Christian Jostmann, who has worked on it most recently, it was simply designed to drive the discussions within the papal curia and encourage support for papal policies.²²⁵ It is undoubtedly based in part on the personal and political experience of its curial author who chose the apocalyptic genre as an effective means to convey his message. Moreover, there are certainly Joachite overtones in aspects of the scheme it presents, with an emphasis on the need for the purification of the Church. As a minimum, it seems to reflect continuing knowledge of Joachism in the curia in the years after Giuseppe di Fiore’s activities there, knowledge underscored by the bulls issued in Gregory’s name.

In 1245, Gregory’s successor, Innocent IV, who had fled to Lyons, deposed Frederick, and the dispute acquired an even more violent pitch. Mendicants still in the southern kingdom (*Regno*) were attacked and a number of

Instituts in Rom im Gedenkjahr 1994, (eds.) Arnold Esch and Norbert Kamp (Tübingen, 1996), 163–81. Dieter Berg also outlines the effect on the order: see “L’impero degli Svevi e il gioachimismo francescano,” in *L’attesa della fine dei tempi nel Medioevo*, (eds.) Capitani and Miethke, 133–67.

223 For De Fraja, “Usi politici,” 399, this change, which she dates to 1248–49, explains the mendicants’ attraction to Joachism.

224 Jostmann, *Sibilla Erithea*, 370, suggests that oral versions probably circulated first.

225 Ibid.

them were executed.²²⁶ Both sides were more or less continuously at war, a state of affairs reflected in contemporary narratives. Alexander Minorita now changed his identification of the beast to Frederick II. His text refers to the defeat of the papal-Genoese fleet and the capture of prelates on their way to Rome in 1241 (as mentioned in the *Super Hieremiam*), cites the *Sibilla Erithea*, the defeat of Frederick at Parma in 1248, and the capture of his son Enzo by the Bolognese in 1249.²²⁷ Poems were penned by both sides.²²⁸ Once again, however, not all mendicants were necessarily anti-imperial. The provinces of the orders reacted differently: those in imperial lands north of the Alps became “enemies” of the emperor substantially later than in Northern Italy and the Southern Kingdom, which experienced Frederick’s oppression much earlier.²²⁹ A treatise written from Frederick’s viewpoint after 1245 was, for example, the work of a Swabian Dominican who advocated imperial reform of the Church.²³⁰

Enjoying the benefits of hindsight, Salimbene is also a valuable source for the tradition of Frederick II as the Antichrist since he makes several references to the Frederick-dragon parallel.²³¹ He traces this association of the emperor with evil back to Joachim himself: when Frederick was born, the emperor Henry, his father, purportedly asked Joachim about the destiny of his son. The abbot somewhat improbably replied that he would be “perverse and wicked...” and, quoting the prophet Daniel, that he would “confound the world and trample on the saints of God...”²³² The Franciscan also conveys with characteristic

226 See Barone, “La propaganda,” 278–89; Barone, “Federico II di Svevia e gli ordini mendicanti,” 607–26; and Fonseca, “Federico II e gli Ordini Mendicanti,” 178–79, where he notes that in a letter (written in Greek) to the Byzantine Emperor, Frederick went so far as to identify the Friars Minor and Friars Preacher as the leaders of armies.

227 For Schmolinsky, *Der Apokalypsenkommentar des Alexander Minorita*, 123, only here is the “Franciscan-Joachite influence” clearly evident. For the citation of the *Sibilla Erithea*, see Jostmann, *Sibilla Erithea*, 71–74.

228 Oswald Holder-Egger edited a substantial series of treatises and poems in, “Italienische Prophetieen des 13. Jahrhunderts,” *Neues Archiv der Gesellschaft für ältere Deutsche Geschichtskunde zur Beförderung einer Gesamtausgabe der Quellen deutscher Geschichte des Mittelalters* 15 (1890), 143–78; 30 (1905), 322–86; and 33 (1908), 96–187.

229 As observed by Andrea Sommerlechner, *Stupor mundi?*, 50, 122–23.

230 Ibid., 220; McGinn, *Visions of the End*, 170, citing Fratrís Arnoldi, “De Correctione Ecclesie Epistola,” who writes, for example, of “dominus F. serenissimus imperator” (Arnoldi, 11). See also Graefe, *Die Publizistik in der letzten Epoche Kaiser Friedrichs II.*, 258–62.

231 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 2:551 (citing a prophecy ascribed to Michael Scot), 588, 661. See also Barone, “La propaganda,” 287.

232 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:45–46. Discussed by Grundmann, “Federico II e gioacchino da Fiore,” in Grundmann, *Ausgewählte Aufsätze*, 2:222.

immediacy the traumatic impact of the death of Frederick in 1250, before reaching the age of seventy prophesied for the Antichrist by Isaiah. He was persuaded that the emperor had died only when Innocent IV referred to it in a sermon in Ferrara nearly a year later because, as he put it, “as a Joachite, I expected and hoped that Frederick would do further evil.”²³³ Nor was he alone in his disbelief. In San Gimignano, Tuscany, a goldsmith was so convinced that Frederick was still alive that he laid a notarized wager to that effect.²³⁴

Frederick’s death contributed to Salimbene’s loss of confidence in Joachite prophecies, yet, as we have seen, the Franciscan continued to repeat a number of Joachim’s concepts in his writing.²³⁵ So did many others: the number of prophecies and pseudo-Joachim texts providing alternative dates for the beginning of the new *status* and naming new candidates for the role of the Antichrist only increased in the later 13th century.²³⁶ But Frederick’s name did not disappear. The Joachite *Super Isaiam*, for example (of which fifteen manuscripts survive), again presented a biting criticism of the Church and the avidity and pride of its prelates. This was to be followed by terrible but necessary persecutions led above all by the emperor, miseries that would lead, in Joachimite style, to purification. The text seems to have been written by a Franciscan in Southern Italy in the 1250s or 1260s, but the emperor was nonetheless Frederick, the seventh head of the Apocalyptic dragon.²³⁷ As late as c.1300 in an image of the beast, the seventh head, still labeled Frederick II, is much larger than the other six, which are reduced to a subsidiary position, emerging from an opening in its neck.²³⁸ The associated text identifies Frederick as simply the forerunner of the Antichrist, but the image implies that Frederick himself is the Beast of the Apocalypse.²³⁹

233 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:264.

234 Töpfer, *Das kommende Reich*, 161.

235 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:463.

236 Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 49–52.

237 *Super Isaiam* is variously dated from the 1240s (with later “stratifications,” see De Fraja, “Usi politici,” 383–85) to 1260–66 (see Lerner, “Frederick II, Alive, Aloft, and Allayed in Franciscan-Joachite Eschatology,” 377–79).

238 BAV MS. Vat. lat. 3822 c.5r, which also renames some of the other heads, so that the sequence reads: Herod, Nero, Constantine the Arian, Cosroes, Henry I (Emperor Henry IV), Saladin, and Frederick II, while the tail represents his heirs. For a reproduction, see Sommerlechner, *Stupor Mundi?*, fig. xiii.

239 Hubert Houben, “Federico II come settima testa del drago apocalittico,” in *Il Ricordo del Futuro. Gioacchino da Fiore e il Gioachimismo attraverso la storia*, (ed.) Fabio Troncarelli (Bari, 2006), 75–79.

A combination of Joachite prophecy and the sudden and unexpected nature of his death also contributed to the mythologization of Frederick as the Messiah and linked him to the legend of the past and future emperor who would never die: "...whose death will be concealed and unrecognized and among the people will resound: 'he lives, he does not live,'" an idea that stemmed from the Sibylline tradition.²⁴⁰ But for others, Frederick's unexpected death encouraged the renewal of the Antichrist tradition by combining it with other, living figures.

The pseudo-Joachim *Liber de Oneribus Prophetarum* is an example of a new type of Franciscan propaganda. It is the first known prophetic text in which the theme of a mythologized Frederick is explicitly presented, imagined as a terrible anti-Christian figure, and then transformed into a messianic hero.²⁴¹ De Fraja argues that this text is somewhat less polemical in tone since it places the beginning of the third *status* in the past, c.1200, suggesting that the necessary transformations of the Church had already occurred and that it was already "on the way to perfection" thanks in particular to the interventions of the mendicants.²⁴² Nonetheless, the text also assigns the attribute of supernatural evil to Frederick's successors. For Lerner, who follows the editor, Oswald Holder-Egger, in dating it to 1255–56, this was intended to reinforce Guelph resistance to the Ghibellines.²⁴³ Since 1260 had not yet come and Frederick was already dead, the writer sought another final persecutor and purifier of the Church and thus named a third Frederick, designated as the heir to Belial (Frederick II). Though disputed, the identity of this third Frederick may have been the emperor's son, Frederick of Antioch, who died in 1258.²⁴⁴

Such associations of course gave the Antichrist image (*figura*) a new and particular political impulse repeated by other writers. For example, the pseudo-Joachim *Praemissiones*—a collection of figures and diagrams usually found together with the *Super Isaiam*, probably intended, as the name suggests, as an introduction to the text, and of which the earliest manuscript dates to 1255—identified the seventh Antichrist as Frederick II and the seventh age, also left unspecified by Joachim, as that of persecution by Italian princes and heretics (*principum ytalicorum et hereticorum*); in other words, by Frederick

240 See Jostmann, *Sibilla Erithea*, 300.

241 "Italienische Prophetien des 13. Jahrhunderts III," (ed.) Holder-Egger, 33 (1908), 139–87. See also Töpfer, *Das Kommende Reich*, 132–36.

242 De Fraja, "Usi politici," 387.

243 Lerner, "Frederick II, Alive, Aloft, and Allayed," 373, and note 46. Accrocca prefers 1256 in "Intorno ad alcuni recenti studi Gioachimiti," 172 and note; Canetti, *L'invenzione della memoria*, 342, note 70, dates it more broadly to 1250–60.

244 Töpfer, *Das Kommende Reich*, 133.

and his sons. Taking matters a step further, the Franciscan Erfurt Chronicler included a prophecy concerning “the bastard Manfred,” who would reign until the end of the kingdom and against whom would come a king from beyond the mountains, a lion of France for his audacity and sternness, who would defeat him and take the diadem from his head (a barely disguised reference to Charles of Anjou’s defeat of Frederick’s illegitimate son Manfred at the Battle of Benevento of 1266).²⁴⁵

The image of the dragon was also used in a brief pseudo-Joachim prophecy, *In die illa elevabitur draco*, which Tondelli dates to c.1264 during the papal interregnum. In a typically allusive and “post eventum” manner, it prophesied (among numerous elements referring perhaps to Manfred and Conradino and enigmatic references to the cities of Mantua, Brescia, and Verona) that “after Celestine, the proud pope would reign, after the proud the Catholic, after the Catholic the heretic, after the heretic no one (*nullus*).” Tondelli suggested that this was a reference to Celestine IV, followed by the “proud” Pope Innocent IV, the “Catholic” Alexander IV, and the “heretic” Urban IV (1261–64)—the Frenchman who had called Charles of Anjou to Italy to face Manfred and against whom similar accusations were made in other texts.²⁴⁶ The *nullus* may have referred to 1260 or, even more radically, to the end of the papacy.²⁴⁷

The popes and the Staufens were not the only figures identified as the Antichrist or the beast, however. Salimbene, for example, reports a private conversation with Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino in which the friar related that the Antichrist was to be identified with the King of Castille.²⁴⁸ Other later prophecies included popes either as the Antichrist or as the good/angelic-shepherd (*pastor bonus/pastor angelicus*), a term first explicitly recorded at the end of the century in the turmoil of the conflicting views of the papacy triggered by the resignation of the holy hermit Celestine V (1294) and the election of the Roman Cardinal Benedetto Caetani as Boniface VIII (1294–1303).²⁴⁹ The idea

245 “Cronica minor Minoritae Erphordensis,” (ed.) Holder-Egger, 679.

246 Leone Tondelli, “Profezia gioachimita,” 7.

247 Matthias Kaup, *De prophetia ignota. Eine frühe Schrift Joachims von Fiore* (MGH Studien und Texte) 19 (Hanover, 1998); Kaup, *Gioacchino da Fiore Commento a una prophetia ignota*. For the text, see Leone Tondelli, “Profezia gioachimita,” 5–6.

248 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 2:688–89.

249 See Herbert Grundmann, “Die Papstprophetien des Mittelalters,” *Archiv für Kulturgeschichte* 19 (1928), 77–138, who pointed out their dependence on Byzantine Leo oracles, but transforming the Greek emperors into Roman popes. See Robert E. Lerner, “On the Origins of the Earliest Latin Pope Prophecies,” in *Fälschungen im Mittelalter*, 5 (MGH Schriften) 33/V (Hanover, 1988), 61–35. Lerner argues convincingly that the earliest version was produced outside Spiritual Franciscan circles by an Englishman, “Rabanus

of an angelic pope was perhaps made popular by the failure of the papacy to implement meaningful spiritual reform.²⁵⁰ Undoubtedly, it was a notion that found particular expression among the Spiritual Franciscans.

6.10 Joachim and the Spiritual Franciscans

Members of the order of Friars Minor who sought to reform their lives according to what they identified as its original form of life (*forma vitae*) centered on the figure of Francis of Assisi and poverty, found in Joachim an advocate for their own sense of destiny as the true “spiritual men” of the new era. Brother Peter of John, known as Olivi (c.1246–1298), was an important and influential figure in this process, adapting substantial elements of Joachim’s concepts of history to his own experience. As David Burr has shown, his approach was closely related to Joachim’s, though with significant differences, one of which was his use of *status* to refer to phases in both his patterns of three and seven.²⁵¹ Olivi divided history into three ages: of the Father (from the Creation to Christ), the Son (Christ to Saint Francis), and the Holy Spirit (Francis to the Last Judgement). At the same time, he divided history into two blocks, each with seven subdivisions. The first began with the Creation and ended with Christ.²⁵² The second would run from Christ to the end of everything (*Eschaton*). Thus, the first age of the Father corresponded to the first seven periods. The second set of seven were further specified as: the primitive Church, the martyrs, the teachers, the anchorites, and in fifth place, the period from the beginning of the empire of the Franks when the Church gained power and wealth but “at the cost of rigor.” In his *Lectura super Apocalipsim*, Olivi made it clear that these periods were linked to each other, so that each prepared the next.²⁵³

Anglicus,” who may be the Rabanus placed between Donatus the Grammarian and Joachim in Dante’s *Paradiso* 12.139 (see also below).

250 Like Herbert Grundmann before him, Bernard McGinn has recently argued this point: McGinn, “Angel Pope and Papal Antichrist,” 158–61.

251 See David Burr, “Olivi’s Apocalyptic Timetable,” 237–60. See also David Burr, “Apokalyptische Erwartung und die Entstehung der Usus-Pauper-Kontroverse,” *Wissenschaft und Weisheit. Zeitschrift für Augustinisch-Franziskanische Theologie und Philosophie in der Gegenwart* 47 (1984), 84–89.

252 This is based on his commentary on Revelation, which when Burr was writing was to be edited and published by Warren Lewis; see Burr, “Olivi’s Apocalyptic Timetable,” 238, note 3.

253 As noted by R. Manselli, “Il tempo escatologico (secoli xii–xiii),” in *Le temps chrétien de la fin de l’antiquité au Moyen Âge, IIIe–XIIIe siècles* (9–12 March 1981) (Colloques Internationaux

He placed his own time at the end of the fifth period (*condescensio*) when the Church was secure, rich, and powerful but at the price of weakening of its standards.²⁵⁴ The end of this period, nonetheless, also marked the beginning of the sixth, which in this scheme was begun by Francis of Assisi and characterized by a return to the apostolic lifestyle. At the time of writing, however, Peter saw the carnal Church as preparing to launch an assault led by a first, mystic (hidden) Antichrist. Like earlier Joachites, he considered himself to be living in a time of trouble that would eventually be overcome. The attack of the mystic Antichrist would reduce “the true followers of Christ to a persecuted remnant,” but their persecutors would in turn be destroyed by a further attack—an invasion of ten kings who, while intending to destroy Christianity, would instead demolish the carnal Church. Then there would follow the persecution of the second, great Antichrist, who would in turn be destroyed by Christ. The Jews would convert, Satan would be bound, and the sixth period would give way to the seventh, a time of peace and contemplation. The end would come as piety again declined, Satan was unbound, and the persecution of Gog would lead to divine intervention in the form of the Last Judgement.²⁵⁵

Olivi never acquired the title of master and was condemned both in life and posthumously. His treatment was identified by Angelo Clareno as the fifth tribulation, following that of John of Parma. Even so, he acquired a wide following and his work would become enormously powerful. At the end of his life, his *Lectura super Apocalipsim* relaunched Joachim’s teachings in contemporary terms, from which the Franciscan sense of history is clear. Starting from the Bonaventuran notion of the responsibility of the Franciscan order in the Church in face of the decadence of his time—which not even the “angelic shepherd” (*pastor angelicus*), Pope Celestine V, was able to overcome—the providential mission of the order was the one prophesied in the Apocalypse: to constitute the strength of the Church of the elect. Olivi’s criticism of wealth (opposed to the virtue of poverty) was not restricted to churchmen, but in his *Quaestio de altissima paupertate*, he underscored the corruption of the inhabitants of wealthy abbeys and well-endowed churches.²⁵⁶ He saw his own period as one

du Centre National de la Recherche Scientifique) 604 (Paris, 1984), 548; reprinted in Manselli, “*Da Gioacchino da Fiore a Cristoforo Colombo*,” 692.

254 Burr, “Apokalytpische Erwartung,” 84.

255 Burr, “Olivi’s Apocalyptic Timetable,” 238–39.

256 Johannes Schlageter, “Die Entwicklung der Kirchenkritik des Petrus Johannes Olivi von der ‘*Quaestio de altissima paupertate*’ bis zur ‘*Lectura super apocalypsim*,’” *Wissenschaft und Weisheit. Zeitschrift für Augustinisch-Franziskanische Theologie und Philosophie in der Gegenwart* 47 (1984), 105, and note 17.

of new spiritual opportunities and also of new dangers. The “godly can expect not only to attain greater levels of evangelical piety and understanding, but to be persecuted for their trouble.”²⁵⁷ The autobiographical element—as a Spiritual Franciscan disputing with his own order and beyond—is inescapable. He saw aspects of Aristotelianism and attacks on true Franciscan poverty as “the error of the Antichrist.” The resignation of Celestine V in 1294 was a test that had revealed the true spiritual decay of the Church. So it was necessary to prepare for the Last Times. In a letter to the sons of Charles II of Anjou, he wrote of the hour of trial, perhaps the supreme test.²⁵⁸ Although he was cautious (the failure of early prophecies to correctly predict the millenium and the fate of Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino would have warned of the need for caution), he also went on to suggest some possible dates for the unfolding of the end, implicitly placing the completion of the fifth period c.1301.²⁵⁹

Olivi quoted frequently from Joachim and, as Manselli underlined, knew his work perfectly, but his eschatological periodization was Christological, not Trinitarian.²⁶⁰ For Joachim, Christ and the Church were moments in the operation of the expression of the Trinity. For Olivi, Christ was at the center of history and the Church was principally and in substance Christ-based. The moment of the Spirit was an interior transformation more than an institutional renewal. The spiritual Church for Joachim was the conclusive moment of detachment from the earthly world that allowed entry to eternity. For Olivi, it was detachment from the world while still living in the world. It would prepare for the final judgement after death and for the coming of the last Kingdom of God. Men (and women) must be prepared for both, just as individually and collectively they must be ready to resist the temptations of both the mystic and the last Antichrist.

Olivi’s impact on the Spirituals was profound and is particularly well illustrated in the writings of Ubertino da Casale (Monferrato) (1259–c.1328), author of the *Arbor vitae crucifixae Iesu*, written in seven months while in enforced retreat at La Verna in 1305 and probably revised at Gembloux in 1326–29.²⁶¹ The *Arbor* is an account of faith and Catholic theology constructed around the

257 Burr, “Olivi’s Apocalyptic Timetable,” 239.

258 As observed by Manselli, “Il tempo escatologico (secoli xii–xiii),” 552; reprinted in Manselli, *Da Gioacchino da Fiore a Cristoforo Colombo*, 692.

259 Burr, “Olivi’s Apocalyptic Timetable,” 240.

260 This idea was fully developed in Manselli, “Il problema del doppio anticristo in Gioacchino.”

261 The dates for the revision are proposed by Carlos Mateo Martínez Ruíz, *De la dramatización de los acontecimientos de la Pascua a la Cristología: el cuarto libro del Arbor vitae crucifixae Iesu de Ubertino de Casale* (Rome, 2000).

life of Christ. It includes frequent references to his own history and that of the Franciscans and the papacy. Ubertino had encountered Olivi when the latter was a lector at the Franciscan school (*studium*) in Santa Croce in Florence in 1287–89. Like Olivi, Ubertino departed from Joachim in that he attributed not just the second *status* to Christ, but the whole of history.²⁶² Indeed, he may only have known Joachim's work through that of Olivi, a textually mediated knowledge that was probably increasingly common by this date.²⁶³ His view, like Olivi's, was a Christocentric one based on the experience and role of Francis of Assisi.²⁶⁴ But whereas Olivi had, for example, accepted the legitimacy of the resignation of Pope Celestine, Ubertino denied it and unequivocally identified his successor, Pope Boniface VIII, as a mystic Antichrist.²⁶⁵ Ubertino also went beyond Olivi in his emphasis on the position of Francis and Dominic. Francis's role was to renew the Church (Book 5, Chapter 6); his rule was a new Gospel because it was the form of evangelical life (*forma evangelice vite*), the form of life of Jesus himself and of the Apostles. Anyone who claimed that it could not be observed was thereby claiming that the Gospel itself could not be followed. In view of the papal bull *Quo Elongati* issued in 1230, which had explicitly denied any requirement for the Franciscans to observe the whole Gospel as opposed to the provisions of their rule, the import of Ubertino's words was clear.²⁶⁶ The persecution of Francis's followers showed how the Church had been taken over by the devil, operating through the mystic Antichrist, corruption, and lies. Boniface VIII was that Antichrist and one of the two monsters of the Apocalypse, whose names were sealed in 666, the number of the Antichrist. The other was his successor, the Dominican Benedict XI (1303–4), who was elected illegitimately because the two Colonna cardinals, whom Boniface had expelled, had been wrongly excluded from the conclave.

Ubertino had also met John of Parma at Greccio in July 1285, an encounter that catalyzed his later career as a critic of the order. He recalls John as "truly most holy" (*vere sanctissimus*) and "an angelic man leading an angelic

262 Gian Luca Potestà, *Storia ed escatologia in Ubertino da Casale* (Milan, 1980), 44.

263 See Gabriele Zaccagnini, "La spiritualità dell' 'Arbor Vitae Crucifixae Iesu' di Ubertino da Casale," in *Ubertino da Casale nel VII centenario dell'Arbor Vitae Crucifixae Iesu, 1305–2005. Atti del Convegno di Studi (15 September 2005)*, (ed.) Gabriele Zaccagnini (Florence, 2007), 71.

264 Manselli was the first to point out the distinction between Joachim and Olivi on this point. See Manselli, "La terza età, Babilon e l'anticristo mistico (a proposito di Pietro di Giovanni Olivi)," *Bullettino dell'Istituto Storico Italiano per il Medio Evo e Archivio Muratoriano* 82 (1970), 51, 59; reprinted in Manselli, *Da Gioacchino da Fiore a Cristoforo Colombo*, 158–59, 165–66. See also Potestà, *Storia ed escatologia in Ubertino da Casale*.

265 See Potestà, *Storia ed escatologia in Ubertino da Casale*, 86–87.

266 *Bullarium Franciscanum*, (ed.) Sbaraglia, 1:68–70.

life" (*angelicus vir angelicam vitam ducens*), a lover of solitude but also an indefatigable preacher. For Ubertino, John was "both a very famous teacher and skilled preacher, and of ... perfection in austerity and humility and charity, the sublimity and solitude of contemplation and flight from all the vanities of the world, gnawn away by complete zeal for God."²⁶⁷ Ubertino's John was opposed to the relaxation in the order and in the wider Church, a position that he proclaimed publicly before both popes and cardinals. This was why his holiness, although confirmed by miracles, was not recognized by the Church. Ubertino was, moreover, one of the first, along with Bonaventure, to identify Francis with the angel of the sixth seal (something he claimed to have heard from his own mouth), saying

that the sixth seal finds its place in Francis and his status and in the confusion of his life and rule by transgressive sons and bad prelates supporting them, the Church would be consumed by iniquity.²⁶⁸

6.11 The Century's End

One of Ubertino's other contemporaries whose career epitomizes the potential impact of eschatological thinking at the end of the 13th century is Arnau de Vilanova, (d. 1311), a Catalan Master of Medicine who taught at Montpellier, served in the court of James II of Aragon, treated popes and cardinals, and was

267 Ubertinus de Casali, *Arbor Vitae crucifixae Jesu*, introduction and bibliography by Charles Till Davis (Turin, 1961), 5:3 422.

268 Ibid., 5:3 422b. On Bonaventure's much debated Joachism, see Joseph Ratzinger, *Die Geschichtstheologie des heiligen Bonaventura* (Munich, 1959), esp. 83–85, 106–11, 119–20; published in English as *The Theology of History in St. Bonaventure* (Chicago, 1971); Stephan Otto, "Bonaventuras christologischer Einwand gegen die Geschichtslehre des Joachim von Fiore," in *Die Mächte des Guten und Bösen. Vorstellungen im XII. und XIII. Jahrhundert über ihr Wirken in der Heilsgeschichte*, (ed.) Albert Zimmermann (Miscellanea mediaevalia) 11 (Berlin, 1977), 113–30; E. Randolph Daniel, "St. Bonaventure's Debt to Joachim," *Medievalia et Humanistica*, n.s. 11 (1982), 61–75; Paolo Vian, "Bonaventura di Bagnoreggio di fronte a Gioacchino da Fiore e al gioacchimismo," *Antoniano* 65 (1990), 133–60; Ilia Delio, "From Prophecy to Mysticism: Bonaventure's Eschatology in Light of Joachim of Fiore," *Traditio* 52 (1997), 153–77; Jan Van den Eijnden, "Bonaventura und das Gedankengut des Joachim von Fiore. Der Einfluß des franziskanischen Kontexts auf eine theologische Diskussion," *Collectanea Franciscana* 71 (2001), 65–85; and Paul Zahner, *Die Fülle des Heils in der Endlichkeit der Geschichte. Bonaventuras Theologie als Antwort auf die franziskanischen Joachiten* (Franziskanische Forschungen) 41 (Werl, 1999).

a prolific and popular writer of spiritual and medical texts. His prominence helped to spread apocalyptic thinking in Catalonia and Southern France.²⁶⁹ Like Ubertino, he was possibly influenced by Olivi, who was teaching theology in Montpellier when he was there, though it is possible that he worked out his own eschatological program before Olivi.²⁷⁰ Like Joachim, he considered himself to have had a revelatory experience that allowed him to understand Scripture.²⁷¹ Unlike either man, he was never a churchman, making his claims to spiritual illumination particularly challenging to the clergy. He seems to have read all of Joachim's writings, or at least his principal works, perhaps while a student at the Dominican school in Barcelona, and his own early works include an introduction to the *de Semine Scripturarum*, an apocalyptic text that he believed to be by Joachim.²⁷² He adopted many aspects of Joachim's exegetical techniques, including his use of concords to explain events related to the Last Times and probably also the concept of three *status*.²⁷³ In his *Tractatus de tempore adventus Antichriste* and *De mystero cymbalorum*, completed in the 1290s, he dated the beginning of the reign of the Antichrist to the 1360s or 1370s.²⁷⁴ At first, he avoided widespread circulation of his thought, but when diplomatic business on behalf of James of Aragon took him to Paris, he approached some of the Masters of Theology there, hoping for approval. Instead, following pressure from these same theologians, the Bishop of Paris,

269 See Gian Luca Potestà, "Radical Apocalyptic Movements in the Late Middle Ages," in *The Continuum History of Apocalypticism*, (eds.) Bernard McGinn, John J. Collins, and Stephen J. Stein (New York, 2003), 303.

270 As argued by Robert Lerner, "The Medieval Return to the Thousand Year Sabbath," in *The Apocalypse in the Middle Ages*, (eds.) Richard K. Emmerson and Bernard McGinn (Ithaca, NY, 1993), 63. See also Joseph Ziegler, *Medicine and Religion c.1300: The Case of Arnau de Vilanova* (Oxford, 1998), 52.

271 Lerner, "Ecstatic Dissent," 44–46, notes that he claimed divine revelation *after* his affairs became desperate.

272 The dating and attributions of Arnau's works remain contested. See Josep Pararnau i Espelt, "L'autor d'un tractat Alquímic podia trobar en l'obra autèntica d'Arnau de Vilanova alguna raó per a atribuir-lo a ell?" in *Actes de la "II Trobada Internacional d'Estudis sobre Arnau de Vilanova"*, (ed.) Josep Pararnau (Barcelona, 2005), 151–98; and the edition of the *Introductio*, *Ibid.*, 199–216.

273 Harold Lee, "Scrutamini Scripturas: Joachimist Themes and Figurae in the Early Religious Writing of Arnold of Vilanova," *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 37 (1974), 33, 52.

274 "De tempore adventus Antichristi," (eds.) Josep Pararnau i Espelt, in "El text primitiu del De mysterio cymbalorum ecclesiae d'Arnau de Vilanova," *Arxiu de textos catalans antics* 7, no. 8 (1988–89), 7–169.

and other university officials, he was arrested, put on trial in the autumn of 1300, and forced to withdraw a summary of passages from his work, which was burned.²⁷⁵ His time in prison was brief, perhaps because of assistance from the French royal house.²⁷⁶ Once freed, he disavowed his recantation and in October appealed to the pope. This led to a second trial in the spring of 1301 in the papal consistory, which, inevitably, reached the same conclusion as the Parisian Masters. However, Arnau was protected by Boniface VIII, whom he treated for kidney stones and who, according to a Catalan envoy at the papal court, for this reason called Arnau “the greatest cleric in the world.”²⁷⁷ A further treatise on the Antichrist presented to Boniface in 1302, *Philosophia catholica et divina*, which was apparently influenced by developing ties to Occitan Spiritual Franciscans, moved from prophecy of the future to an emphasis on the urgent need to reform the Church. He would face trial again—most notably in Perugia in 1304 when he went to the pope to defend himself against the attacks of the Dominicans, his former teachers—but he later enjoyed the support of Pope Clement V (1305–14) and King James II of Aragon (1291–1327), whose royal house he considered to be the most likely source of the divinely-appointed king who would purge Christendom.²⁷⁸ In 1305–6 he wrote an *Expositio super Apocalypsi* which makes clear that, although he did not follow all of the Calabrian’s plan, he accepted Joachim’s interpretation of the vision of seven churches as that of the history of the Church, with his own time that of preparation for Antichrist, when a chosen few “would ‘penetrate most deeply’

275 Clifford R. Backman, “The Reception of Arnau de Vilanova’s Religious Ideas,” in *Christendom and Its Discontents: exclusion, persecution, and rebellion, 1000–1500*, (eds.) Scott L. Waugh and Peter Diehl (Cambridge, 1996), 112–31. Some of the difficulties such prophetic ideas presented for the Paris theologians are discussed in Ian P. Wei, “Predicting the Future to Judge the Present: Paris Theologians and Attitudes to the Future,” in *Medieval Futures: Attitudes to the Future in the Middle Ages*, (eds.) John A. Burrow and Ian P. Wei (Woodbridge, 2000), 19–36, with particular reference on 34–35 to a quodlibetal discussion held in 1300 by Peter of Auvergne about whether the Antichrist would come soon, which he used to attack Arnau. On the hostility to prophecy from university theologians, who claimed a papally supported monopoly on scriptural teaching and interpretation, see André Vauchez, “Les théologiens face aux prophéties à l’époque des papes d’Avignon e du Grand Schisme,” *Mélanges de l’École française de Rome. Moyen Âge-Temps Modernes* 102 (1990), 578.

276 As suggested by Ziegler, *Medicine and Religion*, 27.

277 Cited in Backman, “The Reception of Arnau de Vilanova’s Religious Ideas,” 115.

278 Ziegler, *Medicine and Religion*, 27, 32.

into the secrets of Scripture.”²⁷⁹ In 1306 he also wrote a *Responsio ad Cavillationes*, a point-by-point defense of his earlier *Tractatus de tempore*, and in 1308, following a meeting with Greek monks, he translated several of his key works into Greek.²⁸⁰ In his later writings, Arnau adopted the concept of the “angelic shepherd,” or an angelic pope who would support reform along the lines of the primitive Church. This pope would succeed Clement v.

Arnau was always polemical and although he died a free man, his spiritual writings were carefully re-examined and posthumously condemned at the Council of Tarragona in 1316.²⁸¹ Nonetheless, they would be read by figures such as the Franciscan alchemist, Jean de Roquetaillade/Rupescissa (c.1310–c.1362), who was long imprisoned for his apocalyptic views. Jean claimed, using alchemical metaphors, that enduring the hardships of prison qualified him to write his *Visiones seu revelationes* (1349), *Liber ostensor quod adesse festinant tempora*, and a *Vademecum in tribulatione* (1356), which amounted to a compendium of his apocalyptic views and made explicit use of both Arnau and Joachim.²⁸²

Arnau’s writings also introduce another thread in the reception of Joachim’s works: that of Jewish exegesis. He had studied Hebrew writings as a student in the Dominican language school in Barcelona and argued, like Joachim and his own Dominican masters, that only Christians enlightened by the Gospel could truly understand Jewish scriptures, since the Jews themselves lacked such enlightenment (among other things, he proposed that the lack of vowels in Hebrew indicated their limited illumination).²⁸³ Arnau’s own work was influenced by Jewish doctrines concerning the coming of the Antichrist and in particular by the prophetic Kabbalism of Abraham Abulafia (c.1240–1291).²⁸⁴ Active in Southern Italy and Sicily, Abulafia had argued that the end of the world was approaching and that he himself was chosen to reveal divine truth

279 Arnaldus de Vilanova, *Expositio super Apocalypsi*, (eds.) J. Carreras i Artau with Olga Marinelli Marcacci and Josep M. Morató i Thomàs (Corpus Philosophorum Medii Aevi: Arnaldi de Vilanova Scripta Spiritualia) 1 (Barcelona, 1971). Also cited in Lerner, “Ecstatic Dissent,” 51.

280 Backman, “The Reception of Arnau de Vilanova’s Religious Ideas,” 114.

281 Ziegler, *Medicine and Religion*, 32–33.

282 See Jeanne Bignami-Odier, *Études sur Jean de Roquetaillade (Johannes de Rupescissa)* (Paris, 1952); and Leah DeVun, *Prophecy, Alchemy, and the End of Time: John of Rupescissa in the Late Middle Ages* (New York, 2009).

283 Lee, “*Scrutamini Scripturas*: Joachimist Themes,” 49.

284 J. Carreras y Artau, “Arnau de Vilanova y las Culturas Orientales,” *Homenaje a Millás-Vallicrosa*, 2 vols. (Barcelona, 1954–1956), 1:314–16. See also Lee, “*Scrutamini Scripturas*: Joachimist Themes,” 53–54.

as a self-proclaimed Messiah.²⁸⁵ Arnau certainly seems to have been influenced by Kabbalist exegesis, but Harold Lee argues convincingly that this was not a guiding inspiration. Like Joachim and his teachers, his concern was to elucidate Scripture so as to understand God's plan for the world. By contrast, the objective of the Kabbalist tradition was the mystical experience of union with God. Arnau made eclectic use of Jewish texts and techniques, but his own apocalyptic vision was more fundamentally shaped by Joachimist traditions.²⁸⁶

The impact of Joachimism on churchmen at the end of the 13th century was by no means restricted to the three figures discussed here. An anonymous *Oracle of the Angel Cyril* (*Oraculum angelicum Cirilli*) describes a conflict between a future holy pope, or *orthopontifex*, and an evil *pseudopontifex*. It was allegedly presented to a Carmelite friar who asked Joachim to explain it, but it seems to reflect the Spirituals' view of Celestine and Boniface. Dominicans also engaged in discussions about good and bad popes, men such as the preacher and mystic Robert d'Uzès (1263–1296), of whom Jean de Roquetaillade was to write that he was one of the brethren who “truly had the spirit of prophecy” (*spiritum propheticum veraciter habuerunt*). Robert wrote in his *Visions* of a coming *reparator* or savior dressed, remarkably, in the sackcloth of the Franciscans.²⁸⁷ He also described a good pope, Celestine, the “angel of the Church,” and a bad pope, Boniface, its “idol.”²⁸⁸

Finally, the end of the 13th century also saw the appearance of the popular and naturally enigmatic prophecies generally known as Latin pope prophecies (*Vaticinia pontificum* or *de summis pontificis*), a long-used designation which in fact encompasses three separate works: the earliest, which Lerner calls the *Genus nequam* group on the basis of its *incipit*, is a collection of short texts part of which was probably circulating as early as 1287.²⁸⁹ With far-fetched, captioned illustrations assigning prophecies to future popes, they were attributed

285 See Harvey J. Hames, *Like Angels on Jacob's Ladder: Abraham Abulafia, the Franciscans, and Joachimism* (Albany, NY, 2007), who argues that Abulafia adapted Joachim's work to the Kabbalist tradition. This contrasts with the earlier approach of Lee, who followed Gershom Scholem in arguing that the two traditions developed independently. Lee, “*Scrutamini Scripturas*: Joachimist Themes,” 55.

286 Lee, “*Scrutamini Scripturas*: Joachimist Themes,” 54.

287 Cited by Paul Amargier, “Jean de Roquetaillade et Robert d'Uzès,” *Mélanges de l'École française de Rome. Moyen Âge-Temps Modernes* 102 (1990), 306. See also Amargier, “Robert d'Uzès, prédicateur: La pastorale mendicante,” in *La prédication en Pays d'Oc (XIIe-début XVe siècle)* (*Cahiers de Fanjeaux*) 32 (Toulouse, 1997), 159–70.

288 McGinn, “Angel Pope and Papal Antichrist,” 164.

289 Samantha Kelly, “The Visio Fratrís Johannis: Prophecy and Politics in Late-Thirteenth-Century Italy,” *Florentia*, 8–9 (1994–95), 7–42. See also *The Late Medieval Pope Prophecies*:

by contemporaries to Joachim, though modern research has more appropriately tied the origins to so-called Byzantine “Leo-prophecies” about future emperors.²⁹⁰ Enormously popular and widely copied, the earliest drafts appear to have referred to cardinals, not popes, but later versions covered the pontiffs from Nicholas III (1277–1280) to either Boniface VIII or Benedict XI (1303–1304) before inserting a future angelic pope.²⁹¹ They usually included five saintly popes portrayed in the company of angels, a vision also picked up in the near-contemporary *Liber de Flore*, which combined the idea of angelic popes and messianic rulers to propose that the first of the angelic popes would be aided by a French king who would become emperor, retake Jerusalem, and retire as a Franciscan.²⁹² It was texts such as these, rather than the works of Olivi or Ubertino, which probably did the most to propagate the belief in an angelic pope and carry Joachim’s fame into the new century.

As the travails of Olivi and Arnau, underscore, not everyone was convinced by Joachim or pseudo-Joachim. There were plenty of doubters, both those who rejected apocalyptic fervor altogether and those who accepted such eschatological logic, but expressed doubts about contemporary *post eventum* prophecies assigned to Joachim. At the end of the century, Boniface VIII supposedly asked “Why are these fools awaiting the end of the world?” (*Cur fatui exspectant finem mundi?*), expressing a frustration similar to that of David of

The Genus Nequam Group, (ed.) Martha H. Fleming (Medieval & Renaissance Texts & Studies) 204 (Tempe, AZ, 1999), 6, and earlier bibliography.

290 See Lerner, “On the Origins of the Earliest Latin Pope Prophecies,” 611–35, and *Late Medieval Pope Prophecies: The Genus Nequam Group*, (ed.) Fleming, 3–5. A facsimile of a Vatican manuscript copy produced c.1500 is in *Weissagungen über die Päpste. Vat. Ross. 374*, with an introduction by Robert Lerner and Robert Moynihan (Zurich, 1985).

291 The nature and relationship of the three versions (the other two dating from the 1320s) is summarized in *The Late Medieval Pope Prophecies: The Genus Nequam Group*, (ed.) Fleming, 6–7. See also Andreas Rehberg, “Der ‘Kardinalsorakel’-Kommentar in der ‘Colonna’-Handschrift Vat. lat. 3819 und die Entstehungsumstände der Papstvatizinen,” *Florentia* 5 (1991), 50–58; and Helene Millet and Dominique Rigaux, “Aux origines du succès des Vaticinia de summis pontificibus,” in *Fin du monde et signes des temps: visionnaires et prophètes en France méridionale (fin XIII-début XIV siècle)*, *Cahiers de Fanjeaux* 27 (Toulouse, 1992), 129–56. See also Hélène Millet, *Il libro delle immagini dei papi. Storia di un testo profetico medievale* (La corte dei papi) 9 (Rome, 2002).

292 Herbert Grundmann, “Die Liber de Flore,” *Historisches Jahrbuch* 49 (1929), 33–91. See also Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 320–21, 403–06; McGinn, “Angel Pope and Papal Antichrist,” 165; and *The Late Medieval Pope Prophecies: The Genus Nequam Group*, (ed.) Fleming, 3.

Augsburg decades earlier.²⁹³ Neither man was unusual.²⁹⁴ Salimbene reports a lengthy debate between a disbelieving Dominican, Peter of Puglia, and Hugh of Digne.²⁹⁵ Scepticism about specific prophetic texts is typified by the English Benedictine Matthew Paris (d. 1259), who had pointed out that the *Evangelium Aeternum* that circulated as Joachim's text could not be any such thing since it discussed events in Frederick's life after the abbot's death.²⁹⁶ Thomas Aquinas both noted that many opinions attributed to Joachim were in reality those of unscrupulous followers, and censured his prophesying.²⁹⁷ His views were in line with those of many university theologians and were adopted in the *Annales* and the *Historia Ecclesiastica* of his friend, the Dominican Ptolemy of Lucca (d. 1327), who condemned Joachim's prophesying and underlined the link between Joachim and Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino, an "evil sect" that took its origin from the words of Joachim and his book ("quae quidem secta pessima originem traxit *ex verbis Joachin* [sic], et libris ejus...").²⁹⁸

Ptolemy was not alone in his criticism. Guiu Terreni (d. 1342), the Carmelite theologian and inquisitor employed by Pope John XXII (1316–34) to counter the arguments of the Spiritual Franciscans, saw Joachim as the root of the problem. Although he had probably not read Joachim's works, he included him in his *Summa de haeresibus et earum confutationibus*, a compendium of contemporary heresies and how to refute them. Joachim's ideas also continued to circulate in the company of numerous pseudo-Joachim works. One manuscript (now in London), a collection of excerpts from both Joachim and pseudo-Joachim, together with the *Protocol of Anagni*, was once owned by Richard Kilvington, Dean of St. Paul's (1353–61) and a friend of the great critic of the mendicants, Richard Fitzralph, Archbishop of Armagh.²⁹⁹ The same collection is also extant in a manuscript that once belonged to the theologian Peter of

293 Quoted in Bernard McGinn, "The Abbot and the Doctors: Scholastic Reactions to the Radical Eschatology of Joachim of Fiore," *Church History* 40 (1971), 30.

294 See Vauchez, "Les théologiens face aux prophéties," 579; Gian Luca Potestà and Roberto Rusconi, "Lo statuto della profezia nel medioevo," *Cristianesimo nella storia* 17 (1996), esp. 243–50; and Jean-Pierre Torrell, *Recherches sur la théorie de la prophétie au moyen âge. xiiie-xive siècles: Etudes et textes* (Dokimion) 13 (Fribourg, 1992).

295 Salimbene, *Cronica*, (ed.) Scalia, 1:361–83. Peter may be introduced to allow Hugh of Digne to convince him of the truth of Joachim's message, but he nonetheless voices the sort of arguments skeptics were likely to propose.

296 Paris, *Chronica majora*, (ed.) Luard, 6:339.

297 On Aquinas, see the chapter by Sven Grosse in this volume.

298 Tholomeus von Lucca, *Historia Ecclesiastica Nova*, (ed.) Ottavio Clavuot after preparations by Ludwig Schmugge MGH SS 39 (Hanover, 2009), 557 (and *Ibid.*, 499, 513).

299 London, British Library, MS Royal 8 F xvi.

Limoges (d. 1306).³⁰⁰ Joachimite overtones may be traced in the careers of Beguines adjudged heterodox such as Na Prous Boneta, a Beguine whose deposition before the Inquisition in 1325 identifies her as the herald of the Holy Spirit and shows Olivi's influence.³⁰¹ But perhaps most famously, the 14th century also saw Joachim's name given new literary fame in the poetry of Dante, who placed him in paradise in the *Divina Commedia*:

...e lucemi dallato,
 Il calavrese abate Giovacchino
 di spirito profetico dotato.³⁰²
 (...and at my side shines
 The Calabrian Abbot Joachim
 endowed with prophetic spirit)

Joachim the prophet of the Antichrist was thus soon to be discussed in the new genre of commentaries on Dante's poem.³⁰³

6.12 Conclusions: How Influential Was Joachim?

As Bernard McGinn wrote in an essay on the impact of Joachim of Fiore in the 14th and 15th centuries, "it is always difficult to know whether to claim too much or too little for Joachim of Fiore's influence."³⁰⁴ The task is no less problematic for the hundred years immediately following Joachim's death in 1202, despite the fundamental works by Reeves, McGinn, and numerous other scholars whose efforts underlie this or any new assessment. It would not be easy to prove that anyone ever acted directly as a result of one of the abbot's prophecies. But prophecy and eschatology were important tools for 13th-century polemicists. While the intended audience for a specific text is not always evident, it is clear that Joachim's ideas had a powerful impact on the imagination

300 Paris, BnF lat. 16397. See Kathryn Kerby-Fulton, *Books under Suspicion: Censorship and Tolerance of Revelatory Writing in Late Medieval England* (Notre Dame, IN, 2006); and Nicole Bériou, "Pierre de Limoges et la fin des temps," *Mélanges de l'École Française de Rome, Moyen Âge-Temps Modernes* 98, (1986), 65–107.

301 David Burr, "Na Prous Boneta and Olivi," *Collectanea franciscana* 67 (1997), 477–500.

302 *The Divine Comedy, Paradiso* 12.139–141. The bibliography on Dante and Joachim is vast, but see most recently *Dante and His Literary Precursors: Twelve Essays*, (eds.) John C. Barnes and Jennifer Petrie (Dublin, 2007).

303 Including those by Pietro Alighieri and Benvenuto da Imola. These are now available through the Dartmouth Dante Project website <http://dante.dartmouth.edu>.

304 McGinn, "Influence and Importance in Evaluating Joachim of Fiore," 15.

of innumerable 13th-century writers. As Potestà argues, his writing served to update the lexicology of eschatology, giving it a new lease on life.³⁰⁵ It certainly fell on fertile territory. The crises of the late 12th and 13th centuries leant themselves to prophetic interpretations of the sort Joachim provided. The confidence about the future available through the prophecies was undoubtedly attractive. Moreover, this was not restricted to political concerns: the prophecies provided information about the world after death. Their wide circulation and revision undoubtedly reflects a keen interest in the history of salvation.

Previous writers attempting to summarize the impact of Joachim have adopted a variety of approaches. Reeves scanned contemporary and later writers looking for the most noteworthy signs of his historical structures—the patterns of twos, threes, and sevens, and for knowledge of the images (*figurae*). She found him ever more frequently cited. Together with Bloomfield she concluded that in the first half of the 13th-century Joachim was principally known as a prophet of the Antichrist.³⁰⁶ Only after the crisis provoked by Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino in 1254–55 did he become known for his ideas about a better earthly future.³⁰⁷ Others (including the Jesuit Henri de Lubac) sought to divide the reception history into two parts, separating historical biblical exegesis in the style of Alexander Minorita from the work of theologians who used his idea of a third earthly *status* as the basis for their own arguments.³⁰⁸

In this chapter, I have instead sought to focus on the mechanisms for the transmission of Joachim's thinking and to exemplify the ways in which it was deployed. I have avoided asserting patterns that might imply a simple tradition, in part because the dating of so many works has either been recently revisited or remains open to revision. But for readers keen to have a convenient summary, the chronology of his influence can perhaps appropriately be divided into three phases. The first is the remarkable evidence for his fame as a prophet spreading as far afield as England, the German Empire, Navarre, Central and Northern Italy, and Northern France already by the second decade of the 1200s. This was followed by the emphatic engagement of prominent mendicants and the political instrumentalization in the mid-13th century of both Joachimite and Joachite ideas by the papal and imperial courts and, spectacularly, by Friar Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino and Master William of Saint-Amour. Finally, after mid-century came the better-documented and perhaps still more inventive response to his works by theologians and apologists such as Olivi, Arnau de Vilanova, and the Spiritual Franciscans (as well as, of course, critics such as

305 Potestà, "Gli spazi dell'Anticristo," 420.

306 Bloomfield and Reeves, "The Penetration of Joachism into Northern Europe," 792.

307 Lerner, "Refreshment of the Saints," p.120.

308 de Lubac, *La posterité spirituelle de Joachim de Flore*, 1:49–67.

Aquinas). As the century progressed, responses to his work focused more on the dissident undertones, with their criticism of the worldly Church, since the emphasis on apocalyptic thought increasingly attracted accusations of heresy.

An alternative approach might be to observe that until c.1240 Joachim's ideas tended to circulate most often in his own works (or in slightly revised redactions), but from the 1240s onwards, the emergence of Joachite texts on a major scale gave his reputation, if not his direct influence, a new impulse.³⁰⁹ Establishing more exact parameters for this influence remains problematic because, as with any hermetic tradition, it was easily subject to re-interpretation. Texts were not stable: the "true" nature of Joachim's spiritual men could be reconfigured, as could the identity of the Antichrist, whether emperor, king, or pope. Joachim's fame meant that regardless of whether a writer chose to reiterate his ideas, his name might usefully be deployed to confer authenticity. The accumulation of criticism and associations with heresy did little to limit this trend during the century leading up to c.1300.

309 Wannenmacher, "Apocalypse, Antichrists and the Third Age," 268, reminds us that [by the end of the 13th century] neither his fiercest critics nor his staunch supporters "had [ever] read a single word of what Joachim of Fiore had actually written, but were dependent exclusively on Pseudo-Joachim's writings."

Longing for the Third Age: Revolutionary Joachism, Communism, and National Socialism

Matthias Riedl

7.1 Introduction—The Puzzle: A 12th-Century Calabrian Abbot as the Father of Modernity?

Beginning in the interwar period, Joachim of Fiore was discovered as an epochal figure of Western civilization. Oswald Spengler's (1880–1936) well-known and infamous *Decline of the West* opened a series of widely popular accounts of Western civilization, all of which presented the Calabrian abbot as the great, pivotal thinker of the Middle Ages, initiating processes that brought about modernity. In order to familiarize the reader with the issues at stake, I shall begin this chapter with a survey of the most prominent statements about the abbot.¹ In 1922 Oswald Spengler wrote:

On the very threshold of the Western Culture we meet the great Joachim of Floris (c. 1145–1202), the first thinker of the Hegelian stamp who shattered the dualistic world-form of Augustine, and with his essentially Gothic intellect stated the new Christianity of his time in the form of a third term to the religions of the Old and the New Testaments, expressing them respectively as the Age of the Father, the Age of the Son, and the Age of the Holy Ghost. His teaching moved the best of the Franciscans and the Dominicans, Dante, Thomas Aquinas, in their inmost souls and awakened a world-outlook which slowly but surely took entire possession of the historical sense of our Culture.²

In his once ubiquitously cited *Sacrum Imperium*, first published in 1929, Alois Dempf (1891–1982) laconically concluded that Joachim had created the

¹ Naturally, this survey is far from complete. For another collection of modern assessments of Joachim's legacy, see Marjorie Reeves and Warwick Gould, *Joachim of Fiore and the Myth of the Eternal Evangel in the Nineteenth Century* (Oxford, 1987), 1–3.

² Oswald Spengler, *The Decline of the West*, trans. Charles Francis Atkinson, rev. ed., 2 vols. (New York, 1926), 1:19. This passage first appears in the second edition of the German original from 1922.

“ideology of rising modernity” (*Ideologie der beginnenden Neuzeit*).³ Less laconically and in the lofty style of the time, Eugen Rosenstock-Huessy (1888–1973) declared two years later, in 1931:

Already in 1200 our millennium was baptized in the name of its political revolutions! Today this is taken as merely “historical.” We register as a curiosity the audacity of Joachim of Fiore who let his new post-ecclesiastical world-age begin with the year 1260. Nonetheless, here the magnificent attempt was made to achieve the independence of the *age of revolutions* against the orthodox Christian age of the Church. Joachim of Fiore was thus the first to grasp the character of these events. His new calculation and periodization of time deserves to be recognized as standing in the context of all great revolutions up to the Russian Revolution. Joachim of Fiore is simply right in his doctrine of the age of post-ecclesiastical plenitude. He understood the new law, the executor of which was to become Lenin.⁴

After World War II, Jacob Taubes (1923–1987) plagiarized the powerful statements of Spengler and Rosenstock-Huessy in his successful and still much-debated *Occidental Eschatology* (1947).⁵ A subtler but also more far-reaching statement can be found in Karl Löwith’s (1897–1973) *Meaning in History* (1949):

... Joachim’s expectation of a new age of “plenitude” could have two opposite effects; it could strengthen the austerity of a spiritual life over against the wordliness of the church, and this was, of course, his intention; but it could also encourage the striving for new historical realizations, and this was the remote result of his prophecy of a new revelation. The revolution which had been proclaimed within the framework of an eschatological faith and with reference to a perfect monastic life was taken over, five centuries later, by a philosophical priesthood, which interpreted the process of secularization in terms of a “spiritual” realization of the Kingdom of God on earth. As an attempt at realization, the spiritual

3 Alois Dempf, *Sacrum Imperium. Geschichts- und Staatsphilosophie des Mittelalters und der politischen Renaissance*, 2nd ed. (Darmstadt, 1954 [1929]), 269.

4 Eugen Rosenstock-Huessy, *Die europäischen Revolutionen und der Charakter der Nationen*, rev. ed. (Stuttgart, 1951 [1931]), 2; my translation, Rosenstock-Huessy’s italics.

5 Jacob Taubes, *Abendländische Eschatologie* (Munich, 1991 [1947]), 81. Only recently has the book been translated into English as *Occidental Eschatology*, trans. David Ratmoko (Stanford, 2009), 82. In neither edition are the sources identified.

pattern of Lessing, Fichte, Schelling, and Hegel could be transposed into the positivistic and materialistic schemes of Comte and Marx. The third dispensation of the Joachites reappeared as a third International and a third Reich, inaugurated by a *dux* or a *Führer* who was acclaimed as a savior and greeted by millions with *Heil!*⁶

Löwith's assertion betrays the experiential background of the new perspectives on Joachim of Fiore: it is the world of modern mass movements, first and foremost Communism and National Socialism, and the intellectual currents that paved their way. Löwith had personally experienced the German masses enthusiastically welcoming Hitler, including the students incited by his beloved teacher, Martin Heidegger. Soon after Hitler's rise to power the Jewish philosopher was forced to emigrate. It remained his lifelong project to understand the origins of modern man's historical existence, one that had alienated him from cosmic existence and led to fatal attempts at regaining existential meaning through progressive eschatologies.⁷ In exploring the theological origins of historical existence he encountered Joachim of Fiore and recognized his work as the historical link between biblical lore and modern ideology.

The British historian Norman Cohn (1915–2007), who grew up in a Jewish family that had converted to Catholicism, became an expert on the preconditions for persecution and genocide. Drawing on Karl Löwith's work, he identified the apocalyptic tradition as the essential background of modern mass movements. By combining religious and social history, he tried to understand the instances of violent fanaticism in European history. Once again, Cohn considered Joachim of Fiore's theology as the precursor to modern conceptions of history:

In Joachim's interpretation Christ no longer stands at the center of history and the Christian revelation is of only limited and temporary validity. The indirect and long-term influence of these speculations—which has been immense—can in fact be seen most clearly in those latter-day “philosophies of history,” which are most emphatically anti-Christian.

6 Karl Löwith, *Meaning in History* (Chicago, 1949), 159.

7 “We now ask: How did this modern confusion come about that dissolved the one physical cosmos into a plurality of historical worlds, and the ever same nature of man into a variety of historical modes of existence? The question can only be answered by a historical consideration that aims to deconstruct the constructs of historical consciousness.” See Karl Löwith, “Mensch und Geschichte,” in *Sämtliche Schriften*, 8 vols. (Stuttgart, 1983), 2:346–76, here 360; my translation.

Horried though the unworldly mystic would have been to see it happen, it is unmistakably the Joachite fantasy of the three ages that reappeared in, for instance, Auguste Comte's idea of history as an ascent from the theological through the metaphysical up to the scientific phase; and again in the Marxian dialectic of the three stages of primitive communism, class society, and final communism, which is to be the realm of freedom and in which the state will have withered away. And it is no less true—if even more paradoxical—that the phrase “the Third Reich,” as a name for the “new order” which was to last a thousand years, would have had but little emotional significance if the fantasy of a third and most glorious dispensation had not over the centuries entered into the common stock of European social mythology.⁸

In 1938, when Austria was incorporated into the Nazi empire, the *Staatslehre* instructor Eric Voegelin (1901–1985) was removed from his post at Vienna University because of his political views. Voegelin escaped detention only by his swift emigration to the United States. Just like Karl Löwith, he had witnessed the religious fanaticism of the masses with his own eyes. That same year he published his influential essay *The Political Religions*, which to this day is regarded as a groundbreaking work in the study of totalitarianism.⁹ In the preface he states that National Socialism can only be effectively fought if its “root in religiousness” is recognized.¹⁰ Modern mass movements are thus, in Voegelin's view, inner-worldly “political religions,”¹¹ and Joachim's apocalyptic speculations “form the historical basis for the apocalyptic dynamics in modern political religions.”¹²

The symbolism of the apocalypse of the empires lives on in the symbolism of the nineteenth and twentieth centuries: in the three empires of Marx and Engels' philosophy of history, in the Third Reich of National Socialism, and in the fascist third Rome, following the Rome of antiquity and the Christian Rome. Also, the content-related definitions of the third

8 Norman Cohn, *The Pursuit of the Millennium* (London, 1957), 101.

9 Cf. Michael Burleigh, *The Third Reich: A New History* (New York, 2000), 9–10.

10 Eric Voegelin, “The Political Religions,” in *Modernity without Restraint*, The Collected Works of Eric Voegelin (Columbia, 2000), 19–73, here 24. Cf. Matthias Riedl, “Gioacchino da Fiore padre della modernità. Le tesi di Eric Voegelin,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore nella cultura dell'800 e del '900. Atti del 6° Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti*, ed. Gian Luca Potestà (Rome, 2005), 219–36.

11 Voegelin, “The Political Religions,” 32–33.

12 Voegelin, “The Political Religions,” 51.

empire have remained intact: the belief that the institutions of the universal Church will be dissolved through spiritualization into the orders of perfect life through the descent of the Holy Spirit; in the belief in the “withering away of the state” and the fraternal and free association of people in the communist third realm; in the belief in the deliverers of the empire, Dante’s five hundred, five, and ten (DVX); in the figures and myths of leaders in our time; and in the orders of the new empires in the communist, fascist, and national-socialist associations and elite groupings as the core of the new imperial organizations.¹³

After the war, Eric Voegelin published his *New Science of Politics*, which contains the most concise thesis about the legacy of Joachim of Fiore: “In his Trinitarian eschatology Joachim created the aggregate of symbols that govern the self-interpretation of modern political society to this day.”¹⁴ But what does “modern political society” signify exactly? Does it include all political orders since the 16th century? Certainly not! Voegelin regarded communism and fascism as the latest and clearest expressions of modernity, as opposed to the American and English democracies with their solid institutions built on long-standing spiritual and philosophical foundations. Voegelin called the social order brought about by National Socialism “modernity without restraint.”¹⁵

Most recently, one finds in John Gray’s bestseller *Black Mass* the following quote:

The division of human history into three ages had a profound impact on secular thought. Hegel’s view of the evolution of human freedom in three dialectical stages, Marx’s theory of the movement from primitive communism through class society to global communism, Auguste Comte’s Positivist vision of humankind’s evolution from religious to metaphysical and scientific stages of development all reproduce the three-part scheme.

13 Voegelin, “The Political Religions,” 52.

14 Eric Voegelin, “The New Science of Politics,” in *Modernity without Restraint*, 75–271, here 179. A simplified version of Voegelin’s view on Joachim was popularized by *Times* magazine in a March 9, 1953 issue.

15 “The German Revolution, finally, in an environment without strong institutional traditions, brought for the first time into full play economic materialism, racist biology, corrupt psychology, scientism, and technological ruthlessness—in brief, modernity without restraint.” See Voegelin, “The New Science of Politics,” 241. For a fuller analysis of Eric Voegelin’s concept of modernity, see Hans-Jörg Sigwart, “Krise der Moderne und moderne Demokratie: Eric Voegelins neoklassische Interpretation des westlichen Zivilregimes,” in *Zeitschrift für Politikwissenschaft* 18:4 (2008), 471–99.

The common division of history into three phases—ancient, medieval and modern—echoes the Joachimite scheme. Even more strikingly ... it was Joachim's prophecy of a third age that gave the Nazi state the name of the Third Reich.¹⁶

This short survey has illustrated that the interest in Joachim of Fiore is primarily motivated by the encounter with modern mass movements. Therefore, the focus of this chapter will be references to Joachim in the larger intellectual environment of Communism and National Socialism. But is this historical connection between the eschatological reflections of a 12th-century abbot and the political imaginations of communists and National Socialists justified? Most Joachim scholars have simply ignored the claims about the far-reaching impact of the abbot's ideas, while others have simply rejected them.¹⁷ Yet, the large scope of international scholarly interest in Joachim and the Joachimites can only be explained by the claims about his lasting legacy made popular by the modern classics listed above. To be sure, many modern historians may also have personal religious motives for exploring the work of the abbot. Clearly, however, the attractiveness of Joachim of Fiore as a research subject is not merely due to the persuasiveness of his thought, but also to his reputation as the mysterious prophet of a Third Age of human perfection.¹⁸

16 John Gray, *Black Mass: Apocalyptic Religion and the Death of Utopia* (London, 2008), 12–13.

17 Bernard McGinn, "Influence and Importance in Evaluating Joachim of Fiore," in *Il profetismo gioachimita tra Quattrocento e Cinquecento. Atti del III Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (Genova, 1991), 15–36.

18 Kurt-Victor Selge has pointed to the fact that scholarly interest in Joachim could originate not only from a reformed Christian or a leftist orientation, but also from a rightist one: "Dabei ist ganz im Gegenteil klar, daß die nationalsozialistische Bewegung in Deutschland an den Hoffnungen und Erwartungen sozialer und geistiger Erneuerung Anteil gehabt hat, wie sie das erste Drittel unseres Jahrhunderts erfüllten und unter anderem im Mythos vom 'Dritten Reich' symbolischen Ausdruck fanden. Eine neue Kirche und eine erneuerte Gesellschaft—das sind die dringlichen und generellen Hoffnungen, die den entlegenen Hintergrund der Joachimstudien bilden, ganz unabhängig davon, wie die einzelnen Forscher sich dann angesichts der Sirenenklänge der faschistischen und nationalsozialistischen Bewegung entscheiden, oder welche ein Geschick ihnen diese Bewegungen dann bereiten würden. Auch die Rolle von emigrierten Forschern—wie Beatrix Hirsch-Reich—ist hier nicht zu vergessen. Schließlich darf man einen spezifisch protestantisch-nordamerikanischen Aspekt als Hintergrund der Studien über die Suche nach dem Tausendjährigen Reich anführen. Es ist die neuere Krise des puritanischen Erbes im Mythos der Vereinigten Staaten von Nordamerika als dem Gelobten Land der Hoffnung auf eine 'Neue Welt' der Freiheit und der Suche nach dem Glück, zugleich mit der neuerkannten Notwendigkeit, sich über die utopisch-messianischen Züge der

The Paradoxes of Joachim's Legacy

Voegelin, Löwith, Cohn, and Rosenstock-Huessy have one strong argument on their side: there are in fact a large number of references to Joachim of Fiore in communist and socialist literature from the middle of the 19th century onward. The references are not as clear and not as numerous as in the case of National Socialist literature and the environments from which it emerged, but they are by no means absent. Explicit references to Joachim are also found in numerous other intellectual currents that cannot be considered within the context of this essay, but which include French romanticism, German idealism, positivism, and even postmodernism.¹⁹ At first glance, the modern legacy of Joachim of Fiore is a mystery, or at least a curiosity. A variety of paradoxes make it difficult to understand why one finds such a great number of references to the Calabrian abbot in the writings of Western theologians, philosophers, politicians, and poets between the 13th and the 21st centuries.

1) For example, it seems paradoxical that there were so many anti-clerical figures among Joachim's early followers, while the abbot himself had hoped for the reform of the clergy as a central element of the coming spiritual Church. The above quotation from Rosenstock-Huessy especially shows how Joachim was seen as the originator of "post-ecclesiastical" revolutionary thinking. Yet, his authentic works show no trace of revolutionary agitation, let alone "post-ecclesiastical" imagination.

2) As early as the 13th century one finds references to "Ghibelline" Joachites hailing a messianic emperor, and, from the 15th and 16th century onwards, to prophets of national monarchies who sought help from the abbot. Yet Joachim himself predicted that the spiritual Christianity of the third *status* would witness the collapse of all temporal powers.

3) One certainly cannot count Joachim among the most learned men of his era. It seems unclear whether he can be called a "thinker" since "thinking" is

totalitären marxistischen Ideologie als des großen Konkurrenten auf dem Wege zu einer Neuordnung der menschlichen Verhältnisse im Weltmaßstab Rechenschaft zu geben. Der geistige Hintergrund der Joachimstudien ist also sehr viel weiter und diffuser." See Kurt-Victor Selge, "Joachim von Fiore in der Geschichtsschreibung der letzten sechzig Jahre (von Grundmann bis zur Gegenwart). Ergebnisse und offene Fragen," in *L'eta dello spirito e la fine dei tempi in Gioacchino da Fiore e nel Gioachimismo medievale. Atti del 11 Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (S. Giovanni in Fiore, 1986), 29–53, here 34–35.

- 19) Despite his tendency to overgeneralize, Henri de Lubac's work still provides the most comprehensive overview: Henri de Lubac, *La postérité spirituelle de Joachim de Flore*, 2 vols., vol 1: de Joachim à Schelling, vol. 2: de Saint-Simon à nos jours (Paris, 1979 and 1981). The most important study on romanticism is Reeves and Gould, *Joachim of Fiore and the Myth of the Eternal Evangel*.

not part of Joachim's self-description. He despised philosophy but nevertheless appears to have had a major impact on its development. Idealists, materialists, positivists, and postmodernists claimed to walk in the footsteps of an apocalyptic seer and provincial abbot. Furthermore, even if it cannot be measured exactly, the impression that Joachim—or a certain image of Joachim—made on modern intellectuals certainly surpassed that of Thomas Aquinas, who gradually gained the reputation of a dry-as-dust scholastic traditionalist. Ironically, Aquinas considered Joachim as a non-erudite (*rudis*) person.²⁰ Equally ironic is the fact that in his own day, and by the time of the Fourth Lateran Council, Joachim was seen as a representative of traditional contemplative theology arguing against the theological innovations of the scholastic *moderni*. How is this possible? How could a writer, who even by the standards of his time had a rather limited education, become so tremendously influential?²¹

4) The abbot's own visions of future society were largely outdated only decades after they had been drafted, and they had little influence on the political imagination of the 13th century intellectual scene, or on any later movement referring to the abbot. As his constitution for the future age shows, Joachim's own social ideas were still dominated by Benedictine reform monasticism, the principle of *stabilitas loci*, and the traditional estate-based conception of society—despite his innovative thought that monks would assume prominent positions in the future. He simply could not foresee the emergence of the mendicant orders and their more egalitarian social innovations that made his own model of a new order (*novus ordo*) appear antiquated.

20 For a fuller picture of Thomas Aquinas's evaluation of Joachim, see Sven Grosse's chapter in this volume.

21 By "limited education" I do not mean that Joachim read no books. His works, practically all of which have an exegetical character, give the impression that he spent at least three-quarters of his reading time only with the Bible. He certainly had an interest in commentary literature, especially concerning the Apocalypse. Chronicles were essential for his construction of concordances between the Old Testament and Church history. Joachim also had an intimate knowledge of monastic rules and constitutions. He was familiar with some works of Bernard de Clairvaux and probably some other Cistercian theologians. However, his knowledge of the Church fathers seems not to extend beyond glosses, florilegia, and the exegetical tools provided by Jerome. He lacked any understanding of logic and metaphysical theology. Apparently, he did not receive training in the Aristotelian Organon and felt only disgust toward rising scholasticism, immersed in the vanity of philosophical superstition (*phylosophyce superstitionis vanitas*). See *Liber de Concordia*, fol. 5vb, (ed.) Daniel 53. Likewise, he despised the art of rhetoric and prided himself on his rustic language (*sermo rusticus*). See *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Burger, 10.

5) One can safely say that the vast majority of writers who referred to Joachim from the Reformation onwards had never even touched an original work of the abbot. By the late Middle Ages it seems that Pseudo-Joachim was much more influential than Joachim. The closer one gets to the present era, the less the self-declared successors of Joachim were familiar with even pseudo-Joachimist literature, having only “an idea about the ideas” of the medieval prophet. At this point one may ask: is the impact and the legacy of Joachim of Fiore merely a phantom? Is it merely a magnificent story of misunderstanding or even deliberate abuse of the abbot’s name? As I hope to show in the following pages, this conclusion would be far too simple.

7.2 Hypotheses, Approach, Research Questions

This chapter is not meant to be a survey and an enumeration of references and “influences.” Instead, it attempts to offer a solution to the puzzle of Joachim’s modern legacy. Therefore, I propose three research hypotheses to solve this conundrum.

First, the many references to Joachim of Fiore in modern philosophies and ideologies are actually references to the Franciscan transformation of Joachim’s teachings. The reinterpretations of Spiritual Franciscans and other Franciscan radicals have been much more adaptable to modern social ideas than the abbot’s own vision of future order. The Franciscan social imagination evokes an egalitarian movement directed by a charismatic leader, thus replacing Joachim’s rather hierarchical and static image of the *Novus Ordo*. Thus, the meaning of the content underlying a symbol like the *Novus Ordo* was gradually transformed as a result of new socio-religious experiences.

Second, another, slightly later transformation was equally important for generating interest in the Calabrian abbot among modern intellectuals, especially on the political left: the transition from the second to the third *status* was increasingly imagined as a revolution—an uprising of the underprivileged against the ruling classes, ecclesiastical as well as secular. In short, modern intellectuals with revolutionary aspirations could easily refer to Joachim because he had been characterized as a prophet of revolution already four or five centuries earlier.

While the first two hypotheses emphasize the transformations of Joachimism, the third hypothesis stresses the original contribution of the Calabrian abbot to modern political thought. Regardless of the details of Joachim’s concrete predictions, a new perspective from his visionary insights on human existence emerged that directed eschatological speculation away from its exclusive focus

on the afterlife toward an inner-worldly future. Furthermore, Joachim created powerful symbols to express his visionary insight, first and foremost through the symbolism of the third *status*. The memory of this transformation of eschatology, the name of its initiator, and the basic symbols connected to it were always preserved in Western civilization, independently of concrete knowledge about the abbot's writings.

Consequently, the methodological approach for identifying influences is not restricted to a positivistic search for clear references to the abbot.²² From early on, Joachim's symbols could be completely dissociated from the works in which they were first articulated, and could express a variety of experiences related to the beginning of a new era. In other words, what we may call the "influence" of Joachim of Fiore on modernity is actually the provision of adequate symbols for articulating the experiences of modernity. From this perspective, categories of "use" and "abuse" are meaningless, as are considerations of whether or not someone has understood Joachim's intentions correctly (always implying that modern historians have an objective knowledge of what Joachim actually wanted or did not want to say).

Of course, Joachim cannot be held responsible for the racism of the Nazis or the collectivization policies of the communists. What concerns us is not Joachim's accountability, but the puzzling power and persistence of his symbols. Why do authors describing their historical experience in the 20th century revert to symbols created in the 12th century? How and why does the experiential or mental content, embodied in certain linguistic symbols, transform over time?²³ What changes, and what remains constant? How do the symbols become socially relevant, expressing not only the experience of an individual but articulating the self-interpretation of groups, movements, and whole societies? These are the questions the following pages will endeavor to address.

7.3 Joachim's "Aggregate of Symbols" and the Franciscan Transformation

Let us recall the thesis of Eric Voegelin, which agrees terminologically with the suggested methodological approach: "In his Trinitarian eschatology Joachim

22 This is the approach suggested in Reeves and Gould, *Joachim of Fiore and the Myth of the Eternal Evangel*, 10. However, in their concrete case studies, the authors do not reflect critically on their initial methodological suggestions.

23 Cf. Ernst Cassirer's concept of the "symbolic form": "By 'symbolic form' we mean any energy of the mind, through which meaningful content of the mind is connected to a concrete sensuous sign and is internally assigned to it." See Ernst Cassirer, *Wesen und Wirkung des Symbolbegriffs*, 8th ed. (Darmstadt, 1997), 175; my translation.

created the aggregate of symbols that govern the self-interpretation of modern political society to this day." What precisely are the symbols in question? Voegelin lists four of them: (1) the Third Realm; (2) the leader into the Third Realm; (3) the new order of the Third Realm as a "community of the spiritually perfect"; and (4) the prophet of the Third Realm.²⁴ If this chapter were about Joachim's legacy in the Late Middle Ages, other symbols would be equally important, such as the angelic pope or the "serial Antichrist" with several personal manifestations over the course of salvation history. However, the closer we get to the modern period the more the interest in Joachim is restricted to the Third Age and its corollaries, while his concrete apocalyptic calculations and his speculations about the concordance between the Old and New Testaments, which constitute the bulk of his work, slid into oblivion. Thus Voegelin's list is sufficient for the present purpose.

The first hypothesis outlined above holds that the Franciscan transformation of the meaning of the content underlying Joachim's symbols enabled, or at least facilitated, the modern adoption of these symbols. In order to understand this process, Joachim's symbols must first be analyzed in their original context.

1) The Third Age: Joachim speaks of a third *status* of the world (*tertius status mundi*) in which the *status* of the world (*status mundi*) refers to the general condition of mankind. The third *status* is brought about by the dispensation of the Holy Spirit, as the third and final act of divine self-revelation. This plenitude of revelatory knowledge will transform Christianity into a single universal and spiritual Church, also comprising the former Eastern Churches as well as Gentile and Jewish converts. At the same time, the time of Babylon (i.e. secular rule) will come to an end. However, even if the beginning of the third *status* is marked by tribulations, it is not an abrupt transition from one condition to another. Rather, the third *status* has its beginnings (*initiationes*) already in the first *status* and the second *status* because according to the creed of the Latin Church, the Spirit proceeds from the Father and the Son. These earlier dispensations of the Spirit manifest themselves in proleptic individuals and groups, which anticipate the spiritual life of the Age of the Spirit. In the first *status*, these are, for instance, the solitary living Elijah and the community-building Elisha as archetypes of anchorite and cenobite monasticism.²⁵ In the second *status*, Benedict, who created the "proper form" of Western monasticism, "prophesies through institutions." What is a Benedictine minority practice in

24 Voegelin, "The New Science," 179–80.

25 *Expositio in Apocalypsim* (Venice, 1527), fols. 18vb–19ra, 156ra; *Liber de Concordia* 2.2.8, fol. 9rb–va, (ed.) Daniel, 74–75; 2.1.9, fols. 9va–10ra, (ed.) Daniel, 77; 3.1.9, fol. 29rb, (ed.) Daniel, 232.

the second *status* will become common practice in the third *status*.²⁶ Bernard McGinn is thus justified in his concise characterization of the third *status*: “For the Calabrian abbot it was the growth of monastic life which was central to history’s progress.”²⁷ A drawing in the *Liber Figurarum* shows the image of the organic growth and spread of spiritual knowing and living.²⁸ Accordingly, Joachim’s key term for spiritual progress is *profectus*, a word commonly used for the growth of plants.

2) The leader into the Third Realm: Such a leader in fact appears in Joachim’s *Liber de Concordia*. His image is based on the typological reference to Zerubbabel, who because of his royal ancestry was appointed governor of Judah by the Persian king Darius I. The Book of Ezra reports that it was Zerubbabel who led Israel out of Babylonian captivity and began to rebuild the Temple in Jerusalem.²⁹ Joachim also quotes the addition of the Prophet Zechariah that Zerubbabel will bring the House of the Lord to perfection.³⁰ According to Joachim’s calculations, this happened in the forty-second generation after Jacob, and thus the corresponding event in the history of the Church must happen in the forty-second generation after Christ—in other words, in the immediate future. Joachim writes:

After a general tribulation has occurred in the previous generation and the wheat has been carefully purged from the chaff, in this generation a new leader will ascend from Babylon, a universal pontiff of the New Jerusalem, that is, the Holy Mother Church (*ascendet quasi nouus dux de Babilone, uniuersalis scilicet pontifex noue Ierusalem, hoc est sancte matris ecclesie*). Regarding his type, the Apocalypse says: “And I saw another angel ascending from the east, holding the seal of the living God.” Yet, he will not ascend [to Jerusalem] by foot or by a change of locations, but

26 “Hec de spiritalis doctrina sancti Patris breviter dicta sint, ut sciamus illum, sicut verbis, ita quoque operibus et institutionibus prophetasse, propter eos qui in statu tertio sub disciplina eius erudiendi erant, habituri et ipsi proprium tempus ...” See *De vita sancti Benedicti* 33, (ed.) Baraut, 71; cf. *De vita sancti Benedicti* 18, (ed.) Baraut, 42; *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.5, fol. 8va, (ed.) Daniel, 68; Conc. 2.1.8, fol. 9rb-va, (ed.) Daniel, 74.

27 Bernard McGinn, “Apocalyptic Imagination in the Middle Ages,” in *Ende und Vollendung. Eschatologische Perspektiven im Mittelalter*, (eds.) Jan A. Aertsen and Martin Pickavé (Miscellanea mediaevalia) 29 (Berlin, 2001), 79–94, here 92.

28 *Liber Figurarum*, tav. 22.

29 Ezra 3:8.

30 Zech. 4:9.

rather because he will be given the full liberty to renew the Christian religion and to preach the word of God.³¹

His words are quite clear: Joachim's *dux* is a papal reformer who will renew the Church and make it universal—not by changing location (i.e. by crusading), but by preaching the word. This leader into the Third Realm will be a monastic pope and transform the Church into a monastic community—the Church of the spirit (*ecclesia spiritualis*).³²

3) The new order of the Third Realm: The Book of Figures (*Liber Figurarum*) includes a symbolic drawing presenting the “Constitution of the New Order of the third *status* in the image of the Heavenly Jerusalem” (*dispositio novi ordinis pertinens ad tertium statum ad instar supernae Jerusalem*).³³ Joachim leaves no doubt that the spiritual age will bring about the perfection of Christian society. At the end of history, the *Novus Ordo* will even anticipate the structure of the Heavenly Order and its universal vocation in the smallest detail (*perficiatur ... quicquid minus erit in structura Hierusalem, et vocatione universi populi, qui futurus est in ea*).³⁴ This means that the three estates of society—the laity, clerics, and monks, each representing the dominant social group in the three *status* of history—will assemble in one single but highly differentiated society. Yet, even if all mankind arrives at a state of spiritual perfection, this does not imply an egalitarian society. The three orders of feudal society will be preserved—with the decisive innovation, however, that the monks will rule over clerics and laics. Even within the order of the monks Joachim envisions a complex differentiation and hierarchy.³⁵ At the top are hermit-like contemplators who supply the governing spiritual father (*pater spiritualis*) with divine knowledge, allowing for the perfect administration of the *Novus Ordo*.³⁶ Below there are teaching monks, working monks, and the senile and sick monks who receive special treatment. Besides the hierarchical design of the constitution, it is important to note that it serves as a commentary on the Rule of Benedict, not unlike the Cistercian constitutions. A number of historical experiences stand behind the symbol of the *Ordo Novus*: a) Benedictine reform monasticism,

31 *Liber de Concordia* 4.31, fol. 56ra-rb, (ed.) Daniel, 401–02; the reference is to Rev. 7:2.

32 Matthias Riedl, *Joachim von Fiore. Denker der vollendeten Menschheit* (Würzburg, 2004), 302–08.

33 *Liber Figurarum*, tav. 12.

34 *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, fol. 221rb.

35 Cf. Marjorie Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy in the Later Middle Ages: A Study in Joachimism* (Oxford, 1969), 139.

36 For a detailed analysis, see Matthias Riedl, “A Collective Messiah: Joachim of Fiore’s Constitution of Future Society,” *Mirabilia* 14 (2012), 57–80.

from the Clunascensians to the Cistercians to Joachim's own Florentians; b) the papal reform program envisaging a spiritual Church liberated from lay influence; c) the manifold experience of monastic trends among the laity and clergy in the 11th and 12 centuries (e.g., the Hospitallers, Cistercian Converses, Premonstratensians, and Canons Regular); and d) the Carthusian experiment of combining coenobitic life with anchorite contemplation. All of these trends are united in Joachim's vision of a future monastic society with strong internal differentiation.

4) The prophet: The prophet, of course, is Joachim himself. It is true that he rejected the label "prophet" for himself, but he did so not out of a sense of modesty. On the contrary, he was convinced that he was endowed with *intelligentia spiritualis*, or the capacity to understand the spiritual meaning proceeding from the letter of the two testaments. Consequently, he could see meaning in the words of the prophets that they themselves were unaware of, especially the typological significance of their prophecies for the Christian Church. The same *intelligentia spiritualis* enabled him to anticipate the coming age when the dispensation of the Holy Spirit would be universal. Moreover, Joachim himself performed the role of a new Jeremiah, as his *Intelligentia super calathis* and contemporary sources reveal.³⁷

The rise of the mendicant orders in the 13th century transformed Western monasticism significantly. The Benedictine principle of *stabilitas loci*, which refers to a monk's lifelong attachment to a monastery (still practiced by the Cistercians and Joachim's Florentians), was replaced by the conception of the order as an association of individuals who regarded themselves as pilgrims of the world.³⁸ The Franciscans essentially believed that their movement was a reincarnation of the life of Christ and the apostles.³⁹ While the older forms of monasticism had rejected personal possessions while permitting collective property, the mendicants and especially the Franciscans preached strict poverty and inculcated a strong sense of equality among the friars. In other words, the new orders assumed the character of a movement. As the Franciscan order drew increasingly large numbers of followers, and pragmatism as well as papal policies advocated compromises and concessions, the wing of the "Spirituals" insisted on the strict observance of the principles of its founder, Francis. Especially in the Spirituals' circle—and in even more radical groups that split off from them—Joachim was venerated as a prophet who had not only predicted

37 Riedl, *Joachim of Fiore*, 171–73.

38 Karl Suso Frank, *Geschichte des christlichen Mönchtums*, 5th ed. (Darmstadt, 1993), 89.

39 Malcolm D. Lambert, *Medieval Heresy: Popular Movements from Bogomil to Hus* (London, 1977), 182.

the conflicts and persecutions the spiritual men (*virī spirituales*) had to endure, but also their glory in the third *status*.

I now wish to summarize the Franciscan variations on Joachim's symbols. For more details about the individuals mentioned below, the reader may consult the chapter by Frances Andrews in this volume.

1) The Third Realm: The conflicts between the Franciscan Spirituals and the clergy, and at times even with the moderates within their own congregation, precluded the adoption of Joachim's model of organic progress. While Joachim hoped for a "monastization" of the clergy, the Spirituals and their intellectual leaders Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino, Peter John Olivi, and Ubertino da Casale emphasized the conflict between the purely monastic spiritual Church (*ecclesia spiritualis*) and the corrupt carnal Church (*ecclesia carnalis*). The second *status*, especially after the Constantinian Donation, was dominated by the carnal Church while the third *status* would be dominated by the spiritual Church. In other words, instead of Joachim's image of organic growth that entailed the partial overlapping of *status* and orders (*ordines*), the Spirituals saw themselves in a fatal conflict that would cause the replacement of one status by another.⁴⁰ This view was also reflected in the Franciscan reinterpretation of the three stages of divine self-revelation. While Joachim interpreted the *spiritualis intelligentia* as the spiritual meaning implied in the letter of the Old and New Testaments, the Franciscan radical Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino was the first to propagate a third "Eternal Evangel," consisting of Joachim's main works. In 1254 this caused a major scandal at the University of Paris, then Latin Christianity's center of learning, and made Joachim's name famous across Europe.

Yet from this moment on, his name was connected to Joachimite ideas that went beyond the abbot's own teachings.⁴¹ To be sure, Joachim also spoke of tribulations at the end of the second *status*, but they applied to the Church as a whole and were inflicted by external forces, such as Muslims.⁴² Also, Joachim complained about the corruption of the clergy sabotaging the progress of the monks,⁴³ and he used the metaphor of separating the wheat from the chaff.

40 This essential difference was already noted by the papal Commission of Anagni in 1255. The purpose of the commission was to explore how many of the scandalous views of the Franciscan radical Gerardo di Borgo San Donnino were already found in Joachim's original writings. See Heinrich Denifle, "Das 'Evangelium aeternum' und die Commission zu Anagni," *Archiv für Literatur- und Kirchen-Geschichte des Mittelalters* 1 (1885), 99–142, here 100.

41 For more on the long-term impact of the Paris scandal, see Reeves and Gould, *Joachim of Fiore and the Myth of the Eternal Evangel*.

42 Cf. Riedl, *Joachim von Fiore*, 170–72, 299–301.

43 *Liber de Concordia* 5.49–50, fol. 84ra–va.

In general, however, he described the transition to the final age as the incorporation of a progressive spiritualized clergy into the *Ordo Novus* and the withering away of the remaining secular clergy. The idea that the Church of Peter, the See of Christ, would disappear was absurd; rather, it would transmute into a state of greater glory and remain stable forever.⁴⁴ The transformation from Joachim's organic model to the "catastrophic" model of the Spirituals was certainly a gradual process, but it was also a decisive one. Consequently, it paved the way for revolutionary reinterpretations: if the Gospel of the Spirit replaces the Gospel of Christ, then the same logic suggests that the spiritual Church does away with the clerical Church.

2) The leader: Naturally, the Franciscans identified the leader who would bring humanity to the third *status* as Francis. As a result, the image of the *dux* changed from that of a papal reformer to that of a mendicant leader, from a pontiff who "does not change his location" to a charismatic, Jesus-like wandering preacher followed by an egalitarian community.⁴⁵ Later, another Francis (*alter Franciscus*) such as Peter John Olivi or Angelo Clareno could move into that position. Due to the central role of the founder in the self-conceptions of the Franciscans, the figure of the *dux* became much more important to them than to Joachim, who even dispensed of it completely in his last work, the *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*.⁴⁶

3) The *Novus Ordo*: Joachim's *Expositio in Apocalypsim* includes a prophecy of the two coming orders: an order of preachers and an order of hermits.⁴⁷ In Joachim's constitution of the third *status*, both orders are integrated into the differentiated society of the *Novus Ordo* as the oratory of Saint Paul and the oratory of Saint John the Evangelist. They fulfill important functions, but they are only two of seven oratories—meaning different ways of serving the Lord—that the *Novus Ordo* contains. Beginning with Pseudo-Joachim's commentary *Super Hieremiam*, the role of these two orders moved to the center of Joachite

44 "Non igitur quod absit deficiet ecclesia Petri, que est thronus Christi, sicut accidit natis mulierum in fine veteris testamenti, sed commutata in maiorem gloriam manebit stabilis in eternum," *Liber de Concordia* 5.65, fol. 95vb.

45 This important difference regarding the image of the *dux* had also been noted by the Papal Commission of Anagni. See Denifle, "Das 'Evangelium aeternum,'" 101.

46 *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*, (ed.) Santi, 97–100. The reason may have been the pontificate of Innocent IV, who did not fit the profile of the expected monastic pope. Cf. Riedl, *Joachim von Fiore*, 307–08; Herbert Grundmann, *Neue Forschungen über Joachim von Fiore* (Münster, 1950), 63; Henry Mottu, *La manifestation de l'Esprit selon Joachim de Flore. Herméneutique et théologie de l'histoire, d'après le "Traité sur les Quatre Evangiles"* (Neuchâtel, 1977), 129ff.

47 *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, fol. 176ra-rb.

expectations.⁴⁸ Soon Joachim was seen as the prophet who had predicted the simultaneous rise of the Dominicans and the Franciscans. Writers from both orders referred to Joachim in order to increase the glory of their congregations, yet this practice was clearly more widespread with the Franciscans. Increasingly, the third *status* came to be seen, and was reinterpreted, as the reorganization and globalization of Christianity according to Franciscan principles. Consequently, a stronger economic element entered the picture that emphasized poverty over spirituality.⁴⁹ The strict rejection of property by the future spiritual Church became an essential element of social prophecies.

4) The prophet: As a consequence of these transformations, the Franciscan Spirituals came to see Joachim primarily as a prophet of their own congregation. Due to the increased role of the *dux* in Franciscan Joachimism, the symbols of the prophet and the leader became intimately interrelated. From this point forward, Joachim and Francis often appeared as a pair, and later, under different historical circumstances, Francis was easily replaced by other leaders.

7.4 From Reform to Revolution

The first of the paradoxes listed above states that modern writers described Joachim as a thinker of revolution even though his original writings had no revolutionary content. This paradox may be dissolved by showing that the Franciscan transformation, with its fierce anti-clericalism, could develop toward revolutionary ideas.⁵⁰ The most important figure in this respect is the Franciscan John of Rupescissa (Jean de Roquetaillade, 1310–1366), whose “prophetic system not only presented a culmination of trends in a central Franciscan prophetic tradition but was surely the most detailed, internally coherent, and influential Christian prophetic system of the fourteenth century.”⁵¹ The alchemist and apocalyptic visionary eventually came under the suspicion of heresy and subsequently spent around twenty years of his life in prison.⁵² From 1349 to 1364 he was incarcerated in the papal prison in Avignon where

48 Cf. *Scriptum super Hieremiam Prophetam* (Venice, 1516), fol. 2ra et passim.

49 Cf. Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 251.

50 Cf. Karl Griewank, *Der neuzeitliche Revolutionsbegriff* (Frankfurt am Main, 1992), 45–46.

51 Robert E. Lerner, “Historical Introduction,” in *Johannes de Rupescissa: Liber secretorum eventuum*, (eds.) Robert E. Lerner and Christine Morerod-Fattebert (Fribourg, 1994), 11–85, here 14. For the life and works of John of Rupescissa, see also Jeanne de Bignami-Odier, *Etudes sur Jean de Roquetaillade* (Paris, 1952).

52 It seems that he was ultimately condemned not as a heretic, but as a dangerous *fantasticus*. Lerner, “Historical Introduction,” 31.

he wrote most of his works, including the famous *Vade mecum in tribulatione* (1356),⁵³ a concise prophecy about the imminent tribulations initiating the third *status* of the world.

The *Vade mecum* describes the essentials of the coming age as follows: The whole world will be unified in one Catholic faith, within one universal Church, and under one single pope. This prediction thus presupposes the conversion of Jews and Muslim peoples and the return of the Greeks to the universal Church (*ecclesia generalis*), while all schismatics, heretics, and depraved Christians would be eradicated from the earth.⁵⁴ How could such a scenario be possible? Only if the entire clergy—at all levels of the hierarchy—is led back to the life of Christ and the apostles (*reducere ad modum vivendi sanctissimum Christi et Apostolorum sanctorum*). The Jews, Tartars, Saracens, and Turks will not be persuaded to convert unless they are taught by truly spiritual men who instruct through acts rather than with words. But what is it that they will teach? The most spiritual law of Christ (*lex spiritualissima*)—poverty.

This global vision has been called a “Franciscan utopia.”⁵⁵ We again find the traditional symbols, such as the third *status* and the *Ordo Novus*, portrayed in Franciscan fashion. Rupescissa, a man who experienced visions from early age, has replaced Joachim as the prophet,⁵⁶ but his dependence on the Joachite tradition, especially on Olivi, is evident.⁵⁷ The leader into the Third Age is also present, this time presented as a Franciscan pope, a *reparator orbis*, who will restore the world and establish a universal government. What makes this text so interesting in the present context is the fact that Rupescissa describes the transition to the third *status* as a political revolution. Even if evidence of direct references to the abbot is otherwise scarce, I would consider this text an example of “revolutionary Joachism” because Joachim’s central symbol of the third *status* is preserved.

At one point, Rupescissa prophesies that the secular people and their rulers will be outraged at the hypocrisy of the clergy. They will expropriate the clerics’ riches and make them return to an evangelical life. They will hold the clerics accountable for their abominable public sins and punish them; they will destroy them and slaughter them.⁵⁸ At another point, Rupescissa foresees

53 Despite the significance of the text, there is no critical edition. I quote from Johannis de Rupescissa, “Vade mecum in tribulatione,” in *Appendix ad fasciculus rerum expendarum et fugiendarum*, (ed.) Edward Brown, 2 vols. (London, 1690), 2:496–508.

54 Rupescissa, “Vade mecum,” 497–98.

55 Lerner, “Historical Introduction,” 77.

56 Cf. Reeves, *The Influence of Prophecy*, 226.

57 Lerner, “Historical Introduction,” 58–63.

58 Rupescissa, “Vade mecum,” 500.

how the worms of the earth (*vermes terrae*) will devour lions, bears, leopards, and wolves in the cruelest way. The vision signifies the popular justice (*justitia popularis*) that will arise.⁵⁹ With a two-edged sword the people will bring down the powerful, the noble, and the rich, by whom they have been treacherously exploited for so long. This time the secular lords are the victims of the insurgency; the expropriators will be expropriated.⁶⁰ Thus, Rupescissa may be credited with inventing the “dictatorship of the proletariat,” for he envisions it as a transitory stage that paves the way for the rule of the great *reparator* over a universal, spiritual Christianity, observing the sacred law of poverty.

Marxists would have admired Rupescissa had they discovered him. Nevertheless, there are important differences between late medieval and modern visions of revolution, the most obvious one being that the *Vade mecum* sees divine agency behind all historical trends. Firstly, Rupescissa shows sympathy for the popular uprising against the mighty, but he does not identify with the people. Secondly, he also does not incite his readers to violence; indeed, Rupescissa prophesies revolution, but does not propagate it. However, revolutionary Joachism continued to develop further.

Rupescissa's work was read widely across Europe and the *Vade mecum*—or at least summaries of it—were translated into many vernaculars.⁶¹ Subsequently, the *Vade mecum* surfaced during several European uprisings, including the Jacquerie in France, the Revolt of the Ciompi in Florence, and the Hussite rebellion in Bohemia. However, according to the studies of Robert Lerner, the text was not so much used to incite revolts but rather to explain those that had already happened.⁶² In the case of Bohemia, the *Vade mecum* was apparently read within more conservative Hussite circles and not by revolutionary

59 Cf. Robert E. Lerner, “Popular Justice’: Rupescissa in Hussite Bohemia,” in *Eschatologie und Hussitismus*, (eds.) Alexander Patschovsky and František Šmahel (Prague, 1996), 39–52.

60 “Consurget enim *infra* illos V. annos justitia popularis, & tyrannos proditores nobiles in ore bis-acuti gladii devorabit, & cadent multi principum & nobilium & potentium a dignitatibus suis & a gloria divitiarum suarum; & fiet afflictio in nobilibus ultra quam credi possit, & ratiuntur majores, qui cum proditioes depraedari fecerant populum tam afflictum,” Rupescissa, “Vade mecum,” 499.

61 This has been subject of a recent international workshop entitled “Apokalyptik und Prophetie im Mittelalter—The Translations of John of Rupescissa's *Vade mecum in tribulatione* (1356) into Seven European Vernaculars,” Institut für Mittelalterforschung, Vienna, 22–23 June 2012. <https://www.oew.ac.at/imafo/das-institut/detail/article/apokalyptik-und-prophetie-im-mittelalter-1>, last accessed 13 October 2017.

62 Robert E. Lerner, “Medieval Millenarianism and Violence,” in *Pace e guerra nel basso medioevo: Atti del XI. Convegno storico internazionale, Todi, 12–14 ottobre 2003* (Spoleto, 2004), 37–52, here 48–52.

Taborites.⁶³ The search for Joachite influences on the Hussites or for the concrete use of Joachim's symbols, especially the third *status*, has brought rather meager results,⁶⁴ even though the Bohemian translation of Rupescissa shows that texts transporting Joachite symbolic lore were readily available. However, as Howard Kaminsky writes, in Taborite circles eschatological schemes emerged that displayed a surprising resemblance to that of Joachim:

The new, non-Christian religion of the chiliasts, as we have seen, operated with a tripartite division of human history: the Old Law, the New Law, the age of the renovated kingdom. Just as the second had superseded the first, so the third would supersede the second. Knowledge of the third would supersede the second. Knowledge of the third period, however, was won by scriptural interpretation—not the classic, traditional system of patristic and medieval glosses, but a peculiar system of interpreting the New Law by the Old, and vice versa, so as to generate a third body of wisdom.⁶⁵

Kaminsky suggests that Joachism was transmitted to the Taborites via the Free Spirit movement or other channels. Yet, he considers it very unlikely that Taborite radicals would have “reinvented the Joachite technique of exegesis and the Joachite scheme of the three world-ages.”⁶⁶ But is it really so unlikely? How would we view the Montanists if they had not appeared a millennium before Joachim but one or two centuries after him? Would their ideas about an ongoing dispensation of the Holy Spirit and an earthly materialization of the Heavenly Jerusalem not have made them natural candidates for an alleged Joachite influence? When considering Joachim's legacy, the older Johannine legacy, especially the Paraclete-prophecies of John 14 and 16, needs to be taken into account, as well as their early exegetical connection to the Pentecostal prophecy of Joel 3.⁶⁷

63 Robert E. Lerner, “Popular Justice,” 45–49.

64 Kurt-Victor Selge, “Handschriften Joachims von Fiore in Böhmen,” in Patschovsky and Šmahel, *Eschatologie und Hussitismus*, 53–60.

65 Howard Kaminsky, *A History of the Hussite Revolution* (Berkeley, 1967), 351. For a critical assessment of Kaminsky's view, see Pavel Soukup, “The Masters and the End of the World: Exegesis in the Polemics with Chiliasm,” *The Bohemian Reformation and Religious Practice* 7 (2009), 91–114, here 103–05.

66 Kaminsky, *Hussite Revolution*, 352.

67 Gerhard Maier, *Die Johannesoffenbarung und die Kirche* (Wissenschaftliche Untersuchungen zum Neuen Testament) 25 (Tübingen, 1981), 81; Christine Trevett, *Montanism: Gender, Authority and the New Prophecy* (Cambridge, 1996), 92ff.

Another dark case, which seems to conflate Joachimism and revolutionary ideas, is the so-called heresy of the Wirsberger brothers in the mid-15th century. What makes the Wirsbergers so interesting is their active propagation of revolution. Moreover, they have been considered a possible link between the Taborites and the beginnings of revolutionary agitation in Germany, namely the preaching of Thomas Müntzer.⁶⁸ The Wirsberger brothers belonged to the Bohemian gentry. One of them, Janko, was in close contact with the Franciscans of Eger and developed suspicious ideas. His brother Livin, who had inherited the family estate, supported him and was held accountable by the authorities and condemned as a heretic. Whether the brothers had a large following, or were mainly operating on their own, is unclear. What were the main features of this heresy? Two contemporaries, the Franciscan chronicler Nikolaus Glassberger and an unnamed Carthusian monk, largely agreed on the accusations brought forth against Livin at his trial.⁶⁹ Otto Schiff has summarized their views as follows:

At the center of the new doctrine is the promulgation of a new messiah who will open the “third and last testament.” Mostly, he is called the “*unc-tus salvatoris*”.... He is not a learned man but illuminated by God like no one before. He has mystical insight into the *essentia divina* and the Holy Trinity, and only he knows the depths of the Holy Scripture, whereas earlier interpreters were blind and drunken men. The messianic prophecies of the Bible refer to him. He, and not Christ, is the savior, the apocalyptic

68 Reinhard Schwarz, *Die apokalyptische Theologie Thomas Müntzers und der Taboriten* (Tübingen, 1977), 5–7; Cohn, *Pursuit of the Millennium*, 237–39.

69 Recently discovered documents, apparently transcriptions of the Wirsbergers' original writings, may offer new insights into the actual teachings of the brothers. Cf. Günther Hägele's entry “Wirsberger-Prophezeiungen,” in *Die deutsche Literatur des Mittelalters. Verfasserlexikon*, (ed.) Kurt Ruh, 2nd ed., 14 vols. (Berlin, 1978–2008), 11:672–81. A preliminary evaluation by Frances Courtney Kneupper confirms that the Wirsbergers threatened the clergy with mass murder. The style of the documents reveals that the authors worked themselves up into an apocalyptic bloodlust and violent frenzy. Yet, Kneupper's study also sheds new light on the political agenda of the Wirsbergers. It places great emphasis on the distinction between lay believers communicating in the German vernacular and the corrupted clergy communicating in Latin, and it assigns a crucial role to the German Empire and the imperial cities in the upcoming revolutionary events. Frances Courtney Kneupper, “The Wirsberger Brothers: Contesting Spiritual Authority through Prophecy,” in *Völker der Endzeit. Apokalyptische Vorstellungen und politische Szenarien / Peoples of the Apocalypse: Eschatological Beliefs and Political Scenarios*, (eds.) Felicitas Schmieder, Rebekka Voss, and Wolfram Brandes (Berlin, 2016), 257–70.

Son of Man.... He is the adoptive son of God, i.e. apparently the son of God in a higher, spiritual sense. Moreover, he did not only come to redeem mankind but also God. Because of our sins, God has been burdened with suffering since the beginning of the world, and Christ is only a figurative representation (*figura*) of his suffering. Everyday God calls on the Unctus to deliver him from his suffering.

A Johannes de Oriente will precede the messiah as a new John the Baptist.... However, he will not only teach, but also use violence. Sent by God, he will kill the Antichrist, i.e. the pope (*Missus a Deo interficiet Antichristum, id est papam*). Generally, everyone speaking out against him will be ruined. He will transform the clergy into a new condition, and unite all mankind in *one* faith. This purified Christian faith knows nothing whatsoever of indulgence, excommunication, solemn rites, or the exterior Church. The people will not pray with their mouths but with their hearts. Yet the revolution will not only extend to religion, but also to state and society. The Unctus will rule the whole world like Caesar, Emperor, and God (*sicut Caesar et imperator et Deus*).... in this future Christian state the upper estates will lose their power: the clergy will no longer own property; the nobility will return to the cities, i.e. meld with the burghers.

The way to the Kingdom of Christ passes through upheaval and bloodshed. The role of the divine scourge against secular and ecclesiastical lords will be assumed by hosts of mercenaries.⁷⁰

The propaganda of the Wirsbergers caused a major scandal in Bohemia and the southern German lands. This uproar was not only because of the heretical content and not only because Janko sent his pamphlets to the emperor, various princes, and cities—even asking learned friars and several universities for their evaluation of his visions—but also because the Wirsberger affair was drawn into regional politics, internal controversies within the Franciscan order, larger ecclesiastical disputes between reformers and their opponents, and finally the conflict between the papacy and the “heretical king” of Bohemia, George of Poděbrady.⁷¹

70 Otto Schiff, “Die Wirsberger. Ein Beitrag zur Geschichte der revolutionären Apokalyptik im 15. Jahrhundert,” *Historische Vierteljahresschrift* 26 (1931), 776–86, here 783–85; my translation. It remains unclear to what extent these teachings originated from an obscure, anonymous Franciscan apostate mentioned in the documents, or from Janko himself. Cf. Patschovsky, “Die Wirsberger,” 234; and Hägele, “Wirsberger-Propheteiungen,” col. 1680.

71 Patschovsky, “Die Wirsberger,” 228–32; Schiff, “Die Wirsberger,” 778–79.

The scandal was large enough to come under academic scrutiny in a *Quaestio quodlibetalis* presented in 1465 at Erfurt University by the Augustinian Johannes Dorsten. Dorsten was the leading local intellectual, essentially a scholastic theologian but not without a tinge of humanism. Ruth Kestenberg-Gladstein has shown that the new heresy addressed by Dorsten was in fact that of the Wirsbergers.⁷² Most interesting, however, is the formulation of the *Quaestio*, which brings together Joachim and the new heresy: "Whether the third status of the world, which the abbot Joachim and the conventicle of the heretics imagine, is imminent."⁷³ In answering the question Dorsten proved his superior scholarship. He was just as familiar with the decree of the Fourth Lateran Council against Joachim's Trinitarian speculations as he was with the whole range of scholastic criticism of Joachim and the Joachites. Moreover, he had studied at least two major authentic works of Joachim, the *Liber de Concordia* and the *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, and had arrived at a surprisingly profound understanding of the abbot's exegetical logic.

Nevertheless, the overall characterization of Joachim's teaching bears the mark of the Franciscan transformation. It also seems that Dorsten regarded not only the *Super Hieremiam* but also Peter John Olivi's *Lectura super Apocalypsim* among the original works of Joachim.⁷⁴ He certainly used William of Saint Amour's apocalyptic warnings about the mendicants and the Joachites.⁷⁵ Consequently, Joachim was mistakenly credited with Gerard's doctrine of the Eternal Evangel and Olivi's teachings about the clerical *ecclesia carnalis*. According to the latter theory, the Church, after being corrupted by the clergy, would publicly commit adultery with secular rulers and betray its true bridegroom, Christ, and the few remaining true believers would suffer persecution. But before the dawn of the third *status*, all enemies of Christ would be destroyed, including the higher aristocracy,⁷⁶ the clergy, and even most

72 Ruth Kestenberg-Gladstein, "The 'Third Reich': A Fifteenth-Century Polemic against Joachim of Fiore and its Background," *Journal of the Warburg and Courtauld Institutes* 18 (1955), 145–95, here 258–60. This identification, however, has been questioned recently. See Kneupper, "The Wirsberger Brothers," note 3.

73 "Utrum tertius mundi status quem Joachim abbas ymaginatur et hereticorum conventiculum ..." I quote from the abridged edition of the *Quaestio de tertio statu* by J.B. Trapp in Kestenberg-Gladstein, "The 'Third Reich,'" 266–82, here 267.

74 Cf. Kestenberg-Gladstein, "The 'Third Reich,'" 261–62; and the notes to Trapp's edition, especially 272.

75 Dorsten, *Quaestio de tertio statu*, 269, 279. For the views of William Saint-Amour, see Brett Whalen, *The Dominion of God: Christendom and Apocalypse in the Middle Ages* (Cambridge, MA, 2009), 183–85.

76 On the conflict between the higher and lower nobility as a possible background of the Wirsbergers' propaganda, see Patschovsky, "Die Wirsberger," 239–40.

monks.⁷⁷ This is the basic revolutionary idea one detects in Rupescissa, the Wirsbergers, and later Thomas Müntzer: the creation of good order presupposes the destruction of the prevalent bad order.⁷⁸ It has little to do with Joachim's organic model of transforming the clerical Church into the spiritual Church.

In his *Questio* Dorsten also provides a most interesting heresiological theory that contains a conventional element insofar as it traces back all heresies to the Manichean archetype, for which Dorsten refers to Giles of Rome, Vincent of Beauvais, and Pope Leo I. Yet then he goes on to argue that two branches sprouted from the Manichean root, the Joachite branch and the branch of heretical movements, such as the Waldensians and Wyclifites.⁷⁹ In the revolutionary movements of the Hussites and the Wirsbergers, however, the two branches fused together.⁸⁰ Before he refutes the heretical errors, Dorsten lists the errors of the Wirsbergers. He emphasizes the idea of the second spiritual Christ, the imminent third *status*, and gives details about the brothers' radical and violent anticlericalism, which had grown into enmity against the Church as a whole.⁸¹ A considerable part of the *Questio* is also devoted to the rejection of apocalyptic calculations, but this may be set aside for now. Instead, I will turn to the preaching of Thomas Müntzer as the third and last example of a revolutionary invocation of Joachim of Fiore. Müntzer is of particular importance since his writings were well known and read carefully by revolutionary thinkers on the political left.

Dorsten's *Questio* shows that Thomas Müntzer may have been familiar with the revolutionary transformation of Joachism. Even if Dorsten presented the teachings of the Wirsbergers incorrectly, Müntzer still could have learned about revolutionary Joachism through Dorsten himself. In his early years, Müntzer was in contact with a humanist circle at Brunswick that was strongly influenced by the Erfurt masters.⁸² Dorsten, of course, had died two decades

77 Dorsten, *Quaestio de tertio statu*, 272.

78 "Zertrümmern des Schlechten, Aufbau des wahren Guten, was immer man sich darunter konkret vorgestellt haben mag—das ist bei allen Unterschieden im einzelnen der Grundzug sämtlicher Reformprogramme jener Zeit," Patschovsky, "Die Wirsberger," 238.

79 The charge of heresy, however, applies only to the Joachites, not to Joachim himself.

80 "Videtur igitur, quod ex Manicheis radicem sumpserit ymaginatio Joachim et ex ipsis Waldensibus et Wiclefitis, ex quibus Bohemorum et ipsorum modernorum error succrescit," Dorsten, *Quaestio de tertio statu*, 270.

81 "... totum autem statum ecclesiasticum collective simul Babilonem sive meretricem magnam appellat," Dorsten, *Quaestio de tertio statu*, 275. Cf. Maier, *Die Johannesoffenbarung und die Kirche*, 188.

82 Ulrich Bubenheimer, *Thomas Müntzer. Herkunft und Bildung* (Leiden, 1989), 110.

earlier, but his memory as a major figure of the university was certainly kept alive. A *Questio quodlibetalis* was a major academic event, and Dorsten's evaluation of heretical eschatologies certainly retained its relevance. We know of a disputation at Erfurt University in 1486 in which the *Questio* was again discussed, this time by Dorsten's student Johannes Palecz.⁸³ However, Müntzer could have encountered the *Questio* as an exemplar at any point in his academic career. Further evidence of this possibility is the fact that Müntzer not only refers positively to Joachim in his works, but simultaneously ridicules his scholarly opponents—does he have Dorsten in mind, or Palecz? A number of striking parallels also suggest that Müntzer may have known about the prophecies of Rupescissa. However, I cannot provide philological evidence to support this assumption.

Müntzer explicitly refers to Joachim only once in a letter to Hans Zeiss, the intendant of the Saxon Elector Frederick the Wise at Allstedt. The background is the following: on Easter 1523 Müntzer arrived in Allstedt. The small town was at the center of a small enclave belonging to Electoral Saxony and was therefore ruled by pro-Reformation princes who had provided protection for Martin Luther. The authorities in control of the surrounding territories, however, were orthodox Catholics. After less-successful attempts in several other places, Müntzer carried out a highly successful reform of the Allstedtian church community within a short period of time. His pioneering translation of the mass into the German vernacular in Allstedt had drawn large numbers of believers to his service, including those from outside the enclave. Moreover, Müntzer could count on the almost unanimous support of Allstedtian citizens, including the town councilors. His self-confidence assumed almost pathological dimensions. He felt that his reform was gaining ground and was convinced that Allstedt was the nucleus of nothing other than a universal transformation of Christianity.

However, Count Ernst of Mansfeld, who ruled over one of the neighboring territories, strictly opposed any novelty in the Church and forbade the people to attend Müntzer's service. Müntzer was outraged and turned to the princes. In a letter, he reminded Frederick the Wise that his sword had been given to him by God in order to protect the believers and crush their enemies. Should he hesitate to fulfill his duty, "then the sword will be taken from them and will be given to the people who burn with zeal (*dem ynbrunstigen volke*) so that the godless can be defeated."⁸⁴ In Allstedt, Müntzer's language turned more

83 Kestenbergl-Gladstein, "The 'Third Reich,'" 263–65.

84 *The Collected Works of Thomas Müntzer*, trans. Peter Matheson (Edinburgh, 1988), 69–70; translation slightly altered; *Thomas-Müntzer-Ausgabe. Kritische Gesamtausgabe*, (ed.) Helmar Junghans, 3 vols. (Leipzig, 2004–2010), 2: 205–06.

and more violent. Convinced of his divine mission, he was not ready to allow any obstruction of his reformatory activities; as a result, clerics, monks, and secular rulers—virtually anyone who opposed him—had to be annihilated. If the princes would not act, then the populace would take matters into its own hands. This is also the message of Müntzer's famous *Sermon to the Princes* delivered before Frederick's brother and expectant successor, Duke John, and his son, Electoral Prince John Frederick, at the Castle of Allstedt:⁸⁵ "... one should kill the godless rulers, especially the monks and the priests who denounce the Holy Gospel as heresy and yet count themselves as the best Christians."⁸⁶

In his efforts to win the Saxon princes over to his side, their intendant Zeiss was an important ally and mediator. Müntzer's letter to Zeiss (2 December 1523) falls in between those two calls for revolution: the letter to Frederick (4 October 1523) and the sermon given to his brother John (13 July 1524). The letter, at least the print version, is also implicitly directed against Martin Luther and his companion Georg Spalatin. Both hoped that the Saxon princes would contain the preacher of Allstedt, whose agitation was becoming increasingly worrisome. Only the print version contained the reference to Joachim of Fiore and was published as an appendix to Müntzer's treatise *On Counterfeit Faith* (*Von dem getichten glawben*). This treatise rejects the orthodox Catholic as well as the Lutheran concept of faith. Müntzer denies that Christ's crucifixion saves believers from undergoing the same sacrifice. According to him, every single member of the Church, as the body of Christ, must suffer through the deepest affliction, doubt, and despair. Those who have not experienced extreme suffering cannot be receptacles of the true faith.⁸⁷ Müntzer writes that Zeiss has forgotten one important aspect, a secret message for which the mad (*wansinnige*) world is not yet ready. Müntzer's understanding of faith cannot be taught by priests, especially if they are *vnuersuchte menschen*, men who have not been afflicted by suffering and despair.⁸⁸ It must be taught by God himself. Textual exegesis must be overcome by immediate spiritual teaching, and he concludes:

You also ought to know that this doctrine is attributed to the abbot Joachim and with great disdain addressed as the eternal evangel.

85 For more details see Matthias Riedl, "Apocalyptic Violence and Revolutionary Action: Thomas Müntzer's *Sermon to the Princes*," in *A Companion to the Premodern Apocalypse*, (ed.) Michael A. Ryan (Leiden, 2016), 260–96.

86 *Collected Works of Thomas Müntzer*, 251; *Thomas Müntzer: Schriften und Briefe. Kritische Gesamtausgabe*, (ed.) Günther Franz (Gütersloh, 1968), 262.

87 *Collected Works of Thomas Müntzer*, 214, 223–24; *Thomas Müntzer: Schriften und Briefe*, 218, 224.

88 *Thomas Müntzer Ausgabe*, 2:216–17.

The testimony of the abbot Joachim is great in me. I have only read his work on Jeremiah. However, my doctrine is from high above. I do not take it from him, but from the speech of God, as I currently try to prove with all the biblical scriptures.⁸⁹

The meaning of this sentence is relatively clear: just like John of Rupescissa and Janko Wirsberger, Thomas Müntzer insists that his spiritual knowledge has been given to him directly by God. Nevertheless, he recognizes it as being identical to the doctrine of Joachim of Fiore. Of course, he could not have known that the *Super Hieremiam* was not an original writing of the abbot. Nevertheless, the reference to Joachim is not totally out of place. As the *Sermon to the Princes* shows, Müntzer expected a universal Pentecost in the imminent future. In this way God would bring about the reformation of the world—a reformation that would require action, even revolutionary action:

He will release [the Christian people] from their shame and pour out his spirit over all flesh; and our sons and daughters will prophesy and have dreams and visions, etc. For if the Christian people are not to become apostolic,... what is the point of preaching at all?... It is true—I know it for a fact—that the spirit of God is revealing to many elect and pious men at this time the great need for a full and final reformation in the near future (*eine treffliche unüberwintliche zukünftige reformation*). This must be put into action (*vollfüret werden*).⁹⁰

The abbot expected a universal Pentecost in the immediate future and was also convinced that in the future age the Spirit would not only speak to a small group of apostles, but to all mankind and turn it into a universal charismatic community.⁹¹ Like Müntzer, Joachim believed that all clerical teaching

89 "Ir solt auch wissen, das sie dise lere dem apt Joachim zuschreiben vnd heissen sie ein ewiges euangelion im grossem spott. Bey mir ist das getzewgniß abates Joachim groß. Ich hab in alleine vber Jeremiam gelesen. Aber meine leer ist hoch droben, ich nym sie von im nicht an, sundern vom außreden Gotis, wie ich dan zurzeit mit aller schrift der biblien beweisen wil," *Thomas-Müntzer-Ausgabe*, 2:216–17.

90 *Collected Works of Thomas Müntzer*, 244; *Thomas Müntzer: Schriften und Briefe*, 255.

91 "Quid vero des Spiritu sancto? 'Multa,' inquit; 'habeo vobis dicere; sed non potestis portare modo. Cum autem venerit ille Spiritus veritatis, docebit vos omnem veritatem.' Hoc promissum per paucis completum est, hoc est, apostolis, licet legamus apostolum dicentem: 'Ex parte cognoscimus, et ex parte prophetamus; cum autem venerit quod perfectum est, evacuabitur quod ex parte est.' Restat ergo ut sacramentum istud taliter completum esse dicamus, ut tamen Paschae quo datum est primo apostolis munus illud, tempus tertii status accipiamus in quo accepturi sumus plenius ad contemplandum, quod ad bene

would cease in the moment, where the voice of the Spirit spoke within believers.⁹² Yet, unlike Joachim, Müntzer was convinced that spiritual knowledge prompted revolutionary action. In this respect, his thought also went beyond Rupescissa and the Wirsbergers. The revolution would not be carried out by others, but by Müntzer himself and everybody else awakened by the Spirit. This revolutionary community was not necessarily composed of the “people”; indeed, Müntzer would have preferred to count on the military leadership of the princes. Yet, he was also convinced that everyone who would not join him would have to be eliminated.

The evidence of Joachite symbolism in Müntzer’s writings is rather scarce. The idea of an Age of the Spirit is there but not the threefold scheme of history. Yet, a short glance at the work of Müntzer’s printer, Hans Hergot, shows that Joachim’s symbols were actually used for expressing the revolutionary experience of 1524–25. *On the New Transformation of the Christian Life* (*Von der neuen wandlung eines Christlichen Lebens*) is a short treatise the printer authored himself, and for which he was later executed. The first section of the text, probably written during the Peasant War in 1525, begins with the following paragraph:

Three transformations have taken place. God the father brought about the first with the Old Testament. God the son brought about the second transformation of the world in the New Testament. The holy spirit will bring about the third change with a future transformation of the bad situation in which people now find themselves. In order to promote the honor of God and the common good, I, a poor man, know those things that are in the future: that God will humble all social estates, villages, castles, ecclesiastical foundations, and cloisters. And he will institute a new way of life in which no one will say, “That is mine.”⁹³

operandum hactenus accepisse videmur, gratia bonis data per gratia,” *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Burger, 48. “Quae quidem in secundo statu vix in paucis hominibus occulte operata est, in tertio sollemniter et aperte revelanda est ...,” *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Burger, 43. Cf. *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*, (ed.) Santi, 103; *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Burger, 72; and *Expositio in Apocalypsim*, fol.17va.

92 “Et non docebit ultra vir proximum suum, et vir fratrem suum dicens: cognoscite dominum; omnes enim congnoſcent me a minimo usque ad maximum,” Conc. V, 68, fol.96vb. “Et quidem erit vox Spiritus loquentis in filiis adoptionis ...,” *Tractatus super quatuor evangelia*, (ed.) Santi, 118.

93 Hans Hergot, “On the New Transformation of the Christian Life,” in *The Radical Reformation*, (ed.) Michael G. Baylor (Cambridge, 1991), 210–25, here 210. For an analysis of the

7.5 Communism

The four episodes of John of Rupescissa, the Wirsberger brothers, Johannes Dorsten, and Thomas Müntzer have illustrated that the image of Joachim as a prophet of revolution was not invented by communists; rather, it was fully developed by the early 16th century. At this point, I must leap over three centuries. This is justified as I do not endeavor to provide a complete overview of references to Joachim of Fiore in European intellectual history, but instead aim to explain the appearance of Joachim and his symbols in the context of modern mass movements. In this respect, Gotthold Ephraim Lessing's Third Age of enlightened tolerance and rational religion is rather irrelevant, despite the clear reference to Joachim. Certainly, the German idealists kept the memory of the Calabrian abbot alive, most notably in the works of Johann Gottlieb Fichte and Friedrich Wilhelm Joseph Schelling, but in a way that historical materialists could not easily relate to. The evidence of their writings rather suggests that their interest in Joachim of Fiore emerged not from reading philosophy but from reading history.

Socialists discovered Joachim of Fiore after they had discovered Thomas Müntzer. The most important author in this respect, however, was not a socialist himself. Wilhelm Zimmermann (1807–1878) was a reformed theologian, historian, poet, and politician.⁹⁴ He was a devout republican and a democrat, which was considered a radical position at the time. In the Frankfurt Assembly, the first freely elected German parliament created as a result of the 1848 revolution, he joined the left and was closely allied with Robert Blum. Consequently, he opposed the parliament's decision to offer the Prussian King Friedrich Wilhelm the crown as the German Emperor. After the revolution and the attempt to create a German national state failed, Zimmermann lost his position as a professor at the Polytechnische Hochschule in Stuttgart because of his revolutionary activities. He withdrew from politics, worked as a pastor, and in his late years even turned into an admirer of Otto von Bismarck.

During the years 1841–43 Wilhelm Zimmermann published the three volumes of his *Allgemeine Geschichte des großen Bauernkrieges*, a seminal work in three respects.⁹⁵ Firstly, it is the most comprehensive account of the German

text, see Ferdinand Seibt, *Utopica. Zukunftsvisionen aus der Vergangenheit* (Munich, 2001), 90–104.

94 I take this biographical information from Norbert Conrads, *Wilhelm Zimmermann (1807–1878) Ein Stuttgarter Historiker* (Stuttgart, 1998).

95 Wilhelm Zimmermann, *Allgemeine Geschichte des großen Bauernkrieges. Nach handschriftlichen und gedruckten Quellen*, 3 vols. (Stuttgart, 1841–43).

Peasant War and remains a standard reference up to the present day. Secondly, it is the first account of the Peasant War based on meticulous and pioneering archival research. Thirdly, it is the first history of the Peasant War that shows sympathy for the insurrection of the lower classes. This sympathy is grounded in a Hegelian perspective that views wars and revolutions as necessary events in the course of history.⁹⁶ The revolutionaries often do not recognize the higher aims of providence that they serve, yet they contribute to the universal realization of mankind's ultimate goal: liberty.⁹⁷ Written during the pre-revolutionary *Vormärz* period, Zimmermann's book could be interpreted as a justification of the French Revolution and as an exhortation to carry out the revolution in Germany.⁹⁸ At one point, Zimmermann even presents the French Revolution as historical-dialectical revenge for the Peasant War. While in the Peasant War the aristocracy had brutalized the people, the French Revolution reversed the situation.⁹⁹

Zimmermann the leftist theologian and charismatic teacher could most easily identify with the protagonists whom he called the "movement men" (*Bewegungsmänner*), who, in his view, had taken on the role of the apostles in the early Church. They spread their teachings among the people, "in which the political and the religious elements were completely interpenetrated, and, so to speak, a religious-democratism and political-revolutionary principles sprouted from the root of religion.... Their goal was nothing less than

96 For more on Zimmermann's Hegelianism and his general "intellectual frame of reference," see Abraham Friesen, *Reformation and Utopia: The Marxist Interpretation of the Reformation and its Antecedents* (Wiesbaden, 1974), 76–113.

97 "Ihm [dem Historiker; M.R.] sind Ländereroberungen und Völkerrevolutionen, die Donner des Kriegs und der Schlachten nur Symphonien des göttlichen Geistes, notwendig in dem großen Weltgedicht, das Geschichte der Menschheit heißt. Ist eine Vorsehung, so müssen auch die empörten Elemente ihren höheren Zwecken dienen, und es muss auch aus dem Walten der bösen Kräfte, aus wilder Gärung und Strömen Blutes das Gute hervorgehen. Sind doch im Wetter voll Blitzen und Donnern himmlische Kräfte: es befruchtet und erfrischt, indem es erschüttert und schreckt. Die Menschheit muss fort sich neu schaffen, die Völker müssen zu höherer Befähigung sich durcharbeiten, ihr letztes Ziel durch Kampf sich erstreiten. Dieses Ziel aber ist Freiheit," Zimmermann, *Der große Bauernkrieg*, 13; orthography modernized.

98 Conrads, *Wilhelm Zimmermann*, 20.

99 "Der dem Bauernkrieg inwohnende Geist ist der nämliche Geist, der dritthalbhundert Jahre später das ganze Staatsgebäude Europas erschütterte und umwandelte. 1525 blutete das Volk, 1790 verblutete die Aristokratie. Jeder Schuld folgt ihre Rache, jedem Opfer seine Sühne, jeder Aussaat auf dem Boden des Lebens ihre Frucht," Zimmermann, *Der große Bauernkrieg*, 3:907.

revolution, the establishment of a Christian republic."¹⁰⁰ Zimmermann thus integrates the movement into his general theory of revolution: the natural voice of reason makes the people recognize the injustice inflicted upon them, yet only where the sense of material injustice meets the zeal of religiously-inspired preachers will the people begin to revolt. Zimmermann identifies Thomas Müntzer as the most interesting of these "movement men." But what is this religious root from which the revolutionary principles sprout? The most significant influence, Zimmermann writes, comes from Joachim of Fiore.¹⁰¹

As Zimmermann claims, Joachim described the transition to the third *status* as a tribunal (*Strafgericht*) for the clergy. The Church as a material manifestation will be burned down by fire from within. Whereas the Holy Spirit will teach humans directly inside their hearts, priesthood and theology (*Priester und Lehrstand*) are redundant and will come to an end.¹⁰² Christianity as a whole will become one single spiritual community. Zimmermann attributes the idea of an Eternal Evangel of the Spirit, replacing the letter of the Bible, not to the Joachites but to Joachim himself. Thus, Zimmermann concludes, "in Müntzer the revolutionary ideas of abbot Joachim turned into revolutionary action (*That*); the former's mysticism and propheticism turned into fanaticism in the latter—a fanaticism not of dogma but of the drive to create universal bliss (*Weltbeglückungstrieb*)."¹⁰³

Clearly, Zimmermann interprets the Franciscan transformations of Joachim's teachings as the abbot's original message. This can be explained partly by the fact that Zimmermann includes—often almost literally—many passages from the Church histories written by the Protestant theologian and Church historian August Neander.¹⁰⁴ Neander, however, presents the teachings of Joachim mainly through the example of the commentary *Super Hieremiam*.¹⁰⁵ This text is now known to be a work of Pseudo-Joachim with a complicated history, but it certainly accounts for the emergence of the mendicant orders, and, in later versions, it underwent Franciscan redaction.¹⁰⁶

100 Zimmermann, *Der große Bauernkrieg*, 1:378–79. Cf. 2:48–53; all translations from Zimmermann are mine.

101 "[A]m unverkennbarsten übte der Calabrese, Abt Joachim, der Prophet des zwölften Jahrhunderts Einfluß auf ihn," Zimmermann, *Der große Bauernkrieg*, 2:55.

102 Zimmermann, *Der große Bauernkrieg*, 2:55–56.

103 Zimmermann, *Der große Bauernkrieg*, 2:64.

104 August Neander, *Allgemeine Geschichte der christlichen Religion und Kirche*, 6 vols. (Hamburg, 1826–1852). Volume 5, containing the chapter on Joachim, was published in 1841.

105 Neander, *Allgemeine Geschichte*, 5:425–32.

106 Cf. Robert Moynihan, "The Development of the 'Pseudo-Joachim' Commentary 'Super Hieremiam': New Manuscript Evidence," *Mélanges de l'École française de Rome. Moyen-Age, Temps modernes* 98, no. 1 (1986), 109–42, here 136–37.

In their accounts of Joachim's teachings, both Zimmermann and Neander refer to the Protestant theologian Johann Georg Veit Engelhardt's *Kirchengeschichtliche Abhandlungen* (1832), yet both fall behind the high standard of scholarship set by Engelhardt.¹⁰⁷ Engelhardt's work is based on a careful reading of Joachim's main works in which Engelhardt tries to differentiate as much as possible between Joachim and Joachites. He even recognizes that the *Super Hieremiam* is a radicalized version of Joachim's teachings and is therefore most likely not an authentic work of the abbot.¹⁰⁸

Unsurprisingly, Zimmermann preferred Neander's less differentiated account. His choice was not for scholarly but for political reasons, as he wished to draw a line of revolutionary thinking from Joachim via Thomas Müntzer to the French Revolution and his own situation in pre-revolutionary Germany during the 1840s. Since Müntzer, according to his own words, had only read the *Super Hieremiam*, a Joachite work with clear Franciscan overtones, Zimmermann's narrative required a reversal of all the historiographical differentiations achieved by Engelhardt. Unfortunately, he thereby set the model for the subsequent treatment of Joachim in socialist literature. Mediated through Zimmermann's narrative, Thomas Müntzer and Joachim of Fiore became an inseparable couple in communist historiography, the embodiments of the leader and his prophet, just as Francis and Joachim had personified the revolutionary leader and the prophet in the Franciscan narratives. The next such coupling would appear in the work of Friedrich Engels.

In addition to Karl Marx, Friedrich Engels showed a keen interest in the Christian religion. In a very late essay on early Christianity published shortly before his death in 1895, he acknowledges the parallels between socialism and Christian eschatology, which both "preach the imminent redemption from slavery and misery."¹⁰⁹ Of course, even Engels does not deviate from the materialist perspective, insisting that the early Christian movement was an attack on the existing economic order carried out in religious disguise. Therefore, Engels claims, modern revolutionary traditions legitimately refer to Christian beginnings. Even earlier, however, the revolutionary core of Christianity came

107 Johann Georg Veit Engelhardt, *Kirchengeschichtliche Abhandlungen* (Erlangen, 1832), 32–95. Engelhardt's account is based on a close reading of Joachim's major works: *Liber de Concordia*, *Psalterium decem Chordarum*, and *Expositio super Apocalypsim*. Surprisingly, in Abraham Friesen's extensive study of Wilhelm Zimmermann's historiography (Friesen, *Reformation and Utopia*, 76–145), including his view on Joachim, neither Engelhardt nor Neander is mentioned at all, despite Zimmermann's explicit reference to them.

108 Engelhardt, *Kirchengeschichtliche Abhandlungen*, 53–55.

109 Friedrich Engels, "Zur Geschichte des Urchristentums," in *Marx-Engels-Werke*, 43 vols. (Berlin, 1956–1990), 22:447–73, here 449; all translations from Engels are mine.

to the surface in various historical periods: during the Middle Ages, with the organization of the Bohemian Taborites, and finally in the German Peasant War.¹¹⁰ Engels had drawn the same historical line of revolutionary Christianity in a much earlier study entitled *The Peasant War in Germany*, first published in the *Neue Rheinische Zeitung* in 1850.¹¹¹

In a later preface, Engels readily admits that “the entire matter concerning the peasant insurrections and Thomas Müntzer is taken from Zimmermann.”¹¹² What had not yet been achieved was the integration of Joachim of Fiore and Thomas Müntzer into the narrative of dialectic materialism. In Engels’s view, Zimmermann’s study “lacks inner coherence, as it fails to show that the religious-political controversies of this epoch are a mirror of the contemporary class struggles.”¹¹³ Zimmermann had by no means neglected the material conditions of peasants, but to him this was only “fuel” (*Brennstoff*).¹¹⁴ What set the fuel on fire was the religious element, and the inspired “movement men” were those who struck the sparks.¹¹⁵ Engels, on the contrary, wanted to get rid of these God-sparks; he wanted to turn Zimmermann upside down, as Marx claimed to have done with Hegel in his *Capital*.¹¹⁶ The fact that resistance against feudal order often assumed the form of religious heresy, wrote Engels, was only because the clerical Church had reduced intellectual life to theology.¹¹⁷

Engels presented Thomas Müntzer as a born revolutionary who already as a child suffered from the injustice of the feudal order and despised ecclesiastical and secular authorities. But his revolutionary agenda also had a religious source:

His main field of study was the medieval mystics, especially the chiliaric writings of Joachim the Calabrian. The thousand-year reign, the tribunal over the degenerate Church, and the corrupt world that the latter

110 Friedrich Engels, “Zur Geschichte des Urchristentums,” 449–50.

111 Friedrich Engels, “Der deutsche Bauernkrieg,” in *Marx-Engels-Werke*, 7:327–413, here 344–47.

112 Friedrich Engels, “Vorbemerkung zu ‘Der deutsche Bauernkrieg’ (Ausgabe 1870 und 1875),” in *Marx-Engels-Werke*, 7:529–42, here 531.

113 Engels, “Vorbemerkung,” 531.

114 Zimmermann, *Der große Bauernkrieg*, 2:49.

115 Zimmermann, *Der große Bauernkrieg*, 3:379.

116 “Auch in den sogenannten Religionskriegen des sechzehnten Jahrhunderts handelte es sich vor allem um sehr positive materielle Klasseninteressen, und diese Kriege waren Klassenkämpfe ...,” Engels, “Der deutsche Bauernkrieg,” 343.

117 Engels, “Der deutsche Bauernkrieg,” 343–44.

predicted and envisioned, Müntzer saw materialize in the Reformation and the general turmoil of the time.¹¹⁸

Except for the integration into the materialist narrative, Engels had nothing further to add to Zimmermann's analysis. He presented Joachim primarily as an anti-clerical millenarian. Apparently Engels saw nothing special in the Calabrian abbot, only an actualization of early Christian revolutionary chiliasm. Nevertheless, the impact of these words was enormous: Friedrich Engels, one of the two fathers of orthodox communism, had positively evaluated a medieval figure. As a result, some later communist writers developed an interest in the Middle Ages and Joachim, and 20th-century medievalists living in communist countries were provided with a legitimate research subject. The Soviet historian M.M. Smirin, for instance, wrote a voluminous monograph on Thomas Müntzer from an orthodox materialist perspective in which he dedicated no less than eighty-five pages to Joachim of Fiore.¹¹⁹

Karl Kautsky (1854–1938) was the most influential figure in the Second International (1889–1914), but not so much because of his original theoretical contributions. He rather continued a work already begun by Friedrich Engels: the transformation of Marx's work into a doctrinal system. From now on "Marxism" could serve as the ideology of the workers' movement and its political organizations.¹²⁰ Kautsky found a very telling analogy to these processes. Marxism was to be seen as the "new Evangel" written "for that part of the proletariat that was fighting for the general interest of its class, its *ecclesia militans* (Church militant)."¹²¹ Having developed a strong interest in biology

118 Engels, "Der deutsche Bauernkrieg," 351.

119 M.M. Smirin, *Die Volksreformation des Thomas Münzer und der Große Bauernkrieg*, trans. Hans Nichtweiss (Berlin, 1952), 97–182. Admittedly, Smirin made the effort to study the sources more carefully than his predecessors. Yet, the reading of Joachim's original writings could also challenge the Marxist narrative, as in the case of the East German historian Bernhard Töpfer. In occasional footnotes Töpfer reveals doubts about the materialist paradigm; for instance, when he recognizes that "questions about the relation between feudal lords and peasants lie completely outside of Joachim's area of interest." Bernhard Töpfer, *Das kommende Reich des Friedens. Zur Entwicklung chiliastischer Zukunftshoffnungen im Hochmittelalter* (Berlin, 1964), 48, note 3.

120 Otto Kallscheuer, "Marxismus und Sozialismus bis zum Ersten Weltkrieg," in *Pipers Handbuch der Politischen Ideen*, (eds.) Iring Fetscher and Herfried Münkler, 5 vols. (Munich, 1985–1993), 4:515–88. Leszek Kolakowski, *Main Currents of Marxism* (New York, 2005), 355–78.

121 Cited from Kallscheuer, "Marxismus und Sozialismus," 525; all translations from Kautsky are mine.

and physics in his early years, Kautsky emphasized the scientific character of Marxism and combined it with Darwinism, just as Engels had done in his later writings. Kautsky considered social history as a special case of natural history, and all past, present, and future events, such as the uprising of the proletariat, were part of necessary and natural processes.¹²²

Kautsky engaged in a number of historical studies in order to show that, under specific circumstances, certain social and intellectual constellations would emerge naturally. One of these studies was originally planned as a monograph on Thomas Müntzer and aimed to show to what extent the reformer's revolutionary activity was integrated into the causal processes of history.¹²³ Consequently, it became necessary "on the one hand, to proceed to the Anabaptists and, on the other hand, to go back to the communist sects of the Middle Ages and even to early Christian communism in order to gain clarity about what was specifically Müntzerian and what Müntzer had in common with the whole communist movement of his time."¹²⁴ Thus, Kautsky had to go beyond Zimmermann and Engels in his consideration of Müntzer's medieval precursors,¹²⁵ and the planned work on Müntzer thus turned into his two-volume study on the *Forerunners of Modern Socialism* (*Vorläufer des neueren Sozialismus*).

In the first part of the book, Kautsky attempts to show that the communistic groups of early Christianity emerged from the urban proletariat.¹²⁶ However, the growing wealth of the Church allowed the clergy to set itself apart as a distinct and independent class. This "clericalization" of the Church ultimately had fatal results, Kautsky writes: "From a communist institution it turned into the most gigantic machine of exploitation the world had ever seen."¹²⁷ After providing the material basis in a lengthy chapter on medieval wage labor, Kautsky sets out to explain the character of medieval communism. In Italy and southern France, where remainders of the ancient urban proletariat had survived, medieval communism emerged "naturally" in the form of monasticism.¹²⁸

The proletarian impulse toward communism placed the monks in opposition to the clerical Church, even though the Church occasionally managed to integrate and use these proletarian tendencies, as in the case of the Franciscans

122 Kolakowski, *Main Currents*, 382–86; Kallscheuer, "Marxismus und Sozialismus," 523–25.

123 See the preface to the second edition in Karl Kautsky, *Vorläufer des neueren Sozialismus*, 3rd ed., 2 vols. (Berlin, 1917), 1:5–12.

124 Kautsky, *Vorläufer*, 1:10.

125 Kautsky, *Vorläufer*, 2:41–42.

126 Kautsky, *Vorläufer*, 1:39–47.

127 Kautsky, *Vorläufer*, 1:51.

128 Kautsky, *Vorläufer*, 1:147–51.

and the Dominicans.¹²⁹ However, the Franciscan Spirituals resisted these pacifying efforts:

One can see that the strict Franciscans constituted a mediating link between monastic communism as a basis of medieval society and the proletarian communism of the time, striving to overturn the existing society. Already at this time there appeared a theorist of communism—even though only of monastic communism—the abbot Joachim of Fiore in Calabria.... Upset by the social ills of his time, especially the horrible, exploitative economy and corruption, which dominated the Church, he sought salvation from this dreadful state of affairs and thought he had found it in a generalization of communism—naturally in the cloistral form that corresponded with this time. He saw a revolution and a new society coming: the thousand-year realm the Apocalypse talks about.... The Roman Church will go to ruins in severe tribulations and from its remains a new society will emerge, the order of the just, which abolishes private property. A time of full liberty and full knowledge will begin.¹³⁰

Karl Kautsky treats historical evidence rather ruthlessly. He enforces a synchronicity between Joachim of Fiore and the Franciscan Spirituals. In this way, the Calabrian abbot turns into the spokesman for the radical mendicants and, consequently, the urban proletariat—the natural breeding ground for communist impulses according to Kautsky. Then, in the next paragraph, Kautsky quotes Thomas Müntzer's reference to the abbot in order to prove that the abbot's ideas continue to express the "vital needs of the masses."¹³¹

Thus, Joachim of Fiore's fame as a theorist of communism was firmly established. A quote from Ernst Bloch shows how various interpretations from Zimmermann to Kautsky found their way into Marxist philosophy:

The most momentous social utopia of the Middle Ages was created by the abbot Joachim of Fiore (around 1200). His aim was not to purify the Church and even the state from its horrors, he rather intended to abolish them.... Joachim teaches that there are three stages of history, and every one of them comes closer to the pursuable (*betreibbar*) [!] breakthrough of the Kingdom (*Reich*).... The third imminent stage is that of the Holy

129 Kautsky, *Vorläufer*, 1:162.

130 Kautsky, *Vorläufer*, 1:163–64.

131 Kautsky, *Vorläufer*, 1:164–65.

Spirit, or the illumination of all, in a mystical democracy without masters and the Church.¹³²

Due to Kautsky's role in the dogmatization of Marxism and the tremendous popularity of his works, his views on certain historical topics had a European-wide impact. The influential Italian Marxist Antonio Labriola, for instance, reminded Filippo Turati, co-founder of the Italian Socialist Party, in a letter dated 2 July 1897 that "... we must try to understand the mystic and ascetic agitation, which often came close to disrupting the papal empire, from the *theoretical communism* of Joaquin of Fiore to the *active resistance* of the Friars."¹³³ Labriola's terminology clearly bears the imprint of Kautsky. The following words of Ignazio Silone, one of the most eminent founding figures of Italian communism, also show how Joachim as the theorist, and the Franciscan Spirituals as the activists of medieval communism, amalgamated into an important building block of the Marxist historical narrative:

In our country the forms of rebellion, which have been more accessible to the vivid mind, have always been Franciscanism and anarchy. Among those who suffer most, the old hope for the Kingdom (*il Regno*), where charity takes the place of law, the old dream of Joachim of Fiore, the Spirituals, and the Celestinians, was never extinguished under the ashes of skepticism.¹³⁴

Likewise, a passage from the scenic monologue *Mistero Buffo* by the self-declared Italian folk poet and Nobel Laureate Dario Fo illustrates how the communist narrative entered popular culture:

Already Joachim of Fiore, who lived before the times of St. Francis and somehow could be regarded as the father of all heretical movements, said more or less the following: "If we want to endow the Church of Christ with dignity, then we have to destroy the Church, the great beast of Rome, the horrifying beast of Rome. And to destroy it, it is not sufficient to tear down the walls, the roofs, and the towers: we also must destroy those

132 Ernst Bloch, *Das Prinzip Hoffnung*, 5th ed. (Frankfurt am Main, 1998), 590–91; my translation.

133 Antonio Labriola, *Socialism and Philosophy*, trans. Ernest Untermann (Chicago, 1912), 139; my italics.

134 Ignazio Silone, *Uscita della Sicurezza* (Rimini, 1994), 69; my translation.

who govern it, the pope, the bishops, the cardinals.” Somewhat radical, this attitude.¹³⁵

The above examples from communist literature, which are only a small but significant selection, should have illustrated one crucial point: it is not a historiographical fad to draw lines between Joachite eschatology and communist expectations of the future. On the contrary, for many of communism’s founding figures, Joachim of Fiore was considered an important prophet and precursor. Historical materialism maintains that the dominant socio-economic trends of the present, especially the emergence and growth of the urban proletariat, have, on a smaller scale, been prefigured in earlier periods; for instance, as the *Vorproletariat* of the urban plebeians. Therefore, it is essential to identify prophetic figures, such as Joachim of Fiore or Thomas Müntzer, whose consciousness was determined by such prefigurations.¹³⁶ In the eyes of leading communists, the teachings of these revolutionary minds were necessarily premature—but nevertheless prophetic.

7.6 National Socialism

Is there a connection between Joachim of Fiore’s third *status* and the National Socialist Third Reich? The scholars quoted at the beginning of this chapter, as well as several encyclopedias and reference books, answer with a clear “yes.”¹³⁷ In their study on Joachim’s legacy in romanticism, Marjorie Reeves and Warwick Gould answer with a clear “no” even though their own claim that the Third Reich of the Nazis was a spontaneous derivation from an “independent historical sequence” is somewhat naïve.¹³⁸ The answer I put forward here is “yes, but it is complicated.” Certainly, one does not find an established interpretive tradition on the political right as in the communist case.

135 *Le commedie di Dario Fo*, (ed.) Franca Rame, 13 vols. (Turin, 1977), vol. 5 (no pagination); my translation.

136 This logic, as a background to the communist research on Joachim of Fiore, is nicely described by the Soviet historian Smirin in his “Die Volksreformation,” 97–100.

137 See, for example, Wolfgang Wippermann, “Drittes Reich,” in Wolfgang Benz et al., (eds.), *Enzyklopädie des Nationalsozialismus*, 2nd ed. (Munich, 1998), 435; Cornelia Schmitz-Berning, *Das Vokabular des Nationalsozialismus* (Berlin, 1998), 156; and Kurt Bauer, *Nationalsozialismus. Ursprünge, Anfänge, Aufstieg und Fall* (Cologne, 2008), 152.

138 “... the patterns of threes has an obvious political origin: the Hapsburg Empire was the first, the Bismarckian, the second, and now the third must be constructed.” Reeves and Gould, *Joachim of Fiore and the Myth of the Eternal Evangel*, 3.

Let me begin with a terminological clarification. The frequent translation of *tertius status* with Third Reich is tendentious because it makes a terminological equation without explaining anything. Yet, the translation is also not totally out of place since Joachim's third *status* refers to a partial, this-worldly realization of the Kingdom of God. However, in line with apocalyptic traditions dating back to the Book of Daniel, the abbot expected that the coming of the Kingdom would cause the dissolution of the imperial order. Yet, the German language does not easily allow differentiation between kingdom and empire. The concept of *Reich* implies the eschatological dimension—"thy kingdom come" is in German "dein Reich komme"¹³⁹—but the very concept also traditionally signifies imperial order. One can safely say that in the National Socialist concept, the eschatological and imperial dimensions merge, yet in the details there seems to have been no agreement among leading figures in the Nazi movement. Ultimately, there were two ways of conceptualizing the coming age, both originating from political prophecies that emerged on the political right during the Weimar Republic. The first, found in the environment of the so-called Conservative Revolution, postulated continuity between the coming Third Reich and the earlier German empires—the Holy Roman Empire of the German Nation and the Empire of 1871. The second, found in the early National Socialist movement, expressed a racist eschatology and therefore put it in opposition to the multinational character of the First Reich. Here the imperial dimension of the concept of the *Reich* was downplayed since empire was associated with the mixing of races. Of course, the lines between the Conservative Revolution and early National Socialism were blurred. Consequently, the first concept also found supporters among the National Socialists.

The most important representative of imperial continuity was Arthur Moeller van den Bruck, whose influential book *Das Dritte Reich* popularized the Third Reich as a key symbol of the political right.¹⁴⁰ However, when the book was published in 1923, the symbol of the Third Reich was already widely discussed among intellectuals. One of these discussions took place between 1895 and 1900 in the Berlin tavern "Schwarzes Ferkel" where the anti-bourgeois poet Richard Dehmel had established a round table of artists and poets—August Strindberg and Edvard Munch were among them. Building on the ideas

139 Cf. Claus-Ekkehard Bärsch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus. Die religiöse Dimension der NS-Ideologie in den Schriften von Dietrich Eckart, Joseph Goebbels, Adolf Rosenberg und Adolf Hitler* (Munich, 1998), 50.

140 Richard J. Evans, *The Coming of the Third Reich* (London, 2004), 121; Burleigh, *The Third Reich*, 75. The section on Moeller van den Bruck partly follows my *Joachim von Fiore*, 343–49, but has been substantially altered and improved.

of Henrik Ibsen, Dehmel and his friend Stanislaw Przybyszewski dreamed about the Third Reich as the liberation of human love from bourgeois constraints, as the harmonious union between man and woman—explicitly including the erotic dimension.¹⁴¹ The neoromantic author Johannes Schlaf presented in the same location his ideas of the Third Reich as an all-encompassing synthesis of various intellectual trends, including Christian mysticism, *Lebensphilosophie*, and Darwinism. The racial argument plays a certain role in Schlaf's theories, though in a way that is rather remote from the racism of the Nazis: "Namely, Schlaf expected the overcoming of all tensions and problems among humans in the future *third* humanist-humane phase of Christendom, implying especially the racial conciliation between the *Germanic* and the *Semitic* races. Only this racial conciliation would provide the preconditions for a synthetic universal culture of mankind."¹⁴² The young Arthur Moeller van den Bruck also attended the meetings in the "Schwarzes Ferkel."¹⁴³ However, after an experience of "national awakening" Moeller shifted toward the political right, albeit without abandoning the progressive self-interpretation of the Berlin group.

When re-conceptualizing the Third Reich in German nationalist terms, Moeller van den Bruck apparently also absorbed the actualizations of the Kyffhäuser myth about the return of Frederick II as he found them in the writings of Julius Langbehn.¹⁴⁴ More important, however, was Moeller's acquaintance with the Russian literary critic and novelist Dmitry Merezhkovsky. Merezhkovsky's tremendous influence on the German intellectual scene before and after World War I is probably still underestimated. Thomas Mann, for instance, praised Merezhkovsky as the second greatest philosopher after Friedrich Nietzsche.¹⁴⁵ Another enthusiastic reader of Merezhkovsky was Wassily Kandinsky, who lived in Germany during this period. Both Mann and Kandinsky made use of the symbol of the Third Reich. For Mann it signified the synthesis

141 Ruth Kestenbergl-Gladstein, "Das Dritte Reich. Prolegomena zur Geschichte eines Begriffes," in *Bulletin des Leo Baeck Instituts* 5, nos. 17–20 (1962), 276–81.

142 Kestenbergl-Gladstein, "Das Dritte Reich," 280; my translation, Kestenbergl-Gladstein's italics.

143 For a more detailed analysis of Moeller's life during this period, see André Schlüter, *Moeller van den Bruck. Leben und Werk* (Cologne, 2010), 19–86.

144 Kestenbergl-Gladstein, "Das Dritte Reich," 281–83.

145 Jutta Scherrer, "Pour une théologie de la révolution. Merejkovski et le symbolisme russe," in *Archives de Sciences sociales des Religions* 45, no. 1 (1978), 27–50, here 31; Hermann Kurzke, *Mondwanderungen. Wegweiser durch Thomas Manns Joseph-Roman* (Frankfurt am Main, 1997), 152.

of spirit and power.¹⁴⁶ Kandinsky, on the other hand, claimed to have received a visionary revelation of the Third Age of the Holy Spirit in which all spiritual movements in the arts and the sciences would merge into a “total work of art” (*Gesamtkunstwerk*).¹⁴⁷ As Kandinsky commented in an interview, his abstract art was to be seen as a prophecy of the Third Reich.¹⁴⁸ Kandinsky and Franz Mark published their seminal almanac *Der Blaue Reiter* with the publishing house Piper in Munich. In this milieu he may have encountered Moeller van den Bruck and his mentor Merezhkovsky, who were preparing the German edition of Dostoyevsky’s works for the same publisher.¹⁴⁹

Like many of his compatriots, Merezhkovsky had read some works of Schelling¹⁵⁰ where he may have first encountered the name of Joachim and the idea of a future third realm dominated by the spiritual Church of John.¹⁵¹ This triadic symbolism easily merged with the old myth of imperial Russia that depicted Moscow as the Third Rome, which also implied a universal unification of Christianity.¹⁵² In a letter to Tsar Vasily III in 1511, the monk Philotheus of Pskov formulated the original version of the Muscovite myth as follows:

The Church of ancient Rome fell because of the Apollinarian heresy, as to the second Rome—the Church of Constantinople—it has been hewn

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- 146 Thomas Mann, “An die Redaktion des ‘Svenska Dagbladet,’” in *Von Deutscher Republik. Politische Schriften und Reden in Deutschland* (Frankfurt am Main, 1984), 89–97, here 94. However, Mann also refers to Henrik Ibsen.
 - 147 Wassily Kandinsky, *Rückblick* (Baden-Baden, 1955), 29. Cf. Matthias Riedl, “Avanguardia e Apocalisse: il regno spirituale negli scritti di Wassily Kandinsky,” *Davar* 2 (2005), 46–63.
 - 148 Lothar Schreyer, *Erinnerungen an Sturm und Bauhaus* (Munich, 1956), 235.
 - 149 Schlüter, *Moeller van den Bruck*, 174ff.
 - 150 James H. Billington, *The Icon and the Axe: An Interpretative History of Russian Culture* (New York, 1970), 309–14.
 - 151 Schelling praised the liberty of the “third” and “true Church” of the evangelist John, the apostle of the future. It would lead to the conciliation between Jews and Christians and build upon the first Church of Peter and the second Church of Paul. He concluded: “These insights I present here, implying even their practical applications, I find conspicuously congruent with the thoughts of the abbot Joachim of Fiore ...,” Friedrich Wilhelm Joseph Schelling, *Philosophie der Offenbarung*, (ed.) Manfred Frank, 3rd ed. (Frankfurt am Main, 1993), 315; my translation, italics in the original.
 - 152 It is unclear if the Russian myth itself has Joachite roots. Apparently, Byzantine monasticism developed its own version of a Third Age of the Holy Spirit during the Hesychast controversy. See M. Lowell Clucas, “Eschatological Theory in Byzantine Hesychasm: A Parallel to Joachim da Fiore?” *Byzantinische Zeitschrift* 70, no. 2 (1977), 324–46. Also, the Slavophiles explicitly hoped for a realization of Joachim’s ideas in Eastern Christianity. See Hans Kohn, *Die Slawen und der Westen. Geschichte des Panlawismus* (Wien, 1956), 41.

by the axes of the Hagarenes. But this third, new Rome, the Universal Apostolic Church under thy mighty rule radiates forth the Orthodox Christian faith to the end of the earth more brightly than the sun.... In all the universe thou art the only Tsar of Christians.... Hear me, pious Tsar, all Christian kingdoms have converged in thine alone. Two Romes have fallen, a third stands, a fourth there shall not be....¹⁵³

From 1895 to 1904, Merezhkovsky published his once tremendously popular trilogy of historical novels, entitled *Christ and Antichrist*. In the second volume, *Leonardo da Vinci*, Merezhkovsky tells a legend that nicely illustrates the conflation of Joachim's symbols with the Russian imperial myth:

For a long period of time the orthodox popes venerated the white monastic cap [instead of the imperial miter; M.R.], until Emperor Charles [the Bald; M.R.] and Pope Formosus fell into the Roman heresy and acknowledged not only the heavenly but also the earthly power of the Church. At this point, an angel appeared to one of the popes and commanded him to send the cap to Byzantium, to the patriarch Philotheus. The latter received the sacred object with great honors and wished to keep it for himself. Yet Emperor Constantine and Pope Sylvester, appearing in his dream, commanded him to send the cap onward to the Russian land. "For the old Rome in her pride," said Pope Sylvester to the patriarch, "has fallen from the faith of Christ and submitted to the Latin seduction. Also in Constantinople, the new Rome, the faith will be destroyed: the godless sons of Hagar will root it out. In the third Rome, i.e. the Russian Empire, the grace of the Holy Spirit will shine forth. You shall know, Philotheus, that all Christian empires must come to an end, and, for the sake of the Orthodox faith, will unite in a single Russian Empire."¹⁵⁴

Peter and Alexej, the last part of the trilogy, ends with a Joachite vision. John the Evangelist appears and reveals the structure of sacred history:

¹⁵³ Cited from Billington, *The Icon and the Axe*, 58.

¹⁵⁴ My translation is from the German edition published by Piper in 1911. Dimitri Mereschkowski, *Leonardo da Vinci* (Munich, 1911), 689–90. Merezhkovsky recognized the inherent contradiction between the expectation of a spiritual Church and the hope for a global empire. Out of this contradiction he developed his own version of historical dialectics, which he elaborated in his trilogy. Cf. Marion Gras, *Die Religionsphilosophie von Dimitri S. Merežkovskij mit besonderer Berücksichtigung der Lehre der drei Testamente*, unpublished dissertation (Munich, 1955), 39ff.

There was an old Church, the Church of Peter, the unwavering rock; and there will be a new Church, the Church of John, the flying thunder. The thunder will smash the rock; and the water of life will spring forth from it. The first, the Old Testament, is the realm of the Father; the second, the New Testament, is the realm of the Son; and the third and last legacy is the realm of the Spirit.¹⁵⁵

While collaborating with Merezhkovsky in the publication of Dostoyevsky's works, Moeller van den Bruck must have learned about his mentor's prophetic ideas.¹⁵⁶ Moeller loaded the symbol of the Third Reich with German national ideas and contemporary speculation about a "third way" beyond Western liberalism and "Slavic collectivism." "It is a spiritual goal, but it also implies a political task," he wrote.¹⁵⁷ The third way was meant to offer a way out of the "misery of German politics,"¹⁵⁸ meaning the partisan conflicts of the Weimar Republic, parliamentarism, and the humiliation of the Versailles Treaty. Even though he remained quite vague regarding details, Moeller seemed to propose a "national Bolshevik" solution. The basic idea was, with respect to domestic politics, a union of the extreme right and the extreme left, and, with respect to international relations, a union of the "young peoples" (*Jungvölker*) of Germany and Russia. The joint forces would then smash destructive liberalism and its institutional manifestation in Weimar parliamentarism.¹⁵⁹ If Moeller had decided to entitle his programmatic book *Das dritte Reich* instead of using the original title *Die dritte Partei*, this was more than just a "happy afterthought,"¹⁶⁰ especially since he had used the symbol before.¹⁶¹ Moeller realized that for the projected union of nationalist and socialist forces a common eschatological perspective was needed.¹⁶²

155 My translation is from Dimitri Mereschkowski, *Peter und Alexej*, 2 vols. (Leipzig, no publication year indicated), 2:331–32.

156 Cf. Löwith, *Meaning in History*, 210–11; Bärsch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 49, note 4.

157 Arthur Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich* (Hamburg, 1931 [1923]), 320.

158 Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich*, v.

159 Cf. the chapters "Sozialistisch" und "Liberal" in *Das dritte Reich*.

160 Fritz Stern, *The Politics of Cultural Despair: A Study in the Rise of Germanic Ideology* (Berkeley, 1974), 253.

161 Kestenbergl-Gladstein, "Das Dritte Reich," 284.

162 Germany "was a country of the future that had not yet developed its inherent peculiarities and greatness. What it had lacked until now, a shortcoming that accounted for the failure of the recent past, van den Bruck declared, was a chiliastic ideal. The 'new' Germany, he asserted, had to be fired by the *idea* of the Germanic past and of Germany's potential

In the place of party tutelage we posit the idea of the Third Reich. It is an old and great German idea. It emerged during the decay of our first Reich. From early on it was connected to the expectation of a thousand-year Reich. Yet in it there still lives a political idea, relating, as it were, to the future; yet not so much to the end of time, but rather to the dawn of a German age. Only then will the German people fulfill its destiny on earth.¹⁶³

Moeller was convinced that the Third Reich would bring historical fulfillment in the final stage of “German-human history” (*deutsche Menschheitsgeschichte*),¹⁶⁴ which would transcend the “contradictions of our history.”¹⁶⁵ Despite his self-perception as a conservative thinker and despite his criticism of the liberal concept of progress, Moeller presented history as a progressive process.¹⁶⁶ The Reich, which had been promised to the German people, would increasingly become manifest against all obstacles and despite its inner contradiction—i.e. the contradictions between the greatness of the ideal and the pettiness of historical reality—would dissolve.¹⁶⁷ Moeller maintained that when the First Reich decayed, the eternal values of the German spirit (*die ewigen Werte des deutschen Geistes*) disengaged from the political realm.¹⁶⁸ Now, after the end of the Bismarckian “intermediate empire” (*Zwischenreich*), they must re-materialize in the political realm.

The idea of the Third Reich, the highest and last idea of our worldview that we can never abandon, can only come to fruition if conceived as an idea about reality (*Wirklichkeitsgedanke*)—but only if we accomplish its removal from the illusionary and its integration into the political.¹⁶⁹

future greatness; it had to revive and make operative in a new age the traditions of medieval messianism,” Georg L. Mosse, *The Crisis of German Ideology: Intellectual Origins of the Third Reich* (New York, 1981), 280.

163 Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich*, vii; all translations from Moeller are mine.

164 Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich*, 319.

165 Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich*, 308.

166 For more on the progressivist attitude of the Conservative Revolution, see Karl Dietrich Bracher, *Zeit der Ideologien. Eine Geschichte politischen Denkens im 20. Jahrhundert* (Stuttgart, 1982), 170–75.

167 Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich*, 319.

168 Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich*, 309.

169 Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich*, viii; cf. 320ff.

In sum, Moeller's Third Reich represents a synthesis of the spiritual realm and an earthly empire, and as such it is a direct analogy to the spiritual-imperial synthesis of Dmitry Merezhkovsky. Certainly, ideas about the future material manifestation of an ideal yet hidden Germany can also be found in German romanticism and in the circle around the poet Stefan George. But it was Moeller van den Bruck who connected all national hopes to the central symbol of the Third Reich. Even though Moeller himself rejected a racist conception of the nation and was less of an anti-Semite than most intellectuals on the political right,¹⁷⁰ his book had an important impact on the early Nazi movement.¹⁷¹

It is important to note that my analysis must necessarily focus on this early period. The symbol of the Third Reich was particularly important as long as the expected fulfillment still lay ahead in the future. Within the context of an existing National Socialist state, however, it soon lost its significance. When some people finally began to refer jokingly to a Fourth Reich the concept was even officially banned. The media was advised to speak exclusively about "The Reich" instead.¹⁷²

Another key figure in this early period was the racist poet Dietrich Eckart.¹⁷³ Eckart was Adolf Hitler's close friend who greatly influenced the Nazi leader and helped him to build his mighty propaganda machine. Eckart was primarily responsible for the creation of the National Socialist *Führer*-myth, and one could say that Adolf Hitler's cult of personality as a suitable *Führer*-type was his design.¹⁷⁴ In an awkward, unfinished pamphlet, which blamed the Jews for practically every evil deed in history, Eckart styled himself as Hitler's interlocutor. In his concluding remarks, the publisher expressed his hope that Hitler

170 Unlike the Nazis, Moeller did not believe that human nature itself could be improved. He called Social Darwinist concepts a "biological delusion." Moeller van den Bruck, *Das dritte Reich*, 244–45.

171 Moeller died in 1925, but he himself and other members of his "June Club" played an important role in the education of future Nazi leaders. Ulrich Herbert, *Best. Biographische Studien über Radikalismus, Weltanschauung und Vernunft 1903–1989*, 3rd ed. (Bonn, 1996), 55ff.

172 Christian Zentner and Friedemann Bedürftig, (eds.), *Das große Lexikon des Dritten Reiches* (Munich, 1985), 134–35.

173 Unlike most historians, Claus-Ekkehard Baersch considers Eckart's role more important than Moeller van den Bruck's. Bärsch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 52.

174 Bärsch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 147–48; Daniel Clay Large, *Where Ghosts Walked: Munich's Road to the Third Reich* (New York, 1997), 139.

would continue Eckart's work,¹⁷⁵ and it seems that Hitler in fact did so by writing *Mein Kampf*. In 1923, Eckart was arrested for participating in Hitler's Munich Putsch and died soon thereafter. Hitler subsequently commemorated him in the concluding words of *Mein Kampf*.¹⁷⁶ Claus-Ekkehard Baersch presents Eckart's conception of the Führer as follows:

The proper task of the savior of the existence of the German people is not only to establish the "Third Reich," but also to destroy the "evil" incarnated in the Jews. For their spiritual existence, the German people need vengeance, retaliation, and destruction. The faith in the charisma of Adolf Hitler is nothing profane, like some form of radiation, but something genuinely religious. And in the same way the salvation (*Heil*)—which, according to Dietrich Eckart, befalls the Germans to make them "fulfill the Third Reich"—depends on the destruction of the incarnation of evil. Thus, the charisma of Adolf Hitler and the hope for the annihilation of the Jews result from the same basic apocalyptic pattern of Eckart's ideology.¹⁷⁷

Here, a different understanding of the Third Reich is at work that has little to do with Moeller's sequence of empires. Besides Eckart, his friend and close collaborator Alfred Rosenberg, who would become one of the chief Nazi ideologists, contributed to the new conception. Moeller van den Bruck had accepted the first and second Reich as genuinely German empires; Rosenberg, on the contrary, wrote:

For us, thus, the Third Reich is not the ... continuation of the first Holy Roman Empire, but means the victory of all persons and ideas that stepped up against the universalism [of the First Reich] in all its forms ... The Holy Roman Empire of the German Nation is *not* the spiritual antecedent of the third, National Socialist Reich; we rather recognized its precursors in the rebels *against* the First Reich.¹⁷⁸

One reason for the reinterpretation of the Third Reich is racism, the understanding of history as the struggle of races, an outlook that Moeller did not

175 Dietrich Eckart, *Der Bolschewismus von Moses bis Lenin. Zwiegespräch zwischen Adolf Hitler und mir* (Munich, 1924), 50.

176 Adolf Hitler, *Mein Kampf*, 851st-855th ed. (Munich, 1943), 781.

177 Baersch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 148; my translation.

178 Cited from Frank-Lothar Kroll, *Utopie als Ideologie. Geschichtsdenken und politisches Handeln im Dritten Reich* (Paderborn, 1998), 149; my translation, italics in the original.

share. Eckart and Rosenberg abhorred the multinationalism of the Roman Empire, which continued in the form of the multinational Roman Church and the Holy Roman Empire.¹⁷⁹ True Germanism (*Germanentum*), Rosenberg argued, was always rebelling against this “ethnic chaos.”¹⁸⁰ In other words, Eckart and Rosenberg both depicted a universal struggle between light and darkness, between Christ and Antichrist.¹⁸¹ In this scheme, light signifies the interrelated ordering forces of Nordic racial purity, inner mystical experience, and active dynamism; darkness signifies racial forgetfulness, materialism, clericalism, submissiveness, and passivity, all produced by the Mediterranean chaos forces of Rome and Judaism.¹⁸²

But what, then, was the spiritual source of these rebellions, the true precursors of the Third Reich? Both Alfred Rosenberg and Dietrich Eckart’s theories point toward mysticism, to which the German race is allegedly favorably predisposed. Therefore, true inner Christianity is preserved by the German race.¹⁸³ While Rosenberg rejected the notion of the Trinity entirely, in Eckart’s writings, mystical speculation assumes the form of a peculiar, racist Trinitarian theology.¹⁸⁴ A collection of Eckart’s writings edited by Alfred Rosenberg includes a number of mystical poems. One is entitled *The Enigma* (*Das Rätsel*) and includes the following verses:

You are mostly enmeshed in the delusion of the world, Son of God;
 If you want to escape from it, your Holy Spirit will make an attempt;
 If you succeed, God the Father will contemplate himself in you—
 Does not the Trinity withstand every doubt?
 The New Testament wrested itself from the Old
 Just as your Self will once be redeemed from this world.
 And just as you will be estranged from the old delusion,
 Christ has rejected his Jewishness.¹⁸⁵

179 Alfred Rosenberg, *Der Mythus des 20. Jahrhunderts. Eine Wertung der seelisch-geistigen Gestaltenkämpfe unserer Zeit*, 143rd–146th ed. (Munich, 1939), 87.

180 Rosenberg, *Mythus des 20. Jahrhunderts*, 81–104; Eckart, *Vermächtnis*, 219.

181 Cf. Richard Steigmann-Gall, *The Holy Reich: Nazi Conceptions of Christianity, 1919–1945* (Cambridge, UK, 2003), p. 19.

182 For an analysis of Rosenberg’s view of history, see Kroll, *Utopie als Ideologie*, 145–49; for Eckart’s view, see Baersch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 93–98.

183 Baersch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 75–76.

184 Steigmann-Gall, *The Holy Reich*, 95.

185 Dietrich Eckart, *Ein Vermächtnis*, (ed.) Alfred Rosenberg (Munich, 1928), 112; my translation is literal and does not reproduce the rhyme. The discovery of Eckart’s Trinitarian speculation was first made by Baersch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 61.

It remains unclear whether Dietrich Eckart connected his Trinitarian mysticism to his triadic structure of history and “fragmentarily thought along the lines of a third testament of Aryan-mystical provenience,” as Claus-Ekkehard Baersch suggests.¹⁸⁶ Eckart certainly knew about Joachim of Fiore. Everyone on the political right had read Spengler, who presented the abbot’s prophecy of a Third Age as a “Germanic ideal.”¹⁸⁷ However, Eckart’s racism precluded the acceptance of a Calabrian abbot as a Germanic prophet. Nevertheless, in several respects his theological and historical concepts come quite close to revolutionary Joachimism, as characterized above. First, according to Eckart, there is no organic progression of revelation; instead, one testament fully replaced the other. Second, the establishment of the Third Reich requires the destruction of the present power structures. Third, the spiritual, anti-clerical forces that are pushing toward a new Christianity will play an active role in the events to come. Lastly, a leader will play a decisive role in bringing about the Third Reich. All these elements are submerged in Eckart’s frantic anti-Semitism, yet they remain visible.

The example of Dietrich Eckart also shows the problematic character of secularization narratives such as Karl Löwith’s theory. Like most Nazi leaders, including Hitler, Eckart believed in God and his providence. His conception of the coming Reich is thus no more secular than that of the Wirsberger brothers or Thomas Müntzer.

7.7 Conclusions—Joachim of Fiore’s Modern Legacy: A Reconsideration

Thus far, this study has shown how several writers with a decisive impact on the self-interpretation of modern mass movements have made use of Joachim’s symbols. It has also shown that lines of transmission can be traced from the abbot himself to the 20th century, even if the transmitted lore underwent several significant transformations. But what is the meaning of these phenomena? Is there more substantial common ground between the abbot’s teachings and what is commonly called “modern ideologies?” I certainly think so.

One commonality between Joachim of Fiore and a particular type of the modern intellectual is system-building. There was probably no book written before the 13th century that was as strictly systematic as Joachim’s *Liber de Concordia*. Joachim claimed nothing less than to understand the texture of history based on his two principles: the complete concordance of the testaments and

186 Baersch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 78.

187 Spengler, *The Decline of the West*, 363.

the threefold structure of the historical process.¹⁸⁸ As he emphasized, his exegetical work consisted essentially of the re-weaving of the historical fabric according to the basic pattern of parallel generations.¹⁸⁹ As in the case of the Hegelian, the Comtean, or the Marxist system, every single element of empirical history potentially had to be integrated into the system. Consequently, Joachim as well as modern thinkers constantly had to adjust their respective systems to new realities in order to preserve stability. However, since everything could not be integrated, the system-builders developed an astonishing capacity to ignore realities. This was also true for Joachim. Not only did he refuse to even consider alternative ways of thinking provided by contemporary Christian theology, he also ignored all historical developments that could not be related to the development of the Church that he identified with the historical process as such. Even within the Church he was blind to the steady increase of hierarchization and clericalization, trends that would have challenged his conception of history. Moreover, Joachim apparently overlooked virtually all economic, technical, social, political, and intellectual developments that modern historians consider as the main features of the “Renaissance of the Twelfth Century.”¹⁹⁰

Joachim did not accept, and probably did not even understand, the great achievement of Augustine, the differentiation between sacred and profane history that allowed for some degree of indifference toward the confusing complexity of empirical reality. On Judgment Day, Augustine wrote, we will understand God’s agency in history—but not a day before.¹⁹¹ For Joachim, on the contrary, the order of history was not confused (*nec confusus*).¹⁹² Every historical event had meaning, a meaning that was compatible with the overall system. He was obsessed with integrating an endless number of persons, collectives, and events into the system of *concordia*, and the bulk of his work was determined by this monomaniacal obsession. Augustine’s *civitas Dei* transcends empirical history since the elect of God, just as much as the reprobate, were to be found among all nations. Joachim, on the contrary, had to assign every collectivity to either the forces of God and Christ or of Satan and the Antichrist. Despite all his vows of humility, Joachim’s monomania ultimately resulted from the absolutely immodest conviction that he had insight into

188 Cf. the concept of *textura concordie* in *Liber de Concordia* 2.1.25, fol. 16rb, (ed.) Daniel, 126; *Liber de Concordia* 3.1.3, fol. 40rb, (ed.) Daniel, 294.

189 “... ad retexendam huiusmodi telam generationum veniendum est ...,” *Psalterium decem chordarum*, fol. 272va. For more details, see Brett Whalen’s chapter in this volume.

190 Cf. Charles Homer Haskins, *The Renaissance of the Twelfth Century* (Cambridge, 1927).

191 Augustine, *De civitate Dei*, lib. xx, 2.

192 *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Burger, 13.

the structure that God had given to history. Joachim's scheme resembles the idealist system-building of Hegel in which even the worst bloodbath was seen as a necessity, or the materialist system-building of Engels and Kautsky with its equivalent claim to the universal, systematic integration of all historical events.

Again, whether Joachim influenced later system-builders is not the most important question. It is more important to recognize the unifying principle behind the parallels: that history is a meaningful process leading toward the final realization of an original *telos*. Thus, whoever understands the meaning in the structure of history assumes the position of the infallible prophet with foreknowledge of the future. The same was also true for the Nazi prophets who were less proficient system-builders. Herein lies the decisive parallel between Joachim of Fiore and modern political prophets; namely, an attitude toward reality that I term "proleptic existence."¹⁹³ Joachim of Fiore as well as the intellectual leaders of modern mass movements derived the meaning of their existence entirely from their anticipation of the future. Their lives were dedicated to pointing forward toward the culmination of the historical process.

This dedication, however, gave meaning not only to the individual existence of the visionaries, but also to the existence of the collectives that accepted them as prophets: the Franciscan Spirituals, the communist parties, and the *völkisch* movements. They perceived themselves as proleptic societies, and within their own particular communities they believed they anticipated the structure of future society. Claus Ekkehard Baersch has described the proleptic attitude with the example of National Socialism:

Present reality is interpreted by a leap beyond one's own time and by the assessment of the present from the position of the "New Time." From the imagination of future causal processes, fights, and structures, consequences are drawn for the evaluation of present events. The Future becomes the principle of the perception of society and history.¹⁹⁴

Perceived participation in these future-oriented processes is the essential experience of modernity. Modernity is the anticipated, immanent actualization of the potentials transported by these processes—no matter if their character is primarily economic, political, scientific, or spiritual. This should not lead

193 Cf. Matthias Riedl, "Living in the Future: Proleptic Existence in Religion, Politics, and Art," *International Political Anthropology* 3, no. 2 (2010), 117–34.

194 Baersch, *Die politische Religion des Nationalsozialismus*, 45.

one to conflate Nazism and communism, yet in one respect both movements converged: they perceived themselves as distinctly modern movements.

Moreover, all instances of proleptic existence display a combination of two basic existential experiences: alienation and a progressive return to authenticity. The basic model was created by the Calabrian abbot, who first envisaged a completion of man's restoration in an inner-worldly future. In a lucid moment, Joachim once managed to summarize his idea of history in a single sentence: "Thus it is proper for mankind after the guilt of the first man to return gradually (*gradatim*) to the cognition of its creator, so it may be rooted in the first time of the Father, grow in the second time of the Son, and experience the sweet fruit in the Third Age of the Holy Spirit."¹⁹⁵ The narrative speaks about the loss of original innocence and the progressive, gradual return of mankind to a state of happiness—a future return that will take place in this world in the last stage of history.

The communist narrative, as originally outlined in Marx's *Economic and Philosophical Manuscripts*, is not so different. Man falls from primordial communism into a state of alienation. He does not lose his knowledge of God, as Joachim asserts, but the knowledge of his own natural being. Yet after a long historical process, man will return from alienation to authenticity when he achieves the reunification of existence and essence in the communist realm. Thus, the meaning of history becomes clear:

*Communism as the positive transcendence of private property as human self-estrangement, and therefore as the real appropriation of the human essence (Wesen) by and for man; communism therefore as the complete return of man to himself as a social (i.e. human) being—a return accomplished consciously and embracing the entire wealth of previous development. This communism ... is the genuine resolution of the conflict between man and nature and between man and man—the true resolution of the strife between existence and essence, between objectification and self-confirmation, between freedom and necessity, between the individual and the species. Communism is the riddle of history solved, and it knows itself to be this solution.*¹⁹⁶

195 Joachim of Fiore, *Praeaphatio super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) Kurt-Victor Selge, "Eine Einführung Joachims von Fiore in die Johannesapokalypse," *Deutsches Archiv* 46, no. 1 (1990), 85–131, here 102.

196 Karl Marx, "Die ökonomisch-philosophischen Manuskripte aus dem Jahr 1844," in *Marx-Engels-Werke*, 40:467–586, here 536; translation taken from *The Marx-Engels Reader*, (ed.) Robert Tucker (New York, 1978), 84; italics in the original.

As illustrated above, the National Socialist narrative is less sophisticated but not entirely different. It maintains that mankind falls from an original state of racial purity into “ethnic chaos” and finally finds salvation in the restoration of racial awareness and purity. The striking parallels between the myths of alienation and proleptic expectation allowed Joachite symbolic lore to be adapted easily. This lore was transmitted over many centuries, adjusting to varying political and intellectual circumstances. But the core group of symbols—the coming Third Age, the leader therein, the new order, and the prophet—was preserved. Thus, with only slight modifications, Eric Voegelin’s basic thesis still appears legitimate: Joachim’s long-term impact and significance is not tied to a specific social or political vision of the future; instead, it is found in the continuous relevance and attractiveness of the symbols that the abbot once created to articulate his unprecedented expectation of a future worldly restoration and perfection of mankind.

Even though Joachim expected the plenitude of the third *status* to last only for a short period, and even though he believed in a more sublime plenitude in the afterlife, he nevertheless pioneered the idea of an inner-worldly future that captivated the human imagination. This chapter has focused on revolutionary and totalitarian imaginations, yet as the chapter by Massimo Iiritano shows, Joachim of Fiore could just as much inspire anti-totalitarian visions of a future spiritual society.

The Reception of Joachim in Contemporary Theology and Postmodern Philosophy

Massimo Iiritano

8.1 Introduction

By now it seems accepted and acknowledged in philosophical and theological contexts that the presence of Joachim of Fiore has played a particularly important role in the elaboration and construction of the philosophical project of modernity. This presence has revealed itself most significantly in discussions concerning the rise and decline of the notion of the modern in the wake of the gradual secularization of an originally theological model, which Karl Löwith was the first to outline. Far less analysis has been made, by contrast, of the presence—which is certainly more hidden, but not for this reason less relevant—of the works and the message of the Calabrian abbot in so-called “postmodern” thought and in its contemporary theology.

In the present article, without intending to be exhaustive, I will simply attempt to present certain proposals as a basis from which to launch research and discussion on this theme, which seems to me relevant indeed for the present day. Referring to certain authors in whose works the presence of Joachim and his message is colored by an extraordinary and fresh actuality, I shall thus proceed to explore different possible readings that fundamentally follow the same line of thought inaugurated by Löwith. For in following the paths of the secularization of the Trinitarian theological model and the subsequent theology of Joachimite history, we discover unexplored trails that allow for possible interpretations of our own times in the context of postmodernism. These trails are marked by the uncertainty of a “post-,” which actually conceals a grounding crisis of identity.

The first level from which to start, it seems to me, is that of the reception and interpretation of Joachimite theology in the context of the debate concerning the origin and the signification of so-called “secularization.” For it is from this debate, which emerged at the beginning of the 20th century, that the contemporary world finally took its leave of modernity for good, and began to reckon with its burdensome “heritage.” In other words, the contemporary world is inaugurated with the realization of the end of an era, from which modernity

can be conceptualized as a slow and gradual process of “secularization” of the theological presuppositions inherited from the Middle Ages. But what does this mean more precisely? And what is Joachim’s role in this process?

8.2 The Roots of Secularization

Originally, secularization was a juridical term belonging to canon law, which indicated the expropriation of the goods of the church by the state. It is a historical operation with which the French Revolution inaugurated the contemporary era, and which was part of “a process of gradual expulsion of the authority of the church from the temporal world, over which the modern state ... raises a claim for exclusive rights.”¹ Soon enough though, the same term proved capable, again following the formula of Giacomo Marramao, of an “extraordinary semantic extension,” which led it to the “level of a genealogical category capable of summarizing or signifying in a Unitarian form, the historical development of modern Western society, starting from its (juridical)/Christian roots.”² To inquire into secularization thus entails:

... reach[ing] down to the roots of the divorce between Heaven and Earth from which the momentum towards the future has been released, projecting on a horizontal line—i.e. in historical time—the “vertical” relation—providing salvation, between the two dimensions of transcendence and immanence.³

In this reading, it is the constitutive act of modernity itself which is thus marked by a reversal of perspective in which the very sense of “historical time” and of our existence within it takes on an utterly new connotation with respect to antiquity. Thus, to exist means—in a Heideggerian sense—“to be thrown” into the world and into time, being propelled forward in search of a sense, which, here and now, we are not given. In this reversal of perspective, there is an implicit “futuro-centric” projection in which the break with what used to be the cyclical and sacred paradigm of antiquity is fully expressed. In it, a crucial historical space is thereby opened for the future of this “novelty” contained in the Judeo-Christian scriptures, which had not yet been fully liberated from the all-inclusive shell of classical thought. It is in this sense that, as shall become

¹ Giacomo Marramao, *Cielo e terra. Genealogia della secolarizzazione* (Rome-Bari, 1994), 19.

² *Ibid.*, 13f.

³ *Ibid.*, 6.

clearer below, the theological contribution of the history of Joachimite inspiration will be crucial. Indeed, Ernst Bloch has argued that:

... the greatness of Joachim of Fiore consists in his having transformed the triad handed down by the simple points of view into a triadic classification of history. The complete transposition of the reign of light, moving it from the afterlife and from the consolation of the afterlife, to history, though at a final stage of history, had even greater consequences.⁴

Thus appeared Joachim in the eyes of Bloch, for whom Joachim had created “the social utopia with the most repercussions of the Middle ages,” “an absolutely historical dream” that “has passed through long historical periods and penetrated into distant lands,”⁵ and which finally reached, defeated and distorted, our own troubled times, still demonstrating all of its actual validity. Andrea Tagliapietra has written that:

... the axis of history extends forwards, towards the future ... Here, the three sides of the Joachimite prism converge in the name of hope. Or rather, in the exercise of this hope, against the wall of obviousness which never ceases to throw back his “dream with open eyes” in the crisis of every present time, with the same desperation of contemporary nihilism.⁶

But this is only one of the many possible lines of convergence one can draw in an attempt to outline the presence of Joachim in contemporary philosophy and theology. These convergences, however, should not induce one to lose sight of the need to consider the complexity of the crucial question that is the starting point: namely, the signification of “secularization” as the key through which to interpret modernity—a key which immediately betrays, as we saw, the path to self-awareness of the so-called “postmodern” times.

Bloch’s interpretation is situated in the wake of a rather significant and fertile line of 20th-century reception of Joachim. His analysis is part of a series of historical and “modernist” interpretations, which, despite the inevitable hermeneutical exaggerations, are crucial for understanding the relevance of

4 Ernst Bloch, *Das Prinzip Hoffnung* (Frankfurt am Main, 1959), 1328. The Italian translation is quoted from Ernst Bloch, *Religione in eredità*, trans. F. Coppellotti (Brescia, 1979), 214.

5 Bloch, *Religione in eredità*, 215.

6 Andrea Tagliapietra, “Il ‘prisma’ gioachimita,” introduction to *Gioacchino da Fiore. Sull’Apocalisse*, (ed.) A. Tagliapietra, (Universale economica Feltrinelli: I Classici) (Milan, 1994), 50.

Joachim in the modern era. The hermeneutical hypothesis is, fundamentally, the belief that it is possible to trace the breach within the theology of Joachimite history, which opens up the secluded logic and metaphysics of medieval scholastic theology to the future. This is the risky and desecrating future of secularization, which is the basic element of the experience of modernity. Already Grundmann, one of the greatest scholars of the Calabrian philosopher, has regarded this view as characteristic of Joachim: "Joachim," he writes, "basically reports the given historical material in order to find his 'truth' at a theoretical, extemporal, idealistic, logical level, though he only values it as knowledge of a future historical reality."⁷ This is true to the extent that his "theological historicism" primarily contains the assumption of a method that is already radically different from those of the "doctors of his time."⁸ As Löwith has usefully defined it, Joachim's method is a "historical/prophetic method of allegorical exegesis,"⁹ which makes use of the paces and characters of the Scriptures not through the point of view of moralistic/anagogical roles (i.e., in any case, with a spiritualizing function), but rather as signs and characters of the same historical reality—past, present, and future. It is in such a context that we can understand the position of another great scholar of Joachim and a fundamental representative of Italian modernism: Ernesto Buonaiuti, who characterizes:

... the substantial difference between Joachim and all of his predecessors, both distant and closer ... For in the hands of Ambrose or Cassiodorus, and later of the Victorini, even of St. Bernard, symbolism and allegory are used with prevailingly theological, disciplinary, or moral intents. In the hands of Joachim, they become instruments and argumentations for his prophetic announcements; they take on the value of a method for signaling eschatological figures.¹⁰

Here Joachim's breach with tradition is obvious and represents the first appearance of the "heretical" originality of this medieval thinker. For indeed, without ever definitively distancing himself from orthodoxy—to which he

7 Herbert Grundmann, *Studi su Gioacchino da Fiore*, trans. S. Sorrentino (Genoa, 1989), 69.

8 On this point, cf. B. McGinn, "L'abate e i dottori," in Id., *L'abate calabrese: Gioacchino da Fiore nella storia del pensiero occidentale*, trans. P. Di Giulio and E. Di Giulio (Genoa, 1999), 219–47.

9 Karl Löwith, *Significato e fine della storia (Meaning in History)*, trans. F.T. Negri (Rome, 1963), 202.

10 Buonaiuti, *Gioacchino da Fiore* (Cosenza, 1984), 172.

always felt strongly tied, demonstrating his absolute loyalty to the fundamental “topoi” of traditional Catholic theology—Joachim nevertheless succeeded in breaking with the system at its “central point.” It is again Grundmann who brings this to light, showing that Joachim does so because “he has directed towards a future time those eyes fixed on the afterlife and has expected the ideal not in heaven but on earth.” Thus:

... he has restructured the ideas, the motivations and the forms of thought of the Christian/Catholic world such that, instead of being set in terms of the relation between this life and the next, they are inserted into a vision of time set in increasing degrees of perfection. The typological relations, the historical schemata, and the central ideas, which, for Catholicism, all concern, fundamentally, the transcending reign of truth and blessedness, are now oriented towards a final future time on earth.¹¹

A fundamental “epistemological breach” will thus come to light through these authors only at the end of the modern era once the structural trends of the period, at the time of their consummation, are finally able to reveal their hidden roots. From this perspective, the rediscovery of Joachim becomes fundamental not only in theology, but first and foremost from a purely philosophical point of view, as a determining element in the detachment from modernity, which is essentially what defines “postmodernism.” It is no coincidence that Karl Löwith, the author who has been our starting point in analyzing the presence of Joachim in contemporary times, gave the Calabrian abbot a place of extraordinary relevance in his reverse history of “theological presuppositions of the philosophy of history.” He makes the fundamental claim that the possibility of a coherent and unified philosophical understanding of history comes to a crisis and is gradually consumed by the modern secularization of the most grandiose theological paradigms.

Moreover, the “modern philosophy of history,” the German philosopher writes, “originates in the biblical faith in a future ending, and ends with the secularization of its eschatological model.”¹² In such a hermeneutical context, the presence of Joachim takes on an emblematic and crucial role. For he stands at the divide between the historical and the symbolic, between the metaphysical and the providential frameworks of medieval philosophies, and the humanist and rationalizing critique of them present in philosophical modernity. This is a critique that will, time and time again, represent (according to

11 Grundmann, *Studi su Gioacchino da Fiore*, 149.

12 Löwith, *Significato e fine della storia*, 24.

Löwith's vision) a new possible development of the same theological paradigm. This is grounded in an identical, preliminary understanding of historicity that holds modern thought at a distance from the ahistorical thought of classicism. As Löwith writes:

Joachim undertook the revolutionary attempt of outlining a new schema of periods of time and successions, which would broaden and substitute the traditional schema of the religious progress from Antiquity to the New Testament. The immediate object of this new interpretation of history as the history of salvation was the revelation of John with its symbolic characters and events.¹³

On the other hand, Löwith notes that the “general schema of Joachim’s acute interpretation is based on the theory of the Trinity. Three different orders are unfolded into three different eras in which the three persons of the Trinity are revealed one after the other.”¹⁴ The theory of the three *status* of the history of the world corresponding to the three persons of the Trinity remains, most certainly, the decisive element in every work of reception of Joachimite thought. The emphasis given to the “absolutely historical” perspective that the Trinitarian theory seems to open has led and still leads some interpreters to “transfigure”—as Löwith shows—the doctrine itself. Such transfigurations, before they can be traced back to the principal philosophies of modern history, already appear in certain hermeneutical tendencies taken up by the interpreters of Joachim in a modernist and historicist perspective, especially by Buonaiuti and Grundmann. Ernst Bloch gives perhaps the strongest interpretation in this sense—an interpretation that is inadequate with respect to the coherence of the literal Joachimite teaching, yet proves fruitful in the context of its broader and differentiated philosophical/theological legacy. Joachim, Bloch writes:

... convincingly represented the spirit of social Christian revolutionary utopia and in this light, he has continued to wield his influence. First and foremost, he established for the reign of God, i.e. for the communistic reign, a deadline, entreating to respect it.¹⁵

However, such an excessive transposition of the theological Joachimite categories, although providing significant space for the originality of this line of

¹³ Ibid., 197f.

¹⁴ Ibid., 201.

¹⁵ Bloch, *Religione in eredità*, 217.

thought, runs the risk of not adequately considering the heuristic and structural importance that the Trinitarian theology holds with respect to the historical process itself: it is not subordinated to it, but is rather capable of accounting symbolically for its eschatological truth. Bernard McGinn clearly outlines the terms of the question in the following way:

In the past, it has sometimes been claimed that the interweaving, theorized by Joachim, of the three persons with the course of history, represents the abandoning of the immanent vision of the Trinity, according to which the persons are distinguished in accordance with the processions and relations within the divinity itself ... but nothing could be further from the truth: for the abbot of Fiore, the Trinity always has primacy. It is not the case that the cosmos and history change in some way, or influence God, but rather that history must take on the structure it has, precisely because God, its creator, is three persons.¹⁶

In this way, the eschatological vision fully reveals the “historical determinism,” which, as McGinn writes, is characteristic of every authentic apocalyptic vision. But Joachimite originality consists precisely in re-conquering this determinism in a modernizing historical sense; namely, in the conception of history as a somehow absolute reality. This is Joachim’s wager, and it is in this that his modernity is affirmed. One might add that, it is in this that the modern conception of history begins to reveal itself: as a coherent process of secularization and of rendering the original theological category of the dominion of God immanent over the totality of time.

A historical faith, which is a “faith in a future time which is not yet eternity, but a worldly time, an earthly life like in past times,” does not at all eliminate, in Joachim’s work, the essential finality of the eschatological expectation, but rather becomes one with it. In this sense, the clarity with which Löwith distinguishes the characterizing specificity of such an “eschatological schema” into a “double *eschaton*” is fundamental. According to Löwith, the secularizing translation of this schema will increasingly tend to resolve into a radical form of immanence, which, in any case, is alien to Joachim’s original thought:

The eschatological schema of Joachim does not therefore consist in one millennium nor in the simple expectation of the end of the world, but in a double *eschaton*—a final historical phase of the coming to be of

16 McGinn, *L'abate calabrese*, 175.

salvation, which precedes the transcending *eschaton* of a new era, introduced by the second coming of Christ.¹⁷

Philosophical modernity will permanently transform the characteristic complexity of such a theology of history into a rational and secular faith within the progress of history. Joachimite theology acts as a source for this “religion of progress,” but also remains at the same time alien to it, as far as its own principles and ends are concerned. But who can establish a definite limit? Is there a limit? Löwith maintains that:

... the application of these prophecies to politics were neither foreseen nor intended by their author, but were the natural consequence of his method. For indeed, Joachim, opening the possibility of a radical revision of the ecclesiastical tradition with the proclamation of a new final order, implicitly contests not only the traditional authority of the Church, but also the temporal order of the *saeculum*.¹⁸

In the historical destiny of such a process of transfiguration and overturn, the very symbol of secularization, it is therefore not possible to reject a certain persistence of the intrinsic vitality of the Joachimite message, thus making it possible and reasonable for us today to search for traces of his “presence” in contemporary thought. “The discrepancy between the distant historical results and the sense of the original intentions,” Löwith concludes,

demonstrates that the principle of a derivation through a process of secularization is not equivalent to a causal determination. For this reason, the promoters of a historical movement cannot consider themselves directly responsible for what they have brought about. “Responsibility” in history is always twofold.¹⁹

Accordingly, the trace of the “transfigurations” indicated by Löwith can also be considered as the basic presupposition of any inquiry that seeks to investigate the reception of Joachim in postmodern times. For it provides us with the key to consider modernity transversally, at its crucial points of articulation, up until the time it is outstripped. A transversal perspective is subsequently put

17 Löwith, *Significato e fine della storia*, 205.

18 Ibid., 208.

19 Ibid., 283.

forward in the famous two-volume book by Henri de Lubac.²⁰ While representing an essential point of reference and unsurpassed repertory, it is spoiled by the declared apologetic anti-Joachimite intent of the author, and by the slightly fragmentary and dispersive nature of the various chapters. Fundamental stages of this process are, in any case, Lessing, Fichte, Schelling, Hegel, and finally, Kierkegaard, Marx, and Nietzsche. These thinkers demonstrate a potent return, more than with the “professional theologians” concerning the imminence of an “absolute eschatological turning point which questions faith itself in the continuity of the history of the world.”²¹ As Jacob Taubes—an author who, together with Löwith, should be considered as a crucial contextual reference—has written, Joachimite theology essentially corresponds to the laws of modernity from its own historical and metaphysical presuppositions:

Joachim captures the essence of the modern era and indicates it as the millennium of the revolution. The new Joachimite calendar and its cutting of history into distinct periods should be considered in relation to the subsequent apocalyptic waves of modernity. Joachim, in following an intrinsic necessity, compares the first wave to the whole apocalyptical flux of the millennium; in doing so, he sets in motion the laws of the modern era. Before this motion, the whole insipid question concerning the beginning of the modern era fades out. The schema “Antiquity-Middle Ages-Modern times” is nothing other than the secularization of the Joachimite prophecy of the three periods of the world: the era of the Father, of the Son, and of the Holy Spirit. Each revolutionary eschatology from Joachim onwards holds that beyond Antiquity and the Middle Ages, which were nothing other than prehistory, something definite begins: namely the third reign, the time of the Holy Spirit in which fulfillment takes place.²²

20 Henri de Lubac, *La posterità spirituale di Gioacchino da Fiore*, 2 vols., trans. F. di Ciacca (Milan, 1981–1984).

21 Löwith, *Significato e fine della storia*, 282. “This ideal continuity, from Joachim to Lessing and Nietzsche, demonstrates at least one thing; namely, the stupefying vitality of the vision of Joachim and in general of the Christian tradition. The mere fact that Christianity presents itself as a *new* Testament, which replaces the *old* by carrying out its promises, necessarily invites further progress and innovation, that are religious or irreligious or anti-religious. Hence the possible derivation of secular irreligion of progress from its theological model,” 283.

22 Jacob Taubes, *Escatologia occidentale*, (ed.) E. Stimilli (Milan, 1997), 113.

The very sense of feeling “modern,” the self-science that is proper for modernity, coincides and is grounded in the bursting forth of the novelty (*novum*) of Joachim of Fiore’s message—especially the new actuality that he gives to the spirit of the Judeo-Christian utopia in history.

Taubes’ evaluation, though starting from the same presuppositions as Löwith, ends by diverging from the latter in a substantial way. Taubes is not merely interested in searching for the lost theological roots of modernity, but is mostly intent on examining the essential relation he has brought to light: the relation between the Joachimite prophecy and the persistence, in postmodernism, of a philosophy of history with a messianic/eschatological direction that does not simply constitute pure dissolution. In a recent work, Elettra Stimilli has expressed with precision and incisiveness the terms of the question:

Just as Löwith is certain, so too is Taubes: the roots of the philosophy of history must be individuated in the theology of history. The latter, from his point of view, should not be understood in a Hegelian sense, as an absolute and definitive secular translation of it: such an interpretation would not be satisfying. The link between the theology of history and the philosophy of history, for Taubes, does not terminate in a surpassing of theology by philosophy.²³

This is the essential point that enables us to understand—on the basis of the significant polarity that exists between the two interpretations—the different modalities in which the presence of Joachim emerges, more or less directly, in contemporary philosophy and theology.²⁴ Stimilli then continues her analysis in the following way:

The point, for Taubes, is that the problem of the philosophy of history and of its end, as Löwith has indeed noted, is not a modern problem. It was posed for the first time at the moment in which philosophy was

23 Elettra Stimilli, “Karl Löwith e Jacob Taubes lettori di Gioacchino da Fiore,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore nella cultura contemporanea, Atti del VI Congresso internazionale di studi gioachimiti* (23–25 September 2004), (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà, (Opere de Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 17 (Rome, 2005), 245f.

24 “*Meaning in History*, actually, was published two years after *Occidental Eschatology*. It is not important to know whether Löwith knew of Taubes’ work, or whether Taubes knew of Löwith’s work before publishing the *Eschatology*. Rather, what is important is the fact that precisely by recognizing the order of priorities, Taubes distances himself from Löwith and his critique of the theological roots of the philosophy of history,” E. Stimilli, “Karl Löwith e Jacob Taubes lettori di Gioacchino da Fiore,” 246.

confronted with the “need for revelation of the Judeo-Christian God,” that is to say, with “a new concept of truth, which is, for philosophy, the revelation of Judaism and Christianity.” This is the first great breach that took place in Western thought. This new concept of truth, which is no longer objective, but consubstantial with the same way of being of the subject, and which, according to Taubes, is what one experiences in a Christian life, coincides with the experience of time as “a time limit” (*Frist*), of which Joachim has also been a spokesman.²⁵

8.3 Truth, Revelation, History

In searching for such a deep theological and existential understanding of Joachim's works, and for the traces of his enduring presence and his significant re-emergence throughout the period, which, from the 19th to the 20th century, has marked the decline and surpassing of modernity, there could be new, unexplored, and surprising ramifications to discover that go beyond the explicit references to his works and thought. As Buonaiuti once wrote:

Impatiently extended towards the coming liberation of the Spirit, Joachim thus understands the world of transcendent realities, like the revealed and historical past, as immense parables, through which one should grasp the innermost signification and characteristic values. Everything, in the word of God, entrusted to the Scriptures ... must be understood as a prodigious interlacing of symbols and sacraments, whose unveiled reality will be solely possessed only in the new Reign of the Spirit, whereas, until now, it has remained obscure and indecipherable.²⁶

The anxiety to “possess the truth” beyond every rational or linguistic veil that emerges in many places in Joachim's writings testifies to the transformation from the Hellenistic/Augustinian concept of truth as “illumination” to the Jewish concept of truth as action and fulfillment. For as Taubes himself has suggested, Joachim had the courage to restore, for the first time, to the concept of truth its historical/temporal concrete connotation, which it possesses from the Jewish perspective, and which had been gradually overshadowed by the

25 Ibid., 247. The reference to Taubes is extracted from: “Intervista a Jacob Taubes,” in *Messianismo e cultura*, (ed.) E. Stimilli (Milan, 2001), 397.

26 Buonaiuti, *Gioacchino da Fiore*, 189.

prevailing model of Hellenizing philosophy. Thus, according to Sergio Quinzio, a Christian should “de-Hellenize theology” even today:

De-Hellenizing theology signifies, in effect, transferring it from the metaphysical horizon in which it was thought out, to the horizon of the before, the after, and the intermediate time between the before and the after. It signifies restoring it to the temporal and historical horizon of the biblical revelation from which, through consolidation and development, it came to be more and more detached.²⁷

The de-Hellenization of theology was thus undertaken for the first time by Joachim of Fiore at the dawn of modernity, precisely through the re-visitation of the concept of truth, which reacquires in his works, as Löwith has recognized, “an open horizon and an essential historicity.”²⁸ This is an important acknowledgement that would cause the work of the Calabrian abbot to resonate among authors of Jewish origin in a special way throughout the 20th century.

For Joachim, the truth does not present itself as a theoretical object, a logical definition, or a concept. For what he was interested in is not—as in the case of Greek philosophers and blossoming contemporary scholastic philosophy—the construction of a categorical, precise structure articulated in an Aristotelian manner and followed into logical connections that succeed in comprehending every possible fact and implication of the concept. For Joachim Fiore, the truth is rather an *Event*: it is the historical coming to be of the revelation, the manifestation, the prophecies contained in the Revelation of the Living God becoming concrete and visible. It is the historical experience of truth—what it promises and what is expected of it—which is diametrically opposed to the fundamental, “logical” declination that the concept of truth has always had in Western philosophical tradition from the very beginning. In this diametrical opposition, it grafts itself—as Taubes has rightly noted—onto another tradition, which also belongs to the most ancient legacies of the West: namely, Judaism.

In the passage from the Hebrew term *emèt* to the Greek *aletheia* and then to the Latin *veritas* (“truth”), an important semantic shedding away takes place, which is necessary to examine in order to understand the original meaning, otherwise lost, of the Judeo-Christian expectation and faith. In translating *emèt* with the word *aletheia*, there is a fundamental discrepancy in meaning,

²⁷ Sergio Quinzio, *Radici ebraiche del moderno* (Milan, 1990), 97.

²⁸ Löwith, *Significato e fine della storia*, 210.

which runs the risk of betraying and abandoning, almost imperceptibly, what was the real domain of Jewish revelation and its historical experience of truth. This domain is quite distant from the philosophical context, which was being constituted in Greece and to which Joachim of Fiore decidedly returns. It is by virtue of this return to Jewish roots that what was discarded in the passage from *emèt* to *aletheia* is, perhaps for the first time, traced back to a crucial historical moment: namely, the time of the slow waning of medieval civilization and the dawn of the modern era. As Sergio Quinzio explains:

... the Hebrew word that we translated as “truth” is “*emèt*,” but the constellation of meanings that such a word indicates is very far from the one indicated by “*aletheia*.” In Greece, we encounter a way of thinking that separates the essential from the contingent, the subject from the object; we encounter, in any case, the truth as referred to knowledge. “*Emèt*,” on the other hand, means, first and foremost, “firmness,” “stability,” in reference to a person or thing: in reference to words, uttered or written, it signifies “truth” but in the sense of “credibility,” “certainty”... He who behaves with constant faithfulness, with truthfulness, affirms the truth. The truth of God is his faithfulness to that which he mercifully promises.²⁹

To go back from *aletheia* to *emèt* thus entails reaffirming a stronger “moral” sense of truth tied to the human capacity for proving oneself “faithful” and “truthful”; constant in feelings and promises, in the image of the Living God who ties His promise of salvation to a pact of faithfulness with His people.

For, behold, I create new heavens and a new earth.
the former shall not be remembered, nor come into mind.
But be ye glad and rejoice forever in that which I create:
for, behold, I create Jerusalem a rejoicing,
and her people a joy.
I will rejoice in Jerusalem, and joy in my people;
the voice of weeping shall be no more heard in her, nor the voice of
crying. (Is. 65:17–19)

After quoting, among other prophetic testimonies, this passage from Isaiah in his *Adversus Iudeos*, Joachim thus exhorts the chosen people: “Now is the time to show the Scriptures. But, so that you will not be scandalized by the words of

29 Sergio Quinzio, *La croce e il nulla* (Milan, 1984), 23. On the Hebrew term *emèt*, cf. G. Busi, *Simboli del pensiero ebraico* (Turin, 1999), 45–49.

life, I announce to you that the time of your consolation is near.”³⁰ For Joachim, truth thus fundamentally coincides with revelation: the place of its manifestation and opening of what constitutes the intimate essence, until now “veiled” and denied, of the history of God and man. *Truth as Apocalypse*: an opening, at once glorious and terrible, of the “seals” which inscribe to the eons of historical time the undeniable truth of eternity, which indicate and prefigure—*ut per speculum in aenigmate*—his last *Event*. It is the truth of a *God who comes*, who in both the bright and obscure mystery of his Trinity wants—following Taubes’s indication—to burn with illuminating sense the darkness in which human history is covered:

Revelation is the subject of history, history is the predicate of revelation. The revelation is the fire that illuminates the gap between God and the world. The burning flames reach halfway across the sky, and in the world there reign shadows and darkness. In the fire of the revelation you can hear the voice of God, but you cannot see a single form. The revelation is nothing other than the voice of God. The voice of God, however, throws out flames. Man cannot open up a passageway to God and see him, otherwise he would end up burning. Only at a further stage will man be able to see God, but not face to face. For no man who beholds the face of God can live.³¹

Figures of time: of the truth of a historical time that is made from the matter of its last dissolution. The way of thinking through images, which again Taubes shows to be the only necessary way to attempt to utter the unutterable, to make room for the prophecy of a time beyond time, of a “figure” of truth that cannot be represented but shines out and is consumed in the fire of revelation. “The revelation is the subject of history, history is the predicate of revelation”: it is precisely in the relation between revelation and history that the Judeo-Christian concept of truth should be re-evaluated. For, being accustomed to thinking of truth in light of traditional philosophy that has always presented it in rationalizing terms, through definitions and categories, we have been thus brought back. We have jumped backwards from *aletheia* to *emèt*, seeing truth as belonging to the strict correlation between revelation and history. In this place, revelation and history are in a perpetual state of tension: it is impossible

30 Joachim of Fiore, *Adversus Iudeos (Agli Ebrei)*, trans. M. Iiritano (Soveria Mannelli, 1998), 187 (the translation follows the critical edition of Arsenio Frugoni, *Adversus Iudeos* [Rome, 1957]).

31 Taubes, *Escatologia occidentale*, 27f.

to leave aside one or the other, and at the same time, to reduce the distance between them, which only the apocalyptic *Event* will be able to completely eliminate.

Revelation and history tend to establish themselves as subject and predicate. But this really happens only at the precise moment (*kairos*) in which God calls, and his voice—which is revelation—reaches us at the horizon of historical time: the precise moment in which the revelation yields itself to history. At all the other moments in which historical time becomes stretched, the two terms remain in this perpetual and suppressed state of tension, trapped within a distance that discloses the space of hermeneutics and theology, but which also conceals the possibility of the truth suddenly bursting out.

From the perspective of the Jewish tradition, this is the moment where one runs the risk of employing categories of logic in order to renew the link between revelation and history, which, here and now, seems to be inevitably broken. It is a risk because it is indeed in this irreducible need to “interpret,” to wonder, and to experiment with the truth that the origin and the sense of our historical existence consists of, with which we try desperately and humanely to reconcile ourselves.

Indeed, the relation appears to depend on a free and gratuitous “self-giving” of the revelation, which cannot be predetermined by man in any way. This is an intermittent self-giving, which is often also contradictory, and thus it does not exclude, but rather immediately leaves space for interpretation, questions, and doubt. History, since it is never perfectly conjoined with its own truth and never clearly illuminated by the light of revelation, appears in this way: as the place of inevitable distancing from this historical experience of the truth, of the truthfulness and faithfulness of God towards more humanely edifying results founded on the pride and freedom of reason. And this is, in the end, our history: the history of philosophy and of Western culture, whose destiny of secularization appears to us now, according to Taubes’ perspective, in a different light still capable of inhabiting the sense of our historical existence. As Berdyaev has written:

The idea of the “historian” was introduced into world history by the Jews, and I think that the fundamental mission of the Jewish people was that of introducing into the history of the human spirit the consciousness of historical becoming, instead of the circular movement imagined by the Hellenes. The ancient Jewish conscience always thought of this process in relation to messianism, to the Messianic idea. The Jewish conscience, in contrast to the Hellenic, was always oriented towards the future, to what was to come: it was a spasmodic expectation of some great event

that was to decide the destinies of nations, the destiny of Israel. The Jewish conscience thought of the whole of world history not like a closed circle. The very idea of history was associated with the expectation that in the future there will be some event that will resolve history.³²

The claim, which is abundantly demonstrated and made explicit further on in the text, leads us yet again (as we have already seen in Löwith's *Meaning in History*) towards the diametrical opposition—between Athens and Jerusalem—which lies at the core of Western civilization and extends, unresolved, across the arch of modernity. This is an opposition that enables us to re-read Joachim of Fiore today from a theoretical perspective that has been re-proposed with great authority in 20th-century philosophy, primarily in a Jewish context. Taubes has written:

In the confusion that surrounds the sense of history, there is no criterion to be found in single events. Rather, one should leave aside all events and ask: what makes an occurrence history? What is history itself? A criterion and a position on the question concerning the essence of history can be traced only if one investigates from the *eschaton*. For in the *eschaton*, history outstrips its own limit and becomes visible to itself.³³

The *Theses on the Philosophy of History* by Walter Benjamin represents, from this point of view, the most daring and theoretically refined reassessment—in open contrast to the Western philosophical tradition and with the paradoxes of postmodernism—of Jewish messianism in its purest form. In an exemplary passage of the work, the German philosopher writes the following: “Just as flowers turn their heads towards the sun, thus, by the force of a secret heliotropism, all that has been tends to turn towards *the* sun that rises in the sky of history.”³⁴

This is a key passage that hints at the “figure” of the messianic idea: a prophetic figure that once again attempts to connect aestheticism and eschatology, as was the case with Joachim's *Liber Figurarum*. In the image of secret heliotropism, the meaning of the past is revealed, which is in fact the meaning of the messianic experience of history: a past considered to be “charged with actuality” and thus one that cannot be abandoned to historiographers and

32 N. Berdjajev, *Il senso della storia*, trans. P. Modesto and A. Dell'Asta (Milan, 1971), 32.

33 Taubes, *Escatologia occidentale*, 23.

34 Walter Benjamin, “Theses on the Philosophy of History”; Italian edition: “Tesi di filosofia della storia,” in *Angelus Novus*, trans. R. Solmi (Turin, 1981), 77.

left to wither away in archives and museums. Rather, it is necessary to constantly *make it present*, to *re-actualize it*.³⁵ There is indeed a “weak messianic force”³⁶ that resides precisely in the capacity of making present—through “rememorization”³⁷—that which has been, by restoring to the past its charge of actuality. For “all which has been” moves silently, imperceptibly—by the force of a secret heliotropism that can be affirmed and prophesied—“towards *the sun which rises in the sky of history*.” In this last image, the authentically Jewish sense of the imminent arrival of truth, and of its close *advent* in history, returns.

The messianic event marks the breach from the chronological “continuum” in which historical temporality is extended with catastrophic indifference. “The catastrophe,” writes Benjamin, “is that everything continues like before” since “it is not that which, each time, is looming, but that which, each time, is given.”³⁸ To think of history along this logical *continuum* between past, present, and future thus means to empty it of any possible sense, of any possible truth. History can have a sense for us if we have the boldness and the courage to think of it as infinitely “open” at every moment³⁹ towards the imminent outburst of the ultimate truth that will finally be able to transfigure it in its totality—like *the sun*.

35 On this point, Taubes writes: “That which has been is not the past” (*Thesis IV*); “The characteristic tendency of what has been is *not something apparent* ... The characteristic tendency of what has been, always being in a state of tension, is a constitutive element that Benjamin connects to the theory according to which what has been is not something separate, but produces effects continuously. It yearns for redemption,” J. Taubes, “Le ‘Tesi di filosofia della storia’ di Walter Benjamin,” in *Il prezzo del messianesimo*, trans. E. Stimilli (Macerata, 2000), 90f.

36 Cf. Benjamin, “Tesi di filosofia della storia,” 76.

37 Such is, Benjamin writes, the theological power of “rememorization”: “that which science has ‘established’ can be modified by rememorization. For rememorization can make from an incompleteness (happiness) a completeness and from completeness (pain) an incompleteness. This is theology, but with rememorization we experience something that prevents us from conceiving history in a fundamentally atheological way,” Walter Benjamin, *Sul concetto di storia*, trans. G. Bonola and M. Ranchetti (Turin, 1997), 121f.

38 *Ibid.*, 123.

39 In the famous final passage of the *Theses*, Benjamin writes: “It is well-known that the Jews were forbidden to investigate the future. The *thorà* and prayers taught them, however, memory. This liberated them from their fascination with the future, to which those who seek information with the forecasters are subjected. But it is not because of this that the future became a homogenous and empty time for the Jews. For at every second there was a little door through which the Messiah could enter,” Benjamin, “Tesi di filosofia della storia,” 86.

"The pretty story that the historian of the past puts forward, breathless, comes from a mouth that, perhaps already at the very moment it opens, speaks to the void":⁴⁰ for what it does is to simply empty and annihilate the sense of what has been, turning it into a "pretty story," an explanation, a narrative. History, or the past, is rather true in its incompleteness and its unhappiness because it still contains a charge of actuality within it; an essential reserve of meaning that has yet to *come true*. For becoming true does not only belong to the present, but also, and even more importantly, to the past.

It is then that Paul Klee's *Angelus Novus* becomes, in the eyes of Walter Benjamin, a "figure of time"—a prophetic image that pushes the limits of aesthetical representation.⁴¹ It is an emblematic figure of a way of thinking about history starting from the future: not in a purely teleological suspension, but rather on the more truthful basis of memory which—precisely from the "historic/prophetic method" of Joachimite exegesis—is the "memory of the future" (*memoria futuri*) and no longer, as with Augustine, the "memory of the self" (*memoria sui*). If for Augustine what is important is to save *interiority* as the place for revelation, for Joachim—who views history rather as the place for revelation—what is essential is to save the *signs of the times* from the dispersion of the present. Memory is thus no longer the place for *presence* but the place for *hope*.

At this point, it is clear how the actuality and the presence of the thought and person of Joachim of Fiore in postmodern times can be found in the echoes and in the most diverse contexts of similar conceptualizations of eschatological/messianic views of history, or of truth as historical experience. This conception consists in this prophetic perspective that thinks of history as something still to come; that is, not simply the history that will come about, but *all* of history. History is thus placed in a state of tension in relation to the imminence of this ontological rejection, in relation to a time beyond time—the *third status* for the Joachimites, which is still history yet already beyond history. This is the *time of truth*, or better still, truth that becomes *time* and *must come* in order to actualize not only the potentialities which have not been

40 Ibid., 77.

41 "There is a painting by Klee called *Angelus Novus*. There is an angel who seems to be moving away from something his eyes are fixed on. His eyes are wide open, his mouth agape, his wings extended. The angel of history must look like this. His face is turned toward the past. Where we see a chain of events, he sees one single catastrophe, ceaselessly piling up ruin after ruin, which is knocked down at the angel's feet. He would like to stop, wake the dead, and recompose what has been broken. But a storm drives him irresistibly towards the future, to which he turns his back, whilst the accumulation of ruins grows in front of him, reaching to the sky. What we call progress is this storm ..." Ibid., 80.

actualized in the present, but also all the possibilities of truth that the past bore and still bears hidden within it.

"The only way to preserve the sense of the concept of God," Nietzsche wrote, "would be to conceive of God *not* as an efficient force, but as a *peak*, an epoch ... a stage within the development of the will for power on the basis of which one could explain both the subsequent course of events and what led to it."⁴² In his revolutionary interpretation of the Trinity as history, culminating with the prophecy of the imminence of the Age of the Spirit, Joachim of Fiore seems to subscribe more than any other figure to this Nietzschean imperative.⁴³ In his *Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti*, as in all his other works, the figures of the Old Testament are set in a continual state of tension with the figures of the New Testament, just as the events of the history of Israel, of which those figures are the apocalyptic seals of truth, are placed in a state of tension with the events of the present and future history of the Christian people. This creates a hermeneutical and messianic parallelism in which it is not simply what comes after that clarifies what comes before, but in which two periods of history share a reciprocal need for truth that only the imminence of the "peak" indicated by Nietzsche will be able to reveal. This is the moment when, as Joachim stresses, we will no longer need to worry "beyond any perfection, given that we will already have, in the truth of reality, that which for now we hold fast to as the grounding of our hope."⁴⁴ For, as Benjamin has written, "the messianic world is the world of universal and integral actuality."⁴⁵

The messianic tension thus becomes in this way the main argument of an apologia that coincides with the apocalypse⁴⁶ and which becomes the main

42 Friedrich Nietzsche, *Frammenti postumi 1887–1888*, trans. S. Giammetta (Milan, 1971), VII: tome II, 177f., n. 10.

43 Löwith also identified this significant resonance between Joachim of Fiore and Nietzsche: "It was Nietzsche who, by presenting it as a 'philosophy of the future,' dared to write a new Gospel called *Zarathustra*. The key to his systematic interpretation is found in the first speech 'Of the Three Metamorphoses,' represented by the allegorical figures of a camel, a lion, and a child. The 'you must' of the camel is the law of the Bible, the 'I want' of the lion is the partial freedom of modern times, and the 'I am' of the cosmic child is the future freedom in which the necessity of an existence reconciled with God, and therefore with the world, is completely resolved," Löwith, *Significato e fine della storia*, 282.

44 Joachim of Fiore, *Liber introductorius*, trans. in *Introduzione all'Apocalisse*, (ed.) K-V. Selge, trans. G.L. Potestà (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: testi e strumenti) 6 (Rome, 1995), 27; cf. *Expositio in Apocalypsim* 2, fol. 106 a (Venice, 1527).

45 Benjamin, *Sul concetto di storia*, 95.

46 Cf. Bruno Forte, "Apologetica come apocalittica: attualità teologica di Gioacchino nel tempo post-moderno," in Id., "Gioacchino da Fiore tra memoria e anticipazione," *Florentia* 3–4 (1989–1990), 19 ff.

path toward reconciliation between Judaism and Christianity. The hermeneutics of concord serve to obtain this acknowledgement and the reconstitution of a dramatically lacerated unity, which is on the verge of recomposing itself in the final transfiguration: "... this tribulation must be carried out in correspondence with the Friday in which the Lord suffered the Passion, and the concord between the two Testaments attests out loud, through the mediation of the facts that came to pass in them, that we have reached the confines."⁴⁷ Therefore, the method of concord becomes one with the eschatological/apocalyptic interpretation of the present moment, and it is the imminence of the *eschaton* that renders more urgent the recognition of the single "spiritual" signification hidden in the "two signifiers" of the Old and the New Testament—"Therefore two expressions are one sign: two Testaments are one spiritual understanding" (*Duo igitur significantia sunt unum significatum: duo Testamenta unus spiritualis intellectus*).⁴⁸

The prophecy of the *third status* is precisely the dream of a humanity finally reconciled with the spirit of the faith, which awaits and calls to the last horizon of history. Moving in this direction without losing sight of the characteristic signification of Löwith's "double *eschaton*," the Joachimite exhortation enables us to reconstruct the broken link of the Christian tradition with its Jewish roots:⁴⁹ a prophetic novelty whose influence is understood—as we have attempted to show, following Taubes—through a radical reconsideration of the concept of truth that is at work here.

8.4 Beyond the "Historical Sickness" of Modernity: Postmodernism

"Modernity, in comparison with the philosophy that has preceded it, has, on the one hand, extrapolated the 'historicity' of events ... whilst on the other hand, it has parenthesized the expression 'eternity,' making it coincide *de facto*

47 *Enchiridion super Apocalypsim*, (ed.) E.K. Burger (Toronto, 1986); trans. A. Tagliapietra in *Gioacchino da Fiore. Sull'apocalisse* (Milan, 1994), 164–65.

48 E. Randolph Daniel, (ed.), *Abbot Joachim of Fiore: Liber de Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti* 1–4 (Transactions of the American Philosophical Society) 73, Part 8 (Philadelphia, 1983); *Concordia Noui ac Veteris Testamenti* 5.2, fol. 18 b (Venice, 1519). Cf. Joachim of Fiore, *Liber Figurarum*, in Leone Tondelli, Marjorie Reeves, and Beatrice Hirsch-Reich, *Il libro delle figure dell'abate Gioacchino da Fiore*, 2 vols., 2nd ed. (Turin, 1953), Table 18.

49 On the historic/prophetic figure of this fusion, cf. Table 11 of the *Liber Figurarum*, where it is extraordinary to learn that the fusion of the history of Israel and the history of the Church comes about not through Christ but already at the time of Uzziah: "quando Ysaia non quasi propheta, sed potius evangelista predicavit."

with the historical movement itself.”⁵⁰ Herein lies a paradoxical coincidence that remains forever incomplete and that no philosophy of history has ever completely managed—neither in theory nor in practice—to resolve and eliminate. Yet its undisputed “father” has always been regarded, rightly or wrongly, as we have tried to show, Joachim of Fiore. As Marramao goes on to assert:

The two complex and comprehensive 19th-century conceptions of the “historical process”—i.e. that of Hegel and Marx’s “philosophy of the praxis”—have precisely tried to avert this contraction by interpreting the movement of becoming not as unilinear time ... but like a stratified compound of persistence and change.

But the paradox emerges inevitably:

... and if in Hegel, this paradox manifests itself in the great heresy of a (rational) Absolute of becoming, in Marx it is re-identified in the attribution to *praxis* of all the prerogatives that a classical metaphysical onto-theology attributed rather to *poiesis*.⁵¹

There are thus ineradicable and recurring contradictions that constitute the very impetus to the movement of the modern world and its persistent restlessness. Everything begins from that grounding operation I referred to earlier, through which “historical time,” following a future-oriented, progressive direction, tends to acquire the value of an Absolute, itself the very idea of eternity and redemption. The modern concept of history thus appears like a “creation of prophetism,” and the great conceptualizations of history in the 19th century do not ultimately succeed in freeing themselves from that original prophetic spirit conveyed most clearly by Joachim of Fiore.

The “historical sickness” that postmodernism inherits as a legacy thus appears as the result of this horizontal and secular distension of Christian eschatology. This eschatology is inaugurated by Joachimite theology and in particular by the expectation of the Age of the Spirit as a conclusive and redemptive stage of the history of the revelation, deprived of its constitutive reference to that “double *eschaton*,” which, soon enough, shall be completely forgotten. This is thus a gradual historical purge of the sacred, which consists in directing eschatological thought towards the “penultimate things,” rather than

50 Giacomo Marramao, “Sacer/sanctus/sanctio. Lo spazio del potere tra tempo della tradizione e tempo della secolarizzazione,” *Religione e Società* 2, no. 3 (1987), 61.

51 Ibid.

towards the ultimate. This produces, in the words of Löwith, an intensification of the secular effort “in the direction of a definitive solution of problems that cannot be resolved at their own level and by their own means.”⁵² The postmodern space thus opens at the moment when such a path is already completed, since “the process of secularization has led to the conception of the very object of the divine promise, of biblical hope, as the aim of historical development and ultimately, as confirmation already carried out of its realization.”⁵³

Here is the portrayal of a desolate empty space that coincides with the time of nihilism prophesized by Nietzsche and that should by now consider the echo of the Joachimite message as distant and estranged from certain aspects. But from the perspective of the Italian philosopher Gianni Vattimo, this is not the case. On the contrary, it is precisely in the space opened by such a gradual consummation of biblical hope—which for Vattimo coincides with the dissolution of metaphysics—that, paradoxically, the prophetic actuality of the Trinitarian theology of Joachim of Fiore can “be verified”:

To conceive of modernity as secularization and thus as an internal and “logical” development of the Judeo-Christian revelation, and then to see its philosophical upshot in the dissolution of metaphysics and the emergence of being as an event, is to read the signs of the times in the wake of Joachim of Fiore and his spiritual followers, such as Novalis, Schelling, and Schleiermacher.⁵⁴

Following this hermeneutical direction, Joachim becomes, alongside Nietzsche and Girard, one of the fundamental references for understanding postmodernism and the destiny of the sacred within it. Indeed, precisely through this parallelism—between the history of the revelation as a gradual “weakening” and dissolution of the strong structures of transcendence, and the Heideggerian history of metaphysics as a gradual concealment and weakening of Being—the prophecy of the Age of the Spirit would seem to find its unexpected fulfillment. “The hypothesis which I am seeking to clarify and to corroborate,” Vattimo writes,

is that it is precisely the secularization of thought and of modern society, which constitutes also the sense of the end of metaphysics and of the “discovery” of being as an event, destined to weaken, that today we must

52 Löwith, *Significato e fine della storia*, 212.

53 Quinzio, *Mysterium Iniquitatis* (Milan, 1995), 69.

54 Vattimo, *Dopo la Cristianità* (Turin, 2002), 40.

look to the spirit of Joachim; the signs of the Age of the Spirit are comparable to what was the birth of Benedictine monasticism for the Calabrian abbot.⁵⁵

Therefore, in the aftermath of secularization it would be paradoxically possible to interpret the advent of postmodernism as the definite realization of the prophecy of an age in which every structural necessity is dissolved. In this age, even the transcendence of God is resolved and fulfilled for good—in the sign of the incarnation—in a world in which “it is possible to be Christian despite the Church”:

Until now, the actuality of Joachim appears thus tied to the fundamental “discovery” of the constitutive historicity of the revelation, which we see as corresponding to the eventual nature of the being receiving post-metaphysical philosophy. This “discovery,” needless to say, has in philosophy the same characteristics of the prophecy of the Third Age as in Joachim: the end of metaphysics is an event that is announced, demands to be recognized, and in this manner, is also brought forward and into action, or at least made explicit in terms of its being the guiding line of our choices ... The text of Joachim serves as a guide and we can risk thinking that the long process of secularization, which has been hoped for since the historical time of the Calabrian abbot, has been the fulfillment of the conditions that bring us closer to the advent of the Third Age.⁵⁶

This passage is a “positive” interpretation of secularization that leads to an exaltation of its “results” in paradoxically religious terms. These are supposed to follow, according to Vattimo’s intentions, the lesson taught by many theologies that have also regarded secularization in positive terms. Barth, Bonhoeffer, Cox, Van Buren, and Altizer are therefore cited as possible representatives of the purely theological legacy of the teachings of Joachim, which are otherwise not so easy to search for. Rather than distinguishing between the reception of Joachim in the texts and authors who refer to him most explicitly, it seems to me much more interesting to attempt to understand what his concrete theological legacy might be today. Thus, in the words of Massimo Naro, an important author who examines the reception of Joachim in 20th-century theology, the question essentially concerns the “continuity and the discontinuity

55 Ibid., 38f.

56 Ibid., 35.

there is between the theology of the Calabrian abbot and contemporary theologies.”⁵⁷

Thus, in addition to the so-called “theologians of secularization” or to “the death of God” already quoted in part by Vattimo, the reference to Bonhoeffer seems particularly significant. His attempt to think a “non-religious Christianity” and to live out his faith in a world where “although God may not be a given” (*etsi Deus non daretur*) could indeed be reinterpreted precisely in terms of the “spiritual” religiosity that characterizes the third Joachimite age, interpreted not merely in contemplative terms. But on the path to such an interesting “postmodern eschatology,” as Matthias Riedl has rightly defined it, we stray far from what is still Joachim’s unexpressed theological actuality capable of revealing, rather than ignoring, its most specific apocalyptic/eschatological value.

“Were this to be the case,” writes Bruno Forte in direct reference to the purely secularizing translations of the Joachimite message:

... the temporal becoming would absorb the Trinity; history would turn out to be the verification and ultimate interpreter of the dogma, and the Trinitarian God would serve the worldly experience. The path of the self-realization of man, presented through the highest forms of gnosis with the variety of its recurring seasons, would be, in effect, the only alternative to the Fall. Were this to be the case, though, the deepest inspirational drive of the Joachimite vision would be lost, namely the Christian conception of life and history, and thus hope in the penultimate, based on what is ultimate and transcendent. Joachim is and remains a monk who held the Eternal close to his heart and dared to think of it as the only indestructible grounding of the becoming of time.⁵⁸

The words of this theologian, who perhaps more than anyone else has referred to the Joachimite message and to his Trinitarian doctrine in a Catholic context, help us on this point by allowing for a different interpretation of the significant continuity that exists between Joachim of Fiore and contemporary theology. This continuity should be examined in greater depth and with more precision than the brief treatment given here in the conclusion to this article. The following excerpt from Massimo Naro’s essay, however, already constitutes an important beginning for such a study:

57 Massimo Naro, “Gioacchino da Fiore nella teologia del Novecento,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore nella cultura contemporanea*, (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà, 254.

58 Forte, *Presentazione*, in Joachim of Fiore, *Adversus Iudeos* (*Agli Ebrei*).

In the forest of symbols and in the game of metaphors in the Joachimite works, we are confronted with nothing other than the existential force of the salvation of the faith in the Christian God, and the relation between hope and apocalyptic expectation that characterizes redeemed existence. And this is good news also for the spiritual crisis of our insecure postmodernism, going far beyond and more seriously than the cheap reassurances that are so in fashion nowadays.⁵⁹

Thus, the postmodern actuality of Joachimite inspiration is translated in terms with a strong existential connotation, as had already been the case, in some way, in the works of Ernesto Buonaiuti and Eric Voegelin as well. It was the German scholar who was the first to indicate—in definitively “tragic” terms—the existing dichotomy between the secularizing translations of Joachimite “symbols” and the original apocalyptic inspiration of the author. This is a serious and succinct consideration of the possible harmful consequences of setting up the “complex of symbols” as political immanence coming from Joachim’s Trinitarian eschatology, “on which, up until today, the self-interpretation of modern political society is founded.”⁶⁰ Voegelin’s reading enables one to trace the final consequences of Joachim’s contribution to the founding and the fulfillment of the political experience of modernity up to its final, tragic epilogue with Nazi-Fascist ideology. At the same time, it enables us to “save,” as Forte has indicated, the authentic apocalyptic kernel of his message, which, precisely from that tragic epilogue, was able to re-emerge in all its clarity. Indeed, as Matthias Riedl has pointed out:

Voegelin observes how the symbolism of Joachim, who, in his spiritual orientation is still set on the next world, is reproduced in the “worldly religions” of modernity. We are confronted with the same danger that subsisted for the conceptions of the hierarchy originally oriented towards the next world: the apocalyptic interpretation of the world can open to secularization and therefore to Evil ... The scientific pathos of enlightenment is then responsible for deicide, which consists of the negation of the fulfillment of the next world and in moving the perfection of the human being and of society to this world. The symbols of Joachim remain, but lose their spiritual signification.⁶¹

59 Naro, “Gioacchino da Fiore nella teologia del Novecento,” 9.

60 Eric Voegelin, *La nuova scienza politica* (Turin, 1968), 182.

61 Matthias Riedl, “Gioacchino da Fiore padre della modernità: le tesi di Eric Voegelin,” in *Gioacchino da Fiore nella cultura contemporanea*, (ed.) Gian Luca Potestà, 226.

Thus, there is no place for a “positive” conception of secularization and its “religious” signification since “the secularization of the apocalypse,” as Riedl explains, “is, for Voegelin, an example of the drama of human existence that is played out between the search for and the loss of God. This is truly a tragedy.”⁶²

It is here perhaps that new avenues of research on the persistence in theology of the reception of Joachim could develop, going beyond the three categories with which Massimo Naro, in his careful analysis, tries to provide a general overview of the presence of Joachim of Fiore in 20th-century theology.⁶³ For it is precisely in view of his very particular and intense way of understanding—existentially, the exegetical effort, which, in him, is one and the same with the apocalyptic expectation—that so many significant testimonies in theology, philosophy, and literature can be found.

8.5 Conclusion

I am pleased to conclude this article by referring to the testimony of the man who personally led me to rediscover the works of the Calabrian abbot with a decidedly “contemporary” sensibility of faith and thought: the theologian and writer Sergio Quinzio, in whose writings many of the theological perspectives inspired by Joachim (whose traces can lead us back, in particular, to Barth, Moltmann, and Bonhoeffer) find, in my opinion, a rather unique expression. “The modern,” writes Quinzio:

... is tied to the Christian revelation by complex and deep chains. The vision of Joachim of Fiore is one of these ties, and one of the most fascinating. Without the backing of such a powerful prefiguration of future centuries, the modern world would never have been born.⁶⁴

62 Ibid., 227.

63 The author indeed distinguishes between “Joachimistes”—i.e. scholars of Joachim, such as Buonaiuti and de Lubac; “Joachimites”—i.e. theologians who are consciously in direct continuity with Joachim, such as Bruno Forte and Jürgen Moltmann; and finally, a densely populated group of “semi-Joachimites”—i.e. those who, though using the legacy of Joachim more or less consciously, do not acknowledge a direct lineage, such as Barth, Von Balthasar, and Rahner.

64 Sergio Quinzio, “Quel monaco padre di Hegel,” in *Incertezze e provocazioni* (Turin, 1993), 151. This same hermeneutical direction concerning Joachim of Fiore is also present in the other works of Quinzio. Cf. for example *Giudizio sulla storia* (Milan, 1964), 76, 85; *La croce e il nulla*, 93.

It is through such a powerful prefiguration that modernism consumes and dissolves, following a descending *kenotic* parable, the original semantic and prophetic ties. The historical destiny of the Judeo-Christian revelation is thus, from a perspective close to that of Gianni Vattimo, consumed. And yet, Quinzio's conclusion is very far from that of Vattimo since the Calabrian monk seems to him to have inherited, even before his theological vision, a historic/prophetic sensibility in treating the Scriptures. This sensibility still leads him to wonder about the present time given the poor but powerful legacy of that ancient "betrayed" eschatological expectation—both preserved and rejected—of modernity.⁶⁵

An existential testimony of the actuality of that expectation, with its tragic and consoling value as "fear and tremor," is something for which many other interpreters and scholars of Joachim of Fiore could give significant proof, starting from Buonaiuti, who writes:

This corroborating certainty that the Father is not far from us but continuously behind us to support the fragile string of our transient existence: this adamant certainty that the paternity of God did not only operate once, at the mythical origins of the world, but is continuously in action in the dramatic explication of cosmic life, leads automatically to an apocalyptic and eschatological evaluation of life and history, without which we think there is no real religious faith.⁶⁶

Let us end with the lucid and touching confession of Rabbi Jacob Taubes, in whose testimony the essential reasons for a messianic expectation still capable of raising a deep sense of prophetic correspondence between Jews and Christians, which was so dear to Joachim of Fiore and to Quinzio, seem to converge:

Today, the experience of the ultimate end is without doubt an overwhelming experience, and with the contingent menace of the atomic destruction of the world, it has also become universal ... If, in general, we

65 "I think that the Joachimite conception provides us today, first and foremost, with the occasion to rethink eschatological, messianic, apocalyptic, and millenaristic themes, which, often in unseen ways and usually without an appropriate theological analysis, are a fundamental element throughout the centuries of Western history. Contemporary theology and exegesis have reacted to the radical de-eschatology carried out by modern criticism of religion and faith, which has culminated in liberal theology. The main contemporary authors have indeed elaborated an eschatological doctrine," Sergio Quinzio, "L'apocalisse come rottura del tempo," in M. Iiritano, *Apocalisse della Verità* (Naples, 2002), p. 132.

66 E. Buonaiuti, "Il bisogno mondiale della religiosità," *Religio* 14 (1938), 177.

were to think in ancient and pre-Christian terms, we would say that we had, at our disposal, all the times of the world to become loaded with a problem. From the Christian point of view, however, there is no time, for the Reign of God is close at hand. In the affirmation “the Reign of God is close at hand,” it is not important to know what is the reign of God, but the plausibility of its being close. He who believes he is thinking in Christian terms, and thinks he can do so without the ideal of the last term, is mad.⁶⁷

67 Jacob Taubes, “Intervista a Jacob Taubes,” in *Messianismo e cultura*, (ed.) E. Stimilli, 399f.

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